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STUDIA PATRISTICA

VOL. XLVI

Papers presented at the Fifteenth International Conference
on Patristic Studies held
in Oxford 2007

Tertullian to Tyconius
Egypt before Nicaea
Athanasius and his Opponents

Edited by
J. BAUN, A. CAMERON, M. EDWARDS and M. VINZENT

Index Auctorum and Table of Contents of Vols. XLIV-XLIX in Vol. XLIX

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STUDIA PATRISTICA

VOL. XLVI

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Abbreviations

AA.SS	see ASS.
AAWG.PH	Abhandlungen der Akademie der Wissenschaften in Göttingen Philologisch-historische Klasse, Göttingen.
AB	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
AC	Antike und Christentum, ed. F.J. Dölger, Münster.
ACL	Antiquité classique, Louvain.
ACO	Acta conciliorum oecumenicorum, ed. E. Schwartz, Berlin.
ACW	Ancient Christian Writers, ed. J. Quasten and J.C. Plumpe, Westminster (Md.)/London.
AHDLMA	Archives d'histoire doctrinale et littéraire du moyen âge, Paris.
AJAH	American Journal of Ancient History, Cambridge, Mass.
AJP	American Journal of Philology, Baltimore.
AKK	Archiv für katholisches Kirchenrecht, Mainz.
AKPAW	Abhandlungen der königlichen Preußischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, Berlin.
ALMA	Archivum Latinitatis Medii Aevi (Bulletin du Cange), Paris/Brussels.
ALW	Archiv für Liturgiewissenschaft, Regensburg.
AnalBoll	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
ANCL	Ante-Nicene Christian Library, Edinburgh.
ANF	Ante-Nicene Fathers, Buffalo/New York.
ANRW	Aufstieg und Niedergang der römischen Welt, ed H. Temporini *et al.*, Berlin.
AnSt	Anatolian Studies, London.
AnThA	Année théologique augustinienne, Paris.
APOT	Apocrypha and Pseudepigrapha of the Old Testament in English, ed. R.E. Charles, Oxford.
AR	Archivum Romanicum, Florence.
ARW	Archiv für Religionswissenschaft, Berlin/Leipzig.
ASS	Acta Sanctorum, ed. the Bollandists, Brussels.
AThANT	Abhandlungen zur Theologie des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Zürich.
Aug	Augustinianum, Rome.
AugSt	Augustinian Studies, Villanova (USA).
AW	Athanasius Werke, ed. H.-G. Opitz *et al.*, Berlin.
AZ	Archäologische Zeitung, Berlin.
BA	Bibliothèque augustinienne, Paris.
BAC	Biblioteca de Autores Cristianos, Madrid.
BASOR	Bulletin of the American Schools of Oriental Research, New Haven, Conn.
BDAG	A Greek-English Lexicon of the New Testament and Other Early Christian Literature, 3rd edn F.W. Danker, Chicago.
BEHE	Bibliothèque de l'École des Hautes Études, Paris.
BETL	Bibliotheca Ephemeridum Theologicarum Lovaniensium, Louvain.
BGL	Benedictinisches Geistesleben, St. Ottilien.
BHG	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Graeca, Brussels.
BHL	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Latina Antiquae et Mediae Aetatis, Brussels.

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BHO	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Orientalis, Brussels.
BHTh	Beiträge zur historischen Theologie, Tübingen.
BJ	Bursians Jahresbericht über die Fortschritte der klassischen Altertumswissenschaft, Leipzig.
BJRULM	Bulletin of the John Rylands Library, Manchester.
BKV	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. F.X. Reithmayr and V. Thalhofer, Kempten.
BKV2	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. O. Bardenhewer, Th. Schermann, and C. Weyman, Kempten/Munich.
BKV3	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter. Zweite Reihe, ed. O. Bardenhewer, J. Zellinger, and J. Martin, Munich.
BLE	Bulletin de littérature ecclésiastique, Toulouse.
BoJ	Bonner Jahrbücher, Bonn.
BS	Bibliotheca sacra, London.
BSL	Bolletino di studi latini, Naples.
BWAT	Beiträge zur Wissenschaft vom Alten Testament, Leipzig/Stuttgart.
Byz	Byzantion, Brussels.
BZ	Byzantinische Zeitschrift, Leipzig.
BZNW	Beihefte zur Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft, Berlin.
CAr	Cahiers Archéologique, Paris.
CBQ	Catholic Biblical Quarterly, Washington.
CCCM	Corpus Christianorum, Continuatio Mediaevalis, Turnhout/Paris.
CCG	Corpus Christianorum, Series Graeca, Turnhout/Paris.
CCL	Corpus Christianorum, Series Latina, Turnhout/Paris.
CCSA	Corpus Christianorum, Series Apocryphorum, Turnhout/Paris.
CH	Church History, Chicago.
CIL	Corpus Inscriptionum Latinarum, Berlin.
CP(h)	Classical Philology, Chicago.
CPG	Clavis Patrum Graecorum, ed. M. Geerard, vols. I-VI, Turnhout.
CPL	Clavis Patrum Latinorum (SE 3), ed. E. Dekkers and A. Gaar, Turnhout.
CQ	Classical Quarterly, London/Oxford.
CR	The Classical Review, London/Oxford.
CSCO	Corpus Scriptorum Christianorum Orientalium, Louvain. Aeth = Scriptores Aethiopici Ar = Scriptores Arabici Arm = Scriptores Armeniaci Copt = Scriptores Coptici Iber = Scriptores Iberici Syr = Scriptores Syri Subs = Subsidia
CSEL	Corpus Scriptorum Ecclesiasticorum Latinorum, Vienna.
CSHB	Corpus Scriptorum Historiae Byzantinae, Bonn.
CTh	Collectanea Theologica, Lvov.
CUF	Collection des Universités de France publiée sous le patronage de l'Association Guillaume Budé, Paris.
CW	Catholic World, New York.
DAC	Dictionary of the Apostolic Church, ed. J. Hastings, Edinburgh.

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DACL	see DAL
DAL	Dictionnaire d'archéologie chrétienne et de liturgie, ed. F. Cabrol, H. Leclercq, Paris.
DB	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Paris.
DBS	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Supplément, Paris.
DCB	Dictionary of Christian Biography, Literature, Sects, and Doctrines, ed. W. Smith and H. Wace, 4 vols, London.
DHGE	Dictionnaire d'histoire et de géographie ecclésiastique, ed. A. Baudrillart, Paris.
Did	Didaskalia, Lisbon.
DOP	Dumbarton Oaks Papers, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DOS	Dumbarton Oaks Studies, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DR	Downside Review, Stratton on the Fosse, Bath.
DS	H.J. Denzinger and A. Schönmetzer, ed., Enchiridion Symbolorum, Barcelona/Freiburg i.B./Rome.
DSp	Dictionnaire de Spiritualité, ed. M. Viller, S.J., and others, Paris.
DTC	Dictionnaire de théologie catholique, ed. A. Vacant, E. Mangenot, and E. Amann, Paris.
EA	Études augustiniennes, Paris.
ECatt	Enciclopedia Cattolica, Rome.
ECQ	Eastern Churches Quarterly, Ramsgate.
EE	Estudios eclesiasticos, Madrid.
EECh	Encyclopedia of the Early Church, ed. A. Di Berardino, Cambridge.
EKK	Evangelisch-Katholischer Kommentar zum Neuen Testament, Neukirchen.
EH	Enchiridion Fontium Historiae Ecclesiasticae Antiquae, ed. Ueding-Kirch, 6th ed., Barcelona.
EO	Échos d'Orient, Paris.
EtByz	Études Byzantines, Paris.
ETL	Ephemerides Theologicae Lovanienses, Louvain.
EWNT	Exegetisches Wörterbuch zum NT, ed. H.R. Balz *et al.*, Stuttgart.
ExpT	The Expository Times, Edinburgh.
FC	The Fathers of the Church, New York.
FGH	Fragmente der griechischen Historiker, Berlin.
FKDG	Forschungen zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Göttingen.
FRL	Forschungen zur Religion und Literatur des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Göttingen.
FS	Festschrift.
FThSt	Freiburger theologische Studien, Freiburg i.B.
FTS	Frankfurter theologische Studien, Frankfurt a.M.
FZThPh	Freiburger Zeitschrift für Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg/Switzerland.
GCS	Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller, Leipzig/Berlin.
GDV	Geschichtsschreiber der deutschen Vorzeit, Stuttgart.
GLNT	Grande Lessico del Nuovo Testamento, Genoa.
GNO	Gregorii Nysseni Opera, Leiden.

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GRBS	Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
GWV	Geschichte in Wissenschaft und Unterricht, Offenburg.
HbNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament. Tübingen.
HDR	Harvard Dissertations in Religion, Missoula.
HJG	Historisches Jahrbuch der Görresgesellschaft, successively Munich, Cologne and Munich/Freiburg i.B.
HKG	Handbuch der Kirchengeschichte, Tübingen.
HNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
HO	Handbuch der Orientalistik, Leiden.
HSCP	Harvard Studies in Classical Philology, Cambridge, Mass.
HThR	Harvard Theological Review, Cambridge, Mass.
HTS	Harvard Theological Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
HZ	Historische Zeitschrift, Munich/Berlin.
ICC	The International Critical Commentary of the Holy Scriptures of the Old and New Testaments, Edinburgh.
ILCV	Inscriptiones Latinae Christianae Veteres, ed. E. Diehl, Berlin.
ILS	Inscriptiones Latinae Selectae, ed. H. Dessau, Berlin.
J(b)AC	Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum, Münster.
JBL	Journal of Biblical Literature, Philadelphia, Pa., then various places.
JdI	Jahrbuch des Deutschen Archäologischen Instituts, Berlin.
JECS	Journal of Early Christian Studies, Baltimore.
JEH	The Journal of Ecclesiastical History, London.
JJS	Journal of Jewish Studies, London.
JLH	Jahrbuch für Liturgik und Hymnologie, Kassel.
JPTh	Jahrbücher für protestantische Theologie, Leipzig/Freiburg i.B.
JQR	Jewish Quarterly Review, Philadelphia.
JRS	Journal of Roman Studies, London.
JSJ	Journal for the Study of Judaism in the Persian, Hellenistic and Roman Period, Leiden.
JSOR	Journal of the Society of Oriental Research, Chicago.
JThSt	Journal of Theological Studies, Oxford.
KAV	Kommentar zu den apostolischen Vätern, Göttingen.
KeTh	Kerk en Theologie, 's Gravenhage.
KJ(b)	Kirchliches Jahrbuch für die evangelische Kirche in Deutschland, Gütersloh.
LCL	The Loeb Classical Library, London/Cambridge, Mass.
LNPF	A Select Library of Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church, ed. P. Schaff and H. Wace, Buffalo/New York.
L(O)F	Library of Fathers of the Holy Catholic Church, Oxford.
LSJ	H.G. Liddell and R. Scott, A Greek-English Lexicon, new (9th) edn H.S. Jones, Oxford.
LThK	Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche, Freiburg i.B.
MA	Moyen-Âge, Brussels.
MAMA	Monumenta Asiae Minoris Antiqua, London.
Mansi	J.D. Mansi, Sacrorum conciliorum nova et amplissima collectio, Florence, 1759-1798. Reprint and continuation: Paris/Leipzig, 1901-1927.
MBTh	Münsterische Beiträge zur Theologie, Münster.

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MCom	Miscelanea Comillas, Comillas/Santander.
MGH	Monumenta germaniae historica. Hanover/Berlin.
ML	Mediaevalia Lovaniensia, Louvain.
MPG	See PG.
MSR	Mélanges de science religieuse, Lille.
MThZ	Münchener theologische Zeitschrift, Munich.
Mus	Le Muséon, Louvain.
NGWG	Nachrichten der Gesellschaft der Wissenschaften zu Göttingen.
NH(M)S	Nag Hammadi (and Manichaean) Studies, Leiden.
NovTest	Novum Testamentum, Leiden.
NPNF	See LNPF.
NRSV	New Revised Standard Version.
NRTh	Nouvelle Revue Théologique, Tournai/Louvain/Paris.
NTA	Neutestamentliche Abhandlungen, Münster.
NT.S	Novum Testamentum Supplements, Leiden.
NTS	New Testament Studies, Cambridge/Washington.
OBO	Orbis biblicus et orientalis, Freiburg, Switz.
OCA	Orientalia Christiana Analecta, Rome.
OCP	Orientalia Christiana Periodica, Rome.
OECS	Oxford Early Christian Studies, Oxford.
OLA	Orientalia Lovaniensia Analecta, Louvain.
OLP	Orientalia Lovaniensia Periodica, Louvain.
Or	Orientalia. Commentarii editi a Pontificio Instituto Biblico, Rome.
OrChr	Oriens Christianus, Leipzig, then Wiesbaden.
OrSyr	L'Orient Syrien, Paris.
PG	Migne, Patrologia, series graeca.
PGL	A Patristic Greek Lexicon, ed. G.L. Lampe, Oxford.
PL	Migne, Patrologia, series latina.
PLRE	The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire, ed. A.H.M. Jones *et al.*, Cambridge.
PLS	Migne, Patrologia, series latina. Supplementum ed. A. Hamman.
PO	Patrologia Orientalis, Paris.
PRE	Paulys Realenzyklopädie der classischen Alterthumswissenschaft, Stuttgart.
PS	Patrologia Syriaca, Paris.
PTA	Papyrologische Texte und Abhandlungen, Bonn.
PThR	Princeton Theological Review, Princeton.
PTS	Patristische Texte und Studien, Berlin.
PW	Paulys Realencyclopädie der classischen Altertumswissenschaft, ed. G. Wissowa, Stuttgart.
QLP	Questions liturgiques et paroissiales, Louvain.
QuLi	Questions liturgiques, Louvain
RAC	Rivista di Archeologia Cristiana, Rome.
RACh	Reallexikon für Antike und Christentum, Stuttgart.
RAM	Revue d'ascétique et de mystique, Paris.
RAug	Recherches Augustiniennes, Paris.
RBen	Revue Bénédictine, Maredsous.
RB(ibl)	Revue biblique, Paris.

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RE	Realencyklopädie für protestantische Theologie und Kirche, founded by J.J. Herzog, 3e ed. A. Hauck, Leipzig.
REA(ug)	Revue des études Augustiniennes, Paris.
REB	Revue des études byzantines, Paris.
RED	Rerum ecclesiasticarum documenta, Rome.
RÉL	Revue des études latines, Paris.
REG	Revue des études grecques, Paris.
RevSR	Revue des sciences religieuses, Strasbourg.
RevThom	Revue thomiste, Toulouse.
RFIC	Rivista di filologia e d'istruzione classica, Turin.
RGG	Religion in Geschichte und Gegenwart, ed. Gunkel-Zscharnack, Tübingen
RHE	Revue d'histoire ecclésiastique, Louvain.
RhMus	Rheinisches Museum für Philologie, Bonn.
RHR	Revue de l'histoire des religions, Paris.
RHT	Revue d'Histoire des Textes, Paris.
RMAL	Revue du Moyen-Âge Latin, Paris.
ROC	Revue de l'Orient chrétien, Paris.
RPh	Revue de philologie, Paris.
RQ	Römische Quartalschrift, Freiburg i.B.
RQH	Revue des questions historiques, Paris.
RSLR	Rivista di storia e letteratura religiosa, Florence.
RSPT, RSPh	Revue des sciences philosophiques et théologiques, Paris.
RSR	Recherches de science religieuse, Paris.
RTAM	Recherches de théologie ancienne et médiévale, Louvain.
RthL	Revue théologique de Louvain, Louvain.
RTM	Rivista di teologia morale, Bologna.
Sal	Salesianum, Roma.
SBA	Schweizerische Beiträge zur Altertumswissenschaft, Basel.
SBS	Stuttgarter Bibelstudien, Stuttgart.
ScEc	Sciences ecclésiastiques, Bruges.
SCh, SC	Sources chrétiennes, Paris.
SD	Studies and Documents, ed. K. Lake and S. Lake. London/Philadelphia.
SE	Sacris Erudiri, Bruges.
SDHI	Studia et documenta historiae et iuris, Roma.
SH	Subsidia Hagiographica, Brussels.
SHA	Scriptores Historiae Augustae.
SJMS	Speculum. Journal of Mediaeval Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
SM	Studien und Mitteilungen zur Geschichte des Benediktinerordens und seiner Zweige, Munich.
SO	Symbolae Osloenses, Oslo.
SP	Studia Patristica. Papers presented to the International Conference on Patristic Studies held in Oxford, successively Berlin, Kalamazoo, Louvain.
SPM	Stromata Patristica et Mediaevalia, ed. C. Mohrman and J. Quasten, Utrecht.
SQ	Sammlung ausgewählter Quellenschriften zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Tübingen.
SQAW	Schriften und Quellen der Alten Welt, Berlin.

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SSL	Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense, Louvain.
StudMed	Studi Medievali, Turin.
SVF	Stoicorum Veterum Fragmenta, ed. J. von Arnim, Leipzig.
TDNT	Theological Dictionary of the New Testament, Grand Rapids, Mich.
TE	Teologia espiritual, Valencia.
ThGl	Theologie und Glaube, Paderborn.
ThJ	Theologische Jahrbücher, Leipzig.
ThLZ	Theologische Literaturzeitung, Leipzig.
ThPh	Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg i.B.
ThQ	Theologische Quartalschrift, Tübingen.
ThR	Theologische Rundschau, Tübingen.
ThWAT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Alten Testament, Stuttgart.
ThWNT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Neuen Testament, Stuttgart.
ThZ	Theologische Zeitschrift, Basel.
TLG	Thesaurus Linguae Graecae.
TP	Transactions and Proceedings of the American Philological Association, Lancaster, Pa.
TRE	Theologische Realenzyklopädie, Berlin.
TS	Theological Studies, New York and various places; now Washington, D.C.
TThZ	Trierer theologische Zeitschrift, Trier.
TU	Texte und Untersuchungen, Leipzig/Berlin.
USQR	Union Seminary Quarterly Review, New York.
VC	Vigiliae Christianae, Amsterdam.
VetChr	Vetera Christianorum, Bari (Italy).
VT	Vetus Testamentum, Leiden.
WBC	Word Biblical Commentary, Waco.
WUNT	Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
WZKM	Wiener Zeitschrift für die Kunde des Morgenlandes, Vienna.
YUP	Yale University Press, New Haven.
ZAC	Zeitschrift für Antikes Christentum, Berlin.
ZAM	Zeitschrift für Aszese und Mystik, Innsbruck, then Würzburg.
ZAW	Zeitschrift für die alttestamentliche Wissenschaft, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZDPV	Zeitschrift des Deutschen Palästina-Vereins, Leipzig.
ZKG	Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte, Gotha, then Stuttgart.
ZKTh	Zeitschrift für katholische Theologie, Vienna.
ZN(T)W	Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft und die Kunde der älteren Kirche, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZRG	Zeitschrift für Rechtsgeschichte, Weimar.
ZThK	Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche, Tübingen.

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XI. Tertullian to Tyconius

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Between Adam and Aeneas: Tertullian on Rejection and Appropriation of Roman Culture

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Within all of Tertullian's writings references can be found to aspects of the world he lives in. These references range from casual remarks about men dyeing their beards,[1] to the interaction with Platonic thought in *Adversus Hermogenem* and statements about the courage of Lucretia, Queen Dido and the wife of Hasdrubal.[2] They illustrate Tertullian's immersion in everyday life, his adherence to both Roman and African culture and they are proof of the self-evident manner with which he uses elements of culture to make a point. Despite this abundance in material, an analysis of Tertullian's position towards society is difficult to make since his assessment of the world he lives in varies. Tertullian can, for instance, describe the world as a place which is becoming daily better cultivated and more fully peopled than anciently. A place where contrary to the past there are houses everywhere, and inhabitants, and settled government, and civilized life.[3] But he can also write to Christians who are in prison awaiting a martyr's death that they have gone out of prison rather than into one, since it is the world which has the greater darkness, blinding men's hearts and it is the world which imposes the more grievous fetters, binding men's souls. Apparently Tertullian can see the world as a place of progress, peace and prosperity while at the same time he could also associate it with great darkness, fetters and impurities. This ambivalence can partly be explained by Tertullian's complex social identity. Tertullian was very much a man of two worlds. On the one hand there was his Roman heritage, while, on the other, there were the challenges of his new religious beliefs. This means that sometimes Tertullian the Roman is speaking, or Tertullian the Carthaginian, while at other times it is his Christian identity that dominates.[4]

Another factor that can explain the inconsistency in Tertullian's statements is his rhetorical strategy. Tertullian is well known for the ways he could adapt his

[1] *De cultu feminarum* II 8.2.

[2] *Ad martyras* 4.4-5.

[3] *De anima* 30.3.

[4] Although 'Christian' is a religious category nowadays it had wider connotations in antiquity due to the fact that ethnic, political and religious identities were interconnected. On this phenomenon see: Denise K. Buell, *Why This New Race: Ethnic Reasoning in Early Christianity* (New York, 2005). On social identity complexity see Maykel Verkuyten, *The Social Psychology of Ethnic Identity* (Hove, 2005), 149-81.

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arguments depending on his audience or the issue at hand.[5] With respect to Tertullian's position towards the world this means that he could present Christians as model citizens in his apologetic work, while seeming to argue for isolation in work directed to a Christian audience. Most people reckon that Tertullian's statements in these last, pastoral, works show his real considerations.[6]

In this short paper I want to argue that, despite the social identity complexity and the shifts in rhetorical strategies, Tertullian's overall concept of the world is consistent. Since there is no time to give an analysis of all relevant material I will concentrate myself on examples of rejection and appropriation in Tertullian's pastoral work. These examples will show that Tertullian's position is strongly influenced by the challenges of Christianity's entrance in the public domain and that he envisions and tries to create an entire alternative society which incorporates the Roman Empire as well. In order to sustain this assertion I will first provide some background information on Tertullian, after which I will discuss his position towards aspects of Roman culture.

Background

Tertullian, who wrote his books at the end of the second century and the beginning of the third, was of rather high status, possibly even a Roman knight. He was well-educated, familiar with Greco-Roman literature, rhetorically trained and he could refer to wealth, such as to the possession of slaves, in a self-evident manner.[7] He was someone who confidently looked into the future and despite his adherence to the New Prophecy[8] there are no indications in his work of an immediate eschatological expectation.[9] The church Tertullian envisioned was pure, adhering to strict discipline and honouring God through its members' ways of life. This church was also growing fast. Keith Hopkins has suggested that at the beginning of the third century 3.4 percent of the urbanized population in the eastern Mediterranean plus Rome and Carthage was Christian, at

[5] *E.g.* Ilona Opelt, *Die Polemik in der christlichen lateinischen Literatur von Tertullian bis Augustin*, Bibliothek der Klassischen Altertumswissenschaften 2.63 (Heidelberg, 1980), 4-70, 208-13.

[6] *E.g.* R.F. Evans, On the Problem of Church and Empire in Tertullian's *Apologeticum*: *SP* 14 (1976) 21-36; Henrike M. Zilling, *Tertullian: Untertan Gottes und des Kaisers* (Paderborn, 2004), 135.

[7] See *De Paenitentia* 4, 10; *Adversus Marcionem* V 4; *De Resurrectione Mortuorum* 42.

[8] It is well-known that due to the New Prophecy Tertullian became stricter on inner church discipline. A comparison between the *Apologeticum* (written in 197) and *Ad Scapulam* (written in 212) suggests however that the New Prophecy did not influence Tertullian's position towards the state. The *Ad martyras* (written in 196) shows that Tertullian could be very negative towards the world at the beginning of his Christian career as well.

[9] In Tertullian's work no statements can be found prophesying that the end will come in this generation or at a particular point in time. The statements he does make seem therefore sincere platitudes. See Georg Schöllgen, *Tempus in collecto est.* Tertullian, der frühe Montanismus und die Naherwartung ihrer Zeit: *JAC* 27/8 (1985) 74-96.

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the most.[10] This would mean that of Carthage's total population of perhaps 300,000 in the early third century[11] there might have been 10,000 Christians. Although this obviously remains, by lack of statistics, 'arithmetic of the possible', it illustrates the growing visibility of Christianity and the need of the development of a structured form of church organisation.

Rejection

Apart from his apologetic work and books against heresies, Tertullian also wrote books discussing practical matters such as whether Christian women were obliged to veil themselves during service, whether Christians should remarry and whether they could visit public shows. As a result, a lot of information can be found in Tertullian's writings about what he considered to be appropriate for Christians and what not. These books are almost a guide to the ins and outs of Christian daily life. Some of the restrictions went without saying: Christians should not fulfil priestly functions or partake in offerings. But others, such as attendance at public shows or the acceptance of a civil magistracy, generated more discussion. While Tertullian considered these activities to be dangerous for Christians because it connected them in certain ways with idolatry, other Christians considered these activities to be either harmless or sensible because they thought that adjustment to society's norms would keep Christians out of harm's way. Tertullian's writings show him not to be receptive to these arguments. In response to the arguments of Christians who do not agree with him he argued that the contamination of idolatry should be avoided at all cost, even if that meant facing persecution. Other things Tertullian labelled as idolatry were the decorating of doors with garlands, and being an astrologer, a teacher or an artisan who worked on cultic statues or buildings. Christians should not only refrain from taking oaths but also avoid using expressions as 'by Hercules'.[12] In his books, much more prohibitions can be found.

Appropriation

A closer look at Tertullian's writings reveals however that his rejection of aspects of society is only half the story. I want to draw attention to three examples of

[10] Keith Hopkins, Christian Number and Its Implications: *JECS* 6 (1998) 207-13.

[11] For this number see Susan T. Stevens, Carthage, in: Glen W. Bowersock, *et al.* (eds.), *Late Antiquity: A Guide to the Postclassical World* (Cambridge, 1999), 363. Estimations of Carthage's population are difficult to make, see the discussion in Gilbert-Charles Picard, *La Civilisation de l'Afrique Romaine* (Paris, 1990), 155-60. Picard speaks of 'plusieurs centaines de milliers d'habitants' at the end of the second century.

[12] *De idolatria* 20.

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appropriation in his pastoral work. First, there is Tertullian's repeated statement that Christians should not withdraw from society. For instance in his book on idolatry, where he maintains, while appealing to 1*Cor.* 5:10, that Christians are free to live and mingle with sinners and that they are fellow-possessors of the world.[13] Here, Tertullian claims the world as a place for Christians as well. Secondly, it turns out that despite Tertullian's warnings with respect to idolatry he can also be very flexible in certain matters. As for instance in the case of education: although Tertullian rejects the possibility that a Christian can be a teacher he does allow Christian children to be taught by non-Christian teachers. In this specific case he argues that a child can distinguish between what is true and what is not and will accept the poison of idolatry but not drink it.[14] A highly remarkable position, especially given Tertullian's doubts with respect to the discernment of adults and given the fact that this consent only comes after a rather negative depiction of ancient education and the way it is built on ancient mythology and the Greco-Roman gods in order to discourage the possibility of a Christian becoming a teacher. A similar case can be found with respect to Tertullian's consent of Christian attendance of private ceremonies. Although Tertullian argues at length about the danger of participating in public ceremonies he saw no problem in Christian attendance at non-Christian weddings, name-givings or the donning of the toga.[15] Tertullian's consent is given despite the fact that these ceremonies were even closer associated with cultic activities as, for instance, performances in theatres. A third example of appropriation is Tertullian's claim on important Roman concepts. Concepts such as piety, glory and honour have not become irrelevant to Tertullian after his conversion to Christianity. Instead he claims these concepts for Christianity, arguing for instance that real piety can only be found among Christians or that glory can only be obtained through Christianity.[16] He also argues that troubles in the world have become lighter since Christianity appeared.[17] As intercessors Christians can interfere with God on behalf of the empire: they honour God through their way of living and in response to that God answers their prayers. To Tertullian the concept of *do ut des* is apparently still highly relevant, with this exception that the Christian God has taken the place of the traditional Roman gods. Tertullian even agrees with the Roman dichotomy between *religio* and *superstitio*, although he switches categories and claims the epithet *religio* for Christianity.[18]

[13] *De idolatria* 14.
[14] *De idolatria* 10.
[15] *De idolatria* 16.
[16] *Ad martyras* 3.3; *De corona* 15.2.
[17] *De oratione* 29; *Apologeticum* 40.13.
[18] *De oratione* 15.1; *De anima* 37.1; *Adversus Marcionem* I 9.1.

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Discussion

The mechanism of rejection and appropriation are a well-known strategy among minority movements at large. A contemporary example is the way Muslim fundamentalists defy modern society but make extensive use of the opportunities of modern technologies and means of communication such as the internet or claim for themselves modern achievements such as freedom of religion. Although clothed in religious reasoning the impetus behind either rejection or appropriation often seems to lie in the question of whether a movement can use a certain element or can do without it, a process not necessarily preceded by conscious decisions. Georg Schöllgen has pointed out that with regard to all the things Tertullian rejected, the Christian movement had developed or offered substitutes.[19] Tertullian argued that instead of attending public festivities one could celebrate Sundays and other important Christian days. Instead of being an incense seller or teacher there were professions that did not contribute to idolatry, and instead of the municipal career the church could provide a career in the church itself, although Tertullian suggested a career in heaven. Only in the case of education and private ceremonies Tertullian did not, and apparently could not, provide substitutes. Both were important components of Roman life, as Tertullian admits himself when he describes education as 'the means of training for all life'. In these two particular cases the danger of idolatry, about which Tertullian worried so much at other occasions, seems to have disappeared.

I would like to suggest that this positioning of Tertullian is connected to the increasing visibility of Christianity and the need of the development of a more structured form of church organisation at Tertullian's period of time. Due to Christianity's growth the movement slowly evolved from private house-churches into public, more political bodies. As a result Christianity entered more and more into the civic domain. In Tertullian's work, who apart from a Christian was also a Roman, we witness the endeavour to create an alternative civic domain, built on the same principles but deviating with respect to its concept of the divine. The emphasis on the Christian calendar points in this direction, together with Tertullian's insistence that Christian women should also veil themselves during service.[20] There is the conviction that Christian cultic devotion contributes to, and is essential for society's, welfare. Tertullian even expects exclusive loyalty. Loyalty formerly directed towards one's native city should now be redirected towards a more universal city. This view on things explains

[19] Georg Schöllgen, Die Teilnahme der Christen am städtischen Leben in vorkonstantinischer Zeit: *RQ* 77 (1982) 1-29.

[20] Karen Torjesen has argued that Tertullian insisted on the veiling of women in church since he considered the church to be a public sphere (Karen J. Torjesen, Tertullian's 'Political Ecclesiology' and Women's Leadership: *SP* 21 [1989] 277-82).

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why competitive civic material was rejected by Tertullian but Christian participation in more private matters was less objectionable.

The examples of rejection and appropriation discussed above have shown that Tertullian was not simply arguing for Christianity's isolation, even in his pastoral work. Instead he seems to have worked towards a civic domain that redirected religious loyalty but incorporated both Christianity and the Roman Empire.

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Structure and Exegesis in Tertullian's *Ad Uxorem* and *De Exhortatione Castitatis*

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We don't know whether Tertullian's wife ever became a widow. Tertullian cautioned her, in the event he died first, not to marry again and secondly, that if she did remarry, to marry only a fellow Christian. This second admonition was precipitated by a recent scandal in the Carthaginian church, when a widow surprised everyone and married a pagan.

Tertullian did not distinguish between the sexes in his belief that Christians should not remarry as he restated the argument several years later in *De Exhortatione Castitatis*, urging a fellow man, whom he addressed only as *frater*, not to remarry. In the letter to his wife, the advice was prophylactic as it treated only *potential* remarriage by one not yet widowed. In *De Exhortatione*, the warning was given to a recent widower *in fact*.

The two letters are an appealing subject for comparative analysis because they are almost unique among his output in several respects: they are epistolary;[1] they are epideictic, urging moral valiance; and there is no specific bogeyman being attacked, which seems rare for Tertullian. Not a heretic or gnostic system, and not the Catholic Church (that defendant was reserved for his later *De Monogamia*). What results is a system of moral advice supported by, if not entirely true to, select Pauline provisions.

As to dating these works, a survey of the scholarship of the last 50 years (*e.g.*, by LeSaint,[2] and Barnes[3]) reveals a range, for *Ad Uxorem*, from 198 to as late as 206 A.D., with the most probable date being about the year 203; and for *De Exhortatione* 204 to 212, with a probable late date nearer the year 209. We can say with certainty that *Ad Uxorem* was written first, during Tertullian's Catholic identity and that *De Exhortatione* was written later at a time when, by its own evidence Tertullian was roundly under the influence of the New Prophecy.

When viewed with the *De Monogamia* as its capstone, Tertullian's evolving view of marriage is that remarriage is not sinful; then later that it is sinful; and finally that it is adultery. This evolution parallels his burgeoning interpretation

[1] His other letters include *Ad Nationes*, *Ad Martyras*, and *Ad Scapulam*.

[2] William P. LeSaint, *Tertullian: Treatises on Marriage and Remarriage*, ACW 13 (New York, 1951), 8. English excerpts used herein are based on LeSaint's excellent translation.

[3] Timothy D. Barnes, *Tertullian: A Historical and Literary Study* (Oxford, 1985), 55.

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of Paul's use of marriage as a metaphor for Christ's headship of the church: as the description of Christ's union with the church finds its best expression using the example of marriage, marriage itself must be bound to a single 'two-in-one-ship,'[4] which can only validly be exercised once by any Christian. In other words, Tertullian can no more brook second marriage by a Christian than can Christ have more than one church as his spouse.[5]

Tertullian, as husband, possesses the *potestas* to declare what he believed to be proper moral conduct consistent with the demands of the Christian life in an eschatological milieu. Since he wrote largely the same advice to a man in the *Exhortation* (though his authority is unclear), it is evident that his admonition concerning remarriage applied equally to men and women alike, very much as do Paul's teachings on marriage in 1*Cor.* 7, and in *Eph.* 5. Both letters are addressed to an audience of one, yet its rhetorical content suggests something beyond a letter is being written. One wonders just why such an eloquent exposition was needed for a seemingly one-time purpose. Couldn't he make his views known in a heart-to-heart conversation? The formality of the language and structure suggests a broader agenda. Certainly these letters have been quoted by the wider community for many centuries.

The *Exhortation* is 'fungible' in that it can be directed to any recently-widowed Christian man without much adaptation. *Ad Uxorem* can similarly have been used by any Christian man writing to his wife. Her name is never mentioned. Except for a dedication at the beginning of each of the two books, *dilectissime mihi in domino conserva*, there are no distinguishing marks to personalize it. I accordingly suggest a reading of this set of 'his and hers' bookends of marriage advice not just as Tertullian's response to a particular exigency, but more broadly as a deliberate template for use by others in the community facing similar challenges.

Gender specific comments

Ad Uxorem begins with a *fideicommissum*, a precatory bequest expressing one's testamentary *wishes* and not necessarily his command. Tertullian is fond of legal comparisons and tries to create an aura of legal importance to the document, though he obviously doesn't intend that it be enforceable as a will (for one

[4] *De Exhortatione* 5.2.

[5] See *De Monogamia* 5. The 'great mystery' of which Paul speaks in *Eph.* 4:32 idealizes marriage as the best analogy for Christ's relationship with the church. For Tertullian, who gradually comes to view marriage as fornication, this ideal image becomes the norm and human matrimony is to be lived, if at all, according to that image. His description of best marriage ultimately excludes sexual relations, though nothing in Paul's writing requires this conclusion. Quite the contrary, Paul recognizes each spouse's duty not to refrain from marital relations.

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thing, neither the testator nor the beneficiary is properly identified). The tone of *Ad Uxorem*, compared to that of the *Exhortation*, is more delicate and even 'feminine'. For example, there is a doxology in the opening paragraph, suggesting a divine dedication of his letter, and a panegyric to the joy of Christian marriage at the end of its second book.

The *Exhortation*, by contrast, gives no homage to marriage, and is abundantly antifamilial, even referring to marriage as nothing more than fornication.[6] This more gruff approach is the 'masculine' version. He shares things with this brother that he wouldn't say to his wife. Here, Tertullian is more straightforward, revealing more about feelings of lust, for example, which were no doubt commonly experienced by both men.[7] Celebrating the joys of continence, he remarks, and this is something he shouldn't tell his wife, 'how much better a man feels when he happens to be away from his wife. He has a fine appreciation of spiritual things.'[8]

Structurally the two works are similar, though the *Exhortation* has a more logical plan to its structure, beginning with the degrees of the virtue of chastity – Tertullian describes three – virginity throughout one's life is best, chastity following one's baptism or the death of the spouse is better, and chastity throughout one's solitary marriage also has the merit of God's will. All of these share the lack of any second marriage.

He next examines scripture to support his main points about good and human will, and finds that scripture contains both precepts and permissions. Tertullian distinguishes what God *requires* versus what he merely permits, by pointing out what Paul writes by divine inspiration versus what Paul writes of his own accord. What results is like a legal commentary, using canons of interpretation to distinguish levels of authority.

Geoffrey Dunn observes that Tertullian used scripture as the primary source material in almost every chapter of every work[9] and this is certainly the case for these works. Jan H. Waszink has famously pointed out that there is no one exegetical method in Tertullian. As Dunn recently summarized: 'Tertullian knew how to argue in favor of one method of interpreting the Scriptures in one instance and how to argue for exactly the opposite in another. It all depended upon the context and the arguments put forward by his opponents that he was trying to refute.'[10] In *Ad Uxorem* and *De Exhortatione*, his opponent is not a person, but a vice: lust itself.

[6] *De Exhortatione* 9.4.

[7] True to the New Prophecy, Tertullian urges chastity as a means of possessing the spirit, and he quotes Prisca to the effect that 'continence effects harmony in the soul' and 'the pure enjoy visions'. *De Exhortatione* 10.5.

[8] *De Exhortatione* 10.2.

[9] Geoffrey D. Dunn, *Tertullian* (London, 2004), 19.

[10] G.D. Dunn, Tertullian's Scriptural Exegesis in de Praescriptione Haereticorum: *Journal of Early Christian Studies* 14 (2006) 141-55, 142.

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Several recurring principles relating to scripture as evidenced in his writings have been observed by Waszink, Dunn, R.P.C. Hanson, Heinrich Karpp, and others. From among these principles, I have culled the following:

(i) Tertullian will use every argument available to indulge his pleading[11] though it is often characterized by common sense, realism, and restraint;
(ii) a passage must be read in its historical context;[12]
(iii) the sense of the passage must be determined by the true meaning of the words used;[13]
(iv) scripture must be taken literally; allegory can only be used where the literal meaning is impossible;[14]
(v) clear rules are more binding than mere examples;[15] and
(vi) passages that are unclear must be interpreted on the basis of others that are clear.[16]

To these I would add the observation that Tertullian sometimes uses the methods of jurists in the interpretation of law. Waszink observes that scriptural exegesis as such did not exist in Tertullian's day,[17] and that we have no evidence that Tertullian himself ever did an exegesis of any particular scripture for the sake of interpretation (independent of any polemic requirements in his writings). In his day the only works analogous to scriptural exegesis would have been the commentaries on the law of the Twelve Tables, which would likely have been available to Tertullian, and probably played a part in his training. So we are not surprised to find canons of legislative interpretation adapted to an interpretation of the Old Testament. For example, Tertullian must explain away the digamy of the OT patriarchs in order to argue from scripture that remarriage is prohibited. Here there is a broadly analogous structure in both documents, and in both cases Tertullian concludes that recent legislation supersedes the old. Nevertheless, not all scripture is abrogated by the new dispensation. There are scriptures about monogamy that survive, such as the story of Adam

[11] Richard P.C. Hanson, Notes on Tertullian's Interpretation of Scripture: *Journal of Theological Studies N.S.* 12 (1961) 273-9, 275.

[12] G.D. Dunn, Tertullian's Scriptural Exegesis (2006), 149.

[13] *Ibid.* 150.

[14] Heinrich Karpp, *Schrift und Geist bei Tertullian*, Beiträge zur Forderung christlicher Theologie 47 (Gütersloh, 1955), 22-9 (quoted in Michael Joseph Brown, *The Lord's Prayer Through North African Eyes* [New York, 2004], 228). Dunn observes that even this principle is relativized according to the needs of a particular rhetorical moment (G.D. Dunn, Tertullian's Scriptural Exegesis, [2006], 152), and indeed Tertullian favors allegory when it comes to defending OT polygamy.

[15] *Ibid.*

[16] *Ibid.*

[17] Jan H. Waszink, Tertullian's Principles and Methods of Exegesis, in: *Early Christian Literature and the Classical Intellectual tradition: In Honorem Robert M. Grant*, W.R. Schoedel and R.L. Wilken (eds.) (Paris, 1979), 17-31, 17.

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and Eve, from which Tertullian divines God's intention that there be only one marriage: 'one rib, one woman.'[18]

In *Ad Uxorem*, he suggests that the polygamy of the OT patriarchs is figurative – intended as allegorical examples of bad behavior which needed to be corrected by the 'spiritual circumcision' of the Word of God. In *De Exhortatione*, he adds an additional reason: polygamy was necessary to more quickly populate the world, a need which no longer existed in NT times. The principle is that restrictions should in time replace earlier concessions, perhaps an early example of the legal maxim, *cessante ratione legis cessat ipsa lex.* This anticipates the argument which Tertullian likes to repeat that what is permissible is not necessarily good.

1*Cor.* 7 is the centerpiece of much of the argument in both works. Paul's letter was framed in the context of the second coming which was thought to be imminent then as it was in Tertullian's day. Paul taught that marriage is good, celibacy better, and remarriage is permissible; each should continue to live as he was when the Lord called him, a point which Tertullian fails to capitalize on in his analysis. 1*Cor.* 7 begins with the phrase: 'It is good for a man not to touch a woman', which we today recognize as a Corinthian slogan, but which Tertullian takes as a disciplinary rule from Paul himself. Pretending to quote the phrase, Tertullian in fact misquotes it for effect, '*optimum est homini mulierem non attingere*'[19] replacing 'good' with 'best'. In the same chapter of the *Exhortation*, Tertullian disparagingly equates marriage with fornication, which as LeSaint comments, 'represents the lowest point in Tertullian's teaching on marriage.'[20] There is parallel structure in both works to argue that remarriage is always based either on selfish motives or pretexts for lust. The rationales are gender-specific. In *Ad Uxorem*, it is concupiscence of the flesh and the world, and desire to have children which give rise to the 'need' of women to remarry. For men, there are two reasons for a second wife, both of which Tertullian frankly asserts are pretenses to hide a man's lust: to bear the burdens of domestic duties, and to bear children, which is contrary to the aim of Christians in eschatological times.

1*Cor.* 7:9 says that it is better to marry than to burn, that marriage is the only legitimate means to subdue the lack of self-control in sexual urges, so marry rather than be on fire with passion. Tertullian's approach is, first in *Ad Uxorem*, to focus on what makes something better compared to something else. 'Better' is evidence of mere permission to do something where reason cannot prevail, and he makes the point that we must not pursue something only because it is not forbidden. Choose the good, not merely what is not bad. But given Paul's prior verse, which Tertullian ignores, 'it is a good thing for the unmarried and

[18] *Ad Uxorem* 2.2.
[19] *De exhortatione* 9.4.
[20] W.P. LeSaint, *Tertullian* (1951), 143 (n. 76).

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the widows to stay as they are, but if they cannot exercise self-control, they should marry, for it is better to marry than to burn,'[21] the meaning of Paul's words seems clear and unambiguous: remaining single is good, marriage is better.

His exegesis is more studied in the *Exhortation*. Tertullian here uses comparative rhetoric to make his point: it is better to have one eye than none, but this is a poor substitute for the true good, which is to have two eyes.[22] By isolating the 'better' and reducing it to an absurd result he can say that Paul's permission is really not to be preferred, but again choosing to ignore the prior verse which does contain the comparative 'good' to which Paul referred. The *fait accompli* comes in the next verse: 'To the married, I give this instruction (not I but the Lord).'[23] Tertullian interprets Paul's digression to mean that what he said in the prior verse – better to marry than to burn – was only a personal opinion of the Apostle and not a divinely inspired scripture, which renders the permissive advice all the more tenuous, and the exhortation not to marry the more urgent. Never one to miss a clever turn of words, when addressing the virtues of pagan asceticism, he quips that Dido, to avoid bigamy, preferred to burn than to marry.

Priesthood of the Laity

In the *Exhortation*, Tertullian develops a quirky argument against second marriage based on the universal priesthood of the laity. Beginning with a misquote from Leviticus that priests were forbidden second marriage,[24] and referring to the fulfillment of this requirement by Christ – he does not explicitly cite the scriptural references but probably has in mind *Titus* 1:5-6, and 1*Tim.* 3:2.3, Tertullian says it is 'folly to think that lay people may do what priests may not.[25] Are we lay people not also priests?' He may have in mind 1*Peter* 2:5-9 here and also directly quotes *Rev.* 1:6. *God* made us priests, he argues, not some earthly ecclesiastical authority. What separates us from the presbyters of the church is the dignity of the hierarchy. Tertullian doesn't denigrate the authority of the bishops (later he will take aim at individuals holding office), but makes the point that there is a lay priesthood, and it too requires observance of priestly discipline, even if scripture doesn't so require. Tertullian fabricates a requirement

[21] 1*Cor.* 7:8f.

[22] *De exhortatione* 3.10.

[23] 1*Cor.* 7:10.

[24] LeSaint suggests that Tertullian is probably drawing an inference based on his reading of *Lev.* 21:7 (priests forbidden to marry harlots or divorcees) and *Lev.* 21:13 (the high priest shall take a virgin but not a widow or harlot). W.P. LeSaint, *Tertullian* (1951), 139 (note 47).

[25] *De exhortatione* 7.2.

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where none exists. As to the presbyterate, he states that it is from the ranks of laymen that priests arise, so *a priori* all laymen must observe monogamy in order to be worthy of ecclesiastical priesthood.

Conclusion

Tertullian was greatly concerned for the eternal wellbeing of others and he used his considerable rhetorical talents to advance the principles in which he believed. These include his methods of scriptural exegesis which in the extreme tradition of legal advocacy allow him to ignore the plain meaning of scriptures and occasionally to deliberately misinterpret it. I have suggested that the letter to his wife and the exhortation to chastity were probably intended as templates of chaste behavior available for use by a wider community, and that, given the parallel soteriological concern for both a woman and a man, his own beliefs in this regard were gender neutral.

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Sinful Nature as Second Nature in Tertullian of Carthage

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If man exists, he has a nature: a discernable and articulatable *ousia*, or essence, constitutive of the basic reality that he is. And if humanity thus has a nature which binds it together in a single genus or species, that nature must be common, even as the species is singular – a concept to which numerous second- and third-century patristic writings attest clearly. This singular reality of a 'human nature' frames in scientific as well as theological approaches to the human in the ancient world, much as in the modern, and with challenging implications. If Valentinus in the second century could explain the variations in human behaviour (some are very good, some very bad) by classifying humanity into not one but multiple species of graded sanctity and deficiency, the work of Theophilus, Irenaeus, Origen and others had, by the turn of the third century, ensured such an explanation's exclusion from ongoing Christian discourse. Irenaeus' emphasis on the whole of humanity as 'one race' bound up in Adam, its first father – echoed strongly in other writers, based as it is on the writings of Paul[1] – combats this Valentinian concept directly. And if the response he issues is an anthropology of man and sin that isn't quite a 'fall', it is nonetheless clearly grounded in a context of changing circumstances effecting a common and indivisible nature.

Onto the scene, then, Tertullian of Carthage. Not only he is in line with contemporary writers in asserting a common and singular human stock (most often as 'one blood', mirroring Irenaeus' 'one race'[2]), but he seems to fit into a later framework of 'original sin' and 'fallen nature' – *i.e.* a changed or fallen nature resulting from sin, rather than a second, sinful category of human creature – with surprising ease. But while there may be merit in assigning Tertullian the somewhat sensationalist title of 'puritan' and zealous moralist, is it really accurate to claim, as some have done, that he presents us with an immediate precursor to an 'Augustinian view of original sin'?[3] It might be said that Tertullian's language does little to ease scholarship away from a tendency toward anachronism here: his terminology does, indeed, often sound similar to later Augustinian vocabulary. In particular, he speaks of humanity's sinful

[1] See *Rom.* 5:12-21; 1*Cor.* 15:22.

[2] See Iren., *Adv. haer.* III 12.9; *Epideixis* 31.

[3] So Gerald L. Bray, *Holiness and the Will of God – Perspectives on the Theology of Tertullian* (London, 1979), 81; and similarly in Eric Osborn, *Tertullian: First Theologian of the West* (Cambridge, 1997), 163.

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condition as disclosing what he calls a 'second nature', equated almost automatically by scholars to 'sinful nature', thus 'fallen nature', and thus 'original sin' in nascent form. It is taken as a given that Tertullian is speaking of a change in human nature resulting from sin, changing the first nature into the second through transgression.[4]

To put my thesis briefly: despite the tendency of scholarship to gather round this idea, it simply cannot be the case. Tertullian is absolutely clear in his extensive anthropological writings that human nature, as that reality given existence and form by God in creation, is immutable at its natural level. It is singular and common, and unchanging across time and circumstance – though it is effected by economy inasmuch as it is a nature that grows in history, and thus is expressed differently by the vicissitudes of it. In a comment on Seneca, of whom Tertullian was particularly fond, he notes:

> [...] It is evident how great must be the influences which so variously affect the one nature of the [human] soul, since they are commonly regarded as separate 'natures'. Still they are not different species, but casual incidents of one nature and substance (*quando non species sint, sed sortes naturae et substantiae unius*) – even of that which God conferred on Adam, and made the mould of all.[5]

The 'casual accidents' here express Tertullian's underlying conviction, that the variations in the *living out* of human nature can never be assigned an ontological source. There is but 'one nature and substance', expressed differently through circumstance and influence, but ontologically one and unchanging, and certainly unceasing ('for that which is derived from God is rather obscured than extinguished'[6]). When Tertullian speaks of humanity's 'second nature' after sin, it is not in replacement of the first, nor as a new ontology alongside it. That nature remains as it was first conferred on Adam by God, despite the spread and reach of sin:

> Every soul, then, by reason of its birth, has its nature in Adam until it is born again in Christ; moreover, it is unclean (*immunda*) all the while that it remains without this regeneration; and because unclean, it is actively sinful (*peccatrix autem, quia immunda*), and suffuses even the flesh – by reason of their conjunction – with its own shame.[7]

In the same breath that he insists that human nature is unchanging, and thus cannot be understood as mutated by sin, Tertullian insists that all human persons since Adam are nonetheless sinful and unclean until regenerated in Christ. Whence, then, this universality of sin, if not in the ontological realm?

The key to the question comes in Tertullian's insistence on human variation arising from economy rather than ontology – from the many ways in which a nature is actualised, lived out. The sinful aspects of human existence, however

[4] A misreading found, for example, in E. Osborn, *First Theologian* (1997), 165f.

[5] *De anima* 20 (CChr.SL [1954], vol. 2, 811-3, hereafter *DA*); see Seneca, *Epist.* 66, 67. See also: J.H. Waszink, *Quinti Septimi Florentis Tertulliani, De Anima* (Amsterdam, 1947), 281f.

[6] *DA* 41 (2, 844).

[7] *DA* 40 (2, 843f.); see Waszink, *De Anima* (1947), 448-53.

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widespread, 'must be supposed to arise from the mutability of its accidental circumstances, and not from the appointment of nature'.[8] And here his concept of 'second nature', not as a new ontological reality, or even a mutation of the first, but as an economy of habituation so ingrained in human history that it becomes equally as defining of *lived* human experience as the authentic ontology that undergirds it. Laura Nasrallah – so far as I know the only scholar to have given this concept serious treatment – describes this 'second nature' as 'almost original to the first', precisely to show its economic, rather than ontological, character.[9]

Tertullian has made a critical distinction. Inasmuch as he conceives carefully of the ontological and the economic in the human person – and not, as Osborn remarked, because he is unable to distinguish between spirit and matter[10] – Tertullian can see sin as universal, whilst nonetheless external to the nature of man. So while Valentinus could see some as good and some as evil based on a multiplicity of created species, Tertullian can locate the variety in the economy without demanding multiple natures. The variation and pervasiveness of sin never vitiates the singular reality of authentic, immutable human nature. Only this reading gives full meaning to what is perhaps Tertullian's most famous axiom:

'Thus some men are very bad and some very good; yet the souls of all form but one genus (*unum omnes animae genus*). Even in the worst there is something good, and in the best something bad'.[11]

Sinful nature as 'second nature' identifies the fallenness of the human condition with the habituation of economy, as the ingraining of the 'accidents' of human transgression into the pattern of life that gives expression to the nature God has fashioned. This 'second nature' may seem more real than the real; but it is a 'nature' of convention, defined by act and economy. And so, paradoxically, it is by calling humanity's sinful condition a 'second nature' that Tertullian is able to preserve the integrity and immutability of the first – that true nature granted by God in creation and perfected in the incarnation. Man may be fallen indeed, and so far that he identifies his sin with the very fabric of his being. Yet since his second nature is the fruit of economy, there is always the potential for change. The zeal demonstrated by Tertullian for moral righteousness, for an increasing ascetical rigour to the Christian life, takes its grounding here, in the awareness that the 'second nature' of sin gives way to the first in the salvific and transforming work of Christ.

[8] *DA* 41 (2, 844); see Jerónimo Leal, *La Antropología de Tertuliano – Estudio de los tratados polémicos de los años 207-212 d.C.* (Rome, 2001), 119-25.

[9] See Laura Nasrallah, *'An Ecstasy of Folly': Prophecy and Authority in Early Christianity*, Harvard Theological Studies 52 (Cambridge, Mass., 2003), 124.

[10] See E. Osborn, *First Theologian* (1997), 165-7.

[11] *DA* 41 (2, 844).

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Methodius and Porphyry

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In analyzing the anti-Christian treatises of the Neoplatonist, Porphyry of Tyre, historians have long studied his criticisms of Origen as Eusebius preserved them (*HE* VI 19). They have given little attention, however, to the part of the fragment preserving Porphyry's attack on Christian Origenists who 'boasted that things declared openly by Moses' were 'enigmas' which they then subjected to certain 'exegeses' – probably the figural reading whose use for Jewish Scripture the Neoplatonist attacked in Origen. Who were these Origenists? Why did Porphyry attack their interpretations as 'incompatible and unsuitable' for the Pentateuch (*HE* VI 19.4-5)? I suggest that one such exegete was Methodius of Olympus, Porphyry's younger contemporary.[1] Although Jerome says that Methodius wrote 10,000 lines against Porphyry,[2] because scholars assume this work is lost, his texts are seldom evaluated against the Neoplatonist's criticisms. Nevertheless, Methodius' texts show that Porphyry did not object to figural exegesis per se, but to Origenist notions of God's unfettered power and the interpretation of Plato's levels of reality that guided their exegeses. These Origenists, like Porphyry, taught members of Rome's ruling elite. Accordingly, in Porphyry's view, their mistaken concepts had potentially dangerous consequences as Christians increasingly gained access to power. Indeed Diocletian himself had Christians in his inner circle as late as 299.[3] This study, thus, shows how Porphyry's criticisms might have legitimized complaints against certain types of Christians that culminated in Diocletian's Persecution.

Several aspects of Methodius' work identify him as a useful author for understanding Porphyry's criticisms and their significance. Most importantly, according to the *Thesaurus Linguae Graecae*, Methodius is the only third-century Christian author working with or after Origen whose writings used the word 'ainigma' in the way that Porphyry had challenged, namely to describe aporiae in the Pentateuch, which he then resolved through figural exegesis.[4]

[1] Hier., *Ruf.* 1.11; see L.G. Patterson, *Methodius of Olympus: Divine Sovereignty, Human Freedom, and Life in Christ* (Washington, DC, 1997), 15f.

[2] Jerome, *De vir. ill.* X.

[3] See Lact., *Mort.* 10.

[4] Meth., *Symp.* 5.7.20; 8.9.24; 9.1.71. Among those who use the term, Clement of Alexandria and Hippolytus of Rome are more apt to have influenced Origen than vice versa, Ps.-Justin was a fifth-century author, and Gregory Thaumaturgus (*In ann.* 41; *id.*, *In Orig.* 2.67; 15.5, 13, 37) used the term differently.

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He does so in the *Symposium*, an early work indebted to Origen. I am not claiming that Porphyry necessarily knew Methodius' writing directly. Nevertheless, Methodius recognized that Porphyry's criticisms of the Origenists applied to his own work: In a text from his middle period, *On Foods* (1.1-2), Methodius reveals that critics had attacked his *Symposium* and that he would address them in his work *On the Resurrection*. As Hendrik Benjamins noticed,[5] *On the Resurrection*'s pagans preserve Porphyry's views against the resurrection of the flesh. Accordingly, Porphyry was one of the *Symposium*'s critics whom *On the Resurrection* addressed.

The *Symposium* was one of Methodius' first works.[6] Its tone implies that Methodius wrote it during a period of 'peace for the church', and before he began distancing himself from Origen's theology.[7] It appropriates the structure of a Platonic dialogue,[8] but, as Herbert Musurillo observed, it is 'a manual of Christian doctrine ... unified under the concept of chastity.'[9] The goal of such ascesis is to achieve the Platonic ascent of the soul from the world of images to the truly real.[10]

The *Symposium* is unique for using the typology of Plato's *Republic* (514ac) together with *Hebrews* 10 to categorize stages in human history.[11] Methodius applies the three levels of reality set out in Plato's cave (the shadow, the image, and reality) to Christian history:[12] The period of the shadow, the Law, is the most ancient; the period of the image is that of the earthly church, Methodius' own day; the period of reality is that of the Messianic *parousia*. Known in Methodius' time by a few elect (4.5), the truth will become known to all as the heavenly Jerusalem at the end of the world (9.5).[13] For Methodius, the present is an age of spiritual maternity in which the church illuminates those who are baptized. Within the church, then, are those who collaborate with Christ and others not yet participating in this spiritual maternity.[14] The former are illuminating

[5] Hendrick S. Benjamins, Methodius von Olympus, 'Über die Auferstehung': gegen Origenes und gegen Porphyrius? in: *Origeniana septima*, W.A. Bienert and Uwe Kühneweg (eds.) (Leuven, 1999), 81-90.

[6] Herbert Musurillo (ed.), *St. Methodius. The Symposium. A Treatise on Chastity* (London, 1958), 9.

[7] *Ibid.* 11-12, 35, 175-176 n. 25.

[8] L.G. Patterson, *Methodius* (1997), 11.

[9] H. Musurillo (ed.), *Methodius* (1958), 11.

[10] *Ibid.* 35f.

[11] L.G. Patterson, *Methodius* (1997), 96.

[12] Calogero Riggi, Teologia della storia nel Simposio di Metodio di Olimpo: *Augustinianum* 16 (1976) 61-84 at 70; Emanuela Prinzivalli, Il millenarismo in Oriente da Metodio ad Apollinare: *Annali di Storia dell'esegesi* 15, no. 1 (1998) 125-51, 129.

[13] M.D. Gallardo, Los Simposios de Luciano, Ateneo, Metodio y Juliano: *Cuadernos de filología clásica* 4 (1972) 239-96, 266; C. Riggi, Teologia della storia (1976), 65; Clementina Mazzucco, Tra l'ombra e la realtà: L'Apocalisse nel Simposio di Metodio di Olimpo: *Cività classica e cristiana* 6 (1985) 399-423, 421; J. Montserrat-Torrents, Origenismo y gnosis: Los 'perfectos' de Metodio de Olimpo: *Augustinianum* 26 (1986) 89-101, 100.

[14] J. Montserrat-Torrents, Origenismo y gnosis (1986), 97.

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Christians; the latter are illuminated.[15] The illuminating Christians also participate in the celestial, noetic, pre-existing and perfect light of the intelligible church (5.7).[16] As Calogero Riggi noticed, in viewing his own age as a 'mixed' city (8.5), where heavenly and the earthly cities 'encounter one another' on 'earthly ground', Methodius prefigures Augustine.[17]

A familiarity with Methodius' historical typology is useful when studying how the *Symposium* reads Moses' statements as *ainigmata* understood properly only though figural exegesis, the Origenist tactic criticized by Porphyry. For example, Methodius interprets the guidelines for the Feast of Sukhot (*Lev.* 23:29-43), as a figure to be interpreted against the text of *Rev.* 20:4. The Law for Sukhot required Jews to live in tents for seven days in the seventh month and to bring mature fruits, palms, willow and chaste tree branches.[18] Methodius, however, claims that this festival, prescribed by Moses, is an *ainigma* (9.1.71), and so should not be read literally. Having conflated the seven days of creation in Genesis with the seven days of the festival to yield seven millennia of cosmic history,[19] Methodius reads the text as promising that for believers the seventh millennium will be the true Saturday when the body will resurrect, and everyone will be judged. Like the Hebrews, escaped from Egypt, who arrived in the tents and then in the promised land, so Christians after death will have resurrection, judgment, and repose with Christ, departing then for the heavens, where they will live in the residence of God (9.1-5).[20]

In its use of figural exegesis, the *Symposium* shows Methodius' debt to Origen. Although he seems not to have appropriated Origen's doctrines of the soul's pre-existence or the apocatastasis,[21] Methodius assiduously adopts Origen's style of figural exegesis – especially in using Revelation as a touchstone, and in reading sacrificial offerings allegorically.[22] In some cases, the figural parallels are so close that Marcello Marin has argued that Methodius wrote with Origen's texts in front of him.[23] Methodius even shares Origen's notion that the

[15] *Ibid.* 97.

[16] *Ibid.* 97.

[17] C. Riggi, Teologia della storia (1976), 81 inc. n. 16, citing Paolo Brezzi, *Analisi ed interpretazione del 'De civitate dei' di Sant' Agostino* (Tolentino, 1960), 91.

[18] Clementina Mazzucco, Il millenarismo di Metodio di Olimpo di fronte a Origene. Polemica o continuità?: *Augustinianum* 26 (1986) 73-87, 75.

[19] L.G. Patterson, *Methodius* (1997), 106; H. Musurillo (ed.), *Methodius* (1958), 20, 178 n. 54.

[20] C. Mazzucco, Il millenarismo (1986), 75.

[21] H. Musurillo (ed.), *Methodius* (1958), 18.

[22] See Orig., *Peri archon* II 11.2 and *Symp.* 9.1-2; C. Riggi, Teologia della storia (1976), 75-8; Emanuela Prinzivalli, Il simbolismo del sangue in Metodio di Olimpo, III, in: *Centro Studi Sanguis Christi, III: Atti della Settimana Sangue e antropologia nella letteratura cristiana* (Rome, 1983), 1181-92, 1182; C. Mazzucco, L'ombra e la realtà (1985), 403, 421; *ead.*, Il millenarismo (1986), 74, 81 inc. n. 39.

[23] Marcello Marin, Origene e Metodio su Lev. 24,2-4: *Vetera Christianorum* 18 (1981) 470-75, 475.

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Law, as a *typos*, and shadow of the image, anticipates the Gospel, the image of truth, which in turn foreshadows the *parousia*.[24] Nevertheless, while Origen had a notion that all this was happening simultaneously (vertically), in Methodius there is a sense of horizontal progress in time.[25]

The *Symposium* is significant, then, because it engaged in precisely the kind of Origenist exegesis that Porphyry had attacked, in claiming portions of the Pentateuch as 'ainigmata' (5.7.20; 9.1.71) intelligible only through figural exegesis. Moreover, in adopting the structure of a Platonic dialogue, embracing a form of ascesis, and envisioning a teaching community dedicated to promoting the ascent of the soul, Methodius sets himself up as a direct competitor with Porphyry within the Platonist tradition that began with Ammonius and was perpetuated by Plotinus, Porphyry's mentor on the Hellene side and Origen on the Christian. For these reasons, it is reasonable that Porphyry would have opposed a text like this, in a reaction that Methodius acknowledged and to which he felt he must respond. All the same, one must ask why Methodius continued to read the Pentateuch figurally, as he did in *On Foods*, even after he became aware of Porphyry's criticisms. Second, since Hellenes themselves read many texts figurally, even laws, why would Porphyry have attacked the Origenists' reading of Hebrew law?

Both Hellenes and Christians took it for granted that one's understanding of fundamental physical reality dictated how and when one might use various exegetical strategies, as well as the results produced. The Platonists' God was the utterly transcendent source of a cosmos that operates according to eternal laws of physics. For Porphyry, then, in fragments attributed to *Against the Christians*,[26] all things are *not* possible for God: *e.g.*, human bodies cannot reconstitute after the recycling of their matter. Christians like Methodius, however, fundamentally rejected this position. Their God was completely unfettered by physical reality – an assumption that undergirded the doctrine of the resurrection of the flesh.[27] Accordingly, it was not Methodius' figural exegesis *per se* that would have disturbed Porphyry, but what he saw as the Christians' understanding of what was possible for God. In Porphyry's view, Methodius' misunderstanding of physical reality led him wrongly to identify certain Scriptural passages as *ainigmata*. Applied to the wrong passages, figural readings led not to truth, but to error.

In the *Cave of the Nymphs* (4) and his criticisms of how Christians read the Book of Daniel, Porphyry also indicates that a text's genre determines whether

[24] Orig., *Princ.* III 6.8; IV 1.6, 2.4, 6, 4.13; L.G. Patterson, *Methodius* (1997), 108. Emanuela Prinzivalli, *L'Esegesi biblica di Metodio di Olimpo* (Rome, 1985), 129.

[25] E. Prinzivalli, *L'Esegesi biblica* (1985), 129.

[26] Preserved in Didymus the Blind's *Commentary on Job* (see *Kommentar zu Hiob (Tura Papyrus), iii: Kap. 7,20c-11*, U. Hagedorn, D. Hagedorn and L. Koenen (ed. and transl.) (Bonn, 1968), 150), and Macarius Magnes, *Apocriticus* 4.24.

[27] A.H. Armstrong, Two Views of Freedom: A Christian Objection in Plotinus VI.8 (39) 7.11-15: *Studia Patristica* 17 (1982) 397-406.

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a figural reading is appropriate. For example, textual passages historical in character should not be read allegorically.[28] One might infer from this rule that law codes would also be inappropriate for figural reading. But Neoplatonists believed that laws created for a community in the sensible world by a lawgiver who had made contact with the divine were not only fundamentally just, they were also an image or figure of divine law (*i.e.*, the law of the intelligible world). Pure souls would be able to perceive the relationship between the law of the sensible world and that of the intelligible world,[29] but this knowledge would not allow them to abrogate the laws of the community. Indeed, Plotinus portrayed the philosopher's life even in the best possible earthly realm as a type of exile.[30] Similarly, Porphyry claims that when Ammonius, teacher of Origen and Plotinus, took up philosophy after his Christian childhood, he turned himself toward his *politieia* – unlike what Origen would do.[31] Porphyry, thus, has Christians in a kind of 'Catch 22': The law may be a figure of the divine if it is just, but then cannot be abrogated. So if Jewish law is a figure of the divine, then it must be just; if it is just, it should be followed. If Jewish law is not just, then it is not a figure of the divine and it makes no sense to read the Pentateuch figurally. Origen shared the Platonist conception of the law of the *politeia* as the shadow, and that of the community bound by philosophy as the image of the intelligible world ruled by the *logos*. And like the Platonists, Origen saw all these worlds as simultaneous, allowing vertical participation in all three.[32] In so far as he refused to follow Jewish law, however, Origen would have been open to these political criticisms. Methodius may have tried to finesse this problem by seeing the shadow, the image and reality as phases in time[33] (although he maintained a part of the Platonist perspective by allowing his *perfecti* to be inhabitants of the 'two cities' at once). This perspective must derive from the Christian and Jewish view of God as an agent in human history whose requirements of his people might change over time – but then this view of a changing God would also be unacceptable to Porphyry as a Neoplatonist.

Methodius illustrates some of the reasons that set educated Hellene and Christian communities against one another at the end of the third century. First, each understood differently how divinity worked through the world. For the Hellenes, God was unchanging and would not violate the laws of nature; whereas for Christians God's freedom might enable the resurrection of the flesh or require different rituals at different times. For the Hellenes this position was a lapse into mere faith, an attribute that made them unfit for leadership within

[28] Porph., *Chr. frg.* 43 (Harnack) (*ap.* Hier., *Comm. in Dan.* pr.) and 43M (Harnack) (*ap.* Hier., *Comm. in Dan.* 7.13-14).

[29] Porph., *Marc.* 25-26.

[30] *Enn.* I.4.8.

[31] *Ap.* Eus., *HE* VI 19.7.

[32] E. Prinzivalli, *L'Esegesi biblica* (1985), 129.

[33] *Ibid.* 129.

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the *politeia*. The Hellenes' attitude would have been exacerbated by their second deep disagreement with Origenists, namely whether the founding, divinely ordained legislation of a given political community such as Rome could ever be abrogated. For Hellenes, such law – as a shadow of ultimate truth – was the way by which ordinary souls were not only guaranteed justice, but also brought as close as they could be to the divine. For Christians like Methodius, Christ's advent had superceded the law of the Jews with all its sacrificial rituals. From the Hellene perspective, Origenist Christians seemed opportunistic and anarchistic, invoking Plato's cachet simply to mask their lawlessness. Even more important, Methodius and Origenists like him led communities of scholars and ascetics according to curricula and practices that mirrored and competed with Porphyry's own. In his view, ignorant of how the world worked and scornful of the laws of the *politeia* that they were charged to uphold, men educated in such schools, who became civic leaders, would have undermined public order and justice, rending the very fabric of the Roman state.

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Is *De mortibus persecutorum* an Orphan Indeed?

Octavian Gheorghe GORDON, Bucureşti

'Is *DMP* really an orphan?' This question points out that the authenticity (or, as I prefer to say, 'authorship') of this work from the beginning of the fourth century is still under discussion. *DMP* has been subject to the question of authenticity since its very beginning, *i.e.* since the end of the seventeenth century, when E. Baluze first edited its unique manuscript found in a monastery from south-western France. The first editor had no doubts that it was the Lactantian work mentioned by Hieronymus under the title *De persecutione*. In spite of the latest editions and of the 'Histories of the Christian Literature', which indicate Lactantius as being the author of this *opuscule*, there are still modern scholars who, in private discussions on the University corridors, deny or have doubts about the Lactantian authorship of *DMP*. Furthermore, the last two published papers on the subject show reserve or reluctance in assigning *DMP* to Lactantius. I'm referring to Sante Rossi's 'Il concetto di storia e la prassi storiografica di Lattanzio e del *De mortibus persecutorum*'[1] and to Professor Daniel De Decker's 'Lactance: L'apport d'une concordance automatique appliquée aux études patristiques'.[2] The last one is a proposal for a comparative study between the lexicographical, syntactic and stylistic features of *DMP*, on the one hand, and those of the doctrinal works of Lactantius, on the other, with the help of an electronic concordance. As regards Rossi's perspective, the Italian scholar is more categorical when he denies the authorship of Lactantius. First of all, S. Rossi doubts that someone could solve the problem of authenticity in terms previous scholars did, considering that their way would be a 'circolo chiuso'.[3] His method consists in bringing into discussion two main points of view: 1) some aspects of the personality of Lactantius and 2) his conception of writing history. His goal is to compare this conception of history (taken from Lactantius' 'genuine works') and that of *DMP*. But Rossi himself admits that it is hard to recover the conception of history of someone whose work is entirely (*DMP* is *a priori* excepted) philosophical.[4] It is now well-known and commonly accepted that *DMP* is not a historiographical writing, but rather a political

[1] *Giornale Italiano di Filologia* 14 (1961) 193-213.
[2] *SP* 15 (1984) 71-2.
[3] S. Rossi, Il concetto di storia (1961), 194.
[4] *Ibid.* 195.

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pamphlet. A historical document, of course, but not history, in the sense of a writing conceived as historiographical.

At the end of his article, S. Rossi concludes that an elegant writer and a good Christian as Lactantius was couldn't rise against the persecutors with the insulting and contemptuous words C(a)ecilius did. Against this perspective, I would like to make reference to Ilona Opelt's article, 'Formen der Polemik im Pamphlet *De mortibus persecutorum*', who enterprises a comparative study between the polemical language of the *DMP* and that of the *Divine Institutions*.[5] From the first results of this comparison it is obvious that Lactantius, known as a moderate author, with an even-tempered level of expression, has the same hostility against the persecutors as the author of *DMP* (assuming that there are two different authors).

With regard to the polemical tone in the *DMP*, I find this very normal, as Lactantius writes in other times than he wrote his philosophical works: times of jubilation, when the joy of getting out of the oppression is combined with the visceral need of blaming your enemies. I would like to add here the testimony of my compatriot, Professor Arieşan, who, in the *Addenda* of his Romanian edition of *DMP* (Timişoara, 2000), is concerned with a comparison between two historical moments of liberation: the ancient one, described by Lactantius in the *DMP*, and the Romanian so-called 'Revolution' of December '89. It is true, I myself remember, although I was only a child, that many of those temperate people, with Christian life and thought, felt an enormous joy not only when the communist regime went down, but also when the tyrant himself was sent to death on the very Christmas day of December '89! Of course, after a while, they became aware of the mistake and felt sorrow. But on those days of unconscious joy, almost everybody threw his stone and claimed punishment and justice.

And, speaking about justice, it is more relevant to compare the conception of 'justice' from the *DMP*, on the one hand, and the 'genuine' works of Lactantius, on the other hand, than to focus the attention on the so-called 'Lactantius' conception of history'.

First Vicenzo Loi,[6] but recently more specifically Christine Ingrémeau[7] underlined the special meanings of the word *iustitia* in Lactantius' *Divine Institutions*. God appears to be the God of justice, the idea of 'justice' being strictly related to that of the 'true religion'. In *DMP*, we have the same image

[5] *Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum* 16 (1973) 98-105.

[6] Vicenzo Loi, Il concetto di *iustitia* e i fattori culturali dell' etica di Lattanzio: *Salesianum* 28 (1966) 583-625; *id.*, La funzione sociale della *iustitia* nella polemica anti-pagana di Lattanzio, in: *Letterature comparate: problemi e metodo. Studi in onore di Ettore Paratore*, 2nd vol. 'Letterature antiche' (Bologna, 1981), 843-52.

[7] Lactance et la Justice: du livre V au livre VI des *Institutions Divines*, in: Jean Yves Guillaumin and Stéphan Ratti (eds.), *Autour de Lactance: Hommages à Pierre Monat* (Besançon, 2003), 43-52.

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of the redeeming God, the God Who punishes His enemies and all those who dared to harm His people and Church. In support of this idea, it would not be superfluous to add the testimony of a whole treaty of Lactantius *On the Anger of God.*

But what seems to be highly relevant is the use of *iustitia* with a special meaning, synonymous with *religio* and *cultus*. Following the biblical meaning of 'divine justice', *iustitia* acquires a new one: 'the spirit of justice', 'the righteous way' or 'the righteous life' and, from here, 'the Christian religion'.

The predilection for this rare meaning has been highlighted by Vicenzo Loi[8] for the doctrinal works of Lactantius, but I would like to bring examples taken from the *DMP* with a similar use of *iustitia*:

1. *Cumque iam Nero imperaret, Petrus Romam aduenit et [...] conuertit multos ad iustitiam Deoque templum fidele ac stabile conlocauit* (2.5);[9]
2. *[Nero] prosiliuit ad excidendum caeleste templum delendamque iustitiam* (2.6);[10]
3. *Extitit enim post annos plurimos execrabile animal Decius, qui uexaret Ecclesiam: Quis enim iustitiam nisi malus persequatur?* (4.1).[11]

We must not overlook the following: for *DMP*, justice – attribute or even an instrument of God – is one of the key-concepts building the theoretical support of *DMP* contents. If the author of *DMP* weren't Lactantius, we would face an 'unfair competition' between the two senses on the author's level of conceptualization. So, the biblical sense, the pillar-sense, *i.e.* 'the righteousness of God', wouldn't make room for another sense, especially when this is a strange meaning, like the one V. Loi pointed out for the dogmatic writings of Lactantius ('Christian religion'). In other words, the biblical meaning would reject the presence of any other secondary meaning, except for the case that meaning B would be of a certain importance for the author. In this case of *iustitia – religio Chistiana*, the author could not be other than Lactantius.

Moreover, one must not ignore either the goal, or the narrative character of this writing, in which Lactantius allows the minimum of space for conceptualization and for the insistence on abstract terminology. It means that those abstract terms indicating a doctrinal thought are only the results of a conceptualization,

[8] See Vicenzo Loi, *Lattanzio nella storia del linguaggio e del pensiero teologico pre-niceno* (Zürich, 1970), 260-2; *id.*, La funzione sociale della *iustitia* (1981), 843-4 and *id.*, Il concetto di *iustitia* (1966), 597-604.

[9] 'It was when Nero was already emperor that Peter arrived in Rome; he converted many to righteousness and established a faithful and steadfast temple to God'.

[10] 'Nero leapt into action to overturn the heavenly temple and to abolish righteousness'.

[11] 'After a great number of years the abominable creature Decius emerged to trouble the Church; for who but an evil man would persecute righteousness?'

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not the conceptualization itself. Consequently, their presence in a narrative writing like the *DMP* shows a strong certitude with regard to the use of every meaning. This is one of the conclusions of a research I undertook on the abstract doctrinal vocabulary of the *DMP* and whose results were published last year in the Yearbook of the Faculty of Theology in Bucharest.[12] *Iustitia*, with the special meaning of (approx.) 'religion', counts among the terms submitted to this lexicographical research and its presence in the *DMP* indicates the presence of Lactantius, as well.

Now I would like to come back to Rossi's demonstration. I shall ignore statements like Caecilius' 'latino indescifrabile', which make no sense to those who have read at least once the original text of the *DMP*, and I shall not get into details of language analysis.

What I want to emphasize is the importance of the textual criticism in the discussion about the authorship of an ancient writing. Sante Rossi believes that the historian (*sic*!) Caecilius would be an ignorant concerning the history of the Christianity itself, as he doesn't know[13] that only Matthias was chosen to be Apostle in the place of the traitor Judas, not two persons (Matthias and Paul), as *DMP* states.[14] Indeed, we can read in the most important editions:

Et inde discipuli, qui tunc erant undecim, adsumptis in locum Iudae proditoris Mathia <et> Paulo dispersi sunt per omnem terram ad Euangelium praedicandum, sicut illis magister Dominus imperauerat

that 'the disciples of Jesus, who were at that time eleven, after adding to their number in place of Judas the traitor Matthias and Paul, scattered throughout the world etc.'

But this is only an error in establishing the text, a mistake of the first editor, Etienne Baluze, taken over by most of the modern editors.

It is not necessary to consider *paulo* from the manuscript the name of the Apostle, especially when it begins with no capital letter. Our solution to this passage starts from the assumption that *paulo* is rather an adverb.[15] In general, *paulo* with temporal use is to be found almost exclusively in structures like *paulo ante* or *paulo post*, or added to any other word containing the idea of comparison. So, we think that the insertion of a *post* before *dispersi sunt* would solve this problem of textual criticism instead of incorrectly amending the corrupt text by adding *<et>*. In most of the cases, this apparently insignificant word 'post' is abridged *p'* or *p^t*, which is very easy to overlook by the copyist. Hence, the fragment revised looks like this:

[12] Aspecte ale vocabularului doctrinar în latinitatea creştină – studiu lexicografic asupra scrierii *De mortibus persecutorum*, in: *Anuarul Facultății de Teologie Ortodoxă 'Patriarhul Justinian'* 6 (2006) 653-83.

[13] From the New Testament, *Acts* 1:21.

[14] S. Rossi, Il concetto di storia (1961), 207.

[15] This solution has been proposed to me in 2005 by Professor Jacques Schamp, from the University of Fribourg, Suisse.

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Et inde discipuli, qui tunc erant undecim, adsumpto in locum Iudae proditoris Mathia paulo <post> dispersi sunt per omnem terram ad Euangelium praedicandum, sicut illis magister Dominus imperauerat.[16]

I brought forward this example with reference to Rossi's article, in order to underline the necessity of taking into account both textual criticism and lexicographical research when dealing with the complex matter of authorship – especially the authorship of a writing considered to be of highest importance for the history of the beginning of the fourth Christian century. And I think here is the stake, too. Nobody wants to add something to Lactantius' list of publications, neither is somebody interested in cutting out his author rights. But the fact is that the authorship of the *DMP* is directly related to its authority as a historical source.

Many scholars made efforts to prove that the *DMP* is a work of propaganda, an instrument used to increase the popularity of Constantine the Great, laying stress on the tendentiousness of the author of the *DMP*. Of course, one could search and find elements of political propaganda, but I doubt it would be the main purpose of our author. I would call it a mere partisan sympathy. In his account of historical events, every historian of Antiquity (if we may call them 'historians') has a soft side (or even a weakness) for somebody, as well as he has repugnance for others. Constantine appears to be 'the saviour' of the Empire and of the Christian Church at that time and he remained as such in the unwritten memory of the Universal Church up to nowadays. Lactantius is a partisan of Constantine, but, in my opinion, we should see in the author of the *DMP* the same partisan of justice as Lactantius from the *Divine Institutions, Epitome* or *On the Anger of God*.

Actually, the central topic of the *DMP* is that those who dared to persecute the Church of God have been punished in a terrible and well-deserved way. I believe that minimizing the relevance of the *DMP* to history is equivalent with minimizing the importance of this assumption about the punishment of the persecutors.

Therefore, in order to recover the relevance of the *DMP* to history, on the basis of the evidence related to the concept of justice, it is – so to say – 'righteous' to give this orphan-work its papers of identity, by recognizing Lactantius as its genuine author.

[16] 'The disciples of Jesus, who were at that time eleven, after adding Matthias to their number in place of Judas the traitor, scattered a little while afterwards throughout the world to preach the Gospel as their Lord and Master had commanded them.'

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Cyprian's Notion of Unity – an Ecumenical Aim?

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Unity is one of the key terms of Cyprian's ecclesiology. He is convinced that there is but one Church, not a multitude of churches. And also internally the Church's foremost characteristic is overarching oneness, even if she is territorially split for the sake of better administration.[1]

Striving for the unity of the Church no doubt is the major link between Cyprian's endeavours and the current ecumenical movement. Yet there is an important difference: To Cyprian there does not seem to be any question of *what sort of unity* he was aiming at, whereas current ecumenism shows a somewhat heterogeneous picture. It is not absolutely clear what unity we are looking for in our ecumenical gatherings and dialogues[2] because each denomination seems to favour its own brand. The reason for this is rather simple: Each denomination already enacts in itself its own notion of unity and naturally enough tries to apply the kind of 'denominational' unity it prefers to the ecumenical movement as a whole. Some of the Protestant Churches, the Lutherans and Reformed for example, favour the concept of a federation of churches or – more recently – shifted their preference towards a communion of churches, which already constitutes the ideal of the Anglicans; the Roman Catholic Church strives for full visible unity, the Orthodox Churches rather aim at a communion of autocephalous churches, and the Pentecostals favour yet another notion. Apparently it is the big tragedy of ecumenism that one cannot deduce an overall notion of unity from these denominational versions. There seem to be more or less widely accepted visions of unity, but no overall model.

Yet Cyprian dealt with the problem of church unity before the current denominations arose. Can he help us in our present ecumenical situation? In order to answer this question we'll first have a closer look at his concept of unity and shall then ask whether Cyprian's notion of unity can still be applied in our contemporary ecumenical situation.

[1] See Cyprian, *De Ecclesiae Catholicae Unitate* 5, ed. Maurice Bévenot (Oxford, 1971), 64: *Ecclesia una est quae in multitudinem latius incremento fecunditatis extenditur.*

[2] See the attempts of the WCC, especially 'Faith and Order' at a common notion of unity.

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1. Cyprian's notion of unity: context and content

At first glance, Cyprian's idea of unity seems to be a very rigid one: 'You cannot have God for your Father if you no longer have the Church for your mother'[3] – runs his verdict in *De ecclesiae catholicae unitate*, his main tract on church unity. And in the same chapter 6 he quotes from *Matthew* 12:30: 'He that is not with me is against me, and he that gathereth not with me, scattereth.'[4] Cyprian is concerned with those who threaten the unity of the Christian community. He marks the boundaries of church unity very clearly and rather relentlessly.

For it was not easy to be a bishop in Cyprian's time: As a direct result of the Emperor's order to sacrifice (in 250/51 C.E.) he and his diocese had to face persecutions which in themselves would have been hard enough.[5] But even worse, indirectly the order of Decius also caused a split in the Christian parishes and subsequently Cyprian had to cope with competing groups and rival bishops in his own diocese. The controversy concerned the so called 'lapsi'.[6] How ought one to deal with those who had sacrificed (or had only bought a certificate of sacrifice) during the persecution and who now sought forgiveness and wanted to rejoin the community of the faithful? While some of the 'martyrs' who had withstood the Emperor's order readmitted the lapsed into communion without much ado, Cyprian took a much stricter stance imposing the customary penance. His opponent Felicissimus accused him of being too severe and thus gained a lot of followers. In the midst of this trouble Cyprian wrote *De ecclesiae catholicae unitate* – presumably as a response to the Carthaginian laxist party saying that there can be only one Church and that the rival communities do not possess a Christian identity.[7]

In arguing this Cyprian also explains his general notion of church unity. He outlines it in such a way that it is applicable not only to the problem at hand but also to later ones, *e.g.* the Roman Schism and the baptismal controversy. The unity of the Church is not just an achievement of efficient administration, but has its source in God (ch. 14). Not even the emergence of local churches

[3] Cyprian, *De Ecclesiae Catholicae Unitate* 6, ed. Bévenot, 66/ transl. 67.

[4] Cyprian, *De Ecclesiae Catholicae Unitate* 6, ed. Bévenot, 66/ transl. 67. See Hermann Josef Vogt, Cyprian – Hindernis für die Ökumene?: *Theologische Quartalschrift* 164 (1984) 1-15, who quotes this as a token for Cyprian's strictness.

[5] They caused Cyprian to hide himself in the countryside, a fact which his opponents in Carthage used very much against him.

[6] See Geoffrey D. Dunn, Heresy and Schism According to Cyprian of Carthage: *The Journal of Theological Studies N.S.* 55 (2004) 551-74, 559, also Andreas Hoffmann, Die Kirche – einig, heilsnotwendig, auf göttliches Gesetz gegründet. Grundlagen des Kirchenverständnisses bei Cyprian von Karthago, in: Johannes Arnold, *et al.* (eds.), *Väter der Kirche* (Paderborn a. o., 2004), 365-88, 369f.

[7] See Geoffrey D. Dunn, Heresy and Schism (2004), 558. The possibilities of modern applicability which Andrew Hamilton, Cyprian and Church Unity: *Pacifica* 8 (1995) 9-21 offers are rather poor.

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does diminish it (ch. 5). Unity of the church universal and of the local church go hand in hand. There are different levels and several dimensions for which Cyprian uses metaphors like sun, tree, and river; their respective punch line is that the church is indivisible. To Cyprian unity means inseparability and absence of division. To symbolize the Church's unity there is a special hallmark, Peter. Although the resurrected Lord conferred the power to bind and to loosen to all the apostles, he founded his church only on one, because he wished that they all may be one. There is a strong emphasis on this in the phrase *primatus Petro datur* – 'a primacy is given to Peter, and it is [thus] made clear that there is but one Church and one Chair.'[8] Thus runs one of the two versions of chapter 4 of *De ecclesiae catholicae unitate*, which very likely Cyprian himself drafted. Which of the two texts is the earlier one is still contested among experts[9] – but this question is not the focus of our attention. Peter, so to speak, is an archetype of church ministry and also a model for the local bishop.

The unity of the church is further guaranteed by the bishops: *Episcopatus unus est cuius a singulis in solidum pars tenetur* – 'The authority of the bishops forms a unity, of which each holds his part in its totality.'[10] As Bévenot notes 'in its totality' here means 'indivisibly'. A closer look reveals that Cyprian interprets the episcopal unity in a threefold way: First, it means the uniqueness of the local bishop. There can be only one righteously appointed bishop at a time.[11] This entails that all rival bishops are mere 'nothings'.[12] Secondly, the part represents the whole. Each local church under the governance of a canonically elected bishop represents the church universal and acts as a symbol of church unity. Thirdly, the unity of the church is connected to the unanimousness of the bishops.[13] This does not mean that all bishops always have to be of one opinion, provided they are prepared to account in the end for their doing to God. Cyprian allows for what Clarke calls the 'characteristic Cyprianic outlet for episcopal disagreement within an overall structure of ecclesiastical unity'.[14] Nevertheless, the one ministry is symbol and expression of the unity of the church.[15]

[8] Cyprian, *De Ecclesiae Catholicae Unitate* 4, ed. Bévenot, 62/ transl. 63.

[9] Bévenot thinks of this version as the first edition, whereas Chapman sees it as the second edition.

[10] Cyprian, *De Ecclesiae Catholicae Unitate* 5, ed. Bévenot, 64/ transl. 65.

[11] Cyprian, *Ep.* 44.3, ed. Wilhelm von Hartel, CSEL 3.2 (Wien, 1868), 599,4: *episcopo semel facto et collegarum ac plebis testimonio et iudicio conprobato alium constitui nullo modo posse.*

[12] Cyprian, *Ep.* 55.8, ed. Hartel CSEL 3.2, 630,8: *cum post primum secundus esse non possit, quisque post unum qui solus esse debeat factus est iam non secundus ille sed nullus est.*

[13] See Anneliese Adolph, *Die Theologie der Einheit der Kirche bei Cyprian* (Frankfurt a.M. a.o., 1993), 23. See also James Patout Burns, The Eucharist as the Foundation of Christian Unity in North African Theology: *Augustinian Studies* 32 (2001) 1-23, 21f.

[14] Cyprian, *The Letters*, transl. Graeme W. Clarke, vol. 4, Ancient Christian Writers 47 (New York a.o., 1989), 218.

[15] 'Darstellen', not 'Herstellen', see Anneliese Adolph, *Die Theologie der Einheit der Kirche* (1993), 32.

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There is a second idea which is crucial for Cyprian's notion of unity, the universal salvific mediatorship of the Church. Developing this idea, Cyprian establishes a link between the gift of the Holy Spirit, the sacraments, and the unity of the Church: *salus extra ecclesiam non est* – 'there is no salvation outside the Church',[16] for there are no Baptism, no Eucharist and no other sacraments outside the Church. Salvation depends upon membership of the Church and for Cyprian the belonging or not belonging to the Church is clear-cut. As soon as someone breaks off full communion with the local church and its bishop he or she is completely outside the Church. For, as Dunn puts it, 'there was no such thing as partial communion in Cyprian's ecclesiology. A schismatic church, in the modern sense of the term – one that preserved true Christian faith and sacraments but was divided at the level of governance – could not exist in Cyprian's mind.'[17] The baptismal controversy offers a very good example: To those who had been baptized in one of the splinter groups and who now wanted to become members of the Church Cyprian responds that the Church alone has the possibility to baptize and that for him 'the question is not one of rebaptism but of baptism.'[18]

Cyprian's strictness is partly due to the fact that he does not distinguish clearly between heretics and schismatics.[19] Yet on the other hand, along those lines most of the churches engaged in ecumenical dialogue today would have to regard each other as heretical rather than schismatic groups. Let us therefore ask now how to apply Cyprian's notion to our current situation.

2. The impact of Cyprian's notion on ecumenism

At first sight it does not seem applicable at all. We cannot take the statements Cyprian made in a particular context and maintain that they carry the same meaning, when read in another context. Yet there must be a third alternative apart from an unjustified transfer of content on the one hand, and continuing on the ecumenical track without bothering about the past on the other.[20] This alternative ought to beware of accusing Cyprian of ecumenical narrowness and of 'reading too much back into the ancient sources from our present understanding

[16] Cyprian, *Ep.* 73.21, ed. Hartel, CSEL 3.2, 795,3.

[17] Geoffrey D. Dunn, Nam quae foris exercentur nullum habent salutis effectum: Cyprian and the Episcopal Synod of September 256, in: *Pagani e cristiani alla ricerca della salvezza (secoli I-III)*, ed. Institutum Patristicum Augustinianum, Studia ephemeridis Augustinianum 96 (Rome, 2006), 513-24, 516.

[18] Johann Jayakiran Sebastian, *'...baptisma unum in sancta ecclesia...' A theological appraisal of the baptismal controversy in the work and writings of Cyprian of Carthage* (Ammersbek bei Hamburg, 1997), 31. Another example would be the Roman Schism. In theory this would also have been true of heretical or schismatic ordination.

[19] See Geoffrey D. Dunn, Nam quae foris exercentur (2006), 514. See also *id.*, Heresy and Schism (2004), 573f.

[20] See Johann Jayakiran Sebastian, *'...baptisma unum in sancta ecclesia...'* (1997), 181.

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of the 'broadness' of ecumenism'.[21] For if it comes to that, Cyprian could as well be classified as a precursor of the so called 'ecumenism of difference',[22] the new trend of looking for denominational identity via demarcation of one's own denominational territory and via differentiation.

Cyprian himself indicated that he thought his notion transferable by applying it to different situations throughout his life. Whether we still think it applicable today depends on whether we still have to cope with similar problems. And indeed there are recurrent themes. One of them is whether it is God's wish to bestow salvation only via the Church. Walter Cardinal Kasper put this ecumenical issue as follows: 'The core question is whether and to what extent God meets us not only "in" but also "by means of" the Church. One can also ask the same question about the Church's salvific function like this: "Is there a direct relation of the individual Christian to God, or is his or her personal relation to God mediated by the Church?" Answering this, a more individualistic Protestant and a more community-related Catholic understanding of church are up against each other.'[23] If we want to classify Cyprian along Kasper's lines he certainly advocates the 'more community-related Catholic understanding' going even further by stating that outside the Church the Spirit does not work and the sacraments are null and void. During the Reformation relying on Cyprian '[e]ach side not only identified itself as the true church but asserted that participation in its own communion was essential for salvation'.[24] As an example I'd like to quote the title of a book by John Sage (1652-1711) held by Christ Church Special Collection, *The Principles of the Cyprianic Age... By which it is evident, that the Vindicator of the Kirk of Scotland is obliged by his own concessions to acknowledge, that he and his associates are schismaticks.* This is the reason for Cyprian's ecumenical popularity with so many different churches. If there is but one true church, the ecumenically relevant question is: Where are the boundaries of the Church? Cyprian's answer was to identify them with the boundaries of his own church. The demarcation line consisted of canonical differences. But as Georgij Florovskij suggests, 'Saint Cyprian was right: the sacraments are performed only in the Church. But he determined the "in" too hastily and in too narrow a way. Wouldn't it be better to deduce things the other way round: Where the sacraments are performed, there is the Church? Saint Cyprian tacitly took it for granted that the canonical boundary of the Church is always naturally also its spiritual boundary.'[25] So, for example, to Cyprian

[21] Johann Jayakiran Sebastian, '*... baptisma unum in sancta ecclesia ...*' (1997), 64f.

[22] See Wolfgang Huber, Was bedeutet Ökumene der Profile?, in: Johannes Brosseder, *et. al.* (eds.), *Kein Anlass zur Verwerfung: Studien zur Hermeneutik des ökumenischen Gesprächs* (Frankfurt a.M., 2007), 399-410.

[23] Walter Kasper, Ökumene im Wandel: *Stimmen der Zeit* 225 (2007) 3-18, 9 [my translation].

[24] James Patout Burns, The Eucharist as the Foundation (2001), 19.

[25] Georgij Florovskij, O granicach cerkivi: *Put'* 44 (1934) 16f.; French translation in: *Messager de l'Exarchat du Patriarche Russe en Europe Occidentale* 10 (1961) 28-40.

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the baptism of other churches is ineffective, it is no baptism at all and therefore null and void. We however regard the baptism of most churches as effective and therefore valid because we have accepted Augustine's differentiation between the spiritual and the canonical boundaries of the Church. Would the conclusion along the lines of Cyprian accordingly be that we are all one Church? Does the validity and effectiveness of one sacrament necessarily mean the validity and effectiveness of all? And does it necessarily entail the recognition as one Church? Cyprian very much tried to avoid this conclusion by cutting off this whole track of thoughts.

However, precisely because of his persistence Cyprian could also be seen as an advocate of unity as shown by the *Regensburger Buch*, one of the last attempts to stop the Reformation in Germany.[26] During Cyprian's time, 'Christians were trying to present a *relatively unified front to the outside world*, especially the world of the state and its sporadic persecutions.'[27] If nothing else, he was an advocate of unanimous Christian witness, of a Christian witness in unison conducted in a basically non-Christian world. This equates today's aim of visible unity, which Porto Alegre advocated in February 2006 and the 3rd European Ecumenical Assembly in Sibiu, Romania, professed in September 2007. In this sense we can term Cyprian even a promotor of ecumenism.

[26] See Josef Lößl, Augustinus im 'Regensburger Buch' (1541): *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 111 (2000) 28-55.

[27] Johann Jayakiran Sebastian, '...*baptisma unum in sancta ecclesia*...' (1997), 30, note 57.

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Lactantius on the Function of the Two Ways

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The main point of this paper is that the doctrine of the two ways plays a key role in Lactantius' theological system. I will first give a survey of the main characteristics of Lactantius' version of the doctrine; second, I will compare his discussions of the doctrine with several passages concerning the theory of the two Spirits and the providential function of evil; and finally, I hope to show how the doctrine of the two ways serves as a background for the author's conception of his own task as apologist.

I.

1. In this earthy life, the smooth and sloping way which leads to Hell, guided by the Devil himself, offers (*e.g. posuit, proposuit, ostendit*) all kinds of advantages, including wealth, reputation, pleasure and even quiet, but also all manner of vices. The steep, bumpy, and narrow way that leads to Heaven, guided by Christ, offers all kind of disadvantages, but also virtues. Thus, in this world the life of the pious man is bound to be full of misery, whereas the wicked lives in the midst of pleasures. Both ways continue into the other world, where the experience of suffering is reversed. The good obtains eternal happiness, while the others finds perpetual misery.[1]

2. Since his Fall, the Devil has been the guide on the path to Hell.[2] As for the right but difficult road, Christ is our guide (*praecursor*), not as the incorporeal, but as the incarnated Son of God.[3] Christ set an example to follow exactly by sustaining every torture that a man could conceivably endure on the road to Heaven.[4] Thus this way – by contrast to the other – has been open only from the Incarnation. To translate the metaphor: the possibility of travelling the right road is not a given, but has existed only since Christ's coming into the world.

[1] *Inst.* 6.4,3ff.
[2] *Inst.* 6.7,3
[3] *Inst.* 7.1,3.
[4] Besides, in book 4 of *Divine Institutions* we learn that God has opened the way to overcoming the flesh by sending His Son. See *Inst.* 4.25.

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3. Further, Satan does not want to deceive only those who indulge in carnal desires or other earthly passions. He exploits even some noble inclinations of the pagans for his purposes, like their sense of transcendence and their yearning for wisdom. A certain kind of philosopher becomes an appropriate target of Satan's allurement by his very effort to distinguish good and evil. For him, Satan opens up a special path which, by being steep and bumpy, imitates the way that leads to Heaven.[5]

4. Lactantius' version of the doctrine emphasises the opposition of the eternal and the temporary, as well as that of future and present goods. On each of the two ways God offers a choice of good and evil, but in reversed order. On the right way, He sets out a program of temporary evils followed by eternal goods. On the wrong way He offers us first temporary goods and later eternal evils.[6]

5. With the opposition of the temporary and the eternal goes another: that of appearance and reality. Lactantius describes the temporary goods as anything *that on earth is regarded as good.* One who has chosen these alleged goods is *captivated by the appearance of present goods.*[7] This aspect is even more strongly emphasised in the case of the 'diversions' on the wrong way.

6. This latter opposition entails the idea of a deceitful God. According to the apologist, God too, and not only the Devil deceives mortals, because God himself has concealed the real value of things, in order to educate and train humanity.[8]

7. In this system the sins of the wicked serve as instruments for the educative torture of the pious. For the larger part of the blows which the righteous must sustain are in fact caused by the vices of the wicked.

8. Due to the nature of the two ways, it is much easier for the impious to achieve their wrong aims than it is for the pious to realize their noble purposes. Hence the former receive much more encouragement than the good from the outside world. Moreover, the steadiness of the righteous does not but fuel the wickedness of the impious, because the latter are at heart aware that they are on the right path.[9] The mechanism of the two ways therefore seems more appropriate for the maximisation of crime and for shaking the faith of Christians than for advancing conversion, a subject about which Lactantius himself reports with enthusiasm.

9. For the sake of my further argument, a trait of Lactantius' terminology must be highlighted. This is the fact that the blows suffered by the pious are often

[5] *Inst.* 6.7,2-7; 7,1-2.
[6] *Inst.* 6.4,4.
[7] *Inst.* 6.4,3. See 6.2,1-2.
[8] *Inst.* 6.4,20.
[9] *Inst.* 5.21,1-6 (SC 204, 244-6); 5.22.5-6 (SC 204, 248-50); 6.4,9.

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referred to as bitterness, in contast to the *sweetness* experienced by those on the other way.[10]

10. At this point, we can resume what I would call the logic of the two ways: everyone is confronted with a choice whether to choose present, temporary, and apparent advantages while drawing upon oneself disadvantages which are future, eternal, and real; or to suffer present, temporary, apparent disadvantages in order to earn advantages that are future, eternal, and real.

II.

In what follows I try to show that this logic of the two ways permeates Lactantius' entire theological system.

1. In the longer version of book 2 of *Divine Institutions* we read that the procreation of the two Spirits before Creation has a cosmological and an ethical purpose. From the ethical point of view, the evil Spirit came to being so that virtue might exist and develop, which could not happen without the moving force of suffering (*nisi malis agitetur*). At first sight, the role here attributed to the Devil seems to consist not in alluring, as is the case in the passages on the two ways, but exclusively in persecuting mankind for the sake of virtue, which Lactantius identifies with the ability to endure suffering. But the argument that follows, based on the logical interdependence of good and evil, raises doubts about the viability of this interpretation. After some examples like that of health and illness which seem to point merely to external goods and evils, the key sentence reads as follows: *Neither can good be grasped or perceived without avoiding and escaping from evil, nor evil be kept away and overcome unless by means of grasping and perceiving the good.*[11] In my view, in this utterance the words *bonum* and *malum* admit a moral, rather than a physical interpretation. The good which must be grasped and perceived can hardly be only external if the development of virtue depends on it. Similarly, the evil to be avoided and overcome is more likely to be of a moral character if the virtue is at stake; for according to the author, virtue consists not of avoiding and keeping away external evils, but in the endurance of them. Consequently, the agitation of virtue by the evil Spirit must lie not only in persecution, but also in allurement. To be sure, the function of the Devil as torturer is stressed on several occasions, but his stratagem of ensnaring with desire and lust is also emphasized[12] An analysis of the famous addition of *De opificio Dei* would also show that the

[10] *Inst.* 6.3,4; 6.3,8; 6.4,3; 6.4,7; 6.4,17; 6.4,20.
[11] *Inst.* 2.9,2-3.
[12] *Inst.* 3.29; 6.23.

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verb *agito* has a double meaning with respect to the role of the Devil as a trainer of human virtue.[13]

2. According to a passage, occurring only in the longer versions of the work, Man has experienced evil as a result of the fall. He is therefore given the task of choosing between good and evil. The ability to do this is wisdom which itself could not be exerted without the existence of evil. According to this text, the first sin has an educative function, for it is due to the sin that man has received (*accepit*) the knowledge of good and evil: that is, the ability to distinguish between them. This gift made the human creature, who before was only a baby, into Man. But God has made the use of this power of distinction between good and evil more difficult, by mingling advantages of appearance with real disadvantages and disadvantages of appearance with real advantages. So the deceptive conjunction of reality and appearance is a fundamental characteristic of human existence on earth. For advantages and disadvantages the author uses among others the word *suavitas* and *acerbitas*, terms which clearly point to the doctrine of the two ways.[14]

3. The famous chapter 13 of Lactantius' *On the Anger of God* makes clearer that, for the author, the logic of the two ways forms the core of the plan of divine providence.[15] This text discusses the question how one can maintain that everything is created for the use of man, if there are many things in Creation which are harmful to us. The answer is that God set (*proposuit*) both good and evil before man for the sake of wisdom, defined as the ability to distinguish between them. At this stage, both are to be understood in an external, physical sense (see for example the following passage: *wisdom desires the good for usefulness, but rejects evil for safety.* For evil things are *the material of wisdom.*[16] If only good things were available, wisdom would be unnecessary. This statement is illustrated by an example. As Lactantius writes, if one places before little children *(infantes)*, who as yet have no real intelligence, meals which consist exclusively of foods which are useful and salutary to them, there will be for them to grow up mentally. But – *Lactantius continues – if you add a mixture (admisceas) either of bitter, useless, or even poisonous things, they are plainly deceived through their ignorance of good and evil* ... Thus we finally learn what wisdom is for: It c*auses us to know God, and by that knowledge to attain to immortality, which is the chief good.*

The simile of the children's dinner represented a world where the real and the apparent are never in conflict. This world would need no wisdom, nor the

[13] *Opif.* 19[bis] (SC 213, 212).

[14] *Inst.* 7.5*.

[15] *De ira* 13.13ff.

[16] This is a reminiscence of a quasi-theodicy of the Stoics. See Cicero, *De finibus bonorum et malorum* 3.18,60f.

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power of decision between good and evil, because everything would be what it claims to be. The dinner after the addition of a mixture of bitter, useless or poisonous things is the image of our real world where nothing is what it appears to be, for apparent advantages are connected with real disadvantages and apparent disadvantages are tied to real advantages, so that man is easily deceived. That is the logic of the two ways. Even the terminology calls to one's mind the language and imagery of the two ways metaphor (*proposuit*; *amara*). The children represent pre-lapsarian man, who was compared to a child in *inst.* 7.5*. But we should also understand that certain key terms slip from a lower, material level to a higher, moral one in the course of the simile, for wisdom in the second part is no practical, but moral; and its objects are no longer temporary and apparent goods and evils, but rather the reality of eternal Good and Evil. Concepts like u*sefulness* and *safety* (*salus*) are also transposed to a higher level of significance. The most striking feature of the text is that it enacts a process in the reader which is somehow analogous to the path which leads from impiety to piety. At first deceived by the apparent, earthly meaning of the words, he comes to grasp their real connotations. He is invited to travel from appearance to reality. Thus Lactantius teaches that God, by concealing the real values of things, does not simply make the practice of wisdom more difficult, as *inst.* 7,5* seems to suggest. Instead, he makes it possible.

From this it also follows that although the capacity to choose the correct way is given to man only at the Incarnation, the deceptive conjunction of reality and appearance and the obligation to choose between them influences the entire history of fallen Man.

III.

In the preface of Divine Institutions, Lactantius explains why he felt obliged to write his apologetic work for convincing the Pagans and affirming the faith of Christians whose faith was shaken by the persecutions. Because, he writes, *bitterness* (*amaritudo*) is mixed with *virtues* (*permixta est*), *while vices are seasoned with pleasure, offended by the former and soothed by the latter, these people are borne headlong, and deceived by the appearance of good things, embracing evils for goods. I believe that these errors ought to be encountered ...*[17]

This means that in Lactantius' view his apologetic work is necessitated by the very logic of the two ways. This point becomes clearer if we take a brief look at some passages from book 5, where he reveals more about his apologetic aims and strategies. Here he complains that pagan philosophers and orators *are easily able to ensnare unwary souls by the sweetness of their discourse*: ... *all*

[17] *Inst.* 1. praef. 7

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this is honey – he adds – *which conceals poison.*[18] The parallelism with the activity of the Devil on his false way is obvious, and Lactantius' terminology is actually very similar.

Lactantius continues that since educated people consider as true only what is sweet to hear (*auditu suave est*), they are inclined to reject the Bible, which is written in the simple Latin of the masses.[19] Therefore he has chosen the method of Lucretius: *Only let the cup be anointed with the heavenly honey of wisdom, that the bitter remedies may be drunk by them unawares, without any annoyance, whilst the first sweetness of taste by its allurement conceals, under the cover of pleasantness* (*suavitatis*), *the bitterness* (*acerbitatem*) *of the harsh flavour.*[20] This strategy resembles that used by the enemies of Christianity inasmuch as what is sweet is in both cases on top, in order to allure and deceive the unsuspicious tongue. There is however a great difference. Lactantius sweetness conceals something bitter, while the other hides poison: the poison of Damnation itself. The bitter medicine offered by Lactantius is Christian doctrine, with its austere moral requirements. This latter element suggests that Lactantus' trick is not only a reply to the strategies of the pagan philosophers and the orators. By connecting the manifest sweetness of rhetoric with the real good, which is the eternal happiness promised by the Christian doctrine, he does something which is naturally quite opposed to the logic of the two ways. One may say that Lactantius as apologist offers an antidote to the mechanism of the two ways, which, as we saw, seems in itself more suited to maximising crime than to advancing the cause of mass conversion.

[18] *Inst.* 5.1,10-1 (SC 204, 128-30).
[19] *Inst.* 5.1,17 (SC 204, 130).
[20] *Inst.* 5.1,14 (SC 204, 130).

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Laktanz und die Johannesoffenbarung

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Im abschließenden siebten Buch seiner *Diuinae institutiones* schildert Laktanz das kommende Ende der Welt.[1] Die chiliastische Eschatologie, die er dabei entwickelt, stimmt in wesentlichen Punkten mit derjenigen der Johannesoffenbarung überein:

1. Vor dem Antichrist tritt ein gottgesandter Prophet auf. Der Antichrist tötet diesen, Gott aber erhebt ihn in den Himmel.[2]
2. Bei der Parusie Christi kommt es zu einer Schlacht, in der der Antichrist geschlagen wird.[3]
3. Während dieses Tausendjährigen Reiches herrscht Christus zusammen mit den Gerechten, die in der ersten Auferstehung auferweckt wurden.[4] Diese erste Auferstehung wird von einer zweiten nach dem Tausendjährigen Gottesreich und der Vernichtung des Bösen unterschieden.[5]
4. Nach dem Ende des Tausendjährigen Reichs wird der Teufel nochmals freigelassen, endgültig besiegt und zusammen mit den Seinen ewiger Strafe zugeführt, ehe die Welt verwandelt wird.[6]

Die Forschung hat diese Parallelen sehr wohl erkannt und hervorgehoben.[7] Und doch wollen viele Gelehrte keine direkte Abhängigkeit des Laktanz von der

[1] Die folgenden Ausführungen beruhen auf Ergebnissen meiner Habilitationsschrift mit dem Titel: Laktanz, *Diuinae institiones*, Buch 7: *De uita beata*. Einleitung, Text, Übersetzung und Kommentar (Berlin and New York, 2009). Insbesondere finden sich dort weitere Angaben über den Zusammenhang und zur Geschichte einzelner Endzeitmotive bei Laktanz, so dass dies hier unberücksichtigt bleiben kann.

[2] Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,1-8 und *Offb.* 11:3-14; 13:1-18.

[3] Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,11; 19,5f. und *Offb.* 17:13f.; 19:1-21.

[4] Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,2-6 und *Offb.* 20:11-5.

[5] Erste Auferstehung: Lact., *Inst.* 7.20,4ff. und *Offb.* 20:1-3, zweite Auferstehung Lact., *Inst.* 7.26,6 und *Offb.* 20:11-5.

[6] Lact., *Inst.* 7.26,1-7 und *Offb.* 20:7-10.14.

[7] Bereits der vorzügliche Similienapparat der Ausgabe *L. Caeli Firmiani Lactanti opera omnia*, recensuerunt Samuel Brandt et Georg Laubmann, *I: Divinae institutiones et epitome divinarum institutionum*, recensuit Samuel Brandt, CSEL 19 (Prag, Wien, and Leipzig, 1890), bietet das Wesentliche, ebenso Jean Allenbach (*et al.*), *Biblia Patristica: Index des citations et allusions bibliques dans la littérature patristique II* (Paris, 1977). Wie Laktanz in der chiliastischen Tradition der Johannesoffenbarung steht, legt Valentin Fàbrega, Die chiliastische Lehre des Laktanz. Methodische und theologische Voraussetzungen und religionsgeschichtlicher Hintergrund: *JbAC* 17 (1974) 126-46, überzeugend dar.

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Johannesoffenbarung annehmen, jeweils in unterschiedlichem Zusammenhang: Pierre Monat spart diese Frage in seiner Monographie „Lactance et la Bible" aus, Oliver Nicholson sieht eher historische Ereignisse als Motive der Johannesoffenbarung, Martine Dulaey vermutet deren Vermittlung durch Victorinus von Pettau, David Aune äußert in seinem umfangreichen Kommentar zur Johannesoffenbarung, dass Laktanz eine Quelle der Johannesoffenbarung, nicht diese selbst benutze, und folgt damit einer schon früher vor allem von Klaus Berger und David Flusser vertretenen These.[8]

Hier ist nicht der Ort, quellenkritisch zu untersuchen und zu belegen, inwieweit Laktanz die Johannesoffenbarung benutzt. Vielmehr wollen wir einen Blick auf die Art und Weise werfen, in der Laktanz die Texte aus dem letzten Buch der Bibel auswählt, verändert und bearbeitet. Denn – so viel sei hier schon vorweggenommen – gerade die Methodik seiner Rezeption scheint mir die (in der Sache kaum zu bezweifelnde) Nutzung der Johannesoffenbarung bei Laktanz zu verdunkeln. – Gehen wir also vier Passagen aus dem siebten Buch der *Diuinae institutiones* durch, an denen die Darstellung des Laktanz auf der Johannesoffenbarung fußt, und betrachten wir den Umgang mit dieser Vorlage!

1. Der gottgesandte Prophet und der Antichrist

Laktanz kündigt – ohne zunächst diesen Namen zu erwähnen – das Kommen des Antichrist an (Kapitel 17). Seine Darstellung weist bemerkenswerte Übereinstimmungen mit der Johannesoffenbarung auf, und zwar in folgenden Punkten der Handlung:

- Gott sendet einen beziehungsweise zwei Propheten (*Offb.* 11:3; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,1).
- Der Prophet/die Propheten haben die Macht, Wunder zu tun, nämlich den Regen zu verhindern, Wasser in Blut zu verwandeln und ihre Gegner zu vernichten (*Offb.* 11:6.5; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,1f.)
- Dann erhebt sich eine Widersachergestalt, die den/die Propheten tötet und unbestattet liegen lässt (*Offb.* 11:7f.; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,2f.).

[8] Pierre Monat, *Lactance et la Bible: Une propédeutique latine à la lecture de la Bible dans l'Occident constantinien* (Paris, 1982); Oliver Nicholson, *Porphecy and politics in the age of Constantine the Great*, Diss. (Oxford, 1981), 312-20; Martine Dulaey, *Victorin de Poetovio: Premier exégète latin* (Paris, 1993), I 316-9; David E. Aune, *Revelation*, World Biblical Commentary 52, II (Nashville, 1997), 590-3. 726-8; Klaus Berger, *Die Auferstehung des Propheten und die Erhöhung des Menschensohnes: Traditionsgeschichtliche Untersuchungen zur Deutung des Geschickes Jesu in frühchristlichen Texten* (Göttingen, 1976), 66-74; David Flusser, Hystaspes and John of Patmos, in: ders., *Judaism and the origins of Christianity* (Jerusalem, 1988), 390-453, erstmals in: Saul Shaked (Hrsg.), *Irano-Judaica* (Jerusalem, 1982), 12-75, hier v. a. 23-9. Vorsichtig ist teilweise auch Hedwigis Wilhelmina Antonia van Rooijen-Dijkman, *De vita beata: Het zevende boek van de Divinae institutiones van Lactantius. Analyse en bronnenonderzoek*, Diss. (Leiden, Assen, 1967), etwa 140.

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- Nach drei Tagen erwachen der Prophet/die Propheten wieder zum Leben und werden von Gott in den Himmel aufgenommen (*Offb.* 11:11f.; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,3).
- Die Widersachergestalt verführt die Menschen mit Zeichen; sie lässt etwa Feuer vom Himmel fallen und eine Statue sprechen (*Offb.* 13:13.15; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,4-6).
- Sie versieht ihre Anhänger mit einem Zeichen (*Offb.* 13:16; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,7).
- Die meisten Menschen verehren sie; diejenigen aber, die Gott treu bleiben, erleiden Verfolgung oder Tod (*Offb.* 13:8.10.15; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,7).
- Der Widersachergestalt ist eine Herrschaft von 42 Monaten gegeben (*Offb.* 13:5; Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,8).

Laktanz geht offensichtlich folgendermaßen vor: Er verbindet zwei Perikopen (aus Kapitel 11 und 13), in denen jeweils das „Tier" für den Antichrist steht, zu einer.[9] Aus den beiden Propheten der biblischen Vorlage macht Laktanz einen.[10] Aus den insgesamt drei Tieren – eines in Kapitel 11 der Johannesoffenbarung, zwei in Kapitel 13 – wird eine menschliche Widersachergestalt, die Laktanz später[11] mit dem Antichrist identifiziert. Es entsteht auf diese Weise eine stringente Erzählung mit zwei antagonistisch angelegten Hauptpersonen: dem gottgesandten Propheten und dem hier als Lügenprophet eingeführten Antichrist. Bei einem Blick auf die Details fällt auf, dass Laktanz das Wirken des gottgesandten Propheten positiver darstellt als die Johannesoffenbarung[12] und so den Kontrast zwischen diesen Protagonisten steigert. Wenn Laktanz den Antichrist dabei nicht als „Tier" erscheinen lässt, wie es die Johannesoffenbarung in Anknüpfung alttestamentliche Bilder tut,[13] erleichtert er natürlich seinen römischen Lesern das Verständnis. Überhaupt verzichtet Laktanz auf apokalyptische Bilder der Johannesoffenbarung, so beispielsweise das Bußgewand (*Offb.* 11:3), die Ölbäume (*Offb.* 11:4), die Stadt (*Offb.* 11:8), die „Lästerungen" (*Offb.* 13:5f.) oder die Zahlenangabe 666 (*Offb.* 13:18).[14] Somit wirkt seine

[9] Dass hinter den „Tieren" der Antichrist steht, ist für die antike Exegese eindeutig, vgl. Victorin. Poetov., *In apoc.* 11.4; 13.1.

[10] Ein entscheidendes Indiz dafür, dass Laktanz tatsächlich das Gut aus der *Offb.* bearbeitet, ist, dass er an anderer Stelle zeigt, dass er um die Zahl von *zwei* gottgesandten Endzeitpropheten weiß; so heißt es *De mort. pers.* 2.9: *duos prophetas uiuos esse translatos in ultima <tempora> ante imperium Christi sanctum et sempiternum* – dahinter steht die verbreitete Annahme, es handle sich um die Wiederkunft alttestamentlicher Propheten, vgl. Tert., *De anim.* 50.5; Victorin. Poetov., *In apoc.* 11,3.

[11] Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5f.

[12] So spricht Laktanz, *Inst.* 7.17,2 ausdrücklich vom Erfolg der missionarischen Arbeit des gottgesandten Propheten, wovon *Offb.* 11 nicht die Rede ist; auch empfinden die Menschen entgegen *Offb.* 11:10 keine Freude über seinen Tod, vor allem aber fehlt die dortige Aussage, der Prophet habe die Menschen „gequält".

[13] Näheres beispielsweise bei David E. Aune, *Revelation* (1997), (wie Anm. 8) zu *Offb.* 11:7.

[14] Hinzu kommen weitere, eher formale redaktionelle Eingriffe: So beseitigt Laktanz die doppelte Erwähnung der Anbetung *Offb.* 13:4.8 und verkürzt die umständliche Schilderung, wie der Prophet unbestattet daliegt (*Offb.* 13:8f.).

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Darstellung realistischer, wozu beispielsweise auch die Angabe beiträgt, dass der auftretende Widersache ein „König aus Syrien" (Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,2) sei.[15]

Ferner fällt auf, dass Laktanz das Material, das er aus der Johannesoffenbarung übernimmt, mit Gut aus anderen Quellen – wenigstens oberflächlich – zu harmonisieren versucht. Das können wir zunächst am Anfang unserer Episode beobachten. Sie folgt auf eine Darstellung des endzeitlichen Chaos (Kapitel 16), das durch die Machtübernahme eines Tyrannen aus dem Norden ausgelöst wird. Dahinter steht, wie ich hier nicht im Einzelnen zeigen kann, die Tiervision aus dem 7. Kapitel des Danielbuches. Diese wiederum ist eine Vorlage für die Texte aus der Johannesoffenbarung, die Laktanz in Kapitel 17 verarbeitet – motivgeschichtlich gesehen sind die Kapitel 16 und 17 also Dubletten. Laktanz aber macht daraus zwei aufeinanderfolgende Episoden des Endzeitgeschehens und fügt sie hintereinander, indem er den Antichrist den „früheren König" – also den in Kapitel 16 eingeführten Tyrannen – töten lässt (Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,2 *reliquias illius prioris mali cum ipso simul deleat*). Auch am Ende unserer Passage leitet Laktanz zu einer anderen Tradition über: So fliehen die Gottestreuen vor der Verfolgung durch den Antichrist in die Berge (Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,8). Dann aber sammeln sich *alle* Gläubigen auf *einem* Berg, werden vom Antichrist belagert und schließlich durch den wiederkehrenden Christus gerettet.[16] Dahinter wiederum steht das Motiv von der endzeitlichen Schlacht um den Berg Zion, das Laktanz hier unterbringen wollte.

2. Die Schlacht zwischen dem wiederkehrenden Christus und dem Antichristen

Die Wiederkunft Christi deutet Laktanz zwar schon am Ende des Kapitels 17 an, wenn er von der göttlichen Rettung der auf dem Berg belagerten Glaubenstreuen spricht[17]. Ausführlich und ausdrücklich schildert er sie aber erst in Kapitel 19, nach verschiedenen Belegen für eine solches rettendes Eingreifen Gottes (Kapitel 18). Bei Laktanz und in der Johannesoffenbarung steht die

[15] Motivgeschichtlich betrachtet greift Laktanz damit vermutlich die jüdisch-christlich Tradition auf, dass der endzeitliche Widersacher aus Israel (wofür *Syria* stehen kann), genauer gesagt aus dem Stamm Dan komme (Näheres bei Freund, wie Anm. 1, z. St.). Der pagane Leser hingegen muss darin ein konkretes Detail sehen.

[16] Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,9f.; nach den Belegen für ein solches Eingreifen, die Laktanz im Kapitel 18 zusammenträgt, dann ausgeführt *Inst.* 7.19,1f.

[17] Lact., *Inst.* 7.17;10f. *cum haec facta erunt, tum iusti et sectatores ueritatis segregabunt se a malis et fugient in solitudines. quo audito impius inflammatus ira ueniet cum exercitu magno et admotis omnibus copiis circumdabit montem in quo iusti morabuntur, ut eos comprehendat. illi uero ubi se clausos undique atque obsessos uiderint, exclamabunt ad deum uoce magna et auxilium caeleste implorabunt, et exaudiet eos deus et mittet regem magnum de caelo, qui eos eripiat ac liberet omnesque impios ferro ignique disperdat.*

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Parusie jeweils vor der Errichtung der Tausendjährigen Gottesherrschaft, zudem ergeben sich zahlreiche Parallelen in Einzelmotiven:

- Der Himmel ist offen (*Offb.* 19:11; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,2).
- Christus steht an der Spitze einer himmlischen Heeresmacht (*Offb.* 19:14; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5).
- Er erscheint als Gerechtigkeit schaffender göttlicher Rächer und König (*Offb.* 19:15f.; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,4).
- Seine Stellung wird durch ein Schwert und eine Flammenerscheinung illustriert (*Offb.* 19:12.15; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5).
- In einem blutigen Kampf besiegt er den Antichrist (*Offb.* 19:19f.; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5).
- Nach der Niederlage des Antichrist werden auch die tyrannischen Herrscher bestraft, die sich mit ihm verbündet hatten (*Offb.* 19:18.21; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,7).
- Es wird zurückgeblickt auf die versuchte Verführung der Menschen (*Offb.* 19:20; Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,6).

Bemerkenswert sind wiederum einige Abweichungen des Laktanz von der Johannesoffenbarung: Während diese zwei Gegner Christi nennt, das Tier und seinen Propheten, spricht Laktanz in klarer Erzählstruktur nur vom Antichrist. Auch lässt er zahlreiche Einzelheiten weg, die in ihrer apokalyptischen Symbolik allzu rätselhaft wären: So sitzt bei Laktanz Christus nicht auf einem Pferd (*Offb.* 19:11), hat weder ein Diadem (*Offb.* 19:12) noch einen blutgetränkten (*Offb.* 19:13), beschrifteten (*Offb.* 19:16) Mantel. Insbesondere fehlt die Aufforderung des Engels, die getöteten Gegner samt ihren Pferden zu verschlingen (*Offb.* 19:17f.). Damit und durch einige Details nähert sich Laktanz einer realen Schlachtschilderung an, so nennt der einen Zeitpunkt (Beginn zur dritten Stunde) und beschreibt den Verlauf (mehrmalige Flucht des Antichrist) der Schlacht – all dies stammt nicht aus der Johannesoffenbarung.[18] Neu ist auch der Licht-Dunkel-Gegensatz, mit dem Laktanz das Kommen Christi ausgestaltet.[19] Schließlich knüpft Laktanz, indem er (entgegen der Johannesoffenbarung)

[18] Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5f. *concidetur ab hora tertia usque in uesperum et fluet sanguis more torrentis: deletisque omnibus copiis impius solus effugiet et peribit ab eo uirtus sua. [...] Antichristus [...] uictus effugiet et bellum saepe renouabit et saepe uincetur, donec quarto proelio confectis omnibus impiis debellatus et captus tandem scelerum suorum luat poenas.* – Zur möglichen Herkunft der Motive vgl. Freund (wie Anm. 1) z. St.

[19] Lact., *Inst.* 7,19,2f. *commotus igitur deus et periculo ancipiti et miseranda comploratione iustorum mittet protinus liberatorem. tum aperietur caelum medium intempesta et tenebrosa nocte, ut in orbe toto lumen descendentis dei tamquam fulgur appareat; quod Sibylla his uersibus elocuta est:* ὁππόταν ἔλθῃ, πῦρ ἔσται σκοτόεντι μέσῃ ἐνὶ νυκτὶ μελαίνῃ. *haec est nox quae a nobis propter aduentum regis ac dei nostri peruigilio celebratur: cuius noctis duplex ratio est, quod in ea et uitam tum recepit, cum passus est, et postea regnum orbis terrae recepturus est.* Dahinter steht zum einen wohl die Lichtsymbolik bei der Parusie wie etwa *Matth.* 24:27; zugleich bringt Laktanz die Wiederkunft mit der Osternacht in Zusammenhang.

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von den Belagerern eines Berges spricht,[20] an das Motiv vom Sturm auf den Berg Zion am Ende des Kapitels 17 an.

3. Die Tausendjährige Herrschaft Christi

Die Tausendjährige Herrschaft Christi auf Erden (Kapitel 24) schildert Laktanz, wenigstens in den Grundlagen, im Einklang mit der Johannesoffenbarung:

- Nach seinem Sieg über das Böse regiert der wiedergekehrte Christus 1000 Jahre mit ausgewählten Gerechten auf der Erde (*Offb.* 20:4; Lact., *Inst.* 7.24, 2.5).
- Während dieser Zeit ist der Teufel gefesselt (*Offb.* 20:1-3; Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,5).

Wenn Laktanz die Herrschaft Christi auf Erden als „heilige Stadt inmitten der Welt" (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,6 *ciuitas sancta [...] in medio terrae*) bezeichnet, so verweist dies auf das himmlische Jerusalem, das gemäß der Johannesoffenbarung erst nach der Vollendung errichtet wird. Doch auch sonst siedelt die antike Exegese das himmlische Jerusalem öfter schon im Tausendjährigen Reich an,[21] auch *Offb.* 20:9 klingt dies an.

Ferner lässt Laktanz, wie schon zu beobachten war, Nebenfiguren (Drache und Engel aus *Offb.* 20:1; Richtende und Blutzeugen aus *Offb.* 20:4) sowie apokalyptische Details weg: So wird bei ihm die Fesselung des Teufels, in der Johannesoffenbarung breit geschildert, einfach konstatiert;[22] die „Throne" (*Offb.* 20:4) finden keine Erwähnung. Die ausführliche Schilderung des himmlischen Jerusalem (*Offb.* 21:9-22:5) fehlt völlig, ebenso der Name Jerusalem – anscheinend sollte nur das Motiv berücksichtig werden. Andererseits führt Laktanz das Tausendjährige Reiche als real bevorstehendes Geschehen aus und bietet detaillierte, konkrete Angaben, die in der Johannesoffenbarung fehlen.[23] So spricht er von einem *imperium* (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,5). Die Heiden – ihre Existenz lässt sich in der Johannesoffenbarung nur erschließen (aus *Offb.* 20:8) – erscheinen als unterworfene Vasallen (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,4), die *sancta ciuitas* als wirkliche Stadt und Zentrum der Welt (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,6), Christus als Herrscher (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,2.6), die Auferweckten als gerechte Funktionsträger im Staat (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,3). Darin haben auch die Gottestreuen, die die endzeitlichen

[20] Lact., *Inst.* 7.19,5 *uirtus angelorum tradet in manus iustorum multitudinem illam quae montem circumsederit.*

[21] Etwa Justin., *Dial.* 80,5; 81,4; Tert., *Adv. Marc.* III 24,3-6; Victorin. Poetov., *In apoc.* 21,1; *Comm. instr.* I 44,1.9; Klaus Thraede, Art. „Jerusalem II": RAC 17 (1996) 718-34, hier 728ff.

[22] *Offb.* 20:1f. und Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,5.

[23] Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,3f. *tum qui erunt in corporibus uiui, non morientur, sed per eosdem mille annos infinitam multitudinem generabunt et erit suboles eorum sancta et deo cara: qui autem ab inferis suscitabuntur, hi praeerunt uiuentibus uelut iudices. gentes uero non extinguentur omnino, sed quaedam relinquentur in uictoriam dei, ut triumphentur a iustis ac subiugentur perpetuae seruituti.*

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Kämpfe überlebt haben, – diese Gruppe wird in der Johannesoffenbarung nicht erwähnt – ihren Platz und die Möglichkeit, Nachkommen zu zeugen (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,3).

Schließlich bindet Laktanz auch hier weitere bekannte Endzeitmotive ein: So spricht er (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,6) von einer Sammlung der Gerechten nach *Jer.* 32:37, obwohl (seit Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,10) die verbliebenen Gottestreuen längst vereinigt sein müssten. Und im Anschluss (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,7f.) erläutert Laktanz, dass sich im Tausendjährigen Reich die alttestamentlichen Heilsankündigungen erfüllten.

4. Die endgültige Niederwerfung des Teufels

Zunächst folgt Laktanz (Kapitel 26) fast wörtlich der Darstellung der Johannesoffenbarung: Nach Ablauf der Tausendjährigen Gottesherrschaft wird der Teufel aus seinem Gefängnis befreit und sammelt die verbliebenen Heidenvölker zum Krieg, zusammen belagern sie die Heilige Stadt (*Offb.* 20:7-9; Lact., *Inst.* 7.26,1).

Dann aber ergänzt Laktanz die Vernichtung der Frevler, die in der Johannesoffenbarung nur knapp erwähnt ist (*Offb.* 20:9), nach dem Kampf Gottes gegen Gog und Magog im Buch Ezechiel (Kapitel 38f.) und folgt damit – als Erster[24] – dem in der Erwähnung der beiden Völker *Offb.* 20:8 impliziten Verweis. Die Beobachtungen zu diesem vierten und letzten Abschnitt lassen sich rasch zusammenfassen: Laktanz ergänzt die dürftigen Angaben, die die Johannesoffenbarung über die endgültige Vernichtung des Bösen macht, aus dem Buch Ezechiel. Die Verbindung zwischen beiden Stellen findet Laktanz in der Erwähnung von Gog und Magog vor. Was er übernimmt, sind Details zum Ablauf, die der Schilderung ein konkretes und, trotz allem, realistisches Gepräge geben.

Zusammenfassung

Unser Blick auf die Art und Weise, in der Laktanz Gut aus der Johannesoffenbarung in sein Werk einbaut, hat die folgenden drei Grundlinien erkennen lassen:[25]

1. Narrative Gestaltung: Laktanz wählt Texte aus, die eine zentrale Stellung in der chiliastischen Endzeitschilderung der Johannesoffenbarung haben.

[24] Vgl. Sverre Bøe, *Gog and Magog. Ezekiel 38-39 as Pre-text for Revelation 19,17-21 and 20,7-10* (Tübingen, 2001), 214f.

[25] Diese Ergebnisse über das Vorgehen des Laktanz finden sich übrigens bestätigt, wenn man den Umgang mit der Tradition aus Daniel 7 in Lact., *Inst.* 7.16,1-4 (Freund, 2009, wie Anm. 1, z. St.) betrachtet.

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Verbindendes Glied ist der als „Tier" erscheinende endzeitliche Widersacher. Daraus schafft Laktanz eine in sich geschlossene Darstellung mit klaren, antagonistischen Hauptpersonen: Dem gottgesandten Propheten, dem Antichrist, der in der letzten besprochenen Szene freilich mit dem Teufel verschwimmt,[26] und dem wiederkehrenden Christus.

2. Enträtselung und Konkretisierung: Laktanz beseitigt einerseits apokalyptische Bilder, die seinen Lesern unverständlich oder anstößig erscheinen müssen: das „Tier", die Zahl 666, die Aufforderung, den Gegner zu verzehren etc. Andererseits ergänzt er Details aus dem politisch-militärischen Bereich, beispielsweise bei der Schilderung der beiden endzeitlichen Schlachten und der tausendjährigen Herrschaft Christi. Somit entsteht der Eindruck einer realistischen Darstellung kommender Ereignisse. Dabei spielen – das zeigt sich vor allem in der Episode vom Kommen des Antichrist (Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,6) und vom Tausendjährigen Gottesreich (Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,3f.) – die Verfolgung der Christen eine besondere Rolle.
3. Kombination unterschiedlicher Traditionen: Laktanz bemüht sich, unterschiedliche, zum Teil widersprüchliche eschatologische Traditionen und Motive aufzugreifen und miteinander zu kombinieren. Besonders augenfällig ist dies beim Kommen des Antichrist, dem ersten der hier untersuchten Texte: Dort verbindet Laktanz einerseits die Tradition aus dem Buch Daniel mit der Johannesoffenbarung, so dass zwei endzeitliche Widergestalten aufeinander folgen (Lact., *Inst.* 7.16,1-4; 17,2), andererseits das Motiv von der Bedrängnis der Gerechten auf dem Berg Zion (Lact., *Inst.* 7.17,8.10f.).

Die Schwierigkeit, die uns Laktanz als Nutzer (und als Exeget?) der Johannesoffenbarung macht, besteht also darin, dass er unterschiedliches Gut zusammenfügt und bearbeitet. Sein Vorgehen entspricht dabei genau dem, was er zu Beginn der Endzeitdarstellung ankündigt: Er wolle alle möglichen Zeugnisse sammeln und zusammenstellen.[27] Dieses Gut verarbeitet Laktanz zu seiner eigenen, narrativ strukturierten Darstellung. Dabei versucht er, aus apokalyptischen Texten – einer Gattung also, mit der die römische Tradition stets wenig anzufangen wusste[28] – eine Art konkreter Geschichtsvoraussage zu gewinnen. Man könnte sagen, als Künder von der Endzeit ist Laktanz nicht Apokalyptiker, sondern Geschichtsschreiber.

[26] Vgl. Freund (2009) (wie Anm. 1) zu Lact., *Inst.* 7.24,5.

[27] Lact., *Inst.* 7.14,17 *quae uero a prophetis et uatibus futura esse dicantur, priusquam superueniat extrema illa conclusio, collecta ex omnibus et coaceruata subnectam.*

[28] Zu den eschatologischen Vorstellungen und Texten in der römischen Welt etwa Hubert Cancik, The end of the world, of history, and of the individual in Greek and Roman antiquity, in: *The Encyclopedia of Apocalypticism. I: The Origins of Apocalypticism in Judaism and Christianity*, John J. Collins (ed.) (New York and London, 1998), 84-125.

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Rethinking the Authenticity of Porphyry, *Contra Christianos*, fr. 1

Aaron P. Johnson, Chicago

In spite of the disappointingly fragmentary state of Porphyry of Tyre's religious writings, the student of Porphyry is certainly justified in assigning to the third century polymath and philosopher the greatest weight in the polemical exchange between 'pagans' and Christians in late antiquity. The tattered remains of his great *Against the Christians* have provoked a good deal of curiosity and debate among those attempting to assess the contours of his argument and its role in the traditionalist imperial politics of its day (whether this is determined as c. 270 or c. 303 A.D.).[1] While fragments continue to be discovered, debated and denounced,[2] and while, furthermore, the undulating pool of fragments has been reattributed to Porphyry's *Philosophy from Oracles* or even to a cluster of untitled anti-Christian treatises,[3] no serious criticism has yet been raised over the authenticity of the programmatic first fragment.

Based on stylistic considerations, Wilamowitz was the first to identify the sentiments of the anonymous Greek recorded in the preface of Eusebius' *Praeparatio Evangelica* (I 2.1-4) with Porphyry's *Against the Christians*.[4] He was

[1] For a date of c. 270: Alan Cameron, The Date of Porphyry's KATA ΧΡΙΣΤΙΑΝΩΝ: *CQ* 17 (1967) 382-4; for a date of c. 303: Timothy D. Barnes, Scholarship or Propaganda? Porphyry *Against the Christians* and its Historical Setting: *BICS* 39 (1994) 53-65; Elizabeth Depalma Digeser, Lactantius, Porphyry, and the Debate over Religious Toleration: *JRS* 88 (1998) 130-46.

[2] See esp., A. Benoit, Le 'Contra Christianos' de Porphyre: où en est la collecte des fragments? in: *Paganisme, judaisme, christianisme: influences et affrontements dans le monde antique, mélanges offerts à Marcel Simon* (Paris, 1978), 261-75; Timothy D. Barnes, Porphyry *Against the Christians*: Date and Attribution of Fragments: *JTS* 24 (1973) 424-42; *id.*, Scholarship or Propaganda (1994); Pierre Franco Beatrice, Towards a new edition of Porphyry's fragments against the Christians, in: *ΣΟΦΙΗΣ ΜΑΙΗΤΟΡΕΣ. 'Chercheurs de Sagesse'. Hommage à Jean Pépin* (Paris, 1992), 347-55; *id.*, Antistes Philosophiae: Ein christenfeindlicher Propagandist am Hofe Diokletians nach dem Zeugnis des Laktanz: *Augustinianum* 33 (1993) 31-47; *id.*, On the Title of Porphyry's Treatise Against the Christians, in: G.S. Gasparro (ed.), *Αγαθη ελπις. Studi storici-religiosi in onore di Ugo Bianchi* (Rome, 1994), 221-35; Elizabeth Depalma Digeser, Porphyry, Julian, or Hierokles? The Anonymous Hellene in Makarios Magnes' *Apokritikos*: *JTS* 53 (2002) 466-502.

[3] See Pierre Franco Beatrice, Towards a new edition (1992); *id.*, On the Title of Porphyry's Treatise (1994); Robert Berchman, *Porphyry Against the Christians* (Leiden, 2005), 2-6 (a rather odd and somewhat disappointing treatment).

[4] Ulrich von Wilamowitz-Moellendorf, Ein Bruchstück aus der Schrift des Porphyrius gegen die Christen: *ZNW* 1 (1990) 101-5.

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soon followed by Harnack, who commenced his edition of the fragments with the passage from Eusebius and bolstered Wilamowitz' identification by attending to its vocabulary and providing a number of cross-references to other fragments.[5] Its status as Fragment 1 thus seemed to be solidified and even later critics of von Harnack's methodology have allowed the authenticity of the fragment to remain unquestioned.[6] Consideration of the fragment's identification not only with the *Against the Christians*, but also with any work of Porphyry's corpus, is long overdue, therefore, not only to unsettle the sum of our fragments, but also to caution those who might too glibly assess the range and emphases of Porphyry's argument. Towards this end, the following remarks contain brief reflections which suggest the untenability of identifying the fragment with Porphyry at all.

I would like to make three points about the style of the passage, the force of which is meant to be cumulative and is confessedly not wholly determinant; the last point will include thematic concerns (which require further analysis elsewhere).

1. First, the abrupt occurrence of the infinitives *horan* (at frg. 1.5 Harnack; p. 8.24 Mras) and *axiōthēsesthai* (at frg. 1.10-11 Harnack; p. 9.3 Mras)[7] mark somewhat awkward shifts to *oratio obliqua*.[8] We need not suppose, however, that Eusebius has here glanced over at an open manuscript lying on his desk and is more or less faithfully quoting from it (albeit in *oratio obliqua*), as Wilamowitz surmised. Similarly awkward shifts, while not common, do occur elsewhere in Eusebius' work – most notably, later in the same chapter of the *Praeparatio*.[9] Because such shifts are often brief, sometimes accompany a shift from first to third person (but sometimes do not), and occur irregularly throughout a given passage, it is impossible to determine whether Eusebius is referring to a particular line of a particular source, vaguely paraphrasing the sentiment of one or many sources, or inventing the argument of a purely hypothetical interlocutor. An examination of such passages is not, however, unfruitful; for we can begin to realize the frequency with which the apologist made polemical use of interlocutors in his work. 'Someone might reasonably ask (or say)', is typical of Eusebius' style.[10]

[5] Adolf von Harnack, *Porphyrios, 'Gegen die Christen', 15 Bücher: Zeugnisse, Fragmente und Referate*, APAW, Nr. 1 (Berlin, 1916), 45.

[6] Its status has been questioned in other ways, however; Barnes claimed it was Eusebius' 'summary of the overall thesis' of Porphyry's work (T.D. Barnes, Scholarship or Propaganda?, 1994, 65); Digeser and others have claimed a place for it in Porphyry's *Philosophy from Oracles* (Christian or Hellene? The Great Persecution and the Problem of Identity, in: Robert M. Frakes and Elizabeth Depalma Digeser [eds.], *Religious Identity in Late Antiquity* [Toronto, 2006], 36-57).

[7] Mras opts for the variant *kataxiōthēsesthai*.

[8] Ulrich von Wilamowitz-Moellendorf, Ein Bruchstück (1990), 102, 103.

[9] *PE* I 2.6-7; see also *PE* III 13.17; IV 1.11 – IV 2.3; VII 15.7-9.

[10] See *PE* III 13.18 (referring to a well-known proverb); VI 6.59; XIV 17.8; XV 2.4; *DE* I 9.1; V 1.14; V 13.5; VIII 2.42; *Eccl.Theol.* I 9.1; III 3.55; *CI* I 26.2; *VC* III 58.1.

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As far as I can tell, only very rarely can the 'someone' be identified with a particular author – and then, it is used only to protect the identity of one revered by Eusebius but whose ideas must nonetheless be criticized.[11] The vast majority of occurrences of the phrase are otherwise vague gestures to a school of thought or interpretive approach, or are invented interlocutors suited to developing the argument at hand. The first of these possibilities seems to be the case here, and in fact, the chapter title makes this secure: 'What is *usually* said against us by *those* who attempt to slander us'.[12]

2. A second element deserving attention, which is the dominant feature of this passage, is the presence of a string of sharp rhetorical questions. The occurrence of a series of interrogatives is a rather common feature of the stylistic landscape of Eusebius' apologetic writings. As many as six rhetorical questions of varying lengths may be strung together in a single instance often containing superlatives[13] or comparatives,[14] many times with conditional questions,[15] often pertaining to the rationality or necessity of the topic at hand,[16] and occasionally accompanied by an explicative interjection.[17] While such strings of rhetorical questions are standard Eusebian fare – two of them even echoing the content of I 2.1 though with sufficient independence of context and aim as to exclude the possibility of parodying or copying it[18] – these strings are less common in Porphyry's works – even those with polemical aims, where we might expect them (*e.g.*, the *de Abst.*).

3. The third stylistic element which deserves comment is the vocabulary of the passage. None of the words that caught Harnack's eye are distinctively Porphyrian. Indeed, many words are more distinctively Eusebian, insofar as they are distinctive at all. A thorough analysis of the language of the passage would be illuminating; I will limit myself, however, to some of the key words deemed worthy of comment by Wilamowitz and Harnack. Eusebius would have never used the term *theologoumenas*, it has been claimed, but is only rendering

[11] See Aaron P. Johnson, The Blackness of Ethiopians: Classical Ethnography and the Commentaries of Eusebius: *HTR* 99.2 (2006) 179-200, 183-5.

[12] Emphasis added; that the chapter headings of the *PE* were composed by Eusebius, and not by a later hand, has been convincingly shown by Karl Mras, *Eusebius Werke VIII. Die Praeparatio Evangelica*, GCS 43.1 (Berlin, 1954), VIII-IX; see Timothy D. Barnes, Constantine's Good Friday Sermon: *JTS* 27 (1976) 418-21.

[13] *E.g.*, 'how could it not be most wretched ...', *PE* II 4.2-4.; see *PE* III 14.10-12; VI 6.1.

[14] *E.g.*, 'what could be worse ...', *PE* IV 15.3-5; see *PE* III 7.5.

[15] *E.g.*, *PE* IV 15.3-5; IV 17.6-9; V 1.11-12; V 9.12-13, 15-16; VI 3.2-3.

[16] *E.g.*, 'why is it necessary ... why is it fitting ...', *PE* III 11-18-21; 'how can it not be reasonable ...', *PE* IV 17.6.

[17] *E.g.*, *PE* III 13.10-14.

[18] *E.g.*, *PE* II 5.1; VII 10.7.

[19] Ulrich von Wilamowitz-Moellendorf, Ein Bruchstück (1990), 103.

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something the anonymous Greek had stated.[19] Yet *theologein* does not occur in any of its forms elsewhere in Porphyry's corpus; it is, on the contrary, and in spite of Wilamowitz' assertions otherwise, rather frequent in Eusebius' works (whether applied to the many gods of polytheism or to the Son).[20] Harnack notes that *othneios* and *euchereia* also appear together in fragment 28; yet this fragment is taken from Macarius' work, whose reliability as a source for Porphyry has been heavily criticized.[21] In any case, *euchereia* occurs in no securely Porphyrian text and *othneios* is quite rare, being applied only once to foreign peoples and then only in a non-negative manner.[22] The phrase *prohairesis tou biou* is so common in authors whom Eusebius heavily relied on, as well as in Eusebius himself, as to need no further comment; while its connection to *tropos*, occurs a number of times in Eusebius, but never in Porphyry.[23] Harnack cross-references the phrase 'irrational and unexamined faith' with *fragment* 73. The latter, however, is from *DE* I 1.12, where Eusebius again does not name his detractors, but emphatically refers to them in the plural and even claims to have engaged with them in public debate.[24] The 'new path' which the Christians have cut out for themselves, while it finds a parallel in *fragment* 39, as Harnack notes, occurs in the same words nowhere in Porphyry's corpus, while appearing elsewhere in Eusebius' works (in spite of the fact that the term *anodia* is unusual).[25]

This brief survey has addressed the words noted by the defenders of this passage's Porphyrian provenance. Further attentiveness to the vocabulary is revealing, however. The phrase 'kings, lawgivers and philosophers' appears elsewhere in Eusebius,[26] while being absent from Porphyry. The two terms denoting the Christians' rejection of their ancestral ways, *apostantes* and *apostraphentas*, are common in both Porphyry and Eusebius, yet in wholly positive ways, whether in reference to the philosopher's withdrawal from the public (material, unenlightened) sphere[27] or the Christian withdrawal from their previous way of life.[28] This last point deserves further consideration since one of the

[20] The many gods: *PE* II 2.51; II 6.14, 17; III 9.11; IV 1.3; IV 6.3; IV 8.3; IV 15.53; IV 21.2; IV 23.8; IX 1.5; *LC* 17.13; the Son/Logos: *PE* XI 14.4; *DE* IV 3.8; IV 5.5; IV 15.64; V 1.4; V 4.9; V 5.2, 7; V 17.2; VIII 4.11 *etc.*, *Eccl. Theol.* I 20.16; II 14.11, 21 *etc.*

[21] See variously T.D. Barnes, Porphyry *Against the Christians* (1973), 428-30; Richard Goulet, *Macarios de Magnésie: Le Monogénès* (Paris, 2003), 90-149; Elizabeth Depalma Digeser, Porphyry, Julian, or Hierokles (2002).

[22] *C. Christ.* frg. 39, on which, see below.

[23] See *PE* IV 5.5; *VC* I 16.2; *HE* II 17.11.

[24] Indeed, Eusebius has already used the phrase in the chapter previous to 'Fragment 1' (*PE* I 1.11); see Eus., *Ep. ad Caes.* 14; Origen, *Philoc.* 18.1.

[25] Eus., *c. Marc.* II 3.10; *Eccl. Theol.* I 7.1.

[26] *DE* III 6.31; III 7.9; *LC* 16.8.

[27] See *Abst.* 1.32-33, 39, 47; *Sent.* 32; *Ant. Nymph.* 34.

[28] See *PE* I 3.15; I 6.7; II 4.4; XV 62.16; *DE* I 5.4; I 7.18; V 2.10; VII 1.106; VIII 3.13; VIII 5.3; II 3.130; *HE* I 4.13.

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more basic assumptions about Porphyry's anti-Christian critique was its distaste for their apostasy from the traditional ways of living, thinking and relating to the divine. Reflection on the notion of apostasy in Porphyry's corpus, however, raises doubts about connecting Porphyry to the sentiments of the anonymous Greek. Indeed, what becomes striking is how un-Porphyrian the Greek's complaint sounds.

A good deal of Porphyry's religious thinking directs itself to the pursuit of the divine by those who have left behind the common and bodily approaches to salvation and instead were undergoing the purgation of their souls from all bodily impurities.[29] Porphyry's substantive religious thought was aimed at the tiny elite who could live philosophically in this life in preparation for the true salvation of their souls in the next;[30] hence, the frequency of the apostasy terms used in a positive sense noted earlier. One might consider *fragment* 39 of *Against the Christians* as an example to the contrary, for here Porphyry contrasts Ammonius' conversion to philosophy with Origen's conversion to Christianity. We should, however, be cautious of what a fragment taken from its original context by a hostile opponent does and does not say. Porphyry first chastises Christians for *not* rejecting the 'wickedness of the Jews' and, when he turns to Origen in particular, does not accuse him of apostasy from his Greek upbringing (in spite of what Eusebius would have us believe). On the contrary, Porphyry's primary complaint in the fragment is that Origen and other Christians had (rather than rejecting their Greek background) inappropriately applied Greek learning to Jewish writings. Indeed, Porphyry notes that *after* Origen's conversion, though 'living like a Christian.., yet he Hellenized in his doctrine' (*frg.* 39 [= Eus., *HE* VI 19.7]). His argument in this fragment is that Christians like Origen applied incompatible interpretive approaches to the Hebrew Scriptures in an attempt to escape what they deemed to be their 'wickedness'. We might more safely conclude that the condemnation of Christian apostasy contained in the questions of the anonymous Greek in Eusebius' *Praeparatio* seem to echo better the polemical strategies of Celsus or Maximinus Daia,[31] rather than the other-worldly isolationism of Porphyry.

Ultimately, the way in which the issues are laid out is consistent with Eusebius' conceptual framework both in the *Praeparatio* and in his other works.[32] The style and language of the passage likewise are resonant of Eusebius, rather than Porphyry. Of course, the considerations offered here cannot prove that

[29] Cf. e.g., *Abst.* 1.27-28; 2.40.5; 2.43.2; 2.49.1, 3; 4.10.4; *Phil. Orac.* 303-304FF Smith; 324F Smith.

[30] See Aaron P. Johnson, Arbiter of the Oracular: Reading Religion in Porphyry of Tyre, in: Andrew Cain and Noel Lenski (eds.), *The Power of Religion in Late Antiquity* (Aldershot, 2009), 103-15.

[31] See *e.g.*, Celsus ap. Origen, *C. Cels.* V 25; Maximinus Daia ap. Eus., *HE* IX 7.3-14.

[32] See Aaron P. Johnson, *Ethnicity and Argument in Eusebius'* Praeparatio Evangelica (Oxford, 2006).

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Porphyry never said something like what we find in *Fragment* 1; but they may be sufficient to disarm claims for its authenticity. Any argument regarding the *Against the Christians* must be made with a due amount of tentativeness and humility in the face of a jumbled and largely lost puzzle, the remaining pieces of which survive neither in one place nor in one time period (nor even in one language). Perhaps we oversimplify the intellectual and literary situation during and before the time of the Great Persecution when we too quickly lay anonymous criticisms found in Christian sources at the feet of the great neo-Platonist.[33]

[33] For criticism and insight, I am especially grateful to Timothy Barnes and Beth Digeser, and above all to Sebastien Morlet (who provided the author with prepublication materials from his excellent monograph, *La* Démonstration évangélique *d'Eusèbe de Césarée. Étude sur l'apologétique chrétienne à l'époque de Constantin* [Paris, 2009], and whose hosting of the Sorbonne colloquium on Le traité de Porphyre contre les chrétiens: Un siècle de recherches, nouvelles questions [scheduled for publication in 2011], marks a turning-point in the study of the *Against the Christians*).

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La *Démonstration évangélique* d'Eusèbe de Césarée contient-elle des fragments du *Contra Christianos* de Porphyre? À propos du frg. 73 Harnack

Sébastien MORLET, Paris

Le débat sur la valeur des fragments du *Contra Christianos* de Porphyre édités par Harnack en 1916[1] a presque exclusivement porté, jusqu'à aujourd'hui, sur les passages tirés de Macaire de Magnésie. Les six fragments extraits de la grande apologie d'Eusèbe de Césarée (la *Préparation évangélique*, citée *PE*, et la *Démonstration évangélique*, citée *DE*) n'ont pratiquement jamais été remis en question, car il est très largement admis que cette œuvre est une réponse directe au traité de Porphyre contre les chrétiens.[2] Cette opinion ne repose pourtant que sur une hypothèse, car Eusèbe ne présente jamais son apologie comme une réponse au *Contra Christianos*, et des six fragments collectés par Harnack, deux seulement, tirés de la *PE*, sont explicitement introduits par Eusèbe comme des citations de ce traité.[3] Dans notre thèse récente sur la *DE*, nous avons émis des doutes sérieux sur la paternité porphyrienne des fragments tirés de cette œuvre et montré que l'une des sources essentielles de la polémique d'Eusèbe contre le paganisme est le *Contre Celse* d'Origène.[4] Le frg. 73 du *Contra Christianos* nous paraît exemplaire de la démarche éditoriale de Harnack et de la méthode littéraire d'Eusèbe.

Voici le fr. 73, tel qu'il se présente dans l'édition de Harnack:

Οὐδὲν ἡμᾶς δύνασθαί φασι οἱ συκοφάνται δι' ἀποδείξεως παρέχειν, πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς ἡμῖν προσιόντας (die Worte werden §15 genau wiederholt und dann wird fortgefahren), τούτους δὲ καὶ πείθειν οὐδὲν πλέον ἢ σφᾶς αὐτούς, θρεμμάτων ἀλόγων δίκην, μύσαντας εὖ καὶ ἀνδρείως ἔπεσθαι δεῖν ἀνεξετάστως

[1] *Porphyrius, 'Gegen die Christen', 15 Bücher. Zeugnisse, Fragmente und Referate, APAW. PH.* (Berlin, 1916).

[2] Ces fragments (1; 7; 41; 47; 73; 80) ont été reproduits sans réserve dans deux traductions récentes, celles de Robert M. Berchman (Leiden, 2005) et d'Enrique A. Ramos Jurado *et al.* (Cádiz, 2006). S'y ajoutent trois passages de la *PE* que Pierre Nautin attribue à Porphyre mais dont la source reste problématique (voir Ramos Jurado *et al.*, 42-43) et un texte de la *DE* (V Pr. 3-5) proposé par Robert M. Berchman, dont la provenance ne nous paraît pas assurée (Sébastien Morlet, *La* Démonstration évangélique *d'Eusèbe de Césarée: Étude sur l'apologétique chrétienne à l'époque de Constantin*, Paris 2009, 349 *sqq.*).

[3] Frg. 41 (= *PE* I 9.21) et 80 (= *PE* V 1.10).

[4] Référence citée à la note 2.

Studia Patristica XLVI, 59-64.
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ἅπασι τοῖς παρ' ἡμῶν λεγομένοις, παρ' ὃ καὶ Πιστοὺς χρηματίζειν, τῆς ἀλόγου χάριν πίστεως. Vgl. Praepar. Ev. I, 3, 1: συκοφάντας προαποδείκνυμεν τοὺς μηδὲν ἔχειν ἡμᾶς δι' ἀποδείξεως παριστάναι, ἀλόγῳ δὲ πίστει (cf. I, 5, 2) προσέχειν ἀποφηναμένους.

'Les sycophantes prétendent que nous ne pouvons rien soutenir par une démonstration, que nous demandons à ceux qui viennent à nous de ne s'attacher qu'à la foi seule (ces mots sont repris littéralement au §15 puis le texte continue), et que nous les persuadons même qu'il faut simplement, comme des animaux irrationnels, qu'ils ferment les yeux et, avec résolution et courage, qu'ils suivent sans examen tout ce que nous disons; c'est de là qu'ils tireraient leur nom de « croyants », en raison de leur foi irrationnelle'. Cf. *PE* I 3.1: 'Nous démontrons au préalable que ce sont des sycophantes ceux qui déclarent que nous ne pouvons rien établir par une démonstration et que nous ne nous attachons qu'à une foi irrationnelle (cf. I 5.2).'

Le texte édité par Harnack est doublement artificiel. Le début du fragment n'est pas une citation fidèle du texte d'Eusèbe, qui donne: οὐδὲν γοῦν ἡμᾶς δύνασθαί φασι δι' ἀποδείξεως παρέχειν. Harnack a supprimé la particule γοῦν, qui ne fait sens que dans le développement d'Eusèbe, et a précisé le sujet de la proposition, οἱ συκοφάνται, évoqué chez l'évêque de Césarée dans la phrase précédente.[5] Par ailleurs, l'éditeur a fusionné en un seul fragment deux passages bien distincts chez Eusèbe:

DE I.1.12: οὐδὲν γοῦν ἡμᾶς δύνασθαί φασι δι' ἀποδείξεως παρέχειν, πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς ἡμῖν προσιόντας.

DE I.1.15: ἐπειδὴ πολὺς ἦν ἐπιρρέων καθ' ἡμῶν ὁ τῶν συκοφαντῶν ὄχλος, μηδὲν δύνασθαι φάσκων δι' ἀποδείξεων ἐναργὲς ἀληθείας παρέχειν δεῖγμα, πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς ἡμῖν προσιόντας, τούτους δὲ καὶ πείθειν οὐδὲν πλέον ἢ σφᾶς αὐτούς, θρεμμάτων ἀλόγων δίκην, μύσαντας εὖ καὶ ἀνδρείως ἔπεσθαι δεῖν ἀνεξετάστως ἅπασι τοῖς παρ' ἡμῶν λεγομένοις, παρ' ὃ καὶ πιστοὺς χρηματίζειν, τῆς ἀλόγου χάριν πίστεως (...).

Harnack justifie son 'collage' en notant que les derniers mots du premier passage se retrouvent au début du second (πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς ἡμῖν προσιόντας). Or si les deux passages ont effectivement cette proposition en commun, ils ne commencent pas tout à fait de la même façon. L'édition de Harnack ne laisse pas deviner ces variantes et apparaît fondée sur une démarche arbitraire. Pourquoi éditer le début du premier passage plutôt que celui du second? Était-il légitime de fusionner les deux textes alors que le premier n'apporte rien de plus par rapport au second? Mais l'édition de Harnack est encore plus arbitraire qu'il n'y paraît, car le propos rapporté par Eusèbe ne figure pas seulement dans ces deux textes; il trouve des échos dans au moins trois passages de la *PE*:

[5] De même, Harnack cite *PE* I 3.1 avec l'indicatif προαποδείκνυμεν alors qu'Eusèbe emploie le participe προαποδείξαντες.

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PE I 1.11: ἐπειδὴ γὰρ τὸν χριστιανισμόν τινες οὐδένα λόγον ἀποσῴζειν, ἀλόγῳ δὲ πίστει καὶ ἀνεξετάστῳ συγκαταθέσει τοὺς τῆς προσηγορίας ἐφιεμένους τὸ δόξαν κυροῦν ὑπειλήφασι, μηδένα φάσκοντες δύνασθαι δι' ἀποδείξεως ἐναργοῦς παρέχειν τεκμήριον τῆς ἐν τοῖς ἐπαγγελλομένοις ἀληθείας, πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς προσιόντας, παρ' ὃ καὶ πιστοὺς χρηματίζειν, τῆς ἀκρίτου χάριν καὶ ἀβασανίστου πίστεως (...).

PE I 2.4: (...) ἀλόγῳ δὲ καὶ ἀνεξετάστῳ πίστει τὰ τῶν δυσσεβῶν καὶ πᾶσιν ἔθνεσι πολεμίων ἐλέσθαι (...).

PE I 3.1: (...) συκοφάντας προαποδείξαντες τοὺς μηδὲν ἔχειν ἡμᾶς δι' ἀποδείξεως παριστάναι, ἀλόγῳ δὲ πίστει προσέχειν ἀποφηναμένους.

Harnack mentionne le texte de *PE* I 3.1, mais ne renvoie pas aux deux autres. Or ces textes, tout en reproduisant les mêmes accusations que les deux passages de la *DE* pris en compte par l'éditeur, présentent de nouvelles variantes, à la fois entre eux et par rapport à ces derniers. Sur le plan syntaxique, on notera par exemple qu'en *PE* I 1.11, la relative παρ' ὃ καὶ πιστοὺς χρηματίζειν a pour antécédent la proposition πίστει δὲ μόνῃ (...) τοὺς προσιόντας, alors qu'en *DE* I 1.15, son antécédent est la proposition τούτους δὲ καὶ πείθειν (...) τοῖς παρ' ἡμῶν λεγομένοις. L'adjectif ἐναργής est accordé avec ἀποδείξεως en *PE* I 1.11, alors qu'il détermine δεῖγμα en *DE* I 1.15. Les variantes les plus importantes concernent cependant le lexique des cinq textes. Le début du fragment édité par Harnack correspond au lieu le plus variant:

PE I 1.11: μηδένα φάσκοντες δύνασθαι δι' ἀποδείξεως ἐναργοῦς παρέχειν τεκμήριον τῆς ἐν τοῖς ἐπαγγελλομένοις ἀληθείας

PE I 3.1: τοὺς μηδὲν ἔχειν ἡμᾶς δι' ἀποδείξεως παριστάναι

DE I 1.12: οὐδὲν γοῦν ἡμᾶς δύνασθαί φασι δι' ἀποδείξεως παρέχειν

DE I 1.15: μηδὲν δύνασθαι φάσκων δι' ἀποδείξεων ἐναργὲς ἀληθείας παρέχειν δεῖγμα

Alors que trois textes donnent le neutre μηδέν ou οὐδέν, le passage de *PE* I 1.11 donne le masculin μηδένα, qui, à la différence des mots μηδέν et οὐδέν dans les autres textes, ne peut pas être un complément d'objet, mais le sujet de l'infinitive. Le texte de *DE* I 1.15 donne δι' ἀποδείξεων alors que les trois autres textes proposent δι' ἀποδείξεως. En *PE.* I 3.1, le verbe παριστάναι est employé à la place du verbe παρέχειν utilisé dans les autres passages. En *PE* I 1.11, Eusèbe évoque un τεκμήριον, tandis qu'il parle d'un δεῖγμα en *DE* I 1.15. Et si, dans ce dernier texte, il utilise simplement le mot ἀληθείας, il emploie, en *PE* I 1.11, une expression plus précise (τῆς ἐν τοῖς ἐπαγγελλομένοις ἀληθείας). Alors qu'en *DE* I 1.12 et I 1.15, Eusèbe écrit τοὺς ἡμῖν προσιόντας, en *PE* I 1.11, il écrit simplement τοὺς προσιόντας. Et tandis que le texte de *DE* I 1.15 donne τῆς ἀλόγου χάριν πίστεως, celui de *PE* I 1.11 propose τῆς ἀκρίτου χάριν καὶ ἀβασανίστου πίστεως.

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Au terme de cette première analyse, deux conclusions s'imposent: 1) l'unité du frg. 73 est trompeuse, car l'œuvre d'Eusèbe présente plutôt une pluralité d'énoncés qui, en raison de leurs différences sur le plan syntaxique et lexical, ne se laissent pas réduire à un texte simple; 2) cette pluralité même permet de deviner qu'à supposer qu'Eusèbe reproduise une accusation véritable, la part de son intervention personnelle est importante, et qu'à aucun moment il ne transmet purement et simplement les *uerba* d'un adversaire du christianisme.

Cette conclusion peut être confirmée par une étude de vocabulaire. En partie parce que nous avons pratiquement tout perdu du *Contra Christianos*, il est très difficile de vérifier la présence d'éléments porphyriens dans ces textes. À propos de l'évocation des πιστοί, Harnack renvoie en note à des parallèles qui sont peu exploitables en eux-mêmes puisqu'ils sont tous tirés de Macaire de Magnésie (frg. 26; 87; 95). L'expression ἄλογος πίστις (*PE* I 1.11; I 2.4; *DE* I 1.15) n'est pas plus pertinente en elle-même: Harnack renvoie aux frg. 1 et 52 de son édition, mais l'attribution de ces textes à Porphyre est problématique (le frg. 1 recoupe l'un des textes de notre dossier, *PE* I 2.4, et le frg. 52 est tiré de Macaire de Magnésie). L'expression ἄλογος πίστις se retrouve certes à deux reprises dans l'œuvre de Porphyre, mais dans un contexte qui n'est pas celui de la polémique antichrétienne.[6] L'expression est d'ailleurs assez banale en elle-même, puisqu'on la retrouve chez d'autres auteurs qui ne polémiquent pas contre le christianisme.[7] Or si elle ne trouve pas d'écho assuré chez Porphyre, l'accusation de foi irrationnelle est particulièrement bien attestée parmi les attaques de Celse.[8]

L'hypothèse d'un fond celsien se révèle pertinente à l'analyse. Le mot 'sycophante' utilisé par Eusèbe pour décrire les adversaires du christianisme constitue un indice précieux en sa faveur: il peut être comparé aux dix-sept occurrences du verbe συκοφαντεῖν employé par Origène pour condamner les propos de Celse.[9] L'accusation selon laquelle les chrétiens n'exigeraient des nouveaux convertis que la foi simple trouve également dans le *Contre Celse* des échos très précis.[10] Les mots même utilisés par Eusèbe paraissent en partie dériver du *Contre Celse*: dans le passage πίστει δὲ μόνῃ προσέχειν ἀξιοῦν τοὺς (ἡμῖν) προσιόντας, le verbe ἀξιοῦν pourrait être tiré d'une accusation de Celse rapportée par Origène (ἀξιούμενον εὐθέως πιστεύειν)[11] et l'évocation des προσιόντες trouve plusieurs échos dans les réponses de l'Alexandrin

[6] *Frg.* 250F Smith (= *PE* XV 16.2); *Marc.* 23.

[7] Dion Cassius, XLII 57.5; Nemes., *Nat. hom.* 13.

[8] Cf. *Cels.* I 9 (= *Philoc.* 18.1). Voir également *Cels.* I 42; I 67; III 27. L'expression est particulièrement récurrente dans le lexique d'Eusèbe (*PE* XII 2.5; XIII 14.11; *Com. Ps.* PG 23, 1200A10).

[9] *Cels.* I 6; I 13; I 14; I 26; III 23; III 50; III 62; IV 30; IV 49; V 18; VI 29; VI 58; VII 28; VII 61; VIII 14; VIII 39; VIII 49.

[10] *Ibid.* VI 7; VI 10-11.

[11] *Ibid.* VI 7.

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au philosophe.[12] L'expression πίστει μόνῃ utilisée par Eusèbe rappelle la tournure ψιλὴ (ἡ) πίστις plusieurs fois utilisée par Origène.[13] L'association des mots πίστις et συγκατάθεσις, en *PE* I 1.11, trouve un parallèle dans une accusation de Celse rapportée par l'Alexandrin.[14] Le verbe ἐπαγγέλλεσθαι, utilisé en *PE* I 1.11, avait déjà été employé par Celse pour dénoncer les prétentions intellectuelles des chrétiens.[15] Lorsqu'Eusèbe reproduit l'accusation selon laquelle les chrétiens ne peuvent pas apporter de démonstration claire de leur foi, il peut encore dépendre du *Contre Celse*.[16] De nouveau, le vocabulaire d'Eusèbe rappelle d'assez près celui d'Origène.[17]

Il est cependant certain que les propos rapportés par Eusèbe ne viennent pas en totalité du *Contre Celse*. L'adjectif ἀνεξέταστος (*PE* I 1.11; I 2.4) et l'adverbe ἀνεξετάστως (*DE* I 1.15) sont certes présents dans le *Contre Celse* (trois occurrences[18]); ils trouvent un écho isolé dans l'œuvre conservée de Porphyre,[19] mais paraissent propres au style d'Eusèbe (quinze occurrences dans son œuvre, d'après le TLG). De même, l'adjectif ἀβασάνιστος (*PE* I 1.11), non attesté dans les textes conservés de Porphyre, pourrait refléter une influence du *Contre Celse* (sept occurrences[20]), mais est régulièrement utilisé par Eusèbe dans toute son œuvre (le TLG donne huit occurrences de l'adjectif ἀβασάνιστος et de l'adverbe ἀβασανίστως).

Le fragment 73 comporte enfin deux allusions platoniciennes: les passages θρεμμάτων ἀλόγων δίκην (cf. *République* 586a) et μύσαντας εὖ καὶ ἀνδρείως (cf. *Gorgias* 480d). S'il est possible qu'Eusèbe doive ces deux allusions à un adversaire du christianisme dont il reproduirait le propos,[21] cette hypothèse n'a rien de nécessaire, car l'évêque de Césarée est un bon connaisseur de Platon, dont il est possible qu'il ait consulté de première main la *République* et peut-être

[12] *Ibid.* III 28; III 51; III 57; VI 13. Voir surtout VI 10: Οὐ πρὸς πάντα οὖν τὸν προσιόντα φαμὲν ὅτι πρῶτον πίστευσον ὃν εἰσηγοῦμαί σοι τοῦτον εἶναι υἱὸν θεοῦ (...).

[13] *Ibid.* I 9; I 13; I 42; III 33; IV 54.

[14] *Ibid.* III 39; voir également *ibid.* I 61.

[15] *Ibid.* II 31; V 61.

[16] *Ibid.* VI 74.

[17] Pour l'emploi, par Eusèbe, de l'adjectif ἐναργής (*PE* I 1.11; *DE* I 1.15) et du verbe παριστάναι (*PE* I 3.1), voir surtout *Cels.* I 43: (...) μὴ ἔχομεν, ὡς ὑπολαμβάνεις, ἐναργῶς παραστῆσαι πῶς ταῦτά ἐστιν ἀληθῆ ὑπ' αὐτοῦ μόνου ἑωραμένα ἢ ἀκουσθέντα. Le passage δι' ἀποδείξεως ἐναργοῦς (*PE* I 1.11) peut avoir été influencé par *Cels.* III 4 (ἐναργῶς ἀποδείχθη) ou *ibid.* VIII 59 (ἐναργεστέρας ἀποδείξεις).

[18] *Cels.* III 23; III 53; VII 1.

[19] *Hist. phil. frg.* 11 Sodano = Cyr., *Juln.* VI 208 (PG 76, 817C4-5); Thdt., *affect.* I 27. Le frg. 1 du *Contra Christianos* ne peut pas être pris en compte puisqu'il contient l'un des textes de notre dossier (*PE* I 2.4).

[20] *Cels.* I 28; I 55; IV 18; V 1; VI 16; VII 1; VIII 9.

[21] Nous n'avons trouvé trace de ces textes ni chez Celse, ni chez Porphyre, ni chez Hiéroclès. L'allusion au *Gorgias* se retrouve peut-être, dans un contexte analogue, chez Jean Chrysostome, mais ce dernier se souvient probablement de la *DE* (*Panégyriques de Saint Paul*, IV 1).

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le *Gorgias*.[22] D'ailleurs, l'expression θρεμμάτων ἀλόγων δίκην, qui apparaît comme une reformulation assez libre du passage de la *République* (βοσκημάτων δίκην), se retrouve trois fois dans l'œuvre d'Eusèbe,[23] sans compter les huit autres textes où l'évêque de Césarée associe θρέμμα à l'adjectif ἄλογον.[24] Eusèbe est donc très certainement l'auteur, sinon de l'allusion, du moins de sa formulation.[25]

La conclusion de cette étude est que le frg. 73 ne reproduit pas une accusation de Porphyre. S'il n'est pas exclu qu'il rejoigne sur certains points les attaques du philosophe (ou celles d'un autre adversaire d'Eusèbe, Hiéroclès), il s'agit avant tout d'un 'centon' composé à partir de plusieurs passages du *Contre Celse*, auxquels Eusèbe a imprimé en partie la marque de son propre style. Ces quelques remarques démontrent une nouvelle fois la fragilité du travail de Harnack et la nécessité d'une nouvelle édition des fragments du *Contra Christianos*.

[22] Andrew J. Carriker, *The Library of Eusebius of Caesarea* (Leiden, 2003), 103. Si Eusèbe était l'auteur de l'allusion au *Gorgias*, ceci prouverait qu'il ne connaissait pas seulement la section du mythe final, qu'il cite dans la *PE*, et renforcerait l'hypothèse d'une lecture directe du dialogue, défendue par Andrew J. Carriker, *ibid.*, 106.

[23] *PE* II 5.4; *DE* IV 6.9; *Com. Ps.* (PG 23, 921B15).

[24] *DE* III 2.42; VII 18.6; *L.C.* 7.10; *In Is.* I 7 (5.8); II 26 (286.3-4); *Com. Ps.* (PG 23, 608D3; 940C3; 940D6-7).

[25] Il faut ajouter que le mot θρέμμα n'est conservé ni dans les accusations antichrétiennes de Celse ni dans celles de Porphyre, quoique ce dernier l'utilise deux fois dans son œuvre (*Abst.* III 19; *In Ptol.*, 219.16-17 Boer – Weinstock).

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Constantine as Patron of Christian Latin Poetry

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Saeculo meo scribentes dicentesque non aliter benignus auditus quam levis aura prosequitur; denique etiam studiis meritum a me testimonium non negatur.[1] It is well known that Roman emperors saw the exercise of their patronage in the encouragement of literature as a matter of great importance, and that they were often plied with requests to accept and ponder works of all kinds. A notable synergy might result, with the emperor gaining esteem as a man of culture and publicity for his policies and ideals, and the writer notable prestige, material reward, and a boost to the advertisement and dissemination of his work. Augustus and the 'Augustan poets' provide the obvious example; as we shall see, his reputation for such generosity had not died out, nor had the custom and related expectations. But little has been said about the encouragement of literature by Constantine, no less important an emperor and also notably long-lived. The significance of the words quoted above from a letter ascribed to Constantine was pointed out many years ago by T.D. Barnes[2] in an article on the life and career of the colourful character Publilius Optatianus Porphyrius, poet and politician, the apparent recipient; Barnes saw it as 'a sort of cultural manifesto'. The words, to be sure, were addressed to an individual, and it is unlikely that copies went directly to any others except perhaps an archivist; but a statement of such potential interest and importance is unlikely to have remained secret. The writer will hardly have expected his sentiments not to be noised abroad, and may indeed have written to others in the same vein. It is a pronouncement that gives clear notice that Constantine saw himself as a patron and thought it an integral part of his imperial status that he would reward writers as their merits and themes deserved.

Optatianus – as is shown by the fact that he is seldom referred to by a single name, as if a single name were insufficient to drag him from obscurity – is not a household name. He has low visibility, and perhaps, even in today's inclusive age, a high degree of risibility in the eyes of some scholars, depending on their viewpoint. Although the topic of this paper is notably absent from the otherwise

[1] Optatianus Porphyrius, *Carmina*: *Epistula Constantini* 6-7. 'Those who write and speak in my age will be met with a kindly hearing, just like a refreshing breeze, and the recognition owed by me to their studies will not be denied'.

[2] Timothy David Barnes, Publilius Optatianus Porphyrius: *American Journal of Philology* 96 (1975) 173-86.

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many-sided picture of the emperor presented in the recent *Cambridge Companion to the Age of Constantine*, Optatianus himself can be introduced by a quotation from its editor's introduction.[3] 'Optatianus Porfyrius was able to win his way back into Constantine's good graces and eventually secure plum political appointments by dedicating to Constantine a collection of poems larded with triply encoded messages layered throughout his verses in artfully shaped acrostics'.[4] And not only acrostics, one should add, but mesostichs and telestichs: in some poems the central letters and the final letters of each hexameter line also have their message, forming perfectly regular lines of poetry. More than this, letters in the poems are so positioned, without detriment to the argument, meaning or metrical integrity of the poem, as to form various geometrical shapes. The relevant letters are distinguished by appropriate coloration in some of the manuscripts,[5] and before that, as we know from the poet's own preface, were sumptuously highlighted with gold and silver. To that extent the work was already decoded for its readers, who were meant to marvel at the poet's ingenuity. Modern editions have performed for us what would be a very complex task of word-search, or rather hexameter-search;[6] but for readers today to do justice to the poems' intricacy and envisage the original appearance requires not simply black and white diagrams but (in the absence of a lavish coffee-table book that might do it for them) considerable imagination, as well as a willingness to ignore any feeling that attention to the poems is unworthy and a readiness to appreciate the reasons for their esteem.[7]

But the poems are not interesting for their intricate design alone; they are significant as panegyrics, and perhaps more could be done to analyse what, in the twenty dedicated to Constantine, they praise him for, the buttons they press – for example in praising the justice of Constantine in implicit contrast to his non-Christian predecessors. They are also not negligible as a historical source for some of the emperor's victories. Optatianus was an important figure in his own right, being *praefectus urbi* in 329 and 333 and before that sufficiently important, one might say, to have been exiled for some time, perhaps ten years.[8] But in the years 324/5, which is the date convincingly provided for the poems by Barnes, he seems to have been in the middle of things, or at least an interested spectator. Christianity is not prominent, except in one of the poems (24);

[3] Noel Lenski in: N. Lenski (ed.), *The Cambridge Companion to the Age of Constantine* (Cambridge, 2006), 4.

[4] N. Lenski (2006), 4.

[5] Oliver Ehlen, Venantius Fortunatus und das Heilige Kreuz: Das Figurengedicht Carmen II 4: *SP* 48 (2010) 315-20.

[6] I have used *Optatianus Porfyrius: Carmina*, ed. Elsa Kluge (Leipzig, 1926) and *Publilii Optatiani Porphyrii Carmina*, ed. Iohannes Polara (Turin, 1973).

[7] For their popularity in later periods, see the article of Kurt Smolak in: Reinhart Herzog (ed.), *Handbuch der lateinischen Literatur der Antike, 5, Restauration und Erneuerung 284-374 n. Chr.* (Munich, 1989), 242f.

[8] T. Barnes (1975), 186.

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this should not be dismissed as an interpolation, for the manuscript tradition of this poem is not significantly different from that of others, and it has not been shown to be otherwise anomalous. Two others present the chi-rho symbol artfully woven among the lettering (8, 14). It would be rash to label him as essentially a pagan, or a non-Christian, or a time-serving Christian; not only because, as scholars have learnt long ago, it may be unwarranted to reject as pagan authors who make sparse references to Christian issues and frequent ones to traditional deities or related matters, but because in this period there was surely a high degree of fluidity, of uncertainty, and of intermediate positioning between the poles, which makes a simple division into sheep and goats quite unhelpful. Smolak suggested with due caution that 'Christian elements in his work have to do with increasing Christianisation of the empire'.[9]

The letter from which the quotation was taken was evidently a reply to the dedicatory letter of Optatianus which precedes it in the manuscripts and most editions. It should probably be considered as a letter sent by the poet not to present the extant set of poems but, following Barnes' reconstruction, to accompany an earlier offering. This is referred to in the opening lines of the first poem (l. 1-6), and appears to have been no less elaborate. Optatianus emphasises his own feebleness of intellect – hence now a certain authorial pallor contrasting with their splendour – but rejoices that the poems will be seen and read by Constantine, a fortune beyond even his greedy hopes. The great Vergil, he points out, that bright light of poets and fountain of pure nectar, could expect and indeed vaunt the support of Maecenas; though his own hopes are small, Optatianus notes that even among the emperor's feats in war and peace, his triumphs and laurels, and his legal decrees and judgements Constantine rejoices in his friends the Muses so that the glory of poetry may shine among the other glories of his divine majesty.[10] The poet even dares to give thanks, confessing his temerity once more but anticipating the emperor's good judgement.

Much of this is perhaps predictable; Constantine's reply is much more interesting, especially for what it has to say on literary matters. It begins with a reference to the weight and *gravitas* of Homer and Vergil; if these writers were all that existed, it would be wrong for poets to sweat over other kinds of verse. But it has always been open for all writers to delight later ages in such genres as tragedy, comedy, elegy and lyric,[11] and in proportion to the quality of their work there has been for each individual copious acknowledgement of the glory

[9] K. Smolak (1989), 239.

[10] 'Qui inter belli pacisque virtutes, inter triumphos et laureas, inter legum sanctiones et iura etiam Musis tibi familiaribus plaudis, ut inter tot divinae maiestatis insignia ... huius etiam studii in te micet splendor egregius.' (Here *plaudis* is a conjecture of Lucian Mueller).

[11] The word *delectare* is not present in some manuscripts, and is rejected by Polara; but his reason for doing so – that the word is a medieval interpolation – is weak, as will be seen below.

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they sought.[12] But, he goes on, some talented writers have failed to gain the favour of their times (*defuit quorundam ingeniis temporum favor*), favour which has been accustomed to irrigate and nourish the minds of readers given to *doctrina*, just as a stream coaxed down from the brim of its sloping channel cools dry fields. This conspicuous quotation of Vergil[13] is a neat response to Optatianus' mention of Maecenas, from the poem in which the name of Vergil's patron is prominent; it is also a good example of non-epic yet highly regarded poetry. It is at this point, after his expression of regret for the relative neglect of poetry in previous years, that the pronouncement quoted at the beginning of this paper comes. Constantine saw himself as helping to revive poetry after a period of neglect due to poor patronage, and he sees such writing as an important part of his age, his *saeculum*. He would not have claimed that the spirit of his age or his welcome to poets were to be understood as focused on Christianity at this stage, but is declaring that he will not be an emperor who is unreceptive or intolerant.

This is an important piece of self-fashioning, albeit one not unusual among Roman emperors. Augustus was the patron *par excellence*, and one to whom (unlike Nero and Domitian, for example) reference is naturally made. It is to his era that Theodosius refers later in the fourth century, when with a show of great affection but less subtlety, he invites Ausonius, the veteran poet and elder statesman, to write on his behalf and reminds him of how the poets incessantly showered Octavianus Augustus with honorific poems.[14] A few decades before Constantine the interesting poetic career of the African poet Nemesianus[15] implies the expectation that patronage might well be forthcoming, and indeed it may be the catalyst of his work. After some pastoral poems, and a didactic work on hunting, which show clear Vergilian aspirations, he promised the sons of Carus a poem wherein he would sing their triumphs with a 'greater lyre', something approaching the *Aeneid*, perhaps.[16] This they almost certainly did not live to see, being put to death by Diocletian. Perhaps it was Diocletian's own reign that led to the dearth in patronage that Constantine lamented, unless his reference is a more general one. But if Nemesianus shows the dangers of a poetic career, it does serve to show too that the expectation of imperial patronage was very much alive, even in the third century, which there has been a

[12] 'Pro qualitate modulaminis ad singulos quosque expetitae laudis gratia redundavit.'

[13] Vergil, *Georgics* 1. 108-9: 'ecce supercilio clivosi tramitis undam / elicit.'

[14] 'secutus exempla auctorum optimorum ... qui Octaviano Augusto rerum potienti certatim opera sua tradebant, nullo fine in eius honorem multa condentes.' See Roger Philip Hywel Green, *The Works of Ausonius* (Oxford, 1991), 707.

[15] For the text of Nemesianus see John Wight Duff and Arnold MacKay Duff (eds.), *Minor Latin Poets* (London and Cambridge Ma., 1968), 451-515, and Pierre Volpilhac (ed.), *Némésien, Œuvres* (Paris, 1976).

[16] 'Mox vestros meliore lyra memorare triumphos / accingar, divi fortissima pignora Cari' ('Soon will I prepare myself to relate, with higher verse, your triumphs, bravest childen of Carus').

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tendency to see as a time when emperors were too busy stabbing each other in the back, or being stabbed, or usurping or being usurped, or generally failing, to be concerned about the cultural life. Doubtless the process of offering works to emperors, illustrated by Millar inevitably with a focus on prose, continued.[17] Constantine's clear statement of intent, then, is not unusual within the wider context of cultural activity and its support; but neither should such an important part of his aspirations be ignored.

Before going on to look for signs of the outworking of such a policy in the rest of Constsntine's reign, it is necessary to examine the thesis of Polara that the two letters we have been discussing are not authentic, a judgement accepted by Smolak.[18] Firstly, Polara had difficulties over the chronological interrelationship of the letters and the extant poems, partly because he considered that Optatianus referred to a judgement already made by Constantine.[19] This interpretation of his words is not necessary – he may be seen as complimenting Constantine – and other chronological problems seem to have been explained quite satisfactorily by Barnes,[20] who in effect moved them to an earlier stage, so that they refer to the first presentation of poetry and not the one that has survived. Other arguments are stylistic. Polara posed the question of who wrote this ostensible letter of Constantine, the emperor himself, or a scribe?[21] A scribe, he argues, would hardly have written in a style so different from the usual official style;[22] but this need not be the case, and it would not be unusual if the scribe matched his style to the addressee, in this case using poetry or poeticl allusions. The idea that it was written by Constantine raises two kinds of difficulty for Polara. In the first place, it does not square with the statement of Theodosius in the letter to Ausonius referred to above, that he was writing in his own hand contrary to the custom of all emperors. It might be rash on the basis of that wheedling letter to infer that emperors had never done this; but what Theodosius actually says is that he is setting aside the custom of emperors (*ut morem principibus aliis solitum sequestrarem* ...). This hardly amounts to a statement about the invariable or even regular practice of fourth century emperors. Secondly, there are some problems of style: the letter is judged by Polara to be written *imperite atque infacete* ('inexpertly and inelegantly'),[23] and assumed without further ado to be unworthy of Constantine. The main problem he finds is the 'frequent and disagreeable' repetition of words and syntactical stuctures. The flaws that he points out are the repetition in section 11 of the word *propositus* in some form and the thrice repeated use of epexegetic *ut* after

[17] Fergus Millar, *The Emperor in the Roman World* (London, 1977), 497.
[18] K. Smolak (1989), 237-43.
[19] I. Polara (1973), 2. 19.
[20] T. Barnes (1975), 185.
[21] I. Polara (1973), 1. xxxi-ii.
[22] So E. Kluge, Studien zu Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius: *Münchener Museum* IV (1924) 324.
[23] I. Polara (1973), 2. 23.

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hoc or *illud* in 8-11. This last usage is common enough in Latin of all periods, but the repetition does grate. However, these are not barbarisms or solecisms, as Polara's exaggerations elsewhere might suggest, and certainly not enough to send Constantine to the bottom of the class, or, as Polara does, to the comfortably vague category of medieval forgery, for he sees the letters as the work of a clumsy tiro who was set this particular theme.

The two letters actually seem significantly different in style, with the letter ascribed to Optatianus more turgid than Constantine's – this is only to be expected of one feeling or affecting great diffidence – and the reply, after its initial stiffness, even pomposity, rather less so. Inelegant repetition of the kind that Polara faulted in the Constantine letter does not seem to characterise the Optatianus letter. More attention could usefully be paid to the question, but it may be noted in passing that the very rare use of the accusative and infinitive with the verb *praesto* (in the sense of 'bring about'), which must surely be postulated at the end of the long first sentence of the Optatianus letter, is paralleled in poem 18. 4.[24] Such a detail would surely have escaped an incompetent medieval tiro, and is an argument for the letter's authenticity. Furthermore, the scenario of such a correspondence between poet and emperor seems an unlikely one to attract a medieval pupil or his master. In later times Optatianus was not unknown, but Constantine had no reputation as a patron of literature; and Bede, at least, in his *De arte metrica* states that because of his pagan material he did not wish to touch the work of Porphyrius, who is clearly our poet.[25] It was suggested by Smolak[26] that the abovementioned letter from Theodosius to Ausonius could have triggered the idea of inventing a letter of Constantine, but there is little in common between the two letters; moreover, the only two manuscripts of Ausonius that include the letter from Theodosius (PH) are late medieval, while their much older and now more venerated relative (Voss. Lat. F 111: V to most editors of Ausonius) – supposing for argument that it once housed the letter – seems to have lain for perhaps a millennium in unrelieved obscurity.[27]

There is a natural caution in accepting as genuine an imperial letter of such a personal nature, and, not surprisingly, there are no extant letters of Constantine of this kind with which a helpful comparison could be made. But letters from Augustus to Horace, which earned him the description of 'Augustus, amazing letter-writer' in the index of Fraenkel's monumental work on Horace,[28] are accepted as genuine, on the sure assumption that Suetonius found them in the archives; and now a small dossier of letters by Constantine's son, Constantius II,

[24] TLL X. 2. 922 9-14.

[25] Bede, *De Arte metrica* (*Grammatici Latini*, 7. 258): 'quae quia pagana erant, nos tangere non libuit.'

[26] K. Smolak (1989), 243.

[27] R. Green, *Ausonii Opera* (Oxford, 1999), vii-viii, x-xi.

[28] Eduard Fraenkel, *Horace* (Oxford, 1957), 455.

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has been assembled by Teitler.[29] One was written for him by Themistius; the emperor's authorship of the others should not be rejected out of hand. His successor, Julian, is better known than either of his predecessors as a letter writer. Such letters would be treasured by their recipients, and Optatianus is likely to have retained a letter of Constantine which might be exploited later, and added to the collection of his poems from which our manuscripts must derive. Pending strong evidence to the contrary, then, the letter ascribed to Constantine, along with the one to which it apparently replies, may be taken as genuine; and it should be seen as a strong statement of intent, a strong commitment to the value of creative literary work made early in his career (Barnes' date is 312/3).[30]

Evidence of the outworking of Constantine's encouragement for poets is not lacking. The first work to deserve attention is the anonymous poem entitled *Laudes Domini*.[31] As often, the manuscript title is a description: *Laudes domini cum miraculo quod accidit in Aeduico*. The praises of Christ – both as creator and redeemer – take up more space than the miracle, which is briefly narrated after a brief introduction and a forceful presentation of its wider significance for religious belief. The poem begins:

quis queritur sera virtutes dote iuvari,
quis promissa dei lento procedere passu?
quis fine humano metitur iudicis urnam
perpetui tardumque putat quod saecula debent?
accelerare diem, meritis qui praemia reddat,
nobilis ingenti testatur gloria facto.
nam qua stagnanti praelabitur agmine ripas
tardus Arar pigrumque diu vix explicat amnem,
qua fraterna Remo progignitur Aedua pubes,
coniugium memini summa pietate fideque ...

'Who complains that virtues are blessed with late fruition, or that God's promises proceed at a tardy pace? Who measures the verdict of the eternal judge by a human lifespan, or regards as dilatory what is owed by eternity? A famous miracle attests with a mighty deed that the day which matches good deeds with their rewards is hastening on. For where the slow Saône glides past its banks with sluggish stream and hardly frees its slow-moving current, where Aeduan youth, brothers to Remus, is born and bred, I remember a marriage of the utmost sanctity and fidelity ....'

The miracle concerns a married couple who lived in or near Autun. The woman died first, and was duly buried in a tomb with her limbs carefully bound to

[29] Hans Carel Teitler, Ammianus and Constantius: Image and Reality, in: Jan den Boeft, Daniel den Hengst and H.C. Teitler (eds.), *Cognitio Gestorum: The historiographic art of Ammianus Marcellinus* (Amsterdam, 1992), 117-22. I owe my awareness of this article to Dr. Gavin Kelly.

[30] T. Barnes (1975), 185.

[31] Pieter Van der Weijden (ed.), *Laudes Domini: Tekst, vertaling en commentaar* (Amsterdam, 1987), and Aniello Salziano (ed.), *Laudes Domini: Introduzione, testo, traduzione e commento* (Naples, 2001).

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prevent damage (lines 14-25) When in due course the husband was buried with her, the wife was seen to extend her left hand[32] towards him in a loving gesture, a sign of living love (26-31). This affection, and the physical disruption of the binding, and the woman's sight of her coming spouse, are signs of divine power. Divine intervention and working are not always delayed until the final judgement. A story in some ways similar to this one is later told by Gregory of Tours of Bishop Reticius of Autun.[33] When the remains of the deceased bishop were removed so as to be near to those of his wife, he addressed his wife in loving words and her scattered bones were miraculously reassembled to make way for his. In his useful pioneering article on the poem Bardy even wondered if Reticius is the hero of *Laudes Domini*, but cut short that speculation for lack of evidence of the date of his death; there is certainly no hint of that in the poem. Other stories are known of a broadly similar nature, one of them in Tertullian's *De Anima* 52.[34]

It is reasonable to describe the author with Bardy as 'un Autunois', a citizen of Augustodunum, modern Autun; in passing, the link made between Autun and Rome, through the mention of Remus, is noteworthy. It recalls comments made by Cicero and Caesar in an earlier epoch, and was still worth making.[35] It is also reasonable, though short of compelling, to link his poetic accomplishment with the school or in modern terms academy generally located in Autun, which we know about from an extant speech of a few years earlier seeking official permission and support for plans for the restoration of the school of rhetoric.[36] The anonymous poet's style is careful and assured; there is a smooth adaptation of the pagan prayer-form in the Du-Stil to Christian purposes and a transferral of Stoic argumentation for intelligent and providential design of the universe into Christian discourse.[37] Our writer is well-educated, as may be gathered from the above quoted lines; as well as his fluent metrical technique and choice of appropriate vocabulary, he is well read, and knows his Vergil quite thoroughly, and Ovid, Horace, and Lucretius too.[38] The poem would have appealed to the well-educated, but its exact aim and intended audience are not obvious. The identification of a target readership for works of Christian apologetic – it is presumably that, in some sense – is one of often underestimated difficulty,[39] and will not be pursued here.

[32] Ilona Opelt, Das *carmen De laudibus Domini* als Zeugnis des Christentums bei den Galliern: *Romanobarbarica* 3 (1978) 159-66, discusses this detail at 163f.

[33] Gregory of Tours, *Gloria Confessorum* 75 (PL 71, 882).

[34] Gustave Bardy, Les *Laudes Domini* (poème autunois du commencement du IV[e] siècle): *Memoires de l'Académie des sciences, arts et belles-lettres de Dijon* 1933 (1934) 36-51, esp. 39f.

[35] Caesar, *De Bello Gallico* 1. 33. 2; Cicero, *Ad Att.* 1. 19. 2 and *Ad Fam.* 7. 10. 4.

[36] C. Edward V. Nixon and Barbara Saylor Rodgers, *In Praise of Later Roman Emperors: the Panegyrici Latini* (Berkeley, Los Angeles, and Oxford, 1994), 145-77, 554-71.

[37] Jacques Fontaine, *Naissance de la poésie dans l'occident Chrétien* (Paris, 1981), 101f.

[38] Copious references are provided in the text of P. Van der Weijden (2001).

[39] See in general Mark Edwards, Martin Goodman, and Simon Price (eds.), *Apologetics in the Roman Empire* (Oxford, 1999), especially 1-13.

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The composition can be dated to the year 324, or shortly before. This emerges from the last six lines of the poem (143-8), which in view of their strong thematic distinction from the remainder, may be called an epilogue:

at nunc tu dominum meritis, pietate parentem,
imperio facilem, vivendi lege magistrum
edictisque parem, quae lex tibi condita sanxit,
victorem laetumque pares mihi Constantinum!
hoc melius fetu terris nil ante dedisti
nec dabis: exaequent utinam sua pignora patrem!

'But now may you make victorious and successful the one who is our master by his achievements, our parent in piety, benevolent in his power, our teacher in the art of living, and our equal through his edicts, which the law established by you has confirmed – Constantine! You have produced nothing better than this for the world before now, nor will you; may his children equal their father!'

Constantine, whose name is kept back until the end of the sentence in a way typical of panegyric whether verse or prose[40] (this essentially performative technique emerges less elegantly in English translation) has sons, and unless this is hypothetical and loyally deferential in assuming that there will be sons in the future, they are Crispus, born in 305 and Constantine (the future Constantine II), born at Arles in 317 – these became Caesars in 317 – and Constantius, also born in 317.[41] The poet prays that God will make Constantine in some sense a victor; assuming that this means a military victor, rather than a spiritual one, or a victor in some other sense, there is a war in the offing. This is naturally fixed as the war with Licinius of 324, and the poem's date can be comfortably fitted into that context. The sentiment is hardly a *post eventum* one, which would be rather bizarre. Presumably it does not predate the battle by much.

Some five years later a Spanish priest of noble origins by the name of Juvencus wrote a poem which has the title *Evangeliorum Libri Quattuor*.[42] The date of this work seems to be no less precise than that of the *Laudes Domini*; in his *Chronicle* Jerome places it in 329, and there is no good reason to prefer the modifications made by modern scholars.[43] The poem is a harmony of the Gospels, made by Juvencus himself, and takes up four books roughly equal in length to the books in Vergil's *Aeneid*; the Gospel narratives and speeches are recast as epic in various ways.[44] It ends (the very last word of this long paraphrase is in fact *finis*) with the Matthean injunction of Christ to his disciples

[40] For another example in verse, compare the holding back of the river's name until line 22 of Ausonius' *Moselle*.

[41] PLRE 1. 233. 223. 226.

[42] Johannes Huemer (ed.), *Gaii Vettii Aquilini Iuvenci Evangeliorum Libri Quattuor* (Prague, Vienna, and Leipzig, 1891).

[43] R. Green, *Latin Epics of the New Testament* (Oxford, 2006), 2-7.

[44] See R. Green (2006), 1-134.

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to go out to the ends of the world, making converts and baptizing them. But there is, again, a kind of epilogue, which links Juvencus' own poetic enterprise with the duty of the apostles; following on from them, he describes his own task, which has been much simplified by the peace produced by the emperor Constantine, and praises the emperor in lines 804-12, in these words:

has mea mens fidei vires sanctique timoris
cepit et in tantum lucet mihi gratia Christi
versibus ut nostris divinae gloria legis
ornamenta libens capiat terrestria linguae.
haec mihi pax Christi tribuit, pax haec mihi saecli,
quam fovet indulgens terrae regnator apertae
Constantinus, adest cui gratia digna merenti,
qui solus regum sacri sibi nominis horret
imponi pondus, quo iustis dignior actis
aeternam capiat divina in saecula vitam
per dominum lucis Christum, qui in saecula regnat.

'This power of faith and sacred fear my mind has put on, and the grace of Christ shines so strongly in me that in my verses the glory of the divine law willingly accepts the adornment of earthly language. It is the peace of Christ that has bestowed this on me, and the peace of the age, graciously fostered by Constantine, the ruler of the wide world, who deservedly enjoys grace worthy of him, who alone of kings shudders that the weight of this holy name is placed upon him, so that becoming even more meritorious by his just acts he may receive eternal life throughout God's ages through Christ the Lord of light, who reigns for ever'.

The high praise of Constantine here is remarkable; what was a brief wish in the *Laudes Domini* has become a tribute to the emperor's achievements, through the grace of Christ. The judgement of Brandes, comparing this with the *Laudes Domini*, that Juvencus' Constantine is an inaccessible sole ruler in the Byzantine mould, as opposed to the popular hero ('populärer Held') of the Gallic poet,[45] may be overdone, but Juvencus is certainly more ambitious in his praises, and more subtle, notably in his toying with the still offensive title of *rex*;[46] Constantine shudders to be called that, although (the poet implies) it could be seen as in some ways appropriate. In the poem as a whole Constantine may be supported in an important but less conspicuous way: it is interesting to observe, as I have done elsewhere,[47] that Juvencus quietly avoids passages in his chosen extracts which might seem to raise the problems aired by Arius and followers about the status of Christ. For example, Juvencus prefers not to tell us that the

[45] Wilhelm Brandes, Über das frühchristliche Gedicht '*Laudes Domini*' (Brunswick, 1887), 5-10; quoted at length in P. Van der Weijden (2001), 19.

[46] R. Green (2006), 6.

[47] R. Green (2006), 117-20 and *id.*, The *Evangeliorum Libri* of Juvencus: Exegesis by Stealth?, in: Willemien Otten and Karla Pollmann (eds.), *Poetry and Exegesis in Premodern Latin Christianity*, VigChrS 87 (Leiden, 2007), 65-80.

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young Christ grew in wisdom, or that when on the cross he cried out as if somehow forsaken by his father. The poem is, in a word, a shorthand word, anti-Arian,[48] and could be seen to support the agenda of the Council of Nicaea, called by Constantine. It is possible that Juvencus was well known to Ossius, the bishop of Cordova, adviser to Constantine in religious matters; Juvencus' home town of Elvira was no great distance from Cordova, where Ossius may have returned in the years after Nicaea.

In its time Juvencus' poem stands out for its skill, its familiarity with the classics, and its sensitive refashioning and interpretation of the Gospels, and it is dedicated to Constantine by a man who although only a priest in rank was also an aristocrat and perhaps a widely connected one. The Epilogue is also reminiscent of lines at the end of Vergil's *Georgics* (4. 559-62), which allude likewise to the peace-making activities of Octavian, currently thundering over the eastern provinces:

Haec super arvorum cultu pecorumque canebam
et super arboribus, Caesar dum magnus ad altum
fulminat Euphraten bello victorque volentis
per populos dat iura viamque adfectat Olympo.

'These things I have written on the cultivation of fields and flocks, while great Caesar thunders by the deep Euphrates and pronounces justice among the willing peoples and makes his way to Olympus'.

While Vergil makes an oblique link with Octavian, Juvencus joins himself wholeheartedly with Constantine, who is Maecenas and Octavian in one. Octavian is the warrior, producing peace and the rule of law; Constantine has produced peace, making possible life under God's law. That this end-piece recalls the tribute of one who was Constantine's favourite poet is not the least of its attractions. No doubt Constantine basked in this glory, being praised by a would-be Vergil, or rather one who to judge from his Preface considered himself *sub specie aeternitatis* greater than Vergil, if only by virtue of his immortal theme.[49]

A neat picture of literary activity under Constantine has emerged. At an early stage in the reign Optatianus presented a set of poems to Constantine, who welcomed the offering and set out his stall, as it were, intimating that his encouragement would be widely available for writers of due quality. Not surprisingly, this attracted the attention of Christians, who saw the opportunity; and while it is always possible that earlier endeavours to produce Christian Latin verse in classicising style were made but did not survive in hostile circumstances, it

[48] See for example Lewis Ayres, in: Frances Young, L. Ayres, and Andrew Louth (eds.), *The Cambridge History of Early Christian Literature* (Cambridge, 2004), 428-30.

[49] R. Green (2006), 16-19 and *id.*, Approaching Christian Epic: the Preface of Juvencus, in: Monica Gale (ed.), *Latin Epic and Didactic Poetry: Genre, Tradition and Individuality* (The Classical Press of Wales, 2004), 203-22.

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is even possible to credit Constantine with inspiring, in some sense, the first in a long line of Christian Latin poems. Much is uncertain about the background to the *Laudes Domini*, not least what, or who, exactly it was that impelled the author to add his cheer for Constantine and his wishes for the eventual success of his sons. A much bigger fish swims happily into his net at the end of that decade; Juvencus, the aristocrat-cum-priest with his expert *mise en poésie* of the Christian Gospels, trimmed of detail that might have raised Arian-type reservations, and also impregnated with at least faint hints that it is in Constantine that some of the dominical prophecies (for example, the warning that a house divided against itself cannot stand) have found fulfilment.[50] We cannot, of course, speak of a new Augustan era of enlightened and successful literary productivity, for Christian verse is still at what can only be called an experimental stage. But it must be said that the efforts of Constantine's subjects, at least indirectly inspired by the stance he had taken in his early years of power, stand out in the fourth century. It seems that attitudes to poetry and culture under his sons and successors were not comparable. Perhaps *they* were too busy stabbing one another in the back, physically, theologically or ideologically, to have any time for the lyre of Apollo and the harmonious chorus of the Muses mentioned by Optatianus and the rites of Helicon and Parnassus to which Constantine alludes in his elegant reply.

[50] R. Green (2006), 123-6.

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Exceptionality and Invention: Silvester and the Late Antique 'Papacy' at Rome

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An exceptional history for an exceptional church?

Since at least the third century, and thanks originally to the efforts of non-Roman bishops like Cyprian, members of the Christian clerical establishment had regarded Rome and its bishops as exceptional. To be sure, they invoked Rome's exceptionality at strategic moments, most often with the aim of buttressing their own positions in local controversies, as Cyprian and later Augustine did when confronting the Donatists.[2] Nevertheless, there was a broad consensus among late ancient Christians that Rome's church and bishops wielded a peculiar authority within the *oikumene* in light of the city's imperial history as well as, of course, the emerging tradition of its Christian foundation by the apostle Peter.[3]

For a long time, modern scholars too thought that the late antique Roman papacy was something special. Since the Reformation, both sides of the confessional divide expended great scholarly energy on the subject, especially in the wake of the Pius IX's definition of papal infallibility at the First Vatican Council of 1869-70 and its declaration as doctrine.[4] For the next hundred years, the late antique Roman Church was a major topic of historical enquiry by both

[1] Thanks to Julia Hillner for her comments on an earlier draft of this paper. All errors of fact and interpretation remain my own.

[2] On Cyprian's role (and self-interest) in the construction of Roman primacy, see Charles Bobertz, The Historical Context of Cyprian's De Unitate: *JTS N.S.* 41 (1990) 107-111 and Maurice Benvenot, Primatus Petro Datur: St. Cyprian on the Papacy: *JTS N.S.* 5 (1954) 19-35; for Augustine's invocation of Rome's Petrine authority, see now Daniel E. Doyle, Spread Throughout the World: Hints on Augustine's Understanding of Petrine Ministry: *JECS* 13 (2005) 233-46.

[3] For a general study of the late antique development of Rome's 'Petrine authority', see Michele Maccarrone, *Sedes apostolica – Vicarius Petri*? La perpetuità del primato di Pietro nelle sede e nel vescovo di Roma (secolo III-VIII), in: Maccarrone (ed.), *Il primato del vescovo di Roma nel primo milennio* (Vatican City, 1991), 281-98. Of course, Christian clerics ignored Rome's authority as much as they invoked it, especially in eastern cities and in western sees like Arles, Aquileia and Grado. As George Demacopoulos shows in his contribution to this volume, 'Gregory the Great and the Appeal to Petrine Authority', even such 'great' bishops as Gregory were acutely aware that their invocations of Peter might fall on deaf ears.

[4] On Pius IX and the First Vatican Council, see Owen Chadwick, *A History of the Popes 1830-1914* (Oxford, 1998), 61-272.

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Protestant and Catholic scholars of early Christianity and the middle ages, who typically approached the Roman episcopacy in teleological terms, as the embryonic version of the later papal state.[5]

But since the late 1960s or so, the study of the late antique papacy has for the most part, at least in American and British academic circles, been thrown into the dust bin of irrelevance. Inspired by broad-reaching, synthetic studies of late antique bishops and ecclesiastical culture by scholars like Peter Brown, Robert Markus, Lellia Cracco-Ruggini, and Elizabeth Clark, scholars now ask more theoretically sophisticated questions about the nature and construction of episcopal authority in late antiquity writ large, focusing more on the cultural processes which produced the figure of the bishop and less on the effects of his evolving power.[6] What is more, scholars typically seek answers to their questions about episcopal authority not in Rome but in other cities and sees, especially those located in the eastern lands of the Mediterranean.[7] Indeed the index of Claudia Rapp's recent study of episcopal leadership in late antiquity does not even include entries for 'papacy' or 'pope', while Stephen Davis entitled his new book on the Alexandrian episcopacy *The Early Coptic Papacy*.[8] Within the Anglo-American field of late antique studies at least, Roman exceptionalism has rightly been replaced with a more ecumenical (and alas a more Protestant) vision of the bishop as one of several new Christian figures of religious and civic authority, whose power was sometimes contested and controversial.

[5] The work of German scholars has been especially significant in this vein: see Ignaz von Döllinger, *Die Päpstefabeln des Mittelalters: Ein Beitrag zur Kirchengeschichte* (Munich, 1963), which was translated into English in 1871; Adolf von Harnack, *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte* (Tübingen, 1931), vol. 1; Erich Caspar, *Geschichte des Papsttums von den Anfängen bis zur Höhe der Weltherrschaft* (1930-3); Franz Xavier Seppelt and Klaus Loffler, *Papstgeschichte von den Anfängen bis zur Gegenwart* (Munich, 1933); Walter Ullmann, Leo I and the Theme of Petrine Primacy: *JTS N.S.* 11 (1960) 25-51; *id.*, *The Growth of Papal Government in the Middle Ages* (London, 1962) and *id.*, *A Short History of Papacy in the Middle Ages* (London, 1972). See also the introductions of Trevor G. Jalland, *The Church and the Papacy* (London, 1944) and Hector Burn-Murdoch, *The Development of the Papacy* (London, 1954) for an explicit connection of the issue of papal infallibility and new scholarly endeavors to describe the origins of Roman primacy. For an excellent critique of the teleological framework adopted by so many scholars of the Roman papacy, see Marios Costambeys, Property, ideology and the territorial power of the papacy in the early Middle Ages: *EME* 9 (2000) 367-96.

[6] Here I mention only a handful of studies: Peter Brown, *Augustine of Hippo* (California, 1969) and *id.*, *Power and Persuasion in Late Antiquity: Towards a Christian Empire* (Madison, WI, 1992); Robert Markus, *The End of Ancient Christianity* (Cambridge, 1990) and *id.*, *Gregory the Great and his World* (Cambridge, 1997); Lellia Cracco Ruggini, Prêtre et fonctionnaire: L'essor d'un modèle épiscopal aux Ive-Ve siècles: *Antiquité Tardive* 7 (1999) 175-86; and Elizabeth A. Clark, *The Origenist Controversy: The Cultural Construction of an Early Christian Debate* (Princeton, 1992).

[7] A point recently made by Bryan Ward-Perkins, *The Fall of Rome: The End of Civilization* (Cambridge, 2005), 170f.

[8] Claudia Rapp, *Holy Bishops in Late Antiquity: The Nature of Christian Leadership in an Age of Transition* (Berkeley and Los Angeles, 2005); Stephen J. Davis, *The Early Coptic Papacy: The Egyptian Church and its Leadership in Late Antiquity* (Cairo, 2004).

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This is not to suggest that the topic of the Roman Church is wholly moribund. For centuries, the city of Rome has had its own papal-studies industry, located largely at the Vatican-run Pontifical Institutes and in the various national academies. For many of these scholars, Rome is not simply exceptional; it is a world onto itself, a veritable scholarly 'ghetto.' However, in many ways it has been these scholars, from G.B. De Rossi and Louis Duchesne to Charles Pietri and Federico Guidobaldi, who have produced some of the most ground breaking and technically sophisticated work. In their studies, the Roman papacy is not so much an ecumenical see with universal authority (though this assumption is by no means deconstructed in their work); rather, it is a local, urban church government that is best approached through its material remains.[9] Here we encounter popes not as international players in ecclesiastical politics, but as the primary engineers of a new 'Christian Rome.'

On the one hand, I share the view of historians like Duchesne and Pietri that Rome was an exceptional church, in the sense that its bishops encountered unique, *local* problems in their quest for status and authority.[10] While some clergymen and Christians outside of Rome may well have regarded the Roman bishop as singularly authoritative, their external perceptions had limited affect on how clergy and Christians *within the city* perceived the power of their bishop. Indeed as Duchesne and Pietri observed long ago, we must look to the urban context of late antique Rome for insight into the emergence of the Roman bishop and his authority.

On the other hand, I do not share these scholars estimations of late Roman bishops as uncontested agents of authority, who inherited a crumbling capital vacated by its emperors and single-handedly reconstructed it as a 'papal' city. In recent years, some scholars have come to rethink, rather radically, the time-honored vision of a late ancient 'papal Rome' as a city governed by a series of politically astute, increasingly wealthy, and socially-connected popes, who took advantage of Rome's abandonment by imperial forces in order to construct, church by church, a new Christian capital. For example, Rita Lizzi Testa's study

[9] See for example Giovanni Battista De Rossi, *La roma sotterranea cristiana*, 3 vols. (Vatican City, 1822-94), which to a certain extent inaugurated the 'scientific' study of Christian archaeology at Rome; Louis Duchesne, *Le Liber Pontificalis: Introduction, texte et commentaire* (Paris, 1955, second edition), whose notes on this important source exemplify the interpretive pay-off of examining topography and material culture; Charles Pietri, *Roma Christiana: Recherches sur l'église de Rome, son organization, sa politique, son idéologie de Miltiade à Sixte III (311-440)*, 2 vols. (Rome, 1976) remains the most exhaustive and erudite study of the fourth and fifth-century Roman church and bishops; and Federico Guidobaldi, whose very recent studies of Roman topography and domestic archaeology offer new insights into the material fabric of late antique Christianity at Rome, as for example, 'Le *domus* tardoantiche di Roma come "sensori" delle transformazioni culturali e sociali', in: W. Harris (ed.), *The Transformations of Urbs Roma in Late Antiquity*, *JRA* Supp. Series 33 (Portsmouth, RI, 1999), 53-68.

[10] For another view of Rome's exceptionality in late antiquity, see Kevin Uhalde, The Sinful Subject: Doing Penance in Rome: *SP* 44 (2010) 405-14.

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of Rome during the age of the Valentinian emperors underscores the great dependency of fourth- and fifth-century Roman bishops on local aristocratic families, while Paolo Delogu, a scholar of early medieval Rome, has largely deconstructed the myth of a papal government running the city's civic administration in the late fifth and sixth centuries.[11] What is more, Mark Humphries and Andrew Gillett have helped to correct our misperception of late antique Rome as a city largely devoid of an imperial presence, and have shown that, on the contrary, Rome had a robust secular government well into the fifth century, if not beyond.[12] And as Conrad Leyser eloquently observed in a paper delivered at this conference, we cannot speak of the Roman Church as 'the papacy' in terms of its characterization as a bureaucratically-organized and professionalized institution until the late eighth or ninth centuries, when the Carolingians helped to create the Church of Rome in its more familiar – and more potent – medieval form.[13]

Rethinking late antique 'papal' authority

We might push this recent recalibration of late antique Rome even further by looking more closely at various local impediments, which stood between the Roman bishop and the establishment of his social, political, and even spiritual authority. For example, until the late fifth century, at the very earliest, there were no Roman bishops of senatorial status.[14] In Hippo this perhaps did not matter, but in Rome, where a highly conservative, wealthy, and connected

[11] Rita Lizzi Testa, *Senatori, Popolo, Papi: Il governo di Roma al tempo di Valentiniani* (Bari, 2004); Paolo Delogu, La storia economica di Roma nell'alto medioevo, in: Delogu and Lidia Paroli (eds.), *La Storia economica di Roma nell'alto medioevo alla luce dei recenti scavi archeologici* (Florence, 1993), 11-30, and *id.*, Il passagio dall'antichità al medioevo, in: A. Vauchez (ed.), *Roma Medievale* (Rome, 2001), 3-40.

[12] Mark Humphries, Sources and Discourses: Constructing Narratives for Rome in Late Antiquity, paper delivered at the Fifteenth International Conference on Patristics, Oxford, August 9, 2007 and Andrew Gillett, Rome, Ravenna, and the Last Western Emperors: *PBSR* 69 (2001) 131-67. Thomas S. Brown, *Gentlemen and Officers: Imperial Administration and Aristocratic Power in Byzantine Italy A.D. 554-800* (Rome, 1984) similarly stresses the robust nature of secular authority in sixth-century Rome.

[13] Conrad Leyser, Canon Law, Cultural Memory and the Rise of the Papacy, paper delivered at the Fifteenth International Conference on Patristics, Oxford, August 9, 2007.

[14] Clare Sotinel, Le recruitment des évêques en Italie aux IVe et Ve siècles: Essay d'enquête prosopographique, in: *Vescovi e pastori in epoca teodosiana* (Rome, 1997), I 193-204 and *ead.*, Le personnel episcopal, in: Éric Rebillard and Clare Sotinel (eds.), *L'Évêque dans la cité du IVe au Ve siècle* (Rome, 1998), 105-24. No comparable prosopographical study as yet exists for Roman bishops after the mid-fifth century, though see Charles Pietri and Luce Pietri, *Prosopographie chrétienne du Bas-Empire*, 2 vols. (Paris, 1998-2000) and Jeffrey Richards, *The Popes and the Papacy in the Early Middle Ages, 476-752* (London, 1979) on individual bishops.

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aristocracy controlled the city's resources, it was a serious issue.[15] It meant that Roman bishops were necessarily perceived as culturally inferior – a perception that clearly affected the fourth-century bishop Damasus (366-384) and undoubtedly contributed to his decision to adorn Rome's dank and cavernous catacombs with Vergilian-inspired verse.[16] Thus, rather than solely attempting to 'conquer space', 'control the martyrs', or 'invent Christian Rome', as scholars have often characterized his intentions, Damasus may also have written these poems in order to 'fit in' among Rome's elite households, where the writing of poetry, and especially of signed metrical epigrams, was a popular form of studied leisure.[17]

Nor is there any evidence before the late fifth century that the Roman Church was able to, or had any interest in, organizing its personnel, information, and wealth into something that even remotely resembled an administration.[18] What is more, Roman bishops encountered forbidding topographical challenges: Contrary to what is often asserted and assumed, there is no evidence that the Lateran had served as the bishop of Rome's residence and headquarters since its foundation by Constantine in the early fourth century.[19] Indeed late

[15] On the late antique senatorial aristocracy at Rome, see Michele Renee Salzman, *The Making of a Christian Aristocracy: Social and Religious Change in the Western Roman Empire* (Cambridge, MA, 2002).

[16] Antonio Ferrua, *Epigrammata Damasiana* (Vatican City, 1942). On Damasus' use of Vergil, see Jacques Fontaine, Damase poète théodosien: L'immaginaire poétique des epigrammata, in: *Saecularia Damsiana. Atti del convegno internazionale per il XVI centenario della morte di papa Damaso I* (Vatican City, 1986), 113-145 and *id.*, Images virgiliennes des l'ascension céleste dans la poésie latine chrétienne: *Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum*, Ergänzungsband 9 (Münster, 1982), 55-67.

[17] C. Pietri, *Roma Christiana* (1976), 603-17; Jean Guyon, Damase et l'illustration des martyrs: Les accents de la dévotion et l'enjeu d'une pastorale, in: Mathijs Lamberigts and Peter Van Deun (eds.), *Martyrium in Multidisciplinary Perspective: Memorial Louis Reekmans* (Leuven, 1995), 157-78; Marianne Sághy, Scinditur in partes populus: Pope Damasus and the Martyrs of Rome: *Early Medieval Europe* 9 (2000) 273-87; and Dennis Trout, Damasus and the Invention of Christian Rome, in: Dale Martin and Patricia Cox Miller (eds.), *The Cultural Turn in Late Ancient Studies: Gender, Asceticism and Historiography* (Durham, NC, 2005), 298-316. On the late antique elite interest in metrical epigrams, especially of the signed and inscribed form, see Paolo Cugusi, *Aspetti letterari dei Carmina Latina Epigraphica* (2nd ed. Bologna, 1996), who mentions the Damasan poems but oddly excludes them from his broader analysis.

[18] The fact we can find evidence for such interests and apparatuses in the sixth and (more significantly) in the seventh and eighth centuries does not mean that such interests and apparatuses existed in the fourth and fifth centuries. Indeed Pierre Toubert, ('Scrinium' et 'Palatium': La formation de la bureaucratie romano-pontificale aux VIII-IX siècles, in: *Roma nell'alto medioevo* [Spoleto, 2001], 57-120, at 113-5) exercises considerable circumspection with his use of terms like 'curia' and 'chancellery' to describe the late antique Roman episcopal administration, and concludes that neither makes sense for Rome until the eighth or ninth century.

[19] This assumption has been so frequently repeated that it often no longer receives corroboration. Richard Krautheimer talks of how Constantine chose 'this location [of the Lateran] for the pope's cathedral, its baptistery, and his residence' (*Rome: Profile of a City 312-1308* [Princeton, 1980], 54f.) and in *Corpus Basilicarum Christianarum Romae* V (Rome, 1970), 90f, he

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antique Rome was never a cathedral city but a city of cathedrals. A recent study by Guidobaldi estimates that there were eighty urban and suburban churches at Rome by 500 CE; by 600 CE this number had increased to 130.[20] Most of these seem to have been founded as small centers, which were intended (originally at least) to serve local neighborhoods, some perhaps even a single elite family.[21] Many, if not most, were administered directly by priests and only on occasion by the bishop himself.[22] In fact, many of these local churches had their own baptisteries, which archaeologists date largely to the fifth and sixth centuries, suggesting that liturgical power in Rome became increasingly defused rather than increasingly concentrated into the hands, and church, of a single bishop.[23]

anachronistically refers to the Lateran as Rome's 'cathedral'. Sible de Blaauw, despite his otherwise scrupulous presentation of the (lack of) evidence for Constatine's Lateran as a fourth- or fifth-century papal headquarters, states unequivocally that under Constantine 'si costruì una grande basilica che fu messa a disposizione del vescovo di Roma. Allo stesso tempo devono esser stati fondati un battistero e un vescovado.' (*Cultus et Décor: Liturgia e architettura nella Roma tardoantica e medievale*, Studi e Testi 355 [Vatican City, 1992], 110). Pietri's qualification could go further but he at least underlines the absence of clear evidence attesting to the location of the fourth- and fifth-century papal residence, see C. Pietri, *Roma Christiana* (1976), 668. As Paolo Liverani demonstrated (*LTUR* II s.v. '*Domus Faustae*', 97-98), we cannot identify the *domus Faustae in laterano* (cited by Optatus as the site of an early fourth-century Roman synod) as the palace of Constantine's wife. Nor in my opinion is there any conclusive material or textual evidence to identify this house as the later fourth-century papal headquarters and residence (*pace* Paolo Liverani, Dalle aedes laterani al patriarchio lateranense: *RAC* 75 [1999] 521-49). A more cautious assessment, which dates the emergence of the Lateran as the ecclesiastical residence and center of episcopal power at Rome to the sixth century, is Andrea Augenti, Le sedi del potere a Roma tra tarda Antichità e alto Medioevo: archeologia e topografia, in: Alessio Monciatti, *Domus et splendida palatia: Residenze papali e cardinalizie a Roma fra XII e XV secolo* (Pisa, 2004), 1-16, at 4-9.

[20] Federico Guidobaldi, Spazio urbano e organizzazione ecclesiastica a Roma nel VI e VII secolo, in: *Acta XIII CIAC, Split-Porec 1994* (Vatican City, 1998), II 29-54, with tables at 44.

[21] Scholars have noted the haphazard and clustered topographical arrangement of many of Rome's smaller churches known since the late fourth-century as *tituli*; on the Esquiline, for example, there were at least four *tituli* (*Tit. Praxedis*, *Tit. Pudentis*, *Tit. Equitii*, and the *Tit. Eusebii*) established in the fourth and early fifth centuries within 500 hundred yards of one another. The distribution of Rome's smaller Christian cult spaces suggests a series of ad hoc, uncoordinated initiatives, which were meant to satisfy an immediate, and probably highly localized, pastoral need. It may also have been the case that wealthy individuals or families in Rome constructed their own churches: see, for example, R. Lizzi Testa, *Senatori, Popolo, Papi* (2004), 117-20 on the *titulus Anastasiae*; Clare Sotinel on the church of S. Felix in Pincis: Chronologie, Topographie, Histoire: Quelque hypothèse su S. Felix in Pincis église disparu, in: F. and A. Guidobaldi (eds.), *Ecclesiae Urbis: Atti del congresso internazionale di studi sulle chiese di Roma (IV-X secolo), Roma, 4-10 settembre 2000* (Vatican City, 2002), I 449-72; and Kim Bowes, *Private Religion, Public Values, and Religious Change in Late Antiquity* (Cambridge, 2008) for a broader discussion of the phenomenon of private churches and chapels in Rome.

[22] Antoine Chavasse, *Textes liturgiques de l'Église de Rome: Le cycle liturgique romaine annuel selon le Sacramentaire du Vaticanus Reginensis 316* (Paris, 1997), 9-11.

[23] Victor Saxer, L'utilisation par la liturgie de l'espace urbain et suburbain: L'example de Rome dans l'antiquité e le haut moyen âge, in: *Acta XI CIAC* (Rome, 1989), 917-1033 and Andrea

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Moreover, as the debates at the Roman Synods of 499-502 suggest, some priests and parishioners of these local churches may have believed that they, and not the bishop, ought to have control over the properties assigned to their church for its upkeep. At the very least, that thought they had the right to prosecute the city's bishops for perceived mismanagement of church lands.[24]

Eventually the Roman episcopacy overcame many of these obstacles. But Roman bishops would have to wait several more centuries for this moment to arrive. On the contrary, during the fourth, fifth, and even sixth centuries, I would suggest that Rome's bishops and their supporters were acutely conscious of their relative weaknesses and hindrances. They recognized that even the mighty power of Peter would not be enough when it came to the exercise of authority within a city where a resolutely traditional elite still largely controlled the rules of competition. Rome's bishops needed a tailor-made 'papal exemplum', whose life might speak more directly to the contextually specific problems and tensions outlined above.

Inventing Silvester

It is among the greatest ironies of papal history that they found this exemplum in a bishop whose tenure Erich Caspar once described as the most lackluster in Roman history: Silvester.[25] Silvester is, in effect, an invented pope. To be sure, Silvester was a real person and an historical bishop of Rome. But prior to the fifth century the only documented information we have about Silvester is the dates of his episcopal tenure, 314-335; the date of his death, December 31;

Cosentino, Il battesimo a Roma: edifici e liturgia, in: *Ecclesiae Urbis* (2002), I 109-142. On the diffusion of liturgical power at Rome, see Kristina Sessa, Domestic Conversions: households and bishops in the late antique 'papal legends', in: Kate Cooper and Julia Hillner (eds.), *Religion, Dynasty and Patronage in Early Christian Rome, c. 300-900* (Cambridge, 2007).

[24] *Acta synhodi a. 499*, *MGH AA* 12, ed. Theodor Mommsen (Berlin, 1884), 405 and *Acta synhodi a. 502*, *MGH AA* 12, 444-5 and 450. Neither synod expressly names priests and parishioners as the bishop's (in this case, Symmachus, 499-514) accusers; however, we know that in 483 one Roman layman, the praetorian prefect Caecina Decius Maximus Basilius, presented a *scriptura* that aimed to prohibit the alienation of property donated to the Roman church (*Acta synhodi a. 502*, *MGH AA*, p. 445); and according to another early sixth-century Roman text, the *Laurentian Fragment*, the bishop was explicitly *accusatur etiam ab universo clero Romano quod contra decretum a suis decessoribus observatum ecclesiastica dilapidasse praedia et per hoc anathematis se vinculis inretisset* (*Laur. Frag.*44, ed. Duchesne, *Le Liber Pontificalis*, 12-3). For discussions of Roman bishops and the charge of property mismanagement in early sixth-century Rome, see C. Pietri, Aristocracie et société clericale dans l'Italie chrétienne au temps d'Odoacer et de Théodoric, in: *Mélanges d'archéologie et d'histoire* 93 (1981) 417-67; John Moorhead, *Theodoric in Italy* (Oxford, 1992), 116-36; and more recently, J. Hillner, Families, Patronage, and the Titular Churches of Rome, in: *Religion, Dynasty and Patronage in Early Christian Rome* (2007). We shall return to this issue below.

[25] E. Caspar, *Geschichte des Papsttums* (1930-3), I 130.

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and the location of his tomb at the cemetery of Priscilla.[26] Even his identity as a confessor during the persecution may well have been the invention of early fifth-century North African Catholic apologists, who wanted to counter Donatist claims that Silvester, along with several other late third- and early fourth-century Roman bishops, had committed apostasy by capitulating to the state's demand to perform sacrifices.[27] Like many other early Roman bishops, we have no writings produced by Silvester himself. The only genuine correspondence involving the historical pope is the two letters addressed to him by the bishops at the Council of Arles in 314.[28] As is well known, Silvester did not attend the council of Nicaea, nor is there any contemporary evidence to suggest that he interacted with or knew Constantine during the emperor's sojourn in Rome following his defeat of Maxentius in 311. Immediately following his death in 335, Silvester essentially became a dead letter.

Silvester's rebirth as a Roman super-pope was clearly a process and not a single event, but as such it began sometime in the second half of the fifth century, when the first version of his new biography appeared, the product of unknown authors.[29] The *Actus* or *Liber Silvestri* (both titles circulated in late antiquity) presents Silvester as the only child of a local Christian widow, who saw to it that her son was properly reared by a Roman priest renowned for his moral excellence.[30] At some point in his youth, Silvester apparently developed

[26] All of this information can be found in the so-called *Liberian Catalogue* and the *Depositio episcoporum*, both of which are known to us from the *Calendar Codex of 354*. On this fascinating fourth-century Roman document, see Michele R. Salzman, *On Roman Time: the Calendar Codex of 354 and the Rhythms of Urban Life in Late Antiquity* (Berkeley, 1990).

[27] Consider, for example, the accusations of the North African Donatist Petilian as recorded by Augustine, *De unico baptismo contra Petilianum* 16.27. On the charges and their relevance to the *Actus Silvestri*, see Wilhelm Pohlkamp, Kaiser Konstantin, der heidnische und der Christliche Kult in den *Actus Silvestri*, in: *Frühmittelalterliche Studien* 18 (1984) 357-400, at 367-69 and Francesco Scorza Barcellona, art. Silvestro I, in: *Enciclopedia dei Papi*, vol. 1 (Rome, 2000), 320-26, at 325.

[28] Glen Louis Thompson, *The Earliest Papal Correspondence* (Ph.D., Columbia University, 1990), 32-4 lists both the authentic epistles directed to Silvester from the Council of Arles as well as those written later in his name. More on these forged letters below.

[29] Here I follow the scholarly majority who, since Wilhelm Levison's foundational work on the *Actus Silvestri*, have dated this first Silvestrian text to the second half of the century: Wilhelm Levison, Konstantinische Schenkung und Silvester-Legende, in: *Miscellanea Fr. Ehrle: Scritti di storia e paleografia*, vol. 2 = *Studi e Testi* 38 (1924) 159-247, at 181 reprinted in: *Aus rheinischer und fränkischer Frühzeit: Ausgewählte Aüfsatze* (1948). Levison identified three primary versions of the *Actus Silvestri* in circulation during late antiquity and the early middle ages; his schema is followed but considerably elaborated by W. Pohlkamp, Textfassungen, literarische Formen und geschichtliche Funktionen der römischen Silvester-Akten: *Francia* 9 (1992) 115-96. Pohlkamp's recent re-dating of the earliest version of the *Actus Silvestri* to the late fourth-century is suggestive (Tradition und Topographie: Papst Silvester I (314-335) und der Drache vom Forum Romanum: *Römische Quartalschrift* 78 [1983] 31-44), but the traditional fifth-century dating still strikes me as more likely.

[30] See *Decretum Gelasianum de libris recipiendis et non recipiendis* 222-5, ed. Ernst von Dobschütz, *Texte und Untersuchungen zur Geschichte der altchristilichen Literatur* 38.4, p. 42-43:

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prodigious intellectual skills, for he is presented as a formidable rhetorician: in the lengthiest episode of the *Actus*, Silvester engages in a series of disputations on various topics of theology with twelve Jews, who had been imported to Rome from Jerusalem by Constantine and Helena in order to clear up, once and for, which was the true and superior religion.[31] But lest the reader conclude that Silvester was just another 'slippery snake', who masked his ignorance with the cloak of refined speech, the bishop is also shown to perform a series of highly ritualized miracles: the resurrection of a dead bull; the binding of a dragon's mouth, whose pestilent breath evidently caused thousands of Roman deaths annually; and most infamously, the healing of Constantine's leprosy.[32] With this tale we encounter the most enduring Silvestrian invention of them all: Constantine's baptism at Rome by Pope Silvester in the baths of his imperial 'Lateran' palace.[33]

The *Actus Silvestri* was an immediate best seller both at Rome and abroad. Garth Fowden estimates that a version reached the East by the first quarter of the sixth century at the very latest, and the over ninety extant manuscripts of its Greek, Syriac and Armenian translations attest to its broad appeal.[34] More

Item actus beati sancti Silvestri, *apostolicae sedis praesulis, licet eius qui conscripsit nomen ignoretur, a multis tamen in urbe Roma catholicis legi cognovimus et pro antiquo usu multae hoc imitantur ecclesiae*; and the *Gesta Liberii*, 35-38, ed. Eckhard Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom: Der Konflikt zwischen Laurentius und Symmachus (498-514)*, Studien und Texte (Stuttgart, 1993), 250: *Hoc [Liberius] cum legisset ex libro antiquo, edoctus a* libro Silvestri episcopi Romanorum *eo – quod et publice praediceret – quia in nomine Iesu Christi crucifixi a lepra mundatum fuisse per Silvestrium Constantinum a[u]gustum patruum Constantis.* See also the 'Synod of 284 Bishops', 4-7, ed. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom*, 228, and the *Liber Pontificalis*, *s.v.* 'Silvester', where both narratives allude to the story of Silvester's baptism of Constantine as related in the *Actus Silvestri*.

[31] *Actus Silvestri*, 2.1-1267, as printed in Pietro De Leo (ed.), *Richerche sui falsi medioevali I. Il Constitutum Constantini: compilazione agiografica del sec. VIII* (Calabria, 1974), 179-214. There is no complete modern critical edition of the *Actus Silvestri*. The only extant edition (and the one reprinted in De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*) is that of Boninus Mombritius from the fifteenth century, published in the second volume of his compilation of Latin saints' lives, *Sanctuarium sive vitae sanctorum* (New York, 1978), 2.508-31. Pohlkamp has published extracts from his new edition of the *Actus Silvestri* still in preparation: see W. Pohlkamp, 'Die römischen Silvester-Akten', 'Kaiser Konstantin', and '*Privilegium ecclesiae Romane pontifici contulit*: Zur Vorgeschichte der Konstantinischen Schenkung', in: *Fälschungen im Mittelalter: Internationaler Kongress der Monumenta Germaniae Historica, München, 16-19. September, 1986.* Vol. 2: *Gefälschte Rechtstexte: Der bestrafte Fälscher* (Munich, 1988), 413-90. Where possible, I have used Pohlkamp's edition.

[32] See respectively *Actus Silvestri* 2.1209-57 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 212-3); 2.1379-1409 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 217-8); 1.433-501 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 167-8).

[33] Here I strongly concur with W. Pohlkamp, Die römischen Silvester-Akten (1988), 158-9, who argues that the narrative of Constantine's Roman baptism was a Roman invention, and not a tale emanating from the Greek east, as some earlier scholars had maintained.

[34] On the reception and influence of the Silvester-Constantine legend in general and the *Actus Silvestri* specifically in the eastern Mediterranean, see Garth Fowden, Constantine, Silvester and the Church of S. Polyeuctus: *JRA* 7 (1994) 274-84 and *id.*, The Last Days of Constantine: Oppositional Versions and their Influence: *JRS* 84 (1994) 147-70. On its translation into Greek and Semitic languages, see W. Levison, *Konstantinische Schenkung* (1924), 224-39.

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locally, it inspired what could be described as a local Silvester-industry at Rome: around 500, during the height of the Laurentian schism,[35] anonymous supporters of the embattled Roman bishops Symmachus and Laurentius each produced their own competing versions of three different documents: a letter addressed to Silvester by the bishops at Nicaea; Silvester's response to the bishops; and a protocol of proceedings from a Roman council convened by Silvester in 324 at the Baths of Trajan, over which Constantine presided.[36] These texts implicitly build on and in some cases explicitly refer to the *Actus Silvestri*.[37] In addition, Silvester's lengthy vita in the second edition of *Liber Pontificalis*, a text probably compiled between 530-46 and whose authorship is also unclear, borrows heavily from the *Actus* in its presentation of Silvester and his relationship to Constantine.[38]

In his various late antique personae, Silvester filled a number of embarrassing lacunae in Rome's papal history: the non-participation of the popes at Nicaea; the paucity of significant theological writings by Roman bishops; and perhaps most problematically, the absence of historical evidence with which to link Constantine to the historical Silvester, whose tenure coincided with the emperor and his family's celebrated construction of six basilicas in Rome and their donation of extensive properties to the Roman church.

To be sure, the significance and implications of these gaps differed with respect to time and place. For example, in Constantinople during the height of

[35] The Laurentian schism (498-507 C.E.) was a protracted ecclesiastical, and political conflict that erupted following the simultaneous elections of two bishops in 498 C.E., the priest Laurentius and the archdeacon (and eventual pope) Symmachus. Two good accounts of the schism are J. Moorhead, *Theodoric in Italy* (1992), 114-38 and E. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom* (1993), 9-57.

[36] All of these documents have been recently re-edited with a critical apparatus and German translation by E. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom* (1993), 226-343. The hypothetical Symmachan context for these sources – as we have no concrete, external evidence this interpretation, only internal coincidences between details of the narratives and events/personages of the Laurentian schism – is widely accepted: E. Caspar, *Geschichte des Papsttums* (1930-3), II 107-10; W. Levison, *Konstantinische Schenkung* (1924), 409; E. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom* (1993), 5-7 and most recently, Pier Virginio Aimone, Gli autori delle faslificazioni simmachiane, in: Giampaolo Mele and Natalino Spaccapelo (eds.), *Il papato di San Simmaco (498-514). Atti del convegno internazionale di studi Oristano 19-21 novembre 1998* (Cagliari, 2000), 53-77.

[37] See above, n. 31.

[38] It is generally agreed that there were two late antique editions of the *Liber Pontificalis*, the first of which is extant only in an epitome. According to Duchesne, the first edition was completed c. 530 and the second by 546. The project was then put aside for some 80 years, until it was continued again in 640. See *Le Liber Pontificalis*, I xxxiii-xlviii. However, just three years after Duchesne published his edition and commentary, Theodor Mommsen produced another edition of the text along with the argument that both editions of the *Liber Pontificalis* were executed in the first decades of the seventh century. See *MHG Gestorum Pontificum Romanorum I, Libri Pontificalis pars prior* (Berlin, 1898), esp. xviii. Raymond Davis, *The Book of Pontiffs (Liber Pontificalis)* (Liverpool, 1989), xxxvii-viii provides a clear explication of the debates about the dating and textual history of the *Liber Pontificalis*.

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the Monophysite controversy in the middle of the sixth century, Greek-speaking, pro-Chalcedonian Christians looked to Silvester and his recently invented reputation as a theologian in the *Actus Silvestri* to shore up their position in the fierce Christological debates of the time.[39] Indeed Wilhelm Pohlkamp has even suggested that a second, slightly later version of the *Actus Silvestri* was tailored to meet this precise politico-doctrinal challenge.[40] And in the early middle ages, Silvester's relationship to Constantine would serve both as a model for the proper relationship between Church and State, and as the basis for an argument for Roman papal exceptionalism presented in that most infamous Silvestrian invention, the Carolingian *Donation of Constantine*.[41]

However, in fifth and early sixth century Rome, bishops were grappling with more local and frankly more fundamental quandaries, like how they might best establish their authority within a city of multiple households and churches, where liturgical authority was highly diffused and where conservative aristocratic Christian householders and robust imperial officials continued to govern the city and control its resources. Let us turn now to the constructions of Constantine and Silvester's relationship in the *Actus Silvestri* and the *Liber Pontificalis*, and how these constructions might have helped to establish the bishop of Rome and his authority in the city.

While it is impossible to reduce the *Actus Silvestri* to any single theme beyond the rather general 'episcopal power', we might consider how its most famous episode – the story of Constantine's healing and baptism – presented Roman episcopal authority in a manner that was especially appealing to the city's aristocratic households. In stark contrast to Paul's epiphanic conversion, Constantine's adoption of Christianity is presented in distinctly social terms, as the exchange of favors. Struck by God with leprosy for his persecution of Christians, Constantine sought a cure. However, following a horrific experience with the Capitoline priests (they command the emperor to bathe in infants' blood, a prescription the emperor abandons only at the last minute), Constantine receives a visit from Peter and Paul in a dream.[42] The apostles commend his decision to call off the slaughter of the children and direct Constantine to

[39] For example, in his *Contra Monophysitas* (written between 538-44), Leontius of Jerusalem incorporated a passage from a text by 'Silvester bishop of Rome addressed to the Jews' (PG 86, 1836B-C), which, as Garth Fowden observes, can only be an extract from the depiction of Silvester's debate with the Jews in the *Actus Silvestri*. See G. Fowden, Constantine, Silvester and the Church of S. Polyeuctus (1994), 278f. and *passim* for a fascinating study of Silvester and the *Actus Silvestri* in sixth-century doctrinal debates involving the Roman bishop John I (523-6), Anicia Juliana, and Justinian.

[40] See W. Pohlkamp, Die römischen Silvester-Akten (1988), 178 on the anti-Monophysite context for the construction of *Fassung B*.

[41] On the importance of the late antique Silvestrian tradition, and the *Actus Silvestri* in particular, for this eighth-century text, see (for example) W. Levison, *Konstantinische Schenkung* (1924), 239-46.

[42] *Actus Silvestri*, 1.205-95 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 161-3).

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Silvester, whom, they promise, will cure his body through emersion in a 'pool of piety' (*piscina pietatis*). All the emperor must do in return, they explain, is personally order the restoration of all Roman churches throughout the world, renounce his former idolatry, and worship the one and only true God:

Audi ergo monita nostra et fac omnia, quaecumque indicamus tibi ...[Silvestem episcopum civitatis Romae] ad te adduxeris, ipse tibi piscinam pietatis ostendet, in qua cum te tertio merserit, omnis te valitudo ista deseret leprae... hanc vicissitudinem tuo salvatori compensa, ut omnes iussu tuo per totum orbem Romanum ecclesiae restaurentur. Tu autem te ipsum in hac parte purifica ut relicta omni idolorum superstitione Deum unum qui verus et solus est adores et excolas et ad eius voluntatem attingas.[43]

Upon awaking, Constantine immediately orders his soldiers to bring Silvester to the palace in Rome. There, after he elicited from Constantine a promise that his belief was sincere, Silvester catechizes and baptizes the emperor, curing his body and purifying his soul through the prescribed, thrice-repeated immersion.[44] On each day of the following week, Constantine, robed in the white garments of the neophyte, promulgated seven new laws privileging Christianity in general and Rome's bishop in particular.[45]

While the quid-pro-quo structure of Constantine's conversion may strike us as crude and less than pious, it undoubtedly would have appealed to many a Roman gentleman, for whom such reciprocity was both a matter-of-fact practice and a time-honored value.[46] In a sense what we see in this scene of the *Actus Silvestri* is the story of Rome's "Christianization" told not only as a narrative of papal power and intervention, but also as a highly traditional tale of social exchange, where two men trade *beneficia*. Is Constantine the patron or Silvester? In my mind, this must remain an open question and the writers of the *Actus Silvestri* may have tried to obviate it altogether by resorting to Old Testament typologies for the two figures, wherein Constantine is likened to the

[43] *Actus Silvestri*, ed. Pohlkamp, Kaiser Konstantin der heidnische und der Christliche Kult in den Actus Silvestri (1984), 365, n. 46 and 375, n. 73: 'So listen to our advice and do everything that we indicate to you ... You will bring [Silvester, bishop of the city of Rome] to you, he will show you the pool of piety, in which, after he has immersed you three times, that whole condition of leprosy will leave you ... [and] you must weigh in your Savior's interest this change of circumstance, so that on your order, all the churches throughout the whole Roman world will be restored. Moreover, you will purify yourself in this respect: so that when every false belief in idols has been renounced, you will adore and worship the one God who is true and single and you will apply yourself to his will.'

[44] *Actus Silvestri*, 1.377-462 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 165-8).

[45] *Actus Silvestri*, 1.465-497 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 168-9). The law pronounced on day four has been much discussed: *Quarta die privilegium ecclesiae romanae pontificique contulit ut in toto orbe romano sacerdotes ita hunc caput habeant, sicut omnes iudices regem.*

[46] See, for example, John E. Lendon, *Empire of Honour* (Oxford, 1997) and Andrew Wallace-Hadrill (ed.), *Patronage in Ancient Society* (London, 1989), 3.

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Syrian general Naaman and Silvester to the prophet Elisha.[47] In any event, my point is simply that the form of Constantine's conversion in the *Actus Silvestri* conforms closely to Roman traditions of elite social interaction, while its logic is predicated on choice and agency rather than on coercion. While Silvester's authority is expressed in liturgical terms (he heals and baptizes Constantine), it is also clearly modulated to conform to aristocratic expectations about the reciprocity of honor and power.[48]

An 'aristocratized' relationship between Constantine and Silvester is further developed in the sixth century by the compilers of the second edition of the *Liber Pontificalis*. Here they used Silvester and Constantine's now established Roman interactions as a means to clarify and consolidate a crucial but in my opinion still contested facet of the Roman bishop's authority: his management of Rome's ecclesiastical properties.

Before the Council of Chalcedon in 451, where the relationship between episcopal authority and the management of ecclesiastical properties was explicated, there had been no ecumenical attempt to legislate precisely how the bishop's oversight extended to properties bequeathed to and owned by churches within his diocese.[49] While it is probably correct to assume that the bishop was traditionally associated with the duty of financial management in his church (even perhaps in the pre-Nicene era), it is more problematic to conclude that his fiscal oversight was clearly defined or widely accepted without debate, even after 451.[50] Contrary to what scholars sometimes assert, Constantine's declarations concerning the return of Christian properties confiscated during the persecutions and his recognition of Christian churches as licit beneficiaries of gifts from individuals did not amount to a legal definition of 'the bishop's church', even if they suggest that bishops were perceived by the emperor at least as the fiscal representatives of their communities.[51] As A.H.M Jones noted long ago,

[47] *Actus Silvestri* I.414-21 (P. De Leo, *Richerche sui falsi medioevali*, 1974, 166-7). On the prophet Elisha as an exemplum of episcopal authority in the fourth and fifth centuries, see Lellia Cracco Ruggini, Il profeta Eliseo, modello episcopale fra IV e V secolo, in: Mario Maritano (ed.), *Historiam Persecutori: Miscellanea di studi offerti a Professore Ottorino Pasquato* (Rome, 2002), 239-53.

[48] I have made a similar argument regarding the representation of aristocratic conversion in other Roman Christian hagiographical texts from this same period in: Domestic Conversions: households and bishops in the late antique 'papal legends' (2007).

[49] For the shoring up of the bishop's authority with respect to the management of property at Chalcedon, see canons 2-4, 8, 22, and 24-6.

[50] For example, in the *Shepherd of Hermas*, *Sim.* 9.27.1-2, a text from early second-century Rome, the bishop is explicitly characterized as in charge of distributing assistance to widows and with providing hospitality to foreign visitors, thereby suggesting a very early association between bishops in Rome and estate management. On this aspect of pre-Nicene episcopal authority, see Peter Lampe, *From Paul to Valentinus: Christians at Rome in the First Two Centuries*, transl. Michael Steinhauser (Minneapolis, MN, 2003), 399-408.

[51] Lactantius, *De mort. pers.* 48.8 (the so-called Edict of Milan): *Et quoniam idem Christiani non [in] ea loca tantum ad quae convenire consuerunt, sed alia etiam habuisse noscuntur ad*

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we must wait until the sixth century and for Justinian to find a clear, juridical delineation between the 'bishop's church', (i.e. the churches and other ecclesiastical institutions which were served by the bishop's own clergy and financed from his central fund) and those ecclesiastical institutions with their own separate sources of funding and administration.[52]

To a certain extent, of course, the absence of a legal definition of the bishop's authority over ecclesiastical properties was not needed for him to have assumed the role of estate manager for his church. Yet, even if property management was a traditionally 'episcopal' role, evidence from across the Mediterranean suggests that individual cities grappled with an array of problems in this vein, from how to force a separation between a bishop's personal fortune and wealth owned by the church to how to prevent bishops from alienating ecclesiastical properties at will.[53] What is more, although the bishops at Chalcedon more

ius corporis eorum id est ecclesiarum, non hominum singulorum, pertinentia, ea omnia lege quam superius comprehendimus, citra ullam prorsus ambiguitatem vel controversiam isdem Christianis id est corpori et conventiculis eorum reddi iubebis, supra dicta scilicet ratione servata, ut ii qui eadem sine pretio sicut diximus restituant, indemnitatem de nostra benivolentia sperent and *CT* 16.2.4 (= CJ 1.2.1, July 3, 321): *Idem a. ad populum. habeat unusquisque licentiam sanctissimo catholicae venerabilique concilio decedens bonorum quod optavit relinquere. non sint cassa iudicia. nihil est, quod magis hominibus debetur, quam ut supremae voluntatis, post quam aliud iam velle non possunt, liber sit stilus et licens, quod iterum non redit, arbitrium. proposita v non. iul. romae crispo ii et constantino ii caess. conss.* Despite the fact that neither of these texts makes any mention of the bishop or his role in property management, scholars have sometimes interpreted them as clear explications of the Christian bishop's proprietary authority. See, for example, C. Pietri, Evergetisme et richesses ecclésiastiques dans l'Italie du IV[e] à la fin du V[e] siècle: l'exemple romain: *Ktema* 3 (1978) 317-37, at 322; John P. Thomas, *Private Religious Foundations in the Byzantine Empire* (Washington, DC, 1987), 8-10; and Federico Marazzi, Le proprietà immobiliari urbane della chiesa romana tra IV e VIII secolo: reddito, strutture e gestione, in: Olivier Faron and Étienne Hubert (eds.), *Le sol et l'immeuble: Les formes dissociées de propriété immobilière dans les villes de France et d'Italie (XII[e]-XIX[e] siècles)* (Rome, 1995), n. 4 at 154. See also Jean Gaudemet, who underscores the legal ambiguity of the Constantinian legislation (*L'Église dans l'empire romain*, IVe-Ve siècles [Paris, 1958], 295-9), but who also clearly perceives the bishop as the unequivocal financial overseer of his church: *L'Église dans l'empire romain*, 301, 306-8. Augustine, *Brev.* 3.34, cites evidence purportedly from the early fourth century, wherein the Roman bishop Miltiades was in possession of letters from Maxentius and the urban prefect, which called for return of properties to the city's Christians confiscated during the persecutions. If this account is historically accurate, it suggests that Roman officials perceived Miltiades as the public representative of his community and as responsible for assisting them in the process of reclamation.

[52] Justinian, *Nov.* 6.8 and *Nov.* 120.6, cited in A.H.M. Jones, Church Finance in the Fifth and Sixth Centuries: *JTS N.S.* 11 (1960) 84-94.

[53] See Council of Antioch (341), canons 24 and 25, which called for the differentiation of church property from the wealth of the bishop, with priests and deacons acting as witnesses. The case of Antoninus of Fussala, whose crimes went beyond alienation and mismanagement (according to Augustine, his new villa was literally constructed out of materials stripped from the homes of his congregants) is an extreme but illustrative example of how a bishop's position *vis à vis* his church's property could be abused: see Augustine, *Epp.* 209 and 20*, both intelligently discussed by Noel Lenski, Evidence for *Audientia episcopalis* in the new letters of

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clearly defined the 'bishop's church' in proprietary terms, this definition did not automatically translate into uniform practice or unconditional trust.[54] Later fifth and sixth-century Roman bishops, for example, were constantly condemning what was a wide-spread practice among the Italian and Gallic churches: the improper alienation of ecclesiastical property.[55] What is more, Roman clergy were hardly above committing such improprieties: angered by the sale of church lands in late fifth-century Rome (perhaps for the buying of votes during episcopal elections), a group of senators and clergy led by the praetorian prefect Caecina Decius Maximus Basilius declared in a *scriptura* of 483 that all church property deriving from private donations could not be alienated by any subsequent bishop.[56] However, their efforts seem to have had little effect. Alienation of ecclesiastical properties was among the charges leveled against the embattled early sixth-century bishop Symmachus by the supporters of his rival to the see, the Roman priest Laurentius.[57]

Given this particular concern in early sixth-century Rome, we might read the biography of Silvester in the *Liber Pontificalis* as a response to the problem of the bishop's propriety and even legitimacy as the financial overseer of the church's property. The *vita*, I argue, represents an attempt by pro-episcopal, and perhaps even pro-Symmachan supporters to produce an historical precedent not only for episcopal control of church property, but also for its careful and judicious management. By embedding Constantine's famous donations to Rome's churches within the life of Silvester, and by closely assimilating the form of Silvester's own giving to that of Constantine, the compilers created a virtually uncontestable model of legitimacy for the Roman bishop as the supreme donor and steward of his church's wealth.

It is important to recognize the extent to which Silvester's *vita* formally diverges from all previous entries in the *Liber Pontificalis*. It is, for example, the longest biography in the collection by some distance. Its prodigious length (seventeen pages in Duchesne's edition) is due in large part to the compilers' inclusion of donation lists, which enumerate gifts (property and plate) offered

Augustine, in: Ralph W. Mathison (ed.), *Law, Society and Authority in Late Antiquity* (Oxford, 2001), 89-91.

[54] Even at Chalcedon, the bishops registered some unease with regards to the bishop's financial oversight: canon 26, for example, required a bishop to appoint a steward from among his clergy 'so that the administration of the church may not be without a witness, and that thus the goods of the church may not be squandered, nor reproach be brought upon the priesthood; and if he [the bishop] will not do this, he shall be subjected to the divine canons.'

[55] See C. Pietri, Evergetisme et richesses ecclésiastiques (1978), 333f.

[56] *Acta Syn.* a. 502, *MGH AA* XII, 444-5, where Symmachus called for the recitation of Basilius' *scriptura*. See C. Pietri, Evergetisme et richesses ecclésiastiques (1978), 333f.

[57] As noted above (n. 24), Symmachus was accused of alienating church properties in 499 following his election and was forced to defend himself against these accusations at a Roman synod. On this synod and its implications for episcopal authority and ecclesiastical property, see now J. Hillner, Families, Patronage and the Titular Churches of Rome (2007).

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by Silvester and, more significantly, by Constantine to specific Roman churches. While scholars have scrutinized the lists' contents to determine their authenticity (and indeed the lists are generally accepted to be transcriptions of actual fourth-century documents), they have given little notice to their placement within the text of Silvester's *vita*.[58] This is unfortunate, because their contextualization is the key to their broader rhetorical significance. Compare, for instance, the presentation of the first two lists:

Hic [Silvester] fecit in urbe Roma ecclesiam in praedium cuiusdam presbiteri sui, qui cognominabatur Equitius, quem titulum romanum constituit, iuxta termas Domitianas, qui usque in hodiernum diem appellatur titulus Equitii, ubi et haec dona constituit: [A list follows of plate and lands Silvester donated to the titulus Equitii].[59]

Huius temporibus fecit Constantinus aug. basilicas istas quas et ornavit: Basilicam Constantinianam, ubi posuit ista dona [a list of Constantine's gifts to the Lateran follows].[60]

The *vita* goes on to describe each of Constantine's other Roman foundations (the Lateran baptistery, the basilicas dedicated to St Peter and to St Paul, the Sessorian basilica, and the extra-mural basilicas dedicated to St Agnes, St Laurence, and SS Marcellinus and Peter), and to present separate donation lists for every church. The final list in the *vita*, however, brings the reader back to the subject of Silvester: according to the *Liber Pontificalis*, Constantine had offered lands and silver plate to a church Silvester himself had founded in his own name, the *titulus Silvestri*, near the baths of Trajan.[61]

While we find other donation lists with similar frames in several subsequent *vitae* in the *Liber Pontificalis*, none appear in the far shorter, far less detailed and far less narratologically-developed earlier lives, which typically offer only the most rudimentary information about the bishop's tenure.[62] Formally speaking, therefore, Silvester's biography looks very different from the preceding *vitae*. I would suggest that the compilers intended it to function as a deliberate caesura in the collection, which effectively bifurcated the history of the Roman 'papacy' according to a Constantinian chronology. In the time 'before Constantine', Rome's bishops were excellent administrators and honest brokers of authority, but their domain was decidedly non-material; in the period 'post-Constantine',

[58] On the authenticity of the donation lists, see C. Pietri, Evergetisme et richesses ecclésiastiques (1978), 319-21.

[59] LP, I 170 (ed. Duchesne): 'He built a church in Rome on the estate of one of his priests named Equitius close to Domitian's baths and established it as a Roman *titulus*; even today it is still called the *titulus* of Equitius. There he also assigned these gifts ...' Transl. R. Davis, *The Book of Pontiffs* (1989), 14.

[60] LP 1.172 (ed. Duchesne): 'In his time the emperor Constantine built these churches and adorned them: the Constantinian basilica, where he placed these gifts...' Trans. R. Davis, *The Book of Pontiffs* (1989), 16.

[61] LP, I 187 (ed. Duchesne).

[62] See the *vitae* of Damasus, Innocent, Boniface and Celestine.

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however, they came to apply their skills to the more complex (and decidedly aristocratic) matters of estate management and patronage, founding their churches, and organizing their gifts in the precise manner as Constantine.

Yet the compilers' decision to embed Constantine's donations within Silvester's life, and within the envelope of his own episcopal patronage, suggests additional interests with respect to the local power and legitimacy of the Roman bishop. First, the *vita* offered a clear and *historical* framework for the transfer of control of the imperial properties bequeathed by Constantine and the imperial family to the bishop of Rome. As Federico Marazzi has noted, the *Liber Pontificalis* is our only evidence for this transfer, which he and other historians assume took place sometime in the early fourth century and during Constantine's lifetime.[63] Marazzi may well be correct, but the concern taken by the early sixth-century compilers to contextualize Constantine's donations within Silvester's life, by which they clearly meant to imply that Constantine had entrusted his gifts personally to Silvester, suggests that even at this relatively late date lingering questions remained as to the Roman bishop's legitimacy to control these properties. In this respect, the *Liber Pontificalis* presented a more definitive history of what was by all accounts a hazy moment in the Roman church's history. (And indeed, Marazzi's reliance on this text for his interpretation of fourth-century Roman ecclesiastical property relations attests to the compilers' success in this precise vein).

Second, by recording each of Constantine's gift lists in relation to its specific church, the *Liber Pontificalis* constructed an image of an ordered, papal administration under Silvester, which carefully and scrupulously maintained the donations *as they were originally earmarked by the emperor.* Here charges of improper alienation were met head-on with the representation of Silvester as the great guardian of the donor's interests, and as the governor of an institution, which judiciously protected the separate endowments of Rome's churches. Even Constantine's donations to Silvester's own foundation, the *titulus Silvestri*, is remembered as a distinctly Constantinian endowment, and not as funds that had in all likelihood passed long ago under the general control of the Roman bishop.

Third and most fundamentally, the life of Silvester in the *Liber Pontificalis* offered its late Roman audience a concise and consolidated history of the Roman papacy as a proprietary institution. Here we find examples of episcopal and imperial patronage synoptically presented, with Silvester's donations appearing as the model for Constantine's extensive giving. In short, the *vita Silvestri* presents emperors imitating bishops – an ironic inversion of what a generation of scholars has now come to believe was the case in Rome.[64] But I

[63] Federico Marazzi, *I 'Patrimonia Sanctae Ecclesiae' nel Lazio (secoli IV-X). Struttura amministrattiva e prassi gestionali* (Rome, 1998), 25-42, esp. 41-2.

[64] See (for example) C. Pietri, Evergetisme et richesses ecclésiastiques (1978).

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would suggest that during the sixth century, the point was not to outdo the emperor; rather, it was to convince a still leery population of local lay and clerical elites that Rome's bishops were historically and ethically poised to take on the awesome task of providing and managing their church's wealth.[65]

Conclusion: Exceptionality and Invention

Along with the emergence of administrative apparatuses, the topographical consolidation of the episcopacy at the Lateran, and the appearance of Rome's first aristocratic popes, we must include the rhetorical invention of Silvester as a crucial component of the process that produced what we call, for better or for worse, the Roman 'papacy.' As my preliminary analyses of the *Actus Silvestri* and the *Liber Pontificalis* have suggested, the making and remaking of Silvester offers eloquent testimony not only to the relative weaknesses of Roman bishops within the city of Rome when compared to aristocrats like Basilius, but also to the crucial role of texts and discourses in the construction of episcopal authority at Rome.[66] While the anonymous writers of the *Actus Silvestri* and compilers of the *Liber Pontificalis* were hardly the first Christians to forge memories or reinvent the past, their elaborate efforts in this regard reflect a particular set of problems that Roman bishops faced, problems which were unique to Rome in light of its strong lay aristocratic presence, its complex and still poorly understood ecclesiastical topography, and its initial failure to attract men of senatorial status to the episcopacy. Indeed the fact that both of these late fifth and early-sixth century Silvestrian texts date roughly to the period when Rome experienced its first aristocratic bishops may well offer an important hermeneutic key. Not only does it help to explain these texts' rhetorical emphasis on traditional social values and practices, but it also sheds light on their insistence that Silvester was, by the very fact of his Roman origins, a truly exceptional pope in a truly exceptional city.

[65] The importance of priests and their wealth in the material and social history of late antique Rome has been recently reassessed by J. Hillner, Clerics, Property, and Patronage: The Case of the Roman Titular Churches: *Antiquité Tardive* 14 (2006) 50-68.

[66] I am presently conducting a larger study of the Silvestrian corpus and the *Liber Pontificalis* and its significance for the rhetorical construction of episcopal authority and the 'papal' institution at Rome.

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New Light on Hilary of Poitiers' *In Matthaeum*

Daniel H. WILLIAMS, Waco, Texas

In the first half of the fourth century, the art of writing biblical commentary in the Latin west was in its early stages. We know only of an abbreviated set of glosses on the Apocalypse by Victorinus of Poetovio (martyred in 304),[1] a fragmented commentary or *scholia* on the Gospels by Fortunatianus of Aquileia,[2] a sermon that has been associated with the works of Cyprian,[3] and Hilary of Poitiers' *Commentary on the Gospel of Matthew*.[4] Only Hilary's provides a near complete text,[5] making it the first full Latin commentary to be preserved and, therefore, is of enormous value in reconstructing the exegetical and doctrinal history of the west some twenty-five years after the council of Nicaea.

What the commentary says and does not say are equally important. The absence of any pro-Nicene theology, much less a defense or an attack of a creed, is noteworthy. For one thing, it would vindicate the view that the majority of Latin bishops either did not know of the Nicene creed or had little use for such a controversial formula until the ecclesiastical-imperial politics, which had plagued the east, began to disrupt Latin sees in the mid-350s.[6] As late as the council of

[1] In the preface to his translation of Origen's *Homilies on Luke* (c. 388), Jerome writes that he had in his possession a *Commentary on Matthew* by Victorinus along with Hilary's (SC 87, 97), which is now lost. See *De viris illustribus* 74 (PL 23, 683B-C) for the list of other commentaries which Victorinus was known to have published. Two anonymous works, *De decem virginibus* and *In Genesim* may also have originated from the first decades of the fourth century.

[2] Jerome mentions only that he wrote 'short and rustic' commentaries on the gospels, of which three small portions (two from Matthew's gospel) survive; in *De viris illust.* 97 (PL 23, 697B-C). In his own commentary on St Matthew, Jerome offers a list of sources, mainly Greek, which he has used, including a commentary of Hippolytus 'the martyr', of which only a small single fragment is extant (GCS 1.2, 211).

[3] *De centesima, sexgesima, tricesima* is believed to come from the early fourth century, in *Clavis Patrum Latinorum*, 3rd ed. (Turnhout, 1995), 19; although Jean Daniélou has argued for a late second century date, in *A History of Early Christian Doctrine*, vol. 3, *The Origins of Latin Christianity*, transl. D. Smith and J.A. Baker (Philadelphia, 1977), 63.

[4] Hilary of Poitiers, *In Matthaeum*. Critical text found in J. Doignon (ed.), *Sur Matthieu*, 2 vols., SC 254 and 258 (Paris, 1978, 1979).

[5] Both the preface and the treatment of the last seven verses of the gospel are missing. The original preface appears to have been lost (*In Matt.* 2.1 opens with *ut quia diximus* though not in reference to anything said in chapter 1), and the commentary ends with *Matthew* 28:13, which is seven verses too short and has no epilogue.

[6] Witness, for example, that the western encyclical from Serdica (343) urgently warned its mainly western readers not to accept the decisions of Philopopolis in which was concealed their 'wicked heresies.' See also Jörg Ulrich, Nicaea and the West: *VigChr* 51 (1997) 10-24.

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Ariminum (359), western bishops were ultimately prepared to accept another creed[7] so long as their understanding of orthodoxy was preserved.

There is still the question as to whether Hilary had any knowledge of the so-called 'Arian' argumentation. Most of twentieth-century scholarship has supported the idea that the bishop had a familiarity with 'Arian' antagonists, ranging from an actual knowledge of Arius' writings,[8] to a vague acquaintance with contemporary subordinationist issues.[9]

It is plausible that Hilary would have known something, even if distantly, of the doctrinal tensions of the day. And yet, the commentary, as we have it (the preface and ending are lost), shows no awareness of Nicaea, nor are there identifiable refutations of 'Arian' arguments.[10] Indeed, the commentary gives every indication that it was not written with a polemical agenda in mind. Detractors from the catholic faith are mentioned with such nebulous phrases as 'many irreligious people'[11] and 'very depraved men'[12] or 'the view of heretics'.[13] Yet these opponents, who are never identified, seem to serve a literary function which suits Hilary's pastoral and didactic purposes rather than suppose he is confronting an actual situation which requires refutation. In fact, the lack of hostility which Hilary displays toward these opponents is striking when compared to his later writings.

The most important theological consideration throughout the work is the need to preserve a categorical separation between *spiritus* (*i.e.* divinity) and *corpus*. The great sin of blasphemy against the Holy Spirit, according to the commentary, is to regard the human Christ as man only and not God in the flesh. To take only a few samples: Concerning Christ's temptation in *In Matt.* 3.1, we are told: 'The devil who had begrudged God's blessings to humanity was not able to understand that God was in the man before the temptation.'[14] And when

[7] See D.H. Williams, *Ambrose of Milan and the End of the Nicene-Arian Conflicts* (Oxford, 1995), ch. 1.

[8] Pierre Smulders, *La doctrine trinitaire de S. Hilaire de Poitiers* (Rome, 1944); Charles Kannengiesser, L'exégèse d'Hilaire, in: *Hilaire et Son Temps, actes du colloque de Poitiers, 29 Septembre – 3 Octobre* (Paris, 1969), 132.

[9] So Manlio Simonetti, *La crisi ariana nel IV secolo* (Rome, 1975), 298; Paul Burns, *Christology in Hilary of Poitiers' Commentary on Matthew* (Rome, 1981); 22, 33 *et passim*; R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God* (Edinburgh, 1988), 473.

[10] See Daniel H. Williams, Defining Orthodoxy in Hilary of Poitiers' *Commentarium in Matthaeum*: *Journal of Early Christian Studies* 9 (2001) 151-71.

[11] *In Matt.* 1.3 (SC 254, 94).

[12] *In Matt.* 1.4 (SC 254, 96).

[13] *In Matt.* 5.8 (SC 254, 156). Hilary discusses the views of, or simply alludes to, their error over what kind of body the believer will possess at the resurrection, or those who 'boil over into diverse schemes of heresy' 'by detracting from the Lord the dignity and communion of the paternal substance', in *In Matt.* 12.18 (SC 254, 284). Even in *In Matt.* 31.3 (SC 258, 228), a passage where Hilary is thought to be refuting 'Arian' contemporaries, the latter are described as living potentially commendable lives and capable of understanding the gospels.

[14] *In Matt.* 3.1 (SC 254, 112).

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the devil 'heard his name Satan as a designation for his crimes he realized that the Lord his God would have to be worshipped in a man' (*In Matt.* 3.5).[15] '[J]ealousy over the Lord's works incited the Pharisees and they took counsel against him because by regarding him in the body as a man, they did not understand him to be God in his works' (*In Matt.* 12.8).[16] Related to, if not part of, their error (*i.e.* in *In Matt.* 14.1) are those who attribute weakness to Christ's divinity because of his sufferings. Hilary warns his readers in *In Matt.* 6.1 that, 'we should not treat the incarnation of the Word of God haphazardly or incompetently' because there are those 'who have turned against us', 'shattering our incompetence and faith with sharp points of contradictions'. Presumably the 'contradictions' posed are related to impugning the eternal substance with the weakness of the flesh (see *In Matt.* 31.2). Who are those contemporaries in Gaul asserting this position?

Surely Hilary would have known from the past that another interpretation of what modern writers have called 'Spirit-Christology',[17] had often led to 'monarchial' interpretations of the incarnation, such that (as (Ps.-)Hippolytus put it) 'the deity became susceptible of suffering' and did not remain 'according to nature, God infinite'.[18] The same can easily be found in Tertullian. As a proponent of spirit-flesh Christology, Hilary was already sensitized to the problem of using the same Christological 'model' as he used for an adoptionism that lent itself to the easy endorsement of a 'low Christology', attributing passibility and thus reducing the incarnate Son's divine status in relation to the Father.

It is most plausible, therefore, to envision spirit (divine)-flesh theology as the norm for 'western' Christology prior to the 360s, being used with at least two different applications. The first is Hilary's usage of the substantial distinction between spirit and flesh, and then there is the understanding of contemporaries such as Potamius of Lisbon, who sided with anti-Nicene theology in the 350s, and is quoted as teaching, 'in the flesh and spirit of Christ, coagulated through Mary's blood and reduced to a single body, was made the passible God' (*passibilem Deum factum*).[19] This is the very doctrine that Hilary opposes in the Commentary. And it is not unlikely that Hilary's condemnation at Béziers had to do with his opposition to the view that Christ was the passible God – a position that fits a pre-Nicene Christological scenario as much as it does a post-Nicene.[20]

[15] *In Matt.* 3.5 (SC 254, 118).

[16] *In Matt.* 12.8 (SC 254, 274).

[17] See Alois Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition*, transl. J.S. Bowden (London, 1965, red. edn. 1975), vol. 1, 88, who refers to 'Spirit Christology' as the identification of the divine element in Jesus, as Spirit and the human element, as body or flesh.

[18] Hippolytus, *Contra Beronem et Heliconem*, frg. 5; 2 (PG 10, 836; 833; ANF V 233. 232).

[19] Quoted by Phoebadius of Agen, *Contra Arrianos* V 1. This is the only indisputable text that comes from Potamius.

[20] If we accept Alfred Feder's reconstruction of Hilary's *Against Valens and Ursacius* (in CSEL 65, 191-3), the preface indicates that he had been labeled a heretic for his 'spurning the

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In this brief argumentation, we may say that Hilary's Commentary, theologically speaking, is more indebted to and structured around Christology of the third-century rather than the fourth. This is apparent in at least two other ways: first, his understanding of the Son originating from the Father is completely ignorant of the fourth century's view of eternal generation;[21] and, secondly, the Logos or Spirit of God temporarily inhabited the flesh produced by Mary. This is most evident when Hilary states (*In Matt.* 3.2) that the Son's *virtus* was not affected by the forty days of fasting, but had 'abandoned the humanity from his nature', and that Christ's cry unto God from the cross was the voice of the body as it was departing from the Word of God.[22] By all counts, this is a striking statement for someone to make in the 350s as a means of communicating the separation of the two natures. And indeed, Hilary creates a wide chasm between the divine spirit of Christ and the earthly Jesus in order to protect the integrity of the former. And yet there were others, like Potamius of Lisbon (and probably Saturninus of Arles, Hilary's *bête noir* in Gaul), who embraced a similar Christological framework, but whose application of that framework resulted in an adoptionist or subordinationist position concerning the relation of the Son to the Father. The point is that we do not have to import 'Arian' doctrine in order to create the theological position that Hilary guards against. Once he goes into exile, he will begin to look at doctrinal matters very differently.

company of the wicked and association with the faithless'. Instead of 'corrupting the gospel truth with falsehood', he declares that he was happily associated with 'my own creed', by which he meant, not Nicaea, but his baptismal formula.

[21] Hilary makes a distinction of time in the career of the Word, 'before he was born', that which he was in the Father, and that which he possessed by means of his birth once he proceeded from the Father. See P. Smulders, *La doctrine trinitaire* (1944), 78-9.

[22] *In Matt.* 33.6 (SC 258, 254). On the sermon of the Mount, *In Matt.* 4.1 (SC 254, 120), Christ is said to have 'yielded the service of his mouth to the movement of the Spirit's eloquence'. See Tertullian, *Adv. Prax.* 26.4-6 (CChr.SL 2, 1196-7); 27.6-7 (CChr.SL 2, 1198-9); 30.2 (CChr.SL 2, 1203). The *sermo dei* was not transfigured by the incarnation but remained unchanged as divine substance.

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L'argumentation hilarienne dans les Livres 4-7 du *De Trinitate*

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1. L'obstacle de l'abstraction

Quelque soit l'admiration entourant Hilaire de Poitiers et, notamment, sa *Trinité*, un obstacle s'impose: la difficulté de lecture.

Nous nous proposons d'analyser l'obstacle de la rationalité abstraite dans *La Trinité* d'Hilaire. Ce ne sera ici qu'un test sur un ensemble restreint. Les quatre livres 4 à 7 paraissent idoines. Ils forment à l'évidence un tout structuré par les deux présentations de la lettre d'Arius, chacune ouvrant deux livres, 4 et 5 pour l'examen des témoins de l'Ancien Testament, 6 et 7, pour ceux du Nouveau.[1] L'unité textuelle est ici le fait de reprendre à la suite sur différents thèmes les textes de l'Ancien puis du Nouveau Testament interprétés de travers par les adversaires de l'unité du Père et du Fils.

2. Typologie des arguments

En fait, la rationalité abstraite n'est qu'un élément d'une panoplie. Il est utile, pour s'y apprivoiser, de la replacer dans tout ce que, hormis les procédés affectifs mais aussi ce qui lui a été inculqué par Cicéron et Quintilien, Hilaire met en œuvre dans sa grande entreprise pour stopper l'arianisme de l'Orient à l'Occident de l'Empire. Sur quoi appuie-t-il ses démonstrations? Je distingue quatre bases argumentaires, que je définis et atteste, chacune, par un exemple.

1. La foi de l'Église est la base la plus fondamentale. C'est tout à fait justifié, du fait que, à ce moment de l'histoire, bien différent de la phase des gnostiques qui s'estimaient supérieurs à la foi de la Grande Église, tous pensent la partager. De fait, il a été remarqué que la «Règle de vérité», mise au point par les antignostiques, Irénée et Origène en particulier, est inconnue d'Hilaire. Cela aussi se comprend. Avec la crise trinitaire, la difficulté ne porte plus sur les articles de la foi, mais sur le sens à donner à certains mots de ces articles, nommément «Dieu», «Père», «Fils», et, secondairement, sur des mots qui permettraient de

[1] Hilaire de Poitiers, *La Trinité*, livres 4-7, éd. Pierrre Smulders, trad. et notes Georges Matthieu De Durand, Charles Morel et Gilles Pelland, SC 448 (Paris, 2000), 12-371; pour la lettre d'Arius v. 32-9 et 176-9. Le volume sera désormais cité *Trinité*.

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s'entendre sur leur signification: «essence», «substance», «subsistance», «personne».[2] Les premiers de ces mots premiers sont bibliques. On a donc ce glissement capital: le fondement de la foi n'est plus à trouver dans un credo en gestation, mais dans le sens scripturaire des mots fondateurs. Attestons sur ces données la première base, ecclésiastique, telle que nous venons de la préciser. On lit dès le début de l'échantillon choisi, au livre 4, chapitre 6: «Ce qu'ils critiquent dans l'emploi du terme 'consubstantiel' et dans l'affirmation que le Fils a toujours existé, l'Église l'a en horreur, le répudie, le condamne».[3]

2. La seconde base est la connaissance précise des doctrines adverses. Celles-ci varient et s'annulent les unes les autres. Mais toutes s'appuient sur les mots de l'Écriture, auxquels il ne faut rien ajouter, et surtout pas l'*homoousios* cher à Athanase. Chacun interprètent les passages significatifs concernant ces mots selon sa propre théorie. Tout le travail va consister à démasquer la déviance que les théories introduisent dans la compréhension des textes pris dans leur contexte et dans la teneur obvie des mots. C'est ainsi que tout dans nos quatre livres (et dans le reste à la suite) est exégétique, mais selon une exégèse directement commandée par l'exégèse adverse. Il faut sans cesse arracher le sens vrai de cet imbroglio, celui-ci étant une aide paradoxale pour remonter au sens vrai. Voilà pourquoi, dans la première partie du livre 6, la seconde présentation de la fameuse lettre – dans un contexte tout différent de la première – est suivie d'un long historique hérésiologique: on y remonte à Valentin, le gnostique, pour arriver, par Mani, Sabellius, Hieracas (tous cités par Arius dans sa lettre) au dernier avatar qui est lui-même.

3. La troisième base est le retournement permanent des mots – «idéologisés» – aux choses vérifiables en eux par le sens commun. C'est ainsi que «Père», tout comme «Fils», est constamment reconduit de divers sens figurés au sens naturel. Mais Hilaire ne se contente pas de revenir au sens commun, il consolide ce retournement par une double discipline, disons de science et de raison: les règles de l'interprétation des textes et la philosophie. C'est par cette porte que l'abstraction s'installe dans *La Trinité*. La discipline herméneutique est clairement désignée et justifiée en 4, 14: «Ce qui se dit doit être compris en fonction des choses dont on parle (*ex causis dicendi*), vu que langage est soumis au réel et non le réel au langage. Et tout sera examiné en explicitant et la chose dont on parle et la portée des mots (*ex dictorum virtutibus*).»[4] La discipline philosophique, et même métaphysique, se marque par une aisance consommée dans l'usage des termes, substance, subsistance, personne,[5] genre,[6] mais aussi

[2] Voir Dominique Bertrand, Persona dans La Trinité d'Hilaire de Poitiers, in: *La Personne et le christianisme ancien*, direction Bernard Meunier, Patrimoines/Christianisme (Paris, 2006), 49-72.

[3] *Trinité*, 20-1.

[4] *Ibid.* 40-1, traduction corrigée.

[5] Voir par exemple *ibid.* 54-5.

[6] Voir, *ibid.* 5, 10, p. 114-5, et *passim* (*genus* est malencontreusement traduit par «espèce»).

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par une parfaite clarté sur l'incapacité pour l'homme de connaître Dieu qui va de pair avec une incapacité pour le même homme de ne pas être atteint par ce que Dieu lui dit de lui-même On a des déclarations réitérés de l'auteur sur ce point, par exemple dès 4, 2: «Nous n'ignorons pas que pour exposer les choses de Dieu ni le langage des hommes ni les comparaisons avec la nature humaine ne peuvent suffire (...) Cependant, quand il est question de réalités célestes, il faut, en usant de la réalité ordinaire et du vocabulaire courant (*usu communis et naturae et sermonis*), exprimer les notions qui sont à la dimension de notre intelligence – notions qui ne sont pas accordées, bien sûr, à la dignité de Dieu, mais sont nécessaires à la débilité de notre esprit (*ingenium*).»[7] Ainsi rigueur herméneutique et philosophique sont au service du cadrage réaliste du sens commun et non l'inverse.

4. Voici qui conduit à la quatrième base de l'argumentation: l'expérimentation du chemin intellectuel de la connaissance – par exemple des termes clés de la règle de vérité – à la compréhension de ce que ceux-ci signifient. On peut dire que, sur la triple base qui vient d'être schématisée, chacun des quatre livres ici examinés produit un tel fruit. Cette quatrième base est une épistémologie en acte. Elle entraîne une attention soutenue de l'auteur au cheminement de sa réflexion au service de son public. Pratiquement, au début de chacun des quatre livres, Hilaire fait systématiquement le point sur la réflexion en cours et indique le développement qui va suivre.

3. La logique des Livres 4-7 au banc d'essai

Pour chacun des livres choisis (on pourrait aussi le faire pour les cinq livres suivants), après en avoir dressé le plan, nous devrions baliser la mise en œuvre des quatre bases.[8] Nous nous bornerons ici au livre 4 et, plus sommairement, aux livres 3-7.

Le Livre 4

Divisé en 42 unités dans les éditions modernes, le livre 4 commence par mettre la réflexion sur les rails en 14 «chapitres». Cette introduction aboutit à choisir de traiter en premier le dossier paléotestamentaire concernant le Père (14). Ce qui est fait des chapitres 15 à 42. On peut dire que la substance du livre 4 est exégétique.

L'utilisation des quatre bases de l'argumentation permet de préciser l'exégèse mise en œuvre en ces pages. Ce qui correspond à l'introduction, assez développée,

[7] *Ibid.* 4, 2, p. 14-5.

[8] Dans le développement suivant, les chiffres entre parenthèses indiquent les paragraphes du livre 4).

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joue sur les quatre: la foi de l'Église (6), la position arienne (3-13 moins 6 et 8), l'herméneutique (2.8), l'épistémologie (1.14). Le moment décisif est le chapitre 8, qui donne la liste des lieux scripturaires de la discussion, autrement dit le dossier biblique arien. Le ton de ce chapitre n'est en rien polémique: c'est une liste. Celle-ci comprend dix citations de l'Ancien et quatorze du Nouveau Testament. Le livre 4 ne reprend aucun de ces textes, sauf *Deutéronome* 6:4, qui est commenté par quelques grands moments de l'Histoire sainte. En un sens ce chapitre 8 ouvre à toute la suite de *La Trinité*: cette œuvre sera biblique à partir des deux moments de l'Alliance, l'Ancienne et la Nouvelle. Et elle consistera jusqu'au bout à arracher les textes à l'interprétation arienne. Le livre 4 va être (ch. 14) dédié au premier moment de la Bible, l'Ancien Testament, autour du Père.

C'est alors que la base 3 se met à produire ses résultats. La réinterprétation herméneutique se fait au nom du contexte selon le sens réaliste des mots, «Dieu», «Ange du Seigneur», «homme», et des formes grammaticales du pluriel et du singulier. Hilaire force ainsi à attribuer aux textes anciens eux-mêmes une complexité de fond irréductible aux simplifications arianisantes. Si l'hagiographe utilise un pluriel où se distinguent un «locuteur» et un «acteur», ou s'il parle du Dieu qui se révèle comme l'antécédent grammatical de «l'Ange de Dieu», c'est que déjà la notion de Dieu dans l'Ancien Testament est préchrétienne en la pleine acception, disons prophétique, du terme, et de la sorte n'autorise en rien les simplifications hérétiques. Cette approche de proximité s'élargit grâce au contexte de la Bible tout entière. En effet, si Hilaire procède par grands ensembles scripturaires (sur *Genèse* 1, etc.), il ne renonce pas à corroborer son interprétation par l'appel aux lieux parallèles. Dès lors, les interprétations ariennes apparaissent clairement comme des falsifications. Hilaire n'ajoute quasi jamais un sens spirituel ou théologique à ce qui est lu,[9] il lit ces sens dans la littéralité respectée en tous ses imprévus. Approché de cette façon, l'exercice, souvent extrêmement pointu, devient fascinant. Nous ne pouvons en dire plus ici.

Cet exercice, qui va être constamment repris, produit – c'est la base 4 – des fruits d'intelligence dans la simple connaissance que donne déjà l'énoncé des mots. Ces fruits sont au nombre de trois. Le premier est la mise au point de l'exégèse originale qui vient d'être schématisée.[10] Les second et troisième sont proprement théologique, touchant le Père et déjà le Fils. Recevant pleinement *Deutéronome* 6:4: «Ton Dieu est unique», ils font comprendre comment, dans la Bible, «unique» n'a jamais le sens de «solitaire».[11] Et ils vont plus loin grâce

[9] Y compris dans les manuscrits, 6, 45, p. 260-1.

[10] Dans la ligne d'Irénée, mais selon une argumentation beaucoup plus serrée. Origène part aussi des apories du texte littéral. Sa façon de dégager le sens spirituel (c'est-à-dire proprement théologique), est parallèle à celle des Gaulois, avec, en plus pour ceux-ci, la réintroduction plénière du sens théologique dans la pensée même des hagiographes.

[11] Par exemple, dans ce livre 4, *Trinité*, p. 50-51 (= §18; v. aussi p. 90-91 (§41), sur *Dt.* 32:39.

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à l'exploitation des théophanies de l'Ancien Testament, lieu commun de la littérature patristique dès les Apologistes. Par les théophanies, pour les auteurs anciens, Dieu se révèle comme Dieu sous des formes qui donnent de saisir, que ce n'est pas un Dieu au rabais qui atteint l'homme dans la chair et l'histoire: Dieu de Dieu, unique non solitaire, portant donc une distinction en lui, ne détruit pas cette unicité distinguée en elle-même en se faisant connaître et comprendre d'Abraham, de Jacob, etc. C'est la conclusion du livre 4: «Quand Israël entend dire qu'il n'y a qu'un Dieu unique et qu'à côté du Dieu Fils de Dieu nul autre ne sera compté comme Dieu, c'est que Dieu le Père et Dieu le Fils sont absolument un, non par une fusion monadique de la personne, mais de par l'unité de substance.»[12]

Le travail de sape paléotestamentaire conduit par Hilaire ne laisse rien à Arius.

Les trois livres suivants

Il n'est pas possible d'analyser ici les trois autres livres comme nous venons de le faire pour le livre 4. Il est sûr que leur lecture à partir des quatre bases d'argumentation continue à se révéler éclairante. La même foi de l'Église demeure en arrière-fond, prête à resurgir. Demeure aussi le souci de rendre compte avec exactitude de la pensée de l'adversaire. Les mêmes moyens de rigueur herméneutique et philosophique permettent de restaurer le réalisme des propos. Ce qui change de livre en livre ce sont les acquis de l'intelligence de la foi. Voici les degrés de la lente ascension: à partir de la non-solitude au livre 4, on accède, au livre 5, à la pleine divinité du Dieu qui vient vers l'homme (= le Verbe) dans l'Ancien Testament, au livre 6, à la non-adoption du Verbe fait chair et à la possession en propriété de la divinité par celui-ci, pour aboutir à la pleine reconnaissance de la naissance comme transmission de la nature divine du Père au Fils, issu du Père, y compris dans la chair. Tout sommaire qu'il est, ce résumé justifie notre tentative d'avoir testé *La Trinité* d'Hilaire sur la densité de sa logique.

4. Une pédagogie large de la foi

Certes, le caractère massif de *La Trinité* d'Hilaire reste entier pour les lecteurs malgré les réflexions par lesquelles nous avons tenté d'en rendre raison. Le bloc reste un bloc, nullement ouvert en son fond, du fait que nous n'avons que très peu touché au fond même de l'enseignement lui-même. Mais déjà, restant au plus près du discours par lequel l'œuvre s'offre et se communique, nous avons commencé à soupçonner en lui non plus un monstre abstrait mais une pensée vivante, même si elle est serrée. Hilaire est apparu comme un homme qui se donne tout entier à sa tâche d'enseignant de la doctrine de l'Évangile. Sa foi,

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malmenée par le doute hérétique, ses capacité dialectiques, sa culture vaste et qui sait descendre dans la lecture des manuscrits grecs,[12] son ouverture sur l'actualité, étendue du civil au religieux, son affectivité, nullement dissimulée ni dans la louange ni la réprobation, tout cela est présent dans cette œuvre qui ne ressemble en rien à une somme théologique. C'est avec tout cela qu'Hilaire touche son public. Et il contraint ce même public à faire sien cet engagement plénier. Il sollicite sa foi, sa connaissance des faits et surtout son intelligence, en lui rappelant des mots, des phrases, des livres, en le contraignant à la réflexion littéraire et anthropologique.

Car La Trinité est un ouvrage qui fait bouger en bougeant lui-même. En un sens, il peut apparaître comme immobile. C'est que, de fait, la foi qui y est en question ne change pas. Dès le début, on sait que le Père, Fils et le Saint-Esprit sont un seul Dieu en trois sujets subsistants. C'est seulement dans le progrès de l'intelligence de ce qu'on connaît déjà que tout s'opère. Voilà l'apport le plus décisif de cette étude. Le progrès est lent mais large. Il met en œuvre la grâce d'être intelligent.

[12] Voir n. 9.

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Marius Victorinus and the *Homoousion*

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Marius Victorinus, an African grammarian of the fourth century who became a Christian late in life,[1] seldom occupies more than a parenthesis in histories of early Christian doctrine, and then only in the most exhaustive. Students of theology are most likely to encounter him as a forerunner of Augustine, though the evidence suggests that he was more of a gadfly than a mentor to his young contemporary.[2] Classicists have prized him as an ossuary for the relics of lost works by Neoplatonists;[3] more recently the detection of Gnostic matter in his writings has conferred on him a peculiar though equivocal distinction. For all that, if there is one trait that sets Victorinus apart from his contemporaries, Greeks and Latins alike, it is his zealous advocacy of the *homoousion*, and it is in his self-appointed role as heir and guardian of the Nicene faith that I propose to treat him here. If the inquiry shows that his bedfellows were not those of Athanasius or Basil of Caesarea, we are not forced to impugn their catholicity or his; we may prefer to conclude that it was not the desired or actual result of the Nicene synod to forestall conjecture, experiment or the construction of a personal philosophy in defence of a public creed.

Victorinus assumes that the Nicene Creed of 325 will be the lodestar of orthodoxy to his readers. From it he quotes the watchword *homoousios* on page after page, the clauses 'God from God' and 'light from light' much less abundantly, the remainder not at all. As proof of its catholicity, he alludes at *Adversus Arium* 1.28 to 'three hundred and more' who were present at the council, and at 2.9 to the 315. These are misrepresentations of an apocryphal figure (318), which was devised to make the prelates at Nicaea equal in number to Abraham's household. The ignorance which Victorinus betrays here suggests

[1] Jerome, *De viris illustribus* 101, placing him after Hilary and dating his *floruit* in Rome to the reign of Constantius (d. 360). For this purpose I treat the *Adversus Arium* as an integral work, though Pierre Hadot, *Marius Victorinus* (Paris, 1971), 253-80 argues persuasively that it is a collection of discrete works, and that the turn to the homoiousians at 1.49 was prompted by the reception of a dossier from Sirmium in 358.

[2] Peter. Manchester, The Noetic Triad in Plotinus, Marius Victorinus and Augustine, in: Richard T. Wallis and Jay Bregman (eds.), *Neoplatonism and Gnosticism* (Albany, 1992), 207-22.

[3] See Pierre Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus* (Paris, 1968); more recently, Matthias Baltes, *Marius Victorinus: Zur Philosophie in seinen Schriften* (Munich and Leipzig, 2002). Affinities with Gnostic literature are discussed below.

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that his few, recurrent tags from the elder scriptures were derived from a florilegium, the choice of matter in which will have inspired, if it did not anticipate, his own glosses on the terms 'image' and 'substance'. There is nothing to show that his audience would have challenged the authority of the Old Testament, however freely he or they may have handled it; from his own asseverations, it can also be inferred that they professed to uphold every article of the Nicene Creed except the term *homoousios*. Two sects are denounced by Victorinus as mutual enemies to his own position and that of his addressees. The more obviously heterodox are the followers of Photinus and his preceptor Marcellus (1.22-23, 1.28, 1.45), who do not admit the identity of the eternal Logos and the human Jesus, but regard the incarnation as the adoption of a human individual by the Godhead (2.2). His victories, wherever he meets this error, are swift and effortless, if only because, as a number of modern studies have shown, they are victories over straw men. A simple faith, in his view, is more likely to be seduced by those who substitute the hybrid term *homoiousios* for the *homoousios* of the Nicene formula, thus pronouncing the Son and the Father to be merely alike in respect of that which the council had declared to be one and the same.

Athanasius and Hilary had proposed that homoiousians and Nicenes waive the iota to make common cause against the Arians. Basil of Ancyra, the putative author of the term *homoiousios*, is said by Victorinus to have confuted the objections of his regular interlocutors to the use of the noun *ousia* in relation to the Godhead (2.10). Nevertheless, the difficulty of installing Victorinus in textbook histories of the Arian controversy arises from the fact that he concedes no more to the party of compromise than to the 'Arians' who espouse the prohibited tenet that the Word, or Second Person of the Trinity, is 'from nothing'.[4] Victorinus purports to be astonished that this doctrine, which was plainly anathematized by the Nicene Fathers, should be entertained by disputants who are at one with these same Fathers in holding Christ to be God from God and light from light; deducing that if the Word proceeds from nothing, he is not born but made, he concludes that this rejection of the anathema cannot be reconciled with the affirmation, in the body of the Nicene Creed, that Christ was born, not made.

The opponents whom Victorinus has in view throughout are evidently those whose manifesto is prefixed to his defence of the *homoousion* in the form of a letter by a certain Candidus, of whom nothing else is known.[5] He cannot be

[4] At 1.45 the 'Basilii' concur with Arius in making the Son a hybrid of *factura*, and *generatio*. See Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.3.

[5] His existence has been questioned, but he is not the stereotypical Arian of the late fourth century, and in his apophatic theology he furnishes Victorinus with the keel of his own theology. At 1.43 the more conventional Arians are divided into four classes: Ariani, Lucianistae, Eusebiani, Illyriciani.

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accused of dissimulation like the Greeks whom Nicenes stigmatized as Arians in this epoch, for he not only adopts the statement of faith that Arius had submitted to the Bishop of Alexandria, but is the earliest witness to quote a letter addressed to Paulinus of Tyre by the great Eusebius of Nicomedia, whom he represents (no doubt calumniously) as a fellow-disciple (p. 29.4). But it is only in his second letter to Victorinus that he displays this pedigree: his first is a compendium of objections to the Nicene faith, the majority of which would be new to Arius, and some of which may be his own. The same reasoning suffices against all notions of a procession or emission of one divine being from another: God is existence rather than substance, the transcendent cause but not the bearer of properties, and hence can be spoken of only by the negation of finite properties (*Ad Victorinum* 2-3). It follows that he is immutable, and hence that we cannot impute to him any motion that would diminish him or subject him to division (*ibid.* 3, p. 3.20-29).[6] If the second person is conceived instead as an image, an impression or a product of his will, he cannot possess the attribute of consubstantiality which would warrant our calling him God or the Son of God (*proem* 6). If we suppose a motion without procession or imagine the Son as a point that limits a plane, there will be no differentiation of the two persons (*ibid.* 5, p. 4.17-24; 6, p. 5.4-9); if one appeals to a divine power of superabundance, which enables God to impart his ineffable properties to another without diminution of his own fullness, it will then be necessary to explain why he is not always producing new sons and new worlds (*ibid.* 6, p. 5.20-21).

Candidus, though he is harvesting the casuistry of two decades, shows no awareness of the predicate *homoiousios*, or of its cognate *homoios kat' ousian*, which is in fact the only form of words that is known to have been employed as an alternative to the Nicene homoousion by Basil of Ancyra and his supporters. It was often alleged in antiquity, and is always assumed today, that both formulations mean 'of similar substance', and hence that they sit midway between the Nicene affirmation of one substance and the Arian denial of any likeness in this respect. But there is nothing in Basil's advocacy of the phrase *homoios kat' ousian* to indicate that he aimed at any such compromise: what he feared in the term *homoousios* was the implication of divisibility or passion in the Godhead, which could not be avoided if the word were used in the sense that it normally bore when used of material entities. On the other hand, his addition of the word *ousia* intimates that the affinity in nature between the Father and Son is greater than that which exists between a human creator and his handiwork. There is no reason to translate the locution *homoios kat' ousian* as 'of similar substance', rather than 'alike in respect of substance' – which is to say that they have the same substance, though they differ in other respects. The adjective *homoios* in Greek philosophy is applied to different members of

[6] Pagination throughout is that of Albrecht Locher (Tübingen, 1976).

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the same class rather than to members of similar classes,[7] and when Cyril of Alexandria spoke of angels as *homoioi kata physin*, he intended to say that they were of the same nature.[8] When Basil of Caesarea entertained the view that orthodoxy might be more securely preserved by the phrase *homoios kat' ousian* than by the *homoousion*, it was not because he doubted that the Father and the Son were both divine. Eunomius, who certainly denied that Father and Son were equipollently divine, maintained that it was the *homoiousion*, not the *homoousion*, which implied this, objecting to the latter term because entailed passibility in the Godhead by deriving the Son from the substance of the Father (*Apology* 26). To uphold the *homoousion* against the *homoiousion* is thus to secure the primacy of the Father, and hence the unity of the Godhead, against a doctrine which affirms only the equality of the two persons.

Victorinus, while he perpetuates the common misunderstanding of the position held by Basil of Ancyra, brings three arguments against it which reveal more than common subtlety and insight. The first is metaphysical, the second logical, the third dogmatic. A sound metaphysic, he argues, holds similarity to be a property in qualities, not in the substance; hence a similarity in substance is nonsensical (1.23). Logic, moreover, prescribes that if there were two similar substances, they could not both posses the same property of universal causation, for if there is a cause of all things, it must be one (1.25). Finally, it is a dogma of the faith that the Son is what he is by virtue of his generation from the Father, but this is not preserved if we affirm a merely symmetrical relation between the two (1.29-30). This last objection shows that, while he praises Basil's success in exploding arguments which were brought against the term *ousia* by their common adversaries, he suspected him at the same time of opposing orthodox tenets to which a Eunomius, or an Arian like Candidus, could subscribe without demur.

The Nicene *homoousion*, as Victorinus interprets it, is designed not only to vindicate the divinity of the Son against the Arians, but to preserve his filial character, which was subsequently obscured by the failure of the homoiousians to affirm more than a mutual similarity. Alexander of Alexandria had insisted as clearly as Arius and his patrons that the Father must be eternally Father, the Son eternally Son, that the latter must therefore depend for his existence on the

[7] See *Iliad* 18.329, 'the same earth'; Herodotus, *Histories* 1.34 and Aristotle, *Politics* 1306b 30, 'equal in rank'; Antiphon 5.76, 'of the same mind [as ever]'. In Plato see *Symposium* 195b, *Gorgias* 510b, where 'like to like' subtends members of same species. Also *Symposium* 173d: 'you are always the same man'. *Phaedrus* 271a: 'one/single and same (*homoios*)' according to Liddell/Scott and Benjamin Jowett, though not (*e.g.*) John Cooper. In R. Sharples, *Alexander of Aphrodisias, On Fate etc.* (London, 1983), 100 and 175, *homoios* at *Mantissa* 23, 175.35ff. is translated repeatedly 'alike' or 'same'.

[8] For angels *homoioi kata physin* see Cyril of Alexandria, *De trinitate* 1.394.35-7, cited by Richard Vaggione, *Eunomius of Cyzicus* (Oxford, 2000), 162n. Consider also 'likeness of sinful flesh' at *Romans* 8:3, generally taken to express solidarity with the human species rather than mere resemblance.

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former, who was at the same time the cause of his own existence. This twofold causality is a characteristic of every agent according to Aristotle,[9] in whose metaphysics the first entelechy or realisation of any concrete entity is the superimposition of an essence or quiddity on its inchoate matter, while the second entelechy is a concomitant power of acting on the world, which pertains to an entelechy of this kind and no other. The first entelechy, or actuation, is thus a precondition of the second, while the second entelechy, or activity, may be called the objectification of the first. In a material entity, actuation is both logically and temporally prior to activity, and both will remain imperfect, though susceptible of increase, since a full conversion of matter into essence would leave no potentiality in the object for conversion into any other object, and a contingent being would thereby become eternal. According to a familiar paradox, no contingent being is ever fully what it is.

Moreover, where the agent is material, actuation and activity require two different substrates: in actuation the matter of the agent is the substrate – that is to say, the agent is the subject and object of the same actuation – while activity is directed to something other than the agent, and it is this other which provides the substrate. The activity is thus the actuation of the patient, but for the agent it supervenes on actuation. But what, then brings about the preliminary actuation of the agent? Since no contingent entity can endow itself with what it does not yet possess, it follows that no such entity can be responsible for the actuation of hitherto unrealised capacities in itself; the actuation of one contingent being must therefore be the result of activity by another, and the actuality which enables B to act upon C is the consequence of B's having lent itself to the action of A. This synergetic realization of two entelechies, of actuation and activity, in the same agent thus necessitates the existence of at least two beings, an agent and a patient, each occupying a different material substrate.

But what if there is no matter, if the agent is God, and no object for his activity outside the Godhead has yet been created? In such a case, our notions of numerical distinctness, which we derive from the observation of material particulars, become otiose and misleading. If we permit ourselves to speak improperly of divine matter, we must say that this potential for being God is nothing other than God himself, and that when God in potency becomes God in act, it is this same matter – this divine potentiality, or God in potency – that provides a substrate for the activity that accompanies actuation. If we can speak of God becoming God – and we must remember that it is only the frailty of our understanding that requires to impose these temporal predicates on the eternal – we must conclude that he is at once the agent and the patient in his actuation, the

[9] *De anima* 412a 27-8, but only of hylomorphic entities. The principle is extended to the One by Plotinus, *Enneads* V 4.2.28. What follows is a paraphrase of the main argument in *Adversum Arianos* Book 1.

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agent and the patient of his own activity. Moreover, because there is no potential in God that remains unactualised, there is no unexploited residue in the transition from actuation to activity: there is nothing that God is which is not translated into what God does.

What we may call the potentiality of divine being is the Father, what we may call its actuation is the Spirit, what we may call its activity is the Son. The Father, according to Victorinus, can be credited with being only if we admit two senses of the word 'being', which, for want of a participle from the verb *esse*, cannot be adequately parsed in Latin. In Greek we may speak of that which is not, the *mê on*, of which four categories are distinguishable (*Ad Candidum* 4ff.): that which is merely non-existent, that which existed once but is no longer, that which is not but is yet to be, and that which, being one thing, is not any other. Here we can find a parallel to Athanasius' winnowing of four senses from the predicate *agenêtos* in his *Orations against the Arians*; we can also see the beginnings of a contrast – foreign to Greek in the opinion of modern scholars, but espoused by a number of theologians in the twentieth century – between mere nothingness and the 'meontic' state of the creature before creation. The meontic in all four senses stands in antithesis to the concrete actuality which is being as we know it in the domain of the material and contingent. The meontic in God resembles the meontic in the phenomenal universe only insofar as it is potential being awaiting actuality. But if in God there is only one subject of activity and passivity, if in short potentiality and potency are one, it is better to speak, not so much of his not existing, as of his possessing a superordinate existence, which must be expressed in Latin by a neologism, such as *praeexistentia* (1.48, p. 85.25 etc.), or else by a equally novel distinction between the *esse*, or absolute being of God, and his determinate existence (*exsistentia*) in the three persons. It may therefore be conceded to the Arians that the Son originates from what is not; but what this signifies is not, as they suppose that his substrate is mere nothingness, the *ex ouk ontos*, for that would not even be true of corporeal objects, which originate in the meontic. The source of the Son is the Father, to whom we deny existence in a quotidian sense because he transcends it, not because there is any deficit in the Godhead.

If the Father, in this decanted sense, is the being of the Godhead the Son is its life or *vita*, because the prologue to the *Gospel of John* declares that 'what was made in him was life'.[10] Victorinus accepts the punctuation of this verse that is generally deemed to be more favourable to the Arian than to the catholic position; his argument turns not on syntax but on the identity of God's life with the self-actuating potentiality which has already been discovered to be identical with the Father. In a subject whose actuality is translated into activity

[10] *John* 1:4 at 1.29, p. 26.7.

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without residue, being is motion, and the motion of God is life. We can no more deny that the Father is life than that the Son is being: but he is life when in motion, being when at rest.

The Son, though not the Father, is all that the Father is, and no-one asserts the equality of the two more strenuously than Victorinus in the fourth century. His opponents, however, urged that if the Word is styled the image of God and Father in the scriptures, he must be, as every image is, a lesser and later being than the original, and of a different substance. Victorinus replies by adopting a Platonic interpretation of the word *eikôn* ('image'), according to which it signifies not the ectype but the archetype – not the mere iteration, in a new medium, of an object which, if present, would be as open to inspection as the image, but the representation of that which, but for its image, would have remained unknowable, even to itself.[11] The image is, in short, the objectification of the subject; it is that in actuality which the subject is potentially; and hence, as there is only one actuation, there is properly but one substance, and it would be a solecism to attribute different substances to the Father and the Son.

What of the Holy Spirit? All writers of the early Latin church were conscious of an ambiguity in the term *spiritus*, as it signifies both the third person of the Trinity and the immaterial nature, essence or substance of the triune God, which all three persons therefore possess in common. God, we are told at *John* 4:24, is spirit: Victorinus takes this to mean that his self-actuation may be conceived metaphorically as a breathing or spiration, in which the spirit is at once agent and effect. The first motion of the Godhead is reflexive, the translation of his *praecognitio* into a self-cognizance, which is at once a recognition and a constitution of himself as substance. The life of the Godhead is a product of, though at the same time, fully identical with, this primordial motion. Hence it is that the spirit may be regarded as the mother of the Word, both in the supernal realm, where life is manifested as fecundity in creation, and here on earth, where the power of the Spirit overshadowed Mary to beget one whose unfailing and perfect obedience culminated in his death for all humanity on the Cross. Here, as in the Trinity of Theophilus and a number of Syriac authors, *sapientia* or wisdom is equated not with the Son but with the Spirit and femininity is openly predicated of the Godhead. Victorinus, of course, believes that God conceived without metaphor transcends the division of sexes; at the same time, he believes that Christ can suffer for all humanity because both sexes came into being at once, as we learn from *Genesis* 1:28, in the creation of the first man.

The theology of the west proclaims one substance in the Godhead. But the Latin noun *substantia* is the etymological counterpart of *hypostasis*, and among the Greeks the catholics and the Arians are at one in their proclamation of a

[11] See *Adversus Arianos* 1.19, especially p. 50.3: *ipsa species ipsa substantia est.*

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single God in three hypostases. The traditional nomenclature of the Latin church, on the other hand, affirms that there is one substance in the Godhead, thereby making substance a synonym of *ousia* or being in the Godhead. The Greek proceedings of a western council, held at Sardica in 343, had rendered the proclamation of one *substantia* in the Godhead as an assertion of one hypostasis, to the disquiet of many and the embarrassment of Athanasius (*Tome to the Antiochenes* 5). The task of Victorinus was to show that the three hypostases were not three substances in the sense which he and his Latin predecessors customarily gave to the word *substantia*. His tool for this purpose is a new abstraction, *subsistentia*,[12] which denotes the concrete and objective being that the *esse* of the Godhead assumes in each of its three persons. This subsistence being what is properly designated by *substantia*, it would not be wrong to substitute the latter term for hypostasis; since, however, it is the same *esse* that becomes substantial in all three persons, and since there is no substance in the Father but what is made actual in the Son, it is proper to speak of one *substantia* in the Godhead. Toying with the resources of a modern tongue in the manner of Victorinus, one might say that there is one *esse* that substantiates itself in all three subsistences.

Victorinus purports to draw his nomenclature from the scriptures. A word may be said in his favour here, not only to rebut the common view that the philosopher in him strangled the theologian, but to restore a lost page in the history of Trinitarian nomenclature. Students of Tertullian have seldom proposed a biblical antecedent for his locution *una substantia*, which he himself does not expressly derive from any text. The prevailing assumption, now that Harnack's theory of a forensic provenance has been discarded, is that *substantia* represents the Greek *ousia*. On three counts, however, this cannot be true. First, a Latin author of Tertullian's time with a free choice would have chosen essential rather than *substantia* as an equivalent to *ousia*; secondly, there is no evidence that *ousia* had yet entered the Greek vocabulary as a term to express what is single in the Godhead; finally, there is at least one usage of *substantia* in Tertullian which corresponds exactly to a usage of hypostasis in a Greek contemporary. At *Adversus Praxean* 7.14 Tertullian reasons that, if the Son is from the Father's substance, he himself cannot lack substance, and goes on to perplex his interpreters by equating the *substantia* of the Son with his *persona*.[13] The same phrase, *ex substantia patris*, occurs in the surviving Latin version of

[12] For what follows see chiefly *Adversus Arianos* 2.4. Werner Beierwaltes, *Substantia* und *subsistentia* bei Marius Victorinus, in: Francisco Romano and Daniella P. Taormina (eds.), *'ΥΠΟΣΤΑΣΙΣ e 'ΥΠΑΡΞΙΣ nel Neoplatonismo* (Florence, 1994), 43-58.

[13] Tertullian, *Adversus Praxean* 7.9: *si invisibilia dei, quaecumque sunt, habent apud deum et suum corpus et suam formam per quae soli deo visibilia sunt, quanto magis quod ex ipsius substantia emissum est sine substantia non erit. Quaecumque ergo substantia sermonis fuit, illam dico personam et illi nomen filii vindico.* See Augustine, *trin.* 7.9: *neque in hac trinitate cum dicimus personam patris aliud dicimus quam substantiam patris.*

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an extract from Origen's *Commentary on Hebrews*.[14] Since he denies elsewhere that the Son proceeds from the *ousia* of the Father, and since he is commenting here on the description of the Son at *Hebrews* 1:3 as an impression of the *hypostasis* of the Father, there can be no doubt that *hypostasis* is the Greek parent of *substantia* in this passage. It is reasonable to infer that *Hebrews* 1:3 is also the source, or at least a catalyst, for the same usage in Tertullian.

Substantia being the regular equivalent of *hypostasis* in the Latin of the New Testament, it was an infelicity rather than an error to use *hypostasis* as a translation of *substantia* in the Sardican decrees. Victorinus, conscious perhaps that in his day it is *ousia* that corresponds to *substantia*, couples a timely citation of *Hebrews* 1:3 with a whimsical exegesis of the *ousia*, or household property, which the prodigal son demands as his inheritance.[15] His argument that this squandering of the patrimonial substance represents the alienation of God's image from its archetype in humanity would deserve little credence even if he had not palpably begged the question by writing *hypostasis* where the original has *ousia*. Nor were his contemporaries any more inclined than a modern critic would be to join him in finding an adumbration of the Word's procession from the Father at *Jeremiah* 23:22, where standing in the hypostasis of the Father is the condition for receiving the Father's *logos* (1.30, 1b.59, 2.4). But the implausibility of his other glosses does not prove that his appeal to *Hebrews* 1:3 is either frivolous or delusive.[16] The significance of this verse had been acknowledged in a contemporary letter, which was orthodox enough to be attributed both to Basil of Caesarea and to Gregory of Nyssa. Against those who contend that this apostolic testimony allots *hypostasis* to the Father alone, the author pleads that the eminence of the Father lies not in his being the sole possessor of *hypostasis*, but in his being the one who, by the communication of his *ousia*, gives birth to a second *hypostasis* in the Son. This is a terminological refinement of Tertullian's position that the Son acquires his hypostatic identity as a consequence of being from the substance of the Father. Victorinus is not quite of the same mind, because he does not concede a logical priority to *substantia* but to *esse*. Following Aristotle's *Categories*, he holds that nothing can be a substance in the proper sense unless it is a subject of attribution; since, however, attributes cannot be predicated of that which has only potential existence, it is only the realization of the divine potential for being in the Spirit and the Son that makes it possible to speak of God as substance.

Opponents of the *homoousion* asked how three could be one except by sharing in the same material substrate or participating in a common species. Victorinus

[14] See *ex ipsa substantia patris* in Pamphilus, *Apologia* 581 Migne.

[15] *Adversus Arium* 1.6, p. 106.25, substituting *hypostasis* for the *ousia* of *Luke* 15:12. See 1.59 at p. 94.27.

[16] The term *character* is quoted from this verse at 1.29 (p. 62.25); *refulgentia* at 1.40 (75.24-5). The verse is ascribed to Paul at 2.3 (104.19).

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modifies the dialect of philosophy to accommodate both matter and species in God without the invidious corollaries. For Aristotle, substance (that is, *ousia*) is pre-eminently neither form nor matter, as neither of these subsists alone, but the individual formed through the instantiation in matter of a certain array of properties that constitutes the species. Since *eidos*, the Greek precursor of Latin *species*, was Plato's term for the archetypal idea or form before Aristotle polemically adopted it to represent the embedded universal, it was open to Victorinus to marry these usage, and to argue that the species which embraces all three persons of the Godhead is the *eikôn*, the image or manifest activity, of the Father in the Son. The matter of the Godhead is nothing other than the Father's potentiality, which does not stand in antithesis to the species or form like the matter of common objects, because it is wholly translated into, and therefore wholly one with, the actuation and the activity for which it provides a substrate. We can thus ascribe plurality to God without denying either his unity or his absolute simplicity, without making him a member of a class or divorcing the essence of the deity from his attributes, as we do with regard to the mundane composite of form and matter.

Victorinus, justly dubbed the first Christian philosopher, is in his own mind no lone cavalier but the paladin of an ancestral faith. He will therefore have been conscious of antecedents whom, in the manner of his times, he does not identify; most scholars will think first of Origen, but what does an Origenist hold that could not be held by any catholic Christian? The assertion of three hypostases, for example, cannot function as a shibboleth, for this was common tender for almost all theological parties in the late fourth century. We may suspect an echo of the Alexandrian's *Commentary on John* when Victorinus urges us not imagine that the Word of God is like a word of ours, an epiphenomenon of the Father's substance rather than a hypostasis in his own right. But this admonition in Origen is prompted by the monarchian abuse of *Psalm* 44:2 – 'my heart has disgorged a good word' – whereas Victorinus quotes this text without misgiving.[17] In phrases which are scarcely more than asides, Victorinus appears to credit Christ with a soul before his incarnation (*Ad Candidum* 26, p. 24.24); to us this is one of Origen's heterodoxies, but it was not picked out for censure by his critics before the fifth century, and earlier genealogies of heresy assigned it to the Gnostic Apelles. Origen had taught before Victorinus that the image of God resides in the inner man, or soul, and not in the outward form; but so, for example, had Gregory of Nyssa, and neither had anticipated Victorinus' teaching that the body contains a hylic or material will at war with the higher faculties (1.62). He seems not so much to follow as to adapt a thought from Origen[18] when he argues the that the true 'voice in the wilderness' at *John* 1:23 is that of Jesus rather than his harbinger John the Baptist (1.56);

[17] Victorinus *Ad Candidum* 1.286; see Origen, *In Johannem* 1.24. 151-2.

[18] *Commentary on John* 2.193-195, adapting a speculation from Heracleon.

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his interpretation of *Exodus* 22:23 to mean that we glimpse through Christ what is knowable in the Father (1.57) is perhaps indebted to Origen's commentary on the Song of Songs.[19] For Origen, however, the divine is ineffable rather than unknowable; we look in vain for a statement, here or elsewhere in his extant works, that God is hidden not only from the embodied intellect but from any conceivable power of intellection, because he does not admit the predicates of being. If Origen, as is often said, was too much a mystic of light, too apt to kindle a human torch in the darkness of Sinai,[20] Victorinus cannot be numbered among his progeny.

The negative theology of Victorinus is floridly expressed beyond all precedent in Latin, though its logical rigour bears witness to his schooling in philosophy. The unity of the Godhead is to him logically anterior to its being; God is at once *anousios* and *hyperousios*, and we can define an essence for him only by a cascade of privatives: *sine exsistentia, sine substantia, sine intelligentia ... immensum, invisibile, indiscernibile ... impartibile undique, sine figura, sine qualitate neque in qualitate, sine qualitate quale, sine colore, sine specie, sine forma, omnibus formis carens* (1.49). Such wrestling with the toils of speech inevitably reminds us of Plotinus, who was also forced to confer an uncommon sense on common terms as he strove to adumbrate what lies beyond all conception and intelligible being in the first principle. There is almost a perfect homology between the account of the soul's fall at *Enneads* III 9 and the warning of Victorinus, in his first book against the Arians, that if the intellect turns from God to look inward, there will be nothing to sustain it, and it will dissipate itself in the contemplation of the underlying darkness. On the other hand, the term which Plotinus wrests from its older sense to designator that which is not yet being in the One is not the infinitive of the verb to be, but *energeia*, which in Aristotle embraces both actuation and activity, but is used in *Enneads* VI 8 to mean aseity, the power of self-causation. It has been suggested, therefore, that it was not from Plotinus but from his amanuensis and ambassador Porphyry that Victorinus borrowed his distinction between bare *esse* and determinate existence. We have seen above that being, life and mind are the terms which Victorinus correlates with the three persons of his Trinity. This triad, which evolved from a cryptic passage in Plato's *Sophist*, represents the dyadic counterpoise of intelligence and the intelligible, or motion and rest in the demiurgic intellect. Embryonically present in the *Enneads*, it has an early cognate (being, *dynamis*, mind) in the so-called *Chaldaean Oracles*; in its more Platonic form, however, it awaited the refinements of Iamblichus, Theodorus of Asine and a *Commentary on the Parmenides* which will be earlier than either if we join Hadot in attributing it to

[19] 231.10 Baehrens. Victorinus juxtaposes *John* 1:18 with *Exodus* 33:20 at *Adversus Arianos* 4.8; see Origen, *In Isaiam* 1.5.

[20] See Andrew Louth, *The Origins of the Christian Mystical Tradition* (Oxford, 2007), 72.

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Porphyry.[21] It may have been from the same text that Victorinus learned to characterize the unconditioned being of the One by such abstractions as *hyparxis* and *ontotes*, the second of which is certainly a neologism of late antiquity. One the other hand, there are scholars of repute who assign the *Commentary* to the scholastic age of Neoplatonism that followed Porphyry, or to an unknown predecessor of Plotinus; neither *ontotês* nor *hyparxis* occurs in any work securely ascribed to Porphyry,[22] and it is hard to believe that the author of this commentary is the same Porphyry who was thought by his ancient readers to have compromised the sublimity of the first principle by conflating it with the father of the intelligible triad.

It was not Plotinus or Origen who introduced the cult of the alpha-privative in Greek theology. After Plato the Pythagoreans were its most famous adepts, and Philo of Alexandria the most voluminous. These traditions met in the Christian Clement of Alexandria, who escaped the storm that broke over Origen's name in the late fourth century. The source for the unidiomatic *patrica potentia* in Victorinus is *patrikê dynamis*, a less anomalous phrase which characterizes the Son in Clement's *Stromateis*.[23] Victorinus adds that the generation of the Son was an exercise of feminine potency (1.51 at p. 87.5), a conceit first attested in Clement's treatise *On the Rich Man's Salvation* (37.2). A reader of the fourth century could also have encountered it in Gregory of Nyssa's *Commentary on the Song of Songs*, while he could have read elsewhere in Origen, as in Gregory, that the image and likeness of God is the inner man, in whose creation male and female are combined.[24] Echoes of salient passages in his orthodox contemporaries are, however, few and inconsequential in comparison with elements that, in his time and ours, would be described as Gnostic. He is not, for example, content to say that life is a feminine potency, but argues that the Word attains masculinity in his reversion to being, just as the Gnostics held that the female cannot be saved unless it acquires the properties of the male. Again, he holds not merely that the body is less essential to our humanity than the soul, but that it is radically depraved. The earliest and most extravagant specimens of negative theology occur in Gnostic texts, one of which at least was undoubtedly known to Victorinus. The Coptic *Zostrianus* was discovered in 1945 at Nag Hammadi in Egypt. If it fairly represents the Greek archetype,

[21] Pierre Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus*, 2 vols (Paris, 1968). Contrast Gerard Bechtle, *The Anonymous Commentary on Plato's Parmenides* (Bern, 2000); Matthias Baltes, Anonymos, *In Platonis Parmenidem Commentarium* (*Codex Taurinensis* F.IV.1); Anmerkungen zum Text, in: *Papiri Filosofici. Miscellanea di studi* IV (Florence, 2002), 31-40.

[22] John M. Rist, Mysticism and Transcendence in Later Neoplatonism: *Hermes* 64 (1982) 213-25.

[23] *Adversus Arianos* 1.58 (p. 70.34); see Clement, *Stromateis* VII 9.1; A. Smith, Ὑποστασις and Ὑπαρξις in Porphyry, in: Romano and Taormina (n. 12 above), 33-41.

[24] See Origen, *De principiis* I 7.1; Gregory of Nyssa, *De opificio hominis* 16; Victorinus, *Adversus Arianos* 1.64, p. 99.4 with Locher's note.

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deemed worthy of refutation in forty books by an eminent colleague of Plotinus, it reveals that the triad of being, life and mind is older than Porphyry.[25] Even if the original was embellished in the light of controversy, the extant copy antedates Victorinus, and suffices to prove his acquaintance with a Greek version that already contained the triad. One of his attempts to force a logical path from the One to the triad, substituting beatitude for intellect, is all but identical in structure and phrasing with a passage in the *Zostrianus*;[26] unless, therefore, the latter is a travesty of some lost Platonic text, it would appear that Victorinus did not need to look beyond sources which were nominally Christian for his proof of the triune character of God.

But how could a catholic borrow from a Gnostic? It is not incredible that terms and concepts which had once been reckoned perilous or heretical by the episcopate should be rebaptized by a writer against the Arians in the fourth century. Tertullian, when he styled the Son a *prolatio* or projection of the Father, did not conceal the Valentinian provenance of this term; Origen used its Greek antecedent *probole*, and was posthumously accused of having adulterated the faith that he purported to be defending against the monarchians. Arius had thrown a bouquet at Valentinus in the guise of a brickbat when he offered his Alexandrian opponents a choice between this heretic, Mani, Sabellius and the obscure Hieracas (Athanasius, *On Synods* 16). But polemicists against Arius in the fourth centuries raised the curfew on such terms as *plêroma*, *ogdoas* and *gnôstikos* itself; even the word *homoousios*, as the homoiousians urged, had been employed by Valentinians and Manichees before it entered the catholic vernacular. Conversely, the Anomoians – an appellative reserved elsewhere for Aetius, Eunomius and their partisans – are denounced in a text which came to light in the same cache that preserved the *Zostrianus* and *Allogenes* (*Nag Hammadi Codices* 6.4.40). The wholesale plagiarism from a Gnostic work that we see in Victorinus is admittedly a new thing, but it need not be a sign of heterodoxy or of his failure to understand the Nicene dogma. There was after all no dogma, only a creed, which had not yet become a touchstone of orthodoxy for the majority of western Christians, not even for those who professed to abominate both Arius and the Gnostics. Even the east was a motley rather than a piebald territory for fifty years after Nicaea: the historian sees not two entrenched and antipathetic factions, but a series of coalitions between intriguing prelates or vociferous outlaws. Men who signed the same document could

[25] See Porphyry, *Vita Plotini* 16, with Michel Tardieu, *Recherches sur la formation de l'Apocalypse de Zostrien et les sources de Marius Victorinus* (Bures-sur-Yvette, 1996). For criticism of Tardieu's argument that Victorinus was indebted to this text see R. Majercik, Porphyry and the Gnostics: *CQ* 55 (2005) 277-92; Luise Abramowski, *Audi ut dico*: Literarische Beobachtungen und chronologische Erwägungen zu Marius Victorinus und den 'platonisierenden' Nag Hammadi Traktaten: *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 117 (2007) 145-68.

[26] See *Adversus Arianos* 1.60, with comment and bibliography in Claudio Moreschini and Chiara Tommasi, *Opere Teologice di Mario Vittorino* (Turin 2007), 29-31.

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be enemies on the day that they subscribed, yet retain a lifelong friendship with others who had signed nothing. Marius Victorinus is unusually eclectic in his alliances, and for that reason his work will always be recalcitrant to a teleological history of the development of doctrine. Yet not all genealogy is development, not all change is evolution, and an author who cannot be made amenable to a ubiquitous rule of faith may be a representative specimen of catholicity if not of orthodoxy: the figure of palmary interest to the historian may be one who makes no enduring or definitive contribution to dogmatics.

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Time According to Marius Victorinus, *Adversus Arium* IV 15

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In Marius Victorinus' polemic against the Arians edited as *Adversus Arium IV*[1] we find a short detour about eternity and time, which at first reading seems to be similar to the treatise III 7 by Plotinus dealing with the same topic but when analyzed more precisely, implies a slightly different stance.[2]

Explaining the *homoousia* (the same essence) of the Father and Son in Christian doctrine of Trinity, Victorinus brings a parable or image, which in his understanding is 'more the thing itself than a mere example': God is an act of living (*vivere*), and He has His existence in this very act or movement, *i.e.* He does not perform this act as something different from Himself.[3] But at the same time, this very act constitutes something else, which Victorinus calls form. In the act of living arises life as form.[4] Life as form – for which Victorinus introduces a neologism *vitalitas* ('vivacity')[5] – makes manifest the act of living, which is in itself hidden.[6] Thus, the act of living differs from life as form not in its content, but in its 'mode of existence', like a verb differs from a noun.[7] The difference makes sense against the background of Victorinus' ontology, in which pure activity precedes form. Pierre Hadot suggests this ontology to be connected with the concept implied in the anonymous commentary *In Parmenidem* as contained in the (lost) palimpsest of Turin,[8] which he supposes to be a work by Porphyry.[9] Some other interprets find parallels between this concept and the

[1] I quote the edition by Paul Henry, SC 68 (Paris, 1960), 502-602, followed by the commentary of Pierre Hadot, SC 69 (Paris, 1960).

[2] The similarity of Victorinus' concept of time with Plotinus stresses *e.g.* Ernst Benz, *Marius Victorinus und die Entwicklung der abendländischen Willensmetaphysik* (Stuttgart, 1932), 103-6.

[3] Marius Victorinus, *Adversus Arium* IV 15 (SC 68, 542.1-8).

[4] *Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 542.8-9).

[5] *Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 542.10-13). For Victorinus' neologisms see Pierre Hadot, Un vocabulaire raisonné de Marius Victorinus Afer: *SP* 1 (1957) 194-208, esp. 194, 205.

[6] *Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 544.23-26).

[7] See Pierre Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus* (Paris, 1968), I, 353.

[8] Ed. Wilhelm Kroll, Ein neuplatonischer Parmenideskommentar in einem Turiner Palimpsest: *Rheinisches Museum N.F.* 47 (1892) 559-627; ed. P. Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus* (1968), II, 59-113; ed. Alessandro Linguiti, *Corpus dei papiri filosofici greci e latini. Testi e lessico nei papiri di cultura greaca e latina*, III: *Commenti* (Firenze, 1995), 63-135.

[9] See P. Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus* (1968) I, 345-79.

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Sethian gnosticism influenced by Middle-Platonism.[10] Matthias Baltes tries to reconstruct the doctrine of Victorinus' source locating it in post-porphyrien Neoplatonism (between Porphyry or Iamblichus and Syrianus).[11]

In any case, in his trinitarian exposition, Victorinus identifies life as form with the Son as form of the invisible Father, to clarify, that the Son has the same essence as the Father, like the form constituted in the act of living has the same essence as this very act.[12] In this context Victorinus introduces his parable of eternity (αἰών), which is – like 'life' in his exposition – an always present act of all things.[13] The everlasting actuality of all things (probably in the Divine Intellect, although Victorinus does not say it) by this very act constitutes eternity as a substance.

This concept of eternity comes very close to the eternity of Plotinus, which is understood as 'a life that abides in the same, and always has the all present to it' (ζωὴν μένουσαν ἐν τῷ αὐτῷ ἀεὶ παρὸν τὸ πᾶν ἔχουσαν).[14] Eternity is an 'act' of this life (ἐνέργεια ζωῆς),[15] although the motif of the constituting act does not seem to be so much important for Plotinus as it is for Victorinus.[16] In Plotinus' view, eternity is, above all, life of the Intellect,[17] 'the life, which belongs to that which exists and is in being, all together and full, completely without extension or interval'.[18]

To this statement about eternity as constituted by an act of all things, Victorinus, a little surprisingly, adds an excursus concerning time as an image of eternity:

'But our "to live" (*vivere*) also consists in an always present time; indeed, we do not live the past nor do we live the future, but always are in the present; for the present is the only time; and it alone, because it is the only time, is said to be the image *tou aiōnos* (of the aeon), that is, of eternity.[19] For just as the *aiōn* (aeon) has all things

[10] See Michel Tardieu, *Recherches sur la formation de l'Apocalypse de Zostrien et les sources de Marius Victorinus* (Bures-sur-Yvette, 1996); John Douglas Turner, *Sethian Gnosticism and the Platonic Tradition* (Québec a.o., 2001).

[11] See Matthias Baltes, *Marius Victorinus: Zur Philosophie in seinen theologischen Schriften* (München and Leipzig, 2002), 117-25.

[12] *Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 544.29-33).

[13] ... *αἰών conficitur praesenti semper rerum omnium actu. Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 524.9-10).

[14] *Enn.* III 7.3.16-7, English transl. Arthur Hilary Armstrong, *Plotinus, Enneads*, III (Cambridge, Massachusetts and London, 1967).

[15] *Enn.* III 7.6.10.

[16] See P. Hadot *ad loc.* (SC 69, 1010).

[17] See Werner Beierwaltes, Introduction, in: *Plotinus, Über Ewigkeit und Zeit. Enneade III,7* (Frankfurt a. M., 1981[3]).

[18] ... ἡ περὶ τὸ ὂν ἐν τῷ εἶναι ζωὴ ὁμοῦ πᾶσα καὶ πλήρης ἀδιάστατος πανταχῇ (*Enn.* III 7.3.36-8), English transl. A.H. Armstrong. See *Enn.* III 7.6.8: τοῦ ὄντος ζωή, 'life of that which is'. The notion of 'life' is missing in the parallel passage about the intellect and eternity in Porphyry, *Sententiae* 44.17-31.

[19] See Plato, *Tim.* 37d; Plotinus, *Enn.* III 7.1 and 11.

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always present and has them always, we also, through present time, have all that we can have; therefore this time of ours is image *tou aiōnos* (of the aeon), because our present is not always present to the same things and because it is not always identical to itself.'[20]

Time as an 'image of eternity' means for Victorinus that our life is always the present, not the past or the future. Also, according to the Stoics[21] only the present exists because only the present accompanies the actual action as a state of material substance. The infinite and un-corporeal (with nothing corporeal connected) past and future can subsist in our thinking (ὑφεστάναι), but it does not really exist (ὑπάρχειν),[22] like the void which is not filled with anything material.[23] Time (χρόνος) has thus for the Stoics two meanings:[24] on the one hand, as all time, *i.e.* the in-existing infinite (infinitely dividable) past and future (called also αἰών[25]); on the other hand, as the present moment, *i.e.* an interval filled by a movement of a material substance. 'All time' in the first sense is the interval of the world's movement,[26] *i.e.* the interval of a cosmic period in pulsing of divine *pneuma*, which (according to some Stoics) is repeated without end.[27] Time in the second sense is a span of an actual movement, *i.e.* of an action of a corporeal substance.

The Stoics thus interpret the 'is' – reserved in Plato (*Tim.* 37e 6) for the immutable eternity – in a temporal sense as an actual movement, and this temporal

[20] *Sed et nostrum vivere constat ex praesenti semper tempore: non enim vivimus praeteritum aut vivimus futurum, sed semper praesenti utimur; hoc enim solum tempus est; quod ipsum solum, quia solum tempus est, imago esse dicitur τοῦ αἰῶνος, id est aeternitatis. Quomodo enim αἰών semper praesentia habet omnia et haec semper, nos quoque, quia, per praesens tempus, habemus omnia quae habere possumus, idcirco hoc tempus nostrum τοῦ αἰῶνος imago est, quia nostrum praesens non in isdem neque idem semper est praesens. Adv. Ar.* IV 15 (SC 68, 542.13-544.22). The English transl. Mary T. Clark, *Marius Victorinus, Theological treatises on the Trinity* (Washington, D.C., 1981), 273.

[21] See Victor Goldschmidt, *Le système stoïcien et l'idée de temps* (Paris, 1953), 30-45 and 96.

[22] See Chrysippus as quoted by Arius Didymus: 'He says that only the present exists; the past and the future subsist (in thinking), but they exist in no way' (μόνον δ' ὑπάρχειν φησὶ τὸν ἐνεστῶτα, τὸν δὲ παρῳχημένον καὶ τὸν μέλλοντα ὑφεστάναι μέν, ὑπάρχειν δὲ οὐδαμῶς φησιν. *Physica*, frg. 26; SVF II 509.26-7). See also Marcus Aurelius who concludes it necessary to turn oneself's attention only to the present (*Ad se ipsum*, II 14.6; 14.6-7 Dalfen; III 10.1; 20.4-5 Dalfen). That which subsists only in thinking, not as material substance (τὸ κατὰ φαντασίαν λογικὴν ὑφεστάμενον), the Stoics call λεκτόν (see Diogenes Laërtius, VII 63; SVF II 181.28-9).

[23] According to the Stoics, the present as a distension of time is filled through human action, like a distension of a room filled through the tonical movement of *pneuma* (see P. Hadot, *Porphyre et Victorinus*, 1968, II 386).

[24] See Chrysippus as quoted by Arius Didymus, frg. 26 (SVF II 509.18-30).

[25] Not by Chrysippus but by Marcus Aurelius, *Ad se ipsum*, IV 3.7 (23.14 Dalfen); XII 7 (108.19 Dalfen); XII 32 (112,21 and 32 Dalfen).

[26] See Apollodoros as quoted by Arius Didymus, *Physica*, frg. 26 (Diels, *DG* 461,7-8).

[27] See Origenes, *Contra Celsum* IV 68; V 20 (282; 336-7 Marcovich = SVF II 626); Marcus Aurelius, *Ad se ipsum* II 14 (14 Dalfen).

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presence is furthermore understood as a span or duration, as a whole act defining this span, not just as an immeasurable fleeting point in which the future passes to the past.[28]

In our text, Victorinus seems to adopt exactly this Stoic idea of time as a mere presence,[29] which he however – unlike the Stoics – combines with the Platonic and Neoplatonic doctrine of time as the image of eternity. While his conception of time as a mere presence comes close to the Stoics, his conception of eternity as the all-embracing presence of all things, whose image is time, seems to be borrowed from the Neoplatonists. The specific feature in Victorinus' doctrine of time is exactly this combination of the Stoic time and the Neoplatonic eternity, whose connection is alien to both Stoics and Platonists. In Victorinus' view, time is the present, albeit always the changing actuality of our life. In its present character consists the analogy of time to eternity as the always present act of all things (the life of Intellect in Plotinus).[30]

Thus, Victorinus' interpretation of time as the image of eternity differs a lot from Plato's idea of time as a period during which stars, through their circular movement return to their original configuration, gradually reaching their original position and so imitating the immutable eternity.[31] It also differs from Plotinus' exposition of time (the life of the Soul) imitating the immutable presence of all things in eternity (the life of the Intellect) by its continual reach for that which it does not yet have, *i.e.* by its desire for being which it never has fully, by its orientation towards the future.[32]

Neither Plato nor Plotinus see the similarity of time to eternity in human time as a permanent (albeit changing) presence, but on the contrary, in its approaching an identity always supposed in the future (or in the past). Instead of presenting human time as a span oriented towards the future (this conception

[28] See V. Goldschmidt, *Le système stoïcien* (1953), 43.

[29] In his commentary on Cicero's Rhetoric (*De inventione*, I 26.39), Victorinus presents an exposition concerning time as one aspect of human action. Here also we meet above all the Stoic conception of time. Unlike in our text, however, we find here the Stoic idea of double time: eternity (*aeternitas*) as an all-embracing interval of time (*tempus generale* or αἰών) and our actually lived time *(tempus quo nunc utimur)*, which is part of this eternity and which is measured by the movements of stars (see *e.g.* Cicero, *De nat. deorum* II 19.49-20.53, II 18-20 Mayor). Victorinus further mentions the opinion of the 'philosophers', according to which there is no presence, being neither past nor future. This also seems to be a Stoic opinion, see Chrysippus as quoted by Arius Didymus, frg. 26 (SVF II 509.23-26); also Plutarcus (SVF II 519) testifies to the idea that the actually lived interval of time (presence) is never present as a whole (see V. Goldschmidt, *Le système stoïcien*, 1953, 37). Finally, Victorinus with the commented text by Cicero distinguishes (as an opinion of the 'rhetoricians') three kinds of spoken time: past, present, and future (see Victorinus, *Explanationes in Ciceronis Rhetoricam* I 26; 223.14-224.24 Halm).

[30] See P. Hadot, SC 69, 1011.

[31] *Tim.* 37c-39e.

[32] See *Enn.* III 7.4.11.

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is posited by some of Victorinus' contemporaries, like Gregory of Nyssa,[33] not so clearly Augustine[34]), Victorinus understands human time as a permanently fleeting presence. Although this shift seems to be unimportant, it might imply a very different idea of not only time and history, but also of human existence as such.[35] Instead of being oriented to the future and towards the things to come, man has, in Vicorinus' view, just his fleeting presence as a moving image of immutable eternity.

[33] For the conception of time in Gregory of Nyssa see John F. Callahan, Gregory of Nyssa and the Psychological View of Time, in: *Atti del XII Congresso Internazionale di Filosofia* (Venezia, sept. 1958), XI (Firenze 1960), 59-66; *id.*, Basil of Caesarea, a New Source for St. Augustine's Theory of Time: *Harvard Studies in Classical Philology* 63 (1958) 437-54; Lloyd G. Patterson, The Conversion of 'Diastema' in the Patristic View of Time, in: Richard A. Norris, Jr. (ed.), *Lux in lumine: Essays to Honor W. Norman Pittinger* (New York, 1966), 93-111 and 180-183; Brooks Otis, Gregory of Nyssa and the Cappadocian Conception of Time: *SP* 14 (1976) 327-57.

[34] According to some interpreters, Augustine's conception of time as a span of human spirit between the past and the future (*distentio animi*, *Confessiones* XI 26.33; CChr.SL 27, 211,20-1) can also be understood as an orientation towards the future, see Peter Brunner, Zur Auseinandersetzung zwischen antikem und christlichem Zeit- und Geschichtsverständnis bei Augustin: *Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche N.F.* 14 (1933) 1-25, esp. 14; Rudolf Berlinger, Zeit und Zeitlichkeit bei Aurelius Augustinus: *Zeitschrift für philosophische Forschung* 7 (1953) 493-510, esp. 505. Some other interpreters, however, refute this understanding, see Ulrich Duchrow, Der sogenannte psychologische Zeitbegriff Augustins im Verhältnis zur physikalischen und geschichtlichen Zeit: *Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche* 63 (1966) 267-88; Ernst A. Schmidt, *Zeit und Geschichte bei Augustin* (Heidelberg, 1985), 11-63; Friedrich-Wilhelm von Herrmann, *Augustinus und die phänomenologische Frage nach der Zeit* (Frankfurt a. M., 1992); Kurt Flasch, *Was ist Zeit? Augustinus von Hippo. Das XI. Buch der Confessiones (Text – Übersetzung – Kommentar)* (Frankfurt a. M., 1993), 48-50; Walter Mesch, *Reflektierte Gegenwart: Eine Studie über Zeit und Ewigkeit bei Platon, Aristoteles, Plotin und Augustinus* (Frankfurt a. M., 2003), 300f.

[35] For Victorinus' underestimation of history (even the salvation history) see E. Benz, *Marius Victorinus* (1932), 103-6, 108, 160, 168f.; Wolfgang K. Wischmeyer, Bemerkungen zu den Paulusbriefkommentaren des C. Marius Victorinus: *Zeitschrift für neutestamentliche Wissenschaft* 63 (1972) 109-20, esp. 119.

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Marius Victorinus' Latin Witness of *Filioque*

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In the four books that make up Marius Victorinus' Neo-Nicene polemical-exegetical work *Against Arius*, there is an intense effort to argue for the shared nature of Father and Son – and of Father, Son and Holy Spirit. The matter of the Spirit does not suffer a total lack of attention in all of the efforts put forth for speaking of the Father and the Son; Victorinus has a theology of the Holy Spirit that may have a secondary role within his entire treatise, and yet he makes it quite clear that Father, Son and Holy Spirit are consubstantial, not just the Father and the Son. Victorinus makes this point relentlessly throughout his treatise, as well as in a smaller, summary treatise that followed *Against Arius*, *The Necessity of Accepting the Homoousios*, as well as in three trinitarian hymns written around the same time.

And not just the consubstantiality of the Spirit marks Victorinus' reflection on the Trinity, but even the source of the Spirit's procession, is something that he makes sure to comment upon in three of the four books of *Against Arius*.

In Book I of *Against Arius* Victorinus rallies the scriptural evidence for the begetting of the Son of God, with extended exegesis and commentary on the Gospels and the Pauline Epistles. It is enough of a surprise though that in Book I Victorinus argues for consubstantiality of the Father, Son and Spirit right after introductory remarks. In Book I 8, for example, Victorinus nearly equates Son and Spirit as being almost the same distinct reality from the Father, commenting on *John* 1:18, about the Son being from within 'the bosom of the Father.' Victorinus says that since 'just as the Son is from the bosom of the Father and 'in the bosom' of the Father, so the Spirit is from within the Son. The three are therefore *homoousioi* ...'[1]

Various passing comments of Victorinus speak of the Spirit's identity in relation to the Son as Victorinus continues his discussion of the divine identity of the Son. He says: 'That the Paraclete is the power of Christ ...' as he comments on *John* 14:17: 'But you know him because he dwells with you ...'[2] He says

[1] Marius Victorinus, *Theological Treatises on the Trinity/Marius Victorinus*, transl. Mary Clark, Fathers of the Church, vol. 69 (Washington, 1981), 99f. AA I 8, 16-8: *Sicuti enim a gremio patris et in gremio filius, sic a ventre filii spiritus. 'Ομοούσιοι ergo tres et idcirco in omnibus unus deus.* Marius Victorinus, *Opera*, ed. Pierre Hadot et Paul Henry, CSEL 83/1 (Vienna, 1971), 65.

[2] Clark, 103. AA 11, 27-8: *Quod potentia Christi sit paraclitus: vos autem cognoscitis ipsum, quoniam apud vos manet* (CSEL 83/1, 69). AA I 12, 3-4, 7, 10-12.

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'that the Holy Spirit is from Christ as Christ is from God ... That the Paraclete is from the Son ...' and that 'Christ is Paraclete and the Holy Spirit is Paraclete' as he comments on the sending language in *John* 14.[3] But it is in this discussion of consubstantiality that he makes his most explicit reference so far to the Spirit's procession, in Book I 13:

'That there is a twofold power of the *Logos* with God, one visible, Christ in the flesh, the other in hiding, the Holy Spirit – therefore while the *Logos* was in presence, that is, Christ, the *Logos* in hiding, that is, the Holy Spirit, could not come: "Indeed, if I do not go, the Paraclete will not come to you". Therefore these are also two, one coming from the other, the Holy Spirit from the Son just as the Son comes from God and, as a logical consequence, the Holy Spirit also comes from the Father.'[4]

Much later in Book I, as he discusses the *Logos* as proper name for the Son, Victorinus will restate this:

'The Son is therefore both word and voice, he is life, he is *Logos*, he is movement, he is *Nous*, he is wisdom, he is existence and first substance, he is the action of power, he is the first *on* (Existent), the true *on* (Existent) from whom, through whom, in whom are all *onta* (existents); he is the mid-angle of the Trinity; he reveals the preexisting Father and sends forth the Holy Spirit for the sake of perfection.'[5]

There is not any mention of the Spirit's procession from the Father or the Son in Book II of *Against Arius*, as Victorinus specifically turns his focus on Latin Homoians. But in Book III, as he speaks about the dual theme of a Father-Son dyad and Son-Holy Spirit dyad, Victorinus also speaks of the consubstantiality of the Son and the Spirit. In speaking of the *Logos* as the act, or movement, of existence, Victorinus sees the *Logos* as being twofold (III 8); for example, he states 'that there are two existences: that of Christ, that of the Holy Spirit, in one movement which is Son', but he adds that 'the Holy Spirit is also from the Father'.[6]

The unity of Son and Spirit exists in life, and in knowledge, Victorinus describes, and Father and Son are one, just as Son and Spirit are one. And in order to speak of the unity of Son and Spirit, Victorinus takes up *John* 14 again,

[3] Clark, 104. AA I 12, 3-4, 7, 10-1: *Quod a Christo sanctus spiritus, sicuti Christus a deo... Quod a filio paraclitus... paraclitus Christus, paraclitus sanctus spiritus* (CSEL 83/1, 70).

[4] Clark, 106. AA I 13, 23-30: *Quod duplex potentia τοῦ λόγου ad deum, una in manifesto, Christus in carne, alia in occulto, spiritus sanctus – in praesentia ergo cum erat λόγος , hoc est Christus, non poterat venire λόγος in occulto, hoc est spiritus sanctus –: etenim si non discedo, paraclitus non veniet ad vos. Duo ergo et isti, ex alio alius, ex filio spiritus sanctus, secuti ex deo filius, et conrationaliter et spiritus sanctus ex patre* (CSEL 83/1, 72).

[5] Clark, 181-2. AA I 56, 15-20: *Verbum igitur et vox filius est, ipse vita, ispe λόγος, ipse motus, ipse νοῦς, ipse sapientia, ipse exsistentia et substantia prima, ipse actio potentialis, ipse ὄν primum, vere ὄν ex quo omnia ὄντα et per quem et in quo, qui est medius in angulo trinitatis, patrem declarat praeexsistentem et conplet sanctum spiritum in perfectionem* (CSEL 83/1, 154).

[6] Clark, 234. AA III 8, 41-42, 43 *ut sint exsistentiae duae, Christi et spiritus sancti, in uno motu qui filius est... et spiritus sanctus etiam ipse a patre* (CSEL 83/1, 205).

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to consider the identity of Jesus and the Holy Spirit, and specifically the title of Paraclete. 'What is the Paraclete?' Victorinus asks in Book III 14.

'Someone near the Father who defends and upholds all faithful and believing men. Who is this? Is it the Holy Spirit alone? Or is he also identical with Christ? Indeed, Christ himself said: "God will give you another Paraclete". Insofar as he said "another", he spoke of one other than himself. Insofar as he said "Paraclete", he expressed the likeness of their work *and the identity of their actions in some manner.* Therefore, he is also Spirit Paraclete, and the Holy Spirit is another Paraclete, and he is sent by the Father. The Holy Spirit is therefore Jesus.' (!)[7]

Movement and act are the unity language on which Victorinus holds forth, as well as an involved exegesis of the Spirit statements of Jesus to his disciples in the last chapters of the *Gospel of John.* In Book III this unity language that Victorinus uses between the Son and the Spirit is a consequence of his rather involved work at describing the Son-Holy Spirit dyad, but it also sounds dangerously Modalistic, which is a small problem evident throughout the four books of *Against Arius*, and which can be put down to the idea that as a Neo-Nicene, Victorinus was coming out of a tradition of a miahypostatic milieu, where the Western Latin understanding of speaking about three subsistences in God was a tool for trinitarian reflection still rather new.

Victorinus includes sending language in Book III 15 that usually involves the Father sending the Son and the Son sending the Spirit, though he qualifies this at times to say that they are all three linked together: The Spirit is sent from the Father, but also Jesus himself sends the Spirit. More of this sending language appears in the fourth and final book of *Against Arius.* He concludes Book III with another statement that reiterates the unity of Son and Spirit:

'From him Christ in the flesh is conceived; from him Christ in the flesh is sanctified in baptism; he himself is Christ in the flesh; he is given to the apostles by Christ in the flesh, so that they may baptize in the name of God, of Christ, and of the Holy Spirit; he is the one whom Christ in the flesh promised would come; with a certain difference of acting, the same one is both Christ and the Holy Spirit, and because Spirit, on that account also God, because Christ insofar as he is Spirit is therefore God. That is why the Father and the Son and the Spirit are not only one reality, but also one God.'[8]

[7] Clark, 242-3. AA III 14, 4-12: *Quid est paraclitus? Qui adserat adstruatque apud patrem homines omnes fideles atque credentes. Qui iste est? Unusne solus spiritus sanctus? An idem et Christus? Etenim ipse dixit: alium paraclitum dabit vobis deus. Dum dixit alium, se dixit alium. Dum dixit paraclitum, operam similem declaravit et eandem quodammodo actionem. Ergo et spiritus paraclitus et spiritus sanctus alius paraclitus et ipse a patre mittitur. Iesus ergo spiritus sanctus* (CSEL 83/1, 214).

[8] Clark, 252. AA III 18, 20-8: *Ex ipso concipitur Christus in carne; ex ipso sanctificatur in baptismo Christus in carne; ipse est in Christo qui in carne; ipse datur apostolis a Christo qui in carne est, ut baptizent in deo et in Christo et spiritu sancto; ipse est quem Christus in carne promittit esse venturum; quadam agendi distantia idem ipse et Christus et spiritus sanctus et, quia spiritus, idcirco et deus, quia Christus, quod spiritus, ideo deus. Unde pater et filius et spiritus, non solum unum, sed et unus deus* (CSEL 83/1, 224).

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The unity language of this passage, versus its language of distinction, is almost side-tracked by the economical term 'Christ in the flesh' which Victorinus uses, a term which appears elsewhere in this work and in his Pauline commentaries. But Victorinus here asserts that Christ and the Holy Spirit are both act and movement, but of different kinds. I would compare it to Book IV 18, when Victorinus cautions that even though 'the Holy Spirit is somehow identical of Jesus ... they are different through the proper movement of their action.'[9] Interestingly, in the paragraph before this one in Book III there appears one of Victorinus' statements of shared nature/shared operations in the Trinity, when he says that 'the three are one in power and substance.'[10] This theme of connaturality is key for Victorinus' arguments on behalf of the consubstantiality of the hypostases of the Trinity, an advanced feature of his theology which somehow pushes him out of the Latin Neo-Nicenes to the Pro-Nicene camp of a decade or so later.

Book IV of *Against Arius* concentrates on the Son-Holy Spirit dyad, resumes sending language of Father and Son and Spirit, as well as sums up the argument of all four books in its last several pages. The statements of sending may speak, for example, that 'all that the Holy Spirit possesses he has received from Christ, and Christ from the Father.'[11] Or it may be reversed, as in IV 18, when Victorinus recalls Johannine language of Christ having 'all things' which the Father has, Victorinus says that 'from the Father comes the Son, and from the Son, the Holy Spirit.'[12] This is also comparable to Victorinus' trinitarian Hymn I, which says: 'Hence Christ has all from the Father, hence the Spirit has all from Christ ...'[13] Or also Hymn III, where the text reads: 'The Father sent Christ, Christ sent the Paraclete. That Christ might appear by the Paraclete/That the Father might appear by Christ ...'[14] Or also in Hymn III, where 'the supreme Father sends the *Logos* as sent, he creates and serves all/Taking a body unto himself for our salvation, as well as the holy cross/Returning to the Father as victor, he sent another self to save us.'[15]

[9] Clark, 277. AA IV 18, 19-20: *quodammodo idem Iesus, idem spiritus sanctus, actu scilicet agendi diversi* (CSEL 83/1, 251).

[10] Clark, 251: 'Since this is so, if God and Christ are one, while Christ and the Spirit are one, one can rightly say that the three are one in power and substance.' AA III 18, 11-2 (CSEL 83/1, 223).

[11] Clark, 275. AA IV 16, 26-8: *omnia tamen spiritus sanctus quae habet a Christo accepit, Christus a patre* (CSEL 83/1, 249).

[12] Clark, 277. AA IV 18, 9-10: *id est de patre filius, de filio spiritus sanctus* (CSEL 83/1, 251).

[13] Clark, 318. *Hymnus Primus: De Trinitate* I 62: *Hinc patris cuncta Christus, hinc habet Christi cuncta spiritus* (CSEL 83/1, 288).

[14] Clark, 331. *Hymnus Tertius* 196-8: *Hinc Christum misit pater, Christus paraclitum, Christus ut paraclito, Christo ut appareret pater* (CSEL 83/1, 302).

[15] Clark, 333. *Hymnus Tertius* 252-7: *Hinc pater summus mittit λόγον; missus creat et ministrat omnia, Portans in salutem nobis carnem, simul et sanctam crucem, Remeans victor ad patrem, salvandis nobis [se]se misit alterum* (CSEL 83/1, 304).

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The presence of what might be called a Latin Neo-Nicene *Filioque* pneumatology of the late 350s and early 360s may be as hard to explain as it is to fit Victorinus into a category with other Latin Neo-Nicenes. There is more than sufficient evidence in recent Victorine scholarship to show that Victorinus was never as isolated from other Latin Neo-Nicenes than was once thought.

But this simple but striking pneumatology of Victorinus can find an easy explanation in the Son-Spirit dyad of his theology. Victorinus is carrying out a close exegesis of key texts for the sake of deploying a Neo-Nicene polemic against Anti-Nicenes, and for him there is an obvious need to argue for the consubstantiality not only of Father and Son but of Father, Son and Holy Spirit. Key texts from the Fourth Gospel which speak of unity of persons in the Trinity, especially the Paraclete statements of the latter chapters of that Gospel, are tempered with Victorinus' important theme of one substance one power statements about the hypostases of the Godhead.

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Filastrius of Brescia's *Diversarum Hereseon Liber*: A Study in Patristic Mediocrity

Joshua PAPSDORF, Wichita, Kansas

The shadow of St. Augustine looms large over the Latin Church, and Philastrius of Brescia, an obscure Italian bishop of the late fourth century, lies in a particularly dark region of it. Every scholarly treatment of Philastrius includes, and often begins with, Augustine's damning assessment of Philastrius' only major work, the *Diversarum Hereseon Liber*, a catalog of 156 heresies. In letter 222 to Quodvultdeus, Augustine attempts to put off his friend's request for a treatise on heresies by referring him to the work of two previous authors: Philastrius and Epiphanius of Salamis. In the process he compares the two, much to Philastrius' disadvantage. Where the authors differ Augustine indicates one should prefer Epiphanius as the far superior scholar, and in his conclusion Augustine reiterates the evaluation by asking whether he should send the far superior work of Epiphanius. Despite the fact that Augustine uses Philastrius when he does, eventually, compose *De haeresibus*, Philastrius' reputation is not much benefited since Augustine dismisses a large part of Philastrius' work.

Following such an assessment it is not surprising that Philastrius' work has been consigned to the back shelves for the past sixteen centuries. That fate was tangibly conveyed to me when the interlibrary loan office was able to track down a copy of Friedrich Marx's critical edition of *Diversarum Hereseon*.[1] The taped and faded labels made it clear that the book had been acquired many decades ago, yet as I began reading I was forced to pause at regular intervals to split pages that had never been separated. Clearly, this is not an oft used text. There are a few articles and papers that treat Philastrius' work, but they focus either on its utility in reconstructing his more important sources or on the insights that it offers into obscure heretical groups. Philastrius' own thought is hardly mentioned.

Faced with this enigmatic figure, the scholar in me was intrigued. Was this, perhaps, a chance to discover a hidden gem that had languished all these centuries? Did Philastrius hold a significance that others had failed to note as the same terse assessment was passed down from one encyclopedia entry to another? To give away the ending, alas, the answer is no. Sadly this is not to

[1] Friedrich Marx (transl.), *Sancti Filastrii episcopi Brixiensis Diversarvm hereseon liber*, CSEL 38 (Vienna, 1898).

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be the dawning of a glorious new age of Philastrius studies. Nonetheless, my study of this admittedly mediocre work did reveal some insights that add flesh to the rather skeletal summary typically found in the existing scholarship. I have five, brief points to offer toward that end.

The first, ironically enough, calls into question one of the few accepted facts about Philastrius, namely, that he was primarily devoted to combating Arianism. The degree of Philastrius' opposition to Arianism is known to us not from his treatments of it in the catalog, but rather, from accounts of his opposition to the Arian party in fourth-century Italy. In a homily commemorating Philastrius' death, his successor at Brescia, Gaudentius, described Philastrius as a formidable opponent of Arianism who was involved in an attempted ouster of Ambrose's predecessor in Milan, the Homoian Auxentius. Coming then, to the catalog one would expect a considerable amount of attention to be devoted to Arianism, but in reality, the attention it receives is very modest. Philastrius dedicates four chapters to Arianism, and those four chapters comprise only eighty-nine lines in the CSEL edition. By way of comparison, Philastrius devotes at least eleven chapters to disputes about the canon of scripture, comprising 265 lines. While it might be objected that Scripture is simply a much broader topic; the same disparity holds in terms of the individual chapters. The most protracted chapter on Arianism, chapter 127 on the generation of the Son, is a mere thirty-six lines; far short of the 108 lines devoted to the exegesis of the cleansing of Isaiah's unclean lips in *Isaiah* 6, the ninety-two lines devoted to explaining the nature of the Cherubim and Seraphim in that same passage, and at least fifteen other chapters on a range of topics.

It is not clear why this is the case, nor, what should be drawn from it. The fact that he was renowned for his battle against a heresy to which he devotes only modest attention in his writing may either indicate that his writing does not necessarily reflect his priorities, or, it may indicate that Philastrius was more comprehensive in his theological concerns than the standard footnote biography would convey. Either way it is cause for restraint in drawing conclusions from the scant evidence we possess.

Bearing that cautionary note in mind, my second point is that if one were to speculate on Philastrius' primary concern purely on the basis of the catalog, the defense of the canon of Scripture is arguably the leading candidate. While Philastrius' concern with the integrity of Scripture naturally includes opposition to illegitimate exegesis, he devotes greater attention to defending the canonical status of contested books in both the Old and New Testaments, affirming the traditional authorship of disputed books, and arguing for the Septuagint as the sole authoritative version.

Philastrius' concern for the integrity of the canon first emerges in his rapid overview of the history of heresies and heresiarchs, which forms the first half of the catalog. Philastrius typically provides a snapshot of how the heretics in question deviated from orthodoxy and the items on his standard checklist begin

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with whether or not they accepted the law, prophets and apostles. In the topical half of the catalog, Philastrius engages numerous heresies that would deny the canonicity of, or at least the spiritual value of, certain books. In chapter 60 he briefly defends the legitimacy of *John's Gospel* and the *Apocalypse*, which some reject as Cerinthian works. In chapter 88, he attacks those who reject the canonical scriptures and accept only apocrypha. He defends the Pauline authorship of *Hebrews* by rejecting the claim that it depicts the Son as created and the claim that it supports the Novatianist rejection of penitence in chapter 89. He addresses those who are scandalized by the chronological inconsistency of the *Psalms* in chapter 130. And, he defends the spiritual worth of both *Ecclesiastes*, chapter 134, and the *Song of Songs*, chapter 135. As for the version of scripture to be used, Philastrius sees any deviation away from the Septuagint as a heresy, chapters 142–6. On all of these matters he offers sound, standard arguments for the orthodox position.

In regard to exegesis, his standing is more questionable. Philastrius endorses and uses allegorical exegesis, but with varying degrees of success. For example, he rejects a literal reading of Joshua's circumcision of the Israelites in *Joshua* 5 and presents it as an allegory for the cutting away of spiritual hard-heartedness. His allegory falters from the outset however since in the passage the hardness, found in the sharp stones reportedly used by Joshua, is the instrument for, not the object of, the cutting. So, while the integrity of Scripture may be Philastrius' primary concern, his success on the matter is mixed.

The third point I would offer regarding Philastrius' work is to indicate an area where he may be of some interest to scholars, and that is in his treatment of human free will and sinfulness. In a number of chapters Philastrius argues against any views that would impinge upon human free will, and especially any attempts to locate responsibility for human sinfulness anywhere except in man's free will. Philastrius addresses a number of threats to that freedom, of which the most important are those implicating God in human sinfulness. In chapter 101, Philastrius rejects the idea that God directs the actions of wicked kings and false prophets, which some had apparently proposed due to the fact that God sometimes uses the wicked to consume the wicked. In chapters 109-11, Philastrius explains that paganism was not intended by God nor was it the state in which God created mankind. Paganism grew out of the gradual corruption of humanity initiated by the misuse of free will.

All this too is fairly standard material. It is when Philastrius moves to the influence of Adam and original sin that we might find something of note, albeit primarily as a useful contrast to the developments that would emerge in the West a few decades later. Philastrius affirms the reality of original sin and cites *Romans* 5:12 as proof that we all inherit the iniquity of our parents in our flesh. At the same time he presents its impact on human nature as fairly limited. He notes that many of the patriarchs and prophets were sanctified while still in the womb. More importantly, he argues that the expulsion from the garden

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was not primarily punitive but rather was intended to minimize the impact of Adam's sin and lead him to repentance. Thus, he could avoid the type and extent of sin that did result in the ultimate damnation of Satan. Philastrius argues that God's purpose was achieved and man was more inclined to penitence following the expulsion, which God responded to by offering his Son. The potential value of this interpretation is that it represents the understanding of original sin and *Romans* 5:12 in a Latin author only a decade or so prior to Augustine's revolutionary work beginning with *Ad Simplicianum*.

My fourth point brings us to the final major theme in Philastrius' work, which receives almost as much attention as his defense of the canon and that is his insistence on a cosmos ordered around creation *ex nihilo*, a strict hierarchy of being, and the conviction that such an order extends down to the finest detail and is clearly discernible by the human intellect.[2] He argues these points against those who philosophized about coeternal matter, an eternal, unchanging cosmos, or a multitude of worlds. He also insists on a very clearly demarcated hierarchy of being. On this topic he opposes those who proposed a reincarnation of the wicked in animal form. Less obviously, he also rejects any literal reading of *Genesis* 6:2, which seems to describe spiritual beings consorting with human women.

Philastrius extends that strict order to cover a wide range of topics from the precise dating of creation to the numbering of the heavenly realms and the geographical division of the world. Unfortunately in his zeal he gets carried away. While many might be sympathetic to his attack on the naming of constellations after pagan gods, Philastrius goes on to label as heresy the giving of any names to the stars beyond those contained in Holy Scripture. He bases this on *Ps.* 147:4 which informs us that God has already numbered the stars and calls them by name. This is but the most striking example of a closed-mindedness that pervades a number of Philastrius' discussions of peripheral and debatable issues.

Which brings me to my fifth and final point, a general reflection on Philastrius' work. Reading the catalog, one quickly comes to understand why Augustine was critical of Philastrius' definition of heresy and why he is such an unsympathetic figure for scholars. The marriage of decidedly modest talent and a refusal to countenance any discussion or disagreement is not a happy one. Even for those seeking to defend him there is no avoiding those harsh realities. What makes him more of a tragic figure, in my estimation, is that it easily could have been different. As I have mentioned in passing, Philastrius' catalog is divided into two sections, the first is a succinct historical survey of heresies

[2] Philastrius also devotes a considerable effort to combating Jovinianism and other forms of excessive asceticism. For an excellent treatment of this topic see the recent book by David Hunter, *Marriage, Celibacy, and Heresy in Ancient Christianity: The Jovinianist Controversy* (Oxford, 2007).

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and heresiarchs. Some have noted that Philastrius tends to pad the list by listing masters and disciples as separate heresies, but on the whole it is a decent survey. In the second, topical part of the catalogue that I have focused on in my comments, Philastrius deals with theological positions rather than specific figures. This second half is what produces most of the negative impression of Philastrius because on every issue it divides the range of possible views into two categories: Philastrius's own view or heresy. In studying this section I was struck by how similar it is to the *quaestiones* genre, which was also popular in the late-fourth-century, Latin world. Like the *quaestiones* collections, Philastrius' work is a collection of essays, varying in length, on a wide range of exegetical and theological topics. Many of the topics Philastrius discusses are also addressed by figures like Augustine, Jerome, and Ambrosiaster in their collections of *quaestiones*. If Philastrius had been willing to go beyond the confines of heresiology and divide his work, labeling the first section a catalog of heresies and the second as a collection of *quaestiones*, I believe his work would be seen in a much more sympathetic light even if it would still be deemed mediocre. Of course, Philastrius would also have to remove the phrase *alia est heresis* from the start of each chapter but their essence could have remained more or less the same.

Of course, in the attempt to offer this sympathetic alternative, one must ask whether Philastrius' rigidity was imposed on him, to an extent, by his choice of genre, or if he purposely chose the genre and its rigidity because it corresponded with his character. If the former is true, then Philastrius could have been, and might still be considered as, a participant of modest talent in the development of Latin heresiology and the *quaestiones* tradition. If the later is true, then obviously no sympathetic reconstruction would be possible, and we are left with a cantankerous bishop of little theological talent. Unfortunately, without a wider body of evidence there is no way to know.

Even if that question cannot be satisfactorily answered, I believe there is something to be gained from the study of Philastrius' work. For while it may not have played a major role in the development of the Latin tradition, it does provide a useful reminder for those of us committed to patristic thought. Between the great figures of classic 'top-down' theology and the ancient everyman or everywoman of 'bottom-up' social theology, lies the average bishop and middling theologian. Not all churches could be led by an Augustine or a Basil and most fourth-century Christians likely found themselves led by someone like Philastrius. Indeed, even Philastrius' modest talent was likely greater than most bishops who have left us nothing of their thought. Reading this type of work on occasion might lead us to consider in more depth how the theological insights produced by the giants of the era were actually conveyed to the people through their own bishops of more modest ability. And, for those involved in modern ecclesiastical disputes, it might be comforting to know that episcopal statements of dubious merit have a long history.

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A Comprehensive Reading of Ambrose's *Explanatio psalmorum XII*

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The common opinion describes the *Explanatio psalmorum XII*[1] as a work which has not been conceived by Ambrose as a whole, but just consists of twelve sermons preached in different times and assembled after his death.[2]

Indeed, we have no explicit statement by Ambrose about this collection and the Psalms that were commented upon seem to have been collected without order.[3] Some manuscripts[4] present the twelve *explanationes* each as a single text, others classify under the same title the first eleven commentaries, thus presenting the *explanatio* of Psalm 61 as a text added later; sometimes the last *explanatio* is missing, but it can be found in other manuscripts together with Ambrose's political speeches. Most of the texts reveal an homiletic origin, but the listeners were various kinds of people in different times of the year. The date of composition of the twelve *explanationes* can be recognised between 388 and 397: such a long passage of time challenges the possibility of a continuous and unitary inspiration; Paulinus links the incompleteness of *Explanatio Psalmi* 43 to the end of Ambrose's life: the bishop would have been forced to lay in bed while he was dictating it, so he could not organize a whole series of Psalm commentaries.[5]

According to these statements, one could retain as ascertained that neither the twelve *explanationes* are connected to each other, nor Ambrose built an organized body of Psalm commentaries.

[1] Michael Petschenig (ed.), *Sancti Ambrosi Opera Pars VI. Explanatio Psalmorum XII. Editio altera supplementis aucta, curante* Michaela Zelzer, CSEL 64 (Vindobonae-Lipsiae, 1919, 1999²).

[2] See: Giuseppe Visonà, *Cronologia Ambrosiana. Bibliografia Ambrosiana*, SAEMO 25/26 (Milano-Roma, 2004), 90-95. 'SAEMO' is for *Sancti Ambrosii Episcopi Mediolanensis Opera*, latin-italian edition of Ambrose's *opera omnia* published by Biblioteca Ambrosiana-Città Nuova Editrice (Milano-Roma, 1979-...).

[3] The Psalms are: 1, 35, 36, 37, 38, 39, 40, 43, 45, 47, 48, 61.

[4] See: Michaela Zelzer, Quelques remarques sur la tradition des œuvres d'Ambroise et sur leurs titres originaux, in: Gérard Nauroy (ed.), *Lire et éditer aujourd'hui Ambroise de Milan* (Berne, 2007), 21-35.

[5] Paulinus, *Vita Ambrosii* 42,1-2: *Ante paucos uero dies quam lectulo detineretur, cum quadragesimum tertium psalmum dictaret* ... (Paulinus reports a wonder happened to Ambrose, then adds:) ... *nam scribendi uel dictandi ipso die finem fecit, siquidem ipsum psalmum explere non potuit.* See: Antonius Adrianus Robertus Bastiaensen (ed.) in: *Vita di Cipriano. Vita di Ambrogio. Vita di Agostino* (Milano, 1975), 108.

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Nevertheless, two points of evidence challenge this opinion, originating the question which has been the basis for my work: in the 20th century scholars have favoured subjects which refer to any *explanatio* as if it were a standalone piece of Ambrosian Psalm exegesis and only three works have been devoted to a comprehensive study of *Explanatio psalmorum XII*.[6] The evaluation which these papers offer about the originality and literary quality of the *explanationes* gives rise to some questions and much perplexity.

It is common opinion that quotations from Origen's works are frequent in Ambrose's Psalm commentaries, but their meaning and relevance is always analysed taking into consideration single exegetical details, and never the whole architecture of the *explanationes*. It is frequently declared that Ambrose was truly independent from Origen, but it is difficult to understand what this independence should consist of, as it is usually described with generic statements about Ambrose's personal characteristics rather than to the quality of his commentaries.

The scholars waver between two contradictory opinions: they affirm that the value of Ambrosian commentaries lies mainly in his aesthetical writing ability, but they reproach him for being incompetent as a Bible reader, ready to sacrifice accuracy for fancy of rhetorical *ornatus*. Hence Ambrose as a man appears unable to organise coherently his exegetical construction: he is able to draw sudden talented sketches but also to chisel out almost maniacally a single sentence; he acts without rules, being able to "rape" the biblical text to use it for his own purposes.[7]

So, the *Explanatio psalmorum XII* is marked by a negative evaluation, making it a text lacking in coherence and without a satisfactory exegetical frame, so that any work aiming to detect the unity of each commentary and its loyalty to the biblical background would only result in a waste of time.

My work proved that this opinion is more a prejudice than an academic result. Ambrose employed rhetoric not only as a treasure of *ornatus* pieces, but mainly as the backbone theory to build his speeches as capable as possible to transmit his teachings.[8] It would be surprising if Ambrose discontinued such a

[6] The works are: Luigi Franco Pizzolato, *La «Explanatio Psalmorum XII»: Studio letterario sulla esegesi di sant'Ambrogio* (Milano, 1965); Hans Jörg Auf der Maur, *Das Psalmenverständnis des Ambrosius von Mailand: Ein Beitrag zum Deutungshintergrund der Psalmenverwendung im Gottesdienst der Alten Kirche* (Leiden, 1977); Paola Francesca Moretti, *Non harundo sed calamus: Aspetti letterari della «Explanatio psalmorum XII» di Ambrogio* (Milano, 2000). To these works must be added the *Introduzione* written by Luigi Franco Pizzolato for SAEMO 7 (Milano, 1980).

[7] This is a summary of the statements written in Pizzolato, *La Explanatio* (1965), 101.

[8] The 'rehabilitation' of Ambrose's exegetical and theological skill can be detected in the studies of the last thirty years, as outlined in Giuseppe Visonà, Lo 'status quaestionis' della ricerca ambrosiana, in: Luigi Franco Pizzolato and Marco Rizzi (eds.), *Nec timeo mori. Atti del Congresso internazionale di studi ambrosiani nel XVI centenario della morte di sant'Ambrogio* (Milano, 1998), 31-71.

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usage of rhetoric only in the case of the *Explanatio psalmorum XII*. Anyway, this could be affirmed solely after a thorough investigation of the contents of the twelve *explanationes*. But such an analysis has not yet been offered.

I have therefore investigated on a new basis Ambrose's Psalm exegesis, examining the twelve *explanationes* in order to discover their teaching proposal by means of identifying their rhetorical framework. After recovering the sequence of the contents by means of the rhetorical elements found in the key-passages of each *explanatio*, I have outlined the *dispositio* of the text, trying to go back to the main themes which correspond to the *inuentio*.

This content-oriented approach, using rhetoric as the main tool to decode the text and its structure, is quite new: until now the *explanationes* were studied either with regard to the general theories about late antiquity literature, or paying attention to each detail, such as the *ornatus* or the word correspondence with Origen. Constantly omitted was the 'intermediate level' of the *dispositio*: the creative moment when Ambrose decided how to structure the contents he had collected from Church tradition and reference authors in order to efficiently communicate them to his public. My research focused on this level, detecting in each *explanatio* the links among its sections (*exordium*, *prologus*, analysis of the *psalmi titulus*, verses' explanation, *recapitulatio*, *conclusio*...), the theological themes connected to the Psalm, the rhetorical traces of text division and the relationship between the Psalm commentary and the passages usually considered as 'diverting' from the text.

As a first result, in every *explanatio* a comprehensive content framework could be detected, constituting as a single entity the theological and pastoral contents which Ambrose wanted to share with his public, together with the proper meaning of each Psalm. Even the passages that look like untimely digressions reveal their attitude to emphasize the main themes of Ambrose's speech through the rhetorical tools of 'estrangement' and 'style variation', in order to awaken the attention of his audience.

Secondly, the detection of the structure and of the main themes of each *explanatio* allowed a new approach to the thorny question about the originality of Ambrose's Psalm exegesis. The parallel passages suggested by Pizzolato and Auf der Maur have been reviewed no more like single words or exegetical details out of context, but like pieces of a complex mosaic, where originality depends not only by word-by-word comparison, but refers to the literary and thematic framework of the whole Psalm. The results are encouraging: the passages and themes which build the backbone of each *explanatio* are original Ambrose's thought.

Briefly, my research detected not only the peculiarities of each *explanatio*, but also four common attributes for all of them: 1. *originality*: the thematic and exegetical framework is originally ambrosian, in spite of quotations from other sources; 2. *unity*: the texts are coherent and linked by a design connected to the Psalm; 3. *spoken origin*: even if edited and corrected, these texts have their

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birthplace in a congregation; 4. *specificity*: each *explanatio* has its own theme, without repetitions or overlappings. These results ask to review from the ground the common opinion about ambrosian Psalm exegesis: but this is only the first step.

Text analysis has shown that some passages serve as theoretical and structural reference not for a single Psalm commentary, but for a much wider horizon. A second phase of my research paid special attention to these passages: the *prologus* at the beginning of the *Explanatio Psalmi I*, whose subject is the whole Psalter; the final chapters of *Explanatio Psalmi LX*, which deal with the Psalter's structure; the opening sentences of some *explanationes*, which show the connections between the Psalms' contents. The comparative analysis of those passages has revealed in the *Explanatio psalmorum XII* the existence of a concept framework which holds together not only one *explanatio*, but (almost) the whole complex of them, calling to our attention three kinds of evidence.

First, we can divide the twelve *explanationes* into four thematic groups: 1) the *explanationes* of Psalms 1 and 35-38, marked out by the presence of David as an example of penance and by the theme of the denial of sin; 2) the *explanationes* of Psalms 39-40, focusing on the meaning of Christ's Passion and Resurrection for our salvation; 3) the *explanationes* of Psalms 43 and 45, sharing the same post-Easter context, *i.e.* the concern to promote an ethical conscience for baptized people through fidelity to the Grace and growth in the knowledge supported by faith; 4) the *explanationes* of Psalms 47 and 48, finally, call attention to Church membership and ministry as perfection of being a Christian. The *Explanatio psalmi LXI* appears to be different, both for its themes and for its literary form.

Secondly, the Psalter carries a progressive teaching about ethics and virtues, outlined in chapter 11 of *Explanatio psalmi I* and corresponding to these four groups[9]. When Ambrose writes: *[Dauid] docuit utique prius nobis peccato esse moriendum et tunc demum in hoc corpore diuersa opera discriminanda uirtutum*, he refers to the penitential path described in *explanationes* 1-38; the development of a *deuotio* whose *gratia* reaches the Lord (*quibus ad dominum deuotionis nostrae gratia perueniret*) can be compared to the aim of *explanationes* 39-40. The understanding of the heavenly goods that prevents from falling into temptation (*ut occupatis intentione caelestium nulla inreperet terrenorum libido uitiorum*) recalls *explanations* 43 and 45. Finally, the possessor of a soul glowing with Grace (*simul animus caelestis gratiae suauitate nitesceret*) is very close to the believer described in the *explanationes* of Psalms 47-48.

[9] *Ex. Ps.* 1,11: [*Dauid*] *docuit utique prius nobis peccato esse moriendum et tunc demum in hoc corpore diuersa opera discriminanda uirtutum, quibus ad dominum deuotionis nostrae gratia perueniret, ut occupatis intentione caelestium nulla inreperet terrenorum libido uitiorum, simul animus caelestis gratiae suauitate nitesceret.*

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The most impressive evidence of the framework connecting the *explanationes* comes from the analysis of three passages which share four common elements: the theme of *intus canere*, the mention of the 'spiritual senses', the presence of Paul, the quotation of 1*Cor.* 14:15 (*orabo spiritu, orabo et mente; psallam spiritu, psallam et mente*). Here are the passages (**emboldened** text refers to the common themes):

Ex. Ps.* 1:12:** *... docuit ergo* ***Dauid intus *nos* ***canere*** *oportere,* ***intus psallere, quemadmodum canebat et Paulus*** *dicens:* **orabo spiritu, orabo et mente; psallam spiritu, psallam et mente** (1*Cor.* 14:15), *et ad superiorum intuitum uitam nostram actusque formare, ne delectatio dulcedinis excitet corporis passiones, quibus non redimitur nostra anima, sed grauatur, cum* ***ad redemptionem animae suae psallere se sanctus propheta memorauerit*** *dicens*: psallam tibi, deus, in cithara, sanctus Israel... gaudebunt labia mea, cum cantauero tibi, et anima mea quam redemisti (*Ps.* 70:22-3).

Ex. Ps.* 40:39:** *Pulchre autem quinque libri et unum psalterium, quoniam ... quinque spiritalibus sensibus ille absconditus cordis homo noster consummatur interior ... ideo* ***Dauid, qui et foris et intus canebat, *foris corpore, intus corde, dicit in psalmo:* in decachordo psalterio psallam tibi (*Ps.* 143:9). **[40.]** ***Psalterium ergo est homo consummatus in Christo,*** *in quo ... conuenientium resonant opera canora uirtutum, ut possit dicere:* psallam tibi, deus, in cithara, sanctus Israel. gaudebunt labia mea cum cantauero tibi, et anima mea quam redemisti (*Ps.* 70:22-3). ***Paulus ... et intus et foris gaudet,*** *sed* ***ille adhuc in certamine, iste in remissione,*** *quia redemptionem animae suae se meruisse cognouerat. qui psallit, in laetitia est, qui luctatur, in sollicitudine. uerum* ***et Paulus sciebat psallere,*** *sed adhuc se processibus reseruabat,* ***cum foret plenius comprobatus,*** *ut psalleret. et ideo dixit:* **orabo spiritu, orabo et mente; psallam spiritu psallam et mente** (1*Cor.* 14:15).

Ex. Ps.* 48:7:** ***sapiens auditor *intendit atque inclinat aurem suam, ut intellegat parabolarum figures ... aperit etiam dominus clausam propositionem suam, cum* ***aptum organum*** *sibi et* ***uas electionis*** *inuenerit,* ***quod psalterium uocat, cuius similis Paulus dulcis gratiae cantilenam neruis omnibus sibi concinentibus resultauit, sancti spiritus plectro interiorem chordam exterioremque pulsando,*** *ut et lingua oraret et mente. ideoque ait:* **orabo spiritu, orabo et mente; psallam spiritu, psallam et mente** (1*Cor.* 14:15) ... ***bonum psalterium, cum fidei uita consentit et caro animae, uirtuti adspirat uoluntas.***

The first two passages are devoted to explain the structure of the whole Psalter. The third one belongs to the *explanatio* of Psalm 48 and seems to only describe Pauls's religious experience. But the presence of the same four themes (which cannot be found all together elsewhere in Ambrose's works) leads us to believe that Ambrose wanted these three passages to be read consequentially and intended *Explanatio psalmi XLVIII*, 7 as the point of arrival of the itinerary begun in *Explanatio psalmi I.*

In *Explanatio psalmi XLVIII*, 7 Paul is described as *aptum organum, uas electionis, psalterium, i.e.* as a man who has created harmony among *caro, anima* and *uoluntas*, has drawn from the fountain of wisdom and therefore is enabled to announce God's Word to those who are *infirmi*. This description

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corresponds to the fulfilment of the spiritual path outlined by the eleven *explanationes*. In fact, all three passages show Paul's personal improvement, but only in the last one he substitutes David as an example and is described as the spiritual man who fully understands God's Word, has won his battle against the *nequitiae spiritales* and is able to attain the *dulcedo* of Grace through his inner senses.

From this *dispositio* covering the first eleven Psalm commentaries is excluded the *explanatio* of Psalm 61, which does not contain any theme or subject connected to the three 'structural' passages.

This evidence has led me to propose a new hypothesis concerning the origin of this collection. I believe it possible to affirm that it was Ambrose's intention to compile a collection of homilies, bound together by the aim to describe the itinerary proposed to every Christian. The first eleven *explanationes* are the result that has survived and came down to us: with all evidence not the whole design conceived by the bishop has survived, and this not only because the *Explanatio psalmi XLIII* appears unfinished, but much more because of the lack of a conclusion which can be compared to the *prologus*. The reason could lie in the circumstances of Ambrose's death: according to Paulinus, Ambrose could have explained his design of a homily collection and begun to 'stitch' together his sermons, before his illness forced him to stop dictating and reviewing them.

Finally, a word about the Christ-centred character of this collection. Ambrose invites his listeners to start a moral and sacramental path, whose goal is the growth of virtues together with a deeper comprehension of the *mysteria caelestia*: but the meeting point of both perspectives remains Christ. The frequent reference to Christ's *caro adsumpta* enlightens the value of his complete human nature not only as a moral example, but also as the actual medium of the *gratia dei*, which fosters the denial of sin, achieves the reconciliation between *homo interior* and *homo exterior* and enables the superior knowledge of the inner senses.

The *Explanatio psalmorum XII* proved to be a mature – even if not fully accomplished – result of Ambrose's personal, theological and literary itinerary: a life – and thought-path which even today is able to fascinate his readers.[10]

[10] The work whose contents I tried to outline in this paper has been published as: Francesco Braschi, *L'*Explanatio Psalmorum XII *di Ambrogio: una proposta di lettura unitaria. Analisi tematica, contenuto teologico e contesto ecclesiale*, Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 105 (Roma, 2007).

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Repairing the Torn Garments of our Nature: Redemption in St Ambrose's *Expositio evangelii secundum Lucam*

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The traditional emblem of the bull-calf associated with *Luke* already puts before us the theme of sacrifice, a fact to which Ambrose refers in the prologue to his *Expositio evangelii secundum Lucam*.[1] Ambrose uses many images in reflecting on redemption throughout his commentary. These are coupled with an equally impressive range of Christological titles.

Christ is commonly portrayed as priest and sacrificial victim. This is often connected with the portrait of the struggle between Christ and Satan, in which Christ emerges as a hero, conquering Satan, sin and death. Christ is also the Physician applying skilful remedies to our wounded nature. Ambrose portrays Christ as the second Adam, reversing the plight that befell our first parents. Ambrose also creatively uses the biblical images of the mustard seed and the wheat grain to illustrate salvation.

Clothing metaphors have been shown to be prominent in the soteriology of Syriac writers, and form part of the vocabulary in Cyril of Jerusalem's *Catechetical Lectures*.[2] The theme has not been greatly studied in other Fathers. The present study explores how Ambrose employs this category in reflecting on salvation in his Lucan commentary.

The Body and the Virtues as Garments

Ambrose often refers to the human body as 'a garment of the soul'.[3] The martyrs, in imitation of Christ, readily shed this garment in times of persecution

[1] Ambrose, *Expositio evangelii secundum Lucam*, Prologue 7-8 (CChr.SL 14,5-6). References to the Latin text will be from M. Adriaen's edition in CChr.SL 14 (Turnhout, 1957). The English translation used is Íde M. Ní Riain, *Commentary of St Ambrose on the Gospel according to Saint Luke* (Dublin, 2001).

[2] Sebastian Brock, Clothing Metaphors as a Means of Theological Expression in Syriac Tradition, in: *Studies in Syriac Tradition* (Aldershot, 1992), ch. 10; *id.*, The Robe of Glory: A Biblical Image in the Syriac Tradition: *The Way* 39 (1999) 247-59; Hamilton Hess, Soteriological Motifs in the *Catechetical Lectures* of St Cyril of Jerusalem: *SP* 32 (1997) 314-19.

[3] *Exp. ev. sec. Luc.* 5.107; 6.65; 7.123; 9.13.

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(9.11). Ambrose notes that *in scripturis enim divinis plerumque vestimenta virtutes sunt* (9.9). He urges his flock to clothe themselves in these virtues. The wedding garment pleasing to the bridegroom is *pax animi, puritas cordis, caritas mentis* (5.23). Baptismal regeneration involves putting on Christ. Ambrose frequently portrays Jesus as the model and teacher of virtue.[4] Jesus cures Adam's withered hand that it might extend itself in performing virtuous deeds (5.39). Justice is 'the vestment of the Church, and innocence her beauty'. With these she clothes Christ's body in glory. The splendour of morals shines more brightly than silk (10.109, 137).

The Plight of Adam and Eve

Following their sin, Adam and Eve 'clothed themselves in fig leaves ... The Devil's temptation stripped them of every virtue'. They were deprived of 'the robe of innocent conscience', blushed for shame and attempted to hide their fault 'with a veil of foliage' (7.164). The first Adam clothed himself in leaves because he was 'stripped of his spiritual robe'. By contrast, Christ the second Adam was stripped of all worldly things in his passion, having no need of bodily garments (4.7; 10.110).

In his exegesis of the parable of the Good Samaritan, Ambrose identifies Adam with the stripped and wounded man. He warns his flock: 'Take care not to be stripped as Adam was. Stripped of the garment of faith he received a deadly wound' (7.73). He further warns that sinners 'clothe themselves in garments of vain and foolish boasting'. Like a barren fig tree they bear copious foliage, but no fruit: 'a deceitful robe, a specious fraud, like those worn by the exiles from Paradise' (10.44-5).

Christ the Redeemer

John the Baptist's dress of camel hair and leather, 'the hair and skin of unclean beasts', prefigured Christ's saving advent as Redeemer. 'For Christ would take upon himself the monstrosity of our ignoble actions all stained with sin ... and on his glorious cross would divest himself of the garment of our flesh' (2.69). Through the Incarnation Christ exhibits solidarity with sinful humanity. He dons our sinful nature in drawing close to us with merciful embrace. The infant in the manger is 'wrapped in swaddling clothes to free you from the bonds of death' (2.41).

Ambrose gives a succinct summary of Christ's saving mission in stating: 'By word, action and example Jesus Christ sets to work to free us from the observance of the old law and to re-clothe us in the fresh robe of grace' (5.28).

[4] *Ibid.* 2.65; 4.55; 5.42-3; 6.36; 7.28; 9.17.

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Commenting on Jesus' dazzlingly white raiment at the Transfiguration, Ambrose asks: *Quis est ille fullo nisi forte ille qui delicta nostra lavare consuerit?* He does this in order 'to expose to the divine sun the garments of our spirit, the raiment of our virtues (*indumenta virtutum*)' (7.14).

Christ is the Good Samaritan who comes to the aid of Adam, stripped and wounded on the roadside. Adam's fate is our fate. 'First they tear off from us the clothing we were given of spiritual grace and that is how they are able to inflict such blows on us. If we could keep intact the clothing that is ours, we would not feel the buffeting of the thieves' (7.73). Christ the Physician comes close to Adam and 'binds up his wounds' by various remedies (7.75). As Christ treats Adam so, too, he 're-clothes us with his blessings' and will not allow us to be hurt or torn by sin (5.24).

In commenting on the three parables of mercy in *Luke* 15, Ambrose identifies Christ with the good shepherd, God the Father with the father of the prodigal son, and the Church with the woman seeking the lost coin. 'Every detail fits perfectly into place. The Redeemer comes to our help, the Church assists and the Father is reconciled with us' (7.208). Ambrose describes the rituals that surrounded the prodigal's return. The father runs towards him, embraces him with a kiss – *pignus pietatis et amoris*, gives him a robe, ring and shoes, 'tokens of his restored dignity'.[5] Finally the father brings the fatted calf, symbol of 'a sacrificial offering that is made for sin'. It serves to strengthen spiritual virtue and expresses the Father's joy at redemption (7.232-3).

The Camel and the Eye of the Needle

In warning about the danger of riches Luke uses the image of the camel and the eye of a needle (*Luke* 18:25). The camel signified for Ambrose the Gentiles 'hideous and degenerate in their superstitions'. They were 'hideous as a camel, absurd in their manner of walking, deformed as regards their features'. Their conversion enabled the seemingly impossible to happen: 'The sinner entered into the narrow way. That is to say they entered into Christ's way.' Ambrose links this conversion with Christ's passion, introducing a new soteriological image: 'He, forcing a way by his physical suffering, renewed us, and like a needle (*velut acus*), repaired the torn garments of our nature (*redintegravit scissa quaedam nostrae vestimenta naturae*)'.[6]

It proved easier, Ambrose notes, for the Gentiles, rather than the Jews, to enter the *via angusta*. He draws a practical lesson by linking it with the episode of the Publican and the Pharisee in the Temple (*Luke* 18:9-14). The Publican, because of his humble confession of sin, entered easily through the eye of the

[5] *Ibid.* 7.212, 224, 230-31.
[6] *Ibid.* 8.71 (CChr.SL 14, 325).

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needle. The proud Pharisee, puffed up with his self-importance, typified the rich and the arrogant. They find it hard to enter by the narrow way (8.72).

Christ's Vesture in his Passion

We find Ambrose attentive to references to clothes in the passion narratives, often making a soteriological comment. Thus, Joseph's blood-stained tunic (*Gen.* 37:31), Isaiah's vision of the hero from Bozrah clad in red (*Is.* 63:2) and Judah's cloak (*Gen.* 49:11), all prefigure the Lord's body enduring his Passion.[7]

Ambrose comments on the white, red and purple garments with which Jesus was clad by Herod, Pilate and the soldiers. Herod clothed Jesus in white, signifying Christ as the spotless *agnus Dei*, taking upon himself the sins of the world. Herod and Pilate, previously enemies, were reconciled by the exchange of Jesus between them. This prefigured a future reconciliation of Jew and Gentile: 'Then the Jews in their turn will clothe themselves in the majestic glory of the body of Christ whom formerly they had despised' (10.103). The scarlet mantle (*Matth.* 27:28) and the purple tunic (*Mark* 15:17,20; *John* 19:2) symbolise the martyr's victory and imperial power, respectively: 'For this flesh would gather up all the blood shed throughout the world, and his Passion would inaugurate his reign in our hearts' (10.104).

While the glory of Christ's divinity clothed his flesh (8.11), before mounting the cross he laid aside his royal garments. Ambrose stresses that Christ suffered for us as man, not as king and God (10.108). Contemplating the crucifixion scene, he writes: 'The victor is he who strips himself of his garments ... the first man dwelt naked in Paradise, and the second man entered Paradise naked.' Ambrose notes Christ's outstretched hands drawing us to himself, to share his victory, while he defeats death (10.110).

The four soldiers dividing Christ's clothes signify at one level the four evangelists (10.115), but Ambrose also admits a more universal sense: 'What a number of people Christ has clothed in his garments! I think it was not merely the four soldiers, but all the world. Yes. He has clothed all, and done so abundantly' (10.117). Perhaps here we have a prefigurement of Christ's spiritual progeny through Baptism.

While many Fathers interpreted Christ's seamless tunic as a symbol of the integral unity of the Church, Ambrose interprets it in terms of the unity of the Church's faith, which must be guarded whole and entire. 'By tunic I understand the faith. For the faith cannot be portioned out but is held in common by all, as by right. It remains intact. It cannot be shared out among individuals.'[8] The

[7] *Ibid.* 5.107; 3.23; 7.231.

[8] *Ibid.* 10.119. See Michel Aubineau, La Tunique sans Couture du Christ: Exégèse patristique de Jean 19,23-24, in: Patrick Granfield and Josef A. Jungmann, *Kyriakon* (Münster, 1970), I 100-27.

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seamless tunic symbolised Christ's two natures: 'Begotten of God before all ages, he later took and espoused our flesh. We are here made to see distinctly that the faith must not be torn apart, but must remain intact and inviolate' (10.120). Ambrose notes that Satan raises up heretics who tear the Church's faith into shreds (4.26). Arius, Sabellius and Photinus are compared to moths (*tineae*) attacking the Church's garments of faith in Christ. They tear his garment and divide his unity with the Father (1.13).

Ambrose draws an ecclesiological message in commenting on Joseph of Arimathea and Nicodemus preparing Christ's body for burial by wrapping it with aromatic spices in a linen shroud. The shroud recalls the sheet that Peter witnessed descending from heaven at Jaffa (see *Acts* 10:11), a vision linked with the Church's mission to the Gentiles. The spices are linked with 'the sweet fragrance of Christ' (*2Cor.* 2:15) diffusing everywhere. Taken together, the shroud and the spices symbolise the universal Church united in the paschal mystery. 'Therefore the Church is buried with this mysterious and precious perfume, having first gathered together all manner of people in the community of faith' (10.137).

Being Clothed in Christ

Ambrose was deeply convinced of the unity of the saving event of the cross and the life-giving waters of Baptism that flowed from it. Baptism involved our union with Christ in the paschal mystery. Scripture spoke of this in terms of 'putting on Christ'. Ambrose affirms this Scriptural message and draws out some ethical consequences.

The context of commenting on Jesus' parable about not sewing a new patch on an old garment (*Luke* 5:36) provides a focus for much of his thought here. Paul's statement about putting off the old man and putting on the new (*Col.* 3:9) is prominently used in Ambrose's *Expositio*.[9] Thus he states: 'We must, then, keep in all its freshness and purity the robes that were given us on emerging from the waters of baptism. The robe is very quickly torn if our actions do not accord with it; the moths of the flesh (*tineae carnis*) are very quick to tear holes in it; and it is very soon soiled by the sins and errors of our old self' (5.25). Ambrose notes that we must not mix the old with the new, nor superimpose the new on the old. Rather, we replace the old with the new: *Exspoliamur enim meliora sumpturi* (5.25).

Ambrose advises a careful colour co-ordination with Christ. We must not confuse the deeds of the old man with those of the new. The old man lives according to the flesh, the new takes his cue from Christ:

[9] *Col.* 3:9 is cited in *Exp. ev. sec. Luc.* 4.57; 5.23,105,108; 7.192; 8.44. There are many other allusions to the text also.

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He who has been reborn ought not to clothe himself in a heterogeneous collection of garments old and new, and of colours not matching, but should wear the same colour as Christ (*concolor Christi*). He should apply his mind to imitating him for whose sake he has been reborn in baptism. Far from us be those ill-matching colours and garments of the soul that so displease the spouse (5.23).

Ambrose next warns his flock about the guest who was expelled from the wedding feast, because he was improperly dressed.

Faith and charity constitute the vesture suitable for attending altar and wedding feast (7.204). Having shed 'the old man' we must foster 'the new' – *superioris tunicam non requiramus erroris.*[10] Christ's soldiers should have their spiritual armour in good repair, free of rust, and ready for action (1.4; 4.17) so as to counteract Satan and his weapons. Detached from things of the flesh and of the world, we are made holy by Baptism and created anew according to the image of Christ (7.192), our model and teacher 'who accomplishes all to perfection' (7.28).

This study has shown Ambrose's inclusion of clothing metaphors in reflecting on soteriology in his *Expositio* on Luke. They are used in conjunction with classical references to Christ as priest and sacrificial victim, conquering hero, physician, second Adam, and images related to the mustard seed and wheat grain. He adopts a symphonic approach with these different images and all are rooted in Scripture. His cluster of clothing metaphors helped him hold together Old Testament prefigurements of the passion, the fall, incarnation, redemption, ecclesiology, baptism, ethics and eschatology. For Ambrose, 'the splendour of faith is to have a thorough understanding of the cross' (6.107). His regular appeal to *Col.* 3:9 invites us to shed our old tunic and don the new, taking care to be *concolor Christi.* It is he who clothes us with grace and redemption, repairing the torn garments of our nature.

[10] *Exp. ev. sec. Luc.* 8.44 (CChr.SL 14, 313).

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Biblical Exegesis and Virgil's *Aeneid* in Ambrose of Milan's *Expositio Psalmi CXVIII*

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One of the most striking characteristics of the *Expositio Psalmi CXVIII* of Ambrose of Milan, indeed of all of his exegetical writings, is the density of his scriptural quotation and allusion. Moreover, these multiple quotations and allusions are not simply juxtaposed, cheek by jowl, but are woven together so seamlessly into his discourse that Ambrose sounds 'like the biblical text itself'.[1]

But Ambrose's sermons are even more complex, because phrases and images from classical literary and philosophical texts – from Virgil, Cicero, Plotinus, and others – are effortlessly worked into this intricate fabric of biblical quotations. While these citations are not nearly as numerous as those from scripture, they are no less impressive. Nonetheless, scholars have tended to underestimate their importance, suggesting that Ambrose's quotations of and allusions to such classical authors should be seen primarily as rhetorical embellishments or displays of learning aimed at shoring up his authority.[2] This essay will analyze Ambrose's use of Virgil's *Aeneid* in his third homily on *Psalm* 118 (119) and will suggest that this judgment needs to be reexamined. I hope to show that Ambrose's borrowings from Virgil in this homily are not merely literary adornment, but rather serve to illuminate and deepen the theological points Ambrose is making.

In the third homily Ambrose treats verses 17-24 of *Psalm* 118 (119) and discusses a variety of themes: the reward to be granted to those who serve God; the mystery of Christ's redemptive work; the necessity of baptism, in water and fire, for spiritual purity; the true temple and true law; and freedom from chains to worldly possessions. Ambrose first borrows from Virgil's *Aeneid* in a discussion of the sin of pride when he takes up verse 21: 'You reprove the proud; cursed are those who stray from your commandments.' After noting that the

[1] Gérard Nauroy, L'Ecriture dans la pastorale d'Ambroise de Milan, in: Jacques Fontaine and Charles Pietri (eds.), *Le monde latin antique et la Bible* (Paris, 1985), 404.

[2] On Ambrose's use of Virgil as rhetorical embellishment, see, *e.g.* Mary Diederich, *Vergil in the Works of St. Ambrose* (Washington, DC, 1931), 126f. More recently, McLynn makes similar observations, although he does not focus specifically on Virgil. McLynn contends that Ambrose drew on Cicero, Plotinus, *et al.*, in an attempt to shore up his authority and asserts more generally that 'there is no compelling reason to suppose that Ambrose's reading ever gave him more than material with which to adorn his sermons.' See Neil B. McLynn, *Ambrose of Milan: Church and Court in a Christian Capital* (Berkeley, 1994), xxi, 77, 237-42.

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serpent, Satan, is the author of pride, Ambrose observes that Jesus seeks to protect the human race from Satan and the sin of pride, and this is why he told the parable of the Pharisee and the Publican praying in the temple.[3] Christ, Ambrose explains, 'showed that, even though the proud Pharisee possesses other good qualities, he offends more than the humble Publican, who has no virtuous deeds to his credit'.[4] The Pharisee, Ambrose acknowledges, surely had good intentions, but the devil has strategies for dealing with even the most devoted of God's followers. Paraphrasing the Pharisee's own prayer in the Temple (see *Lk.* 18:11-2), Ambrose seems almost sympathetic to his efforts as he describes them: 'The Pharisee had labored greatly not to steal, not to be unjust, not to commit adultery! He had worked so hard not to sin in the way the Publican had, to fast twice a week, and to give a tenth of everything he had acquired!'[5] Following this, Ambrose does not say, as we might expect, that despite the Pharisee's heroic efforts, his pride undid him. Rather, having just marveled at the virtuous aspects of the Pharisee's behavior, he trains the spotlight on his audience's life, a move that probably caught them off guard.[6] 'Which one of us does all this?' he asks. And then, he sharpens the accusation with a second question that includes a quotation from Virgil: 'How many of us have possessions whose fruits we brood over all alone [*soli incubant*] and whose harvest we hide away for ourselves?'[7]

The phrase translated as 'we brood over all alone' is from Book 6 of the *Aeneid*. It occurs as the Sibyl and Aeneas stand at the fork in their path in the underworld, with the right leading to Elysium and the left to Tartarus. The Sibyl describes those who now suffer punishments for their earthly crimes:

'And here are those who in their lives had hated
their brothers or had struck their father or
deceived a client or (the thickest swarm)
had brooded all alone on new-won treasure [*qui divitiis soli incubuere repertis*]
and set no share apart for kin and friends; ...
And do not ask of me what penalty,

[3] Ambrose of Milan, *Expositio Psalmi CXVIII* 3.34-5 (CSEL LXII, 60-1). Earlier in the homily Ambrose refers to Satan as *diabolus*, but in this section he begins to identify him also as *serpens*, a move that not only echoes *Genesis* 3, but also provides an important linguistic tie to his second quotation from the *Aeneid*.

[4] *Ibid.* 3.35 (CSEL LXII, 61.5-7).

[5] *Ibid.* 3.35 (CSEL LXII, 61.8-12).

[6] Ambrose revised his sermons for publication, so determining the exact content of the sermon as preached is difficult; see Neil B. McLynn, *Ambrose of Milan* (1994), xvi, 237f. Nonetheless, Pizzolato has argued that the gap between *Expositio Psalmi CXVIII* as initially preached and the written work is smaller than that for other exegetical works of Ambrose; see Luigi Franco Pizzolato (transl.), *Sant'Ambrogio: Commento al Salmo CXVIII*, Sancti Ambrosii Episcopi Mediolanensis Opera 9 (Rome, 1987), 9-12. My argument, however, applies equally to an audience hearing this homily as to one reading it.

[7] *Psal. 118*, 3.35 (CSEL LXII, 61.12-4).

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what shape or fate has overwhelmed their souls ...
... A hundred tongues,
a hundred mouths, an iron voice were not
enough for me to gather all the forms
of crime or tell the names of all the torments.'[8]

Ambrose's use of Virgil here is not mere ornament, but rather deepens his moral critique. Although Ambrose recounts the Pharisee's ethical achievements with sympathy, he and his congregation knew well that Jesus presented the Pharisee as a bad example. The temptation for them, as for anyone reading this parable, was to find themselves looking on the Pharisee with the same condescension he had displayed toward the Publican. Lest they succumb to that very pride which had undermined the Pharisee's accomplishments, Ambrose catches them up short with his query: 'Which one of us does all this?' Then, using Virgil's *Aeneid*, he makes concrete their own sin of brooding all alone over the fruits of their possessions. For those in Ambrose's congregation who, like their bishop, had received the traditional Roman education, this verbal echo would surely have brought to mind the Sibyl's chilling portrait of Tartarus. Thus, through his quotation of Virgil, as he expounds on the Pharisee's sin of pride, Ambrose keeps his audience's focus on their own sins and ensures that they maintain the humble, penitent posture of the Publican.

Continuing to discuss the Pharisee, Ambrose explains that Satan noticed the Pharisee's righteous behavior and 'spread over him a grave sore, so that, inflated with pride, he lost his head'. Although the Pharisee 'was not a thief, an adulterer, or unjust', he found himself struggling against the serpent who 'bound him with heavy coils' [*gravibus spiris ligavit*]. In addition, the serpent lifted him up high so that his fall would be that much greater. Ambrose concludes: 'Painful is the fall that follows from pride ... Painful is this wrestling match with the serpent, in which he winds himself in many coils.'[9]

This description of the wrestling match between Satan and the Pharisee is Ambrose's second borrowing from the *Aeneid* in the sermon. The phrase translated as 'bound him with heavy coils' is taken from Aeneas' account of Troy's last days, and it is used in connection with the priest Laocoön. When the Trojans first saw the wooden horse left by the Greeks, Laocoön counseled caution and warned his countrymen: 'Trojans, never trust that horse. Whatever it is,/I fear the Greeks, especially bearing gifts.'[10] As he spoke these words, Laocoön hurled his spear against the horse's side, an action the Trojans later come to view as irreligious. After describing the perjury of Sinon, who dupes his Trojan captors into thinking that the horse should be brought within the city, Aeneas recounts

[8] *Aeneid* 6.608-11, 614-5, 625-7. Translation from Allen Mandelbaum, *The Aeneid of Virgil* (New York, 1981), 6.808-12, 816-7, 829-32.

[9] *Psal. 118*, 3.35 (CSEL LXII, 61.14-22).

[10] *Aeneid* 2.61-2. Translation from Robert Fagles, *Virgil: The Aeneid* (New York, 2006).

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the terrible omen which occurred next, a scene in which Laocoön returns center stage. As the priest is 'sacrificing a massive bull at the holy altar', two hissing snakes advance across the waves and onto shore. The pair make quick work of Laocoön's sons and then turn on the priest. Although Laocoön is armed and struggles vigorously against them, the snakes 'bind him in huge muscular whorls' [*spirisque ligant ingentibus*] and kill him.[11] Horrified at what they have just seen, the Trojans are nonetheless convinced that Laocoön was rightly punished for the prideful act of throwing his spear at the horse. Oblivious to their collective doom, they conclude that the horse should be taken inside the city's walls.

Virgil's description of the snakes binding Laocoön in their coils is the very phrase Ambrose applies to the Pharisee wrestling with Satan. Once again, this is not simply literary ornament, for the interplay between Virgil's narrative, Jesus' parable, and Ambrose and his audience is fascinating and carries theological import. His use of Virgil reinforces the sermon's moral critique and illuminates the character of the God about whom he preaches. There are at least three significant points of contact.

The first is a parallel between Laocoön and the Pharisee. As Virgil describes Laocoön, he is one of the few Trojans who sees the truth clearly and appears to do what is right: he realizes that the wooden horse is not to be trusted. Moreover, Laocoön is a vigorous man and a respected religious leader.[12] Nonetheless, despite his strength and wisdom, he is no match for the snakes who attack him just as he renders sacrifice to the gods. Similarly, the Pharisee is one who in many respects does all the right things, as exemplified by his fidelity to the commandments, and Ambrose emphasizes this. However, the strength of his virtue does not save him from the fatal sin of pride. Like Laocoön, he is powerless to overcome the serpent's coils. Thus, Ambrose's reference to the *Aeneid* sharpens his audience's awareness of human helplessness in the wrestling match with Satan.

Further, with his second reminiscence of the *Aeneid*, Ambrose intensifies the warning he had already given through his reference to the Sibyl's description of those who suffer in Tartarus. In Aeneas' tale of Troy's last days, it is remarkable how quickly the Trojans assume that Laocoön committed an act of hubris when he threw the spear at the horse. The gods, they reason, used the snakes to punish him for this. Equally remarkable, the Trojans show no awareness that what befalls him has anything to do with them: they are bystanders who witness his sin and its penalty as if from a distance.[13] Further, they seem blind to the reality that they will soon share in the violent judgment visited upon him.

This sort of blindness is precisely what Ambrose tries to guard against earlier when he asks: 'Which one of us does all this? How many of us have possessions

[11] *Ibid.* 2.260, 276 (Fagles transl.). See R.G. Austin, *P. Vergili Maronis: Aeneidos Liber Secundus* (Oxford, 1977), 107, for a discussion of how Virgil implies Laocoön's death.

[12] See R.G. Austin, *P. Vergili Maronis* (1977), 44, for this characterization of Laocoön.

[13] *Ibid.* 109.

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whose fruits we brood over all alone..?' The temptation for those who listen to Jesus' parable of the Pharisee and Publican is to assume, like Laocoön's countrymen, that they have no part in this sin and its attendant judgment. Thus, this second quotation from the *Aeneid* reinforces the moral critique presented through the first.

Finally, by juxtaposing Jesus' parable and the story of Laocoön, Ambrose sets up an implicit contrast between the God of Israel and the Greco-Roman gods, that is, between Christianity and paganism. While there are a number of similarities between the Pharisee and Laocoön, there is one major difference between them, and it sheds light on their respective gods. While the Pharisee was blameworthy, Laocoön was innocent. The wooden horse was precisely what Laocoön suspected, a Greek ruse, a gift not to be trusted, and throwing his spear at it was no act of hubris. Moreover, when his countrymen ignored his warnings, Laocoön went to perform his priestly duties, and Virgil's description of this underscores the solemnity and 'correctness of the ceremonial act.'[14] Laocoön is righteous, and does not deserve the violent end he suffers. The Pharisee, however, is clearly culpable. Although he has numerous virtues, he is guilty of pride, the very sin which the psalmist counsels against in the verse Ambrose is expounding: 'You reprove the proud ...'

By reminding his audience of Laocoön's violent end, Ambrose hints at the arbitrariness of the Greco-Roman gods. There is nothing – not even the priest's solemn act of sacrificing to them – that can change Troy's fate. Moreover, the two snakes are agents of the gods' decision about Troy, and Laocoön and his countrymen are helpless to know what, if anything, they might do to avert disaster. In contrast, the will of the God of Israel is clear. The Pharisee would have known well the psalmist's words: 'You reprove the proud ...', and thus Jesus' judgment about him is not arbitrary. Moreover, as Ambrose observes, Jesus' very purpose in telling the parable was to protect humankind from the sin of pride, that is, to make clear how one ought to live so as to please God. Further, while the two snakes in the *Aeneid* act on behalf of the gods, the serpent Satan is the enemy conquered by Christ who, in Ambrose's words, shelters humankind under 'the veil of the cross'.[15] Through his reference to Laocoön's cruel end, Ambrose subtly underscores God's compassion and justice, and by implication, the superiority of Christianity over paganism.

Thus in this third homily on *Psalm* 118 (119), Ambrose's borrowings from Virgil are not merely adornment. Rather, they strengthen and deepen the moral and theological points that Ambrose is trying to convey. While this is only one passage in a large corpus, it nonetheless suggests that Ambrose's use of classical authors merits further study.

[14] *Ibid.* 101.
[15] *Psal. 118*, 3.19 (CSEL LXII, 50-1).

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Tyconius a-t-il lu Origène?

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Les études sur Tyconius connaissent depuis quatre décennies un intérêt manifeste. Si le *Commentaire sur l'Apocalypse* reste à l'état fragmentaire dans l'attente d'une éventuelle reconstitution à partir de l'édition scientifique de ses principaux témoins médiévaux, le *Liber regularum* a été en quelque sorte réhabilité. L'influence qu'il a pu exercer sur la postérité a donné lieu à discussion, notamment à propos d'Augustin qui en propose un résumé au livre III du *De doctrina christiana*. L'étude des sources demeure un domaine encore peu défriché. Il est vrai que la tâche est ardue car à aucun moment, en dehors du corpus biblique, Tyconius ne cite la moindre référence à un écrivain ou à une œuvre précise, qu'elle soit païenne ou chrétienne.

Le *Livre des Règles* est traditionnellement considéré comme le premier traité d'herméneutique en langue latine. Tyconius fait en la matière figure d'esprit de synthèse et cherche à donner à la lecture des Écritures un cadre interprétatif solide et opérationnel. Dans la littérature grecque on pense en premier lieu à Origène qui fut un précurseur dans la systématisation de l'exégèse. Le parallèle ne paraît donc pas incongru si l'on veut bien se limiter au domaine de l'herméneutique. Il ne s'agit pas de placer sur le même plan les deux ouvrages mais de chercher à savoir si en rédigeant le *Livre des Règles* Tyconius s'est inspiré de l'œuvre origénienne, en particulier du livre IV du *Traité des Principes*. De là, nous nous interrogerons sur le mode de lecture et d'interprétation préconisé par les deux herméneutes, réservant à une étude plus longue les rapprochements possibles quant à l'exégèse proprement dite.

Une chronologie incertaine

La biographie de Tyconius est particulièrement mal connue. On ignore tant l'année de sa naissance que celle de sa mort. Quelques indices permettent néanmoins de situer son activité littéraire entre 367 et 395 environ.[1] Il n'est pas impossible que notre auteur maîtrisât le grec et que l'œuvre d'Origène lui ait été accessible dans le texte original ou à travers les protagonistes de la controverse qu'il a suscitée.[2] Dans cette hypothèse, Tyconius a pu avoir entre les mains

[1] Cf. l'introduction à notre édition de Tyconius, *Livre des Règles* (SC 488, 13-4).
[2] Cf. Kenneth B. Steinhauser, Tyconius: was He Greek?: *SP* 27 (1993) 394-9.

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la *Philocalie* établie entre 360 et 378.[3] En revanche, la version latine du *Peri Archôn* de Rufin dont les livres III et IV sont traduits durant l'été 398 apparaît trop tardive.[4] À cette date le *Liber regularum* était déjà rédigé. Quant au *Commentaire sur l'Apocalypse*, il ne présente pas de parallèles pertinents. En dépit de l'affirmation de Jérôme qui voulait qu'Origène ait étudié toute l'Écriture sous trois formes – homélies, commentaires et scholies –, la tradition ne nous a rien laissé sur le dernier livre biblique. Même les scholies qui ont été attribuées à Origène au début du XXe siècle sont aujourd'hui rendues à d'autres.[5] En l'absence de tout témoignage explicite sur la formation du donatiste, force est de constater que sa biographie ne nous renseigne guère et n'autorise que des conjectures. Il convient de se tourner vers le *Liber regularum* lui-même.

L'attention portée au sens historique

On serait tenté dans un premier temps d'inscrire l'herméneutique tyconienne dans le prolongement de celle d'Origène en avançant sans discernement que tous les deux négligent le sens historique au profit d'un sens plus profond. Faut-il rappeler quelle place Origène accorde au sens spirituel dans son œuvre? Dans le *Peri Archôn*, il affirme que «l'ensemble de l'Écriture divine a toujours un sens spirituel mais qu'elle n'a pas toujours un sens corporel.»[6] Une assertion du même ordre au chapitre V du *Livre des Règles* – «*Omnia spiritaliter*»[7] – pourrait laisser croire que Tyconius dédaigne également le sens historique. On compte dix occurrences de l'adverbe *spiritaliter* dans l'œuvre.[8]

En réalité, une lecture attentive des deux auteurs prouve le contraire. «Nous défendons et la lettre et l'esprit dans les saintes Écritures» écrit Origène dans les *Homélies sur le Lévitique*[9] et le *Traité des Principes* précise: «Bien plus important en quantité est ce qui est historiquement vrai que ce qui y a été tissé de purement spirituel».[10] Dans le *Commentaire sur le Cantique des Cantiques* chaque verset fait l'objet, fût-ce brièvement, d'une exégèse littérale. Tyconius ne refuse pas davantage le sens historique. Il discute, par exemple, avec une grande

[3] D'après Éric Junod, Remarques sur la composition de la *Philocalie* d'Origène par Basile de Césarée et Grégoire de Naziance: *RHPhR* 52 (1972) 149-56. Marguerite Harl, Gilles Dorival et Alain Le Boulluec situent la rédaction entre 360 et 372 dans *Origène. Traité des principes* (Paris, 1976), 262.

[4] Cf. Origène, *Traité des Principes* (Paris, 1976), 272.

[5] Voir Pierre Nautin, *Origène: Sa vie et son œuvre*, coll. «Christianisme antique» 1 (Paris, 1977), 449 et É. Junod, Que savons-nous des *Scholies* d'Origène?, dans G. Dorival et A. Le Boulluec (éds), *Origeniana Sexta* (Leuven, 1995), 138.

[6] Origène, *Traité des Principes* IV 3, 5 (SC 268, 362.143-4).

[7] Tyconius, *Livre des Règles* IV 19.1 (SC 488, 266.563). Également IV 15.4 (258.466).

[8] Cf. l'index herméneutique de l'édition française (SC 488, 404).

[9] Origène, *Homélies sur le Lévitique* XIV 2 (SC 287, 232.56-7).

[10] Origène, *Traité des Principes* IV 3, 4 (SC 268, 358, 110-3).

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acribie la période de l'ensevelissement de Jésus après la Passion.[11] Aux pharisiens qui lui demandaient un signe Jésus répond qu'il restera «trois jours et trois nuits» dans le sein de la terre à l'image de Jonas dans le monstre marin. L'expression matthéenne (*Matth.* 12:40) donne lieu à une longue analyse où plusieurs interprétations sont passées en revue pour déboucher sur une lecture historique de la péricope. La synecdoque permet de comprendre que trois jours se sont effectivement écoulés entre la crucifixion et la résurrection. Au cours de la *Règle* I, *De Domino et corpore eius*, Tyconius confronte deux passages des Évangiles sur la venue du Fils de l'Homme qui semblent contradictoires, l'un annonçant une venue immédiate, l'autre renvoyant au Dernier Jour. Pour en dénouer le sens, le donatiste s'applique à une étude minutieuse où chaque hypothèse est prise en considération au regard de la grammaire. La démarche est d'une logique implacable et passe au crible tous les cas de figure pour mener à bien la démonstration.[12] Origène et Tyconius partagent donc une même attention à l'égard du sens littéral des Écritures sans toutefois se limiter à ce niveau d'interprétation.

«L'espèce» et «le genre»

On sait qu'Origène fonctionne sur un schéma duel emprunté à la Seconde Épître aux Corinthiens (2*Co.* 3:6) qui confronte la lettre et l'esprit. L'idée est que les Écritures offrent un double niveau de lecture, en surface et en profondeur. Tyconius n'oppose pas la lettre et l'esprit, ni même les deux Testaments. Dans une perspective typologique il use de la métaphore de la croissance pour signifier que l'Ancien Testament, tel un enfant, renferme toutes les promesses que le Nouveau Testament réalise en tant qu'il représente l'âge adulte de la Révélation apportée par le Christ.[13] Le terme *figura* est utilisé à plusieurs reprises.[14] Tyconius se démarque plus nettement encore de l'Alexandrin quand il place au centre de son herméneutique les notions de *genus* et de *species*. L'«espèce» s'apparente à la réalité historique et peut être assimilée au sens premier alors que le «genre» est comme un élargissement, un dépassement de l'espèce qui concerne le Christ et son Église. Pour illustrer cette distinction, la *Règle* IV s'attarde sur des prophéties relatives à Israël en tant que peuple choisi, à des rois comme Salomon et surtout à des cités et des pays étrangers. L'oracle de Jérémie contre Élam (*Jr.* 25:35-9) est particulièrement significatif. Dans un premier temps, quand Dieu annonce que les arcs seront brisés à Élam, la prophétie évoque les archers réputés de la région (l'espèce), mais lorsqu'il poursuit

[11] Tyconius, *Livre des Règles* V 3.2-7 (SC 488, 280-6).
[12] Tyconius, *Livre des Règles* I 9 (SC 488, 142-4).
[13] Il y a peut-être dans cette métaphore un écho de 1*Co.* 3, 6.
[14] Cf. l'index herméneutique de l'édition française (SC 488, 403).

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en disant: «Il n'y aura pas de nation qui ne viendra ici pour chasser Élam», Tyconius s'empresse de demander s'il est réellement possible d'envisager que tous les peuples de la terre viennent un jour combattre contre Élam. La réponse est négative et il faut comprendre qu'Élam représente, au-delà de la contrée mésopotamienne, l'Église tout entière. Il y a donc passage (*transitus*) de l'espèce au genre. C'est le cas le plus simple à repérer surtout lorsqu'il est accompagné d'une phase transitoire durant laquelle des mots conviennent aux deux. Les exemples pourraient être multipliés car ils sont nombreux dans la *Règle* IV, la plus longue de toutes. L'important est de souligner qu'il ne s'agit pas avec le «genre» d'élaborer un sens allégorique mais de comprendre la portée universelle de la prophétie qui se rapporte au Royaume de Dieu inauguré par le Christ et mise en place à travers son Église. Empruntant le vocabulaire de la rhétorique (en l'occurrence les notions de particulier et de général exposées par Aristote) pour se l'approprier et le mettre au service de son herméneutique, Tyconius écrit à bon droit que l'Esprit Saint, en tant que rédacteur des Écritures, fait preuve d'une grande subtilité et multiplie à dessein les variantes. De fait, il énumère toutes les combinaisons possibles de passage de l'espèce au genre.

Lecture typologique et sens spirituel

Les prophéties aux nations facilitent la comparaison avec la méthode d'Origène telle qu'elle est définie aux chapitres 22 à 27 du livre IV du *Peri Archôn*.[15] Dans ces pages, l'Alexandrin distingue dans l'histoire du peuple élu un Israël «selon la chair» et un Israël «selon l'esprit» d'après l'opposition paulienne (1*Co.* 10:18 et *Rm.* 2:28-9). L'Israël spirituel se situe dans les régions célestes de la même façon qu'il existe une Jérusalem terrestre et une Jérusalem céleste. La démonstration s'élargit ensuite pour inclure les prophéties adressées à l'Égypte, à Babylone, à Sidon et à Tyr. Les références géographiques sont les mêmes dans les deux exégèses mais l'interprétation est foncièrement différente.[16] La double notion d'espèce et de genre, qui embrasse toute forme de sens spirituel sans distinction interne, est propre à Tyconius. «Il est tout à fait indispensable, écrit-il, de savoir que chacune des cités ou provinces d'Israël et des nations, auxquelles l'Écriture s'adresse ou dans lesquelles elle rapporte un événement, est la figure (*figura*) de l'Église: certaines de la partie mauvaise, d'autres de la partie bonne, d'autres encore des deux parties à la fois».[17] Ni dans le *Liber regularum* ni dans les passages bien identifiés de son *Commentaire sur l'Apocalypse*, Tyconius ne distingue un sens secret qui s'appliquerait soit à l'âme soit à l'esprit et ne fait allusion à la théorie des trois sens de l'Écriture. Certes les différents commentaires et

[15] Voir aussi la fin du chapitre 1 de la *Philocalie* §22-7 (SC 302, 191-3 et la note).
[16] Pour Tyconius, voir *Règle* IV 11-8 (SC 488, 238-66).
[17] Tyconius, *Livre des Règles* IV 11 (SC 488, 238.243-6).

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homélies d'Origène réservent une place non négligeable à la typologie mais c'est l'analyse du sens moral (ou tropologique) et du sens spirituel (ou mystique) dans une filiation paulinienne qui constitue l'essentiel de sa démarche herméneutique.

Deux contextes différents

Il convient dès lors de replacer les deux entreprises dans leur contexte historique et théologique. Au début du IIIe siècle, à Alexandrie,[18] Origène explique clairement dans le livre IV du *Traité des Principes* qu'il y a nécessité d'une méthode exégétique pour éviter les erreurs d'interprétation qu'ont pu commettre les juifs, les gnostiques (qualifiés d'«hérétiques») ou encore ceux qu'il appelle «les simples» parmi les chrétiens.[19] Une certaine dimension polémique n'est donc pas absente[20] du propos même si les destinataires de l'ouvrage, et particulièrement de la quatrième partie, sont assurément des chrétiens soucieux de chercher sous la lettre un sens spirituel dans toutes les Écritures.

Tyconius, pour sa part, est au cœur du conflit qui oppose dans l'Afrique du IVe siècle catholiques et donatistes. Il en est même à la fois juge et partie. Dans le préambule du *Liber regularum*, il espère que son manuel sera reçu «sans malveillance».[21] Son ambition est d'édicter une série de recommandations afin d'assurer à la lecture des Écritures une approche objective et d'éviter toute interprétation partisane. La dimension ecclésiologique est fondamentale dans le *Liber regularum* et laisse peu de place à la vision christologique qui transparaît néanmoins dans la *Règle* I. L'essentiel des prophéties sert à illustrer la nature bipartite de l'Église (partagée entre bons et mauvais) à travers la notion de *genus*. Tyconius a peut-être connu l'œuvre de l'Alexandrin[22] mais manifestement il a donné à son herméneutique une orientation personnelle, éloignée de la querelle sur l'allégorie et davantage marquée par de fortes préoccupations ecclésiales où la lecture typologique est privilégiée.

Arkhai et *regulae*

Au regard de la recherche moderne un certain rapprochement entre les deux ouvrages peut toutefois être avancé, bien qu'il ne relève pas d'une filiation

[18] Tous les spécialistes s'accordent à situer la rédaction du *Peri Archôn* à la fin de la période alexandrine d'Origène, entre 220 et 231. P. Nautin voit dans le livre IV une réponse aux critiques portées contre le *Commentaire sur la Genèse*. Cf. *Origène. Sa vie, son œuvre* (Paris, 1977), 425.

[19] Origène, *Traité des Principes* IV 2, 1-2 (SC 268, 292-300).

[20] Cf. Origène, *Traité des Principes* (Paris, 1976), 19.

[21] «sine invidia» – Tyconius, *Livre des Règles*, Préambule (SC 488, 130.6).

[22] Gennadius souligne dans sa notice l'érudition du donatiste dans le domaine des «études divines» – *De viris illustribus* 18 (TU 14, 68.21).

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volontaire. Si les *arkhai* présents dans le titre d'Origène sont bien les principes constitutifs, réduits à un petit nombre, qui permettent d'expliquer le monde dans une perspective physicienne de la tradition philosophique grecque,[23] les *regulae mysticae* mentionnées dès le préambule du *Livre des Règles* sont les principes intrinsèques qui ont présidé à la rédaction des Écritures et que Tyconius s'efforce d'expliciter grâce à une panoplie d'outils analytiques.[24] À partir de ces éléments fondamentaux, il s'agit dans les deux cas de proposer une grille de lecture dans une perspective d'unification. Plus précisément, le bref traité d'exégèse que constitue le début du livre IV du *De principiis* veut conforter l'orthodoxie de l'argumentation théologique en affirmant la véracité des Écritures. Il trouve ainsi sa place au sein de l'ensemble de l'ouvrage à une époque où le corpus biblique est encore l'objet de contestations et d'attaques. Le *Liber regularum*, quant à lui, appartient à la période post-nicéenne et cherche à réunir les chrétiens déchirés par le schisme donatiste autour d'une meilleure intelligence des Écritures grâce à quelques grands principes interprétatifs. Ainsi Origène et Tyconius furent-ils animés de la même volonté d'éclairer le texte biblique pour mieux asseoir son autorité, mais avec des approches sensiblement différentes.

[23] D'après M. Harl, G. Dorival et A. Le Boulluec (éds.), Origène, *Traité des Principes (Peri Archôn)* (Paris, 1976), introduction p. 8. Repris dans G. Dorival, Où en sont les études sur Origène?: *Connaissance des Pères de l'Église* 62 (juin 1996), 11.

[24] Tyconius, *Livre des Règles*, Préambule (SC 488, 130-2).

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Scripture, the Loom of the Spirit: Genre and Species in the *Book of Rules* of Tyconius of Carthage

Pamela BRIGHT, Montreal

There are many images used by Tyconius of Carthage in the *Book of Rules*,[1] which was circulating in Catholic communities headed by Aurelius, Catholic primate of Carthage at the time when Augustine had returned to his African homeland. In writing the tightly structured preamble to the *Book of Rules* Tyconius called upon images such as 'keys' and 'lamps', hidden 'treasures', 'vast forests' and 'pathways of light':

'Above everything else that comes to mind, I considered it necessary to write a book of rules and so to fashion keys and lamps, as it were, to the secrets of the law. For there are certain mystic rules which obtain in the inner recesses of the entire law, and which keep the rich treasures of the truth hidden from some people. But if the sense of these rules is accepted without ill will, as we impart it, whatever is closed will be opened and whatever is dark will be illuminated; and anyone who walks the vast forest of prophecy guided by these rules, as by pathways of light, will be kept from straying into error.'[2]

Tyconius himself does not use the image of scripture as a loom, but it captures something of his insistence that scripture consists of intricately devised narratives, where the design is governed by the seven 'mystic rules'[3] *regulae mysticae* of the Spirit, the Author of scripture. The reader of scripture has to give close attention to subtle changes in meaning or referent indicating a shift, *transitus*,[4] in the sense, *ratio*,[5] of the narrative whereby the Spirit both reveals and obscures the 'treasures of truth'. Unlike other forms of patristic exegesis Tyconius does not speak of a layering of meaning – a literal level, or first layer of story line and a deeper layer of meaning, behind or beneath the surface of the narrative. Rather, for Tyconius, the *ratio*, or sense of the narrative lies in the composition of the text. It is not a question of learning rules to interpret the text, but of understanding the ruling principles themselves, the 'mystic rules', of the Spirit, the Author of the prophetic texts.

[1] William S. Babcock, *Tyconius: The Book of Rules* (Atlanta, Georgia, 1989); Pamela Bright, *The Book of Rules of Tyconius: Its Structure and Inner Logic* (Notre Dame, Indiana, 1988).
[2] Babcock, *Tyconius*, 3.
[3] *Ibid.*
[4] *Ibid.*
[5] *Ibid.*

Studia Patristica XLVI, 161-166.
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A Donatist lay theologian and exegete, Tyconius had incurred the wrath of his Bishop Parmenian, by his insistence that an understanding of the dynamic of the 'mystic rules' of scripture revealed that the church was not a community of the pure, but was 'bipartite',[6] exhibiting a mysterious doubleness of true and false discipleship which needed keen discernment to distinguish one from the other. There was a 'mystery of evil'[7] (*2Th.* 2:7) at work 'in the midst' of the church which would be revealed on the day of judgement when the 'weeds' and the wheat would be separated (*Matth.* 13:30).

Obviously intrigued by the *Book of Rules*, Bishop Aurelius had asked Augustine for his opinion about the exegetical theory proposed by Tyconius. Augustine took the request very seriously, but he took his time. Augustine's commentary on the *Book of Rules* is to be found in the closing sections of Book III of *De doctrina christiana*,[8] and was written thirty years after the earlier part of his own masterwork on the interpretation of scripture. In this paper I intend to compare Augustine's commentary on Tyconius' fourth rule, *De specie et genere*, with Tyconius's own argument in the *Book of Rules*. The aim of the exercise is to try to understand what is the core revelation of the fourth of the seven 'mystic rules'. If we follow the *ratio* of the fourth rule, what 'treasures of truth' will be revealed from the inner 'recesses' of scripture?

Augustine's Commentary on Rule 4, *De specie et genere*

The first thing to notice about Augustine's commentary on Rule 4 of the *Book of Rules* is that in his summary, he has no negative reactions to either the terminology proposed by Tyconius or to the general lines of the argument in his summary, unlike his critical comment on the use of the term 'bipartite' in Rule 2 of the *Book of Rules* to describe the nature of the church, which according to Augustine should have been called 'On the Lord's true and mixed body' rather than 'bipartite'.[9] On the other hand, in turning his attention to Rule 4, Augustine begins with just a brief reference to species and genus in terms of the 'part' and the 'whole'. He gives an example of a state, *civitas*, as 'part'/species of the 'whole'/genus of the world population.[10] In the prophetic texts the "species" always refers to an individual state, *civitas*, such as Jerusalem, Tyre, or

[6] Rule II, 'The Lord's Bipartite Body'. Babcock, *Tyconius*, 15-21.

[7] For the temple is bipartite, and its other part, although it is being constructed with great blocks of stone, will be destroyed and 'not one stone will be left upon another'. Against the continuous coming of that temple we must remain on guard until the church shall depart 'from the midst' of it. Babcock, *Tyconius*, 15.

[8] R.P.H. Green, Augustine, *De Doctrina Christiana*, XXX 42 – XXXVII 55, 172-93 (Oxford, 1995).

[9] *Ibid.* XXXII 100, 176, 177.

[10] *Ibid.* XXXIV 47, 180, 181.

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Babylon; or a nation, *gens*, such as Judea, Egypt or Assyria; or a person, *homo*, such as David or Solomon.[11] When the biblical narrative 'exceeds' ('transcends' in Green's translation) what is appropriate for describing the historical reality of the species, it is an indication that the prophetic reference has shifted – that there has been a *transitus* – from the species, for example from the historical *civitas*, Jerusalem, to the genus, which was for Augustine, as much as it was for Tyconius, the universal referent, the Church. Augustine cites *Ezekiel* 36:17-9, addressed to the House of Israel.[12] Where the prophetic text stays within the bounds of the historic events, it is to his compatriots that the prophet speaks; when his words 'transcend' these bounds, then it is the Church that is addressed. Augustine argues that it is obvious that the referent has shifted from the historic Israel to the 'spiritual Israel', the Church, in the passage that follows (*Ez.* 36:23-9) and that the 'new heart' refers to the regeneration of grace in baptism.[13] However, Augustine warns that these shifts in reference in the biblical narrative are not always so clear, and that the reader has to be very vigilant in noting how the species and genus are often intertwined within the narrative. According to Augustine, these 'secret, imperceptible shifts' *latenter transit*, this 'hidden quality' within the narrative are 'not hostile in intent, but for the healthy purpose of stretching our understanding'.[14]

Species and Genus in the *Book of Rules*

The question is: Does Augustine's commentary on species and genus do justice to Tyconius' understanding of the fourth mystic rule? Is the Augustinian notion of 'stretching our understanding' by taking the leap from contemplating God's action in the historical species to the transformative dynamic in the genus, the Church, – thus bursting out of the bounds of the individual species, to the all-encompassing genus, in the 'novelty of grace', which is the Church – really in line with the *ratio*, the logic of the rule, as announced in the *Book of Rules*?

To answer that question two steps are required. First one must look closely at the scriptural texts that Tyconius selects to illustrate his understanding of the logic of the fourth rule;[15] second, to identify the specific aspect of these biblical references that Tyconius himself consistently draws attention to in his own treatment of the 'mystic rule' of species and genus.

First, what are the main texts cited by Tyconius? In Rule 4, *de specie et genere*, there are extensive quotations from the prophetic books of *Ezekiel*,

[11] *Ibid.* XXXIV 47, 180, 181.
[12] *Ibid.* XXXIV 48, 180-5.
[13] *Ibid.* XXXIV 48, 182.
[14] *Ibid.* XXXIV 49, 184, 185.
[15] Babcock, *Tyconius*, 55-89.

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Isaiah and *Jeremiah* (especially from chapters 20, 30, 36, and 37 in *Ezekiel*; from chapters 19 and 23 in *Isaiah*; and chapter 49 in *Jeremiah*). Secondly, what specific aspects are treated in the selections of the prophetic texts? Throughout the Tyconian commentary, like a drum beat, there is a recurring motif – a divine intervention of delivery from the evil 'in the midst', whether the referent is to the historical species (like Nineveh)[16] or to the genus, the Church. It is the delivery of those who heard and heeded the call of the Spirit to inner conversion, a delivery from the evil 'in the midst' (*2Th.* 2:7). It is significant that Augustine concludes his analysis of Rule 4 with a citation of *Ezekiel* 36:17-9, in completely ignoring the phrase 'in the midst', or in making any reference to divine delivery from evil. On the other hand, it is the unvarying emphasis of Tyconius on the day of deliverance that marks the fundamental difference between Augustine and Tyconius in the understanding of the fourth mystic rule.

The Spirit, the 'Seven Nations' and the 'Septiform Church'

To underline the striking difference between the understanding of the fourth mystic rule in Augustine and Tyconius, one also needs to take into account the different treatment of the categories of species selected for commentary in the two works. In *De doctrina christiana*, Augustine explores the significance of cities, then nations and thirdly, the category of persons, whereas in the *Book of Rules*, Tyconius chooses to illustrate his argument with the 'seven nations', then persons, and then cities, emphasizing that this last category includes foreign cities. The reference to the 'seven nations'[17] is a crucial aspect of the Tyconian argument concerning the *ratio* of the fourth mystic rule. The 'seven nations' are those promised to Abraham in *Deuteronomy* 7:1, and referred to in *Acts* 13:19 when Paul was preaching in Antioch in Pisidia. In the promise to Abraham, the Deuteronomic text speaks of 'seven nations mightier and more numerous than you' – Hittites, Girgashites, Amorites, Canaanites, Perizzites, Hivites and Jebusites. Tyconius's reference to the 'nations' is in the context of *Ezekiel* 36:16-36 with the familiar motif of delivery 'from the midst': 'I will take you from the nations and lead you to your own land'. However, it is important to note that the 'nations', neither historically as species, nor universally as genus, Church, are to be identified as evil in themselves. The 'nations' are as much 'bipartite' as Jerusalem or the House of Israel. According to Tyconius, a careful reading of scripture reveals their nature as 'bipartite' in that they, like Jerusalem itself are, at the same time, under judgement and under the promise of delivery. Tyconius cites the Isaian prophecy directed to the city of Tyre: 'She will be

[16] *Ibid.* 71.
[17] *Ibid.* 57.

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restored to her former state and will have commerce with all the nations of the earth' (*Is.* 23:15-7).[18]

It is hardly surprising that the species, the 'seven nations', or any one of the 'seven nations', can, in hyperbolic language, shift from species to genus, as in 'commerce with all the nations of the earth'. In Rule 5, *De temporibus*, 'Times', which discusses the logic of biblical numbers, seven is one of the numbers, like the multiples of ten, that often have a highly symbolic character. In fact, for Tyconius, seven is an ecclesial number, if not *the* ecclesial number.[19] He speaks of the Church as 'seven-fold',[20] particularly in reflecting the multiplicity of the gifts of the Spirit, and the manifold presence of the Spirit. What is remarkable in his exposition of Rule 4, on species and genus, is the centrality of the role of the Holy Spirit. In the introduction to Rule 4, Tyconius announces: 'I am speaking with reference to the mysteries of heavenly wisdom in relation to the teaching of the Holy Spirit' (1*Cor.* 1:17).[21] Speaking of the composition of the biblical narratives, he draws attention to 'the subtle discourse of the manifold Spirit',[22] an allusion to the Spirit of God in the *Book of Wisdom* (*Wis.* 7:22-30). Tyconius comments: 'Making faith the price of truth, the Spirit produced an account marked by mysteries, concealing the genus in the species'.[23]

In my earlier study, *The Book of Rules of Tyconius: Its Structure and Inner Logic*, I have argued for a concentric structure in the *Book of Rules*, with Rule 4 on species and genus, as central to the argument about the seven 'mystic rules' underlying the composition of the biblical narrative. In this brief study of Rule 4, both in *De doctrina christiana* and in the *Book of Rules* itself, I have argued that careful attention to the texts that Tyconius selects, together with a similar degree of focus upon the aspects of the texts which he emphasizes, opens to the readers (according to Tyconius) a luminous path through the dense woods of prophecy. Not only does the reader of the 'subtle discourse of the Spirit' become aware of the prophetic denunciation of evil 'in the midst' of the Church – as 'bipartite' –, but that there will be a deliverance of the true disciples, at the end of days. This is the 'treasure of truth', made known to those graced by the Spirit. The delivery of the Church from the presence and power of Antichrist and of his followers is not for now; it is for the 'day' of the Lord. Throughout the scriptures, the Spirit both denounces evil and calls for conversion within the body of the faithful *and* unfaithful. The time of the purified church is not now, but in the Lord's 'day'.

[18] *Ibid.* 77.
[19] *Ibid.* 97.
[20] *Ibid.* 19. 'It is in virtue of this mystery that, in the Apocalypse, the Lord now calls the seven angels (*i.e.*, the septiform church) holy and keepers of his precepts ...'
[21] *Ibid.* 55.
[22] *Ibid.* 57.
[23] *Ibid.* 55.

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It is impossible to do justice to the complexity of Tyconius' arguments concerning the 'mystic rules' in the space of a short article. The present intention has been to point to the degree of attention required for a reading marked by such a sustained rigor. I suspect that it was too condensed a world-view to sustain Augustine's attention, perhaps too cramped a style for his own expansive genius. However I would also argue that, for all its idiosyncrasies of exegetical method, the *Book of Rules* remains an important witness to the hermeneutical and ecclesiological initiatives of the ancient African Church.

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XII. Egypt before Nicaea

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Deification in Clement of Alexandria with a Special Reference to his Use of *Theaetetus* 176B

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While the concept of deification has been given little attention in western theological thinking and scholarship, it occupies a large place in the theology of the Eastern fathers. Together with the theology of the holy icons, the Jesus prayer and the distinction between essence and energies in God, it is perhaps the most typical aspect of the theology of the east.[1]

The earliest Christian discussion of deification is concerned with a passage in the *Book of Psalms*, *Psalm* 82, especially verse 6. This is in fact the most common point of departure when deification and likeness to God is discussed. It occurs in many of the earliest authors, such as Justin, Irenaeus, Tertullian, Cyprian and Clement.[2] Verse 6 runs: 'I said, You are gods, and are all sons of the most High'. Who are they whom the Psalmist calls 'gods'? About A.D. 160 Justin Martyr claimed that the people of God was the new Israel and the 'gods' were those who were obedient to Christ. Irenaeus of Lyon claimed that 'gods' were those that were baptized. Through baptism the image of God that was destroyed in the Fall was restored. This view, that the purpose of Christ's coming to earth was to deify man, runs like a scarlet thread through most of Greek theology in the Early Church, meaning that salvation is seen as an equivalent to deification. At the same time it is the result of a process. The way it is described and assessed, however, differs among the fathers.

Deification and man's likeness to God play a considerable role in the theology of Clement of Alexandria.[3] He treats the topic from several different angles and uses a variegated terminology in order to express the idea. The main focus is, however, ethical, perhaps even spiritual, and 'deification' (*theosis*) and 'likeness to God' (*homoiosis theo*) are synonymous. Clement's vision is that every human person is capable of growing like God.

[1] Georgios I. Mantzaridis, *The Deification of Man* (New York, 1984), 12, writes: 'Deification, as God's greatest gift to man and the ultimate goal of human existence, had always been a prime consideration in the teachings of the Church Fathers on salvation'. See also Panayiotis Nellas, *Deification in Christ: The Nature of the Human Person* (New York, 1987), 15.

[2] Mark D. Nispel, Christian Deification and the Early *Testimonia*: *VC* 53 (1999) 289-304, 292.

[3] Clement is in fact the first ecclesiastical writer to apply the technical terms of deification to the Christian's life. Norman Russell, *The Doctrine of Deification in the Greek Christian Tradition* (Oxford, 2004), 121.

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Psalm 82 (verse 6), however, is not the reference that occurs most often when Clement discusses the idea of deification. He does mention it, quoting it or alluding to it, once in *Protrepticus*, once in *Paedagogus* and four times in the *Stromateis*. Yet, he cites the famous Platonic formula of *Theaetetus* 176B, 'likeness to God as far as possible' (*homoiosis theo kata to dynaton*) 22 times, almost four times more often than *Psalm* 82:6.

In addition to Clement's fondness of Plato in general, I suspect that his preference for this passage to the otherwise much more used passage in *Psalm* 82, has to do with the expression '*kata to dynaton*'. This Platonic reservation is wholly in line with Clement's epistemological apophaticism in relation to God. Therefore, also when it comes to man's possibility of becoming like God, it is more compatible with his whole concept of God to add 'as far as it is possible'.

It is common knowledge that Clement is the church father who most frequently cites from non-Christian authors. In addition to, of course, countless citations from the New and Old Testaments, Clement very often refers to Greek poets, dramatists, philosophers and historians. He may illustrate an argument with a passage from Plato or with a few lines from Homer, Euripides, Heraclitus or Democritus. In addition to the more well known authors he mentions by name a whole list of writers whom we know nothing of because their works are lost. Some of these Clement only knew through anthologies, but there is no doubt that he had read both Homer and Plato in the original. No Greek philosopher is so warmly praised as Plato, and Platonic expressions and ideas, including citations from his works, are spread throughout his works. It was Clement's view that Greek philosophy and the Jewish law were two parallel covenants, so to speak, preparing the Greek and the Jews, respectively, for the reception of the more perfect Christian message, the 'true philosophy'.[4]

Clement is not original in his use of Plato; it is a typical aspect of this period, often called the Middle Platonic period, or Middle Platonism.[5] It is first of all characterised by a renewed interest in Plato, a return to a metaphysical and religious Plato,[6] and questions such as the creation of the world, the construction of the Godhead and the purpose of life, were of special interest. The Middle Platonists[7] looked upon themselves as followers of Plato; it was not, however, the whole Platonic corpus that was read, their textual basis was rather narrow: they were almost exclusively concerned with the 'classical dialogues': *Phaedrus*, *Phaedo*, *Symposium*, *Republic*, *Timaeus*, *Parmenides*, *Theaetetus* and some of

[4] For Clement's views on Greek philosophy, see especially *Strom.* I and VI.

[5] The Middle Platonic period is normally defined as the period of the Platonic Academy which starts with Antiochus of Ascalon and goes down to Ammonius Saccas, the precursor of Plotinus, *i.e.* from *c.* 100 B.C. till *c.* A.D. 220.

[6] David T. Runia, *Philo of Alexandria and the Timaeus of Plato* (Leiden, 1986), 46.

[7] Among the most well known Middle Platonists are Plutarch, Alcinous, Numenius of Apamea, Apuleius of Madaura, Atticus as well as the Jewish and Christian representatives Philo of Alexandria, Justin Martyr, Clement and Origen.

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the letters. In Stoic philosophy the *summum bonum* had been 'life according to Nature', but Middle Platonism (from Eudorus of Alexandria and onward) adopted the more theological 'likeness to God' (*homoiosis theo*), taken from the *Theataetus*.

Clement's references to *Theaetetus* 176B are found in all his main works. In addition to the formula 'to become like God', Plato's reservation 'as far as this is possible' (*kata to dynaton*) as well as his definition of likeness to God, were equally of interest to Clement. I shall therefore quote the relevant passage:

> And to escape [from earth] is to become like God (*homoiosis theo*), as far as this is possible (*kata to dynaton*); and to become like God is to become righteous (*dikaion*) and holy (*hosion*) and wise (*meta froneseos*).[8]

To give an exhaustive treatment of Clement's use of this Platonic passage within the space of a short paper, is not possible. I will therefore in the following elaborate only on two aspects. Firstly, the association that Clement makes between the Platonic 'likeness to God' and the 'image' and 'likeness' of *Gen.* 1:26: 'Then God said, "Let us make man in our image (*eikon*), in our likeness (*homoiosis*)"',[9] and secondly, the role of knowledge (*gnosis*) in relation to deification.

As to the first point, Clement brings the Platonic *homoiosis* in *Theaetetus* 176B into direct connection with the *homoiosis* of *Gen.* 1:26, as for example in *Protrepticus*. The God-fearing, Christian person is both the image and likeness of God. Jesus Christ has made him both 'righteous, holy and wise' and so he has become like God. The three predicatives, as we see, are taken from Plato. In addition, *Psalm* 82:6 is also quoted, as a form of Biblical justification:

> It is time then for us to affirm that only the God-fearing man is rich and of sound mind and well-born, and therefore the image (*eikon*) together with the likeness (*homoiosis*), of God; and to say and believe that when he has been made by Christ Jesus 'righteous and holy and wise', he also becomes in the same degree already like (*homoion*) to God. So the prophet openly reveals this gracious favour when he says 'I said, ye are gods, and ye are all sons of the Most High' (*Protr.* 122.4-123.1).

In the second book of the *Stromateis* the Platonic *homoiosis* and the Biblical *homoiosis* are brought together in more than one instance.[10] In the passage below Clement even seems to use *Theataetus* 176B to interpret *Gen.* 1:26.[11] The passage is also an example of the distinction that Clement makes between the 'image' and 'likeness' of *Gen.* 1:26:

> And this [the highest perfection] he [Plato] places in the knowledge of the Good and in likeness to God, defining likeness as being 'righteous, holy and wise'. Is not this the

[8] *Plato*, vol. 2, LCL (Cambridge, Mass., 1952).

[9] From the *Septuagint*.

[10] See also *Strom.* II 133.3.

[11] See Salvatore R.C. Lilla, *Clement of Alexandria: A Study in Christian Platonism and Gnosticism* (Oxford, 1971), 108.

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way some of our people accept the view that a human being has received 'according to the image' (*kat' eikona*) at birth, but will secure 'according to the likeness' (*kat' homoiosin*) later, as he attains perfection? (*Strom.* II 131.5-6).

As was the case with other church fathers, Clement does not treat the two expressions *kat' eikona* and *kat' homoiosin* as synonyms.[12] Whereas the *eikon* is congenital, the *homoiosis* is acquired through progress in virtue and spiritual maturity. For, according to Clement, God's saving plan for humanity, which began at creation, is not yet perfected. Only Jesus Christ, who is both God and man, has fulfilled the plan. All other men begin as 'according to the image', yet Christians are called to fulfil the ideal of *Gen.* 1:26, to become God-like humans. Therefore, man's imperfect likeness to God needs to be corrected according to the archetype, Christ himself, who is the perfect image, *i.e.* God's likeness.

My second point is related to the second part of the quoted passage from the *Theaetetus* where Plato defines likeness to God as being equivalent to righteousness, holiness and wisdom (*fronesis*). Though Clement most often employs *gnosis*, he treats *fronesis* as roughly equivalent to *gnosis*: 'For it may be said that wisdom (*fronesis*) consists of divine knowledge (*gnosin theian*) and exists in those who are deified (*theopoioumenois*)' (*Strom.* VI 126.4). Agreeing with Plato that likeness to God is wisdom (or knowledge), he claims:

> For he who is in a state of ignorance (*en agnoia on*), is sinful ... while he who is in a state of knowledge (*en gnosei kathestos*), being assimilated as far as possible to God, is already spiritual, and so elect (*Strom.* IV 168.2).

The same thought is expressed in *Quis dives salvetur.* The contrast between life and death is seen as equivalent to the contrast between full knowledge of God and ignorance of God. But he also adds in the same breath, that 'close friendship, and love (*agape*) to Him, and growth in his likeness (*exhomoiosis*), is alone life' (*Quis dives* 73). In Clement's view, to know God is a phase on the road to become like God. The knowledge (*gnosis*) is not primarily intellectual, it is more of a spiritual, relational or intimate kind. In *Strom.* VII 57.4 he describes a process that leads from heathenism to faith, goes on to knowledge and then to love:

> As I mentioned before, there seems to me to be a first kind of saving change from heathenism (*ethnon*) to faith (*pistis*), a second from faith to knowledge (*gnosis*); and this latter, as it passes on into love (*agape*), begins at once to establish a mutual friendship between that which knows and that which is known.

Knowledge is not something that man has from the beginning; it needs to be acquired through training and practice. From continual practice it passes into a habit and becomes perfect through love.

[12] Eric Osborn, *Clement of Alexandria* (Cambridge, 2005), 233 claims that the distinction between image and likeness 'is one of Clement's chief contributions to Christian theology', 122; but it is hardly original with him. See *e.g.* Irenaeus, *Adv. haer.* V 16.2.

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It is, however, important to distinguish between man's possibility to have knowledge (*gnosis*) of God, and the fact that Clement teaches that God is unknowable, unutterable, undescribable. When we say that man knows God, the focus is on man, and we are in the realm of spirituality. For Clement also teaches that there is no knowledge (*gnosis*) without faith (*pistis*). When we say (with Clement) that God is unknowable (*agnostos*), we express an epistemological fact – about God's apophatic nature.

By terms as *pistis*, *gnosis*, and *homoiosis*, Clement describes a life of increasing likeness and proximity to God. It is a life that possesses certain moral and spiritual qualities, such as justice, holiness and wisdom, love of man and control of passions. Only God is by nature free from passions, man may acquire more of it by gradual training; the state of *apatheia* Clement sees as equivalent to likeness to God. Deification is primarily the result of a process. The end product is the Christian Gnostic who is both the image and likeness of God. Likeness to God represents in Clement's thought the purpose of life, the true human goal, *telos*.

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Αἴνιγμα and αἰνίττομαι in the Works of Clement of Alexandria

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The present essay provides an assessment of Clement of Alexandria's frequent use of the words αἰνίττομαι, αἴνιγμα, and related forms (αἰνιγμός, αἰνιγματώδης, αἰνιγματώδως), for the notion of an enigma is fundamental in the works of the Alexandrian theologian.[1]

These words do not appear in Homer,[2] but from the time of Herodotus, Pindar, and the tragedians, they were predicated of the cryptic messages emanating from seers.[3] In the works of Plato, mundane matters are dubbed enigmas,[4] but αἰνίττομαι and αἴνιγμα are also associated with divine inspiration. In the *Timaeus*, the Locrian distinguishes inspired μάντεις, who receive and proclaim, from προφῆται, who interpret, divine messages that come δι' αἰνιγμῶν.[5]

But the association between riddles and inspiration is not restricted to classical Greek culture; it is also found in the Bible. The Book of Numbers (12:8) reveals that God appears and speaks to Moses 'mouth to mouth', rather than

[1] See Raoul Mortley, *Connaissance Religieuse et Herméneutique chez Clément d'Alexandrie* (Leiden, 1973), 229-32. See also *id.*, 'ΑΝΑΛΟΓΊΑ chez Clément d'Alexandrie: *REG* 84 (1971) 80-93; Claude Mondésert, Le Symbolisme chez Clément d'Alexandrie: *RSR* 26 (1936) 158-80, and P.M. Hermaniuk, La parabole chez Clément d'Alexandrie: *ETL* 21 (1945) 5-60.

[2] But αἰνίζομαι appears at *Il.* 13.374 (David B. Monro, Thomas W. Allen) and *Od.* 8.487 (Allen). I cite OCT versions of classical texts, the Loeb volumes of the works of Philo (vols. 1-9 [Francis H. Colson, George H. Whitaker]) and Plutarch (*Moralia*, vols. 1, 5 [Frank C. Babbitt], vol. 9 [Edwin L. Minar]), the edition of Clement's *Stromateis* 1-6 by Otto Stählin, Ludwig Früchtel, and Ursula Treu (GCS 52), and Sources Chrétiennes editions of Clement's other works (SC 2 [Mondésert, André Plassart], 23 [François Sagnard], 70 [Henri-Irénée Marrou, Marguerite Harl], 108 [Mondésert, Marrou], 158 [Mondésert, Chantal Matray, Marrou], 428 [Alain Le Boulluec]). I have also benefited from Le Boulluec's notes to *Str.* V (SC 279). I cite the Greek New Testament according to Barbara Aland, *et al.* (4th rev. ed.), and the LXX according to Alfred Rahlfs. Other editions cited appear below. I have also made use of the Thesaurus Linguae Graecae, Regents of the University of California.

[3] *E.g.*, Aeschylus, *A.* 1112, 1183 (Gilbert Murray); Pindar, *P.* 8.40 (Cecil M. Bowra); Sophocles, *OT* 439 (Alfred C. Pearson). See Herodotus, 5.56 (Karl Hude). Of the Sphinx: Sophocles, *OT* 393, 1525. For cryptic quality: Aeschylus, *Pr.* 610, 833, 949.

[4] *E.g.*, children's riddles (*R.* 479c [John Burnet]). See Alberto Bernabé, AINIΓMA, AINITTOMAI: Exégesis Alegórica en Platón y Plutarco, in: Aurelio Pérez Jiménez, *et al.* (eds.), *Plutarco, Platón y Aristóteles* (Madrid, 1999), 189-200.

[5] *Ti.* 72b (Burnet). For the association between riddles and mantic capabilities, see Sophocles, *OT* 393-94; Plato, *Chrm.* 164e; *Ap.* 21b. See also Plutarch, 407ab, 409d.

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δι' αἰνιγμάτων, as he does to προφῆται. This passage surely informs St. Paul's well-known remark to the Corinthians that now we see 'through a mirror', ἐν αἰνίγματι, but later we shall see 'face to face'.[6] The comprehension of riddles, according to other biblical passages, is characteristic of the wise man.[7] These words, then, imply inspiration as well as limitation or mediation.

These words were also used from an early date within the interpretive tradition in order to express the deeper meaning of literary passages.[8] This was especially the case for Platonists, particularly when commenting on the Homeric epics,[9] as well as for biblical exegetes. By means of these words, a wise or even initiated interpreter could articulate insight into eternal truths. These words manifest a conviction in the profundity of the literary work being interpreted. Therefore Porphyry, who acknowledged riddles in the poems of Homer the theologian, disdained Christian exegetes who regarded the words of Scripture as αἰνίγματα.[10] Porphyry blames Origen for this, but Clement really deserves the credit, although he was surely influenced by what he found in Philo and to some extent in earlier Christian exegesis.

Αἰνίττομαι, αἴνιγμα, and related forms appear more than one hundred and forty times in Clement's extant works, often in connection with other words denoting oblique or allusive communication.[11] They occur in ten of the twelve chapters of the *Protrepticus*, in every book of the *Paedagogus*, and throughout the first seven books of the *Stromateis*, especially in the fifth book, where Clement takes up the 'symbolic and enigmatic form' of barbarian philosophy.[12]

Nearly half of the occurrences of αἰνίττομαι and αἴνιγμα concern the deeper meaning of various phenomena in Scripture, such as words,[13] names,[14] events,[15] and objects.[16] Even an absence can be a riddle.[17] With the notion of an

[6] Clement cites 1*Cor.* 13:12 six times (if one includes *Str.* IV 3.12.2), but only once (*Exc. Theod.* I 15.2) with the expression ἐν αἰνίγματι. See Raoul Mortley, The Mirror and I Cor. 13,12 in the Epistemology of Clement of Alexandria: *VC* 30 (1976) 109-20, esp. 115f.

[7] 3*Kgs.* 10:1 (2*Chr.* 9:1); *Prov.* 1:6; *Wis.* 8:8; *Sir.* 39:3, 47:15.

[8] Αἴνιγμα and related forms appear in the Derveni papyrus, according to the text in Gábor Betegh, *The Derveni Papyrus: Cosmology, Theology and Interpretation* (Cambridge, 2004). See also Glenn W. Most, The Fire Next Time. Cosmology, Allegoresis, and Salvation in the Derveni Papyrus: *JHS* 117 (1997) 117-35, esp. 123.

[9] See Robert Lamberton, *Homer the Theologian* (Berkeley, 1986). Plato, too, predicates αἰνίττομαι of Homer (*Tht.* 194c [Burnet]).

[10] Eusebius, *HE* VI 19.2-9 (PG 20, 561-68) = Porphyry, *Chr.* Fr. 39 (Adolf von Harnack). See Robert M. Berchman, *Porphyry Against the Christians* (Leiden, 2005), 13-4. For Homer as θεόλογος, see Lamberton, *Homer the Theologian* (1986), 29f.

[11] σύμβολον, μεταφορά, παραβολή, ἀλληγορία, ὑπόνοια.

[12] *Str.* II 1.1.2.

[13] *Paed.* I 9.85.3; *Str.* V 3.17.3.

[14] *Paed.* I 7.60.3. See *Paed.* I 9.85.4.

[15] *Paed.* II 8.61.3, II 8.63.2.

[16] *Paed.* II 8.63.5, II 8.73.3, II 12.119.1.

[17] *Paed.* I 5.23.2.

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enigma, Clement draws philosophical, doctrinal, and ethical points from the biblical oracles.[18] Occasionally by means of this notion he elicits from Old Testament passages references to Christ.[19] For example, he imports from Philo a cosmological interpretation of a scriptural passage but declines to call it an enigma, as the Jewish exegete had done; instead he reserves this word for the christological reading that follows.[20] Prophecies, in particular, are regarded as riddles, intelligible at the coming of Christ,[21] as are tenets of the Law.[22] But Clement maintains that nearly all of Scripture, including parts of the New Testament, is enigmatic.[23] Christ himself gives hints, as does St. Paul, whose citation of Aratus on the Areopagus, for example, is a hint that the Greeks in some sense honor God the Creator but that they lack the full knowledge that comes through Christ.[24] Clement pursues this hint throughout his works.

Indeed, the second most common use of αἰνίττομαι and αἴνιγμα is to characterize the sayings of barbarian and Greek sages, philosophers and poets, who foreshadow, often in astonishing ways, Christian teachings; followers of Christ can competently grasp and articulate these adumbrations.[25] Plato, for example, hints at God, the truth, and perhaps the resurrection;[26] Hesiod hints at God,[27] as does Xenophon;[28] Parmenides hints at hope,[29] Anacharsis the Scythian temperance,[30] and Euripides, astonishingly, the Father and the Son.[31] Some Greek sages, such as Heraclitus, wrote entire books in the enigmatic style.[32] Clement, like Plutarch and others, especially finds riddles in the Pythagorean *symbola*[33] and among Pythagoras's teachers, the Egyptians.[34] The early sages, who were close to the original, God-given wisdom of the nations,[35] and who

[18] See Eric Osborn, *Clement of Alexandria* (Cambridge, 2005), 56-80.

[19] *E.g.*, *Paed.* I 7.60.3, II 8.63.5.

[20] *Str.* V 6.35.1; see Philo, *Mos.* 2.102. See Annewies van den Hoek, *Clement of Alexandria and his Use of Philo in the* Stromateis (Leiden, 1988), 129. See also *Str.* V 6.38.2 and *Mos.* 2.125-31.

[21] *Prot.* I 10.1. See *Str.* V 8.55.3.

[22] *Paed.* II 10.83.5; *Str.* IV 3.8.6, VII 3.14.3.

[23] *Str.* V 6.32.1; see *Paed.* III 12.97.3.

[24] *Str.* I 19.91.5; see *Acts* 17:28.

[25] *Prot.* XI 112.2.

[26] *Prot.* VI 68.5 (see *Str.* I 25.165.3); *Prot.* VI 70.1; *Str.* V 14.103.4.

[27] *Prot.* VII 73.3.

[28] *Prot.* VI 71.3.

[29] *Str.* V 2.15.5.

[30] *Str.* V 8.44.5.

[31] *Str.* V 11.70.2.

[32] *Str.* V 8.50.2. For the association between Heraclitus, or rather Heracliteans, and riddles, see Plato, *Tht.* 180a. See also Diogenes Laertius, *VP* 9.3.

[33] *E.g.*, *Str.* V 5.27.4, V 5.28.2. See also *Str.* I 15.66.2, V 9.59.1. See *Str.* V 8.50.1 with Plutarch 364a; *Str.* V 5.27.8 with Plutarch, 727b-728c; and see Plutarch 354f and Philo, *Prob.* 2.

[34] *Str.* V 4.20.3, V 4.21.2, V 5.31.5, V 7.41.2-42.4. See Plutarch 354bc.

[35] See Jean Daniélou, *Message Évangélique et Culture Hellénistique aux IIe et IIIe siècles* (Tournai, 1961), 50-67.

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were influenced by Moses and the Hebrew prophets and in some cases by the προφῆται of Egypt,[36] particularly cultivated what Clement dubs the 'Hebraic and enigmatic' style of philosophy, *i.e.*, one marked by succinct, paraenetic discourse.[37] All of this is surely bound up with Clement's well-known conviction that philosophy was God's gift to the Greeks to lead them to Christ.

Clement also predicates αἰνίττομαι or αἴνιγμα of all sorts of *realia*, such as butter,[38] a constellation,[39] a gesture,[40] and cosmetics,[41] as well as dreams and symbols,[42] myths,[43] and names,[44] but there is one more use that is especially worthy of attention, in part because unlike the others, this one appears to be without precedent in the authors whom I have surveyed: on three occasions in the *Stromateis* Clement says that he himself, or the work itself, will give hints. One such hint, Clement specifies, involves the notion that philosophy is the work of Providence.[45] Elsewhere he remarks: 'My task, fittingly, is to live according to the Logos and to think about what has been intimated (τὰ σημαινόμενα), not striving for eloquence but content merely to hint at (τῷ αἰνίξασθαι) my thoughts'.[46] Hinting here contrasts with elegant expression, and it implies contemplative receptivity to the Logos and docility in the face of tradition. Hinting, in fact, and not explicit demonstration, is the vehicle of tradition. Explicating *Proverbs* 1:5-6, which refers to the wise man's understanding of αἰνίγματα, Clement remarks that a catechumen becomes wise by pondering the riddles of prophecy.[47] In another gloss on the same scriptural passage, Clement explains that those who understand riddles are those who, having received the Holy Spirit, search out the depths of God.[48] By virtue of the passion of Christ, the true gnostic understands riddles,[49] and he knows the deep meaning of the ecclesiastical tradition of twice-weekly fasting.[50] The entire Christian life, then, involves growth in the knowledge that comes through αἰνίγματα.

Riddles are necessary for many reasons.[51] Plato mentions one, which Clement cites: in his second epistle, the Athenian sage says he must give hints

[36] *Str.* I 14.62.4, I 15.66.2, I 15.69.1.
[37] *Str.* I 14.60.1-2.
[38] *Paed.* I 6.51.3.
[39] *Paed.* II 2.34.1.
[40] *Str.* V 1.13.1. See Plutarch, 38c, where the same gesture is also dubbed a riddle.
[41] *Paed.* III 2.9.2.
[42] *Str.* V 4.24.2.
[43] *Str.* I 15.73.2, V 8.53.1; *Paed.* II 12.123.2; see Plutarch, 355bc.
[44] *Prot.* IV 48.6.
[45] *Str.* I 1.18.4.
[46] *Str.* I 10.48.1. See also *Str.* I 1.15.1. See Heraclitus DK 93.
[47] *Str.* VI 15.130.2.
[48] *Str.* II 2.7.2-3.
[49] *Str.* VI 8.70.2-4 (see *Wis.* 8:8).
[50] *Str.* VII 12.75.2.
[51] See Eric Osborn, Clement and the Bible, in: Gilles Dorival and Alain Le Boulluec (eds.), *Origeniana Sexta* (Leuven, 1995), 121-32, esp. 127f.

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(φραστέον δή σοι δι' αἰνιγμῶν) lest an interceptor discern his true meaning.[52] But enigmas are not solely, or even primarily, a means to exclude certain people; rather, as in Plutarch,[53] they have a pedagogical purpose. Riddles insure that one is properly prepared to receive lofty instruction.[54] Moreover, enigmas are necessary for attaining truth.[55] Through enigmas God lovingly trains;[56] through enigmas teachers such as Clement prudently instruct; through enigmas one is drawn from the sensible realm toward God.[57] All theology is ineluctably enigmatic, because God cannot be expressed in words.[58] Symbols, which include αἰνίγματα, neither obliterate, nor refract, reason; rather, as Eric Osborn notes, they 'cooperate with intelligence'.[59]

In three passages in Christian authors prior to Clement, one finds these words predicated of Scripture and in one case of Plato. In the *Dialogus cum Tryphone* Justin Martyr refers to Plato in the *Timaeus* giving a hint about cosmology,[60] and to Daniel hinting at the Incarnation and the Virgin birth,[61] the verb αἰνίσσεται being used in both passages. Again, according to a fragment from *Adversus haereses*, Irenaeus remarks that every prophecy initially is a riddle (αἴνιγμα), which at the coming of the Lord may be understood accurately to refer to Christ.[62] Finally, in a passage in the *Kerygma Petri*, which Clement cites, the author remarks that the prophets sometimes mention Christ explicitly but other times δι' αἰνιγμάτων.[63]

Philo, however, uses αἰνίττομαι and related forms quite frequently, nearly one hundred times.[64] Like Clement, Philo typically uses these words – almost always the verb, for the noun, curiously, often has a negative connotation in Philo's works[65] – to elicit the meaning of the oracles[66] of Scripture, although in Philo's case, with only one exception,[67] these passages are all from the Pentateuch. Philo employs αἰνίττομαι when probing the significance of words,

[52] *Ep.* 2, 312d (Burnet); *Str.* V 10.65.1. See Plutarch, 370f: Plato was more explicit in old age.

[53] Plutarch, 385c, 406f. See also Rainer Hirsch-Luipold, *Plutarchs Denken in Bildern* (Tübingen, 2002), 132f.

[54] *Str.* V 4.19.2-20.1. See Clement's remarks about the cryptic style of the *Stromateis* (*Str.* IV 2.4.1-3).

[55] *Str.* II 1.1.2.

[56] *Str.* V 4.24.3.

[57] *Str.* V 11.71.5.

[58] *Str.* V 4.21.4, V 5.31.5, V 11.71.5, V 11.74.5, V 12.79.1, V 12.80.3.

[59] E. Osborn, Clement and the Bible (1995), 127.

[60] *Dial.* 5.4 (Miroslav Marcovich [PTS 47]).

[61] *Dial.* 76.1.

[62] *Adv haer.* IV 26 (Adelin Rousseau, *et al.* [SC 100]).

[63] *Str.* VI 15.128.1.

[64] See Peder Borgen, *et al.*, *The Philo Index* (Grand Rapids, 2000).

[65] Riddles can be sophistical or wrong: *Leg.* 3.226, 3.231, 3.233.

[66] See *Mut.* 7; *Abr.* 166.

[67] *Her.* 290 (*Ps.* 83:11 [LXX]).

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names, and expressions,[68] various objects,[69] and especially laws[70] that are mentioned in these books of the Bible. Philo's task, as exegete, is to pursue these hints and find clarity.[71] Moreover, though largely restricted to his philosophical works, Philo uses αἰνίττομαι to elicit the meaning of the sayings of certain Greek sages.[72] Clement, however, develops the notion that these sages were inspired, at least indirectly, to offer such hints.[73] Clement also, much more than Philo, dilates upon the notion of an enigma, even to the point of making this a prominent and explicit theme in the *Stromateis*.

Apologetic, literary, and metaphysical concerns underlie Clement's fondness for riddles. Since riddles characterize most religious discourse, he can appeal to them in discussions with Christians, Jews, Greeks, and others. Moreover one must grow accustomed to riddles in order to understand ancient philosophy, other cultures, and the Bible. Finally, riddles are valuable for reaching the noetic realm, and God.

[68] *Her.* 54, 128; *Abr.* 83; *Plant.* 48; *Sobr.* 58; *Somn.* 2.222.

[69] *E.g.*, *Migr.* 223; *Mos.* 2.131, 180; *Spec.* 1.173; *Somn.* 2.74.

[70] This is frequently the case in *Spec.*, *e.g.*, 2.89, 4.144.

[71] See *Cher.* 21; *Det.* 155; *Fug.* 157; *Agr.* 95; *Ebr.* 96; *Gig.* 58.

[72] Anaxagoras (*Aet.* 4); Bias of Priene (*Prob.* 153); Homer (*Contempl.* 17); Pindar (*Aet.* 121, *Prov.* 2.50); Pythaogreans (*Prob.* 2); Heraclitus (*Aet.* 111). Plato does not appear to give hints.

[73] *E.g.*, Homer's reference to the Hippomolgoi is a hint in Philo (*Contempl.* 17), but an inspired, though unwitting, presentiment (μαντεύεται) in Clement (*Paed.* I 6.36.1). See also *Str.* V 5.29.3-4.

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Bemerkungen zu den *Hypotyposen*-Fragmenten des Clemens Alexandrinus

Jana PLÁTOVÁ, Olomouc

I. Status quaestionis und die neue Übersicht der erhalten gebliebenen Bruchstücke

Die Fragmente des verlorenen Schriftkommentars des Clemens sind Bestandteil des dritten Bandes der Edition von Stählin. In der zweiten Auflage aus dem Jahre 1970 umfasst diese Edition 23 griechische Fragmente, aufbewahrt bei verschiedenen Autoren des dritten bis neunten Jahrhunderts, und eine lateinische Übersetzung des Kommentars zu vier katholischen Episteln, die Cassiodorus zur Herausgabe vorbereitet hat.[1] Bei allen diesen Bruchstücken ist der Name des Clemens sowie der Name der Schrift *Hypotyposes* angegeben. Als wesentlich zweifelhafter ist in dieser Edition das Kapitel 'Fragmente ungewisser Herkunft' anzusehen, in das die übrigen Bruchstücke des Clemens eingeordnet sind, ohne dass das konkrete Schriftwerk angegeben wird.[2] Angesichts dessen, dass eine große Menge dieser Bruchstücke von einer Katenensammlung zum Text des Neuen Testaments stammt, ist es sehr wahrscheinlich, dass einige von ihnen Teile des verlorenen Schriftkommentars Clemens sein könnten.

Wertvolle Unterlagen für ein ausführliches Studium der *Hypotyposes* sind vor allem in der Einführung zum dritten Band der Edition Stählins zu finden,[3] die von dem älteren, aber doch bis heute bedeutsamen Werk Zahns *Supplementum Clementinum*[4] ausgeht und die auf den ebenso wichtigen Artikel Früchtels hinweist,[5] der auf parallele Texte einiger Clemens-Fragmente bei Petrus von Laodikeia und Theophylaktos von Bulgarien (Frg. 1, 2, 8, 9, 12, 16 und 21) aufmerksam gemacht hatte. Aufmerksamkeit sollte auch auf den Editorennachtrag gerichtet werden, der auf einen wichtigen Beitrag von Utto Riedinger aus

[1] *Clemens Alexandrinus III, Stromata VII-VIII, Excerpta ex Theodoto, Eclogae Propheticae, Quis dives salvetur, Fragmente*, ed. Otto Stählin, GCS 17 (Leipzig, 1909); zweite Auflage Ludwig Früchtel – Ursula Treu (Berlin, 1970), 195-215.

[2] *Ibid.* 224-30; es geht um die Fragmente Nr. 48-74.

[3] In der zweiten Auflage aus dem Jahre 1970 auf S. XII-XX. Es lohnt sich außerdem, die ursprüngliche unverkürzte Version der Bemerkungen zu den einzelnen Fragmenten in den Einführungskapiteln der ersten Auflage aus dem Jahre 1909 zur Hand zu nehmen.

[4] Theodor Zahn, *Forschungen zur Geschichte des neutestamentlichen Kanons und der altkirchlichen Literatur III. Supplementum Clementinum* (Erlangen, 1884).

[5] Ludwig Früchtel, Neue Textzeugnisse zu Clemens Alexandrinus: *ZNW* 36 (1937) 81-90.

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den sechziger Jahren hinweist.[6] Riedinger hatte bei der Vorarbeit zur Edition des Ps.-Kaisarios-Werkes *Erotapokriseis* auf einige auffällige Ähnlichkeiten dieses Werkes mit einigen Briefen des Isidors von Pelusium aufmerksam gemacht. Das führte ihn dahin zu vermuten, dass die 23 parallelen Passagen, die er bei beiden Autoren vorgefunden hatte, den zwei unterschiedlichen Bearbeitungen eines gewissen Auszugs aus den *Hypotyposes* des Clemens entsprechen.[7]

Seit dem Jahre 1970, indem die zweite Auflage der Stählin Edition herausgegeben wurde, sind noch einige weitere bemerkenswerte Studien erschienen, unter denen vor allem die Artikel von Pierre Nautin,[8] Eric Osborn,[9] Carlo Nardi[10] und der bedeutende Beitrag von Adolf Knauber,[11] der sich auf die Rezeption des Clemens bezieht, nicht zu übergehen sind. Von den neueren Studien, die sich den einzelnen Fragmenten widmen, ist vor allem der ausführliche Kommentar zum Frg. 23 von Christoph Markschies zu erwähnen. Dieser stellt nämlich die Authentizität des bei Photios erhaltenen Bruchstückes in Frage und schlägt am Ende vor, es als 'Ps.-(?)Clemens, Fr. 23' zu zitieren.[12] Zu einer ähnlich skeptischen Schlußfolgerung kommt auch Mark Edwards.[13] Er betont wie Markschies die Unfähigkeit des Photios, in die Denkweise des Clemens einzudringen, die von dem vorniceischen Streit noch nicht beeinflusst wurde.

Weniger bekannt, aber doch für die Rekonstruktion der *Hypotyposes*-Schrift entscheidend und zu Unrecht unbeachtet, ist der Beitrag von Filippo Di Benedetto aus dem Jahre 1983.[14] Dieser Forscher hatte im Evangelienkodex Laurentianus Conv. Sopp. 159 auf dem f.18v ein weiteres Bruchstück der Hypotyposes

[6] Utto Riedinger, Neue Hypotyposen-Fragmente bei Pseudo-Kaisarius und Isidor von Pelusium: *ZNW* 51 (1960) 154-96.

[7] Die mehr oder weniger überzeugenden Beweggründe, die ihn zu dieser Hypothese führen, erklärt Riedinger auf S. 168. Sie sind bis jetzt nicht ernstlich kritisiert worden.

[8] Pierre Nautin, La fin des Stromates et les Hypotyposes de Clément d'Alexandrie: *VC* 30 (1976) 268-302.

[9] Eric Osborn – Colin Duckworth, Clement of Alexandria's Hypotyposeis: a french eighteenth-century sighting: *JThS* 36 (1985) 67-83; Eric Osborn, Clement's Hypotyposeis. Macarius revisited: *SecCent* 10 (1990) 233-5. Osborn informiert über das traurige Schicksal der Handschrift des Clemens-Kommentars, die er mehrmals persönlich im koptischen Kloster des hl. Makarius in Wadi Natrun zu suchen versuchte, wo die *Hypotyposes* zum letzten mal gesehen wurden.

[10] *Clemente Alessandrino, Estratti profetici (Eclogae propheticae)*, a cura di Carlo Nardi (Firenze, 1985), 7-35.

[11] Adolf Knauber, Die patrologische Schätzung des Clemens von Alexandrien, in: Patrick Granfield and Josef Andreas Jungmann (eds.), *Kyriakon. FS Johannes Quasten*, Vol. I (Münster, 1973), 289-308.

[12] Vgl. Christoph Markschies, 'Die wunderliche Mär von zwei Logoi... ' Clemens Alexandrinus, Frgm. 23 – Zeugnis eines Arius ante Arium oder des arianischen Streits selbst? in: H. Ch. Brennecke, E.L. Grasmück, and Ch. Markschies (eds.), *Logos: FS für Luise Abramowski*, BZNW 67 (Berlin/New York, 1993), 193-219, vor allem 217.

[13] Mark Joseph Edwards, Clement of Alexandria and his doctrine of the logos: *VC* 54 (2000) 159-77.

[14] Filippo Di Benedetto, Un nuovo frammento delle Ipotiposi di Clemente Alessandrino: *Sileno* 9 (1983) 75-82. Die eigene Umschrift des Scholium ist auf S. 78 zu finden.

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des Clemens als Scholion zu *Matth.* 11:11 entdeckt. Die Authentizität dieses Fragments kann durch folgende Beobachtungen bestätigt werden: 1. Inhaltlich und terminologisch korrespondiert dieses Fragment mit weiteren angelologischen und eschatologischen Passagen bei Clemens.[15] 2. Die einführende Formulierung πρεσβύτερος ἔλεγεν, die wahrscheinlich auf Pantainos hinweist, ist für Clemens typisch; in zwei weiteren Bruchstücken der *Hypotyposes* erscheint sie ebenso in der Imperfektform.[16] Umstritten ist dagegen die Frage, von welchem Buch der *Hypotyposes* das Zitat stammt. In diesem Fall ist das achte Buch eingeführt, doch alle anderen Fragmente, die einen Evangelienvers kommentieren, stammen aus dem sechsten Buch. Nach der Meinung von Zahn und anderen wurden in dem achten Buch die Johannes- und Petrus-Apokalypse, sowie der Barnabasbrief kommentiert. Das von Benedetto entdeckte Fragment wäre das einzige Bruchstück aus dem achten Buch, das uns heute zur Verfügung steht.

Der Artikel von Benedetto weist darüber hinaus noch auf die Edition der arabischen Katenen zum Matthäusevangelium hin,[17] enthalten im Cod. Vat. Ar. 452, ff. 6-135, die von Caubert-Iturbe[18] besorgt und mit einer spanischen Übersetzung versehen wurde. In diesem Corpus befinden sich noch weitere fünf Bruchstücke des Clemens, ohne dass dabei irgendein Werk angegeben wird. Ob es sich um einen authentischen Text des Clemens von Alexandrien handelt, ist noch kritisch auszuwerten.

Nach dem gegenwärtigen Forschungsstand stehen also 25 Bruchstücke der *Hypotyposes*-Schrift zur Verfügung, deren Authentizität, ausgenommen das Fr. 23, nicht zu bezweifeln ist. Außerdem vergrößert sich noch die Anzahl der Fragmente, deren Zugehörigkeit zu den *Hypotyposes* unsicher ist (und wahrscheinlich unsicher bleiben muss). In der beigefügten Tabelle führe ich sie in einer Übersicht an, gemeinsam mit dem biblischen Vers, den sie kommentieren, mit dem Buch der *Hypotyposes*, aus dem sie stammen, und mit dem Autor, bzw. mit der Katenensammlung, bei dem sie zitiert werden. Dabei unterscheide ich (A) Fragmente, die als Clemens-Zitate der *Hypotyposes*-Schrift angeführt sind, (B) Fragmente, die einen bestimmten biblischen Vers kommentieren und die unter dem Namen des Clemens, aber ohne Angabe des konkreten Werkes angeführt sind,[19] (C) Fragmente ohne Angabe des Werkes sowie ohne Angabe des

[15] Vgl. z. B. *Hyp.*, Fr. 1 (GCS 17, 195.5-8); Fr. 24/I (GCS 17, 203.10-12); *Strom.* IV.8.7-8 (GCS 15, 251.19-23); VII.39.3-4 (GCS 17, 30.8-11); *Ecl. proph.* 48.1 (GCS 17, 150.7); 57.5 (GCS 17, 154.8-13); *Exc. ex Theod.* 18.2 (GCS 17, 112.24).

[16] Vgl. *Hyp.*, Fr. 22 (GCS 17, 201.26): ὡς ὁ μακάριος ἔλεγε πρεσβύτερος und *Hyp.*, Fr. 24/III (GCS 17, 210.1): *hoc modo presbyter exponebat.*

[17] Filippo Di Benedetto, Un nuovo frammento (1983), 75, Anm. 2.

[18] Francisco Javier Caubert-Iturbe, *La cadena arabe del Evangelio de San Mateo, II, Versión*, Studi e testi 255 (Città del Vaticano, 1970), 50, 51, 59, 115, 183; *id.* (ed.), Studi e testi 254 (Città del Vaticano, 1969), 43, 44, 51, 102, 169.

[19] Die große und immer noch wachsende Anzahl dieser Fragmente zeugt von einer großen Beliebtheit des Clemens als Schrifterklärer, vor allem im Mönchsmilieu.

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Clemens als Autor, d. h. deren Zugehörigkeit zu den *Hypotyposes* hypothetisch bleiben muss.[20]

(A) Gruppe:			
Frg. 1	1*Kor.* 11:10	*Hyp.* IV	Ps.-Oikumenios
Frg. 2	2*Kor.* 5:16		
Frg. 3	2*Kor.* 6:11-2		
Frg. 4	?	*Hyp.* V	Eusebios
Frg. 5	?		Maximus Confessor
Frg. 6	?		Johannes Moschos
Frg. 7	*Gal.* 5:24		Ps.-Oikumenios
Frg. 8	Evang.?	*Hyp.* VI	Eusebios
Frg. 9	Evang.?		
Frg. 10	*Apg.*?, Evang.?		
Frg. 11	*Apg.* 17:5-9		Maximus Confessor
Frg. 12	*Matth.* 8:2-4		Vatic. graec. 354
Frg. 13	?	*Hyp.* VII	Eusebios
Frg. 14	?		
Frg. 15	1*Tim.* 2:6		Ps.-Oikumenios
Frg. 16	1*Tim.* 3:16		
Frg. 17	1*Tim.* 5:8		
Frg. 18	1*Tim.* 5:10		
Frg. 19	1*Tim.* 5:21		
Frg. 20	1*Tim.* 6:13		
Frg. 21	2*Tim.* 2:2		
Frg. 22	*Hebr.*?	*Hyp.*?	Eusebios
Ps.-Clemens, Frg. 23	*Joh.* 1?	*Hyp.*?	Photios
Frg. 24 = Adumbr. I-IV	1*Pt.*, *Jd.*, 1*Joh.*, 2*Joh.*	*Hyp.* VII?	Cassiodorus
Frg. 25	*Matth.* 11:11	*Hyp.* VIII	Laur. Conv. Sopp. 159

[20] Es handelt sich um Texte, auf die Riedinger hingewiesen hatte. In der unten angeführten Übersicht gehe ich für die (A) und teilweise für die (B) Gruppe von der Nummerierung Stählins aus, die ich in Hinsicht auf die neu entdeckten Fragmente aktualisiere; für die Fragmente der (C) und teilweise auch der (B) Gruppe ist noch eine neue Nummerierung einzuführen. Diese wird in der neuen Edition der Hypotyposen-Fragmenten erscheinen, die ich vorbereite.

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(B) Gruppe:		
Frg. 48	?	Maximus Confessor
Frg. 49	*Gen.* 2:22	Anastasios Sinaites
Frg. 50	?	Hieronymus
Frg. 54	*Matth.* 13:31-32	Nicetascat. ad Matth.
Frg. 55	*Matth.* 10:16	Cat. ad Matth.
Frg. 56	*Matth.* 10:23	
Frg. 57	*Lk.* 3:22	Nicetascat. ad Lk.
Frg. 58	*Lk.* 16:17	
Frg. 59	*Apk.*?	Arethas
Frg. 5 (Zahn)	*Matth.* 5:42	Nicetascat. ad Matth.
Frg. 6 (Zahn)	*Matth.* 13:46	
Frg. 11 (Zahn)	*Joh.* 12:13	Nicetascat. ad Joh.
Frg. 12 (Zahn)	*Joh.* 13:2-5	
Frg.? -?	*Matth.* 5:7	Arab. Cat. ad Mt (Vat. Ar. 452)
	Matth. 5:10	
	Matth. 5:27-28	
	Matth. 10:39	
	Matth. 19:6	
(C) Gruppe:		
Frg. 1'- 25'	*Matth.* 13:31, 26:39, 11:12, 11:11, 11:11, 13:33, 13:47f., 17:24-7, 21:18f., 24:40f.; *Ps.* 17:9; *Matth.* 3:10, 3:12, 24:7f., 5:25, 5:29f., 10:16, 10:16, 13:3-7, 18:21f.; *Apg.* 5:1-11; *Matth.* 24:16-20; 1*Kg.* 17:4-7?; *Kol.* 3:1?; *Spr.* 30:18-20;?	Ps.-Kaisarios und Isidor von Pelusium

Es liegt also eine breite Skala von ungleichmäßig langen Fragmenten aus unterschiedlichen Zeiten vor, deren Wesensart und Grad an Originaltreue in hohem Maße vom Verfasser und vom Typus des Werkes, in dem das Zitat erhalten geblieben ist, abhängig sind. Es gilt dabei, dass nicht alle Bruchstücke der (A) Gruppe als wörtliche Zitate aufzufassen sind. Einige von ihnen sind mehr oder weniger freie Paraphrasen (vor allem alle bei Eusebius erhaltenen Bruchstücke). Einige könnte man sogar eher der Kategorie der Zeugnisse zuordnen, denn sie geben nur das Thema an, das Clemens in dem Buch behandelt, sind aber nicht als direkte Zitate angeführt (die bei Maximus Confessor und Johannes Moschos erhaltenen Bruchstücke). Bei der spätlateinischen Übersetzung der *Adumbrationes*

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(Frg. 24) ist, wie bekannt, die Möglichkeit der 'Korrektur' seitens des Übersetzers[21] zuzugestehen.

II. Frg. 12 und P. Egerton 2 (?)

Im zweiten Teil dieses Beitrags möchte ich die Aufmerksamkeit auf die Ähnlichkeiten im Text und im Inhalt zwischen Frg. 12 und P. Egerton 2 richten und die Hypothese formulieren, dass Clemens die Tradition des Papyrus Egerton kannte. Das Frg. 12,[22] ein Kommentar zur Erzählung über die Heilung des Aussätzigen in *Matth.* 8:1-4, der als Scholion im Evangelienkodex S (028) überliefert ist, fand in der Zeit seiner Entdeckung zu Beginn des 20. Jahrhunderts Beobachtung, als P. Egerton noch nicht bekannt war.[23] Es gibt nun mehrere Gründe, die mich zu der Annahme einer Verbindung zwischen Clemens und der Tradition des P. Egerton 2 bewegen:

1. Die Pluralform τοῖς ἱερεῦσιν und die Wortfolge δεῖξον σεαυτόν, die sowohl P. Egerton[24] als auch Clemens haben, sind allein auf Grund der Varianten der Synoptiker schwer zu erklären. Die Möglichkeit, dass der Clemenstext durch eine Kontamination der lukanischen Passagen entstanden ist, halte ich für unwahrscheinlich, denn Clemens zieht den Matthäustext vor, wie mehrmals gezeigt wurde.[25]
2. Beide Texte beinhalten gegenüber der Synoptikern eine gewisse romanhafte Verbreitung der Evangeliengeschichte, bei Egerton am Anfang der Geschichte, in der Clemens-Version eher am Ende. Auch der Einschub des Clemens: πολλὰ τοίνυν δεηθέντος τοῦ λεπροῦ, der bei den Synoptikern

[21] Vgl. Cassiodorus, *Institutiones* I 8.4 (FCH 39/1, 160.20-24): ... *ubi multa quidem subtiliter, sed aliqua incaute locutus est (sc. Clemens); quae nos ita transferri fecimus in Latinum, ut exclusis quibusdam offendiculis purificata doctrina eius securior potuisset hauriri.*

[22] *Hyp.*, Fr. 12 (GCS 17, 199.7-16): Κλήμεντος ἐκ τῆς ς' τῶν Ὑποτυπώσεων· Καὶ τὸν λεπρὸν ἐθεράπευσεν καὶ εἶπεν· »δεῖξον σεαυτὸν τοῖς ἱερεῦσιν εἰς μαρτύριον« διὰ τοιαύτην παράδοσιν. ἔθος εἶχον οἱ ἱερεῖς δυνάμει θεοῦ λεπροὺς ἰᾶσθαι ἡμέραις τακταῖς. τοῦτον οὖν τὸν λεπρὸν πολλῷ χρόνῳ μὴ δυνηθέντες ἰάσασθαι ἔλεγον· »τοῦτον οὐδεὶς ἰάσεται ἢ μόνος ὁ Χριστὸς ἐὰν ἔλθῃ.« πολλὰ τοίνυν δεηθέντος τοῦ λεπροῦ ὁ σωτὴρ ἐπισπλαγχνισθείς, ἰασάμενος αὐτόν, διὰ τοῦτο εἶπεν· »ἄπελθε καὶ δεῖξον σεαυτὸν τοῖς ἱερεῦσιν εἰς μαρτύριον, ὅτι, εἰ τεθεράπευται οὗτος, ἐφ' οὗ εἰρήκατε ‚οὐδεὶς ἀλλ' ἢ ὁ Χριστὸς μόνος αὐτὸν ἰάσεται', ἦλθεν ὁ Χριστός, καὶ πιστεύσατε αὐτῷ.«

[23] Giovanni Mercati, Un frammento delle Ipotiposi di Clemente Alessandrino: *Studi e Testi* 12 (Roma, 1904), 1-15; Adolf von Harnack, Ein neues Fragment aus den Hypotyposen des Clemens: *SAB* (Berlin, 1904), 901-8; Theodor Zahn, Neue Funde aus der alten Kirche. 6. Ein Bruchstück der Hypotyposen des Clemens Alexandrinus: *NKZ* 16 (1905) 415-9.

[24] Es ist zu beachten, dass der Text des P. Egerton 2 Fr. 1r, 35-40 gerade an dieser Stelle unterbrochen ist. Die Pluralform τοῖς ἱερεῦσιν ist doch von den Buchstaben τοι festzulegen.

[25] Vgl. Michael Mees, *Die Zitate aus dem Neuen Testament bei Clemens von Alexandrien I, II*, Quaderni di VetChr 2 (Bari, 1970); *Clemens Alexandrinus IV.1. Register*, ed. Otto Stählin and Ursula Treu, GCS 39[2] (Berlin, 1980), 11-8.

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keine Analogie hat, lässt sich von Egerton her erklären: dass der Kranke bei Clemens 'viel erbeten hat', könnte seine Kenntnis der Geschichte bezeugen, wie sie bei Egerton erscheint. Hier erzählt der Aussätzige in der Bitte um seine Genesung Jesus, wie er zu seiner Krankheit gekommen ist. Die Hypothese einer Kenntnis könnte auch dadurch gestützt worden, dass Clemens selbst von einer gewissen 'Tradition' spricht. Wie aber die Wortverbindung διὰ τοιαύτην παράδοσιν im Clemenstext zu verstehen ist, bleibt stritttig. Auch an einer anderen Stelle der *Hypotyposes* verwendet Clemens die Formel *fertur in traditionibus*:[26] im Kommentar zum ersten Johannesbrief weist er damit auf die Schrift hin, die später zur Quelle der apokryphen *Johannesakten* wurde. Mit der griechischen Fassung (λέγουσι ἐν ταῖς παραδόσεσιν)[27] weist er außerdem in den *Stromata* auf das Buch hin, das angeblich vom Apostel Matthias verfasst wurde. Es ist aber einzuwenden, dass in den beiden genannten Fällen das Wort παράδοσις in der Pluralform begegnet, wobei im Frg. 12 die Singularform steht. Deshalb besteht an dieser Stelle die Möglichkeit, dass das Wort παράδοσις nicht auf die Tradition des P. Egerton hinweist, sondern vielmehr auf die von Clemens erwähnte Gewohnheit der Priester, nur an bestimmten Tagen zu heilen.[28]

3. Der letzte Grund für die mögliche Verwandschaft beider Texte wäre auf der historischen Ebene zu suchen: es ist nicht unwahrscheinlich, dass Clemens am Ende des zweiten Jahrhunderts in Alexandrien mit dieser von den kanonischen Versionen unabhängigen Tradition in Kontakt kam.

[26] *Hyp.*, Fr. 24/III (GCS 17, 210.12-13).
[27] *Strom.* VII 82.1 (GCS 17, 58.20).
[28] Vgl. *Hyp.*, Fr. 12 (GCS 17, 199.9-10).

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Eschatology Worthy of God: The Goodness of God and the Groaning of Creation in Origen's *De Principiis*

Shawn W.J. KEOUGH, Leuven

Origen was distressed that so many Christians believed things of God, on the basis of a literal understanding of scripture, that could not even be imagined of the most cruel or unjust people.[1] In response Origen emphasized the necessity of recognizing how scripture has been ordered in a fashion truly suited to divine wisdom: the exegete must seek and discern in scripture what is worthy of God.[2] This principle, that the results of exegesis must conform to fitting and appropriate notions of divinity, is not only applicable to Origen's procedure in biblical commentary but is central to the entirety of Origen's theology. It is a governing commitment to a specific conception of the divine nature, identity and character that is both the motivation and the criterion of Origen's theology.

This primary commitment to the doctrine of God is especially evident in discussions of eschatology, which necessarily take on an exploratory character. In the absence of definitive apostolic tradition[3] it is necessary for Origen to move along a trajectory of research oriented by his fundamental theological commitments regarding the doctrine of God. These theological commitments are demonstrated not only in the governing principles announced at the outset of eschatological investigation, but also in the way Origen approaches potential exegetical challenges to those principles. Therefore, Origen does not simply conceive of creation's eschatological hope as corresponding to fitting and appropriate notions of divinity. Rather, Origen's eschatological research confronts the goodness of God with the groaning of creation, and in doing so Origen moves beyond his preliminary theological commitments to embrace a dynamic and reciprocal expansion of longing and desire between Creator and creation.

[1] *De principiis* IV 2.1-2; see Lothar Lies, Die 'Gottes würdige' Schriftauslegung nach Origenes: in: *Origeniana sexta*, Gilles Dorival and Alain Le Boulluec (eds.) (Leuven, 1995), 365-72.

[2] *De princ.* IV 2.8-9; see II 4.4: 'Sed nos siue in ueteri siue in nouo testamento, cum de ira dei legimus, non secundum litteram quae dicuntur aduertimus, sed spiritalem intellectum requirimus in talibus, ut ita sentiamus, sicut intellegere de deo dignum est.' All references are to *Traité des Principes*, H. Crouzel and M. Simonetti (eds.), SC 252, 253, 268, 269, 312 (Paris, 1978-84).

[3] *De princ.* praef 7.

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The foundational commitment of Origen's eschatological investigations is the goodness of God.[4] God's goodness is constitutive of God's nature, while creaturely goodness is the result of the free outworking of each creature's will.[5] This first principle leads immediately to the next: each individual creature is free to choose and therefore responsible for the actions by which it will be judged.[6] These two considerations are inseparable: creaturely freedom and responsibility are necessary corollaries to God's goodness and just judgment.

These governing principles basic to the doctrine of God are consistently defended by Origen in the face of problematic biblical passages. It is necessary that the exegete protect the doctrine of God from any distortion of the divine character arising from foolish exegesis.[7] The exegete is engaged in a battle for the doctrine of God, and this exegetical conflict takes place in the face of demonic opposition, the goal of which is to cause the Christian to doubt God's character and thereby abandon true doctrine by adopting beliefs unworthy of God.[8] Origen's exegetical defense of the doctrine of God hinges upon his apophaticism. Origen's commitment to the divine dignity does not arbitrate between competing claims on God's goodness and God's justice, but rather approaches both by way of an apophatic reserve that acknowledges the incomprehensible glory of divinity.[9] Exegetical challenges to the doctrine of God are met with an apophatic commitment to the dignity of the divine nature: merely human conceptions of goodness and justice cannot adequately account for that which exceeds all comprehension.[10] Eschatology must not simply account for divine goodness and justice, but must acknowledge the incomprehensible dignity of the divine nature.

Although Origen maintains that the human mind is unable to comprehend God's nature and existence, Origen also claims that the arrangement of the universe and the works of divine providence provide a trustworthy access to a real, albeit limited, knowledge of God: the father of the universe is made known both by creation's beauty and by the providential arrangement of and care for the cosmos.[11] Just as Origen insisted on the prime necessity of safeguarding the doctrine of God from any attack upon divine goodness and justice, so also

[4] Origen claims that it is impossible to overstate the importance of a proper understanding of the divine identity and character: *De princ.* II 4.1.

[5] *De princ.* I 6.2; cf. also *De princ.* I 5.3.

[6] *De princ.* I 6.1.

[7] *De princ.* III 1.9.

[8] *De princ.* III 2.6.

[9] *De princ.* IV 4.1.

[10] 'Ex quibus omnibus constat unum eundemque esse iustum et bonum legis et euangeliorum deum, et bene facere cum iustitia et cum bonitate punire, quia nec bonum sine iusto nec iustum sine bono dignitatem diuinae potest indicare naturae', *De princ.* II 5.3.

[11] *De princ.* I 1.6; see *De princ.* II 6.1, where Origen states that contemplation of the divine nature proceeds *ex operum suorum* rather than *ex nostri sensus.*

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Origen insists upon an absolute confidence in God's care for and guidance of the universe.[12] The divine wisdom is capable of ordering all things toward a common harmony and perfection while preserving the individual freedom of all rational natures.[13] Thus for Origen there is an appropriate and discernible correspondence between the works of God and the nature of God, a correspondence which enables the theologian to extrapolate from the beauty of creation and the wonder of providence to the identity and character of the Creator.

It is this correspondence that Origen develops in his eschatological investigations. Origen arrives at his proposals regarding the hope of creation only after extrapolating along a trajectory oriented by his primary theological commitments to divine goodness, justice and providence. An example of this sort of reasoning is Origen's treatment of divine punishment: while a complete understanding of God's seemingly punitive action is unavailable to humanity, it can nevertheless be confidently attributed to God's desire to aid and heal his creation, much as a physician often causes pain while tending the sick.[14] While God's nature and activity remain inscrutable, God's character and intentions remain incontestable. Origen tempers his apophatic reserve with the conviction that, no matter what is already known of divine goodness and providence, it is necessary to acknowledge that God is always better.[15] Even if God's nature and activity remain incomprehensible, God's character and intentions are always assumed to be unimaginably better than whatever is already known of God.

For Origen any eschatology worthy of God will not simply provide an exegetical arbitration between competing commitments to divine goodness, justice, and providence held in tension with creaturely freedom and responsibility. Rather, eschatology worthy of God preserves a properly apophatic reverence for the inscrutable divine dignity even while boldly speculating with respect to creation's hope in a manner consistent with the conviction that God's character and works are always inconceivably better than the wonders which are now dimly perceived.

An example of Origen's bold confidence that God is always better is demonstrated in his conviction that creation's eschatological hope is given already in its genesis: God did not create anything at enmity with himself,[16] but rather has placed within creation an ardent longing for the truth.[17] Origen is convinced that all of created reality is worthy of its Creator, that is, created in order to

[12] *De princ.* II 9.8.

[13] *De princ.* II 1.2.

[14] *De princ.* II 10.6.

[15] 'Si quid enim illud est, quod sentire uel intellegere de deo potuerimus, multis longe modis eum meliorem esse ab eo quod sensimus necesse est credi', *De princ.* II 1.5.

[16] *De princ.* II 4.5.

[17] *De princ.* II 11.4.

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worthily enjoy communion with God.[18] Eschatology must therefore be worthy of God because creation itself is worthy of God. There is a fundamental continuity between creation and eschatological consummation: the eschatological fulfillment of creation's inner dynamism is nothing less than communion with its Creator.

Origen presents this continuity in exegetical terms when he comments on *Gen.* 1:26-8, stating that while humanity received the image of God at the moment of its original creation its likeness to God is reserved for the eschatological consummation.[19] Origen further states that this likeness to God is the *summum bonum* and *finis omnium* toward which all rational nature makes progress, that is, to become as much as possible like God (*prout possibile est, similem fieri deo*). The character of this eschatological likeness, while yet unknown, is confidently connected to the climactic revelation of Christ in glory.[20]

Nevertheless, eschatology worthy of God for Origen is not simply the end product of an uninterrupted progression from creation to consummation. Rather, Origen's eschatology faces the exegetical challenge posed by creation's unwilling subjection to futility and bondage to corruption,[21] and in doing so moves decisively beyond his general commitments to divine goodness, justice and providence. Just as Origen confidently attributes God's seemingly punitive action to God's loving intention to heal and restore humanity to communion with himself, so also Origen repeatedly emphasizes that, while creation's unwilling subjection and bondage was not freely chosen, it was nevertheless obediently accepted in the hope of creation's ultimate redemption.[22] Origen does not, however, simply interpret this hope in the terms provided by his stated commitments to divine providence or creaturely freedom, but instead he finds this hope in the voluntary subjection of the Son, who emptied himself in order to accomplish what was properly the task of others.[23]

Origen understands the Son, in his kenosis and passion, to be both the instrument and the model of creation's eschatological hope. The proper capacities of creation[24] were restored by the Son's perfect obedience and subjection to the Father, and the consummation of this restoration will take place only when all

[18] *De princ.* IV 4.8; see *De princ.* IV 4.10 where Origen describes the relationship between God and humanity in terms emphasizing their *consanguinitas.*

[19] *De princ.* III 6.1.

[20] *De princ.* III 6.1, citing 1*John* 3:2.

[21] *Rom.* 8:20-3; *De princ.* III 5.4-5.

[22] 'Non enim uonluntate exhibendum suscepit ministerium uanitati, sed quoniam uolebat ille, qui subiciebat, propter eum, qui subiecit, promittentem his, qui non uoluntate uanitati subdebantur, quod expleto magnifici operis ministerio liberabuntur ab hac seruitute corruptionis et uanitatis, cum redemptionis gloriae filiorum dei tempus aduenerit', *De princ.* I 7.5. Origen repeats that this subjection was accepted in hope three times at *De princ.* III 5.4.

[23] *De princ.* III 5.6.

[24] Namely, obedience and rule: *De princ.* III 5.6.

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of creation is in turn subject to Christ.[25] This victory of the Son over corruption and death has intensified creation's groaning as it longs with escalating urgency for its climactic subjection to Christ, that is, its salvation.[26] Just as the mission of the Son was accomplished in obedience and subjection, in groaning and self-offering, so also will the ultimate liberation of creation from its unwilling subjection to futility and bondage to corruption be accomplished: the *sumum bonum* and *finis omnium* earlier described as likeness to God is thus identified by Origen with this movement from creation's unwilling subjection to futility to creation's eschatological subjection to Christ.[27] This final subjection to Christ was the desire of the apostles and all the saints, and is even now the object of the intense yearning that provokes creation's groans.[28] The kenosis and passion of the Son renewed and intensified creation's desire to be subject to God, even as that climactic consummation must renew and intensify creation's desire (and capacity) for communion with God.[29]

Perhaps the most fitting paradigm for such subjection and desire is provided by Origen in his discussion of the human soul of Christ: Christ's soul shared the same nature as all souls, and freely chose good rather than evil with such persistence and intensity of love that the free exercise of its will was transformed by the establishment of habit into something akin to nature.[30] Origen does not describe the human soul of Christ as simply freely and persistently choosing the good, but rather as ardently desiring the good, as longing for the good with a fiery intensity of affection. Just as the human soul of Christ moved from the free exercise of its will (choice) to the ardent affection of its longing (desire), so also all of creation must not only obediently submit itself to God but must grow in its capacity to desire God.[31] In this way creation moves toward the fulfillment of its own inner dynamism, as it groans in the hope of and the desire for its ultimate subjection to Christ.[32]

[25] *De princ.* I 7.5, citing 1*Cor.* 15:24. 28.

[26] 'Subiectionis enim nomen, qua Christo subicimur, salutem quae a Christo est indicat subiectorum', *De princ.* I 6.1; see *De princ.* I 7.5 and 1*Cor.* 15:24.

[27] *De princ.* I 6.2.

[28] *De princ.* I 6.1; I 7.5.

[29] 'Ita ergo indesinenti erga nos opere patris et filii et spiritus sancti per singulos quosque profectuum gradus instaurato, uix si forte aliquando intueri possumus sanctam et beatam uitam; in qua, cum post agones multos in eam perueniri potuerit, ita perdurare debemus, ut nulla umquam nos boni illius satietas capiat, sed quanto magis de illa beatitudine percipimus, tanto magis in nobis uel dilatetur eius desiderium uel augeatur, dum semper ardentius et capacius patrem et filium ac spiritum sanctum uel capimur uel tenemus', *De princ.* I 3.8.

[30] *De princ.* II 6.5. Origen first raised the possibility that the persistent exercise of the will results in the formation of habit that is similar to nature in *De princ.* I 6.3, and in *De princ.* III 3.3 argues that as persistent devotion to God results in communion with God, so also it is possible to reject God.

[31] Origen argues that even the most wicked creatures lack not the power, but rather the desire, to return to God; *De princ.* I 8.4.

[32] *De princ.* I 6.2.

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Origen's conviction that the resurrection will consist of a transformation worthy of divine grace (*dignum diuina gratia*)[33] is not simply derived from the governing theological principles he offers at the outset of his eschatological research. Rather, in his attempt to construct an exploratory eschatology worthy of God, Origen consistently moves beyond basic considerations of the divine dignity. Origen begins his eschatological investigations with a commitment to divine goodness, justice and providence, but soon subsumes this commitment under the conviction that God is always better; Origen's apophatic reserve regarding the inscrutability of the divine nature is likewise transformed by the revelatory and redemptive economy of the Son's kenosis and passion; Origen's emphasis on creaturely freedom and choice is similarly lifted up into an ever escalating heat of reciprocal desire, longing and love; and, Origen's confidence in creation's progression from essential image to eschatological likeness is not only confronted by creation's groans echoed by the Saviour, but ultimately is given decisive shape by Christ's own prayer that all humanity share in the communion between Father and Son. Just as essential freedom of choice must find its fulfillment in an escalating intensity of longing for eschatological subjection, so even eschatological likeness must give way to something more similar to union, so that God may truly be 'all in all'.[34]

[33] *De princ.* II 10.3; Origen contrasts this hope to those who, on account of a literal approach to scripture, 'nihil ex his dignum diuinis pollicitationibus praesumpserunt'; *De princ.* II 11.2.

[34] 'In quo iam uidetur ipsa similitudo, si dici potest, proficere et ex simili unum iam fieri, pro eo sine dubio quod in consummatione uel fine omnia et in omnibus deus est', *De princ.* III 6.1; see *De princ.* II 3.5.

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A Second Look at Origen's Notion of 'Rationality'

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1. Introduction

Origen's notion of 'rationality', or more precisely of rational beings (*logikoi*), has long been the subject of scholarly research, and a number of excellent monographs on the theme already exist. This communication does not propose to do an overall revision of the matter, but simply to call attention to a less-studied sector of Origen's doctrine on the *logikoi*, and from there draw fresh insights.

Among the scholars who have studied Origen's conception of rational beings,[1] a general consensus may be said to exist on two points:

(1) Origen employs the term *logikos* with a variety of meanings; such meanings are not wholly unrelated to each other (Put in another way: Origen uses the term *logikos* analogically, not univocally).
(2) This, in turn, reflects a profound reality perceived by our author – namely, that one same divine *Logos* is shared by different creatures, thus giving rise to infinite ways and degrees of participation.

Here are a few examples of different grades of rationality/irrationality mentioned by Origen in his works:

- the highest form of 'rationality' is holiness: 'only the saint is rational (*monos ho hagios logikos*);'[2]
- Christians who perceive the spiritual meaning of Scripture possess the *Logos*, whereas those who content themselves with the letter (or 'flesh') of Scripture grasp the *Logos* imperfectly;[3]

[1] See Henri Crouzel, *Origène et la 'connaissance mystique'* (Bruges and Paris, 1961); *id.*, *Théologie de l'image de Dieu chez Origène* (Paris, 1956), esp. 168-72; Jacques Dupuis, *L'esprit de l'homme: Étude sur l'anthropologie religieuse d'Origène* (Bruges, 1967); Josep Rius-Camps, *El dinamismo trinitario en la divinización de los seres racionales según Orígenes* (Roma, 1970); Jules Lebreton, Les degrés de la connaissance religieuse d'après Origène: *Recherches de Science Religieuse* 12 (1922) 265-96; Jean Daniélou, *Origène* (Paris, 1948), 251-8; Marguerite Harl, *Origène et la fonction révélatrice du Verbe Incarné* (Paris, 1958), 224-5.

[2] *Commentarii in Ioannem* II 16.114. See also *Contra Celsum* IV 29.

[3] See *Comm. in Ioann.* II 3.28-29; X 18.103.

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- all human beings, endowed as they are with the faculty of reason (*logos*), share in the *Logos*, and so are superior to mindless beasts;[4]
- individuals who act unthinkingly, but incidentally well, belong to a lower level in the scale of rational beings;[5]
- those who commit error or evil, become, in a sense, 'irrational' (*alogoi*);[6]
- the most irrational beings are those who deliberately prefer a life of sin.[7]

The extremes of this spectrum are what have in the past attracted scholars' attention most. Thus, profound studies exist on the spiritual or mystical significance of the terms *logikos/alogos*, as referred to the (contrary) states of holiness/sinfulness. In this communication we focus, rather, on the 'middle ground' – the elemental participation of the creature in the *Logos*, through possession of the faculty of reason. This 'grey area' of rationality has been less studied by Origen scholars,[8] but contains features which, upon due consideration, provide interesting insights into Origen's view of the human condition.

2. The natural faculty of reason

Let us take a closer look at this 'middle ground' – man's possession of a basic, natural or inborn faculty, which allows him to grasp reality and to see the moral value of his actions. This basic form of the *Logos*' presence provides the human being with the capacity to perceive not only the sensible, but also the intelligible (above all, God);[9] and to distinguish, besides, between good and evil,[10] and thus act with choice.[11] It is this natural capacity, so characteristic of human beings, that makes them different from irrational beasts.

[4] See *Comm. in Ioann.* I 37.269; II 2.15; II 3.30; VI 38.189.

[5] See *Commentarii in Matthaeum* XIII 5.

[6] See *C. Cels.* IV 26; *Comm. in Ioann.* II 3.31; XX 36.326; *De principiis* I 3.6.

[7] See *Comm. in Ioann.* I 37.270.

[8] H. Crouzel, *Théologie de l'image* (1956), 172, opines that for Origen, 'le côté natural de (la participation au Logos) n'est pas supprimé, mais il est plus implicite qu'exprimé.'

[9] 'As each of our members maintains a relationship towards its proper object, the eyes for things visible, the ears for things audible, in the same way the intelligence maintains a relationship towards things intelligible, and towards God who is above all things intelligible.' *Exhortatio ad martyrium*, 47. 'The Saviour ... is the light of the spiritual world because he shines on those who are rational and intellectual, that their mind may see its proper visions. Now I mean he is the light of those rational souls which are in the sensible world, of which the Saviour teaches us that he is the maker.' *Comm. in Ioann.* I 25.161.

[10] 'The rational animal possesses, apart from imaginative faculty, reason (*logos*), which judges the images, accepting some and disapproving of others, in order that the animal may be led according to them... there are, in the nature of reason, means to discern between good and evil.' *De princ.* III 1.3. See also *Commentarii in Romanos* II 9.

[11] 'The rational mind is impelled by reasoning, while on the other hand the irrational mind is impelled by instinct and unreasoning suggestion and by a sort of basic natural constitution... He who looks from heaven upon the irrational animals, even though their bodies may be large,

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It is interesting to observe how, even at this most elementary level, Origen considers the reason (*logos*) in man with great respect. He is convinced of its transcending power, its ability to let man reach beyond himself, to rise above purely carnal or egotistic considerations, and arrive at intangible realities.

It is not surprising, then, that we should find our author on some occasions proffering mundane-sounding recommendations to readers or listeners – to exercise their intellect so that it may not lie fallow[12] but rather keep its sharpness;[13] and to behave always in a self-possessed and dignified way, even when fulfilling ordinary activities like eating and drinking.[14] In such instances Origen is obviously not yet inviting his audience to the heights of mysticism, nor warning them away from the abyss of moral corruption. He is simply talking about the respect due to human rationality. He is speaking about using reason rightly in going about one's ordinary, everyday existence.

3. Use and misuse of reason

In practice, it may happen that a human being misuses the elemental *logos* within him; for instance, by using faulty logic to arrive at untenable conclusions or by opting for undignified, brutish behaviour. Let us consider two particularly representative passages by our author in this line.

In his *Treatise on Prayer*, Origen complains of idolaters, who, despite their ability to discover the existence of the one true God, creator of the universe, 'have given to an inanimate and sensible body *(i.e. an idol)* the name of Him who has given to all beings endowed with sensation and reason not only the power of perception, but rational perception as well, and to some even the power of perfect and virtuous perception and understanding.' Such individuals, asserts Origen (following Paul's reasoning in *Rom.* 1:26), are in the end 'delivered up to shameful affections, not only to those according to nature, but also to many which are against nature; they defile themselves and become so gross through the flesh as though they no longer had a soul or intelligence, but had become wholly flesh.'[15]

will not see any origin for their impulses other than irrationality, so to speak. But when he looks at the rational beings, he will see reason which is common to men and to divine and heavenly beings, and probably also to the supreme God Himself. This explains why he is said to have been made in the image of God; for the image of the supreme God is His reason (*Logos*).' *C. Cels.* IV 85. '(Celsus) has not seen the difference between actions done as a result of reason and thought and those which are the product of irrational nature and are merely natural characteristics.' *C. Cels.* IV 81.

[12] See *C. Cels.* IV 76.

[13] See *De oratione* 28.2.

[14] See *Comm. in Ioann.* I 37.267; *Comm. in Matt.* XI 17; *C. Cels.* VIII 50.

[15] *De orat.* 29.15.

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Particularly noteworthy in this passage is the link that Origen establishes, between erroneous thinking regarding the Supreme Being, and descent into a subhuman way of life. Origen seems to think that once the mind of a rational being is unmoored from its normal frame of discipline, its power to govern the rest of human actions wanes at once, leaving the individual at the mercy of baser tendencies (the 'flesh,' in Origen's schema, is the cumulus of lower tendencies present in the human creature in its actual fallen state).

In his *Commentary on Romans*, Origen again, and more extensively, argues that moral degradation is causally linked to the misuse of reason. He states (*italics mine*): '... *the kind of judgement* they used against the veneration of the deity when they transferred the glory of the incorruptible God to disgusting and unworthy forms of men and animals was *the same judgement* they used in turning against themselves, that rational human beings live after the fashion of irrational beasts.'[16] Here, once more, appears a 'slippery-slope' argument: once the *logikos* accustoms himself to not heeding the light of reason, his deviation turns against himself, as it opens the door to irrational elements latent in the soul and awaiting the opportunity to impose their dehumanising rule.

4. Undercurrents in Origen's thought

We may analyse Origen's reasoning a little further, in four brief notes:

(1) At the bottom of his thinking lies the conviction that there is but one *Logos* participated by creatures (Thus there is a kind of 'monism' in his view of the *Logos* in the *logikoi*). Therefore the *logos*, that basic human capacity for knowing and judging, has a divine character. The consequence of this, for Origen, is that the gift of participated *Logos* should be revered, through careful and correct usage (We may thus speak of a moral dimension implied in being a *logikos*, even at the basic level).

(2) The divine *Logos*' presence in the human being has a dynamic character: the *Logos* wants to intensify its rule over the soul.[17] Every person, being free, may or may not in fact acknowledge the *Logos* with which he or she has been initially gifted.[18] One may be diligent and rigorous, or lax and negligent, in employing reason.

(3) When an individual chooses not to let the *logos* rule over his thoughts and actions, he exposes himself to great danger. 'Way leads on to way': *e.g.* when one misuses reason to attribute divinity to a lifeless idol rather than to the living God, one expels the loftier aspects of the *Logos*' presence. Uncontrolled thoughts, emotions and passions subsequently inundate the

[16] *Comm. in Rom.* I 18.

[17] See *Comm. in Ioann.* I 37.268; X 24.141.

[18] See *Comm. in Ioann.* II 15.109; *De princ.* II 11.1.

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soul and establish their sway, so that – in fitting retribution – what was once a rational creature turns 'irrational' (*alogos*). Unshielded from the force of the law of the 'flesh', such a creature is inexorably pulled downward, progressively submerged in carnal desires and sinful pleasures.

(4) According to this Origenistic scheme, each *logikos* finds itself pulled in two directions: on the hand, the *Logos* invites it to ever more sublime knowledge and virtue, while on the other hand the 'flesh' tugs it down, enticing it to concentrate on baser pursuits. If the *logikos* opts for an existence governed by reason, the divine *Logos* will progressively drive away all irrational elements from it. But if it disregards the voice of reason, it will be 'abandoned' by God to the sea of unkempt emotions and passions, and to the dynamic of ever-deepening immersion in sin.[19] Every human being, we might say, is torn between 'rationality' and 'irrationality.'

5. Conclusion

Origen has a highly unified view of 'rationality' and 'irrationality' – as ways of participation or non-participation in the one divine *Logos*. He sees human reason as an elementary form of the *Logos*' presence in the creature. In this light, the fact of being a *logikos* (in the most basic sense) is not indifferent: it encloses a promise, a potentiality for plenitude; and the danger, too, of degradation. We might call it the 'zero point' for the history of holiness or of sinfulness of an individual. Origen considers the reason that is in man as a hinge: upon its use, right or wrong, the drama of salvation rests, for such usage constitutes the link with both the higher levels of 'rationality' and the deepest levels of 'irrationality.'[20]

In this manner, Origen's conception of the rational being (*logikos*) provides us with a glimpse of his highly dynamic or dramatic view of the human condition.[21]

[19] See *Comm. in Rom.* I 18-19.

[20] H. Crouzel, *Théologie de l'image* (1956), 172, affirms that the natural dimension of the Logos' presence in creatures is subsumed within the *Logos*' fuller, supernatural presence: 'il est intérieur à l'autre.'

[21] For a more comprehensive picture of Origen's dynamic view, see H. Crouzel, *Théologie de l'image* (1956), 143-255; J. Rius-Camps, *El dinamismo trinitario* (1970), 278-354; J. José Alviar, *Klesis: The Theology of the Christian Vocation according to Origen* (Dublin, 1993), 18-51, 88-132.

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Origen on Inner and Outer *Logos*

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Max Mühl may have been the first to point out that Origen, in contrast to some early Christian apologists, does not make much theological use of the traditional philosophical distinction between λόγος ἐνδιάθετος (inner speech) and λόγος προφορικός (outward speech), according to which inner speech is the domain of reason, while outer speech is the expression of reason in language. Mark Edwards has recently defended something close to this view, claiming that already by the time of Clement some previous uses of the *logos*-distinction among the Greek Christian apologists were considered theologically unacceptable, in view of the eternal generation of the *Logos* from the Father.[1] I agree that as a theological formula it is generally avoided. This feature is all the more intriguing in view of Origen's recognition in the *Contra Celsum* of the importance of the distinction to the philosophical debates of the Hellenistic period.[2] But as we will see, there are theological worries, and in any case Origen may not consider the *logos*-distinction close enough to the psychological doctrines of the Scriptures.[3] Instead of heavy reliance on this traditional distinction, we find Origen introducing alternative conceptual schemes. In his commentary on John's gospel, the voice is not conceived as the outward version of the inner language of the soul. Instead, the voice, not intelligible in its own right, presents intelligible language. For the voice, a corporeal entity, can only be understood by virtue of language, a separate incorporeal entity. In what follows, I will try to explain these conceptual shifts, and show that on occasion, there are partial echoes of the traditional *logos*-distinction.

Let us first review Origen's theological concepts of mind and *logos*. God is described as mind, as incorporeal in nature, and as the source from which

[1] Max Mühl, Der λόγος ἐνδιάθετος und προφορικός von der älteren Stoa bis zur Synode von Sirmium 351: *ABG* 7 (1962) 7-56, 52f.; Mark J. Edwards, Clement of Alexandria and his Doctrine of the Logos: *VC* 54 (2000) 159-77. See Christopher Stead, The Concept of Mind and the Concept of God in the Christian Fathers, in: Brian Hebblethwaite and Stewart R. Sutherland (eds.), *The Philosophical Frontiers of Christian Theology* (Cambridge, 1982), 39-54, 50f. *C. Cels.* VI 65 (GCS, 135,18-25) represents a partial exception to the claims of Mühl and Edwards that Origen has no positive theological use for the *logos* distinction.

[2] Henry Chadwick, Origen, Celsus, and the Stoa: *JThSt* 48 (1947) 34-49, 36f.

[3] Paul S. MacDonald, *History of the Concept of Mind* (Aldershot, 2003), 132f. references a few passages in Origen which adopt Platonic rather than Pauline psychology. Hal Koch, *Pronoia und Paideusis* (Berlin, 1932), 207 notes several contrasts with Stoic psychology.

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issues every other intellectual nature or mind (*De princ.* I 1.6-7; GCS, 20,24-24,21; *C. Cels.* VII 38; GCS, 188,11-2). Created in the image of God, the human mind and the soul are also incorporeal (*De princ.* I 1.7; GCS, 23,15-24,21). The *Logos* is derived from the Father, being divine yet subordinate in status. Unlike Philo, Origen's *Logos* proceeds from the Father as a distinct ***hypostasis***, being eternally distinct as generated as the 'revealed mind' from the Father (*De princ.* I 2.3; GCS, 30,9-19; *De princ.* I 4.5; GCS, 67,16-68,3; see *C. Cels.* III 21; GCS, 218,3-5). When incarnate, the *Logos* is subject to separation from the Father, although divinity is preserved. Certain attributes, such as immortality, are shared with the Father in a unique way.[4] The *Logos* represents God's mind towards the world in such a way as to make possible the understanding of God.[5] Similar to a Middle Platonist second principle, the *Logos* reveals the truth from a transcendent source.[6] And although he shuns talk of the Ideas or Forms as the thoughts in God's mind, they still play a role in his notion of divine *Logos*.[7] All of these theological claims seem to correspond roughly to his philosophical claims about language.

Now we turn to the altered conceptual scheme. Origen's distinction between φωνή (voice) and λόγος (language) presents an interesting and neglected account of why vocal sounds are intelligible (*Comm. in Ioh.* I 32; GCS, 89,22-90,10). The contrast of voice and language occupies center stage in his commentary on *John* 1:6 ('There was a man sent from God, whose name was John').[8]

Ἡγοῦμαι δὲ ὅτι ὥσπερ ἐν ἡμῖν φωνὴ καὶ λόγος διαφέρει, δυναμένης μέντοι γέ ποτε φωνῆς τῆς μηδὲν σημαινούσης προφέρεσθαι χωρὶς λόγου, οἵου τε δὲ ὄντος καὶ λόγου χωρὶς τῷ νῷ ἀπαγγέλλεσθαι φωνῆς, ὡς ἐπὰν ἐν ἑαυτοῖς διεξοδεύωμεν, οὕτω τοῦ σωτῆρος κατὰ τινα ἐπίνοιαν ὄντος λόγου διαφέρει τούτου ὁ Ἰωάννης, ὡς πρὸς τὴν ἀναλογίαν τοῦ χριστοῦ τυγχάνοντος λόγου φωνὴ ὤν. Ἐπὶ τοῦτο δέ με προκαλεῖται αὐτὸς ὁ Ἰωάννης, ὅστις ποτὲ εἴη, πρὸς τοὺς πυνθανομένους ἀποκρινόμενος· Ἐγὼ φωνὴ βοῶντος ἐν τῇ ἐρήμῳ· Ἑτοιμάσατε τὴν ὁδὸν κυρίου, εὐθείας ποιεῖτε τὰς τρίβους αὐτοῦ. Καὶ τάχα διὰ τοῦτο ἀπιστήσας ὁ Ζαχαρίας τῇ γενέσει τῆς δεικνυούσης τὸν λόγον τοῦ θεοῦ φωνῆς ἀπόλλυσι τὴν φωνήν, λαμβάνων αὐτήν, ὅτε γεννᾶται ἡ πρόδρομος τοῦ λογοῦ φωνή. Ἐνωτίσασθαι γὰρ δεῖ φωνήν, ἵνα μετὰ ταῦτα ὁ νοῦς τὸν δεικνύμενον ὑπὸ τῆς φωνῆς λόγον δέξασθαι δυνηθῇ. Διόπερ καὶ ὀλίγῳ πρεσβύτερος κατὰ τὸ γεννᾶσθαι ὁ Ἰωάννης ἐστὶ

[4] Hermann J. Vogt, Beobachtungen zum Johannes-Kommentar des Origenes, in: Wilhelm Geerlings (ed.), *Origenes als Exeget* (Paderborn, 1999), 187-205, 200f. presents this aspect of the incarnate *Logos*, the true image of God, by contrast with the limits of Christ, the Son of Man, with reference to the Johannine commentary.

[5] Koch, *Pronoia und Paideusis* (1932), 71, 288.

[6] Robert M. Berchman, Origen on *The Categories*: A Study in Later Platonic First Principles, in: Robert J. Daly (ed.), *Origeniana Quinta: Origenism and Later Developments* (Leuven, 1992), 231-52, 236; J. Rebecca Lyman, *Christology and Cosmology* (Oxford, 1993), 72.

[7] Koch, *Pronoia und Paideusis* (1932), 255f.; Henri Crouzel, *Origène et la philosophie* (Paris, 1962), 52.

[8] All translations of biblical texts, except *Psalm* 45:1 below, are taken from the RSV.

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τοῦ χριστοῦ· φωνῆς γὰρ πρὸ λόγου ἀντιλαμβανόμεθα. Ἀλλὰ καὶ δείκνυσι τὸν χριστὸν ὁ Ἰωάννης· φωνῇ γὰρ παρίσταται ὁ λόγος. Ἀλλὰ καὶ βαπτίζεται ὑπὸ Ἰωάννου ὁ χριστός, ὁμολογοῦντος χρείαν ἔχειν ὑπ' αὐτοῦ βαπτισθῆναι· ἀνθρώποις γὰρ ὑπὸ φωνῆς καθαίρεται λόγος, τῇ φύσει τοῦ λόγου καθαίροντος πᾶσαν τὴν σημαίνουσαν φωνήν. Καὶ ἁπαξαπλῶς ὅτε Ἰωάννης τὸν χριστὸν δείκνυσιν, ἄνθρωπος θεὸν δείκνυσι καὶ σωτῆρα τὸν ἀσώματον, καὶ φωνὴ τὸν λόγον.

I think that just as voice and *logos* differ in us – surely voice signifies nothing insofar as it is capable on some occasion of being uttered without *logos*, while it is possible for what is in fact *logos* to be recited in the mind apart from voice, as when we meditate within ourselves – so also John, being a voice by analogy while Christ is *logos*, differs from this man the savior, who is according to a certain notion *logos*. And John himself invites me to this [view], as to who he is, when responding to those questioning [him]: 'I am the voice of one crying in the wilderness, prepare the way of the Lord, make straight his paths.' And perhaps for this reason Zacharias lost the voice when he disbelieved the origin of the voice revealing the *logos* of God, receiving it again when the voice, the forerunner of the *logos*, was born. For it is necessary to listen attentively to voice, to the end that after these things the mind is capable of receiving the *logos* revealed by the voice. Hence John is a little older according to birth than Christ. For we perceive voice before *logos*. And also John reveals Christ; for *logos* is presented by voice. And also Christ is baptized by John, John admitting that he should be baptized by him. In the case of men, *logos* is purified by voice, although *logos* naturally purifies every voice that signifies. And in truth when John reveals Christ, a man reveals God and savior who is incorporeal, as also voice [reveals] *logos* [which is incorporeal].[9]

The main business of this passage, of course, is to develop a conceptual parallel which explains the nature and function of John the Baptist in relation to Christ.

Why does Origen forge a new distinction between voice and language? Probably, Origen wishes to avoid any harmful notions of divinity arising from certain uses of the word *logos*. In another passage of the same commentary, Origen discusses problems arising from certain uses of the word *logos* (*Comm. in Ioh.* I 24; GCS, 29,17-31). In this earlier passage, Origen censures the heretics for their theology of a divine *logos* conceived merely as the voice or utterance (προφορά) of God. This would amount to a denial of the reality (ὑπόστασις) or substance (οὐσία) of the *Logos*, which is quite unacceptable.[10] So Origen may have in mind this sort of worry when he distinguishes voice and language, with the aim of securing a superior reality for the divine *Logos*.

But if this helps account for the new conceptual scheme, why does Origen load his semantics with hieratic notions? What does he mean by the 'purifying' function of language? My response here will be somewhat tentative. Origen points out that the human *logos* can be independent of vocal sound, being freely

[9] The translation is entirely my own.

[10] See Mark J. Edwards, *Origen Against Plato* (Aldershot, 2002), 67 on Philo's notion of the *Logos*.

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active in the mind without any verbal expression (It is not clear to me in this text whether Origen thinks that *logos* entirely belongs to the mental). But our vocal organs cannot produce meaningful utterances independently, that is, apart from rationality.[11] Of course, there are important connections between voice and language. This is seen from the examples of John the Baptist as well as Zacharias, which show that hearing the voice precedes the mind's understanding of language. But we are also told that utterances depend on the 'purifying' function of incorporeal *logos* to make them meaningful. Perhaps Origen means by 'purifying' the ordering and completion of vocal sound by *logos* (see *Comm. in Ioh.* X 28; GCS, 201,28-202,1). We might compare the rational ordering of *logos* to the creative activity of the divine *Logos* in forming bodies by inserting qualities into matter.[12] On the other hand, this reading might obscure the theological significance of John's baptism in this passage, in accordance with Origen's general penchant for bringing philosophical claims into alignment with theological concerns.

It should be noted that Origen does not always distinguish voice and language so carefully, nor does he use the same semantic terminology in everything he writes.[13] Even in the commentary on John, he adopts a different relationship between voice and language, slipping into the traditional 'container' or 'vehicle' models of language familiar from Philo and other Patristic figures. For example, in connection with the entry of Jesus into Jerusalem riding on an ass (*John* 12:12-4), Origen writes as follows (*Comm. in Ioh.* X 29; GCS, 202,13-6):

Καὶ τάχα οὐκ ἀλόγως ὄνῳ εἰκάσα τὰς περιστάσας φωνὰς τὸν ἄγοντα αὐτὰς εἰς τὴν ψυχὴν λόγον· ἀχθοφόρον γὰρ τὸ ζῷον, πολὺ δὲ τὸ ἄχθος καὶ φορτίον βαρὺ δηλοῦνται ἀπὸ τῆς λέξεως.

And perhaps [someone] might reasonably compare the vocal sounds which envelop the *logos* which brings them into the soul to an ass, for the beast is a burden bearer, and a great burden and a heavy load are revealed from the text.[14]

Here Origen locates language *within* voice, its vehicle. However, it is possible that Origen senses a lack of biblical support for the conventional 'container' or 'vehicle' models – most of the relevant biblical passages focus on mouth and heart (*e.g. Psalm* 15:2; *Psalm* 44:2; *Matthew* 12:34; *Luke* 6:45).

[11] See St Paul on glossolalia, 1*Cor.* 13:1.

[12] Gerald Bostock, Origen's Philosophy of Creation, in: *Origeniana Quinta*, 253-69, 259.

[13] There are several good examples of this phenomenon: *C. Cels.* I 24-5 (GCS, 74,4-77,10); *C. Cels.* II 72 (GCS, 194,11-9); *C. Cels.* IV 84 (GCS, 355,13-22) = *Philoc.* 20.11, ed. J. Armitage Robinson (135,12-21); *C. Cels.* V 45 (GCS, 48,10-5); *C. Cels.* VI 62 (GCS, 132,16-21); *Comm. in Ioh.* 4 = *Philoc.* 4.1, ed. J. Armitage Robinson (41,9-15). For more explanation of various uses, see Gennaro Lomiento, 'Pragma' und 'lexis' in den Jeremiahomilien des Origenes: *ThQ* 165 (1985) 118-31; Marguerite Harl, Origène et la sémantique du langage biblique: *VC* 26 (1972) 161-87.

[14] I adapt here the translation of Robert E. Heine, *Origen: Commentary on the Gospel According to John. Books 1-10* (Washington, D.C., 1989), 295f.

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Now I will introduce some further complications in Origen's reflections on language in the commentary on John. Let us take up a text which prefaces his spiritual interpretation of *Psalm* 45:1 (44:2), 'My heart overflows with a good *logos* (λόγον ἀγαθόν), I address my verses to the king.' This was a well-loved Psalm text in Greek Patristic theology.[15] We find a distinction not between voice and language, but rather between language (λόγος) and mind (νοῦς) (*Comm. in Ioh.* I 38; GCS, 49,3-8).

Δύναται δὲ καὶ ὁ λόγος υἱὸς εἶναι παρὰ τὸ ἀπαγγέλλειν τὰ κρύφια τοῦ πατρὸς ἐκείνου, ἀνάλογον τῷ καλουμένῳ υἱῷ λόγῳ νοῦ τυγχάνοντος. Ὡς γὰρ ὁ παρ' ἡμῖν λόγος ἄγγελός ἐστι τῶν ὑπὸ τοῦ νοῦ ὁρωμένων, οὕτως ὁ τοῦ Θεοῦ λόγος, ἐγνωκὼς τὸν πατέρα, οὐδενὸς τῶν γενητῶν προσβαλεῖν αὐτῷ χωρὶς ὁδηγοῦ δυναμένου, ἀποκαλύπτει ὃν ἔγνω πατέρα.

But the *Logos* can also be 'the Son' because he announces the secrets of that Father, obtaining as a mind in correspondence to the Son being called '*Logos*'. For as the *logos* in us is the messenger of the things seen by the mind, so the *Logos* of God, having known the Father, reveals the Father whom he has known, insofar as none among created beings can come into contact with him without a guide.[16]

I think that on this ground, Origen moves a bit closer to the traditional *logos*-distinction. However, on human and divine levels alike, there is only a single *logos*, which serves as the mediator between the intelligible and the sensible. And in the exegetical discussion of the Psalm text that follows, we are told that the form (τύπος) of the divine mind is represented in the *Logos*, and Origen cites *Col.* 1:15 which describes the Son as the image (εἰκών) of the invisible God (*Comm. in Ioh.* I 38; GCS, 49,23-50,9). This part, I would argue, evokes the dependence of spoken utterance on a more fundamental reality, along the lines of the traditional *logos*-distinction.

In conclusion, Origen's departure from the *logos*-distinction, largely motivated by his theological and exegetical interests, is an interesting philosophical innovation. Unfortunately, Origen does not provide much in the way of an explanation of why human speech is intelligible, besides adducing an incorporeal *logos* which does the work. Perhaps this reflects the general Patristic tendency to take our linguistic faculties as basic, a useful starting point for constructing theological arguments.

[15] Cecile Blanc, *Origène. Commentaire sur Saint Jean*, SC 120 (Paris, 1966), 203, n. 2 provides references.

[16] The translation is adapted from Heine, *Commentary on the Gospel According to John* (1989), 91f.

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Third-Century Daimonologies and the *Via Universalis*: Origen, Porphyry and Iamblichus on *daimones* and Other Angels[1]

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In his recent book, *Evil Incarnate: Rumors of Demonic Conspiracy and Satanic Abuse in History*, David Frankfurter demonstrates the way in which demonological writing flourished as a literary-theological pursuit in the changing religious landscape of the late Roman Mediterranean. This happened among a wide variety of religious communities, including Jewish and Christian ones. These demonologies tended to be 'divorced from the local experience of spirits', yet pretended to embrace and define it.[2] According to Frankfurter, spirits at the local, everyday level are experienced as diverse, unclassified, individual, capricious and ambiguous. Writers and ritual experts working in a demonological mode seek to impose an order on this amorphous realm. Frankfurter writes:

> Demonologies seek to control – through order, through writing, through the ritual power of declaration – a chaotic world of misfortune, temptation, religious conflict, and spiritual ambiguity ... Demonology collects from and attends to these various domains of apparent demonic action, yet its intent lies in grasping totality, simplifying and abstracting immediate experience for the sake of cosmic structures.[3]

Late Antique Jews and Christians were not alone in their pursuit and production of the totalizing discourse that demonology imposes upon a world of local spirits and popular religious understandings and rituals. Neoplatonic philosophers such as Porphyry and Iamblichus were equally engaged in demonological speculation and systematization. And the parallels between their conclusions and those of Christian writers were often dramatic. Although Porphyry,

[1] This paper was presented at the 2007 International Patristics Conference in Oxford as part of a workshop on Neoplatonism and Christianity. I would like to thank Elizabeth DePalma Digeser for arranging the workshop and for reading drafts of the paper and offering helpful revisions and suggestions. I would also like to thank Gillian Clark for her generous participation in the workshop, offering important comments and insights on all the papers and finding key points of dialogue between them. Finally, I would like to thank my fellow participants, Olivier Dufault, Lindsey Scholl, and Blossom Stefaniw for their contributions to a very productive and engaging workshop.

[2] David Frankfurter, *Evil Incarnate: Rumors of Demonic Conspiracy and Ritual Abuse in History* (Princeton, N.J., 2006), 24.

[3] D. Frankfurter, *Evil Incarnate* (2006), 26f.

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a third-century Platonist who studied under Plotinus, declared himself an opponent of certain Christian ideas and individuals, he agreed with his Christian contemporaries and their predecessors on a number of key positions concerning evil *daimones*. For instance, he held that they were responsible for natural disasters like plagues, crop failures, and earthquakes.[4] He also held that these spirits inflamed people's appetites with lust and longing for wealth, power, and pleasure, as well as with the 'empty ambition from which arises civil conflicts and wars and kindred events.'[5] Furthermore, they do all of this, deceiving the unwitting into thinking that they are the true gods themselves, in order to secure the blood and smoke that issues from animal sacrifices. These substances, according to Porphyry, feed their pneumatic vessel, their material aspect, to which they are inordinately attached compared with good *daimones*.[6] The foregoing ideas can all be found mirrored in Patristic works of the second and third centuries.

Intellectually, there are a number of obvious reasons why someone such as Porphyry might have agreed with Origen or Clement of Alexandria or even Justin Martyr on the nature and role of evil *daimones* in the cosmos. The Platonizing monotheism of many late Roman intellectuals necessitated that true divinity be kept apart from any congress with base matter, that it be protected from culpability for natural and human evil, and also from any imputations that the God or gods need anything from mere mortals. In this regard, 'theologians' from many different camps needed to explain certain traditional aspects of Greek and Roman religion, such as sacrifice. They also had to explain the apparent efficacy of such rituals as miracles, oracles, and healings performed in the name of lesser spiritual beings.

However, it would be a mistake to see this project, undertaken as it was by both Christian and Platonic thinkers, as purely intellectual. The imposition of a totalizing discourse upon a world of local spirits has another dimension, one that pertains to the issue of ritual expertise. The Late Antique religious landscape, especially in the Eastern Empire, was one in which new dynamics of ritual authority and new kinds of experts emerged to supplant, supplement, and compete with traditional priesthoods and temple personnel. As Frankfurter has argued in *Religion in Roman Egypt*, even priests themselves took on new roles

[4] 'One thing especially should be counted among the greatest harm done by the maleficent *daimones*: they are themselves responsible for the sufferings that occur around the earth (plagues, crop failures, earthquakes, droughts, and the like), but convince us that the responsibility lies with those who are responsible for just the opposite.' Porphyry, *On Abstinence from Killing Animals*, transl. Gillian Clark (Ithaca, N.Y., 2000), 2.40.

[5] Porphyry, *On Abstinence*, 2.40.

[6] 'It is they who rejoice in the "drink-offerings and smoking meat" on which their pneumatic part grows fat, for it lives on vapors and exhalations in a complex fashion and from complex sources and it draws power from the smoke that arises from blood and flesh.' Porphyry, *On Abstinence*, 2.40.

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and adapted to changing circumstances in order to counteract a third-century decline in temple revenues and priestly cachet.[7] It is telling that Porphyry calls the philosopher, and hence himself, the 'priest of the god who rules all'.[8] And Iamblichus claims that the theurgist is the only one who really knows about the right way to sacrifice and to whom.[9] Within the Christian milieu, exorcistic, renunciatory, and apotropaic practices became commonly associated with rituals like baptism and even the Eucharist.[10] And the church employed a regular cadre of exorcists to expel evil *daimones* from persons and places. Origen himself was a priest, and in his capacity as such he would presumably have taught not only about Christian doctrine, but also about Christian practice. A number of his homilies focus on contemporary baptismal practices. And Henry A. Kelly argues that from his time in Rome, Origen would have been aware of the Hippolytan practice of exorcising catechumens before baptism.[11]

But to what end did writers like Porphyry, Iamblichus and Origen, people whom we usually think of primarily as intellectuals and not ritual experts, engage in demonological speculation, in the construction of a discourse that ordered the realm of spirits and valenced it? I wish to argue that we must take seriously the fact that all three were deeply engaged with questions of the soul's salvation, and not merely as intellectuals, but also as religious practitioners and ritual experts, people who participated practically in soteriological work. And when we use demonology as a lens through which to consider this engagement, interesting and surprising alignments emerge. These alignments may strike us as surprising only if we assume that religious or philosophical affiliation was the sole or even primary determinant in the positions Late Antique intellectuals took. Porphyry shared much more in common with Christian writers on the nature of evil *daimones* and their culpability for mass deception, corruption, pain and suffering than did Iamblichus. However, as we will see, it is actually Iamblichus who had more in common with Origen on the question of the soul's salvation and its freedom from suffering, pollution and the influence of these evil spirits.

As already noted, there is substantial agreement between Porphyry and Origen on the association of evil *daimones* with blood sacrifices and on the issue of their culpability for evil in the world. But differences between the two

[7] D. Frankfurter, *Religion in Roman Egypt: Assimilation and Resistance* (Princeton, N.J., 1998), 203.

[8] Porphyry, *On Abstinence from Killing Animals*, 2.49.

[9] Iamblichus, *On the Mysteries*, transl. Emma C. Clarke, John M. Dillon, and Jackson P. Hershbell (Leiden, 2004), 5.21.

[10] Henry Ansgar Kelly, *The Devil at Baptism: Ritual, Theology, and Drama* (Ithaca, New York, 1985), 90. Parts I and II of Kelly's book address the early centuries of Christianity. In the case of the Eucharist, Kelly notes that the *Apostolic Tradition* stipulates that bread given to catechumens at communal meals of the congregation be exorcised.

[11] H.A. Kelly, *The Devil at Baptism* (1985), 51.

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quickly emerge when we consider their respective positions on the question of human relations with these spirits. Porphyry seems to have thought that demonic pollution and regular congress with maleficent spirits was just part of life for most people. In *On Philosophy from Oracles*, Porphyry argues that evil *daimones* inhabit not only the houses of ordinary people, but also their bodies, 'for they especially delight in certain kinds of food' like blood and impure meats.[12] And when we are eating, he says, 'they approach and sit close to our body' and they enjoy these foods by entering into us as we ingest our meal.[13] Eating is not the only dangerous activity in which people engage. Sex leaves one equally vulnerable to these spirits. Porphyry writes:

> For universally, the vehemence of the desire towards anything, and the impulse of the lust of the spirit, is intensified from no other cause than their presence; and they also force men to fall into inarticulate noises and flatulence by sharing the same enjoyment with them. For where there is a drawing in of much breath, either because the stomach has been inflated by indulgence, or because eagerness from the intensity of pleasure breathes out much and draws in much of the outer air, let this be clear proof to you of the presence of such spirits there.[14]

The author of the fourth-century *Pseudo-Clementine Homily* 9.10 makes almost the same association between demonic possession and gustatory and sexual intemperance. The writer claims that these spirits lack the necessary gustatory and sexual organs to enjoy carnal pleasures and so must borrow human ones.[15] Given the undesirable consequences of such indulgence, one would think that Porphyry would have proposed abstinence for everyone, but he does not. Instead, he says that such abstinence 'is not advised for everyone without exception, but for philosophers, and among philosophers chiefly for those who make their happiness depend on God and on the imitation of God.'[16]

[12] 'Every house also is full of them [i.e., evil *daimones*], and on this account, when they are going to call down the gods, they purify the house first and cast the demons out. Our bodies are also full of them, for they especially delight in certain kinds of food. So when we are eating they approach and sit close to our body; and this is the reason of the purifications, not chiefly on account of the gods, but in order that these evil daemons may depart. But most of all they delight in blood and in impure meats and enjoy these by entering into those who use them. Eusebius, *Preparation for the Gospel*, trans. Edwin Hamilton Gifford (Grand Rapids, Mich., 1981), IV.XXIII.

[13] Eusebius, *Preparation for the Gospel*, 4.23.

[14] Eusebius, *Preparation for the Gospel*, 4.23.

[15] 'The reason why the demons delight in entering into men's bodies is this. Being spirits, and having desires after meats and drinks and sexual pleasures, but not being able to partake of these by reasons of their being spirits, and wanting organs fitted for their enjoyment, they enter into the bodies of men in order that, getting the organs to minister to them, they may obtain the things that they wish, whether it be meat, by means of men's teeth, or sexual pleasure, by means of men's members.' Alexander Roberts et al., *The Ante-Nicene Fathers: Translations of the Writings of the Fathers Down to A.D. 325*, American reprint of the Edinburgh ed., 10 vols. (Grand Rapids, 1980), VIII.292. Quoted in H.A. Kelly, *The Devil at Baptism* (1985), 126f.

[16] Porphyry, *On Abstinence from Killing Animals*, 2.3.

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Despite Augustine's assertion that Porphyry was seeking some kind of *via universalis*, a way of salvation for everyone, Porphyry's own writings reveal a very different picture.[17] Divinization and true salvation are possible for a very small, elect group of philosophers who not only engage in regular contemplative activity, but who also observe a strict ascetic regime in more practical matters like food, sexual relations, dress, comportment and so forth. On the other hand, the average person who enjoys or participates enthusiastically in sex or a good meal is at risk of becoming possessed. For Porphyry, this is not problematic in the way it would be for someone like Origen. Because he follows the Platonic and Pythagorean belief in the reincarnation of souls, Porphyry can conclude instead that the average human being who in this life has regular congress with evil *daimones* and who lives in a state of pollution is not eternally doomed as he or she might be in the Christian scheme of things. Rather, although this time around the soul of such an individual may descend into Hades because it is too moist and heavy to rise above the earth and ascend to the supralunary sphere, it may well have a chance in the next life to live a relatively un-polluted existence. It may dry out, so to speak, through ascetic and contemplative practices.[18]

One aspect of Christianity that was so offensive to many intellectual elites in the Late Antique world, and to Porphyry in particular, was the claim that all believers were akin to philosophers, not only in their access to salvation and purification, but also in their possession of true wisdom.[19] This was, for those living the philosophical life, an impossibility and an affront. Without rigorous ascetic training and intense contemplation, there was no way that the ordinary person could be on a par with a Plotinus or a Sosipatra. What was equally offensive to some Hellenes was the way in which many average, everyday Christians did take up ascetic practices, and at times, with embarrassing zeal. Unlike Porphyry, Origen and many other Christian thinkers believed that demonic pollution ought to and could be avoided by everyone. The principle means for doing so was to avoid participating in traditional cult, especially those rituals that involved blood sacrifices, for these were the ones that evil *daimones* particularly desired.

Origen, who according to Eusebius was both a teacher to Porphyry and a pupil of the mysterious Ammonius Saccus, was writing before Porphyry. However, in *On First Principles*, he was responding to an ideological stance similar to Porphyry's, namely, one which denied the possibility of a universal path. Origen countered the idea, attributed to certain so-called Gnostic groups, that

[17] Augustine, *The City of God against the Pagans: In Seven Volumes*, 7 vols. (London and Cambridge, 1957), 10.32.

[18] Thomas Taylor, *Select Works of Porphyry* (London, 1823), 32.

[19] Eusebius makes this point in a number of places in the *Preparation for the Gospel*, but he gives it special attention in Book 12.

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there were different and fixed orders of human souls with different possibilities for salvation. According to Origen's interpretation of this scheme these different paths are the direct result of different creative agents in the universe – one good and one deceptive and defective. Origen countered the idea of a hierarchy of souls in *On First Principles* with what some have called his 'universalism' or *apocatastasis* – the idea that eventually all souls will be saved.

There is no need here to go into the debate on whether or not Origen's position on the eventual salvation of all souls as it is elaborated in *On First Principles* is his definitive one. Rather, its demonological implications are significant here, especially the way these ideas are mirrored in his homily on 1*Kings* 28, the episode in which King Saul visits a medium in En-dor to consult with the dead prophet Samuel. As noted earlier, Origen, like other Platonists, constructed a systematic discourse that ordered the realm of spirits and spoke to questions concerning the origin, status, and nature of various kinds of rational souls. For him, these were matters of theological speculation because Jesus Christ and the apostles did not clearly state what existed before and will exist after this world.[20] One of his main concerns was to explain why some rational souls happened to be angels, others evil *daimones*, and still others, humans. God could not be held responsible for these differences, because that would imply that God either created deficient beings or participated in the fall of good ones.[21] Origen claimed, instead, that all rational souls were created equal and each made a primordial choice with regard to its Creator that subsequently situated it in the cosmic order. Hence a single framework or narrative encompasses angels, evil spirits and humans. For Origen, all rational souls were capable of earning censure or praise, and each one found itself within the spiritual order based on its prior merits and free choices. This was the reason why humans were situated between angels and evil *daimones* in a state of struggle and trial.[22] However, Origen at no point posited that the primordial choices a certain rational soul made and which determined where it fits in the cosmos permanently severed the creature from the Creator. He writes: '[E]very rational nature can, in the process of passing from one order to another, travel through each order to all the rest, and from all to each...'[23]

This process of restoration was, in fact, how Origen conceived of the afterlife. In the case of the human soul, its earthly tenure was but one stage in its soteriological journey. Origen, however, did not seem to make clear distinctions between kinds of rational souls, suspending judgment about the fate of the souls of evil *daimones*.[24] Origen explained his *via universalis*, his universal path of

[20] Paul Koetschau and G.W. Butterworth, *Origen on First Principles: Being Koetschau's Text of the De Principiis* (Gloucester, Mass., 1973), I. Preface.

[21] Origen, *On First Principles* (1973), 1.5.

[22] Origen, *On First Principles* (1973), 1.5.

[23] Origen, *On First Principles* (1973), 1.6.

[24] Origen, *On First Principles* (1973), 2.6.

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salvation for all creation, by interpreting the fire of hell as a purgative, restorative, purifying process that was commensurate in intensity and duration with both the original fall and subsequent actions of each rational soul. Interpreting *Isaiah* 50:2: 'Walk in the light of your own fire, and in the flame which ye have kindled', Origen claims that 'every sinner kindles for himself the flame of his own fire, and is not plunged into some fire which has been already kindled by another, or was in existence before himself.'[25] Presumably, this account pertains to all orders of rational beings from angels to humans to evil *daimones*.

Where Origen focused on the role of the purgative and purificatory fire in the soul's restoration in *On First Principles*, in his *Homily on 1 Kings 28*, he added a further dimension to this drama. The homily concerns one of the strangest episodes in Hebrew scripture, namely, the story of Saul conjuring Samuel through the help of a medium in En-dor. Origen did not directly address the issue of necromantic practice itself. Rather, he was at pains to explain why Samuel, a prophet of God, was in Hades. The implications for Origen's audience are obvious. He writes:

> [S]ince the history about Saul and the medium affects all, there is a necessary truth regarding its subject. For who, after departing this life, wants to be under the sway of a little demon, in order that a medium may bring up not just one who by chance has believed but Samuel the prophet..?[26]

Origen implies, then, that mediums generally work necromantic rites using 'little demons'. But this could not be in Samuel's case. Nor would Origen concede that the rite may have been performed by an evil *daimon* posing as Samuel. For no 'little demon' could have known what was in God's plan with regard to the end of Saul's reign and the beginning of David's. Origen insisted that Samuel must have been in Hades and that it was his soul which the medium brought up.[27] But what was the soul of a prophet doing in Hades? As it turns out, he was prophesying and proclaiming the eventual arrival of Christ in Hades. Samuel was not the only one continuing his life's work in the afterlife. According to Origen, John the Baptist also went to Hades. This is fitting seeing as his career began even before birth when he 'prophesied' to Jesus' presence in Mary's womb.[28] For Origen, then, the life of the soul, although it did not pass through cycles of reincarnation, indeed because it did not, underwent a process of salvation that far outstripped its earthly tenure. And although each rational soul must be purified by the fire it kindled, it was not without resources – prophets, healers, and angels – to help it along. In fact, in their capacity as

[25] Origen, *On First Principles* (1973), 2.10.

[26] Origen, *Homilies on Jeremiah: Homily on 1 Kings 28*, transl. John Clark Smith (Washington, D.C., 1998), 320.

[27] Origen, *Homilies on Jeremiah: Homily on 1 Kings 28* (1998), 325.

[28] Origen, *Homilies on Jeremiah: Homily on 1 Kings 28* (1998), 329.

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post mortem ministers of God, the blessed bore a very close resemblance to angels.

As mentioned earlier, Origen, in his moving concern for the eventual salvation of all rational souls bears an interesting resemblance to Iamblichus. Although Iamblichus agreed with Porphyry that not all people could be philosophers and attain complete reunion with God and live like a god, he vehemently opposed Porphyry on the issue of blood sacrifices. And although Iamblichus once may have been a pupil of Porphyry's, he did not take the view that these offerings merely propitiated conniving, greedy, evil *daimones*. Rather, he argued that all sacrifices were divinely ordained, and that blood sacrifices were made to those material gods who 'embrace matter within themselves and impose order on it.'[29] In fact, these sacrifices are part of a theurgic process whereby souls are released from the bonds of matter and healed of the suffering that accompanies these bonds.[30] Even the philosopher had need of such purifications if he or she were to advance in the pursuit of divinity. For Iamblichus, then, participation in traditional sacrifices was salvific and purificatory. Unlike Porphyry, and similar to Origen, he was unwilling to consign everyday, ordinary people to a polluted existence with no remedy, laboring under the delusion that the rituals they performed benefited them when, in fact, they contributed to their spiritual demise.[31]

Finally, as Sarah Iles Johnston has pointed out, Iamblichus held the view that the truly virtuous would become angels after death, but then they would re-descend to earth, and in a new incarnation, teach and participate in the demiurgic recreation and re-ordering of the cosmos.[32] As Johnston sees it, 'the opportunity to spend one life putting into effect what he [the theurgist] had spent all of the last one learning constituted Paradise indeed.'[33] In other words, like Origen's prophets in Hades, Iamblichus' reincarnated angelic souls continued their pursuit of a sort of universal, albeit circumscribed, salvation.

[29] 'And so, in sacrifices, dead bodies deprived of life, the slaughter of animals and the consumption of their bodies, and every sort of change and destruction, and in general processes of dissolution are suitable to those gods who preside over matter. Iamblichus, *On the Mysteries*, 5.11.

[30] 'Let us not disdain, therefore, to make the following observation as well that often it is by reason of bodily necessity that we are involved in some relationship with the gods and good daemons that watch over the body: purifying from impurities, freeing it from disease, cutting away what is heavy or sluggish.' Iamblichus, *On the Mysteries*, 5.16.

[31] 'So if one does not grant some such mode of worship to cities and peoples not freed from the fated processes of generation and from a society dependent on the body, one will continue to fail of both types of good, both the immaterial and the material; for they are not capable of receiving the former, and for the latter they are not making the right offering.' Iamblichus, *On the Mysteries*, 2.15.

[32] Sarah Iles Johnston, Working Overtime in the Afterlife; or, No Rest for the Virtuous, in: *Heavenly Realms and Earthly Realities in Late Antique Religions*, ed. Annette Yoshiko Reed and Ra'anan S. Boustan (Cambridge, 2004), 85-100, 89. Johnston cites Iamblichus *De Anima* 1.389.525. This idea is also represented in the *Chaldean Oracles* and Synesios' *Hymn* 1.513.

[33] S. Johnston, Working Overtime (2004), 100.

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As we have seen in this paper, then, the demonological discourses of certain Late Antique intellectuals reveal unlikely parallels between individuals whom one would expect to be at variance with each other. The fact that writers whose own rhetoric sets them at odds with each other happen to share key concerns and ideas means that historians of this period need to search for models other than ones which highlight simple 'pagan'-Christian conflict if we are to locate the issues that actually divided people and the precise points where boundaries were drawn and with what degree of permeability. Exploring the demonological discourse and focus on ritual expertise in the works of Late Antique thinkers such as Origen, Porphyry and Iamblichus, reveals a broad, overarching concern within this milieu for the salvation of the soul and its return to its source, as well as with how to deal practically with impediments along the way. One such impediment was the polluting effects of a very clearly-valenced class of maleficent spirits ordered within a universal theological discourse.

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Polemics against Judaeo-Christian Practices in Origen's *Homilies*

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The observance of Jewish practices and feasts by some Christians is a problem well attested by the Fathers of the Church and has been subject of some well-known studies. Trying to identify these Christian groups the scholars have posed different accents on their studies, which regard the phenomenon in its cultural, theological, ritual, or ethnical perspective. My purpose in this paper is to analyse some examples of Origen's polemics against some mixed Judaeo-Christian practices, in order to individualise his opponents. Working on my dissertation 'The Interpretation of the Pentateuch in Origen and in the early rabbinical Literature' I had the possibility to state many cases of such conflict. I would like to present here two examples, focusing on two of the most famous Jewish observances: the circumcision and the Sabbath. Most of the texts I use belong to homilies, a genre directed to a large audience, that also addresses the actual problems of this audience. These origenian citations are testimonies for Origen's direct contact with Judaeo-Christian practices. The definitions of Judaeo-Christians that we find in Contra Celsum seem to be an attempt to scientifically resume the problem.[1] In the homilies we find some interesting and not so obviously important details of the observances which have to come from Origen's direct observation of judaizing Christians in Caesarea. As it is known, the Judaeo-Christians in Palestine have often been defined as ethnical Jews with Christian faith.[2] Their refusal to participate to the Jewish revolt of 135 A.D. made the separation from the traditional Jewish community irreversible and posed questions on their self-identification as Jews. This led to their disappearance in the fifth century. Very few scholars, like M. Simon, accept the existence of Christians observing

[1] Origen, *Contra Celsum* II 1 (SC 132, 276-8): ... οἱ ἀπὸ Ἰουδαίων εἰς τὸν Ἰησοῦν πιστεύοντες οὐ καταλελοίπασι τὸν πατρὸν νόμον. Βιοῦσι γὰρ κατ' αὐτόν, ἐπώνυμοι τῆς κατὰ τὴν ἐκδοχὴν πτωχείας τοῦ νόμου γεγενημένοι. Ἐβίων τε γὰρ ὁ πτωχὸς παρὰ Ἰουδαίοις καλεῖται, καὶ Ἐβιωναῖοι χρηματίζουσιν οἱ ἀπὸ Ἰουδαίων τὸν Ἰησοῦν ὡς Χριστὸν παραδεξάμενοι.

Contra Celsum V 61 (SC 147, 166): οὗτοι δ'εἰσὶν οἱ διττοὶ Ἐβιωναῖοι, ἤτοι ἐκ παρθένου ὁμολογοῦντες ὁμοίως ἡμῖν τὸν Ιησοῦν ἢ οὐχ οὕτω γεγεννῆσθαι ἀλλὰ ὡς τοὺς λοιποὺς ἀνθρώπους ...

Contra Celsum V 64 (SC 147, 174): Εἰσὶ γάρ τινες αἱρέσεις τὰς Παύλου ἐπιστολὰς τοῦ ἀποστόλου μὴ προσιέμεναι, ὥσπερ Ἐβιωναῖοι ἀμφότεροι καὶ οἱ καλούμενοι Ἐγκρατηταί.

[2] Simon Claude Mimouni, *Le judéo-christianisme ancien: essais historiques* (Paris, 1998); Jean Daniélou, *Théologie du judéo-christianisme* (Tournai, 1958), 20.

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Jewish practices with a non-Jewish origin. M. Simon considers also the non negligible role of the Jewish mission in this process.[3] Some recent studies on ritual and liturgical problems, like the dissertations of Stökl ben Ezra[4] and Buchinger,[5] approve this thesis also for the third-century Palestine. I would like to show now, that Origen's polemics do not regard Jews, converted to Christianity, but people with pagan origins, which came in contact with the Jewish lifestyle after their conversion to the Christian faith.

1. Circumcision

'My covenant will be visible in your flesh' (*Ex.* 17:13). This biblical affirmation had surely a strong effect on the audience. The circumcision, which, as we know, arises from the idea of a blood – sacrifice,[6] rose to particular importance in the Jewish communities after the destruction of the Temple and after the interruption of the sacrificial cult. We know that the rite of circumcision was established in the period after eighty A.D. Earlier lamentations of the Jewish authors about some Jews who were ashamed of the sign of the covenant with God and refused to circumcise their own sons seem to diminish in this period. The carnal circumcision became a typical Jewish marker of identity.[7] If Philo was glad to state, that also the Egyptian priests were circumcised,[8] the Rabbis from the next centuries are cautious to underline the ingenious Jewish origin of the practice (as did Origen).[9] Philo developed an allegorical interpretation of the circumcision, in order to justify the carnal practice. Origen, in contrast, used the allegorical interpretation of circumcision, in order to refute the corporal one. It is not easy to imagine Origen's opponents in his polemics against Christians practising the circumcision, as the circumcision is a difficult and dolorous

[3] Marcel Simon, *Verus Israel* (Paris, 1964), 277.

[4] Daniel Stökl ben-Ezra, *The Impact of Yom Kippur on Early Christianity* (Tübingen, 2003), 273f.

[5] Harald Buchinger, *Pascha bei Origenes* (Innsbruck, 2005), II 693-5.

[6] See *e. g.* Géza Vermes, Circumcision and Exodus IV, 24-26, in: *Scripture and Tradition in Judaism* (Leiden, 1961), 178-91; Robert J. Daly, *Christian Sacrifice* (Washington, 1978), 187-94; Frances M. Young, *The Use of Sacrificial Ideas in Greek Christian Writers from the New Testament to John Chrysostom* (Philadelphia, 1979), 39f.; Lawrence A. Hoffman, *Covenant of Blood* (Chicago, 1996), 136-54.

[7] See Maren Niehoff, Circumcision as Marker of Identity: *JSQ* 10 (2003) 89-113; Daniel Boyarin, This we Know to Be the Carnal Israel: Circumcision and the Erotic Life of God and Israel: *Critical Inquiry* 18 (1992) 474-505.

[8] Philo of Alexandria, *De specialibus legibus*, 1, 1-12.; Les œuvres de Philon d'Alexandrie 24 (Paris, 1975), 12-6.

[9] See *Contra Celsum* V 47 (SC 147, 134): Τὸ δ' αἴτιον τῆς Ἰουδαίων περιτομῆς οὐ ταὐτόν ἐστι τῷ αἰτίῳ τῆς Αἰγυπτίων περιτομῆς ἢ Κόλχων· διὸ οὐχ ἡ αὐτὴ νομισθείη ἂν περιτομή. Καὶ ὥσπερ ὁ θύων οὐ τῷ αὐτῷ θύει, εἰ καὶ ὁμοίως θύειν δοκεῖ, καὶ ὁ εὐχόμενος οὐ τῷ αὐτῷ εὔχεται, εἰ καὶ τὰ αὐτὰ ἐν ταῖς εὐχαῖς ἀξιοῖ.

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practice. In his *Commentary on the Romans*, Origen argues against such Christians, using the most important point of the Jewish understanding of circumcision: its sacrificial character. Origen says, that the self-sacrifice of Christ brings the definitive abolition of the sacrifice which everybody used to practice on his flesh, in order to belong to the people of God.[10] This argument is purely theological. The objection, that circumcision impedes the popularisation of the new religion, is well-known to Origen, who rejects it vehemently in a polemic against Marcion's followers.[11] Origen's audience, who followed the practice of circumcision, had to be convicted that the need for this Jewish practice – its sacrificial character – had been fulfilled in Christ own sacrifice. In the third *Homily on Genesis* Origen once calls his opponents *carnales Iudaei*, meaning the ethnical and confessional Jews, and another time *qui Christi nomen videntur succepisse, Ebionitae et si qui his simili pauperitate sensus oberrant*,[12] meaning some Christians. The first ones are identified as Jews because of the carnal circumcision. The second ones cannot be identified as Christians because of the circumcision. In the expression 'Ebionites and other ones...' we have to observe, that the Ebionites were, according to all scholars, the 'most Jewish' among the Judaeo-Christians, while refusing the divinity of Christ and accepting only his prophecy.[13] In this case the circumcision would be the smallest problem to be combated. Radically different would be the situation of the descendants of the original community of Jerusalem, who confessed an orthodox faith, but observed some prescriptions, such as dietary restrictions, purity laws, and circumcision.[14] To accept their presence in third-century Caesarea, whose Jewish community supported a very cruel repression after the Jewish revolt, is very problematical. I think also that Origen spoke about Christians, converted from paganism, who were influenced by the rabbinical mission that represented circumcision as an important factor for salvation.[15] Our next example regarding the observance of the Sabbath should confirm this hypothesis.

[10] Origen, *Comm. in Rom.* II 13.27 (172 Bammel I): 'Verum donec Iesu sanguis daretur qui tam pretiosus fuit ut solus pro omnium redemptione sufficeret, necessarium fuit eos qui instituebantur in lege unumquemque pro se velut ad imitationem quandam futurae redemptionis sanguinem suum dare; et propterea nos pro quibus completum est pretium sanguinis Christi non necesse habemus pro nobis ipsis pretium id est sanguinem circumcisionis offerre.'

[11] See Origen, *Comm. in Rom.* 2.13.27 (10, 168-70 Bammel II).

[12] See Origen, *Hom. in Gen.* III (SC 7bis, 128): '... non solum carnales Iudaei de circumcisione carnis revincendi sunt nobis, sed et nonnulli ex his, qui Christi nomen videntur succepisse, et tamen carnalem circumcisionem recipiendam putant, ut Ebionitae et si qui his simili paupertate sensus oberrant.'

[13] See J. Daniélou, *Théologie* (1958), 68-76 und Hans-Joachim Schoeps, *Theologie und Geschichte des Judenchristentums* (Tübingen, 1949), 71-3.

[14] J. Daniélou, *Théologie* (1958), 18.

[15] *Mekhilta de-Rabbi-Eliezer, Pisha* XVI (140f. Lauterbach I). Und *ibid., Beshallah* IV (218 Lauterbach I). See also Andreas Blaschke, *Beschneidung: Zeugnisse der Bibel und verwandter Texte* (Tübingen, 1998), 273f.

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2. Christians observing the Sabbath

The observance or non-observance of the Sabbath in the old church has been the purpose of many studies.[16] It is approved, that an observance of the Sabbath existed independently from the main celebration on Sunday until the fifth century.[17] For the Fathers of the Church it was evidently not easy to explain that one of the ten commandments ought to be understood only spiritually. First, Constantine declared Sunday an official holiday, whereas Saturday, as a day of rest, was since long time well observed by the Jewish habitants of the Empire and by some other Roman citizens.[18] The fact that there was no liturgical worship on Saturday, nor any liturgical substitution for the observance of the Sabbath, can only surprise us. It is possible that such substitution and abolition of the 'material' observance by the spiritual one was not easy, because the Sabbath does not have sacrificial character. Unlike other Jewish practices, the Sabbath could not be seen as fulfilled in Christ's sacrifice. Origen's attempts were not more successful than those in the Epistle of Barnabas to explain the abolition of the Sabbath-observance from a theological point of view.[19] The contemplation of God, which Origen proposes as a spiritual alternative to the rest on Saturday, is not his discovery, but a well-known tradition, which we can find in Philo[20] or in later rabbinical writings.[21] The polemic against the observance remains rather ritual or cultural, than theological. In his community in Caesarea Origen had surely contact with Christians observing the Jewish Sabbath, as we read:

Καὶ περὶ σαββάτου γυναῖκες μὴ ἀκούσασαι τοῦ προφήτου οὐκ ἀκούουσι κεκρυμμένως, ἀλλὰ ἀκούουσι φανερῶς· οὐ λούονται τὴν ἡμέραν τοῦ σαββάτου, ἐπανέρχονται "ἐπὶ τὰ πτωχὰ καὶ αἰσθενῆ στοιχεῖα", ὡς Χριστοῦ μὴ ἐπιδεδημηκότος, τοῦ τελειοῦντος ἡμᾶς καὶ διαβιβάζοντος ἀπὸ τῶν νομικῶν στοιχείων ἐπὶ τὴν εὐαγγελικὴν τελειότητα.

Also regarding the Sabbath some women did not hear the words of the prophet [Origen means *Jer.* 13:17]: they listen to [the prescriptions of the Law] not in a hidden manner, but in a superficial (apparent) manner. They do not wash themselves on the day of

[16] Willy Rordorf, *Sabbat und Sonntag in der Alten Kirche* (Zürich, 1992); P. Cotton, *From Sabbath to Sunday: A Study in Early Christianity* (Bethlehem, 1933); Corrado Mosna, *Storia della domenica dalle origini fino agli inizi del V secolo: Problema delle origini e dello sviluppo* (Roma, 1969); Johannes Bauer, Vom Sabbat zum Sonntag, in: *Der christliche Sonntag: Probleme und Aufgaben* (Wien, 1956); Lutz Döring, *Schabbat, Schabbathalakha und -praxis im antiken Judentum und Urchristentum* (Tübingen, 1999).

[17] See W. Rordorf, *Sabbat und Sonntag* (1992), 13.

[18] See L. Döring, *Schabbat* (1999), 285-9.

[19] Barnabas, *Epistle*, 15.4a-6a, 9 (SC 172, 183-9).

[20] See Philo, *De fuga et inventione*, §174; Les œuvres de Philon d'Alexandrie 17 (Paris, 1970), 234.

[21] *Exodus Rabbah* XXV 12.

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Sabbath and they go back to 'the weak and poor principles' (*Gal.* 4:9), as if the Christ did not come, who perfects us and leads us from the letter of the Law to the perfection of the Gospel.[22]

The persons, Origen addresses here, are called neither 'Jewish', nor 'Ebionite', but only 'women'. It is evident that Origen does not mean Jewish women or the expression 'they go back (ἐπανέρχονται) to the weak and poor principles' would be senseless. A Jewish woman would observe 'the letter of the law' and not 'come back to it'. Also the other arguments (the women are doing so, as if the Christ did not come) make sense, only if he is thinking about Christian women. The fact that Origen speaks only about women is surely not a sign of his disinterestedness, nor that the problem was of little importance. It is known that women have a very important role on Sabbath, as they have to lighten the Sabbath-candles. According to the Mishnah and the Talmud, a woman, who does not fulfil correctly her duty, has to expect a very severe punishment – to die, giving birth to her child.[23] It is also common that particularly women were very sensitive to the observance of the Sabbath. Evidently Origen knew the habits of these women personally: the refusal of washing on Saturday is not among the most famous practices on Sabbath. As we cannot suppose that the preacher in Caesarea knew when exactly the members of his community washed themselves, we have to conclude that this subject was discussed among the Christians as a problem in town, about which Origen had to speak. I have shortly mentioned, that the observance of the Sabbath in the third century was not a typical Jewish element.[24] Resistant against a purely 'spiritual' idea of Sabbath as contemplation of God, not bound to a specific day, were many Christians with different ethnical origin. The Sabbath as a holiday was well-known in the Roman Empire. It was not easy for some Christians deriving from pagans to discontinue the practice.

3. Conclusion

The examples I have cited in this paper show the conflict between Origen and some Christians, observing two of the most famous Jewish prescriptions: the circumcision and the Sabbath. It is possible, that their motivation to judaize was based on a ritual fascination for the Jewish observances and not on a conscious deviation from Christian doctrine. The Christians that Origen criticises were probably Gentile Christians. I found an affirmation of this hypothesis in the appellations, which Origen applies to his opponents, and in the use of citations exclusively from the New Testament. Instead, he often uses texts from the Old

[22] Origen, *Hom. in Ier.* XII 13 (SC 238, 46).
[23] See *Shab.* II 6; *bShab.* 31b.
[24] See W. Rordorf, *Sabbat und Sonntag* (1992), 3-14.

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Testament in his polemics against Jews. We can suppose that the Christian community of Caesarea, whose members were dominantly converted pagans,[25] was under strong influence of the Jewish community in town. The observances we are speaking about became very important for the Rabbis in the time after eighty A.D. We can also suppose, that the rabbinical mission was an important factor for the 'judaization' of a number of Christians in Palestine.

[25] See Adele Monaci Castagno, *Origene predicatore e il suo pubblico* (Milano, 1987), 82.

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In the Name of Jesus: Consequences of Preaching in Origen's *Homilies on Joshua*

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When is the name of Jesus a sacred name; and what would be the consequence?[1] Spoken names, for Origen, are not mere sound. They trace narrative structure;[2] they are also artifacts of spiritual power.[3] We read Origen's homilies safely contained within print on a page; he spoke them, in the belief that he spoke unleashed words of power. What did Origen expect to result from preaching Joshua 'in the name of Jesus?'

In his *Homilies on Joshua*, 'The Book of Jesus', Origen distinguished the narrative as it referred to Jesus son of Nun from that which refers to Jesus our Lord,[4] who bears the 'name above every name'.[5] The wars of Jesus or Joshua in Canaan were to be of continuing significance[6] because they reflect the spiritual victory of Jesus on the cross and the continuing wars of Jesus as he leads the church in the world. Origen found that link between history and spirit displayed within the narrative itself; at Jericho, Jesus son of Nun looked up, and 'saw a man, chief of the army of the power of the Lord.'[7] Jesus the son of Nun who led Israel to victory after the death of Moses knelt to Jesus the Lord who assumed power with the end of the Mosaic system and triumphed over powers and principalities upon the Cross.[8]

Preaching in the name of Jesus was, for Origen, an act rooted in the victory of Jesus our Lord on the wood of the cross.[9] The crucifixion is the central

[1] Concern for this question is visible in early Christian manuscripts of the Greek Bible, where the name *'Iesous'* is often abbreviated (as a sacred name) when it refers to Jesus, but generally not abbreviated when it refers to Joshua. See John Barton, *Holy Writings, Sacred Text: The Canon in Early Christianity* (Louisville, 1997), 122, 187f.

[2] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 23.4 (GCS 7, 444,20-446,6). The homilies have recently been translated from Rufinus' version by Barbara J. Bruce, *Origen: Homilies on Joshua* (Washington, D.C., 2002).

[3] Origen, *Contra Celsum* I 24, V 45.

[4] See Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 1.3 (GCS 7, 290,4-6), 6.1 (GCS 7, 321,12-5).

[5] *Ibid.* 1.1 (GCS 7, 287,19-288,2), 4.2 (GCS 7, 310,3-5).

[6] *Ibid.* 8.2 (GCS 7, 337,1-6).

[7] *Ibid.* 6.2 (GCS 7, 324,1-18).

[8] *Ibid.* 1.3-4 (GCS 7, 290,4-291,19). Origen's *Homilies on Joshua* interpret the 'wars of Jesus' in terms of the Pauline language of 'powers and principalities' in *Colossians* 2:14f.; see also *In Iesu Nave homilia* 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,10-23), 8.3 (GCS 7, 338,4-18), 11.5 (GCS 7, 365,23-366,1).

[9] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,10-23), 8.3 (GCS 7, 338,7-18), 8.6 (GCS 7, 342,10-9).

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spiritual reality around which his exegesis moves; it is the moment, within and not outside time,[10] in which the 'dispensation of the flesh' was fulfilled,[11] the hostile spiritual principalities were stripped of authority,[12] and the true sacrifices were offered.[13] Shaped by the spiritual cataclysm of the crucifixion, the narrative structure of the Bible defines a universe of discourse within which Jesus' victory on the cross can be proclaimed effectively.

'In order for us to be able to have examples of these spiritual wars from ancient exploits, he wanted those narratives to be recited to us in church ... and we may contemplate from those nations who visibly opposed Israel "after the flesh" how many opposing spiritual powers fight against the church of God'[14] in the wars of Jesus and his church against the world rulers of darkness.[15] Origen identified in each set of his homilies a structure of metaphors rooted in the specific narratives of that book.[16] In Joshua, he found words for the story of the cross as a victory, in which Jesus our Lord triumphed over powers which usurped dominion over both the world of history and also the 'little world made cunningly'[17] of our mortal being. When his Word of Scripture is proclaimed, Jesus defeats the Canaanites and hostile kings which claim control of human emotions, thoughts, and actions.

Origen was quite aware of the potential scandal of preaching the wars of Jesus in the name of the Prince of Peace.[18] He found his warrant in the Pauline language of battle against 'principalities and powers'.[19] The enemy identified by Origen acts on both spiritual and moral levels; in both realms, Jesus our Lord does battle. Preaching in the name of Jesus is among the 'trumpets' by which the army of the power of God overthrows the spiritual rulers and the vices, their minions, which have usurped power in God's world. 'This Jericho, which is this world, is about to fall; for indeed the consummation of the age

[10] *Ibid.* 2.1 (GCS 7, 296,12-5), 1.3 (GCS 7, 290,10-1), 17.1 (GCS 7, 400,15-401.7); see also Origen, *De principiis* IV 1.3.

[11] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 3.2 (GCS 7, 302,12-21).

[12] *Ibid.* 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,10-23).

[13] *Ibid.* 26.3 (GCS 7,461,16-462,4).

[14] *Ibid.* 15.1 (GCS 7, 381,24-382,8).

[15] *Ibid.* 12.1 (GCS 7, 367,6-10).

[16] In *Genesis*, Origen found metaphors of the building of a world in which transformation is possible. In *Exodus*, he found a journey of transformation out of darkness and bondage into promise and the building of a new community. See Allan E. Johnson, Constructing a Narrative Universe: Origen's Homily 1 on Genesis: *Studia Patristica* 37 (2001) 185-90 and *id.*, Allegorical Narrative and Evangelism: 'Three Days' Journey' in Origen's Homilies on Exodus: *Studia Patristica* 36 (2001) 440-4.

[17] John Donne, *Holy Sonnets* 5 and 14, in: *The Complete Poetry and Selected Prose of John Donne*, ed. Charles M. Coffin (New York, 1994), 248, 252.

[18] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 15.1 (GCS 7, 381,14-20).

[19] *Ibid.* 15.1 (GCS 7, 381,20-382,2); see also 1.3-4 (GCS 7, 290,4-291,19), 5.2 (GCS 7, 316,4-7), 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,10-24), 8.3 (GCS 7, 338,4-18), 11.5 (GCS 7, 365,23-366,1).

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has now been made known by the sacred books. ... Therefore our Lord Jesus will come, and he will come with the sound of trumpets'[20] as 'Jericho is overthrown by the trumpets of the priests'.[21] Jesus our Lord stripped the principalities of their authority at the Cross, and the angels 'thundered with their heavenly trumpets';[22] in the Church, Jesus 'sends priests, his apostles, bearing trumpets of beaten work, the magnificent and heavenly doctrine of preaching'.[23] 'By faith you have in yourself Jesus the leader.... Make for yourselves trumpets of beaten work from the Holy Scriptures. From there bring forth insights; from there, sermons...'[24]

This conflict was neither abstract nor merely personal for Origen. The 'wars of Jesus', like the cross, are expressed within history and can be seen: 'When indeed you see nations enter into faith, churches raised up... then say that Jesus received and retained the leadership after Moses – not that "Jesus son of Nun", but Jesus Son of God.'[25] 'For the kings of the earth have assembled together, the senate and people and the leaders of Rome, to blot out the name of Jesus and Israel at the same time... they have been able to do nothing...'[26]

Preaching in the name of Jesus acts persuasively, to break the influence of diabolical mental structures. 'Often we brandish a sword called the word of God, by which word sins are separated and purged from the souls of the hearers.'[27] Through rational teaching and emotional appeal the hearer is 'stimulated and goaded by the words of God through what we say'.[28]

Joshua's narratives of battle provided metaphors suited to Origen's understanding of spiritual growth. He saw the life of the Church and of each Christian as a conflict between the City of God and the City of Pride.[29] The city of pride and its walls are not built from stones, but words: 'the dogmas of the impious and the syllogisms of philosophers'.[30] Emotionally or logically persuasive words can consolidate a bad choice.[31] Plato classed poets with prostitutes and candy-makers as the fever of a Republic corrupted by luxury, and described philosophers as the guardians of that community amid the wars which luxury precipitated;[32] Origen saw both as the bulwarks of the city of pride. 'There is much elegance in words and much beauty in the sermons of philosophers and

[20] *Ibid.* 6.4 (GCS 7, 326,3-13), 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,10-22).
[21] *Ibid.* 7.1 (GCS 7, 327,11).
[22] *Ibid.* 7.3 (GCS 7, 330,21f.).
[23] *Ibid.* 7.1 (GCS 7, 327,22f.).
[24] *Ibid.* 7.2 (GCS 7, 329,16-23).
[25] *Ibid.* 2.1 (GCS 7, 296,19-297,2).
[26] *Ibid.* 9.10 (GCS 7, 356,21-357,8); see also Origen, *De principiis* IV 1.2.
[27] Origen *In Iesu Nave homilia* 26.2 (GCS 7, 459,16f.); see also 8.7 (GCS 7, 342,25-344,10).
[28] *Ibid.* 15.3 (GCS 7, 385,13f.).
[29] *Ibid.* 7.1 (GCS 7, 327,11-4).
[30] *Ibid.* 18.3 (GCS 7, 408,18-21), 7.1 (327,14-21).
[31] Barry Schwarts, *The Paradox of Choice: Why More is Less* (New York, 2004), 137-40.
[32] Plato, *The Republic* II [372-376].

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rhetoricians, who are all of the city of Jericho, that is, people of this world... beware that the beauty of these golden words does not get hold of you.'[33] Sin's usurpation of the world is defended by memetic strongholds, 'diabolical structures that the Devil has built in the human soul. For that one raised up towers of pride and walls of exaltation in every one of us.'[34] It is the work of the Word of God to pull these structures down. 'Whoever preaches the word of truth destroys cities of this kind.'[35]

Words and the mental structures they support form the walls within which our thought moves, maintaining the walls of Jericho; the trumpets of preaching in the name of Jesus bring down these constraints and offer other narratives, other patterns for thinking. It is a battle within Christian life: 'within you is the battle that you are about to fight; within is that evil structure that must be overthrown; your enemy proceeds from your heart.'[36]

Preaching also acts directly upon spiritual reality, even sometimes without the mediation of human understanding. 'This also is to be believed about Holy Scripture, that it is useful and benefits the soul even if our insight at the present does not understand why.'[37] We respond, of course, in other ways than rational; a medicine may be effective without our understanding, and so may preaching.[38] But Origen also believed that spiritual powers, both harmful and beneficial, were addressed in preaching. The holy powers to which our care has been entrusted are delighted and nourished by the Scriptures 'as if from divine and rational food' even when we do not understand them,[39] while the 'serpents of hostile authority' concealed within us are driven away 'by the incantations of Scripture'. 'By such sermons and names, we escape from the snares of malignant powers and assaults of vile demons.'[40]

Origen gave particular attention to those names in the narrative of battle which identify the powers in conflict and the heritage over which the war is waged.[41] Origen identified spiritual enemies – 'opposing demons and antagonistic powers'[42] – with the kings of the Canaanites.[43] The names of the Canaanite kings become a list 'of the entire army of invisible enemies who are gathered...

[33] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 7.7 (GCS 7, 334,25-335,3).
[34] *Ibid.* 13.4 (GCS 7, 374,13-5).
[35] *Ibid.* 18.3 (GCS 7, 409,1-3).
[36] *Ibid.* 5.2 (GCS 7, 316,11-7).
[37] *Ibid.* 20.2 (GCS 7, 420,3-5).
[38] *Ibid.* (GCS 7, 419,11-420,3).
[39] *Ibid.* 20.1 (GCS 7, 417,17-20).
[40] *Ibid.* (GCS 7, 418,9-19); see also Origen, *Contra Celsum* I 24, V 45.
[41] Origen, *In Iesu Nave homilia* 20.5 (GCS 7, 422,23-425,15); see also 23.4 (GCS 7, 444,16-446,12).
[42] *Ibid.* 8.7 (GCS 7, 344,3f.).
[43] *Ibid.* 11.6 (GCS 7, 366,6-9), 12.2 (GCS 7, 368,24-369,4), 13.1 (GCS 7, 371,12-8), 15.1 (GCS 7, 382,4-10), 16.4 (GCS 7, 398,6-18).

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to fight against us who follow Jesus';[44] these are the 'invisible nations' maintaining a kingdom of sin in human minds and bodies until Jesus our Lord strikes them down.[45] The Canaanites themselves are vices, serving invisible foes and bringing humans into bondage;[46] the hostile spiritual kings direct and are served in the moral realm by 'vices that continually and incessantly attack the soul. Within us are the Canaanites, within us are the Perizzites, here are the Jebusites'.[47]

While working with metaphors of conflict, Origen rejected absolutist dualism and saw preaching as an agent of transformation. Heavenly realms, earthly history, and human minds and bodies are all under the sovereignty of God, although hostile powers claim rule of them. So Origen determined that the names of the cities of Canaan have double meanings. For example, he interprets 'Lachish' as 'way', which can be either the way of the wicked or the way made straight by God.[48] Each name can be interpreted either in terms of blessing or of spiritual rebellion; the cities of Canaan are potentialities for evil or for good within human experience.[49] Those who conquer through understanding will rule over these potentialities both on earth and in heaven as an 'inheritance in Christ Jesus our Lord'.[50]

The wars of Jesus reclaim these realms for God. Through preaching the word of God re-forms human bodies and souls into the heritage which they were meant to be. Thus Origen noted that Jesus wrote *Deuteronomy* upon the stones of the altar.[51] Historically, Origen found this implausible; how could such a large book be written upon the stones, and once written how could it be read?[52] Spiritually the 'second Law' was written after the claim of the first had been annulled by Jesus; 'It was said in former times... But I say to you.'[53] On the level of the soul, it is in preaching that *Deuteronomy* is written upon an altar of living stones.[54]

In Origen's understanding, preaching 'in the name of Jesus' is an act of power rooted in Christ's victory upon the cross. Its intended consequences include persuasion, power, and transformation. Preaching is the trumpet through which the faithful are roused and the strongholds of falsehood cast down; it is

[44] *Ibid.* 14.2 (GCS 7, 380,22-4).
[45] *Ibid.* 11.6 (GCS 7, 366,8f.), 14.1 (GCS 7, 376,21-3), 15.1 (GCS 7, 382,9), 15.4 (GCS 7, 387,20-3).
[46] *Ibid.* 12.2 (GCS 7, 369,2-4); see also 15.3 (GCS 7, 386,12-387,9).
[47] *Ibid.* 1.7 (GCS 7, 294,30-295,2), 1.6 (GCS 7, 294,4-26), 21.2 (GCS 7, 430,14-6).
[48] *Ibid.* 13.2 (GCS 7, 372,13-8).
[49] *Ibid.* (GCS 7, 372,4-26).
[50] *Ibid.* 23.4 (GCS 7, 447,15-7).
[51] *Ibid.* 9.3 (GCS 7, 348,11-6).
[52] *Ibid.* 9.4 (GCS 7, 349,14-9).
[53] *Ibid.* 9.3 (GCS 7, 348,17-26), quoting *Matthew* 5:21. 27. 33.
[54] Origen *In Iesu Nave homilia* 9.3 (GCS 7, 348,15f.), 9.4 (GCS 7, 349,8-11).

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the sword by which vices are driven from the interior realm which each Christian is called to reclaim and inherit[55] and their demonic masters are driven from kingdoms in heaven,[56] until Christians carry in their bodies the death of Jesus our Lord and the kingdom which is our selves shall finally have rest from war.[57]

[55] *Ibid.* 13.2 (GCS 7, 372,4-26).
[56] *Ibid.* 12.1 (GCS 7, 367,18-368,5).
[57] *Ibid.* 15.7 (GCS 7, 393,7-18).

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La récriture des *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène dans la tradition caténique

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Les *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène ne sont conservées que partiellement en tradition directe (20 homélies sur 45), et cela seulement dans le *Scorialensis* Ω III 19 (XIe-XIIe s.) et sa copie le *Vaticanus gr.* 623 (XVIe s.). La tradition indirecte, en revanche, est nettement plus riche, puisqu'elle comprend quelques citations de la *Philocalie*, de nombreux extraits de la chaîne à auteurs multiples sur Jérémie[1] et une version latine faite par Jérôme.[2]

J'analyserai ici quelques problèmes liés à l'utilisation des *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène dans la chaîne sur ce prophète.

Cette chaîne, dans laquelle de nombreux auteurs patristiques sont cités,[3] est difficile à dater (fin VIe s. ou début VIIIe s.). Elle nous est transmise par les manuscrits suivants: *Chisianus gr.* 45 (Xe s.), *Ottobonianus gr.* 452 (XIe s.), *Vaticanus gr.* 1153-1154 (XIIe s.)[4] et *Parisinus gr.* 158 (XIIe s.), dans lesquels elle se présente le plus souvent comme une chaîne encadrante, ce qui signifie que le texte biblique et les extraits patristiques figurent dans des blocs indépendants et que les extraits patristiques sont disposés en couronne autour du texte biblique copié sur une ou deux colonnes.

Les extraits attribués à Origène dans la chaîne, plus que pour les autres auteurs cités, témoignent d'une forte tendance à la sélection et à la récriture de la part de l'auteur de la chaîne, le caténiste. Ce dernier ne cherche pas tant à respecter la *lettre* du texte origénien qu'à mettre en valeur l'*esprit* de celui-ci,

[1] Les extraits caténiques attribués à Origène dans la chaîne à auteurs multiples sur Jérémie ont tous été édités, mais ils sont difficiles à consulter car dispersés dans les quatre ouvrages suivants: Michele Ghisleri, *In Ieremiam Prophetam Commentarii*, t. 1-3 (Lyon, 1623); Origenes, *Opera omnia, vel graece vel latine extant ... latine versa*, éd. Charles Delarue, t. 1-7 (Paris, 1733-9) (= PG 13, 513-606); Erich Klostermann, *Die Überlieferung der Jeremiashomilien des Origenes*, TU (Leipzig, 1897) et Origenes, *Jeremiahomilien, Klageliederkommentar, Erklärung der Samuel und Königsbücher*, éd. E. Klostermann, revue par Pierre Nautin, GCS (Berlin, 1983).

[2] Pour la tradition manuscrite des *Homélies sur Jérémie*, voir P. Nautin (éd.), SC 232 (Paris, 1976), 21-43 et E. Klostermann, *Die Überlieferung der Jeremiashomilien des Origenes* (1897).

[3] Hippolyte de Rome, Origène, Grégoire le Thaumaturge, Eusèbe de Césarée, Basile de Césarée, Apolinaire de Laodicée, Didyme d'Alexandrie, Jean Chrysostome, Théophile d'Alexandrie, Isidore de Péluse, Cyrille d'Alexandrie, Théodoret de Cyr, Victor d'Antioche, Sévère d'Antioche, Olympiodore d'Alexandrie, Polychronius le diacre et un anonyme.

[4] Et ses copies: les *Parisinus gr.* 159 (XIIIe s.) et *Pii II* 18 (XVIe s.).

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en sélectionnant quelques idées qu'il résume pour les intégrer plus facilement dans la succession des extraits patristiques.

Les divergences entre les scholies caténiques et le texte original ne surprennent pas quand elles sont les conséquences des procédés de sélection et de résumé, caractéristiques attendues de toute récriture. Il est toutefois plus étonnant qu'un grand nombre d'extraits attribués à Origène dans la chaîne présentent des éléments absents des homélies correspondantes.

Je tenterai, à partir de deux exemples, d'expliquer quelques «plus» des extraits de la chaîne par rapport à la tradition directe des *Homélies sur Jérémie*.

Le premier exemple est l'extrait 162a de la chaîne, portant sur *Jr.* 3:24-25. Cet extrait s'inspire de *Hom.* V, §6-7, 46 lignes étant ainsi résumées en une dizaine de lignes, et il comporte trois parties: la première (l. 1-8) reprend le §6, la deuxième (l. 8-19) reprend le §7 et la troisième (l. 19-23) ne reprend aucun élément de l'homélie alors qu'elle concerne la suite du texte (*Jr.* 3:25) commentée dans le §8.

Je note au passage que le caténiste abrège nettement le texte qu'il excerpte. Il supprime par exemple les alternatives: des mouvements blâmables (ψεκτά) et louables (ἐπαινετά) ne subsistent dans la scholie que les mouvements louables (ἅπερ ἐπαινεῖται) et de ce qui cultive mal (ἤτοι δὲ κακῶς γεωργοῦν) ou bien (ἢ καλῶς γεωργοῦν), ne subsiste que ce qui cultive bien (ὅπερ καλῶς γεωργοῦν). Les interventions d'Origène (par ex. οὐκ ἀκούω μόνον καθολικῶς, ὡς πάντες ἀκούουσιν) sont laissées de côté, ainsi que les reprises du lemme biblique étudié et les exemples (Pharaon, Nabuchodonosor). Les mots sont réagencés syntaxiquement, par exemple grâce à un pronom relatif (ἅπερ l. 2 et ὅπερ l. 10) ou à un participe présent (γενόμενος l. 6), qui permettent de réduire le nombre de propositions ou de phrases.

Le plus étonnant, toutefois, est que la scholie se termine par un passage sur *Jr.* 3:25 absent de l'*Hom.* V et citant *Eph.* 5:14. Le début de *Hom.* V, §8 se contente de citer la partie du verset commentée dans le passage original de la scholie et passe immédiatement à la deuxième partie du verset (Μετὰ ταῦτα λέγουσιν οὗτοι οἱ ἐξομολογούμενοι τὸ «ἐκοιμήθημεν ἐν τῇ αἰσχύνῃ ἡμῶν» καὶ μετὰ τοῦτό φασιν· «καὶ ἐπεκάλυψεν» φησὶν «ἡμᾶς ἡ ἀτιμία ἡμῶν»). Cette transition semble exclure l'hypothèse que la fin de la scholie soit la trace d'une version plus complète des *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène que celle qui nous est conservée en tradition directe. D'où vient donc le passage original de la chaîne? Est-il imputable au caténiste qui aurait lui-même rédigé cette petite note exégétique ou l'aurait empruntée à une autre œuvre du maître alexandrin?[5] S'agit-il d'une scholie au départ indépendante, qui, après avoir perdu son attribution, a été assimilée à la scholie d'Origène qui la

[5] Dans le corpus origénien, la citation d'*Eph.* 5:14 apparaît de nombreuses fois mais il n'y a jamais de rapprochement avec *Jr.* 3:25.

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précédait, soit à cause d'une erreur du caténiste lui-même, soit à cause d'une erreur d'un copiste ultérieur? Il est enfin possible que ce bref ajout reflète une glose marginale accompagnant le texte d'Origène dans le manuscrit que le caténiste avait à sa disposition. Le *Scorialensis*, seul témoin de la tradition directe du texte des *Homélies*, ne présente aucune note marginale, mais il n'est pas à exclure que, parmi les manuscrits disparus, certains, dont celui qui a été utilisé par le caténiste, aient reçu des annotations prolongeant l'exégèse du maître alexandrin.[6] La scholie 162a conserverait ainsi la trace d'un maillon intermédiaire entre la tradition directe des *Homélies* et la chaîne à auteurs multiples: celui d'un texte marqué par une tradition scolaire de lecture et d'interprétation d'Origène, soit dans la forme même du texte, soit grâce à des notes marginales.

Le deuxième exemple est l'extrait 181 de la chaîne, portant sur *Jr.* 4:5-6. Il s'inspire des lignes 11 à 28 de *Hom.* V, §16; les allusions bibliques (*1Tm.* 3:15 et *Ps.* 17:30) sont effacées et les répétitions du lemme biblique sont laissées de côté. En outre, alors que l'homélie ne propose que l'interprétation allégorique du Borée, la scholie de la chaîne donne les deux interprétations, littérale et allégorique, et les distingue nettement grâce aux termes αἰσθητῶς et τροπικῶς, qui n'apparaissent pas dans l'homélie. L'antithèse constituée par ces deux adverbes est très intéressante car elle apparaît seulement chez des auteurs plus tardifs (par ex. dans le *Commentaire sur l'Apocalypse* d'Oecumenius, VII[e] s.) et dans des corpus de chaînes (par ex. la chaîne palestinienne sur les Psaumes[7]).[8] On peut suggérer deux hypothèses pour expliquer cet enrichissement: soit le caténiste a trouvé, dans les marges du manuscrit d'Origène qu'il utilisait, une note plus tardive récapitulant, dans des termes scolaires, les deux sens du passage; soit le caténiste lui-même a ajouté cette distinction pour clarifier l'exégèse du maître. La deuxième hypothèse me paraît ici plus probable puisque l'antithèse apparaît dans d'autres corpus de chaînes et que notre caténiste souligne ailleurs l'importance qu'il accorde à la clarification des différents sens de l'Écriture. En effet, dans l'en-tête de la scholie 22a, le nom d'Origène est immédiatement suivi par l'expression κατὰ θεωρίαν 'selon le sens spirituel'. Cette notation rare, caractérisant le commentaire exégétique qui suit, est sans doute une indication du caténiste, d'abord parce qu'elle fait partie de l'en-tête de la scholie

[6] Ce type de pratiques n'est malheureusement pas signalé par Andrew James Carriker, *The Library of Eusebius of Caesarea*, SVigChr 67 (Leyde/Boston, 2003) et Harry Y. Gamble, *Books and Readers in the Early Church: a History of Early Christian Texts* (New Haven/London, 1995).

[7] Voir *La chaîne palestinienne sur le Psaume 118*, éd. Marguerite Harl et Gilles Dorival (Paris, 1972), t. 1 (SC 189), 404 et t. 2 (SC 190), 719.

[8] Ces termes n'apparaissent pas conjointement dans l'exégèse des cinq premiers siècles, voir Manlio Simonetti, Sul significato di alcuni termini tecnici nella letteratura esegetica greca, dans: *La terminologia esegetica nell'antichità, Atti del Primo Seminario di antichità cristiane (Bari, 25 ottobre 1984)* (Bari, 1987), 25-58.

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mis en valeur par une encre rouge dans les manuscrits, mais aussi parce qu'on ne trouve que deux fois en ce sens[9] l'expression κατὰ θεωρίαν chez Origène qui, le plus souvent, ne définit pas sa démarche, et en tout cas pas en ces termes. À la différence de la scholie 162a, je propose ainsi de voir dans l'enrichissement de la scholie 181 une intervention du caténiste visant à éclaircir les différents sens de l'Écriture.

L'étude de la récriture des *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène dans la chaîne à auteurs multiples sur Jérémie nous donne un aperçu sur les méthodes de travail de notre caténiste: il semble qu'il ait eu accès, pour l'œuvre d'Origène en tout cas, à un texte remanié ou glosé différent de celui de la tradition directe. De plus, il intervient lui-même parfois pour clarifier ou prolonger les interprétations de l'exégète, montrant en cela une relative liberté vis-à-vis de sa source patristique, lorsqu'il s'agit d'expliciter le plus clairement possible le texte biblique.

Annexe (éléments communs soulignés, 'plus' de la chaîne en gras)[10]

Extrait caténique	Tradition directe des *Homélies*
ξβ Ὠριγένους· 'Πρόβατα' καὶ 'μόσχοι' τὰ ἄλογα τῶν πατέρων κινήματα ἅπερ ἐπαινεῖται ὑπὸ Χριστῷ ποιμένι γινόμενα· «Τὰ ἐμὰ γὰρ πρόβατά φησι τῆς ἐμῆς φωνῆς ἀκούουσι» (*Jn.* 10:27) καὶ ἐν ἐμοὶ γὰρ γενόμενος, «ὁ ποιμὴν ὁ καλὸς» (*Jn.* 10:11) τὰ ἄλογά μου ποιμαίνει κινήματα, ἵνα μηκέτι ὡς ἐπὶ τὴν νομὴν ὡς ἔτυχεν ἐξέρχηται. Καὶ 'βόας' δέ φησιν, ἐπειδὴ ἔστι τι ἐν ἡμῖν γεωργοῦν ἡμᾶς, ὅπερ καλῶς γεωργοῦν. Οὐκ ἐστι 'μόσχος' τῶν πατέρων ὑπὸ τῆς αἰσχύνης ἀναλισκόμενος, ἀλλ' ἀφ' ὧν τὰ πρωτότοκα ἐπὶ τὸ θυσιαστήριον	***Hom.* V, §6-7:** (6) Τὰ δὲ ἄλογα τῶν πατέρων κινήματα 'πρόβατα' εἶπεν καὶ 'μόσχους'. Οὐ γὰρ πάντα τὰ ἄλογα ἐπαινετά, ἀλλ' ἔστιν ἄλογά τινα ψεκτά, ὥσπερ τὰ πρόβατα τῶν πατέρων τῶν ἡμαρτηκότων, ἔστιν δέ τινα ἄλογα ἐπαινετά, οἷον· «Τὰ ἐμὰ πρόβατα τῆς φωνῆς μου ἀκούουσιν.» (*Jn.* 10:27) Πρόβατα ἦν καὶ ταῦτα, οἷς ἀνάλογον ἔχομεν τὸν λόγον, ἔχοντες τὸν ποιμένα τὸν καλὸν ἐν ταῖς ψυχαῖς ἡμῶν. Ἐπὰν γὰρ λέγῃ ὁ σωτήρ· «Ἐγώ εἰμι ὁ ποιμὴν ὁ καλός» (*Jn.* 10:11), οὐκ ἀκούω μόνον καθολικῶς, ὡς πάντες ἀκούουσιν,

[9] Voir *Commentariorum series in Evangelium Matthaei*, éd. E. Klostermann, GCS 11, 93. 25 et *Selecta in Lucam* (PG 17, 317 C1). L'authenticité de la deuxième occurrence reste d'ailleurs à prouver puisqu'il s'agit de l'extrait caténique d'une œuvre perdue.

[10] Pour l'édition critique et la traduction française des *Homélies sur Jérémie*, voir Origène, *Homélies sur Jérémie*, éd. P. Nautin, SC 232 et 238 (Paris, 1976 et 1977).

Pour l'édition critique et la traduction française des extraits de la chaîne, voir M. Aussedat, *Les chaînes exégétiques grecques sur le livre de Jérémie (chap. 1-4). Présentation, édition critique, traduction française et commentaire*, thèse de doctorat soutenue en 2006 sous la direction de M. le Professeur Olivier Munnich à l'Université Paris IV-Sorbonne.

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ἀναφέρεται τοῦ Θεοῦ. Υἱοὶ δὲ τῶν πατέρων αὐτῶν τὰ νοήματα, θυγατέρες δὲ τὰ διὰ τοῦ σώματος ἔργα καὶ πράξεις ἅπερ ὑπὸ τῆς ἐπαινουμένης αἰσχύνης ἀναλίσκεται. Ἡμῖν δὲ παῖδες μὴ γένοιντο ἀναλωθῆναι ὑπὸ τῆς αἰσχύνης δεόμενοι. **Εἶτα τὸν ἐν κακοῖς ὕπνον φησίν· *ἐκοιμήθημεν*, οὐ γρηγοροῦντες οὔτε πρὸς θεοσέβειαν ἱστάμενοι κατὰ τό· «Ἔγειρε ὁ καθεύδων καὶ ἀνάστα ἐκ τῶν νεκρῶν καὶ ἐπιφαύσει σοι ὁ Χριστός.»** (*Eph.* 5:14)	ὅτι ποιμήν ἐστιν τῶν πιστευόντων, — καὶ τοῦτο μὲν γὰρ καὶ ὑγιὲς καὶ ἀληθές, — ἀλλὰ καὶ ἐν τῇ ἐμῇ ψυχῇ ὀφείλω ἔχειν ἔνδον μου τὸν Χριστόν, ἔνδον μου τὸν καλὸν ποιμένα, ποιμαίνοντα τὰ ἐν ἐμοὶ ἄλογα κινήματα, ἵνα μηκέτι ἐπὶ τὴν νομὴν ὡς ἔτυχεν ἐξέρχηται, ἀλλ' ἀγόμενα ὑπὸ τοῦ ποιμένος ταῦτα τὰ ἀλλότριά ποτε τυγχάνοντα αὐτοῦ ἴδια γένηται αὐτοῦ. Διὰ τοῦτο νῦν, ἐὰν ποιμὴν ᾖ ἐν ἐμοί, ἄρχει μου τῶν αἰσθήσεων· οὐκέτι εἰσὶν ὑπὸ νοῦν ἀλλότριον, ἢ ὑπὸ Φαραώ, ἢ ὑπὸ Ναβουχοδονόσορ, ἀλλὰ ὑπὸ τὸν καλὸν ποιμένα. (7) «Ἡ αἰσχύνη» οὖν «κατηνάλωσεν τοὺς μόχθους τῶν πατέρων ἡμῶν ἀπὸ νεότητος αὐτῶν, τὰ πρόβατα αὐτῶν καὶ τοὺς βόας αὐτῶν.» (*Jr.* 3:24) Ἔστι τι ἐν ἡμῖν γεωργοῦν ἡμᾶς, ἤτοι δὲ κακῶς γεωργοῦν, εἴ γε δεῖ λέγειν τὸ κακῶς ἐπὶ τοῦ γεωργοῦντος, ἢ καλῶς γεωργοῦν. Εἰ μὲν οὖν κακῶς γεωργεῖ, μόχθος ἐστὶ τῶν πατέρων καταναλισκόμενος ὑπὸ τῆς αἰσχύνης αὐτῶν· εἰ δὲ καλῶς γεωργεῖ, οὐκ ἔστι τῶν πατέρων μόχθος. Ἀλλὰ μόσχος ἐστὶν ἀφ' ὧν τὰ πρωτότοκα ἀναφέρεται ἐπὶ τοῦ θυσιαστηρίου τοῦ θεοῦ. «Τοὺς υἱοὺς αὐτῶν καὶ τὰς θυγατέρας αὐτῶν» λέγουσιν οὗτοι· τίνων «αὐτῶν» ἢ «τῶν πατέρων» <οἱ> υἱοὶ ἀναλίσκονται ὑπὸ τῆς αἰσχύνης αὐτῶν καὶ αἱ θυγατέρες; Πολλάκις εἴπομεν τὰ τῆς ψυχῆς γεννήματα, ὅτι τὰ νοήματα μέν εἰσιν υἱοί, τὰ δὲ ἔργα καὶ αἱ πράξεις αἱ διὰ τοῦ σώματος θυγατέρες· ἐπεὶ οὖν ἐστί τινα νοήματα μοχθηρά, ὁποῖα ἐνόησαν οἱ ἀπὸ τῶν ἐθνῶν, ἔστιν δὲ καὶ ἔργα μοχθηρά, διὰ τοῦτο υἱοὶ καὶ θυγατέρες ἀναλίσκονται ὑπὸ τῶν πεποιηκότων, ἐὰν αἰσχύνη αὐτοῖς ἐγγένηται περὶ τῶν ἡμαρτημένων. Ἡμᾶς δὲ μὴ εἴη ποιεῖν υἱοὺς καὶ θυγατέρας δεομένους ἀναλώσεως τῆς ἀπὸ τῆς αἰσχύνης.

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Extrait caténique	Tradition directe des *Homélies*
πα Ὠριγένους· Εἰς ἀτείχιστον γὰρ ἡμᾶς εἰσελθεῖν οὐκ ἐθέλει, τεῖχος δὲ τῆς ἐκκλησίας τῆς ἀληθείας ὁ λόγος, εἰς δὲ τὸ σκοπευτήριον διὰ προκοπῆς ἡμᾶς σπεύδειν παρακελεύεται. *Κακὰ δὲ ἀπὸ βορρᾶ* **αἰσθητῶς μὲν οἱ Βαβυλώνιοι, τροπικῶς δέ,** καθάπερ εἰρήκαμεν, **ὅτι ἐχθρός ἐστιν ὁ Σατανᾶς καὶ ἐκδικητής. Φυγὴ δὲ τούτων ἀμφοῖν ἡ μετάνοια πρὸς ἣν καὶ καλεῖ.** Καὶ γὰρ ὁ τῆς ἐκκλησίας ἔξω μένων ὑπὸ τῶν πολεμίων ἁλίσκεται.	***Hom.* V, §16 (l. 11-27):** Οὕτω φησὶν ὁ λόγος· «Σημάνατε σάλπιγγι ἐπὶ τῆς γῆς, καὶ κεκράξατε μέγα· εἴπατε· συνάχθητε καὶ εἰσέλθωμεν εἰς τὰς πόλεις τὰς τειχήρεις.» Εἰς ἀτείχιστον πόλιν οὐ βούλεται ἡμᾶς εἰσελθεῖν ὁ λόγος τοῦ θεοῦ, ἀλλ'εἰς τετειχισμένην. 'Ἡ ἐκκλησία τοῦ ζῶντος θεοῦ' τετειχισμένη ὑπὸ 'τῆς ἀληθείας' (*cf.* 1*Tm.* 3:15) τοῦ λόγου· οὗτος γάρ ἐστιν τὸ τεῖχος, <ὡς> ἐν τῷ ἑπτακαιδεκάτῳ κεῖται Ψαλμῷ, ὅτι καὶ «τεῖχός» ἐστιν ὁ θεός (*Ps.* 17:30). «'Αναλαβόντες φεύγετε εἰς Σιών», ὅσοι ἐστὲ ἔξω τῆς Σιών, «ἀναλαβόντες φεύγετε εἰς Σιών· σπεύσατε, μὴ στῆτε», οἱ ἐν τῇ προκοπῇ σπεύσατε ἐπὶ τὸ Σκοπευτήριον, «ὅτι κακὰ ἐγὼ ἐπάγω ἀπὸ βορρᾶ καὶ συντριβὴν μεγάλην». Τῶν κακῶν ἐπαγομένων «ἀπὸ βορρᾶ», βορρᾶ τοῦ ἀντικειμένου, ὡς πολλάκις λέλεκται, ὃς ἐὰν εὑρεθῇ μὴ σπεύσας μηδὲ εἰσελθὼν «εἰς τὰς πόλεις τὰς τειχήρεις», μὴ γενόμενος «ἐν ταῖς ἐκκλησίαις τοῦ θεοῦ», ἀλλ' ἔξω ἑστηκώς, αὐτὸς ὑπὸ τῶν πολεμίων καταληφθεὶς ἀναιρεθήσεται.

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Entering the Story: Origen's 'Dramatic' Approach to Scripture in the *Homilies on Jeremiah*

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In recent years, scholars have begun to revise the now traditional account of biblical interpretation in Late Antiquity, calling into question the supposedly rigid divide between 'allegorizers' and 'literalists'.[1] Frances Young, in her magisterial study *Biblical Exegesis and the Formation of Christian Culture*, demonstrates quite clearly that early Christians, both advocates for and critics of allegorical exegesis, employed a broad array of reading and interpretive strategies, which encompassed the literal and the figural.[2] This scholarly turn has allowed for more sympathetic readings of Origen's exegesis, which, unlike the exegesis of many of his contemporaries, has been criticized for supposedly ignoring the historical nature of Scripture and disregarding its plain, literal sense. Although the two critiques cannot be separated entirely, I shall be more concerned to respond to the latter critique than to the former in this paper, through an analysis of Origen's exegetical technique in his fourth homily on Jeremiah.

In my view, Richard Hanson's[3] well-known claim that Origen de-historicizes the Bible by privileging symbolic meaning over concrete, material reality has been more than adequately addressed by Karen Torjesen, Frances Young, and, most recently, John David Dawson.[4] In particular, I find compelling the response

[1] Robert C. Hill, *Reading the Old Testament at Antioch* (Leiden, 2005); Margaret M. Mitchell, Patristic Rhetoric on Allegory: Origen and Eustathius Put 1 Samuel 28 On Trial: *Journal of Religion* 85 (2005) 414-45; John J. O'Keefe, 'A Letter That Killeth': Toward a Reassessment of Antiochene Exegesis, or Diodore, Theodore, and Theodoret on the Psalms: *Journal of Early Christian Studies* 8 (2000) 83-104; Frances M. Young, *Biblical Exegesis and the Formation of Christian Culture* (Peabody, Mass., 2002), esp. 161-212; *ead.*, The Fourth Century Reaction Against Allegory: *SP* 30 (1997) 120-4.

[2] F.M. Young, *Biblical Exegesis* (2002), 186-212, identifies five kinds of 'literal' interpretation, eight kinds of allegory, four 'types', and six different reading strategies.

[3] R.P.C. Hanson, *Allegory and Event: A Study of the Sources and Significance of Origen's Interpretation of Scripture* (London, 1959), 365, argues that Origen rejected 'the presupposition that history could be of significance'.

[4] John David Dawson, *Christian Figural Reading and the Fashioning of Identity* (Berkley and Los Angeles, 2002); Karen Torjesen, *Hermeneutical Procedure and Theological Method in Origen's Exegesis* (New York, 1986); F.M. Young, *Biblical Exegesis* (2002).

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of J.D. Dawson (2002) to R.P.C. Hanson (1959) that Origen is 'intensely concerned with history *precisely as event* ... especially as ongoing or renewable event'.[5] Historical events, for Origen, are 'occurrences', which ought not remain in the past but be brought into the present for the spiritual transformation of the contemporary reader.

The charge that Origen's allegorical interpretation lacks sufficient grounding in the literal sense of Scripture remains trenchant, however. Recent scholarship has made it difficult to label Origen a purely speculative and fanciful exegete, but, in my view, the extent of Origen's engagement with the literal narrative of Scripture is not as widely recognized as it ought to be. Even F.M. Young (2002), who successfully resists the literal/allegorical dichotomy and insightfully moves her readers away from depicting any late antique exegete as a 'literalist', still characterizes Origen's interpretation as disconnected from the shape and substance of the stories upon which he is commenting. She classifies Antiochene biblical interpretation as 'ikonic', meaning that the interpretation images or mirrors the text. In other words, the 'narrative or argumentative coherence of the text' is of primary importance for their exegesis.[6] Conversely, she claims that Origen employs 'symbolic' or 'tokenist' exegesis, and that he treats the biblical text as a code which needs to be cracked. She asserts that Origen 'was happy to decode symbols without worrying about textual or narrative coherence'.[7]

I am in full agreement with F.M. Young (2002) that Origen does engage in symbolic exegesis, but I do not believe that such an approach to Scripture is mutually exclusive of ikonic exegesis. It is my claim that Origen allows the shape and movement of the biblical narrative to guide his interpretation, even though he attempts to discern the significance of very minute details in the text, at times treating these elements as code to be deciphered.

Given the constraints of space, it will not be possible to prove conclusively my claim that Origen is in much of his biblical interpretation concerned with the narrative coherence of the Scriptural text. Rather, I shall focus upon a single homily, his fourth on Jeremiah,[8] and trace throughout it the way in which he engages with the passage's historical context and narrative flow. I have selected this homily because in it Origen articulates a particular understanding of the move from the 'literal' to the 'mystical' meaning of Scripture, which uses the language of emulation and participation. He describes it as a movement from insider to outsider, from passive reader to active participant. For Origen, Scripture is best understood as a divine drama, and it is by entering into it that one experiences its transformative power.

[5] J.D. Dawson, *Christian Figural Reading* (2002), 125; see 125-37.

[6] F.M. Young, *Biblical Exegesis* (2002), 173; see 169-76.

[7] F.M. Young, *Biblical Exegesis* (2002), 184.

[8] Greek text is from Pierre Husson and Pierre Nautin (eds.), *Homélies sur Jérémie*, SC 232 (Paris, 1976). English translation is from John Clark Smith, *Origen: Homilies on Jeremiah and Homily on 1 Kings* (Washington, 1998).

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He sets up this homily as a dramatic re-telling of Jeremiah's prophetic condemnation of Judah in *Jer.* 3:6-11, and he exhorts his readers to take on the role of perfidious Judah. The movement and flow of the narrative play a particularly important role in his exposition of the passage, and Jeremiah's warnings to the disobedient are taken in a starkly literal way. Origen does treat certain elements as signs in need of decoding, such as the 'sacred wood',[9] but the broad contours of his interpretation remain faithful to the biblical narrative. Although this 'dramatic' approach is not quite as evident in the rest of the *Homilies on Jeremiah*, Origen is concerned throughout that his audience consider themselves the recipients of Jeremiah's prophecies, and his starting point, as K. Torjesen (1986) insightfully notes, is always 'the historical narrative or the words of prophecy'.[10]

Origen begins by claiming that the 'letter itself [αὐτὸ τὸ ῥητόν] of the text just read has something unclear that we need to understand first. Then, after this, if God wills, we shall know his mystical plan [τὸ βούλημα μυστικόν]'.[11] He will provide a careful exposition of the text according to the letter, clarifying any difficulties that may arise. Only with this proper framework in place, Origen asserts, will he proceed to discern the deeper meaning in the text. The two stages cannot be so neatly separated, however, because knowledge of the mystical intent does not come from moving beyond the narrative of the passage, but comes precisely by entering into it. The past and present become blurred as Origen's audience is transformed into the recipients of Jeremiah's prophecy.

After setting forth the way in which he will proceed with his interpretation of the passage, Origen provides the historical background. He gives a brief, yet sweeping, history of the Israelite nation, from the time of its division into the two kingdoms of Israel and Judah right through to the capture of the former by the Assyrians and the latter by the Babylonians as punishment for their sins.[12] With this broad historical sketch in place, Origen interprets the passage 'with respect to that people then [ὡς πρὸς λαὸν ἐκεῖνον τὸν πότε]'.[13] Jeremiah prophesies to the people of Judah that they ought to have learned how to fear God and live righteously from watching the punishment that Israel endured. They did not, however, and have sinned more excessively than Israel had done, and they must now turn back from their sins.

It is only after providing this 'historical' interpretation that Origen actually goes through the passage in full, filling in the gaps where he sees fit. Notably, most of the times when Origen interrupts the reading of the passage to clarify something it is to point out whether it is Israel or Judah that is being referred

[9] *Hom. in Jer.* 4.2 (SC 232, 268); ET Smith, *Origen*, 35.
[10] K. Torjesen, *Hermeneutical Procedure* (1986), 50.
[11] *Hom. in Jer.* 1.1 (SC 232, 254); ET Smith, *Origen*, 30.
[12] See *Hom. in Jer.* 1.2 (SC 232, 254-5).
[13] *Hom. in Jer.* 1.3 (SC 232, 256); ET Smith, *Origen*, 31.

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to. He emphasizes, for example, that it was 'not Judah, but first Israel', who sinned and was punished, and that the rejection of Israel was meant to teach the inhabitants of Judah.[14]

After fully reading through and analyzing the passage, he signals a turn from the letter to the mystical intent by the use of the verb βούλομαι in 2.1: 'If the letter is understood, let us see what he intends to make clear in these words [ἴδωμεν τί βούλεται ἐν τούτοις δηλοῦσθαι]'[15] Origen begins by reflecting that the 'calling of the nations has its beginning in the transgression of Israel',[16] and he demonstrates this by citing *Acts* (13:26, 46), *Romans* (11:11), 1*Thessalonians* (5:8), and *Ephesians* (2:12). He returns to the idea of the 'two peoples [τοὺς δύο τούτους λαούς]', Israel and Judah, that he first developed in his historical exegesis of the passage, although now the 'pagan nations [τῶν ἐθνῶν]' have stepped into the role of Judah. Origen lumps the 'historical' Israel and Judah together under the title 'Israel' and tells of her rejection by God. Israel has been divorced by God, and she no longer has the Prophets, or signs, or 'the ritual, the Temple, the sacrifices'.[17]

This leads Origen to proclaim, 'Then we, Judah [εἶτα ἡμεῖς Ἰούδα], turned to the Lord – Judah because the Saviour rose from the tree of Judah'.[18] This phrase completes the movement from passive listening to active participation. Origen's hearers have become Judah. But, I would argue, such a statement does not efface the earlier historical referent – the people who lived in the sixth century B.C.E and were carried off into exile. Rather, returning to J.D. Dawson's (2002) articulation of Origen's view of history, this is an 'occurrence', and it is Origen's ethical task as interpreter to 'read in a way that allows or enables that occurrence to "happen" again for the present-day reader'.[19] Origen draws his hearers into the story so that they fully become the ones to whom the words of Jeremiah are addressed, and he brings together a number of Scriptural citations to effect this movement.

This is not, moreover, infantile triumphalism. Jeremiah's prophecy is a word of warning, and Christians are not to gloat over the fate of Israel; Jeremiah, he says, 'speaks about our sins [περὶ τῶν ἡμετέρων ἁμαρτημάτων]'.[20] Citing *Romans*, Origen warns that if the natural branches were not spared, how much more ought those which have been grafted on to be concerned. His Christian audience must, therefore, observe carefully the wrongs that Israel has done, in order to avoid repeating her mistakes.

[14] *Hom. in Jer.* 1.4 (SC 232, 258); ET Smith, *Origen*, 31.
[15] *Hom. in Jer.* 2.1 (SC 232, 260); ET Smith, *Origen*, 32.
[16] *Hom. in Jer.* 2.1 (SC 232, 260); ET Smith, *Origen*, 32.
[17] *Hom. in Jer.* 2.1 (SC 232, 262); ET Smith, *Origen*, 33.
[18] *Hom. in Jer.* 2.1 (SC 232, 262); ET Smith, *Origen*, 33.
[19] J.D. Dawson, *Christian Figural Reading* (2002), 137.
[20] *Hom. in Jer.* 4.1 (SC 232, 266); ET Smith, *Origen*, 35.

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And, according to Origen, Jeremiah's condemnation of Judah is a fitting message for his fellow Christians. Just as Jeremiah denounces Judah as 'perfidious' in *Jer.* 3:7, Origen chastises his fellow Christians: 'We also have blasphemed; I mean those who sin and do not keep their agreements with God nor see that those people have broken the covenant'.[21] Judah 'saw [εἶδεν]' what Israel had done, and Origen claims that Christians ought to 'see [βλέπομεν]' these things 'if we read the Scripture [ἐὰν ἀναγινώσκωμεν τὴν γραφήν]'.[22] In other words, by entering into the biblical story and taking on the role of Judah, Origen's contemporary Christian hearers are able to recognize their own sinfulness, and they learn from the example of Israel both what displeases God and the consequences that befall those who take part in such activities.

Origen gives the example of a newly bought slave, who, if he is wise, will learn which of his predecessors were respected and which ones were not. Upon learning this, he will avoid the behaviour of the bad servants, but the good servants 'he will emulate'.[23] It is in this mimetic manner that Origen exhorts Christians to use Scripture: 'So the true conversion [ἐπιστροφή] is to read the books of the Old Testament [τὰ παλαιά] to see those who have become righteous, to imitate them [μιμήσθαι αὐτούς]; it is to read those, to see who have been reproached, to prevent oneself from falling into such reproaches'.[24] The Christian life ought to image the lives of the virtuous men and women whose stories are related in the Hebrew Bible. However, Christians are not called to observe from afar, but to participate in the Biblical story themselves.

In this homily, Origen does not attempt to get at the meaning behind the literal sense of the passage, as if text and interpretation could be separated. Rather, to move from the 'literal' to the 'mystical' meaning is to change from passive listener into active participant in the story, so that one may be taught and transformed. This movement involves the recognition that Scripture speaks directly to one's present-day situation and is not only a record of past events. It is, moreover, bound up with Origen's claim in his *Homilies on Leviticus* (1.1) that the Logos is encountered most immediately in Scripture, because Scripture is nothing other than the Word made text. In order to allow his audience to participate in the story, Origen has to take serious account of the details of the narrative and ensure that there remains a real connection between the text and his interpretation. Indeed, the key elements of the passage from Jeremiah are evident in this homily: God's rejection of Israel, His castigation of Judah, and His warning that Judah's failure to learn from the mistakes of Israel will lead to their rejection as well.

[21] *Hom. in Jer.* 5.1 (SC 232, 268-70); ET Smith, *Origen*, 36.
[22] *Hom. in Jer.* 5.2 (SC 232, 270); ET Smith, *Origen*, 37.
[23] *Hom. in Jer.* 5.3 (SC 232, 274); ET Smith, *Origen*, 38.
[24] *Hom. in Jer.* 6.3 (SC 232, 274-6); ET Smith, *Origen*, 39.

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With this paper, I have sought not to provide conclusive evidence that Origen consistently took serious account of the narrative coherence of the biblical text in his exegetical writings, but rather, through a close reading of a single homily, to offer an alternate image of Origen the exegete, one which highlights his engagement with the literal sense of Scripture. In turn, I hope that this brief study will invite further response in a discussion, which, I suspect, may be never-ending.

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Platonic Dissolution of History in Origen's *Commentary on John* X 5-34

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Origen habitually 'moves from the literal interpretation to the spiritual one on the basis of a series of questions that spring from direct inspection of the text or that arise through cross-reference to other scriptural passages'.[1] This questioning has an affinity with Platonic dialectic, the discipline that enables one 'to ask and answer questions in the most scientific way' (*Rep.* 534d) and that pushes beyond the contradictory perspectives of the empirical world, purifying the mind and raising its gaze to the lucid vision of truth.[2] Origen treasures the data of scriptural *historia* (historical accounts) because they are a launching pad for this ascent to the noetic realm. He is even pleased when the literal history turns out to be unsustainable, because then the necessity of the ascent becomes more inescapable.

The spiritual level of exegesis is not necessarily allegorical; conversely, sometimes both the literal and the spiritual level are allegorical, as with the parable of the vineyard (*Matth.* 21:33-43; *ComMt* XVII.6-12).[3] What matters is not the method, but the breakthrough to the noetic or pneumatic level of understanding. Origen of course corrects Platonism by seeing this breakthrough as grace, as the visitation of the mind by the divine Logos, which can bear all the richness of salvation history including the tension of its eschatological promise. The questioning of empirical history and its written record in the *Commentary on John* often serves to underline not the fleshliness of the Incarnation but the need to penetrate the veil of the flesh and discover the more essential action of the Logos at the level of the mind.

When the questioning results in destroying the historical credibility of a gospel account, for instance by bringing to light disagreements (*diaphôniai*) with the other Gospels, then the movement to the spiritual reading treats the literal account as an allegorical fiction developed around a factual core, or without any factual basis at all. When Origen senses that this step has to be taken, he does not perform it in a half-hearted way, but leads a careful dialectical assault on the literal sense of the text, showing that it cannot be taken as

[1] Manlio Simonetti, *Origene esegeta e la sua tradizione* (Brescia, 2004), 191.

[2] See J. Stephens, Plato on dialectic and dialogue: *The Journal of Value Inquiry* 27 (1993) 465-73.

[3] See M. Simonetti, *Origene esegeta* (2004), 173-9.

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straightforward history and that it imposes the necessity of an anagogical leap, impossible to those who remain 'slaves of the letter'.[4]

Origen sees the Gospels as directly inspired by the Holy Spirit, so that any historical information they contain must be literally exact. If a fact is described in two or three different ways, Origen is forced to see in it two or three separate facts; hence, for example, three different healings of blind men at Jericho, three anointings at Bethany.[5] Origen seeks 'to combine additively the theological intentions of the evangelists' statements, whereas we differentiate among them, not constricted by a doctrine of inspiration.'[6]

It is this literalism or positivism that forces Origen to cease to view a text as historical when the method of harmonization breaks down. Now the additive harmonization moves instead to the spiritual truth of these stories, which lies 'in the intelligible' (*en tois noêtois*), so that disagreements (*diaphôniai*) are 'dissolved through anagogy' (*luesthai dia tês anagoges*). Lacking this recourse to a purely anagogical reading, 'many abandon faith in the Gospels as not true nor written by a divine spirit, or as merely cleverly composed recollections' (*ComJn* X 10). Those who lost faith in the Gospels may have done so because their over-strict literalism made them obsessed with minor disagreements. Once he has decided a text is non-historical Origen uses dialectic to acerbate this malady, so as to bring to it the balm of anagogy.

'In many other cases, if one examines the Gospels closely in regard to the contradictions of the historical account, which we shall endeavour to set forth as much as possible, struck with dizziness, one will either give up accepting the Gospels as true, or not daring to reject entirely faith in the Lord Jesus one will attach oneself arbitrarily to one of them, or one will accept all four, saying that their truth does not lie in the bodily signs (*en tois sômatikois charaktêrsin*)' (*ComJn* X 14). Note here Origen's rather dangerous strategy, which he refrains from inflicting on the simple faithful in his homilies, and which he also avoids in *Contra Celsum*. In these cases he heightens the contradictions between the different accounts, no longer in order to secure a more precise grasp of the historical events, but to show the need to go beyond the literal sense altogether. He pushes the hearer into the dizzying situation of having to choose between rejection of the Gospels or some of them and embracing all four on a new premise, a new platform of spiritual insight. It would not be surprising if he retreated from this pastorally risky method in his later *Commentary on Matthew*, as some scholars think.

The evangelists 'use to the full many of the deeds done and words said according to the miraculous and amazing power of Jesus, but sometimes also

[4] This method of building on the *defectus litterae* goes back to Philo and is followed by Didymus; see M. Simonetti, *Origene esegeta* (2004), 363.

[5] See Helmut Merkel, *Widersprüche zwischen den Evangelien* (Tübingen, 1971).

[6] *Ibid.* 116.

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interpolate into Scripture, in a context which is apparently about things of the sense, that which has been revealed to them in an entirely intellectual sense' (*ComJn* X 18). Robert Grant has uncovered a background to this in the rhetoric of the time. Theon had discussed how to weave into a writing what did not take place, how to 'combine myth with historical narrative'.[7] Grant notes 'how closely related were grammatical-rhetorical criticism of stories on historical grounds and the use of the allegorical method in their defence'.[8] One might also recall how Plato draws on mythic narrative at the high point of his philosophical arguments, as if only a fictional story could be the vehicle of ineffable noetic truth.

'For their aim was, where it was possible, to tell the truth in a spiritual and a material sense, but where it was not possible to tell it in both senses, to prefer the spiritual to the material, since the spiritual truth is often preserved in what one might call the material untruth (*en to sômatikô pseudei*)' (*ComJn* X 20; see also *PArch* IV 2.9). That last phrase made Henri de Lubac nervous: 'Let us not put too gross realities under such expressions. No doubt they go no further than what we would call, for example, stylization ... In finding in our Gospels a quite flexible kind of historicity joined to a depth interpretation of the reality they were charged with announcing to the people, he is not far from being in accord with the best of our recent historians'.[9] In fact, Origen's idea of inspiration made such a modern recognition of the historicity of Scripture impossible; the 'letter' must either be completely factual or it must be shown to confess its inadequacy or its impossibility so that the 'spirit' breaks through. The flexibility of this hermeneutics is not that of a modern recognition of the looser historicity of scriptural texts, shaped by theological purpose and literary genre.

Though sparingly used,[10] this exploitation of the *defectus litterae* is a basic weapon in Origen's exegetical armoury, and it is in line with his basic vision of history, as a field of shadows and images that points beyond itself to spiritual realities. These realities themselves may be events of a historical order, notably, in the *Commentary on John*, the incarnational coming of the Logos into human history, with its climaxes in the Incarnation and the eschaton. This salvation history has a higher reality than the empirical data of ordinary history.

In the progress from the sensible to the intelligible level, more is involved than a smooth movement from the empirical plural to the transcendent one.[11]

[7] *The Earliest Lives of Jesus* (New York, 1961), 65.

[8] *Ibid.* 46, referring to Dio Chrysostom's treatment of the story of Troy, in *Orat.* XI.

[9] *Histoire et esprit* (Paris, 1950), 200.

[10] De Lubac plays down the importance of this strategy, incorrectly claiming that though 'the mystical sense sometimes serves our author as an expedient to resolve some difficulty in the text', which 'is not without danger for upholding the letter integrally', nonetheless Origen 'never leaves the literal sense' (203).

[11] 'In Origen's view the absolute Truth can be approached and is knowable only through the multiplicity of historical truths' (Stamenka Emilova Antonova, The Many Faces of Truth:

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We have seen that vigorous dialectic and openness to grace come into play. Correspondingly, on the part of the evangelists, a labor of articulation is in progress. In a bold movement of thought, favored by Platonist conceptions, Origen sees the evangelists as recipients of different spiritual revelations and as enjoying 'the liberty to deliberately interrupt the narration of actual events', making 'a conscious change in the historical narrative' in order to subordinate the material to the spiritual truth.[12] The use of empirical falsehood to convey transcendental truth is a Platonic notion. The 'noble lie' that makes people content with their social class (*Rep.* 414c) and the fictions of myth-makers are justified by the incapacity of people in this shadow-world to deal directly in pure ideas. Rather than making an embarrassed concession, Origen firmly proclaims that the truth the evangelists are conveying sometimes necessitates fiction at the literal level.

Can one say that whereas the material is simply a realm of falsehood in Plato's parable of the cave, Origen offers a more 'nuanced appraisal of the various interconnections' between material and spiritual, so that empirical history is 'redeemed' as an image of reality?[13] In the *Commentary on John*, empirical history is brought into view and handled from the vantage of the governing spiritual-ideal vision of salvation history as the coming of the Logos into the world. But this still entails a rather high-handed Platonist approach to history. It might be countered that John the Evangelist himself 'does violence to history'[14] for similar purposes of pointing to spiritual truth, and even with possible influence of a Platonist logic mediated by Philo.[15] But John's symbols unfold their meaning beyond any Platonic regime of sensible and noetic, and without any bond to the factual positivism that Origen adheres to at the level of the letter.

To clarify the tactics of the evangelists, Origen recalls that Christ appears in different ways to different people according to their spiritual capacities. The evangelists seize on different aspects (*ennoias*) of the *epinoiai* of Jesus.[16] Origen first illustrates this, somewhat digressively, by the contrast between divine and human names of Jesus, such as slave and Son; then by commenting that Paul and Peter also show different aspects of their personalities; he returns to illustrations from narrative contradictions in the Gospels only at *ComJn* X

Origenian Platonism or Platonic Origenism, in: *Origeniana Octava*, 2003, 431-6, 433). 'In his view, the four evangelists received a purely intellectual vision of the truth, which is conveyed via the vehicle of a historical narrative' and thus refracted through time, space and language (434).

[12] *Ibid.* 434.

[13] *Ibid.* 436.

[14] Martin Hengel, *Die johanneische Frage* (Tübingen, 1993), 322; noted with consternation in Joseph Ratzinger, *Jesus von Nazareth* (Freiburg, 2007), 271.

[15] See Charles H. Dodd, *History and Truth in the Fourth Gospel* (Cambridge, 1953); Peter Borgen, *Bread from Heaven* (Leiden, 1965).

[16] See Richard P.C. Hanson, *Allegory and Event* (London, 1959), 274f. for further illustrations of the exegetical use of Christ's *epinoiai*, including for the Resurrection appearances (*C. Cels* II 63-6).

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34-6. Like the account of four observers of God's works at different places (*ComJn* X 15-7), these digressions serve only to create a certain flexibility of mind, preparing us to accept that contradictory things may suitably be related of Jesus in view of his multiple nature. For Richard Hanson: 'All he means is that where the evangelists give apparently contradictory accounts of Jesus those details which are inconsistent with the rest of the narratives are not descriptions of the historical Jesus actually teaching or healing in Palestine but are parabolic ways of describing different significances of Jesus, allegories of his ultimate significance for different sorts of human souls.'[17] Hanson deduces that the dividing-line between the real human Jesus and the idea of Jesus in human minds was thin and uncertain; but it is perhaps better to say that Origen engineers shifts from one to the other, from the empirical to the noetic, trying to prevent this from becoming arbitrary by being especially attentive to historical detail in the case of the Gospels. This attention may not entail that, in our modern sense of these words, 'Origen was profoundly concerned with "the Christ of history, the Christ of the Gospels"'.[18] That biblical events happened or did not happen was significant for Origen, not despite but because of his interest in 'the non-historical truths of which they were parabolic enactments'.[19] Since the historical parable is so full of spiritual significance, it is important to get its details right, and to know when they are to be taken as fact, when as symbol.

Hanson seems to confuse history and *historia* (historical account) in the following: 'He does not maintain, as the Fourth Evangelist does, that the two are inseparably bound up together, but he conceives that the Jesus of history could during his life on earth occasionally dissolve into the Jesus of religious experience, leaving apparently no historical sediment behind'.[20] It seems, rather, that the *narration* of the Jesus of history can dissolve into the purely allegorical. Likewise, in the Fourth Gospel the inseparability of the historical Jesus and the pneumatic Christ does not prevent the narrative from becoming symbolic fiction at many points.

The readings that the leap to the noetic permits are sometimes rather unsettling. Thus John's account of the descent to Capernaum, the 'field of exhortation', is read allegorically: Jesus's brothers represent the powers that descended with him; they were not invited to the wedding, since they receive his benefits at a lower level from those who have the title of disciples (*ComJn* X 40). Who these *dynameis* are is rather unclear. The pre-existent spiritual realm is a Platonic

[17] R.P.C. Hanson, *Allegory and Event* (1959), 275.

[18] *Ibid.* quoting (and disagreeing with) Frédéric Bertrand, *Mystique de Jésus chez Origène* (Paris, 1951).

[19] R.P.C. Hanson, *Allegory and Event* (1959), 277. 'He was devoted to the Logos whose activity as Logos (*not* as a human individual) in a post-incarnate existence was illustrated or enacted in parable or charade by Jesus incarnate as an individual' (276).

[20] *Ibid.* 275.

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staple that seems to raise its head whenever Origen feels that a daring leap beyond the letter is called for; compare the discussion of John the Baptist as an angel (*ComJn* II 186-92), or *ComJn* XX 162, where the soul of Jesus, sent by God, takes the body born of Mary while other souls descend without reference to the divine will. Even in these more exotic stretches, when Origen's exegesis moves from history to its spiritual meaning, the latter is not a timeless realm of Ideas, but a super-history stretching from pre-existence to apokatastasis. Origen is 'ominously fond of subordinating human history to "heavenly" history',[21] but this perhaps owes less to Gnosis, as Daniélou thought,[22] than to Philo, and ultimately to Platonism. However, this 'heavenly' history is predominantly the providential history of salvation, which allows one to say, with Mark Edwards, that for Origen history is the very signature of God – a biblical signature written in Platonic style, insofar as the world of empirical history is conceived as one of types and shadows.[23]

[21] *Ibid.* 148.

[22] For the structuring influence of the rivalry with Gnosticism, see Gaetano Lettieri, Il *nous* mistico: Il superamento origeniano dello gnosticismo nel *Commento a Giovanni*, in: Emanuela Prinzivalli (ed.), *Il Commento a Giovanni di Origene* (Villa Verucchio, 2007), 176-275.

[23] See Mark J. Edwards, *Origen Against Plato* (Aldershot, 2002), 152. The status of history and the role of Platonism shift between the *Peri Archôn*, the *Commentary on John*, and the *Contra Celsum*, in the direction of an ever more concrete grasp of salvation as historical; see J.S. O'Leary, *Christianisme et philosophie chez Origène* (Paris, 2010).

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Christology as the Basis of Metaphysics in Origen's *Commentary on John*

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In the prologue to his *Commentary on the Gospel according to John*, Origen says that John's Gospel, compared to other scriptures, contains 'more perfect expressions concerning Jesus';[1] thus, in his painstaking reading of the Gospel, he focuses on developing an account of Christ's nature. In this Christological study, while Origen does examine the nature of the relationship between the Father and the Son, he focuses primarily on the nature of the relationship between the Son and creation. Beginning the *Commentary* with a focus on Christ's nature as revealer and demiurge, Origen puts at the forefront of his Christology a study of the ways in which Christ is related to created beings. Because Christ Himself reveals the nature of God, Origen explains, and because He makes creatures capable of receiving that revelation, Christ makes contemplation possible. Contemplation constitutes the basis of the relationships creatures have with Christ, and insofar as He brings created beings into existence and designs them to be capable of this relationship, Christ is the ἀρχή (*archē*) or cause of creation's existence and relationship with Himself.

This has several ramifications with respect to both Christology and metaphysics. Insofar as created being is generated and designed by Christ, a fully adequate account of its nature necessarily must include an account of Christ as its cause. Thus metaphysics – the account of the nature of being *qua* being – is necessarily grounded in Christology. This also means that insofar as it pertains to Christ's relationship with creation, Christology, for Origen, naturally gives rise to metaphysical principles. It is in this sense then, that Christology is the basis for metaphysics; this also explains why it is the case that Origen develops a set of metaphysical principles while he develops his Christology.

In this paper, I will briefly show that Origen sets up this relationship between Christology and metaphysics when he establishes that Christ is the final and efficient cause of creation, as well as the provider of its material and formal causes. This will more fully elucidate the nature of this relationship between

[1] Origen, *Commentary on the Gospel According to John* I 22 (GCS 10). Transl. Ronald E. Heine (FOTC 80): 'I think that John's Gospel, which you have enjoined us to examine to the best of our ability, is the first fruits of the Gospels.' *Matthew*, *Mark*, and *Luke*, he continues, 'reserve for the one who leaned on Jesus' breast the greater and more perfect expressions concerning Jesus, for none of those manifested his divinity as fully as John.'

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metaphysics and Christology in Origen's thought, and hopefully, it will help his modern readers recognize the significance of metaphysics within his thought.

Christ as the source of final, efficient, material, and formal cause

Origen begins the first book of the *Commentary on John* with the explicit goal of ascertaining the ways in which the λόγος (*logos*) can be said to be ἐν ἀρχῇ. Two sources will serve to determine which, among the many meanings of ἀρχή, are proper to the λόγος – 'the Greeks' and the scriptures: 'It is not only the Greeks who say that the designation "beginning" (ἀρχή) means many things', he says, and 'anyone who searches the Scriptures, will discover many meanings of the expression even in the word of God.'[2] From the Greeks he takes multiple distinctions and definitions, and in the Scriptures, he looks for those which apply to the λόγος.

Having explicitly set the goal of determining the meanings of ἀρχή that pertain to the λόγος, it is interesting to note that he begins not with a list of meanings proper to the λόγος, but rather with meanings which pertain to created being.

'One meaning (of ἀρχή) involves change',[3] he says in the second paragraph of the *Commentary*. Μετάβασις (*metabasis*), a term more specific than the general translation 'change' would imply, denotes a passing over, a transition, or migration. Scripture describes this kind of change, he explains, in terms of a 'way and length'.[4] If change is specifically defined as a transition from one state to another, the transition from the initial state to the end state is measured by the 'way' or 'length' between them. Ἀρχή in this context, then, is the 'beginning' or initial state which will undergo change along the 'way'. At the same time, change is defined according to the fact that it has an end – that is, change is not defined as a phenomenon in itself, it is defined according to, as Origen' puts it, its 'final stopping point and goal'. In this respect, ἀρχή refers to the final cause of change, and since the telos of change is contemplation, contemplation is the final cause of change.[5]

In both of these cases, ἀρχή describes features which are proper to created, changeable being – namely, to the initial and final states of change. However, while contemplation is the final state or goal of created being, the state or activity of contemplation is itself fundamentally relational. Because it consists in a unitive knowledge of God, contemplation has an object, and thus it too has a

[2] *Ibid.* I 90.

[3] *Ibid.* I 91.

[4] *Ibid.*: Change 'belongs, as it were, to a way and length which is revealed by the Scripture.'

[5] He offers a scriptural example (*Prov.* 16:7, LXX) where ἀρχή is used with reference to change: 'The beginning of a good way is to do justice.' *Ibid.*

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final cause. Final cause or ἀρχή in this respect refers to a cause beyond creation itself; according to Origen, this cause is the λόγος.

As the direct object of contemplation, the λόγος is the final cause of contemplation, and, because contemplation is the final cause of change, the λόγος is ultimately the final cause of change as well (albeit in a qualified sense). This establishes a fundamental premise which is both Christological and metaphysical in nature: with the λόγος defined as the ultimate end towards which change tends, and with change defined according to its ultimate end (*i.e.* the λόγος), creation is defined according its relationship to Christ.

But how or why it is the case that creation is able to participate in a relationship of this kind? Origen goes on to answer this question with an account of further ways in which the λόγος makes contemplation possible as its ἀρχή.

First, he turns his attention to Christ's nature as revealer. As revealer, the λόγος makes contemplation possible insofar as He reveals God's nature in a manner which is receivable in contemplation. Origen goes into great detail about how the revelation of the λόγος is made possible according to His relationship to the Father,[6] but it will have to suffice here to point out that Christ's relationship to creation is only possible because He, as the λόγος, manifests the nature of God in a way that is receivable through contemplation.

In this context, Origen's statement makes sense: those who come to 'have the contemplation of God as their only activity,' He says, 'have come to God because of the (λόγος) which is with (God).'[7] In other words, because He reveals God's own nature in Himself, the λόγος makes contemplation possible. This means not only that the λόγος is the ἀρχή of contemplation as final cause, but also that his nature as revealer makes it possible for him to be final cause.

Christ makes contemplation possible in another fundamental way, though here he makes a distinction between Christ's activities as λόγος and his activities as σοφία (*sophia*). As σοφία, Origen explains, Christ makes it possible for creatures to reach contemplation as demiurge. Σοφία is the 'ἀρχή of things created',[8] Origen states, and as such, she not only brings creation into existence from nothing, she designs it for the express purpose of being in relationship with himself through contemplation. To describe the respects in which Christ fulfills these causal functions, Origen explains how σοφία brings creation

[6] Because of his unique unity with the father, the λόγος knows the father. Revealing the nature of the father in Himself, the λόγος is the 'source' or arche of revelation, and thus makes contemplation of God possible as a cause.

[7] *Ibid.* I 92.

[8] *Ibid.* I 102: 'The God of all things is clearly a beginning too, proposing that the Father is the beginning of the son, and the creator is the beginning of the things created and, in general, God is the beginning of the things which exist, and by understanding the Son to be the Word, he will justify his view by the statement, 'In the beginning was the Word', because what is said to be in the father is in the beginning.'

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into being, supplying the material and formal elements that constitute both its existence and design.

First, as the efficient cause of created being, σοφία brings creation into existence out of nothing[9] – as Origen puts it, σοφία is the 'by which which is effective'[10] with respect to creation. Second, σοφία generates the matter which, in part, constitutes created being; Origen is clear that Christ is not Himself material cause, and that He does not make use of pre-existent matter. Instead, as σοφία, He is the creator of matter, the source of 'that from which something comes as underlying matter'.[11] Third, σοφία is the source of the structure and design of creation. Together with matter, σοφία provides the form of created being, thus bringing into existence a kind of being which consists in some way of matter and form. Σοφία, Origen concludes, is the source of 'that according to which something is made, according to its form'.[12]

These causal functions of σοφία serve the purpose of moving creatures to their final cause not only because Christ brings created beings into existence in the first place, but also because He designs creatures with capacities to contemplate. Whether a creature's capacity to contemplate is fully functional or must be formed or restored by Christ depends upon whether creation is described according to its original or fallen order. Though it is not possible here to explain how these orders differ, it is important to note that after the fall, σοφία adjusts creation to make redemption possible, and the λόγος adjusts the way He reveals himself to facilitate that redemption. In these ways, then, Christ acts to make the restoration of the fallen order possible as both revealer (λόγος) and demiurge (σοφία).

Conclusion

The goal of this brief overview of the relationship between Christ and creation is to point out not only that Origen concerns himself with metaphysical questions, but that he does so as a natural corollary of his Christological focus. This has a lot of ramifications not only for how we perceive Origen's reception and employment of Greek philosophical traditions, but also how we perceive the significance of his exegetical project. Origen's Christology, as described here, ultimately demonstrates that Christ determines the nature of created beings, and this means that the acts of Christ as both demiurge and final cause ultimately determine the respective natures of human beings and the cosmos. Furthermore, this means that Christology grounds his understandings of both

[9] *Ibid.* I 103: We believe 'that God made things which are from that which does not exist.'
[10] *Ibid.* I 110.
[11] *Ibid.* I 103.
[12] *Ibid.* I 104.

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anthropology and cosmology and that, therefore, epistemology, spiritual progress, and the respective natures of matter, time, and history are all defined according to the metaphysical principles established in accord with Christology. And finally, the nature of revelation is grounded in Christology insofar as it is determined by the relationship between the revealer and those whom He has designed to receive that revelation; and this means that the hermeneutical principles that he both articulates and employs will be grounded in Christology.

Though it is not possible here, given the scope of this short paper, to demonstrate how all these categories of theological reflection are linked to Christology for Origen, it is important to note that throughout the *Commentary*, Origen does employ the metaphysical principles produced from his Christology in defining each of these categories of thought. Hopefully further study of the presence and significance of metaphysical considerations in Origen's thought will help us better recognize how he employs them throughout the development of his anthropology, cosmology, and theology and, as a result, help us better understand the significance of his contributions to both the philosophical and exegetical traditions that followed him.

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Images of Jewishness in Origen's *Letter to Africanus*

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Artists ranging from third-century fresco painters to Rembrandt and Artemisia Gentileschi have been fascinated by a particluar moment in the story of Susanna and the Elders.[1] In their paintings, they have explored and sometimes exploited the voyeuristic elements of the scene in which two lecherous elders, hidden in the shrubbery, spy on the chaste Susanna as she bathes in her garden. Origen, too, explores and interprets this scene, most fully in his *Letter to Africanus*.

I argue that in his *Letter to Africanus*, and in some of his other works as well, Origen models Jewishness after these lustful elders in the Susanna story. He differentiates between Jewish and Christian modes of reading scripture by suggesting that Jewish interpretation adheres more closely to the world of bodies and desires. For Origen, not only do Christians have a different understanding of biblical texts than do Jews; they also have a different relationship to the body and sexuality. Exegetical strategy is here inextricably linked to attitudes towards the body. To borrow a phrase from Daniel Boyarin, 'hermeneutics becomes anthropology'.[2] In this paper I suggest that one effect of Origen's linkage of hermeneutics and anthropology is the creation of an image of the Jewish interpreter as 'fleshly' and sexualized – an image neatly illustrated by the gawking elders in the story of Susanna. More generally, I argue that Origen's reading of Susanna provides an occasion for analyzing the overlapping construction of gender and Jewish-Christian difference in late antiquity.

I. Sexualized representation in the *Letter to Africanus*

Origen writes his *Letter to Africanus* while on a trip to Nicomedia in 249, a little before the Decian persecution.[3] Caesarea Maritima has been his residence

[1] For more on visual representations of Susanna and the Elders, see Kathryn Smith, Inventing Martial Chastity: The Iconography of Susanna and the Elders in Early Christian Art: *Oxford Art Journal* 16 (1993) 3-24; Mieke Bal, The Elders and Susanna: *BibInt* 1 (1993) 1-19; Babette Bohn, Rape and the Gendered Gaze: Susanna and the Elders in Early Modern Bologna: *BibInt* 9 (2001) 259-86.

[2] Daniel Boyarin, *Carnal Israel: Reading Sex in Talmudic Culture* (Berkeley, 1993), 8f.

[3] Pierre Nautin, *Origène: Sa vie et son œuvre* (Paris, 1977), 182. The critical edition of Origen's *Letter to Africanus* is in Marguerite Harl and Nicholas de Lange (eds.), *Origène: Sur Les Écritures: Philocalie, 1-20 et La Lettre à Africanus sur l'histoire de Suzanne*, SC 302 (Paris, 1983),

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for almost twenty years.[4] He writes in response to a letter from Julius Africanus that contests his inclusion of the story of Susanna in the book of Daniel, and thus ensues the debate over the canonicity of the story: Africanus claims that because Susanna is found only in Greek versions of the bible (Septuagint and Theodotian), it is most likely a Greek 'forgery'.[5] He appeals to the fact that the Jews have not retained the story in their scriptures to support his claim. For evidence that the Susanna story represents a Greek forgery, Africanus points to a play on words that exists only in Greek: there are two puns relating types of trees to forms of punishment – πρῖνος and πρίζειν; σχῖνος and σχίζειν[6] – such wordplay, for Africanus, would not 'work' in Hebrew. Moreover, Africanus argues that the style of the Susanna story differs from that of the book of Daniel. These factors, argues Africanus, should demonstrate that Susanna is a 'more modern' addition to Daniel and should not be considered an authentic part of scripture.

Origen defends the canonicity of Susanna in several ways, exhibiting much exegetical finesse in the process. He registers numerous occasions in which the Greek version of the bible contains words or phrases that are not found in Hebrew versions and other occasions in which the Hebrew version contains phrases not present in the Greek. Indeed, his compilation of the Hexapla has armed him with several examples of the discrepancies between Greek and Hebrew versions. Regarding the wordplay, Origen reports that he has consulted 'not a few Jews about it', yet he remains undecided. Because the Hebrew words for the trees named in Greek are unknown, he claims that we cannot conclude whether or not the puns would have translated.[7] Origen also allows that whoever translated Susanna into Greek might have transposed the pun so that it would retain the wordplay if not the literal translation.[8] Furthermore, he dismisses Africanus' last objection, that the style is different. 'This I cannot see', writes Origen.[9]

522-73. For an English translation, see Joseph W. Trigg, *Biblical Interpretation*, Messages of the Fathers of the Church 9 (Wilmington, Delaware, 1988), 116-36.

[4] Lee Levine, *Caesarea Under Roman Rule* (Leiden, 1975); John McGuckin, Caesarea Maritima as Origen Knew It, in: Robert J. Daly (ed.), *Origeniana Quinta* (Leuven, 1992), 3-25.

[5] For more recent debates about the original language of Susanna, see Frank Zimmerman, The Story of Susanna and Its Original Language: *JQR* 48 (1957) 236-41; Carey A. Moore (ed.), *Daniel, Esther, and Jeremiah: The Additions*, Anchor Bible 44 (Garden City, New Jersey, 1977), 81-4; and Shaye Cohen, Ioudais: 'Judaean' and 'Jew' in Susanna, First Maccabees, and Second Maccabees, in: Peter Schäfer (ed.), *Geschichte – Tradition – Reflexion: Festschrift für Martin Hengel zum 70. Geburtstag*, Vol. 1. (Tübingen, 1996), 211-20. Cohen writes: 'It is possible, if not likely, that the story circulated for a long time before being redacted in Greek, but of this pre-Septuagint (Hebrew? Aramaic?) version not a trace is extant. No fragment of Susanna has (yet) been discovered among the Qumran scrolls' (212, n. 2).

[6] Translation: the evergreen oak / to saw or cut in pieces and the mastich tree / to cleave.

[7] Origen, *Ep. Afr.* 10 (SC 302, 538).

[8] *Ep. Afr.* 18 (SC 302, 558).

[9] *Ep. Afr.* 22 (SC 302, 572).

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I wish to call attention here to a particular point that Origen makes in favor of an original Hebrew version of the story. In the middle section of his letter (chapters 10-5, SC), Origen defends the canonicity of Susanna by contending that Jewish leaders of his own day, like the wicked elders before them, have engaged in illicit activity by hiding the story of Susanna and the Elders from the people.[10] After registering the differences between Greek and Hebrew versions, and after exploring the implications of the wordplay, Origen argues that some Jewish sages *do know* the Susanna story, but have excluded it on account of its shameful content. He knows of one sage who recalls a tradition about the elders in the story, and he describes this man as 'a Hebrew fond of learning, said among themselves to be the son of a wise man, and educated to succeed his father.'[11] This Jewish sage identifies the licentious elders of the Susanna story with the wicked elders of *Jeremiah* 29, Zedekiah and Ahab, who are accused of both false prophecy and committing adultery with their neighbors' wives.[12] Interweaving the elders of the story of Susanna with those of *Jeremiah* 29, Origen depicts 'these men, who bore the title Elder but who performed their service wickedly.'[13] One who 'condemned the innocent, and let the guilty go free,'[14] and the other whom 'beauty seduced', 'lust led his heart astray.'[15]

From a different Hebrew sage, Origen learns another tradition about these elders. Origen writes:

Καὶ ἕτερον δὲ οἶδα Ἑβραῖον περὶ τῶν πρεσβυτέρων τούτων τοιαύτας παραδόσεις φέροντα· ὅτι τοῖς ἐν τῇ αἰχμαλωσία ἐλπίζουσι διὰ τῆς Χριστοῦ ἐπιδημίας ἐλευθερωθήσεσθαι ἀπὸ τῆς ὑπὸ τοῖς ἐχθροῖς δουλείας προσεποιοῦντο οἱ πρεσβύτεροι οὗτοι ὡς εἰδότες τὰ περὶ Χριστοῦ σαφηνίζειν· καὶ ἑκάτερος αὐτῶν ἀνὰ μέρος ἧ περιετύγχανε γυναικὶ καὶ ἣν διαφθεῖραι ἐβούλετο, ἐν ἀπορρήτῳ δῆθεν ἔφασκεν ὡς ἄρα δέδοται αὐτῷ ἀπὸ Θεοῦ σπεῖραι τὸν Χριστόν· εἶτ' ἀπατωμένη τῇ ἐλπίδι τοῦ γεννῆσαι τὸν Χριστὸν ἡ γυνὴ ἐπεδίδου ἑαυτὴν τῷ ἀπατῶντι· καὶ οὕτως ἐμοιχῶντο τὰς γυναῖκας τῶν πολιτῶν οἱ πρεσβύτεροι Ἀχιὰβ καὶ Σεδεκίας. Διὸ καλῶς ὑπὸ τοῦ Δανιὴλ ὁ μὲν εἴρηται πεπαλαιωμένος ἡμερῶν κακῶν ὁ δὲ

[10] Indeed there is no record of Jewish commentary on the story of Susanna until the eleventh century. See Israel Lévi, L'histoire de 'Suzanne et Les Deux Vieillards' dans la littérature juive: *REJ* 95 (1933) 157-71, 159.

[11] *Ep. Afr.* 11 (SC 302, 538).

[12] *Ep. Afr.* 11 (SC 302, 538). *Jeremiah* 29:22 reads: 'And on account of them this curse shall be used by all the exiles from Judah in Babylon: "The Lord make you like Zedekiah and Ahab, whom the king of Babylon roasted in the fire", because they have perpetrated outrage in Israel and have committed adultery with their neighbors' wives, and have spoken in my name lying words that I did not command them' (NRSV). Although there is no mention of Susanna in rabbinic literature, there is a legend about Zedekiah and Ahab recorded in the Babylonian Talmud (*Sanhedrin* 93*a*). See Nehemiah Brüll, Das apokryphische Susanna-Buch, in: *Jahrbücher für jüdische Geschichte und Literatur* 3 (1877) 1-69, and Max Wurmbrand, A Falasha Variant of the Story of Susanna: *Bib* 44 (1963) 29-37.

[13] *Ep. Afr.* 11 (SC 302, 540).

[14] *Ep. Afr.* 11 (SC 302, 540). Origen is quoting *Sus.* 53.

[15] *Ep. Afr.* 11 (SC 302, 540). Origen is quoting *Sus.* 56.

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ἤκουσε τό· Οὕτως ἐποιεῖτε ταῖς θυγατράσιν Ἰσραήλ, κἀκεῖναι φοβούμεναι ὡμίλουν ὑμῖν· ἀλλ' οὐ θυγάτηρ Ἰούδα ὑπέμεινε τὴν ἀνομίαν ὑμῶν. Τάχα γὰρ ἀπάτη καὶ φόβος δυνάμενα ἐν ταῖς γυναιξὶν ἐποίει αὐτάς παρέχειν ἑαυτῶν τὰ σώματα τοῖς λεγομένοις τούτοις πρεσβυτέροις.

I know another Hebrew who related the following traditions about these Elders: When the people were in captivity and hoping to be liberated from slavery under their enemies by the coming of the Messiah, these elders pretended to know revelations about the Messiah. Each for his own part, whenever he met a woman whom he wished to seduce, told her in secret that *he* had been given the ability by God to beget the Messiah. Then the woman, deceived by the hope of begetting the Messiah, gave herself freely to her deceiver. And thus the elders Ahab and Zedekiah committed adultery with the wives of their fellow citizens. Therefore, Daniel rightly called one an 'old relic of wicked days'[16] and of the other he said, 'Thus you did to the daughters of Israel, and out of fear they consorted with you; but a daughter of Judah would not tolerate your wickedness.'[17] Perhaps deceit and fear had a power over these women to make them offer their bodies to those who called themselves elders.[18]

Origen here performs an intertextual reading of Susanna, *Jeremiah* 29, and rabbinic legends about Zedekiah and Ahab that shapes and expands our understanding of these wicked elders. They have become multi-layered characters, with an even seedier past than the story of Susanna suggests.

The next layer that Origen adds to these traditions about the wicked elders is, to me, the most fascinating. He aligns the lustful elders in the story of Susanna with his Jewish contemporaries – with the elders of his own day – and charges the latter with concealing this sacred, albeit embarrassing, story from their people. How does Origen accomplish this more complex reading? First, he accuses his Jewish contemporaries of hiding 'from the knowledge of the people as many of the passages which contained any accusation against the elders, rulers, and judges, as they could.'[19] Instead of being included in scripture, these stories were passed down as apocryphal legends, and, hence, they ceased to carry the authoritative status of a biblical text. Second, Origen accuses Jewish interpreters of his own day of expurgating scriptural passages in order to portray their predecessors in a more favorable light. For example, he claims that Jewish elders have hidden the story of the martyrdom of Isaiah, relegating it to apocryphal status, because it accuses Jews of killing a prophet.[20] According to Origen, the Jews also corrupted this story of martyrdom by adding

[16] *Sus.* 52.

[17] *Sus.* 57; See S. Cohen, [1996], 213, for the contrast between 'Israel' and 'Judah.'

[18] *Ep. Afr.* 12 (SC 302, 540-2).

[19] *Ep. Afr.* 13 (SC 302, 542).

[20] Note that in *Ep. Afr.* 13 Origen refers to *Heb.* 11:37 and *Matth.* 23 for 'confirmation' that the Jews killed their prophets. The charge of Jewish sexual immorality is often accompanied by charges of Christ-killing and prophet-killing. See Pier Cesare Bori, *The Golden Calf and the Origins of the Anti-Jewish Controversy*, translated by David Ward (Atlanta, 1990).

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illegitimate words and phrases: 'purposefully reckless,' they 'interpolat[ed] phrases and words that were ill-fitting in order to discredit the whole.'[21]

Third, and finally, Origen collapses the difference between the sexually corruptive elders in the Susanna story and the textually corruptive elders of his own day. He writes:

Διὸ οὐδὲν οἶμαι ἄλλο οἰκονομεῖσθαι ἢ τοὺς νομιζουμένους σοφοὺς καὶ ἄρχοντας καὶ πρεσβυτέρους τοῦ λαοῦ ὑπεξελεῖν τὰ τοιαῦτα, ὅσα περιεῖχεν αὐτῶν κατηγορίαν παρὰ τῷ λαῷ. Οὐδὲν οὖν θαυμαστόν, εἰ καὶ ἀληθῆ τυγχάνουσαν τὴν περὶ Σουσάνναν ἐπιβουλευθεῖσαν ὑπὸ ἀκολάστων πρεσβυτέρων ἱστορίαν οἱ μὴ μακρὰν τυγχάνοντες τῆς προαιρέσεως τῶν πρεσβυτέρων ἐκείνων ἐξέκλεψαν, καὶ ὑφεῖλον ἀπὸ τῶν γραφῶν.

Therefore I know of no other explanation but that those who bear the titles of sages, leaders, and elders of the people excised all the texts that might discredit them among the people. Therefore it is no wonder if this story about the licentious elders plotting against Susanna is true, but was concealed and removed from the scriptures by those whose purpose is not far removed from that of the elders.[22]

Here, Origen suggests that the Jewish elders of his own time are no different from the elders who wickedly solicited Susanna. He claims that the deceptive interpretive practices of his Jewish contemporaries attest to the authenticity and historicity of Susanna. These deceptive interpretive practices include interpolating, editing, expurgating, and hiding the text. Origen thus links the duplicitous and corruptive textual practices of Jewish exegetes with the illicit, predatory sexuality of the elders in the story. He concludes:

Καὶ οἶμαι δὲ ἀποδεδειχέναι ἐν τοῖς προκειμένοις ὅτι οὐδὲν ἄτοπόν ἐστι γεγονέναι μὲν τὴν ἱστορίαν, καὶ τὴν μετὰ πολλῆς ἀκολασίας ὠμότητα τετολμῆσθαι τοῖς τότε πρεσβυτέροις κατὰ τῆς Σουσάννας, καὶ γεγράφθαι μὲν προνοίᾳ τοῦ πνεύματος, ὑπεξαιρεῖσθαι δέ, ὡς ἂν εἴποι τὸ πνεῦμα, ὑπὸ τῶν ἀρχόντων Σοδόμων.

I think I have demonstrated that it is not absurd to say that the story [of Susanna and the Elders] took place, and that the elders of that time dared to commit against Susanna that act of licentious cruelty, and that it was written down by the providence of the Spirit, but it was excised, as the Spirit said, by 'the rulers of Sodom'.[23]

It is curious that in these passages Origen offers two paradoxical images of Jewish sages. On the one hand, he presents his Jewish informants as erudite

[21] *Ep. Afr.* 13 (SC 302, 544).

[22] *Ep. Afr.* 14 (SC 302, 546-8).

[23] Origen, *Ep. Afr.* 15 (SC 302, 550), quoting *Isaiah* 1:10. *Isaiah* 1 includes an indictment of Israel for religious infidelity; it is thus a fitting passage for Origen to cite in his condemnation of Jewish exegetes: 'Hear the word of the Lord, you rulers of Sodom! Listen to the teaching of our God, you people of Gomorrah! What to me is the multitude of your sacrifices? Says the Lord' (*Is.* 1:10-1a). Note that elsewhere Origen does not understand 'Sodom' as signifying a site of sexual sins; rather, for him, Sodom is destroyed on account of its lack of hospitality. See Origen, *Hom. Gen.* 5.1 in Louis Doutreleau (ed.), *Origène: Homélies sur la Gènese*, SC 7 (Paris, 1976), 164-7.

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and trustworthy, conveyors of important information and traditions that Origen puts to good use in his argument for an original Hebrew version of 'Susanna and the Elders'. On the other hand, he claims that Jewish sages are deceptive, hiding from the people any scriptural accounts that might discredit their authority. Andrew Jacobs helpfully suggests that Origen's repeated references to his Jewish informants not only shore up his claims to understand Jewish texts and Jewish biblical interpretation but also establish legitimacy for his own Christian interpretations of Jewish texts. Jacobs writes:

> Throughout his many exegetical projects Origen refers to 'local' Palestinian Jewish life and society, continually promoting his own firsthand knowledge of Jewish language and interpretation. The knowledge of local Jews even helped Origen produce a more 'authentic' biblical text on which to base his often astonishing biblical exegesis. At the same time that Origen complained that Jewish understanding of the Bible was too 'fleshly' – that is, too focused on the literal, nonspiritual interpretation of the text – he relied on their philological and geographical expertise in his own interpretive efforts to produce a thoroughly spiritualized interpretation of the Old and New Testaments.[24]

By accusing Jewish sages of expurgating, hiding, interpolating, and misinterpreting biblical texts, Origen attempts to establish primacy for his Christian mode of interpretation. In this way, he simultaneously legitimizes his own interpretation through references to Jewish knowledge and delegitimizes Jewish interpretation by comparing the sages' illicit textual practices to the lascivious behavior of the elders of the past.

To summarize, I highlight the *work* that the licentious elders of the Susanna story do for Origen in his *Letter to Africanus*. The elders provide him with an opportunity both to utilize information he has gleaned from 'learned Hebrews' and to construct a sexualized image of Jewish masculinity that he can deprecate. By an intertextual reading of the elders of the Susanna story that alludes to the wicked elders Zedekiah and Ahab in the book of Jeremiah, Origen depicts Jewish elders of the past as aggressively lustful, duplicitous, and exploitive of women. These wicked elders of the past, in turn, provide him with an opportunity to chastise Jewish leaders and exegetes of his own day and implicate them in the crimes of the past – the very crimes they wished to conceal from the masses. By collapsing the difference between past and present elders, Origen expertly blurs the lines between sexual and textual corruption.

[24] Andrew Jacobs, *Remains of the Jews: The Holy Land and Christian Empire in Late Antiquity* (Stanford, 2004), 62. Nicholas De Lange describes how the idea that Origen's references to 'Hebrew' informants function as a rhetorical device goes back to Jerome: 'According to Jerome, Origen, Clement, Eusebius and others, when they want to lend authority to what they say, are in the habit of saying "*referebat mihi Hebraeu*" "*audiui ab Hebrae*" or "*Hebraeorum illa sententia est.*" This might be taken to mean that, in Jerome's opinion, the phrase was simply a rhetorical device, but the context of his [Origen's] argument, a defence of Jewish scholarship, militates against such an interpretation.' See Nicholas De Lange, *Origen and the Jews: Studies in Jewish-Christian Relations in Third-century Palestine* (Cambridge, 1976), 27.

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II. Origen reads Paul

This linkage of hermeneutics and sexuality is not new in Origen, but I submit that Origen is the first to utilize verses from Paul's letters in his sexualized representation of Jews. In this next section, I first examine how two earlier writers constructed Jews and Jewish exegetes as lustful, and then I indicate how Origen develops this sexualized construction of Jewishness through a transformative reading of Paul.[25] By exploring Origen's interpretation of Paul in his works prior to the *Letter to Africanus*, we can better understand what is at stake in the images of Jewishness in the *Letter to Africanus*, a work composed near the end of Origen's life.

Two brief examples from second-century literature illustrate the beginnings of Christian sexualized representation of Jews: the *Epistle of Barnabas* and Justin Martyr's *Dialogue with Trypho*. In Chapter 10 of the *Epistle of Barnabas*, the author argues that Jews have misunderstood biblical food laws on account of their misplaced commitment to fleshly desires. He writes, 'Moses received the three firm teachings about food and spoke in the Spirit, but the Jews received his words *according to the lust of the flesh* [κατ' ἐπιθυμίαν τῆς σαρκός] as if he were actually speaking about food.'[26] Christians, by contrast, live and interpret texts according to the spirit, which accords them a virtue higher than that of the Jews and enables them to achieve the correct interpretation of Mosaic laws.[27] Here, the author of *Barnabas* consigns the Jews to more literal interpretive practices than Christians and argues that the root of Jewish misinterpretation lies in their 'lust of the flesh,' a phrase that signals excessive desire for both food and sex.[28] As Judith Lieu claims, the author of *Barnabas* 'rewrites Jewishness for [his] own purposes',[29] and I would add that this rewriting aligns Jewishness with literal, fleshly interpretation, on the one hand, and Christianness with spiritual interpretation, on the other.

[25] John McGuckin notes that Origen frequently quotes and develops Paul's anti-Jewish statements while downplaying Paul's more laudatory statements about Jews: 'Origen has clearly been ready to alter the tenor of Paul himself, his master theologian, to firm up the apologetic at those instances the Apostle might be seen to have given too much away because of his love and respect for Judaism.... Indeed, the personal reshaping by Origen of the Pauline Jewish apologetic suggests someone whose dialogue with the Jewish tradition in Caesarea had been neither successful nor particularly happy.' See J. McGuckin, Origen on the Jews, in: Diana Wood (ed.), *Christianity and Judaism: Papers Read at the 1991 Summer Meeting and the 1992 Winter Meeting of the Ecclesiastical History Society* (Oxford, 1992), 1-13, 12f.

[26] *Barn.* 10.9. Robert A. Kraft and Pierre Prigent (eds.), *Epître de Barnabé*, SC 172 (Paris, 1971), 156.

[27] *Barn.* 10 and 19.4 (SC 172, 148-58, 198-200).

[28] For an account of the association of desire for food and sexual desire in antiquity, see Teresa Shaw, *The Burden of the Flesh: Fasting and Sexuality in Early Christianity* (Minneapolis, 1998).

[29] Judith Lieu, *Christian Identity in the Jewish and Graeco-Roman World* (Oxford, 2004), 291.

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Similarly, in the *Dialogue with Trypho*, Justin Martyr argues that Jewish leaders of his day, due to their lust for women, misinterpret scriptural passages about Jacob's multiple marriages. Instead of reading Jacob's marriages as prototypes for the work of Christ and the church, (the proper Christian interpretation), Jews utilize the scripture to justify the satisfaction of their sexual desires. Addressing Trypho and his friends, Justin writes,

> It would be better for you to obey God rather than your stupid, blind teachers, who even now permit each of you to have four or five wives; and if any of you see a beautiful woman and desire to have her, they cite the actions of Jacob... and the other patriarchs to prove there is no evil in such practices. How wretched and ignorant they are even in this respect.[30]

In this passage, Justin simultaneously constructs and rejects a Jewish interpretation of Jacob's marriages. His argument depends upon a tautology, one that is first developed in Barnabas and continued in Origen: Jewish misunderstanding of scripture is rooted in Jewish lust; simultaneously Jewish lust is rooted in and authorized by Jewish (mis)understanding of scripture. Sexuality and textuality are linked. For Justin, *Barnabas,* and Origen, the way out of both dilemmas – sexual desire *and* heterodox hermeneutics – lies in utilizing Christ as the necessary interpretive lens with which to read the Hebrew scriptures.[31] Whether or not Justin or the author of *Barnabas* knew Paul's letters, neither utilizes Paul's work in his differentiation of Jewish and Christian identity. Judith Lieu notes that in the period '[b]eyond Justin, the Jews will increasingly become the means against which, and therefore the means by which, the faithful behavior of and the proper interpretation of the Scriptures by the Christians can be defined.'[32]

Origen aggressively takes up the task suggested by Lieu by presenting Jewish behavior and interpretation as foils against which Christian behavior and interpretation are defined. Unlike Justin and the author of *Barnabas*, however, Origen presents his dyadic structuring of Jewish and Christian identity in language borrowed from Paul. We can trace Origen's construction of Jewish reading practices by examining how he engages Paul in *On First Principles* and the *Commentary on Romans.* Such an examination illuminates the strategies that Origen employs in his sexualized representation of Jews in the *Letter to Africanus.*

[30] Justin, *Dial.* 134.1. Philippe Bobichon (ed.), *Justin Martyr. Dialogue avec le Tryphon: édition critique* (Fribourg, 2003).

[31] See Origen, *De princ.* IV 1.6; Henri Crouzel and Manlio Simonetti (eds.), *Origène: Traité des Principes*, SC 268 (Paris, 1980), 280-2: 'And we must add that it was after the advent of Jesus that the inspiration of the prophetic words and the spiritual nature of Moses' law came to light. For before the advent of Christ it was not at all possible to bring forward clear proofs of the divine inspiration of the old scriptures.'

[32] J. Lieu, *Christian Identity* (2004), 292.

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In *On First Principles*, Origen redeploys Paul's phrase in 1*Cor.* 10:18 ('Behold Israel according to the flesh') as his 'hermeneutical key to the reading of scripture'.[33] In fact, Origen adds a corresponding phrase that is not present in Paul's letters – 'Israel according to the spirit' – in order to highlight the opposition between Jews and Christians.[34] Origen here contends that 'Israel after the flesh' represents Jews, who embrace a literalist hermeneutic[35] and attend solely to the bodily meaning of the text.[36] 'Israel according to the spirit', by contrast, represents followers of Christ, who recognize that 'the whole of divine scripture... has a spiritual meaning' that 'raises apprehension to a high level'.[37] In Origen's works, oppositions such as Jew/Christian and flesh/spirit come to stand for other Pauline dyadic pairs, including 'outward' and 'inward' Jews (*Rom.* 2:28-9) and 'letter' and 'spirit' (2*Cor.* 3:6).[38] Thus, already by 229, when Origen composes *On First Principles*, phrases such as 'Israel according to the flesh' (1*Cor.* 10:18) and the 'the letter that kills' (2*Cor.* 3:6) function as signifiers for 'the Jews' and their corresponding reading practices.

In his *Commentary on the Epistle to the Romans*, Origen further develops this theme of Jewish 'fleshliness' by linking it with accusations of Jewish *porneia*. Commenting on *Rom.* 2:22 ('You who forbid adultery, do you commit adultery?'), Origen creates an analogy between Jewish hermeneutics and Jewish sexual practices. Addressing Jewish exegetes, he writes:

Qui dicis non moechandum, in synagogam populi Dei adulterium committis, sermonem doctrinae pravum et adulterinum ei superducens, et collocas eam cum legis littera, quae foris est.... Qui ergo negas moechandum, tam grave adulterium committis, ut adulterinum sensum introducas ad eam.

'You who forbid adultery commit adultery' in the synagogue of the people of God by introducing a corrupt and adulterous word of doctrine to it; and you join that doctrine

[33] Ruth Clements, (Re)Constructing Paul: Origen's Readings of Romans in *Peri Archon*: *SBLSP* 40 (Atlanta, 2001), 151-74, 164. She writes, 'Origen's deployment of 1*Cor* 10:18 as the hermeneutical key to the reading of scripture is a unique exegetical move in relation to both his predecessors and immediate contemporaries; however, the opposition between "Israel according to the flesh" and "Israel according to the spirit," drawn somewhat tentatively in *Peri Archon*, becomes a taken-for-granted assumption in Origen's later exegetical writings' (164).

[34] *De princ.* IV 3.6 (SC 268, 366).

[35] Indeed for Origen, the literalist hermeneutic of the Jews is what keeps them from believing in Christ: 'For the hard-hearted and ignorant members of the circumcision have refused to believe in our Savior because they think that they are keeping closely to the language of the prophecies that relate to him.' *De princ.* IV 2.1 (SC 268, 292-4).

[36] *De princ.* IV 3.5-6 (SC 268, 362-4).

[37] *De princ.* IV 3.5-6 (SC 268, 362-4).

[38] Ruth Clements writes that Origen's 'revolutionary reading of 1*Cor* 10:18 emerges from the way Origen has read across the Pauline corpus. Because he brings together diverse texts which pose differently nuanced oppositions – flesh/ spirit, letter/ spirit, shadow/ heavenly things, above/ below, life/ death, "outward"/ "inward" Jews, circumcision of the flesh/ circumcision of the heart, within the law/ without the law, slavery/ freedom – all these oppositions come to stand for one another' (164f.).

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to the letter of the law, which is outward.... You therefore who forbid adultery, you commit such a grave adultery that you introduce an adulterous understanding to it.[39]

Here, Origen understands the word 'adultery' as referring to Jewish deviance not only in sexual matters but also in textual matters, and he plays on the double meaning. Considered in this way, adultery is imagined not only as something Jews do with their bodies but also as something they do with their sacred texts. For Origen, Jewish understanding is an 'adulterous understanding'; it entails false additions and literalist readings.

In *On First Principles* and his *Commentary on Romans*, Origen reworks certain 'Pauline building blocks'[40] to construct Jews as sexually and textually corruptive. Such a transformative reading of Paul sets the stage for his comparison of Jewish elders of his own day with the licentious elders of the Susanna story. Jewish exegetes are thus, on Origen's model, guilty of 'adulterating' scripture (being 'unfaithful' to the word of God) on the basis of their literalist interpretation, excision, interpolation, expurgation, and suppression of problematic texts. For Origen, such fraudulent treatment of sacred texts also produces a 'lax' morality in regard to sexuality and marriage. By the time of his correspondence with Africanus, Origen has already developed this hermeneutic practice that privileges the interpretation of 'Israel according to the Spirit' over 'Israel according to the flesh'. Indeed, in the *Letter to Africanus*, Origen consistently reads the Jewish exegete as a male aggressor, a corruptor of texts and women alike.

III. Constructing the Christian interpreter: Origen's First *Homily on Leviticus*

As we have seen in his correspondence with Africanus, Origen employs the story of Susanna to produce difference between Jewish and Christian behavior and hermeneutic practice. In his first *Homily on Leviticus*, delivered in the early 240s, he again turns to the Susanna story to distinguish between proper and improper readings of scripture. In this homily, Origen configures the text as a body,[41] all the while drawing upon Incarnational themes in which the Word of God becomes 'clothed in the flesh of Mary'.[42] As the 'veil of the flesh' covered the human body of Christ, so too, he writes, the 'veil of the letter' clothes the

[39] Origen, *Comm. Rom.* II 11.5-6; Theresia Heither (ed.), *Origenes Römerbriefkommentar*, Fontes Christiani 2 (Freiburg, 1990), 242. The verb *superduco*, literally means 'to bring home as successor to a former wife'.

[40] R. Clements, (Re)Constructing Paul (2001), 152.

[41] For more on how Origen imagines sacred text as a body, see Patricia Cox Miller, 'Pleasure of the Text, Text of Pleasure': Eros and Language in Origen's *Commentary on the Song of Songs*: *JAAR* 54 (1986) 241-53.

[42] Origen, *Hom. Lev.* 1.1; Marcel Borret, (ed.), *Origène: Homélies sur le Lévitique*, SC 286 (Paris, 1981), 66.

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Word of God: '[T]he letter is seen as flesh but the spiritual sense hiding within it is perceived as divinity.'[43]

With this introduction to allegorical exegesis in his *Homily on Leviticus*, Origen proceeds to offer a reading of the Levitical laws, attending to their literal and spiritual interpretations. Here is his vision of the Christian exegete who penetrates to the deeper, hidden meaning of the text. Origen writes:

Ego puto quod ille sacerdos detrahit corium vituli oblati in holocaustum et deducit pellem, qua membra eius conteguntur, qui de verbo Dei abstrahit velamen litterae et interna eius, quae sunt spiritalis intelligentiae membra.

I myself think that the priest who removes the hide 'of the calf' offered as 'a whole burnt offering' and pulls away the skin with which its members are covered is the one who removes the veil of the letter from the word of God and uncovers its interior parts which are members of spiritual intelligence.[44]

The Christian exegete, or priest in this case, does more than unveil a hidden meaning; he flays the beast. Sacred text is imagined here as a sacrificial calf whose skin is drawn back to reveal the arteries and veins of a 'spiritual intelligence'. For Origen, this represents the *proper* way to handle the text of *Leviticus*, whose literal meaning belies a deeper, spiritual one.

To describe the *improper*, Jewish way of reading the Levitical laws, Origen turns to the story of Susanna and the Elders. Here, his complaint is lodged against Jewish interpreters who insist upon the literal sense of scripture:

Hoc enim agunt, qui deservire nos historiae et servare legis litteram cogunt. Sed tempus est nos adversum improbos presbyteros uti sanctae Susannae vocibus, quas illi quidem repudiantes historiam Susannae de catalogo divinorum voluminum desecarunt, nos autem et suscipimus et opportune contra ipsos proferimus dicentes: Angustiae mihi undique. Si enim consensero vobis, ut legis litteram sequar, mors mihi erit; si autem non consensero, non effugiam manus vestra. Sed melius est me nullo gestu incidere in manus vestras quam peccare in conspectu Domini.

For they do this who force us to be subject to the historical sense and to keep to the letter of the law. But it is time for us to use the words of the holy Susanna against these shameless elders, which indeed those who repudiate the story of Susanna excise from the list of divine books. But we both accept it and aptly use it against them when it says: 'Everywhere there is distress for me.' For if I shall consent to you to follow the letter of the law, 'it will mean death for me'; but if I will not consent, 'I will not escape from your hands. But it is better for me to fall into your hands without resistance than to sin in the sight of the Lord.'[45]

Many things are happening in this passage in which Origen cites from the story of Susanna, and it is worth looking 'under the veil' to discover how our cast of characters – Susanna and the elders – functions in this context.

[43] *Hom. Lev.* 1.1 (SC 286, 66).
[44] *Hom. Lev.* 1.4 (SC 286, 78-80).
[45] *Hom. Lev.* 1.1 (SC 286, 68).

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The passage that Origen quotes is from *Susanna* 22-3. It is the part of the story in which the elders have just surprised the innocent bather and told her that she could either submit to their wishes, or they would testify against her and accuse her of adultery with another young man.[46] Finding herself in a perilous bind, Susanna groans and says, 'I am hemmed in on every side. For if I do this, it will mean death for me; if I do not, I cannot escape your hands. I choose not to do it; I will fall into your hands, rather than sin in the sight of the Lord.'[47]

Origen likens this perilous bind of Susanna to that of the Christian exegete. Like Susanna, the spiritual Christian exegete is offered only two negative choices: either he submits to the Jews and follows the literal sense of the law, or he follows the spirit of the law and is persecuted by Jews on account of it. Origen suggests that Christians, like Susanna, should make the latter choice. He writes, 'Therefore, let us fall, if it is necessary, into your (the Jews') detractions so long as the Church, which has already turned to Christ the Lord, may know the truth of the Word which is completely covered under the veil of the letter.'[48] Here, Origen imagines the Christian exegete as a woman – and a Jewish woman, at that – who is afflicted by the Jews, represented by the licentious elders of the story.

Moreover, by comparing the 'perilous bind' of Susanna to that of the Christian exegete, Origen Christianizes Susanna. He has precedents for this in Clement of Alexandria's *Stromateis* and Hippolytus' commentary on the story of Susanna. Clement Christianizes Susanna by describing her as the 'unwavering martyr of chastity'.[49] Similarly, Hippolytus likens this chaste Jewish matron to the Church, and he claims that the two elders represent the Jews and 'pagans' who 'plot against the Church'.[50] Like Hippolytus, Origen portrays his theological opponents as predatory forces that threaten the integrity of the church.

In the *Letter to Africanus* and the first *Homily on Leviticus*, Origen asserts that the story of Susanna fittingly illustrates the predicament of the Christian exegete. Like Susanna, the Christian exegete is chaste, faithful, and imperiled, the lamb to the Jewish lion.[51] By positioning Christian identity and Christian exegesis as akin to a vulnerable, persecuted, yet chaste woman, Origen participates in the 'common discourse' of 'powerlessness and suffering' that characterized

[46] *Sus.* 19-21.

[47] *Sus.* 22-3.

[48] *Hom. Lev.* 1.1 (SC 286, 70).

[49] Clement, *Strom.* IV 19; Annewies Van Den Hoek and Claude Mondésert (eds.), *Les Stromates*, SC 463 (Paris, 2001), 254.

[50] Hipploytus, *Comm. Dan.* I 22; Georg Nathanael Bonwetsch (ed.), *Hippolyt Werke: Kommentar Zu Daniel*, GSC 7 (Berlin, 2000), 50.

[51] For an analysis of lion and lamb imagery in early Christian texts, see Andrew Jacobs, The Lion and the Lamb: Reconsidering Jewish-Christian Relations in Antiquity, in: Adam Becker and Annette Yoshiko Reed (eds.), *The Ways that Never Parted: Jews and Christians in Late Antiquity and the early Middle Ages* (Tübingen, 2003), 95-118.

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much Christian writing of the time.[52] As in Christian martyr acts, Origen's text redeploys the discourse of suffering to define Christian subjectivity and produce Jewish-Christian difference. For Christians, vulnerability is transformed into triumph.[53] This discourse of suffering and vulnerability intersected in various ways with the reconfiguration of gender in the third and fourth centuries, and it is to an examination of these junctures of gender and religious self-definition that I now turn.

IV. Mapping gender; mapping difference

Recently, Daniel Boyarin and Virginia Burrus have traced the 'reimagination of manhood' in the later Roman empire by examining texts ranging from second-century martyr acts to late-fourth-century Trinitarian treatises.[54] They have shown how definitions and performances of masculinity shifted as 'ideal male identity' became 'secured in part via cross-gender identification with female virgins'.[55] I suggest that we plot Origen's *Letter to Africanus* on this shifting landscape by indicating how he identifies the plight of the Christian exegete with that of Susanna. In particular, I suggest that Origen's reading of the Susanna story illuminates the ways in which the mapping of gender intersected with the mapping of Jewish-Christian difference in the third century.

The terrain of gender definition shifted between the second and fourth centuries, so that by the late fourth century, in Virginia Burrus' words, idealized 'masculinity incorporated characteristics or stances traditionally marked as "feminine"',[56] whereas, in the second-century, the female martyr is measured, in part, by her ability to perform as a man.[57] In the second and third centuries, a courageous and virile masculinity signifies spiritual strength in female martyrs (Thecla and Perpetua are examples). Yet, by the fourth century, a shift in the mapping of gender has occurred, and 'a much more complex structure of gender' develops in which idealized manhood is produced in part by feminized performances of passivity, virginity, and retreat.[58] As Virginia Burrus indicates: 'Empire had reshaped the city into a stage for agonistic performances of a

[52] A. Jacobs, *Remains of the Jews* (2004), 66 and 66 n. 41. See also *id.*, The Lion (2003), 109; and Judith Perkins, *The Suffering Self: Pain and Narrative Representation in the Early Christian Era* (London, 1995).

[53] Daniel Boyarin, *Dying for God: Martyrdom and the Making of Christianity and Judaism* (Stanford, 1999).

[54] D. Boyarin, *Dying for God* (1999), 67-92; and Virginia Burrus, *'Begotten Not Made': Conceiving Manhood in Late Antiquity* (Stanford, 2000), 7.

[55] D. Boyarin, *Dying for God* (1999), 69.

[56] V. Burrus, *'Begotten Not Made'* (2000), 5.

[57] See, for example, the accounts of Thecla, Perpetua and Felicitas.

[58] D. Boyarin, *Dying for God* (1999), 75.

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multifaceted manhood distinguished by its power to turn vulnerability – frequently figured as a capacity for feminization – to advantage.'[59]

I suggest that we can plot Origen's feminization of Christian exegetes as well as his hyper-masculinization of Jewish exegetes on this trajectory of gender reconfiguration. In his *Letter to Africanus* and first *Homily on Leviticus*, Origen imagines the Christian exegete not as a female virgin, but as a chaste Jewish matron, who is threatened on all sides by the detractions of those who possess more power than she does. In Origen's texts, this comparison of the Christian exegete to Susanna is imbricated with his definition of Christian exegesis: Allegorical practice, which stakes the Christian claim to the spiritual meaning of the text, is linked to a restrained and renounced sexuality. The literal and duplicitous exegesis of the Jews, by contrast, is associated with hyper-masculinity and excessive lust, represented here by the elders in the story. Here, Origen's idealized Christian man adopts the posture of the chaste female while the role of the virile and domineering man is consigned to Jews.

Origen produces Jewish-Christian difference by recourse to the more entrenched and 'naturalized' difference between male and female, and in so doing he constructs the relationship of Jews to Christians as one fraught with overtones of sexual domination and violence. His reading of the Susanna story redeploys ancient notions of a 'violent and invasive' male sexuality[60] in order to portray Christians as victims of Jewish power. Considered in this way, Origen's sexualized representation of Jewish-Christian relations pits Christians, the 'paradigmatic sufferers,' against Jews, their aggressive and leonine oppressors.[61] In his complex reading of the Susanna story, Origen offers a discourse of alterity that utilizes accusations of carnality and illicit sexuality to define religious Others. His reading of Susanna thus illuminates some of the ways in which sexualized representation functions in the production of anti-Jewish ideology and early Christian self-definition.

[59] V. Burrus, *'Begotten Not Made'* (2000), 21.

[60] Gillian Clark writes that 'Christians inherited a discourse of sexuality as invasive and violent'. See her 'Bodies and Blood: Late Antique Debate on Martyrdom, Virginity and Resurrection,' in: Dominic Montserrat (ed.), *Changing Bodies, Changing Meanings: Studies on the Human Body in Antiquity* (London, 1998), 99-115, 107. See also Maud Gleason, *Making Men: Sophists and Self-Presentation in Ancient Rome* (Princeton, 1995).

[61] A. Jacobs, The Lion (2003), 109.

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La oración continua en el tratado Περὶ Εὐχῆς de Orígenes

Manuel BELDA, Roma

En esta comunicación expongo la doctrina de Orígenes sobre la oración continua en el Περὶ Εὐχῆς, analizando siete textos esparcidos a lo largo del tratado, donde se habla del argumento. En mi estudio sigo el orden de aparición de los textos.

1. Importancia y necesidad de la oración continua

Cuando Orígenes aborda por vez primera este tema en el Περὶ Εὐχῆς, lo hace para mostrar su importancia y necesidad. Hablando de la necesaria preparación del espíritu para la oración, afirma que conviene ponerse en presencia de Dios, porque aunque no obtuviésemos nada durante el tiempo de la oración, sólo el hecho de mantener dicha actitud piadosa ya constituye un fruto de la oración. A continuación, Orígenes señala otros frutos de la oración ininterrumpida: Τοῦτο δὲ γινόμενον πολλάκις ὅσων ἀφίστησιν ἁμαρτημάτων καὶ ἐφ' ὅσα φέρει τῶν κατορθωμάτων, ἴσασι τῇ πείρᾳ οἱ συνεχέστερον τῷ εὔχεσθαι ἑαυτοὺς ἐπιδεδωκότες ('Cuando esto se repite con frecuencia, de cuántos pecados nos libra y a cuántas obras buenas conduce, lo saben por experiencia los que se dedican constantemente a la oración').[1]

En otro texto sobre la oración continua, Orígenes enseña que el cristiano ha de participar en la oración del Verbo de Dios, quien ora a su Padre como mediador y abogado nuestro. El Hijo de Dios, afirma Orígenes, reza por los que rezan e intercede por quienes interceden, y añade a continuación:

Οὐκ ἂν ὡς ὑπὲρ οἰκείων εὐξόμενος τῶν μὴ δι' αὐτοῦ συνεχέστερον εὐχομένων οὐδ' ἂν ὡς ὑπὲρ ἤδη ἰδίων "παράκλητος" ἐσόμενος πρὸς τὸν θεὸν τῶν μὴ πειθομένων ταῖς εἰς "τὸ δεῖν πάντοτε προσεύχεσθαι καὶ μὴ ἐκκακεῖν" διδασκαλίαις. "Ἔλεγε γάρ," φησί, "παραβολὴν πρὸς τὸ δεῖν πάντοτε προσεύχεσθαι καὶ μὴ ἐκκακεῖν· κριτής τις ἦν ἔν τινι πόλει ..." ('Él no intercederá, como por sus familiares, por quienes no ruegan constantemente a través de Él, ni defenderá delante de Dios como algo proprio a los que no obedezcan su enseñanza de que es necesario orar siempre sin desfallecer. Pues según nos refiere San Lucas: "Les dijo una parábola para mostrar que es preciso orar en todo momento y no desfallecer: había en una ciudad un juez ...": *Lc.* 18:1').[2]

[1] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 8.2; ed. Paul Koetschau, *Origenes Werke*, vol. 1, en *Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller*, vol. 3 (Leipzig, 1899), 317 (en lo sucesivo: GCS 3).

[2] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 10.2 (GCS 3, 320).

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A mi juicio, Orígenes no niega aquí la mediación universal de Jesucristo, porque no dice que el Señor intercederá por unos sí y por otros no, sino más bien indica que intercederá de un modo especial, 'como por sus familiares', por aquellos que rezan continuamente, y abogará por ellos ante el Padre como por 'algo propio'. En definitiva, pienso que aquí Orígenes intenta simplemente subrayar la importancia y la necesidad de rezar constantemente para alcanzar la familiaridad con Jesucristo, basándose en un texto evangélico donde la oración continua aparece como un mandato del mismo Jesús.

En el capítulo doce aparece nuevamente la oración continua:

Πρὸς δὲ τούτοις δυνάμεως πεπληρωμένους νομίζω τοὺς λόγους τῆς τῶν ἁγίων εὐχῆς, μάλιστα ὅτε προσευχόμενοι "πνεύματι" προσεύχονται "καὶ τῷ νοΐ," φωτὶ ἐοικότι ἀνατέλλοντι ἀπὸ τῆς τοῦ εὐχομένου διανοίας καὶ προϊόντι ἐκ στόματος αὐτοῦ ὑπεκλύειν δυνάμει θεοῦ τὸν ἐνιέμενον νοητὸν ἰὸν ἀπὸ τῶν ἀντικειμένων δυνάμεων τῷ ἡγεμονικῷ τῶν ἀμελούντων τοῦ εὔχεσθαι καὶ τὸ "ἀδιαλείπτως προσεύχεσθε" ἀκολούθως ταῖς τοῦ Ἰησοῦ προτροπαῖς εἰρημένον παρὰ τῷ Παύλῳ μὴ φυλαττόντων. ('Pienso que en las palabras mismas de la oración practicada por los santos, y más cuando al orar lo hacen con todo su espíritu y con toda su mente, se encierra una eficacia divina que, arrancando del pensamiento del que ora como si fuera una luz y emitida por su boca, apaga el veneno espiritual que las potestades adversas inoculan en las almas de los que descuidan la práctica de la oración y no observan lo que Pablo dice acomodándose a la exhortación de Cristo: "Orad sin cesar": 1*Ts.* 5:17').[3]

Orígenes está hablando aquí de la eficacia de la oración del santo,[4] y dice que esta oración es eficaz para vencer a los espíritus enemigos de Dios. Más que detenerse en el sujeto de la oración, lo que le interesa ahora es destacar la importancia y la necesidad de la oración continua, pues afirma que quien descuida la oración continua está a merced de los enemigos de Dios, de los demonios, que están siempre intentando que los cristianos pierdan la gracia divina.

2. Cómo se puede rezar continuamente

Orígenes piensa que si el Señor nos ha mandado rezar continuamente, debe ser posible hacerlo, por lo que no se limita a señalar la importancia y necesidad de la oración continua, sino que busca además el modo de llevarla a la práctica. Este modo es así expuesto por el alejandrino:

"Ἀδιαλείπτως" δὲ προσεύχεται, καὶ τῶν ἔργων τῆς ἀρετῆς ἢ τῶν ἐντολῶν τῶν ἐπιτελουμένων εἰς εὐχῆς ἀναλαμβανομένων μέρος, ὁ συνάπτων τοῖς δέουσιν ἔργοις τὴν εὐχὴν καὶ τῇ εὐχῇ τὰς πρεπούσας πράξεις. οὕτω γὰρ μόνως τὸ

[3] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 12.1 (GCS 3, 324).

[4] Orígenes llama habitualmente «justo» o «santo» al orante: cf. Lorenzo Perrone, Le dinamiche dell'atto orante secondo Origene: la preghiera come ascesa, colloquio e conoscenza di Dio, en: Luigi Franco Pizzolato y Marco Rizzi (eds.), *Origene, maestro di vita spirituale* (Milano, 2001), 131.

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"ἀδιαλείπτως προσεύχεσθε" ἐκδέξασθαι δυνάμεθα ὡς δυνατὸν ὂν εἰρημένον, εἰ πάντα τὸν βίον τοῦ ἁγίου μίαν συναπτομένην μεγάλην εἴποιμεν εὐχήν: ἧς εὐχῆς μέρος ἐστὶ καὶ ἡ συνήθως ὀνομαζομένη εὐχή, οὐκ ἔλαττον τοῦ τρὶς ἑκάστης ἡμέρας ἐπιτελεῖσθαι ὀφείλουσα ... ('Como los actos de virtud y el cumplimiento de los preceptos forman parte de la oración, resulta que ora sin cesar el que a las obras preceptuadas une la oración y a la oración une las obras convenientes; únicamente así podemos considerar como realizable el precepto de "orad si cesar", es decir, si podemos decir que la vida del santo es una sola gran oración continuada, de tal forma que lo que solemos denominar oración no es más que una parte de ella, que no debe hacerse menos de tres veces al día').[5]

Aquí, 'Orígenes entiende el mandamiento de orar sin cesar como la integración de las obras en la oración: el que une la oración a las obras, hace de su vida *una sola gran oración*'.[6] Así pues, Orígenes concibe la entera existencia del santo como una gran oración continuada, al afirmar que tanto el cumplimiento de los preceptos, como el de cualquier otra obra virtuosa, equivale a la oración. Resulta claro que para él toda obra buena del santo constituye una verdadera oración, y no un sustitutivo de ésta: 'Si se quisiera deducir de esto [el texto de Περὶ Εὐχῆς 12.2] que la acción moral es un sucedáneo de la oración, se habría malentendido todo el tratado origeniano de la oración'.[7]

Es muy probable que Orígenes se haya inspirado aquí en la enseñanza de Clemente Alejandrino sobre la oración continua, por ejemplo, en el texto siguiente: 'Él [se refiere al verdadero gnóstico o cristiano perfecto] rezará en todo lugar, pero sin ostentación y sin pavonearse ante la multitud. Ya sea en el paseo o en la conversación, en el descanso, en la lectura y en las obras rectamente cumplidas (τοῖς ἔργοις τοῖς κατὰ λόγον), él reza de todas las maneras'.[8]

3. Dios escucha siempre la oración continua

En otro texto Orígenes insiste nuevamente en la necesidad de orar sin interrupción. Para ello cita varios pasajes evangélicos, donde se muestra que Jesús se levanta para orar antes de amanecer (*cf. Mc.* 1:35), que pasa la noche en oración (*cf. Lc.* 6:12), que invoca a su Padre pidiéndole que le glorifique (*cf. Jn.* 17:1). Finaliza esta serie de citas con otra de San Juan, que el alejandrino comenta así: Καὶ τὸ "ἤδειν" δὲ "ὅτι πάντοτέ μου ἀκούεις" παρὰ τῷ αὐτῷ ἀναγεγραμμένον ὑπὸ τοῦ κυρίου εἰρημένον δηλοῖ ὅτι "πάντοτε" εὐχόμενος "πάντοτε" ἐπακούεται. ('Y aquella frase "sabía que siempre me oyes" (*Jn.* 11:42), anotada por el mismo evangelista como pronunciada por el Señor, muestra que

[5] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 12.2 (GCS 3, 324-5).

[6] Adalbert Hamman, *La oración* (Barcelona, 1967), 775.

[7] Wilhelm Gessel, *Die Theologie des Gebetes nach «De Oratione» von Origenes* (München, Paderborn, Wien, 1975), 246.

[8] *Stromateis* VII 7.49.6-7 (SC 428, 168).

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el que siempre ora, es siempre escuchado').[9] Como vemos, Orígenes garantiza la eficacia de la oración continua al poner a Jesús como modelo de ella.

4. Necesidad de la vida virtuosa para rezar incesantemente

Como ya hemos visto, Orígenes señala un límite inferior a la oración del cristiano diciendo que éste debe rezar no menos de tres veces al día.[10] En el capítulo veintidós, insiste en la misma idea, comentando la invocación inicial el Padrenuestro. Después de haber estudiado el título de «Padre» en el Antiguo Testamento, y el espíritu de adopción de hijos en el Nuevo, escribe: Μὴ λέξεις τοίνυν νομίσωμεν διδάσκεσθαι λέγειν ἡμᾶς ἔν τινι ἀποτεταγμένῳ τοῦ εὔχεσθαι καιρῷ: ἀλλ' εἰ συνίεμεν τῶν ἡμῖν προεξετασθέντων εἰς τὸ "ἀδιαλείπτως" προσεύχεσθαι, πᾶς ἡμῶν ὁ βίος "ἀδιαλείπτως" προσευχομένων λεγέτω τό: "πάτερ ἡμῶν ὁ ἐν τοῖς οὐρανοῖς ..." ('No pensemos que hemos aprendido solamente a recitar unas palabras en determinados momentos destinados a la oración, sino que, entendiendo lo que arriba dijimos con respecto al "orad sin cesar", comprenderemos que toda nuestra vida, orando sin cesar deberá decir *Padre nuestro que estás en los cielos*').[11]

Orígenes no enseña aquí que se haya de estar siempre rezando vocalmente con la invocación inicial del Padrenuestro. En este lugar su planteamiento es el mismo que el del capítulo doce, esto es, que toda la vida del santo constituye una oración incesante. Esto se deduce del contexto anterior, donde el alejandrino explica que todo el que ha nacido de Dios y no comete pecado, con sus obras está diciendo *Padre nuestro que estás en los cielos*, pues el Espíritu mismo da testimonio a su espíritu de que es hijo de Dios (*cf. Rm.* 8:16).[12] Resulta claro, entonces, que en el texto recién citado se enseña que el cristiano ha de comportarse siempre como buen hijo de Dios, para poder decir incesantemente con su vida *Padre nuestro que estás en los cielos.*[13]

5. Oración continua y progreso espiritual

En el último texto de Περὶ Εὐχῆς sobre la oración continua, Orígenes comenta la segunda petición del Padrenuestro: «Venga tu Reino». Después de explicar

[9] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 13.1 (GCS 3, 326).

[10] Vid. *supra*, nota 5.

[11] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.5 (GCS 3, 349).

[12] *Cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.3.

[13] En este sentido interpreta Hamman el texto de Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.5: '¿Qué valdría llamar Padre a Dios, si las acciones nos pusieran en contradicción con nuestra filiación? Con realismo espiritual insiste Orígenes en que las obras de los fieles, sus palabras, sus pensamientos, su perdón, digan: "Padre nuestro que estás en los cielos" (Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.3). De esta manera realizan el mandamiento de orar continuamente haciendo de "la vida entera una oración ininterrumpida" (Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.5)' (A. Hamman, *La oración*, 1967, 743).

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qué entiende él por «Reino de Dios» se plantea lo siguiente: alguien podría poner una objeción a las dos peticiones «Santificado sea tu nombre» y «Venga tu Reino», diciendo que si el que ora es escuchado, es evidente que el nombre de Dios será santificado por lo que a él respecta, y que el Reino de Dios le habrá llegado, por lo que no sería razonable que continuase pidiendo por lo que ya tiene, como si aún no lo hubiera recibido. Leemos a continuación:

Λεκτέον πρὸς ταῦτα ὅτι, ὥσπερ ὁ εὐχόμενος λόγου "γνώσεως" τυχεῖν καὶ λόγου "σοφίας" καθηκόντως ἀεὶ περὶ τούτων εὔξεται, ἀεὶ μὲν πλείονα θεωρήματα "σοφίας" καὶ "γνώσεως" ἐν τῷ ἐπακούεσθαι ληψόμενος, (...) τῇ οὖν ἐν ἡμῖν βασιλείᾳ τοῦ θεοῦ ἡ ἀκρότης ἀδιαλείπτως προκόπτουσιν ἐνστήσεται, ὅταν πληρωθῇ τὸ παρὰ τῷ ἀποστόλῳ εἰρημένον, ὅτι ὁ Χριστός, πάντων αὐτῷ τῶν ἐχθρῶν ὑποταγέντων, παραδώσει "τὴν βασιλείαν τῷ θεῷ καὶ πατρί," "ἵνα ᾖ ὁ θεὸς τὰ πάντα ἐν πᾶσι." διὰ τοῦτο "ἀδιαλείπτως" προσευχόμενοι μετὰ διαθέσεως τῷ λόγῳ θεοποιουμένης λέγωμεν τῷ ἐν οὐρανοῖς πατρὶ ἡμῶν: "ἁγιασθήτω τὸ ὄνομά σου: ἐλθέτω ἡ βασιλεία σου." ('A esto hay que responder que será razonable que quien pide en la oración obtener la palabra del conocimiento y la palabra de la sabiduría, lo siga pidiendo, pues cuando su oración es oída, seguirá recibiendo incesantemente cada vez más nociones de sabiduría y de conocimiento (...). El Reino de Dios que está en nosotros, cuando progresamos incesantemente, llegará al sumo cuando se cumpla lo que dice el Apóstol: "Que Cristo, una vez sometidos a sí todos sus enemigos, entregue a Dios Padre el Reino para que sea Dios todo en todas las cosas" (1*Cor.* 15:24.28). Por tanto, orando sin cesar con una disposición de ánimo divinizada por el Verbo, digamos a nuestro Padre que está en los cielos: *Santificado sea tu nombre, venga tu Reino*').[14]

Vemos aquí que la santificación del nombre de Dios y el permanecer en el Reino de Dios son dos realidades dinámicas, pues crecen con el progreso del conocimiento (γνῶσις) y de la sabiduría (σοφία). Pero para que este progreso sea continuo, es preciso que la oración sea incesante. Por ello hay que decir siempre: *Santificado sea tu nombre, venga tu Reino.* Escribe Gessel: 'Para Orígenes, el continuo progreso moral-religioso y la oración ininterrumpida van juntos. Para el progreso continuo y para la oración incesante usa Orígenes, ciertamente a propósito, el adjetivo ἀδιαλείπτως'.[15]

6. Epílogo

Sintetizo las ideas de Orígenes sobre la oración continua en su tratado Περὶ Εὐχῆς, reagrupando según su afinidad conceptual los textos ya analizados.

Orígenes es consciente de que la oración continua es un mandato de Jesús contenido en el Evangelio. Por ello trata de justificar su importancia y necesidad, y propone un modo de rezar continuamente. Acerca de lo primero, el

[14] Περὶ Εὐχῆς 25.2 (GCS 3, 358).
[15] W. Gessel, *Die Theologie des Gebetes* (1975), 247.

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alejandrino enseña que la oración continua nos libra de los pecados y nos permite realizar obras buenas (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 8.2). Asimismo insiste en la necesidad de orar constantemente para vencer las asechanzas de los espíritus malignos que se oponen a Dios (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 12.1). Enseña además que la oración continua es muy importante para el progreso espiritual del cristiano, porque si éste ora continuamente, su progreso espiritual será también continuo (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 25.2).

La oración continua es también necesaria para alcanzar la familiaridad con Jesús, de tal modo que si rezamos continuamente, el Señor intercederá por nosotros 'como por sus familiares', y abogará en favor nuestro ante el Padre como 'algo propio' (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 10.2). Respecto a la eficacia de la oración continua, Orígenes sostiene que quien reza siempre, siempre es escuchado por Dios (Περὶ Εὐχῆς 13.1).

Respecto al modo de poner en práctica la oración continua, el alejandrino propone por vez primera una idea que marca un hito en la historia de la espiritualidad cristiana, cuando afirma que toda obra buena del santo debe considerarse una oración. En consecuencia, la vida de este cristiano adquiere una gran unidad, al transformarse en una gran oración continua (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 12.2). Pero para alcanzar dicha unidad existencial, es preciso que el orante lleve una vida virtuosa, comportándose siempre como buen hijo de Dios, de tal modo que pueda decir con toda su vida: *Padre nuestro que estás en los cielos* (*cf.* Περὶ Εὐχῆς 22.5).

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XIII. Athanasius and his Opponents

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Athanasius' Letter to Marcellinus: A Soteriological Praying of the Psalms

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There is common consensus among scholars that Athanasius is the authentic author of the *Letter to Marcellinus* and that he wrote it towards the end of his life, probably around 367. Whether Marcellinus was an actual existing person or a literary fiction is more contested. However, there is no real evidence that he was not an actual person and the fact that Athanasius mentions his unspecified illness or tribulation during which he has not neglected 'the discipline' lends credence to his actuality.[1] Moreover, Athanasius notes that, as part of his discipline, he has maintained 'a studious attitude toward all of the holy Scripture, but that you read most frequently the Book of the Psalms'. What may be less likely is the veracity of Athanasius' statement that he 'had a conversation with a learned old man' and that he wished to write about 'those things that old master of the Psalter told me about it' (1). While this 'old man' could be an elderly monk, it could equally be Athanasius himself.[2]

In his letter Athanasius has tightly woven three interrelated ends. First, that while the individual books of the Old Testament possess their own genre and purpose – history, prophecy, wisdom, *etc.* – 'the Book of Psalms is like a garden containing things of all these kinds, and it sets them to music, but also exhibits things of its own that it gives in song along with them' (2). Secondly, the Psalter must be prayed Christologically for it proclaims in its own unique manner who Christ is as well as his mighty deeds. 'When you desire, in private, to extol the events concerning the Savior, you find such things in nearly every psalm' (26). Thirdly, and most importantly for Athanasius, the praying or singing of the Psalms is in itself a means of appropriating and interiorizing the salvation wrought by Christ. 'For just as we discover the ideas of the soul and communicate them through the words we put forth, so also the Lord, wishing

[1] I am using the translation from *Athanasius: The Life of Antony and the Letter to Marcellinus*, translation and introduction by R.C. Gregg (New York, 1980). The paragraph numbers are cited in the text.

[2] On these various issues, see: J.D. Ernest, Athanasius of Alexandria: The Scope of Scripture in Polemical and Pastoral Context: *VigChr* 47 (1993) 341-62 and his *The Bible in Athanasius of Alexandria* (Leiden, 2004), 332-36, and M.R. Rondeau, L'Épître à Marcellinus sur les Psaumes: *VigChr* 22 (1968) 176-97. On the above issues as well as the history of the text see E. Ferguson, Athanasius' 'Epistola ad Marcellinum in Interpretationem Psalmorum': *SP* 16 (1975) 295-308.

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the melody of the words to be as a symbol of the spiritual harmony in the soul, has ordered that the odes be chanted tunefully, and the psalms recited with song' (28).[3]

For Athanasius, then, the Book of the Psalms not only contains, in its own singular way, the whole history of the economy of salvation as found in the Old Testament, but, since that economy finds its source, center and summit in Jesus Christ and his salvation, it also, when prayed, unites the person to Christ. This allows the person to be fashioned into Christ's likeness. Thus, the singing of the Psalms, for Athanasius, not only objectively proclaims the mysteries of salvation, but actively places the one praying into the reality of these mysteries. It is this soteriological praying of the Psalms that I wish to examine briefly.

Athanasius perceives that the Psalms profess the foundational truths of the Christian Gospel. They proclaim the truth that God is the Creator of all and that the whole of creation, in turn, tells of the glory of God (see 3).[4] Moreover, the Psalms narrate the celebrated and mighty triumphs found in *Exodus*, *Numbers* and *Deuteronomy* as well as *Joshua* and *Judges* (see 3-4).[5] Moreover, and most importantly, 'nearly every psalm' echoes and confirms 'the pronouncements of the Prophets' (5).[6] Thus, the Psalms tell of the coming of the Savior as well as of his divine identity. *Psalm* 106 speaks of the Father sending his Word and 'because the Psalter knows that this Word is the Son of God, it chants the voice of the Father in the 44th *Psalm*: "My heart has uttered a good Word". And again in *Psalm* 109: "I have begotten you from the womb before the morning"' (5). Furthermore, the Psalms tell of the virginal conception and of the Son becoming man (see 6).[7] 'And having declared that he [the Son] would become man, afterwards the Psalter also points to his passibility in the flesh' (7). Not only do the Psalms speak of the incarnate Son's passion and crucifixion, but it equally 'foretells his bodily ascension into heaven' where, with the Father, he will reign in glory (8).[8] From his throne, the Psalms profess that the risen Jesus is 'calling the nations' to himself (8).[9]

The Holy Spirit, as the common author, accounts, according to Athanasius, for why the same truths are proclaimed throughout all of the books of scripture, each in their distinctive manner (see 9 and 10). That Athanasius perceives the interrelationship between the various books in the Old Testament is not surprising

[3] Ferguson divides Athanasius' concerns into five topics: devotional, liturgical, christological, doctrinal and catechetical. See Athanasius' 'Epistola ad Marcellinum in Interpretationem Psalmorum' (1975) 298-308.

[4] Athanasius quotes *Psalms* 18 and 23. Athanasius employs the Greek/Latin numbering of the Psalms.

[5] Athanasius quotes or refers to *Psalms* 77, 113, 105, 106, and 19.

[6] Athanasius quotes *Psalms* 49 and 117.

[7] Athanasius quotes *Psalms* 86 and 44.

[8] Athanasius quotes *Psalms* 2, 21, 87, 68, 137, 71, 23, 46, 109, 9, and 71.

[9] Athanasius quotes *Psalms* 46 and 71.

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for such an understanding was common among the early Fathers, especially within Origen's exegesis. Nor is Athanasius adding any novelty in his Christocentric interpretation of the Psalms and in their Christocentric relationship to similar scriptural passages in their various genres. This too had already become commonplace by Athanasius' time. What is new is Athanasius' insightful appreciation that 'these things [the truths of revelation] are sung in the Psalms, and they are foretold in each of the other books of Scriptures' (8). With regard to the Psalms one is not merely reading and so learning what God has revealed, as in the other books of the Bible. Rather, one is actually singing and praying and so *professing* what God has revealed. The singing of the Psalms is a prayerful profession of faith, and so a snatching hold of the truths of faith within one's own heart and mind. Singing the Psalms, then, is a soteriological activity. In prayerfully acclaiming, in faith, the saving mysteries wrought in Christ one simultaneously appropriates, in faith, their saving grace.

For Athanasius the saving grace that accompanies the chanting of the Psalms is specifically ordered to promoting emotional harmony or proper spiritual accord within the person's heart and mind.

> For in addition to the other things in which it enjoys an affinity and fellowship with the other books, it possesses, beyond that, this marvel of its own – namely, that it contains even the emotions of each soul, and it has the changes and rectifications of these delineated and regulated to itself (10).

The Psalms not only teach what virtuous emotions are to be fostered and what evil emotions are to be shunned, but the very praying of the Psalms excites and engenders the virtuous emotions and removes and heals those that are disordered (see 10-11).[10] The reason this is so is that the person, in praying the Psalms, makes the words and the truth that these words express his or her own (see 11 and 12). The Son of God became man so that as man he might be the perfect exemplar of what it means to be human. While 'a more perfect instruction in virtue one could not find than that which the Lord typified in himself', yet, 'just as he [Jesus] provided the model of the earthly and heavenly man in his own person, so also from the Psalms he who wants to do so can learn the emotions and dispositions of the soul, finding in them also the therapy and corrections suited for each emotion' (13).

Christ's heart and mind were perfectly conformed to the Psalms. He thus prayed the Psalms in a perfect manner for his interior heart and mind – the seat of his emotions – corresponded perfectly with what the Psalms professed. The Christian must acquire, for Athanasius, this same harmonious conformity. The Christian achieves this harmonious conformity precisely in singing the Psalms. In praying the Psalms the Christian conforms his or her heart and mind

[10] See P.R. Kolbert, Athanasius, the Psalms, and the Reformation of the Self: *Harvard Theological Review* 99 (2006) 85-101.

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to the truth that is professed and so assumes and expresses an emotional state that is appropriate to the Psalm. The Christian thus gradually and increasingly acquires the heart and mind of Christ himself.

For thus beautifully singing praises, he [the chanter] brings rhythm to his soul and leads it, so to speak, from disproportion to proportion, with the results that, due to its steadfast nature, it is not frightened by something, but rather imagines positive things, even possessing a full desire for future goods. And gaining its composure by the singing of the phrases, it becomes forgetful of the passions and, while rejoicing, sees in accordance with the mind of Christ, conceiving the most excellent thoughts (29).[11]

Thus, this singing of the Psalms advances, for Athanasius, growth in holiness. It is a sacred soteriological action.

In paragraphs 14-29 Athanasius provides a plethora of illustrations. For example, in praying the Psalms of repentance the person does not simply learn of the evil of sin and the need for repentance. Rather, the praying of the psalm itself actually convicts the person of his or her own sinfulness and simultaneously provides the words of sincere and heartfelt repentance. This admission of sin with its accompanying repentance forms an enduring humble and contrite heart. The Christian gradually acquires the virtue of repentance. Similarly, the Psalms foster in their very singing a love for God as the Creator of all, the mighty works of his hands. They also prompt a love for Jesus as Savior and Lord. In both of these instances they also provide the words of praise, adoration and thanksgiving by way of response. This response of praise, adoration and thanksgiving form an attitude of mind and a habit of heart whereby the Christian is continually grateful for what God has done in his mercy. In times of distress or persecution, the singing of the Psalms, for Athanasius, fortifies the emotions of heart and disciplines the thoughts of the mind so as to trust in God. This is achieved in the person professing God's steadfast love, his enduring faithfulness and his ever present protection. Athanasius' summarizes his lengthy discussion on how the psalms conform the Christian into the likeness of Christ by fostering virtue, healing the emotions and joyfully professing the goodness of God as follows:

I believe that the whole of human existence, both the dispositions of the soul and the movements of the thoughts, have been measured out and encompassed in those very words of the Psalter. And nothing beyond these is found among men. For whether there are necessity of repentance or confession, or tribulation and trial befell us, or someone was persecuted, or, being plotted against ... or if, moreover, someone has become deeply sorrowful and disturbed and he suffers something of the sort that is described in the things just mentioned, and he either attends to himself as one who is advancing, being set free from his foe, or he wants to sing praises and give thanks to the Lord – for any such eventuality he has instruction in the divine Psalms. Let him therefore select the things said in them about each of these circumstances, and reciting

[11] See also paragraphs 27 and 28.

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what has been written as concerning him, and being affected by the writings, lift them to the Lord (30).

In conclusion, what we find in Athanasius' letter to Marcellinus is a soteriological approach to praying the Psalms that is both doctrinal and moral. Chanted with the breath of the Holy Spirit, the Psalms become a profession of faith in Jesus Christ as Savior and Lord. This very Spirit induced chanting of the faith equally engenders in the Spirit a moral and spiritual harmony within the person conforming the emotions of the heart and the thoughts of the mind to those of Christ. The result being that the chanter, for Athanasius, is ever more empowered to live faithfully the life of Christian virtue and holiness.

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Athanasius and Apollinarius: Who Was the Chicken and Who Was the Egg?

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'Which comes first – chicken or egg?' This question throws the respondent into an awareness that strictly linear approaches to causative questions are not always helpful, but sometimes inappropriate methodologies. This paper aims to analyse some recent interpretations of the relationship between Athanasius and Apollinarius, offering two somewhat caricatured categories, 'explicit' and 'discrete'. A critique of some assumptions of these approaches is attempted through a lens of literary theory.[1] Finally, with reference to a Coptic Sermon attributed to Athanasius, some *pastoral* aspects of miahypostatic Christology are considered, even though the author is not proven.

Explicit or Discrete?

The Explicit style of understanding the history of ideas is how I have styled those historians whose strength is their attentiveness to text and chronology. The giant of Athanasian scholarship, Charles Kannengiesser is an example of this approach in his identifying specific Apollinarian themes in the later *Contra Arianos*, and the conclusions he makes from them. There is a lack of coyness – a lack of defensiveness – in this methodology. Markus Vinzent's direct approach is also characteristically explicit. He accounts for Athanasius' use of ὁμοούσιος in *Contra Arianos* I 8.1, its only occurrence before *De Synodis*, as being derived from what is now called *Contra Arianos* IV, by Apollinarius.[2] The explicit camp score highly in taking empirical data with the utmost seriousness, but perhaps something is lost in some overly neat ordering and sharp analysis.

Thomas Weinandy's discussion of the soul of Christ in Athanasius might ably represent another approach, that of the 'discrete' party. He acknowledges his aim is

[1] I am grateful to Nicholas Peacock for prompting this tool, and for Markus Vinzent for his careful remarks on this paper.

[2] Markus Vinzent, *Pseudo-Athanasius, Contra Arianos IV: Eine Schrift gegen Asterius von Kappdokien, Eusebius von Cäsarea, Markell von Ankyra und Photin von Sirmium*, VC 36 (Leiden, 1996), 377.

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to liberate [Athanasius] ... from the charge of being an Apollinarian before [*sic*] Apollinarius ... [or a] Nestorian before Nestorius.[3]

His chief method is to urge, with arguments familiar from his treatment of Cyril,[4] that 'all human attributes are predicated of Christ'[5] emphasising the argument of *Contra Arianos* III 32. Here the Son, in his incarnation assumed all human affections. In what is a sound explication of this text he urges that Athanasius's concern was not Christ's soul, but

the proper incarnational understanding of how divine and human attributes are predicated of one and the same Son.[6]

Weinandy's arguments may be equally well be attributed to Apollinarius. Rather than entering into the human soul or will debate, Apollinarius' concerns can also be seen to be very similar to those articulated here.

Moreover, leaving aside authorship questions of *Contra Arianos* III, in *De Incarnatione* 43, Athanasius argues that the Logos 'took *none* of the body's attributes, but rather himself sanctified the body'.

In seeking to protect Cyril in later debates, there is some anxiety here to emphasise continuity with Athanasius, though this is achieved only by a distorting distancing from Apollinarius. *Contra Arianos* III and IV are 'Athanasian' even if they correspond closely to Apollinarian thought, even if they were written by him. They are evidence of the miahypostatic tradition's breadth. Rather than construct a narrative where the protectors of a discrete Athanasius avoid Apollinarian taint (Weinandy acknowledges Torrance, Dragas and others in this task),[7] it would seem perfectly consistent with what we know in Epiphanius' gentle evaluation of Apollinarius,[8] that the discussion was fluid. A protective model distorts the complex picture by suppressing evidence. Using Apollinarius as a term to convict or acquit is a distorting lens through which to view this era.

Literary theory

Roland Barthes urges that interpreting a text emerges by tracing and participating intimately in its varied dynamic and dialogues.[9] Texts are not monologic,

[3] Thomas G. Weinandy, 'Athanasius: The Incarnation and the Soul of Christ': *SP* 41 (2006) 265-269, 266.

[4] Thomas G. Weinandy and D.A. Keating (eds.), *The Theology of St Cyril of Alexandria: A Critical Appreciation* (London, 2003).

[5] Thomas G. Weinandy, 'Athanasius' (2006), 266f.

[6] Thomas G. Weinandy, 'Athanasius' (2006), 268.

[7] Thomas G. Weinandy, 'Athanasius' (2006), 265 n. 1.

[8] Epiphanius writes 'the venerable old man, always beloved by us, by the blessed Pope Athanasius, and by all the orthodox', *Panarion* 77.2.1 (3.417 H/D).

[9] Roland Barthes, The death of the author, in: *id.*, *Image, Music, Text* (London, 1977).

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but create a polyphony of voices and ideas,[10] so public texts are not the property of their author. In the context of interpreting Athanasius and Apollinarius (for example), Foucault's insights helpfully bring into the interpretative arena what each author became and continues to represent (as observed above):

> to be an author is not merely to have a certain factual relation to a text (for example, to have causally produced it); it is, rather, to fulfil a certain socially and culturally defined role in relation to the text.[11]

Understanding a text's meaning and importance clearly contributes to the cultural significance of its author, but a text has a life of its own not only in terms of how it fits into its creator's development. The process of connecting ideas technically and causally is imperative to chronology, and comparing ideas carefully with other authors is helpful, but a consequence may not only be overly restrictive or hagiographical. It may miss the point of engaging with a text in its own right. Both 'Explicit' and 'Discrete' camps illustrate a need to produce an overall narrative. This need is so strong that trajectories of reading can become distorting spectacles – as happened in the case of Marcellus until recently, and which continues in the case of Apollinarius. Porter Abbot writes that the urge to produce narrative taxonomies with clearly defined roles of good and evil is because

> our need for a narrative form is so strong that we don't really believe something unless we can see it as a story. Bringing a collection of events into narrative coherence can be described as a way of normalizing or naturalizing those events.[12]

We have observed that this process usually involves the protection of key authors from any who may taint or wound their reputation, or work with a model of how ideas are transmitted and appropriated which is specific and causal. Literary theory reminds us not only of the messy world of these figures, but that we are tainted participants in the continuing life of these texts and the constructions of narratives about their creators. Intertextuality maintains the dynamics of a text's life in a multiplex of contexts:

> meaning becomes something which exists between a text and all the other texts to which it refers and relates, moving out from the independent text into a network of textual relations.[13]

Around the letter of the text is an accumulation of contexts and boundaries that influence its reception, a para-text. Patristic texts are often the bearers of their counter-text, Athanasius becomes the primary conductor of Arius' textual fragments. Patristic texts cannot be understood in isolation, but linear

[10] Mikhail Bakhtin, *Problems of Dostoevsky's Politics* (Minneapolis, 1984), 5-40.
[11] Gary Gutting, *Foucault* (Oxford, 2005), 11.
[12] H. Porter Abbott, *The Cambridge Introduction to Narrative* (Cambridge, 2002), 40.
[13] Graham Allen, *Intertextuality* (Abingdon, 2000), 1.

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causal explanations of development are not broad enough in their interpretative scope.[14]

A Sermon attributed to Athanasius

In April 1937, Bernardin produced a critical Coptic text and translation of a sermon in the Pierpont Morgan Library of New York.[15] The manuscript is dated to the mid-ninth-century of the common era, and this is the only known copy. The presence of anti-Arian polemic, combined with a rejection of common Gnostic motifs demeaning the God of the Old Testament makes a fourth-century context likely, a clear theme is the assertion of the Christ-likeness of the Father, and this is achieved by a sustained miahypostatic Christology.

It begins with a careful ecclesiological connection with the passion, which leads into a section more concerned with morality:[16] lust, slander, theft and the like should cause fear at the last judgement. However, the preacher does not merely encourage good works, but urges his hearers to beseech God to send his Holy Spirit to provide the strength needed to keep the commandments.[17] Ethics are irrelevant, what is required is participation in the life of God by the Spirit: this theological (rather than moral) priority corresponds well with the ontological emphases of a miahypostatic framework – be that 'Athanasian' or 'Apollinarian' – indeed the sermon challenges the tendency to precision in attribution.

The sermon then defends Genesis' account of creation, finding the plural in *Gen.* 1:26 to have easy Christological application: the Father is speaking to the Son.[18] This is followed by Christological allusions which emphasise at once the primacy of the Son *before* creation, and the Father's good motivation *in* creation: all the goodness the Son has revealed is nothing but the Father's:

> as is the goodness of the Father, so again is the goodness of the Son... as is the mercy of the Son, so is the mercy of the Father.[19]

The provision of woman in Creation is prompted by the Father's understanding of Adam's loneliness – God is attentively merciful. Such a reading is strongly counter to some gnosticizing interpretations of Genesis witnessed in the Pachomian library at Nag Hammadi. But this sermon, in its intensely pastoral style, also exhibits a very different genre from conventional controversial and dogmatic

[14] Modelled by Rowan D. Williams, Frances M. Young, and in Athanasian scholarship, Khaled Anatolios, *Athanasius: The coherence of his thought* (London, 1998).

[15] J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon attributed to St Athanasius: *JThS* 38 (1937) 113-29.

[16] M595 f101rβ-f101vβ, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 117.

[17] M595 f102rα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 117.

[18] M595 f102rα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 117.

[19] M595 f102rβ, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 117.

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literature of the period in much Greek texts informing Athanasian studies. There may therefore be a serious need for a careful and systematic evaluation of Coptic Athanasian MSS to comprehend a more nuanced picture. Whoever is the author of this text, its *reception* and attribution indicates that those who preserved the text saw it as Athanasian, promoting loyalty to the 'construct' which Athanasius was to become in his province. The prime point here remains the goodness of the Father – shown in the Moses narratives, in Christ weeping over Lazarus, and in the Father's own mourning over his Son at his burial.[20]

There follows, in contrast to the Father's compassion, a conventional depiction of the Jews' cruelty as the Passion narrative is recapitulated with theological highlights. The preacher's emphasis is upon the Son's humility, the Father's love and the Jews' culpability. The theological style is uniform with a plain reading of Scripture,[21] with the exception of a detail in the Crucifixion narrative: here the Jews themselves drive home the nails through the Son's flesh into wood.[22] The preacher evokes immense pathos as he depicts the agony of isolated sorrow the Father knows in the torments of his Son. Though creation reacts to the Crucifixion with horror,[23] the Father beholds with deep sorrow the humiliation and death of the Son, enduring his grief in counterpoint to the Son's passion in the body. The tone is mournful love: the Father is no Gnostic demiurge set against the kindness of the Son. His perspective is grief but abundant patience, whereas human beings, as any other creatures, would not be able to bear such agony without fury, the Father endures – 'he did not destroy all His creation in a single hour.'[24] The skill with which the author combines a miahypostatic theology with anti-gnostic polemic here is great, and is very different in its impact from the polemic often associated with Athanasius. It allows very intimate language about the Father. The Father spills a first tear-drop over the death of Adam; He grieves over the crucifixion of his Son, and then – with great skill he leads his hearers to prepare for the third tear – the Father's tearful judgement on the last day.[25]

The voice of the preacher at this point is similar to that of a chorus – pointing out the tragedy, drawing attention to the goodness and kindness of Father and Son, and mourning the sins of those being judged. Creation itself will participate in the conviction of pagan worshippers: creatures will also share the woe even as they accuse those who worshipped them. The sun will expose the irrationality of those who have worshipped a creature consistently obedient to the command of God. The moon, whose waxing and waning should have

[20] M595 f102rβ-f103rα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 119.
[21] M595 f103vα-f104rα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 121.
[22] M595 f104vα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 123.
[23] M595 f104vα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 123.
[24] M595 f105rα, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 123.
[25] M595 f105rα-β, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 123.

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provided evidence against its own divinity, will contradict the heathen.[26] There is conventional anti-idol polemic too, woven into this vision of judgement and divine pity. The persecuted righteous are promised heaven rather quickly so that they are not overanxious,[27] then all humanity is judged at once and divided. The bewailing of Father over Son is a motif now played out in all creation. The separation of parent from child and husband from wife will be awful, echoing the agony of the Father over Adam and Christ at their deaths.[28] The dreadful judgement will be spoken not by the Father alone as if he is vengeful (as in Gnostic conceptuality), but because of a miahypostatic Christology

> the sentence will come forth from the mouth of the Son of God; for his Father is in Him and He is in His Father: they are inseparably united.[29]

The Son therefore judges, and the Son also gazes with weeping upon the condemned. Father and Son have executed justice, yet with cherubim and seraphim, and all the righteous, they weep. The judgement is true, it is the Father's and the Son's. There is a unity as all creation participates in the divine pity.[30]

Before he concludes, the preacher remarks that it will fall to his hearers to count the number of those saved, indicating perhaps that some in his presence were fellow ministers, sharing a pastoral charge. The sermon ends sharply with a reiteration of the preacher's initial plea to repent, but made all the more strongly in the light of the reality of the final judgement and division, and in the context of the Father's longing, mercy and goodness. The Father does not rejoice at the death of any sinner, a fact indicated by his refusal to strike down creation or any creature even as his Son was being tortured.

Conclusion

The significant question in the context of this paper is whether or not it would make any difference if this were by Athanasius (or Apollinarius, for that matter)? Were it proven, there would be another dimension to understanding him, but the burden of proof is always going to be a judgement-call. What this text does indicate is the power of miahypostatic Christology where Gnostic antitheology had currency as a useful pastoral and doctrinal tool. Whether or not Athanasius is the author, this text has exposed a surprising pastoral dimension of a Christology concerned with emphasising direct continuity of Father and Son. The text then, regardless of actual authorship, has become an Athanasian

[26] M595 f105vα-106rβ, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 125.
[27] M595 f105rβ-106vβ, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 125.
[28] M595 f107rα-β, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 127.
[29] M595 f107rβ, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 127.
[30] M595 f107vα-β, J.P. Bernardin, A Coptic Sermon (1937), 127-29.

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icon for those who preserved the text, witnessing to the charisma and lasting reverence for Athanasius, even if this construct is a later *Athanase du peuple*, or even if the features of the icon are, in fact, those of Apollinarius. Similarly, we must allow ourselves to be surprised and impressed by texts which our narrative instincts – explicit or discrete – may wish to suppress or devalue, as yet conveying dimensions of the impact of Athanasius and his miahypostatic colleagues within the developing Coptic environment.

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Eusebius of Nicomedia: A 'Court Bishop' for Constantine?

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The reign of the first Christian Emperor witnessed a transformation in the status of the bishop within the Later Roman Empire. Bishops acquired new powers and legal privileges, and the conversion of Constantine offered bishops far greater access to the emperor and the imperial court, access that many bishops were more than prepared to exploit. It is therefore not surprising that in older scholarship it was once widely assumed that there emerged around Constantine 'religious advisers' or 'court bishops' who influenced his political and religious policies. In Constantine's early years such a role has often been attributed to the Spanish bishop Ossius of Cordova, and after Ossius' disappearance from Constantine's reign in 326 his place was said to have been taken by the emperor's biographer, Eusebius of Caesarea.

More recent scholars have been rightly sceptical of such assumptions. Brian Warmington and David Hunt have highlighted the lack of direct evidence for the existence or influence of 'court bishops' under Constantine and his sons,[1] and Harold Drake has emphasised that the emerging relationship between Constantine and the bishops developed through a 'two-way process' of mutual interaction.[2] The role of Ossius has been increasingly played down in the years before 326,[3] while as Timothy Barnes demonstrated over two decades ago the old image of Eusebius of Caesarea as the confidant of Constantine is very much a product of Eusebius' own rhetoric and greatly exaggerates his association with the emperor.[4] Yet there is one episcopal figure in the reign of Constantine who is still frequently described in terms appropriate for a 'court bishop': Eusebius of Caesarea's namesake, Eusebius of Nicomedia.[5]

[1] B.H. Warmington, Did Constantine have 'Religious Advisers'?: *SP* 19 (1989) 117-29; E.D. Hunt, Did Constantius II have 'Court Bishops'?: *SP* 19 (1989) 86-90.

[2] H.A. Drake, *Constantine and the Bishops: The Politics of Intolerance* (Baltimore and London, 2000), 31.

[3] The standard work on Ossius' career remains Victor C. de Clercq, *Ossius of Cordova: A Contribution to the History of the Constantinian Period* (Washington, 1954). For a far more minimalist assessment of Ossius' influence on Constantine's reign, see B.H. Warmington, 'Religious Advisers' (1989), 119-22.

[4] T.D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (Cambridge, Massachusetts, and London, 1981), 265-7.

[5] The only two modern studies specifically concerned with Eusebius' career and theology written since the early twentieth century are the articles of Colm Luibheid, The Arianism of

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In the traditional interpretation of the early 'Arian Controversy', Eusebius is the archetype of the scheming heretical prelate. The bishop of the imperial residence of Nicomedia when Constantine conquered the east, Eusebius throughout his career continually appears in close proximity to the imperial power. A leading supporter of Arius before 325, Eusebius was sent into exile shortly after the Council of Nicaea but returned two years later and is widely reported to have exerted great influence upon Constantine and his court in favour of the 'Arian heresy'. In 337 it was Eusebius who baptised the dying Constantine, and later that year under Constantine's son Constantius II he became the first imperial nominee to be appointed as bishop of Constantinople.

Against this background, one can readily understand Eusebius' enduring reputation as an 'Arian' and 'court bishop'. John Henry Newman described him as 'the most dexterous politician' of the age,[6] and more recently Drake repeated this judgement when he declared that 'Eusebius was a great manipulator, a master of what today would be called insider politics', who after his exile in 325 'never again let principle keep him from access to power'.[7] However, this negative image of Eusebius and his career derives almost exclusively from the writings of his foes. Athanasius of Alexandria denounced Eusebius as the great champion of Arius and the leader of an 'Arian party', *hoi peri Eusebion* ('the ones around Eusebius' or 'the Eusebians'), and the fifth-century ecclesiastical historians Socrates, Sozomen and Theodoret followed Athanasius' lead.[8] The evidence for Eusebius' involvement with the imperial family is thus highly polemical and potentially distorted. In this short paper I wish to re-examine some of that evidence and to propose an alternative framework through which we might reassess Eusebius' relationship with Constantine and its significance.

Originally the bishop of Berytus in Syria, Eusebius first rose to prominence not under Constantine but under Licinius, Constantine's eastern rival. Eusebius was related to Julius Julianus, Licinius' praetorian prefect 315-24, and so to the later emperor Julian 'the Apostate' for whom Eusebius would briefly act as guardian.[9] This familial connection may well have aided Eusebius' translation

Eusebius of Nicomedia: *IThQ* 43 (1976) 3-23 and D.M. Gwynn, Constantine and the other Eusebius: *Prudentia* 21.2 (1999) 94-124. There are also brief surveys of his life and known writings in Gustave Bardy, *Recherches sur Lucien d'Antioche et son École* (Paris, 1936), 296-315 and Joseph T. Lienhard, *Contra Marcellum: Marcellus of Ancyra and Fourth-Century Theology* (Washington, 1999), 77-83.

[6] J.H. Newman, *The Arians of the Fourth Century* (reprinted with an introduction and notes by Rowan D. Williams, Notre Dame, 2001), 260.

[7] H.A. Drake, *Constantine and the Bishops* (2000), 395.

[8] For a detailed assessment of Athanasius' polemical construction of Eusebius and *hoi peri Eusebion* see D.M. Gwynn, *The Eusebians: The Polemic of Athanasius of Alexandria and the Construction of the 'Arian Controversy'* (Oxford, 2007).

[9] Ammianus Marcellinus, *Res Gestae* XXII 9.4. Eusebius is most likely to have been a relative of Julianus' unnamed Christian wife, possibly her brother; see John Vanderspoel, Correspondence and Correspondents of Julius Julianus: *Byz* 69 (1999) 396-478, 410f.

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from Berytus to Licinius' capital Nicomedia before 317, and his position as bishop of the imperial residence gave him considerable influence at the outbreak of what would become known as the 'Arian Controversy'. Eusebius' defence of Arius after the latter was expelled from Alexandria drew an angry response from Arius' bishop Alexander. 'Eusebius, who is now in Nicomedia, thinking the affairs of the Church to be in his possession because he has forsaken Berytus and cast envious eyes on the church of the Nicomedians ... appointed himself leader of these apostates and endeavoured to write everywhere supporting them, if by any means he could drag some ignorant people into this last and Christ-fighting heresy'.[10]

Both Eusebius' promotion to Nicomedia and his readiness to support Arius against Alexander suggest that he did not lack ecclesiastical ambition or the ability to draw upon political connections in support of his theological convictions. Yet Eusebius' position at the court of Licinius, while a potential source of strength, must have become increasingly ambivalent as tensions grew between Licinius and Constantine and between Licinius and the Church. Constantine would later denounce Eusebius as a supporter of Licinius and 'the participator in the tyrant's savagery',[11] and after Constantine defeated Licinius at the Battle of Chrysopolis in 324 Eusebius is said to have accompanied Constantia, Licinius' wife and Constantine's half-sister, when she went to her brother to beg for her husband's life.[12] If this is true this would have made Eusebius a witness to Constantine's promise to spare Licinius' life, a promise that Constantine would soon break.

Eusebius' position under the new regime therefore cannot have been entirely secure when he came with the other bishops of Bithynia to attend the Council of Nicaea in 325. The council itself certainly did not follow a course which he approved. Eusebius eventually signed the Nicene Creed but he refused to sign the anathemas, arguing with some justice that the condemned Arius had been misrepresented.[13] Shortly after the council in September-October 325 Eusebius and his friend Theognis of Nicaea were banished, apparently for continuing to receive friends of Arius. The bitterly hostile letter that Constantine now wrote to the Church of Nicomedia, to which I have already alluded, condemns Eusebius

[10] Alexander of Alexandria, *Encyclical Letter* (quoted in Socrates, *Hist. eccl.* I 6).

[11] Constantine, *Letter to the Church of Nicomedia* (quoted in Theodoret, *Hist. eccl.* I 20, and Gelasius of Cyzicus, Appendix I 1-17).

[12] Eusebius' role in these events appears only in material drawn from Philostorgius in an eleventh-century manuscript of the *Life of Constantine*; Joseph Bidez, 3rd ed. Friedhelm Winkelmann, *Philostorgius Kirchengeschichte mit dem Leben des Lucian von Antiochien und den Fragmenten eines arianischen Historiographen* (Berlin, 1981), 180.12-9. See now Bruno Bleckmann, Die Vita BHG 365 und die Rekonstruktion der verlorenen Kirchengeschichte Philostorgs. Der Kampf zwischen Konstantin und Licinius: *JAC* 46 (2003) 7-16, 14-6.

[13] This argument is presented in the so-called *'Letter of Recantation'* that Eusebius and Theognis wrote to secure their return from exile in 327/8 (quoted in Socrates, *Hist. eccl.* I 14).

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both for his earlier actions on behalf of Licinius and his more recent misbehaviour during and after Nicaea, and he and Theognis remained in exile for over two years before being restored to their sees in late 327-early 328. The early period of Eusebius' relationship with Constantine was thus dominated by tension and mistrust, and Eusebius can have had little reason to expect this situation to change in 328. Yet according to our orthodox sources Eusebius upon his return immediately began to exert great influence at Constantine's court and to exploit that influence in support of the 'Arian heresy'. How are we to explain this dramatic reversal in Eusebius' fortunes?

One factor is often assumed to be Eusebius' relationship with the women of the imperial family, particularly Constantine's mother Helena and Licinius' widow Constantia. The connection to Helena is tenuous and rests solely on Helena's reported veneration for the martyr Lucian of Antioch who had been Eusebius' teacher and whose cult Eusebius may have overseen.[14] Constantia, however, is reported to have advised Eusebius at Nicaea and to have aided Eusebius and Theognis to return from exile, while most famously Constantia on her death-bed is said to have introduced her brother to an 'Arian presbyter' who influenced both Constantine and later Constantius in favour of Eusebius and of 'Arianism'.[15] Unfortunately, the evidence for Constantia's role in all these events derives not from contemporary sources but solely from the later ecclesiastical historians, who through Constantia and her presbyter sought to divert the blame for Constantine's apparent support for the 'Arian heresy' in his later years away from the pious emperor himself.[16] The only other potential evidence for a relationship between Eusebius and Constantia rests on the hypothesis that the *Letter to Constantia* denouncing an image of Christ which was attributed to Eusebius of Caesarea by the Second Council of Nicaea in 787 was actually composed by Eusebius of Nicomedia.[17] Such a hypothesis is attractive (not least as to rebuke a member of the imperial family required a degree of confidence and a proximity to the court that seem more appropriate to the bishop of Nicomedia than his namesake) but it is impossible to prove.

The circumstances surrounding Eusebius' return from exile and his reconciliation with Constantine thus remain highly uncertain. Nor can we take at face

[14] For Helena's veneration of Lucian see Philostorgius, *Hist. eccl.* II 13 and Jan W. Drijvers, *Helena Augusta: The Mother of Constantine the Great and the Legend of Her Finding of the True Cross* (Leiden, 1992), 10-2.

[15] Rufinus, *Hist. eccl.* X 12-13; Socrates, *Hist. eccl.* I 25, I 39, II 2; Sozomen, *Hist. eccl.* II 27, II 34; Theodoret, *Hist. eccl.* II 2. On the life of Constantia see Hans A. Pohlsander, Constantia: *Ancient Society* 24 (1993) 151-67, although unfortunately Pohlsander takes the evidence of the ecclesiastical historians entirely at face value.

[16] See now Thomas C. Ferguson, *The Past is Prologue: The Revolution of Nicene Historiography* (Leiden and Boston, 2005), 96-100.

[17] Knut Schäferdiek, Zu Verfasserschaft und Situation der Epistula ad Constantinam de imagine Christi: *ZKG* 91 (1980) 177-86.

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value the polemic of our orthodox sources which assert that immediately upon his return Eusebius began a systematic campaign at the imperial court to promote 'Arianism' and persecute the defenders of the Nicene Creed. This alleged 'Arian purge', which dominates many older narratives of the last decade of Constantine's reign, is in fact almost entirely an illusion.[18] Of the most prominent bishops known to have been condemned in the years 327-337, Eustathius of Antioch and Asclepas of Gaza were deposed in 327 itself before Eusebius was restored from his own exile at the end of that year. Athanasius of Alexandria, who was condemned at the Council of Tyre in 335, does repeatedly denounce Eusebius and the 'Eusebians' as the cause of his condemnation and asserts that Eusebius received his Melitian opponents at court and influenced the emperor against him. However, it is surely significant that Athanasius only developed this interpretation of Eusebius' court influence after he was exiled by Constantine and needed to explain the emperor's hostility. In *Festal Letter* IV of 332, which Athanasius wrote from the imperial court where he had been summoned to answer unspecified accusations raised by the Melitians, he makes no mention of Eusebius or his involvement.[19] Marcellus of Ancyra was deposed by a substantial Council in Constantinople in 336 on charges of heresy for which he would become notorious, perhaps unfairly, throughout the fourth century. The fates of all these men can be readily explained without recourse to an 'Arian conspiracy' led at court by Eusebius of Nicomedia.

In light of the difficulties raised by Eusebius of Nicomedia's presentation in our orthodox sources it might seem tempting to abandon entirely the traditional image of Eusebius the court politician as nothing more than a polemical construct. This would be a mistake. Quite aside from the sheer weight of the tradition and Eusebius' undoubted status as bishop of an imperial residence, the fact remains that in 337 it was Eusebius who baptised Constantine. The role played by the great 'Arian' bishop in Constantine's baptism was to cause significant problems for later Christian generations,[20] but that role also testifies to the personal bond that had developed between the emperor and the bishop since Eusebius' return from exile a decade before. This bond rested not on Eusebian intrigue or Constantinian Arianism, but on a shared understanding of the new

[18] Thomas G. Elliott, Constantine and 'The Arian Reaction after Nicaea': *JEH* 43 (1992) 169-94; D.M. Gwynn, *The Eusebians* (2007), 136-47.

[19] See D.M. Gwynn, *The Eusebians* (2007), 69-87.

[20] Eusebius' involvement is omitted by Socrates (I 39), Sozomen (II 34) and Theodoret (I 32), but is recognised by Jerome (*Chronicon* 2353 for A.D. 337). On the many legends that later developed around the baptism of Constantine, particularly that he was baptised in Rome by Pope Sylvester and not by the notorious 'Arian' Eusebius, see Garth Fowden, The Last Days of Constantine: Oppositional Views and their Influence: *JRS* 84 (1994) 146-70 and Samuel N.C. Lieu, From History to Legend and Legend to History: The Medieval and Byzantine Transformation of Constantine's *Vita*, in: S.N.C. Lieu and Dominic Montserrat (eds.), *Constantine: History, Historiography and Legend* (London, 1998), 136-76, 136-57.

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relationship of Church and State under Constantine and of the need to establish unity within the new imperial Church. The relative peace of the years after Nicaea was their mutual triumph and Eusebius' role in Constantine's baptism was recognition of that success, recognition confirmed by the decision of Constantius, less than five months after his father's death, to appoint Eusebius at the first opportunity as the bishop of Constantinople. On this model Eusebius remains a highly influential participant in the ecclesiastical and theological controversies of Constantine's reign, but not the 'Arian court bishop' whom his opponents condemned.

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Cyril of Jerusalem and the Spectrum of Renunciation

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In his *Catechetical Lectures* delivered in the middle of the fourth century, Cyril of Jerusalem asks his hearers to use their imaginations in thinking about the work of the Holy Spirit. They are to ponder the number of Christians in their diocese, in Palestine, in the Roman Empire and in the whole world. 'Consider each nation's bishops, priests, deacons, solitaries, virgins, all the laity...' (*Cat.* 16.22). His hearers are aware of male and female celibates, solitaries and virgins, who form recognisable groups within the local Church (*Cat.* 4.24). In *Cat.* 12.1 and 12.33-4 Cyril speaks as though he himself belongs to the Order of Solitaries.[1] Although personally convinced of the great value of celibacy, Cyril as Bishop of Jerusalem from mid fourth century was involved in pastoral ministry to a congregation containing many married people and young people with prospects of marriage, as well as celibates. His *Catechetical Lectures* were delivered to men and women, grouped separately within the Church buildings.[2] He states explicitly that there were both virgins and those who were married among the women (*Procat.* 14). Cyril sees his lectures as an introductory course suited to children, milk for sucklings (*Cat.* 4.3). The lectures are very full of Biblical references and have a strongly anti-heretical flavour with an especially vigorous critique of Manichean doctrine ('for your safety we have made a thorough examination of their pernicious doctrines', *Cat.* 6.34).

The intention of this paper is to place Cyril upon the 'spectrum of renunciation' evident in fourth-century writers. In the next generation Jovinian and Jerome will represent the two ends of the spectrum. Jovinian emphasises the radical equality of the baptised and is hostile to setting celibacy higher than marriage, while Jerome so exalts continence that he disparages marriage, provoking Augustine to speak up in defence of marriage despite his

[1] For 'Order of Solitaries', τάγμα τῶν μοναζόντων, see also Basil, *Ep.* 199 *can.* 19 (PG 32, 720C); Greg. Nyss., *De vita Macrinae* (PG 46, 933A); Alexis J. Doval, *Cyril of Jerusalem, Mystagogue* (Washington DC, 2001), 13 writes that 'Cyril refers to the Order of Solitaries and praises their practice of chastity in such a way that suggests he himself may have embraced such a life – one characterised by asceticism, works of charity, and celibacy – from an early age'.

[2] Cyril's major extant work is the set of *Catechetical Lectures* with *Procatechesis*. The set of *Mystagogic Catecheses* has frequently been attributed by scholars to John, Cyril's successor, but Doval (*Cyril of Jerusalem, Mystagogue*, 2001) has made a convincing case for Cyril's authorship. Apart from these baptismal catecheses, the only other known works of Cyril are two short pieces, a *Sermon on the Paralytic* and a *Letter to Constantius*.

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own strongly ascetic views. Where does Cyril, a generation earlier, fit into the spectrum?

When he speaks of the Holy Spirit's gifts dispensed throughout the world it is noticeable that chastity and perpetual virginity are listed first, before inspiration to almsgiving, to poverty and to the power of driving out evil spirits. (*Cat.* 16.22). Cyril certainly exalts virginity over the humbler state of matrimony (*Cat.* 4.25) and like many a proponent of continence, inspired by the Lord's words about the resurrected who neither marry nor are given in marriage but are like angels in heaven (*Mark* 12:25 and parallels), speaks of male and female celibates as living as angels (*Cat.* 4.24; 6.35; 12.34; 15.23). Lives of virginity will merit never fading crowns (*Cat.* 4.24; 5.4; 12.33-4; 15.23). Flight from marriage is seen alongside rejection of wealth and honour and resistance to erotic temptation as a result of the Holy Spirit's teaching ('Has it not often happened that a maiden, on the very threshold of the bridal chamber, has fled away, through the inspiration of His teaching on virginity?' *Cat.* 16.19).

Cyril argues against some who denied the Virgin birth; reading St Paul's phrase 'God sent His Son, born of a woman' as speaking of birth from a Virgin, Cyril says: 'He who makes virgin souls was born of a virgin' (*Cat.* 12.31). 'It was fitting that He, most pure and a teacher of purity, should issue from a pure bride chamber' (*Cat.* 12.25). There follows a reference to the priestly office: 'For if one who fulfils well the priestly office abstains from women, how was Jesus Himself to be born of man and woman?'[3] So far we have heard Cyril speak as we might expect a mid fourth-century bishop to speak, full of admiration for the ideals of virginity and continence. His strongly anti-Manichean stance, however, ensures that he stresses that the body is good in itself. 'There is nothing corrupt in man's frame unless he defiles it with adulteries and wantonness. He who formed Adam formed Eve also; and both male and female were fashioned by the Divine hands. None of the members of the body as fashioned from the beginning is corrupt. Let all heretics be silent who slander their bodies, or rather Him who formed them. But let us be mindful of Paul's words: "Do you not know that your members are the temple of the Holy Spirit who is in you?"' (*Cat.* 12.26). 'Let no one tell you that this body of ours is a stranger to God' (*Cat.* 12.22), 'tell me not that the body is the cause of sin' (*Cat.* 12.23; see *Cat.* 9.15-6). In contrast to Manicheans, Catholic Christians show respect for the Creator and his works and respect for marriage as well as for virginity:

'What fellowship has light with darkness, or the majesty of the Church with the abomination of the Manicheans? Here is order, here is discipline, here is majesty, here is purity, here it is a sin to look upon a woman with lust; here is the high holiness of marriage, here steadfast continence and the angelic dignity

[3] Is Cyril referring to celibate clergy or, more likely, to continent married clergy? If the latter, this foreshadows the insistence of Siricius in 385 on permanent continence for married clergy.

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of virginity; here men give thanks when they eat, showing courtesy to the Creator of all things' (*Cat.* 6.35). When speaking of divine judgement Cyril likewise lists marriage alongside continence: 'Every prayer you make, every psalm you sing is recorded; every alms, every fast is recorded, every lawful marriage as well as continence for the Lord's sake is recorded.' Nevertheless, the preference for virginity is made clear in the next sentence: 'First in the lists are the crowns for virginity and purity, and you shall shine like an angel' (*Cat.* 15.23). Where Elizabeth is mentioned in the lengthy catechesis on the Holy Spirit, there is further evidence of a relatively tolerant attitude towards marriage: 'This Holy Spirit wrought in Elizabeth. For He acknowledges not only virgins but lawfully married women as well' (*Cat.* 17.7).

In *Cat.* 4 Cyril presents a brief compendium of necessary doctrines before dealing with the articles of the creed in detail. This compendium contains a short section on the soul and then deals with respect for the body, chastity, marriage, food and clothing before speaking of the resurrection and Holy Scriptures. Having quoted the warning from 1*Timothy* 4:3 about those who forbid marriage and enjoin abstinence from foods, Cyril says, 'when you abstain from these things do not, then, abstain from them as if they were abominable, else you receive no rewards. Rather, while recognising that they are good yet prefer the better, spiritual things set before you' (*Cat.* 4.27). In the section of marriage in *Cat.* 4.25 Cyril quotes *Hebrews* 13:24, 'for let marriage be held in honour and let the marriage bed be undefiled', and enjoins those who practise chastity not to be puffed up with conceit against those who live in the humbler state of matrimony. They must remember that they were born of married persons and because they possess gold must not think lightly of silver.[4] Marriage must be used aright not for self-indulgence. Cyril takes up Paul's suggestion in 1*Cor.* 7:5 of times of abstinence so that the married couple can give themselves to prayer.[5] The motive of procreation must be predominant for those who enter marriage. Cyril warns those who have been married only once against finding fault with those who have contracted a second marriage, presumably after the death of a spouse. Here 1*Cor.* 7:8-9 is quoted: 'It is good for them to remain as I do, but if they do not have self control, let them marry, for it is better to marry than to burn.' Later Augustine will take a similar line to Cyril's, that second marriage for widows should not be despised by those who deem themselves 'pure'.[6] It is strange to note that Cyril makes no explicit mention of widows in his *Catechesis*, despite their importance as a group in the early centuries of the

[4] See Elizabeth A. Clark, *Reading Renunciation* (Princeton, 1999), 355, notes that a 'hidden audience' of virgins is subtly 'introduced' when Cyril uses this text and their superior condition is noted. There is a similar use of this text in Athanasius and Chrysostom.

[5] See E.A. Clark, *Reading Renunciation* (1999), 277f., which sets Cyril alongside Clement of Alexandria, John Chrysostom and Augustine in mitigating the more negative aspects of 1*Cor.* 7:5. Other patristic writers, she notes, read this Pauline verse 'more darkly'.

[6] See E.A. Clark, *Reading Renunciation* (1999), 288.

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Church. The pastoral sensitivity of Cyril towards his hearers is clear in *Procatechesis* 5 where he shows a wry awareness and acceptance of the mixed motives of some of them, even of young people courting one another: 'Perhaps you have come with a different motive: perhaps you are courting and a girl is your reason – or conversely, a boy. Many a time, too, a slave has wished to please his master, or a friend his friend. I allow the bait, and I welcome you in the trust that, however unsatisfactory the motive that has brought you, your good hope will soon save you.'

The relatively benign attitude to marriage shown by Cyril owes something to the pastoral context to his homilies and something to their anti-heretical stance. There is a similar anti-heretical stance in respect of food and money which leads Cyril to a moderate view. He notes that heretics condemn possessions and money and men's bodies (*Cat.* 8.7). Money is not an evil in itself; it all depends on how you use it, an attitude previously expressed by Clement of Alexandria. Cyril says: 'I wish you neither to be slaves of riches nor yet to regard as enemies the things God has given to serve you.' Gold and silver are not the devils', as some think. They are to be used well; one can even be justified by money if one gives bread to the hungry and clothes to the naked and money can be a door to the heavenly kingdom if you sell what you have and give to the poor (*Cat.* 8.6-7). Instead of saying a blessing over bread, Manichees curse the Creator, maligning the Creator of meats (*Cat.* 6.31-32). Cyril asserts, by contrast, that food is one of the Creator's gifts and nobody is to be condemned for eating and drinking; within the Church men give thanks when they eat, showing courtesy to the Creator of all things (*Cat.* 6.35). However, fasting is a way of looking forward to our enjoying a spiritual and invisible table in the world to come; 'though now we sow in tears, we shall reap rejoicing' (*Cat.* 4.27).

Cyril's views on marriage and virginity are to be seen in the context of the baptism of each Christian as spiritual marriage. Jesus is the bridegroom of souls to whom the catechumens now come (*Procat.* 4); 'you have walked in procession with the tapers of brides in your hands' (*Procat.* 1). The spiritual marriage of baptism is contrasted to worldly marriage in *Cat.* 3.1. The souls to be united with their spiritual spouse should prepare themselves as they are called to the bridal chamber (*Cat.* 3.2). For Cyril, every candidate for baptism, married or celibate, is called to this spiritual marriage. It is important to note that Cyril, in contrast to the prevailing trend among contemporary Christian writers, does not interpret the *Song of Songs* as referring to the union of the ascetic with Christ the Spouse.[7] Cyril has a distinctive understanding of the Church's interpretation of the *Song of Songs* which is not confined to his *Catechetical Lectures*. Thus in the *Sermon on the Paralytic* 10-2 Cyril says that you must not follow the vulgar, superficial interpretation of the *Song of Songs* as referring to carnal love. The Song breathes chastity and tells of the passion

[7] Peter Brown, *The Body and Society* (New York, 1988), 274.

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of Christ, the language being that of sober, pure and chaste bridals. Cyril advises: 'If then in the canticle you hear talk of a bride and a bridegroom, do not read into such language a reference to sexual passion (that would be to fall back to earth), but sublimate the passions by the passionless' *(Sermon on the Paralytic* 10). In his *Catechetical Lectures*, Cyril sees the *Song of Songs* either as pointing to the passion and resurrection of Christ (*Cat.* 13 and 14) or as pointing to baptism and its effects (*Cat.* 3). With regard to baptism, Christ is the spiritual bridegroom and each candidate is the bride (*Cat.* 3.16). The Bridegroom invites all without distinction inside the gate; now you can all say: 'The King has brought me into his storerooms' (*Song* 1:3 quoted in *Cat.* 3.2). The words of *Song* 5:3 ('I have taken off my robe, how am I then to put it on?') are related to the stripping off of the old nature in baptism (*Cat.* 3.7; the same connection is made in *Cat.* 15.25 and *Myst. Cat.* 2.2). To the newly baptised soul the angelic choir speaks the words of *Song* 8:5: 'Who is it that comes up all white and leaning upon her beloved?' and the Lord speaks the words of *Song* 4:2: 'Ah, you are beautiful my beloved, ah, you are beautiful... your teeth are like a flock of ewes to be shorn.' The flock 'all of them big with twins' signifies 'the twofold grace, either that perfected by water and the spirit or that announced in the Old and the New Testament' (*Cat.* 3.16).

From this survey, it is apparent that Cyril's position on the spectrum of renunciation is towards that end which has a benign view of marriage. This position reflects his pastoral responsibility, his vehemently anti-Manichean stance, and his understanding of the baptism of each candidate as a spiritual marriage with Christ. The *Song of Songs*, as we have seen, is used to emphasise the spiritual marriage in baptism between Christ and each candidate, not an exclusively ascetic spiritual marriage between Christ and a celibate person as in so many other writers of the fourth century.

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Cyril of Jerusalem's Eucharistic Prayer: The Argument from Silence

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The mystagogical lectures attributed to Cyril of Jerusalem are an important text, but raise a number of problems.[1] For the purposes of this paper several of these may be ignored. The attribution of these lectures to Cyril or to his successor John, their relation to the companion set of catechetical lectures, and the dates to which each set of lectures is to be assigned, though important, are not questions that need to be settled as a prerequisite to our present enquiry. It is self-evident that the lectures were addressed to a group of converts in the days following their Baptism, and there is no reason to doubt that they were delivered in Jerusalem in the second half of the fourth century. For convenience, but without prejudice, the author will be referred to as Cyril in the course of this paper.

Historians of early Christian Liturgy have turned to these and similar texts to augment the meagre evidence available in the form of liturgical texts up to this time. A cursory glance at the lectures shows that their basic form is that of a retrospective explanation of the meaning of the initiation rites recently undergone by the newly baptized. The climax of these rites was the celebration of the Eucharist, and much of the fifth lecture is devoted to a running commentary on the Eucharistic Prayer itself. This is where the problems posed by the lecture for the liturgical historian begin. To what extent may we assume that the coverage of the prayer in the lecture is comprehensive? Does the fact that it makes no reference to an Institution Narrative mean that none was present in the prayer itself?

The most important question, I believe, is what we may reasonably expect to learn from these lectures about the content and text of the actual prayer, and to answer this question we need to consider the nature of the lectures themselves. It is obvious, but perhaps needs to be said, that they are not addressed to ordinands to train them how to celebrate the holy mysteries, nor are they a draft

[1] The text used is Cyrille de Jérusalem, *Catechèsès Mystagogiques*, Auguste Piédnagel (SC 126). A comprehensive account of modern studies may be found conveniently in K.J. Burreson, The Anaphora of the Mystagogical Catecheses of Cyril of Jerusalem, in: Paul F. Bradshaw (ed.), *Essays on Early Eastern Eucharistic Prayers* (Minnesota, 1997), 131-51. Important more recent studies are Edward Yarnold, Anaphoras without Institution Narratives?: SP 30 (1997) 395-410 and Alexis James Doval, *Cyril of Jerusalem, Mystagogue: The Authorship of the Mystagogic Catecheses* (Washington, D.C., 2001).

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text submitted to some kind of liturgical commission. In either of these cases we could reasonably expect a comprehensive account of the content of the prayer. The lectures are in fact addressed to recent converts, who had been baptized within the last week, and it is clear that their fundamental purpose is to enable the hearers to grow in understanding of what they had just experienced in the initiation rites and would experience regularly in their future participation in Christian worship, and in particular to promote the formation of their Christian character. This may be seen at once in the teaching on the Lavabo and the Kiss of Peace, and in the practical directions on how the new communicants should approach the reception of the sacramental elements. Their primary purpose was thus pastoral.

While the offering of a running commentary on the actual rites of initiation serves as a convenient structure for the lectures as a whole, it is unnecessary to approach this with the presuppositions either that there will be a comment on every item within the liturgy, or that all the comments will be made in the strict order of the occurrence of the various elements of the rite. For instance in M-C 3:3 the effect of the epiclesis on the oil of chrism is explained with reference to the Eucharistic epiclesis, although the latter will not be directly treated until lecture 5.[2] On the other hand there is no reference to the epiclesis over the baptismal water in M-C 2, although it is mentioned in C 3:3.[3] The reason for the omission of any reference to the priest's greeting and the congregation's response at the beginning of the Eucharistic Prayer may be that Cyril thought that the meaning of the greeting was self-evident, and that there was no need to spend time on it when there was so much else that did require comment.

Another feature that needs to be noted is that at some points, *e.g.* the *Sursum Corda*, the exact words of the text are given, while at others Cyril is content with a general allusion[4] to various aspects of the creation and a list of angelic beings, or with an outline summary of the categories of people for whom intercessions are offered.

One of the important arguments for the absence of an Institution Narrative from the Eucharistic Prayer on which Cyril was commenting is his use of the word εἶτα. Gregory Dix[5] drew attention to Cyril's use of this word to mark the transition to the next item for comment, arguing that 'it invariably means with him what it says – "next".' He pointed out that Cyril also uses the expression μετὰ ταῦτα (= 'after this'), arguing that he uses this expression when the next item for comment is not the immediate sequel to the last. It is doubtful, however, whether Cyril's usage is quite so precise and consistent as this.

[2] There is an even earlier reference in M-C 1:7.

[3] A.J. Doval, *Cyril of Jerusalem, Mystagogue* (2001), 95-103 suggests that a possible reason for the omission in M-C 2 is that the candidates may not have been present at this point in the rite.

[4] μνημονεύομεν ('we make mention') is Cyril's term.

[5] Gregory Dix, *The Shape of the Liturgy* (London, 1945), 197f.

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In M-C 1:8 he uses μετὰ ταῦτα to introduce the last phrase in the renunciation, where he is commenting phrase by phrase on the exact formula used by the candidates for baptism: Ἀποτάσσομαί σοι, Σατανᾶ, καὶ πᾶσι τοῖς ἔργοῖς σου, καὶ πάσῃ τῇ πομπῇ αὐτοῦ, καὶ τῇ λατρείᾳ σου. The second and third phrases are introduced by εἶτα, but the fourth by μετὰ ταῦτα. It is difficult to avoid the impression here that he is using the two expressions interchangeably. M-C 2:2 suggests that when Cyril wanted to stress the immediacy of a sequel he used the word εὐθύς: immediately the candidates entered the baptistery they stripped off their garment. This was followed by the prebaptismal anointing introduced by εἶτα, and the leading to the font introduced by μετὰ ταῦτα.

It may also be worth pointing out that in the introduction to his comment on the Epiclesis Cyril combines εἶτα with a participle ἁγιάσαντες, pointing back to the Sanctus, and in that to the comment on the Intercessions he combines εἶτα with a reference to the completion of the spiritual sacrifice: Εἶτα μετὰ τὸ ἀπαρτισθῆναι τὴν πνευματικὴν θυσίαν, a phrase to which we shall have to return. E. Yarnold[6] cites a couple of passages where the combination εἶτα μετὰ implies a reference back to what has been described in the previous section (M-C 5:18 and 22). Finally, at the end of the comment on the Eucharistic Prayer, Cyril marks the transition to the treatment of the Lord's Prayer with the combined formula Εἶτα μετὰ ταῦτα. This review of Cyril's usage suggests that it is not as precise and consistent as Dix suggested, and that it would be imprudent to argue that εἶτα necessarily indicated a transition to the immediate sequel.

Three hypotheses have been advanced to explain the absence of any mention of an Institution Narrative in the course of the commentary on the Eucharistic Prayer in M-C 5.[7] The first is undoubtedly the simplest: it is that the Eucharistic Prayer in use at Jerusalem at that time did not contain an Institution Narrative. This is certainly a possibility. We need look no further than the Eucharistic Prayer of Addai and Mari for an example of such a prayer without an explicit Institution Narrative. On the other hand, it is hard to prove a negative.

The second hypothesis is that the Prayer did contain an Institution Narrative, but that this part of the Prayer was already recited silently,[8] and the reason why Cyril did not include it in his commentary was simply that the newly baptized Christians had not heard it. Against this the earliest explicit evidence cited for the silent recitation of part of the Eucharistic Prayer is that of Narsai, Homily 17, which dates from the last third of the fifth century, and it cannot be safely assumed that this practice was already current a century earlier.

The third hypothesis is that the Prayer did contain an Institution Narrative, but that Cyril did not include it in his commentary because he had already

[6] See E. Yarnold, Anaphoras? (1997), 398.

[7] See K.J. Burreson, The Anaphora (1997), 146 for bibliographical references.

[8] Georg Kretschmar, Die frühe Geschichte der Jerusalemer Liturgie: *Jahrbuch für Liturgik und Hymnologie* 2 (1956-7) 22-46 (30-3).

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treated it at length in his general introduction to the Eucharist in M-C 4, and that he did not need to devote more time to it in M-C 5, when he already had a great deal of new ground to cover. Cyril's procedure in prefacing his detailed commentary on the Eucharist with a general introduction to it seems a perfectly natural method of instruction, and is paralleled by the devotion of a whole lecture in the Catecheses (C 3) to the topic of Baptism. Theodore of Mopsuestia similarly begins his treatment of both Baptism and the Eucharist with a general introduction (the first part of lectures 12 and 15 respectively) before proceeding to comment on the details of the rite.

The strongest argument in favour of this last hypothesis arises from the citations of the Institution Narrative in M-C 4:1. While it is clear from the other biblical citations in M-C 4 that Cyril does not always quote literally, and that he can both be selective and quote phrases in a different order from that in the biblical text, his brief account of the Institution diverges more than any other quotation from the biblical text itself. Although it is introduced as a citation from St. Paul (*i.e.* from 1*Corinthians* 11:23-5), it represents in the main a selective conflation of the narrative of Paul and those in the Synoptic Gospels, with a few additions and modifications. In particular we may note the words at the giving of the cup: λάβετε, πίετε, τοῦτό μού ἐστι τὸ αἷμα.

D.S. Wallace-Hadrill drew attention to the exact agreement between this part of Cyril's citation and part of that in Eusebius' *Demonstratio Evangelica* VIII 1.78,[9] a parallel already noted by Brightman.[10] The inference he drew from this agreement between Cyril and Eusebius against any one of the biblical texts was that it was a citation from a liturgical Institution Narrative in use at Jerusalem. Since on any dating Eusebius' text must be earlier than Cyril's, it affords a strong indication that Cyril was in fact citing and commenting on the Institution Narrative of the Eucharistic Prayer in his general introduction to the Eucharist in M-C 4:1.[11]

We need now to turn our attention to the possible significance of the phrase μετὰ τὸ ἀπαρτισθῆναι τὴν πνευματικὴν θυσίαν at the beginning of the commentary on the intercessions. Clearly it implies that by that point in the prayer the offering of the spiritual sacrifice had been completed, but it does not specify precisely what is meant by the spiritual sacrifice, and it is an open question whether it looks back over the whole prayer up to this point or refers to some specific part of its content which marks its completion. Cyril's further

[9] David Sutherland Wallace-Hadrill, Eusebius and the Institution Narrative in the Eastern Liturgies: *JTS NS* 4 (1953) 41f.

[10] Frank Edward Brightman, *Liturgies Eastern and Western, vol. 1, Eastern Liturgies* (Oxford, 1896 = 1965), 469, n. 11.

[11] There is an even earlier exact parallel in Origen, *Hom. XII in Jer.* 2 (SC 238, 16). E. Yarnold, Anaphoras? (1997), 410, draws attention to further partial parallels to this part of Cyril's citation. The unusual formula 'take, drink' recurs in the Syrian Jacobite liturgy, and the unusual word order τοῦτό μού ἐστι τὸ αἷμα recurs in the liturgy of James.

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reference to the presence of the holy and awesome sacrifice at the time of the intercessions, and his argument that these are reinforced by the presentation of Christ slain for our sins, strongly suggest, however, that he regards the essence of the sacrifice as consisting in a solemn act of anamnesis and oblation in connection with the consecration of the elements as the body and blood of Christ through the invocation of the Holy Spirit.

Whether this implies that the prayer contained a specific Institution Narrative or a formal anamnesis or oblation is much harder to determine. A simple allusion to the institution as in Addai and Mari might well have sufficed. Brightman[12] cited a statement of Chrysostom that the pronouncement of the dominical words τὴν θυσίαν ἀπηρτισμένην ἐργάζεται ('makes the sacrifice complete'). But this can hardly be sufficient to demonstrate that the use of ἀπηρτισθῆναι always and necessarily implies a reference to the dominical words of institution. Yarnold's careful review of the evidence for the interpretation of ἀπηρτισθῆναι in eucharistic contexts indicates that it cannot be adduced as evidence for the presence of an Institution Narrative or any other specific element in the Eucharistic Prayer under consideration.[13]

We do not possess the text of the Eucharistic Prayer presupposed by M-C 5, nor can it be reconstructed from the lecture as precisely as can the Creed from the Catechetical lectures. In particular there can be no certainty that the Prayer contained an Institution Narrative, but neither can there be any certainty that it did not. The argument from the use of the word εἶτα has been shown to be inconclusive, as has that from the use of ἀπαρτισθῆναι. We are left with a balance of probabilities, which individual scholars will assess in different ways. To my mind the verbal agreement between the Institution Narrative in M-C 4:1 and that cited from Eusebius tilts the balance in favour of the probability that the Prayer did contain an Institution Narrative, and that Cyril quoted from it in M-C 4:1.

[12] F.E. Brightman, *Liturgies* (1896 = 1965), 479, n. 22. The statement is in Chrysostom, *De proditione Iudae* 1:6 (PG 49, 380).

[13] E. Yarnold, Anaphoras? (1997), 402-4.

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The Siguificance of George of Laodicea in the Fourth-Century Trinitarian Debates

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While most scholars view George of Laodicea as one of the minor figures of the fourth-century Trinitarian debates, he did not occupy such a marginal position in the eyes of his contemporaries. He seems, for example, to have been an especially annoying thorn in Athanasius' side and is a frequent object of the Alexandrian bishop's invective.[1] George of Laodicea was active in the fourth-century Trinitarian debates for about forty years, from the early 320s to the late 350s. Few participants in these debates had such longevity. George became a leading figure of the 'Eusebians'[2] in the early 340s and maintained his prominence in the Trinitarian controversy for nearly twenty years. He is best known for the pivotal role he played in the consolidation of the Homoiousian alliance[3] and its theology in the late 350s, the theological tradition out of which Basil of Caesarea and his fellow Cappadocians emerged. Homoiousians adapted and developed earlier Eusebian theology in ways crucial for fostering a rapprochement with the burgeoning 'Pro-Nicene'[4] movement. In a sense, then, George is a

[1] *E.g. De fuga* 1. 26.

[2] I use 'Eusebian' in this paper in line with other recent usage to name the *ad hoc* alliance of eastern bishops and theologians initially formed around the figures of Eusebius of Nicomedia and Eusebius of Caesarea that lasted from ca. 320 to ca. 350. For a definition of the category, see Lewis Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy: An Approach to Fourth-Century Trinitarian Theology* (Oxford, 2004), 52. Also see Joseph T. Lienhard, *Contra Marcellum: Marcellus of Ancyra and Fourth-Century Theology* (Washington, D.C., 1999), 34f. My usage does not follow Athanasius's polemical construction, 'the Eusebians', recently deconstructed by David M. Gwynn, *The Eusebians: The Polemic of Athanasius of Alexandria and the Construction of the 'Arian Controversy'* (Oxford, 2007).

[3] I use 'alliance' to name groups formed for the promotion of a specific agenda in the ecclesiastical sphere. This agenda may or may not be theological. Such groups are characterized by features such as the performance of ecclesiastical communion, sufficient doctrinal agreement with respect to both principles and terminologies, the struggle with common enemies, the activity of mutual defense, the exercise of public ecclesio-political support, and loyalty to revered figures. No single feature is necessary to constitute an ecclesial alliance, but these are some of the more common ones. I use this term as an alternative to the traditional but problematic term 'church party'.

[4] I adopt the usage of 'Pro-Nicene' from L. Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (2004), 236-40. A theologian may be considered Pro-Nicene if he sees the Nicene Creed as a cipher for a Trinitarian theology in which the three, the Father, Son, and Holy Spirit, are irreducible and one nature, power, and will. The Pro-Nicene alliance emerged in the late 350s in the face of the splintering of the old Eusebian alliance into several mutually opposed alliances, the Heteroousians, the

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'grandfather' of the Pro-Nicene orthodoxy endorsed at the Council of Constantinople in 381. In this paper, I will argue that George's significance lies in his being a paradigmatic example of how Eusebian theology from ca. 320 – ca. 350 was transformed into Homoiousian theology in the late 350s, setting the stage for Pro-Nicene theology. In George, one can see how earlier hostility to Nicaea became amenable to it, how from divergent theologies the first step toward theological consensus was taken.

George was actively involved in the Eusebian alliance since the early 320s, but the Eusebian alliance splintered in the early 350s when it could no longer tolerate divergent theologies regarding the Son's essence. The fourth-century Trinitarian debates took a new turn in 358 when the newly-elected bishop of Antioch, Eudoxius, began to promote the Heteroousian theology of Aetius and his disciple Eunomius.[5] The Homoiousian alliance came into existence largely in response to the challenge of Aetius and Eunomius. They viewed Heteroousian theology as the logical conclusion of the 'blasphemous' Sirmium confession of 357 and sought to counter its propagation. The Homoiousians followed a programme of theological consensus that meant to exclude the views of both Marcellus/Photinus and Aetius.

I would like to highlight George of Laodicea's leadership role in the Homoiousian alliance. First of all, George is responsible for broadcasting the Heteroousian threat to the wider church and for marshalling opposition to it. Two actions of his demonstrate this. First, in early 358 he wrote to Macedonius of Constantinople, Basil of Ancyra, and other bishops convened for the dedication of a church in Ancyra to alert them to the situation in Antioch.[6] This letter prompted Basil to hold a synod that produced a long doctrinal statement that constitutes the initial expression of Homoiousian theology.[7] Basil then headed a delegation to Constantius in Sirmium where he secured the deposition and banishment of Eudoxius, Aetius, and Eunomius. In the same year Constantius also endorsed Homoiousian theology at a council in Sirmium.[8] So, while Basil of Ancyra consolidated the Homoiousian alliance politically, it was George who was its initial spark. George of Laodicea is responsible for initiating the ecclesiastical movement against Aetius and Heteroousian theology, though Basil of Ancyra took the reins from him in the political sphere.

George's second action is a letter that he wrote on the life of Aetius, probably also in 358 – undoubtedly a highly-critical and unfavorable biography of

Homoiousians, and the Homoians. In subsequent decades the Trinitarian theology of the Pro-Nicene alliance attracted more and more support and received imperial sanction at the Council of Constantinople in 381.

[5] Sozomen, *Ecclesiastical History* IV 12.

[6] Sozomen, *Ecclesiastical History* IV 13.

[7] The letter is preserved in Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.2-11.

[8] On this council, see R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God* (Edinburgh, 1998), 357-62 and L. Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (2004), 152f.

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his enemy. A personal attack upon one's opponent was typical in the polemics of the period. This letter was later used by Gregory of Nyssa in his *Against Eunomius*,[9] and it is possible that Basil of Caesarea used it as well.[10] George's letter may also lie behind the later accounts of Aetius' early life composed by Philostorgius and Socrates.[11] And so, George initiated the campaign of defamation against Aetius; the heresiological tradition against Aetius starts with George.

When Basil of Ancyra's influence with Constantius began to wane in the face of Acacius of Caesarea and the Homoians, George reasserted Homoiousian theology and wrote in defense of it. At the Council of Sirmium in 359 Basil of Ancyra signed the 'Dated Creed', even though he had serious reservations about its theology. His infamous subscription expresses the Homoiousian viewpoint.[12] The Homoiousians preferred to say that the Son was 'like the Father in essence', whereas the *Dated Creed* affirmed that the Son was 'like the Father in all respects' and condemned the use of all 'essence' language. The *Dated Creed*'s abrogation of 'essence' language undermined the Homoiousian position. It may be the case that Basil's subscription to the *Dated Creed* was viewed as a kind of betrayal of Homoiousian theology, for shortly after this George, together with Basil, composed a defense of Homoiousian theology.[13] In it, he appears to be arguing that the Homoiousians have not abandoned their theology because Basil of Ancyra had signed the *Dated Creed*.[14] By this document George consolidated the Homoiousian alliance theologically.

I would like to mention two points in this letter that appear for the first time in the Trinitarian debates, and that are not found in Basil of Ancyra's initial statement of Homoiousian theology. Both are seen in the following passage:

> The Easterners speak of '*hypostases*' for this reason, that they may make known the existent and subsistent unique features of the persons (*tas ideotētas tōn prosōpōn*). For if the Father is Spirit, and the Son is Spirit, and the Holy Spirit is Spirit, <but> the Son is not understood as Father, and moreover, the Spirit exists and is not understood as Son, which he is not, and the Holy Spirit is neither the Father nor the Son, but rather

[9] Gregory of Nyssa, *Against Eunomius* 1.37 (GNO I 35.3-7). Gregory mentions that it was Athanasius of Ancyra, Basil's successor as bishop of Ancyra, who showed him George's letter on Aetius.

[10] At *Against Eunomius* 1.1, lines 28-31 (Bernard Sesboüé, ed., *Basile de Césarée. Contre Eunome*, SC 299. 305 [Paris, 1982-3], 1.144) Basil says the following about Aetius: 'I will not mention in what sort of customs he was reared from the beginning of his life and how, when he grew up, he intruded perniciously into the churches of God, lest I seem to focus on abusing him and to neglect the refutations' (transl. Mark DelCogliano and Andrew Radde-Gallwitz, forthcoming in the Fathers of the Church series). Basil's knowledge of Aetius' early life and his negative view of it may have come by way of George's letter.

[11] See Philostorgius, *Ecclesiastical History* III 15; Socrates, *Ecclesiastical History* II 35.

[12] Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.22.7-8.

[13] This defense is preserved in Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.12-22.

[14] R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search* (1998), 366.

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the Holy Spirit is given to believers from the Father through the Son, so that it is reasonable that the Holy Spirit too exists and subsists, the Easterners, as we said earlier, name the existent *hypostases* of the persons 'unique features', although they do not claim that the three *hypostases* are three principles or three gods. For they anathematize anyone who claims that there are three gods. But neither do they claim that the Father and the Son are two gods. For they confess that there is one divinity that encompasses all things through the Son in the Holy Spirit. But in confessing one divinity and one kingship and one principle, they at the same time piously make known the persons in the unique features of the *hypostases*, understanding the Father as existing in paternal sovereignty, and the Son as being not part of the Father but confessing him as begotten in a pure way from the Father and existing perfect from perfect, and making known the Holy Spirit, whom the divine scripture names 'Paraclete', as existing from the Father through the Son.[15]

First, George is the first theologian since Origen[16] to use the term *idiotēs*, or 'unique feature' in a Trinitarian context (unless the *Kata meros pistis* of Apollinarius, dated to ca. 357-363, is earlier). According to George, Father, Son, and Holy Spirit are each of them existent and subsistent *hypostases* who comprise the one divinity. Yet this does not make them three gods, but rather three divine persons who are distinguished from one another according to the 'unique feature' of their *hypostasis*. It is by the 'unique feature' of each that they are recognized as distinct while being the same otherwise. This same basic idea informs Basil of Caesarea's Trinitarian theology in *Against Eunomius*. When Basil explains how the persons of the Trinity are co-ordinate and ontologically equal at one level and differentiated at another level using the idea of 'unique features', he brings far greater clarity and nuance to what George said. Yet it is to George that Basil, and consequently Pro-Nicene theology, owes the basic idea and terminology for expressing unity and difference in the Trinity.

Second, George's letter is novel in the considerable attention it gives to the Holy Spirit. George is one of the few theologians in the late 350s, in addition to Cyril of Jerusalem and Apollinarius, who concerns himself with the divinity of the Holy Spirit,[17] a topic that would take on increasing importance in the next two decades. George affirms that, even though the Father, Son, and Holy Spirit are each of them called 'Spirit,' the Holy Spirit distinctly exists apart from the Father and the Son in his own *hypostasis* and is included in the one divinity. He describes the 'unique feature' of the Spirit as 'existing from the Father through the Son'.[18] In Basil of Caesarea's *Against Eunomius*, we see a

[15] Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.16.1-4 (Karl Holl and Jürgen Dummer, eds., *Epiphanius III. Panarion haer. 65-80. De fide* [Berlin, 1985], 288f.; transl. [modified] Philip Amidon, *The Panarion of St. Epiphanius, Bishop of Salamis* [New York, 1990], 305f.).

[16] Origen, *Commentary on John* II 2.16; see *id.*, *Contra Celsum* VI 65 for an example of use of this same term in the sense of 'characteristics of a nature'.

[17] R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search* (1998), 743f.

[18] Epiphanius, *Panarion* 73.16.4 (Holl 289).

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similar concern with the divinity of the Holy Spirit. Basil affirms, like George, that the Holy Spirit belongs both to the Father and the Son, not solely to one or the other.[19] Furthermore, Basil, like George, claims that the Father, Son, and Holy Spirit are each of them called 'Spirit', and that they are three *hypostases*.[20] George's interest in the question of the divinity of the Holy Spirit becomes a major issue in Pro-Nicene theology.

In this brief paper, I have highlighted several aspects of George's significance. In George of Laodicea, we see how a Eusebian could pave the way for Pro-Nicene theology. The rise of Aetius and the Heteroousians in Antioch is the decisive turning point for him: George provided the initial impetus for the Homoiousian alliance and began the smear campaign against Aetius. Basil of Ancyra was moved to action by the rallying cry of George. The theology that George promoted also influenced the young Basil of Caesarea, who had the same theological stance as George: Homoiousian and anti-Heteroousian. I've listed two of George's theological ideas that Basil deployed in his first treatise, *Against Eunomius*: the use of the concept of *idiotēs*, or 'unique feature' in a Trinitarian context, and a concern with the divinity of the Holy Spirit. And so, because of George's Homoiousian influence on Basil of Caesarea, George can be considered a 'grandfather' of Pro-Nicene theology.

[19] Basil, *Against Eunomius* 2.34.

[20] Basil, *Against Eunomius* 3.3: 'I think this is why Isaiah recorded the Seraphim crying out "Holy!" three times (see *Is.* 6:3): because the one who is holiness by nature is contemplated in three subsistences (*hypostases*). Not only does the Spirit have this name of holiness in common with the Father and the Son, but he also has the very designation of Spirit in common with them. For *God is Spirit, and those who worship him must worship him in spirit and in truth* (*John* 4:24). And the prophet says: *The Spirit before our face, Christ the Lord, of whom we said: "in the shadow of his wings we will live"* (*Lam.* 4:20). And the apostle refers to the Lord with the designation of Spirit, saying: *The Lord is the Spirit* (2*Cor.* 3:17). Now from these testimonies it is clear to everyone that the commonality of the names does not communicate his estrangement of nature, but rather his affinity with the Father and the Son' (transl. Mark DelCogliano and Andrew Radde-Gallwitz, forthcoming in the Fathers of the Church series). Eusebius of Caesarea makes a similar point about Father, Son, and Holy Spirit all being individually called 'Spirit' (*Ecclesiastical Theology* III 5). It may be the case that George and Basil are independently drawing on Eusebius. Note too that Didymus makes a similar point about Father, Son, and Holy Spirit all being individually called 'Spirit' (*On the Holy Spirit* 237).

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Notes on the Letter of Eusebius to Constantia (*CPG* 3503)

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The earliest surviving record of the letter of Eusebius of Caesarea to Constantia, the sister of the emperor Constantine and the wife of his imperial colleague Licinius (CPG 3503), is found in the proceedings of the Second Council of Nicaea in 787. This council overturned the decisions and disallowed the status of an earlier council which had met in 754 in the Palace of Hiereia, on the Asiatic shore of the Bosporus opposite Constantinople, as 'the great and holy seventh ecumenical council' of the church. The council of 787 quoted, apparently in full, the *horos*, or definition of faith, in which the earlier council had condemned the worship of images.[1] The *horos* included an appeal to the authority of the fathers of the church: it quoted from eight ecclesiastical authors of the fourth and fifth centuries, including passages containing a strong and explicit condemnation of images from a letter written by Eusebius to Constantia, of which there is no earlier trace.

Modern estimates of the authenticity of this letter of Eusebius have ranged from complete acceptance of the quotations in the *horos* and later by Nicephorus, the patriarch of Constantinople from 806 to 815, as deriving from a genuine fourth century document[2] to the hypothesis that the alleged quotations were forged in the middle of the eighth century and did not appear in the original text of the *horos* from 754, but were interpolated thirty three years later.[3] The present brief exposition will suggest that what surfaced in the eight century was a genuine letter of Eusebius which had been retouched at least a century after his death.

* * *

[1] For the text of the *horos*, see T. Krannich, C. Schubert, and C. Sode, *Die ikonoklastische Synode von Hiereia 754. Einleitung, Text, Übersetzung und Kommentar ihres Horos*, Studien und Texte zu Antike und Christentum 15 (Tübingen, 2002), 2-27.

[2] For a brief survey of recent opinions, see D.M. Glynn, From Iconoclasm to Arianism: The Construction of Christian Tradition in the Iconoclast Controversy: *Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies* 47 (2007) 225-51, 227f. The letter was accepted as authentic, but attributed to Eusebius of Nicomedia rather than to Eusebius of Caesarea by K. Schäferdiek, Zu Verfasserschaft und Situation der epistula ad Constantiam de imagine Christi: *ZKG* 91 (1980) 117-86.

[3] C. Sode and P. Speck, Ikonoklasmus vor der Zeit? Der Brief des Eusebios von Kaisareia an Kaiserin Konstantia: *Jahrbuch der österreichischen Byzantinistik* 54 (2004) 113-34. Doubts about the authenticity have long existed: in his reprint of the quotations published by Jean Boivin in his edition of Nicephorus (Paris, 1702), the Abbé Migne noted that 'a quibusdam dubitatum est an illa epistola esset reipsa Eusebii' (PG 20, 1545 n. 52).

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The *horos* of 754 quotes passages from eight writers of the fourth and fifth centuries in support of its condemnation of images.[4] The authors quoted are, in the order in which the council named them: (1) Epiphanius, (2) Gregory of Nazianzus, (3) John Chrysostom, (4) Basil of Caesarea, (5) Athanasius, (6) Amphilochius of Iconium, (7) Theodotus of Ancyra and (8) Eusebius. These quotations have recently been subjected to a searching analysis, whose results can be summarised very briefly.[5] In case of the third to the sixth authors in the list, the independent evidence of the Greek manuscripts of the authors, or in one case a Syriac translation (6), confirms their authenticity and accuracy, while in another case (7) there is no reason to doubt authenticity despite lack of specific confirmation. In the case of Gregory of Nazianzus (2), however, the perfectly metrical elegiac couplet:

ὕβρις πίστιν ἔχειν ἐν χρώμασι, μὴ κραδίῃσι·
ῥεῖά κεν ἔκπλυτ ' ἔοι. βένθος ἐμοί γε φίλον *Carmina* 1.2.31.39-40 [PG 37, 913])

appears in the *horos* in a very distorted form as

ὕβρις πίστιν ἔχειν χρώμασι καὶ μὴ ἐν καρδίᾳ·
ἡ μὲν γὰρ ἐν χρώμασι εὐχερῶς ἐκπλύνεται.
ἡ δὲ ἐν τῷ βάθει τοῦ νοός, ἐκείνη ἐμοὶ προσφιλής.[6]

Although the contrary has been claimed,[7] this 'quotation' hardly falls within the boundaries of legitimate paraphrase. The quotations from Epiphanius (1) and Eusebius (8) are not independently attested and the authenticity of the two quotations from Epiphanius is disputed.[8] Hence the authenticity of the quotations from Eusebius must be primarily decided on internal criteria.

The strongest argument in favour of authenticity is the fact that the quotations contain not only a line of argument found in Eusebius' *Preparation for the Gospel* (III 10.13-18),[9] but also vocabulary which is characteristically, distinctively or even almost uniquely Eusebian. This feature of the quotations was noted by Karl Holl and has subsequently been emphasised by Stephen Gero and Annette von Stockhausen.[10] Their linguistic arguments can be strengthened

[4] T. Krannich, C. Schubert, and C. Sode, *Die ikonoklastische Synode* (2002), 50-56.

[5] T. Krannich and C. Schubert, Väterzitate im Horos der ikonoklastischen Synode von Hiereia (754): *ZAC* 6 (2002) 121-24.

[6] J.D. Mansi, *Sacrorum Conciliorum nova et amplissima Collectio* 13 (Florence, 1760), 297A.

[7] C. Crimi, Nazianzena IX: *Siculum Gymnasium N.S.* 49 (1996) 47-60, 49f.; T. Krannich and C. Schubert, Väterzitate (2002), 121f.

[8] See now J.M. Bugár, 'Origenist Christology' and Iconoclasm: The Case of Epiphanius of Salamis, in: *Christus bei den Vätern: Forscher aus dem Osten und Westen Europas an den Quellen des gemeinsamen Glaubens*, ed. Y. de Andia and P.L. Hofrichter (Vienna, 2003), 96-100.

[9] A. von Stockhausen, in T. Krannich, C. Schubert, and C. Sode, *Die ikonoklastische Synode von Hiereia 754* (Tübingen, 2002), 93-6.

[10] K. Holl, *Gesammelte Aufsätze zur Kirchengeschichte* 2 (Tübingen, 1928), 387 n. 1; S. Gero, The True Image of Christ: Eusebius' Letter to Constantia Reconsidered: *JTS N.S.* 32 (1981) 460-70, 469; A. von Stockhausen, *Synode von Hiereia* (2002), 92-112.

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significantly, since the electronic Thesaurus Linguae Graecae enables the language of the letter to be compared easily and quickly not only with those writings of Eusebius whose authenticity has never been called into question, but with the whole range of Greek literary and semi-literary texts from Homer and the earliest prose writers down to John of Damascus and beyond. Searches reveal that several words or phrases are either (1) unique or virtually unique to Eusebius or (2) frequent in Eusebius, but only used very infrequently by any other Greek author; τὸν ἀνώτατον θεὸν καὶ πατέρα (frg. 1); ἐπέκεινα πάσης κτίσεως (frg. 2.5-6); παμβασιλεύς (frg. 6.1); προαρραβωνιζόμενος (frg. 8.7); ἀνειδωλοποιοῦντος (frg. 12.7); ἀνδρείκελα σχήματα (frg. 12.9-10). The passages in which these words and phrases occur were therefore written either by Eusebius of Caesarea himself or by a skilful imitator of his style, and most scholars will instinctively prefer the former to the latter hypothesis.

In strict logic, however, the documentation of distinctively Eusebian language in some passages does not constitute proof that Eusebius of Caesarea wrote the whole of the letter to Constantia in the form in which it became known in the eighth century. On the contrary, there is one certain anachronism in the letter as quoted in 754. The *horos* of 754 describes Eusebius' addressee as Constantia Augusta. The contemporary evidence of coins and inscriptions proves that Constantia was never an Augusta.[11] The bestowal of the title of Augusta on the wives of Augusti became automatic or almost automatic only towards the middle of the fifth century.[12] But, if the title of Augusta was added to the heading of the letter a century or more after Eusebius died, the possibility must be examined that the text of the letter has also been altered. Does anything in the text of the known fragments point to a date later than the lifetime of Eusebius of Caesarea?

Constantia's request itself may be anachronistic. There were no painted portraits of Christ in the fourth century. The sermon of Eusebius of Emesa transmitted in Latin translation with the title *De Imagine* (*CPG* 3525.5) contains the argument that, if the Son were not like the Father, then there would be many representations of him on earth, just as there are many representations of the emperor[13] – an argument which Eusebius of Emesa would hardly have chosen to use if he knew of depictions of Jesus of the sort discussed in the letter to Constantia. Admittedly, there had been a statue in Paneas (Caesarea Philippi)

[11] See *PLRE* 1 (1971), 221, Constantia 1; H.A. Pohlsander, Constantia: *Ancient Society* 24 (1993) 151-67.

[12] T.D. Barnes, *Roman Emperors (284-602): Dates, Titles, Journeys, Jurisdictions* (forthcoming), Chapter I §5.

[13] É.M. Buytaert, *Eusèbe d'Émèse: Discours conservés en Latin* 1, Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense 26 (Louvain, 1953), 130f. The Latin *imagines* presumably renders εἰκόνες in the original Greek: that Eusebius of Emesa was thinking of pictorial, not sculptured, representations seems clear: 'pictores enim imaginibus pingunt ignem; sed ignes, qui imaginibus pinguntur, non ardent, – non ergo ignis est sed fallit naturam' (131, 4-6 Buytaert).

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which some Christians had identified as Jesus healing the woman with an issue of blood. But the emperor Maximinus destroyed it in 312 (Eusebius, *Hist. eccl.* VII 18; *Commentaria in Lucam* 8.31 [PG 26, 541-4]), and no portrait which was claimed to depict the living Jesus was on show during the fourth century. Such a portrait is first attested in the *Teaching of Addai*, which was composed in Edessa some time in the early fifth century. This text alleges that Hannan, the keeper of the royal archives, painted a portrait of Jesus from life, when he took a letter from King Abgar to Jesus in Jerusalem. Jesus' reply to Abgar was known to Eusebius (*Hist. eccl.* I 13) and his alleged letter was proudly shown to pilgrims who visited Edessa. But the sights of the city shown by the bishop to the aristocratic lady who has left a record of her visit to Edessa in the early 380s (*Itinerarium Egeriae* 19 [CChr.SL 175, 59-61]), did not include a portrait of Christ.

As for the theology of the letter, the fragments contain a phrase which may reflect the theological concerns of a later age. The letter draws a distinction which Constantia had failed to grasp between the two natures of Christ:

> What sort of image of Christ do you seek? Is it the true and unchangeable one that by nature bears his distinctive characteristics or the one which he assumed for our sake when he clothed himself in the form of the shape of the slave? (frg. 7.6-9)
> God the Word, while still living among men, gave to his chosen disciples[14] as if it were a betrothal gift a glimpse of his kingdom by changing the form of a slave, and displayed on the mountain that very nature above the human when his face shone like the sun and his garments like its rays[15] (frg. 8.6-9: αὐτὴν ἐκείνην ἐπὶ τοῦ ὄρους ὑπὲρ τὴν ἀνθρωπείαν φύσιν ἐπιδέδεικται).

At least from Melito of Sardis in the second century, Christians agreed that Christ was by nature God and man (*De pascha* 58: φύσει θεὸς ὢν καὶ ἄνθρωπος). But a distinction between the divine and human natures of Christ only entered into common theological discourse in Greek with Apollinarius of Laodicea several decades after the death of Eusebius.[16] Moreover, the exact phrase ὑπὲρ τὴν ἀνθρωπείαν φύσιν (frg. 8.8-9) is very rare. It occurs in Apollinarius, who speaks of 'the bold and those lifted up above human nature' (*Fragmenta in epistulam ad Romanos* 68 lines 37-38),[17] referring to men of

[14] The transmitted text has λόγων, which Featherstone, CChr.SG 33 (1997), 93, line 16, and Stockhausen, *Synode von Hiereia* (2002), 102, both retain. But λόγων, which gives no sense, has surely crept in under the influence of the preceding λόγος. Logic requires μαθητῶν to be read, as it was by J.-B. Pitra, *Spicilegium Solesmense Sacrorum Patrum* 1 (Paris, 1852), 384.12, who claimed that it was the transmitted reading 'apud Gregor. cod. reg. olim 2952.'

[15] Alluding to *Matth.* 17:2.

[16] Apart from the unselfconscious use of the word several times by Melito of Sardis, the first explicit use of φύσις in discussions of the incarnation of Christ appears to occur c. 360: A. Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition* 1², transl. J.S. Bowden (London, 1975), 115, 129, 132, 244, 329-340.

[17] *CPG* 3694: ed. K. Staab, *Pauluskommentare aus der griechischen Kirche*, Neutestamentliche Abhandlungen 14 (Münster, 1933).

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superhuman achievements. It is applied to Christ only by Theodoret of Cyrrhus, who talks of 'Melchisedech among those above human nature' as prefiguring Christ (*Eranistes* 124.17) and of the second Lord in *Psalm* 109 (110) as being 'not only above human nature, but also above all creation' (PG 80, 1768B). Otherwise, there appears to be no occurrence of the exact phrase outside of quotations from the letter of Eusebius.

* * *

What conclusions are to be drawn from these facts? They permit, though they do not compel, a hypothetical reconstruction of the history of the letter before 754 along the following lines:

(1) Constantia wrote to Eusebius requesting a painting of Christ, presumably before making a pilgrimage to the Holy Land, as other female relatives of Constantine did after 324;[18]
(2) Eusebius, in accordance with the views set out in the third book of his *Preparation for the Gospel*, wrote back explaining why he could not fulfill her request;
(3) a fair copy of Eusebius' letter was preserved in the episcopal archives in Caesarea;
(4) at some date after c. 450 parts of the letter were rewritten to intensify and sharpen its arguments against the propriety of attempting to represent Christ at all, perhaps by someone who wished to impugn the status and authority of the picture of Christ then being exhibited in Edessa.

* * *

In conclusion, two observations may be made. First, since the only certain anachronism is in the heading, further investigation is needed of the language of the letter and of its underlying theological assumptions in order to show whether or not the eighth century quotations of the letter are free of any taint of anachronism. Second, the *onus probandi* surely lies heavily on those who wish to argue that a letter written by a man who died in 339 survived completely unaltered in any way for more than four centuries before it was rescued from oblivion.

[18] Constantine renamed Gaza Constantia in her honour after her death (*VC* 4.38).

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Universalism in the *Demonstratio evangelica* of Eusebius of Caesarea

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Although universalism in recent years has received increasing attention from a broad spectrum of ancient historians,[1] its function and importance in the Eusebian corpus is still relatively unexplored territory,[2] which recalls an insightful

[1] *E.g.*: Elizabeth DePalma Digeser, Lactantius, Porphyry, and the Debate over Religious Toleration: *JRS* 88 (1998) 129-46; *ead.*, Lactantius, Eusebius, and Arnobius: Evidence for the Causes of the Great Persecution: *SP* 39 (2006) 33-47; and *ead.*, *The Making of a Christian Empire: Lactantius and Rome* (Ithaca and London, 2000), 96-104; Michael Bland Simmons, Porphyrian Universalism: A Tripartite Soteriology and Eusebius' Response: *Harvard Theological Review* 102 (2009) 169-92; *id.*, *Via universalis salutis animae liberandae:* The Pagan-Christian Debate on Universalism in the Later Roman Empire (A.D. 260-325): *SP* 40 (2006) 245-61; *id.*, *Arnobius of Sicca: Religious Conflict and Competition in the Age of Diocletian*, Oxford Early Christian Studies (Oxford, 1995), 264-303; Joel Kaminsky and Anne Stewart, God of all the World: Universalism and Developing Monotheism in Isaiah 40-66: *HTR* 99 (2006) 139-63; Jeremy M. Schott, Porphyry on Christians and Others: 'Barbarian Wisdom,' Identity Politics, and Anti-Christian Polemics on the Eve of the Great Persecution: *Journal of Early Christian Studies* 13 (2005) 277-314; Peter Brown, *The Rise of Western Christendom: Triumph and Diversity, A.D. 200-1000*, 2nd ed. (Oxford, 2003), 60-4; Denise K. Buell, Race and Universalism in Early Christianity: *Journal of Early Christian Studies* 10 (2002) 429-68; Jeffrey Wayne Hargis, *Against the Christians: The Rise of Early Anti-Christian Polemic*, 2nd ed. (New York, 2001), esp. ch. 4, 63-90: Porphyry and the Polemic of Universalism; Marc Hirshman, Rabbinic Universalism in the second and Third Centuires: *HTR* 93 (2000) 101-15; Henry Chadwick, Christian and Roman Universalism in the Fourth Century, in: Lionel R. Wickham and Caroline P. Bammel, assisted by Erica C.D. Hunter (eds.), *Christian Faith and Greek Philosophy in Late Antiquity: Essays in Tribute to George Christopher Stead Ely Professor of Divinity, University of Cambridge (1971-1980). In Celebration of his Eightieth Birthday 9th April 1993* (Leiden, 1993), 26-42; Garth Fowden, *Empire to Commonwealth: Consequences of Monotheism in Late Antiquity* (Princeton, N.J., 1993); Jon D. Levenson, The Universal Horizon of Biblical Particularism, in: Mark G. Brett (ed.), *The Bible and Ethnicity* (Leiden, 1996), 143-69; Geza Alföldy, Die Krises des Imperium Romanum und die Religion Roms, in: Werner Eck (ed.), *Religion und Gesellschaft in der Römischen Kaiserzeit: Kolloqium zu Ehren von Friedrich Vittinghoff* (Köln, 1989), 53-102; Andrew Smith, The Pagan Neoplatonists' Response to Christianity: *The Maynooth Review* 14 (1989) 25-41; Arnaldo Momigliano, The Disadvantages of Monotheism for a Universal State: *Classical Philology* 81 (1986) 285-97.

[2] See *e.g.*, the works by Simmons in the note above; Aryeh Kofsky, *Eusebius of Caesaea, Against Paganism* (Leiden, 2000), 216-19, 297, 310f.; Michael J. Hollerich, *Eusebius of Caesarea's Commentary on Isaiah: Christian Exegesis in the Age of Constantine* (Oxford, 1999), 171-73; Friedhelm Winkelmann, *Euseb von Kaisareia: Der Vater der Kirchengeschichte* (Berlin, 1991), 126-35; Brian Croke, The Origins of the Christian World Chronicle, in: Brian Croke and A.M. Emmett (eds.), *History and Historians in Late Antiquity* (Sydney, 1983), 116-31, esp. 126; T.D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (Cambridge, Mass., 1981), 184-8.

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observation made years ago by Professor T.D. Barnes: '... much of Eusebius' vast output lies neglected ... and even historians of the Christian Church overlook precious nuggets of information which lie buried there.'[3] Focusing upon universalism in the *Demonstratio evangelica*,[4] I shall examine two such nuggets in this paper: (1) an analysis of the theme in each of the ten books with a synopsis of their thematic relationship to Eusebius' theological argument; and (2) the historical context in which Eusebian universalism developed.

I. Statistical analysis and theological themes

There are 471 passages of the *Demonstratio evangelica* related to universalism,[5] including such sub-themes as the fulfillment of O.T. prophecy in Christ; Christ the possessor of a divine power; a 'Remnant' theology; Christ the Lord and Savior of the universe; all nations are in subjection to the devil and evil spirits; the vicarious sacrifice of Christ; salvation for those who died before Christ; and eschatological salvation.[6] Owing to the need to respond to the pagan criticism that Christianity is new and therefore lacks the support of antiquity; and to the Jewish rejection of Jesus Christ as Yahweh's promised Messiah, it is not surprising that a great majority of these passages – almost 68% – fall in the sub-category of the fulfillment of O.T. prophecy in Christ. Before I analyze Eusebius' argument in each book, it is first necessary to note his definition of *salvation* and *universalism*, respectively.

Salvation in the *Demonstratio evangelica* has a dual meaning. First, it concerns the saving grace of God that delivers humankind from its bondage to polytheistic error, diseases and sicknesses of body and soul, superstition, and sin and dissolution.[7] Secondly, it has to do with God's work of grace within those humans who accept Christ's gift of salvation, offered to all nations, which results in the bestowal of the knowledge of the Supreme God, remission of sins, and eternal life.[8] Of the numerous passages in the *Demonstratio evangelica* which convey this dual meaning,[9] IV 10 is exemplary. Eusebius asserts that Christ vanquished the malicious demons who had tyrannized those on earth

[3] T.D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (1981), v.

[4] I follow herein W.J. Ferrar (ed.), *The Proof of the Gospel* (London, 1920), 2 vols.

[5] A forthcoming publication will include these data as an Appendix.

[6] A forthcoming publication will include these data as an Appendix.

[7] IV 10 (163)(a-d).

[8] See IX 13 (448)(d)-(449)(b); VIII 2 (385)(c-d); VIII Pref. (364)(d)-(365)(b).

[9] *E.g.*, I 6 (20)(d)-(21)(a); I 6 (24)(c) (after the *Matth.* 28:19 quote); II 3 (63)(b-c); II 3 (63)(a-b); II 3 (68)(c-d); II 3 (69)(d)-(70)(a); II 3 (85)(c-d); III 2 (95)(b); III 2 (101)(d)-(102)(a); III 5 (112)(c-d); IV 10 (163)(a-c); IV 10 (164)(d); IV 12 (167)(a-b); IV 12 (167)(c-d); IV 13 (168)(c-d); VI 13 (272)(c-d); VIII Pref. (364)(d)-(365)(b); VIII 1 (377)(a-c); IX 13 (448)(d)-(449)(b); IX 15 (453)(c-d).

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... while he healed and cured the whole human race with the gentle.
... He freed them from all sorts of sicknesses and suffering of body as as well as soul, he set all that came to him free from age-long superstition, and the fears of polytheistic error, and from a low and dissolute life.

The uniqueness, however, of Christ's great work of salvation is found in its universality: It is available to all nations of the world, Jews and Gentiles, and it is not restricted to gender or social class.[10] Eusebius defines Christian universalism in (*e.g.*) the Preface to Book VIII, asserting that

... at the fitting time, ... God the Word, revealed himself, preaching the Gospel of the Father's love, the same for all nations, whether Greeks or Barbarians, to every race of men, moving all to a common salvation in God, promising the truth and light of true religion, the kingdom of Heaven, and eternal life to all.[11]

With this and similar passages[12] we should compare Porphyry's search for the *via universalis* and his rejection of Christianity as offering the one way of salvation for all humanity.[13] I shall return to this later.

Within this thematic structure of universalism Eusebius skillfully interweaves the fine points of his theological argument. In Book I he begins to develop one of the major themes of the work: the Old Testament was not suitable for all nations. The Hebrew prophets predicted the coming of the New Covenant, which would offer universal salvation, now fulfilled in Jesus Christ. Four points of this argument are further developed in Book II: (1) the Gentiles were included in the Old Testament prophecies;[14] (2) Christ is the savior not only of the Jews, but also of all the Gentiles;[15] (3) O.T. prophecies foretold that Christ's advent would produce blessings for the Gentiles, but the opposite for the Jews due to their rejection of Christ, which caused them to lose the promises given to their forefathers;[16] (4) the 'Remnant' theology by which Eusebius asserts that God promised salvation only to those Jews who would believe in Jesus Christ.[17] Book III posits that the O.T. predicted the incarnation of Christ[18] and defends against the pagan accusations that Christ was a sorcerer.[19] Eusebius' rebuttal is based upon the belief that a divine power was at work in

[10] *E.g.*, I 6 (24)(c); III 5 (112)(c-d); VIII 1 (377)(a-c).
[11] VIII Pref.(364)(d)-(365)(b).
[12] *E.g.*, I 6 (24)(c) (after *Matth.* 28:19 quote); IV 10 (163)(d); IV 12 (167)(c-d); IX 13 (448)(d)-(449)(b); IX 15 (453)(c-d).
[13] Augustine, *Civ. Dei* X 32 quoting from *De regressu animae*; see Jeremy M. Schott, Christianity, Empire, and the Making of Religion in Late Antiquity, in: Daniel Boyarin, *et al.* (eds.), *Divinations: Rereading Late Ancient Religion* (Philadelphia, 2008), 56-7.
[14] II Pref.-1.
[15] II 1-2.
[16] II 3 (62)(b-c).
[17] II 3 (63)(a-b), see also Appendix II, no. 3.
[18] III 2 (101)(d)-(102)(a).
[19] III 3-7.

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Jesus,[20] which forms an important aspect of his proof from miracles argument. Christ the Pre-existent Savior and Creative Word of the universe is the main theme of Book IV. The Lord of the Universe provides equally for the salvation of all.[21] The Word of God had to become incarnate to offer himself as the great sacrifice for the sins of the world, thus delivering humanity from the errors of polytheism.[22]

Book V affirms the superiority of O.T. prophecies to those of paganism because the latter provide no oracles for mankind as a whole, while the Hebrew prophets predicted the coming of Jesus Christ to men and 'the conversion of the Gentiles from idolatrous error to godly religion.'[23] In Book VI Eusebius argues that the O.T. prophesied the incarnation whose principal purposes were to destroy demonic powers, provide salvation to all Gentile nations, and cause the ruin of the Jews because of their unbelief.[24]

Books VII, VIII, and IX concern the incarnation as the fulfillment of O.T. prophecy and such signs of Christ's coming as the abolition of the offices of Prophet, Priest, and King in Israel; the cessation of Mosaic worship; the desolation of Jerusalem and its temple; the conquest of polytheism; and the universal dissemination of the knowledge of the Supreme God. Book X analyzes prophecies about the betrayal and passion of Christ in conjunction with the soteriological theme of the Gospel of Christ going forth, like living water, from Jerusalem and spreading to the ends of the earth.[25]

Section II. Historical context

Statistics and themes can often be invested with a life of their own, so we must now analyze the historical context in which Eusebian universalism developed. Beginning with Caracalla's *Constitutio antoniniana* of A.D. 212[26] and reaching an apex in the Constantinian attempt to enforce doctrinal uniformity upon the Church,[27] imperial policies of the third and early fourth centuries, six examples of which I shall now give, reveal a growing concern to unify the

[20] See III 4-6.

[21] IV 1-6.

[22] IV 7-17. Other evils: demonic spirits, sicknesses and diseases, superstition, and sin and a dissolute life (see IV 10 [163][a-d]).

[23] V 30 (255)(a).

[24] See VI 13.

[25] X 7 (488)(a)-(489)(a).

[26] See David S. Potter, *The Empire at Bay A.D. 180-395* (London and New York, 2004), 133-51.

[27] For the background see Harold Drake, The Impact of Constantine on Christianity, in: Noel Lenski, ed., *The Cambridge Companion to the Age of Constantine* (Cambridge, 2006), 111-36; *id.*, *Constantine and the Bishops: The Politics of Intolerance* (Baltimore and London, 2000); and T.D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (1981), 191-275.

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empire, manifested in a movement towards a politico-religious universalism whose primary objective was to ensure the continued blessings of the gods or God.

1. Caracalla's conferring universal citizenship might have been motivated by economic reasons,[28] but it had the concomitant benefit of promoting unity: Roman citizens were expected to pay taxes and also to worship Roman gods. In the *Constitutio* Caracalla's desire to share his good fortune established a unifying soteriological principle inseparably binding the *salus* of the emperor with that of all the citizens of the empire.[29]
2. The Severan transformation of the imperial cult in which 'the human Roman Emperor was now proclaimed as a divinized oriental savior who with his house will bring the blessings of a new Golden Age.'[30]
3. Decius' edict of A.D. 249 ordering universal sacrifice to procure the safety of the empire in the aftermath of conflicts with Persia, the Carpi, the Quadi, the massive invasion of the Goths in Moesia Inferior, riots, natural disasters, and usurpations,[31] is one of the most important events revealing a developing politico-religious universalism of the third century.[32]
4. Aurelian's unification policies based upon the worship of *Sol Invictus* who is depicted on coins as *Dominus Imperii Romani*, and inscriptions address the emperor *DEO AVRELIANO*. Frend's analysis is judicious: 'This was to be the universal faith of the empire.'[33] It appears that Porphyry was not the only one seaching for a universal way, and the Philosophy from *Oracles* and *Contra Christianos* on the one hand; as well as the works of Arnobius, Lactantius, Eusebius, and later, Augustine, on the other; can perhaps best be understood as competing soteriological paradigms in the context of developing ideologies of universalism during a period of unprecedented crises which forced emperors increasingly to rely upon religion as a unifying principle for all peoples of their besieged empire.
5. Diocletian's policies were based on the belief that the universal worship of the Roman gods would ensure the unity of the empire and the gods' continued

[28] Dio, LXXVIII.9.5 and D.S. Potter, *The Empire at Bay* (2004), 138f.

[29] See James H. Oliver, *Greek Constitutions of Early Roman Emperors from Inscriptions and Papyri* (Philadelphia, 1989), no. 260, *Papyrus Gissenus* 40.1.

[30] Duncan Fishwick, The Development of Provincial Ruler Worship in the Western Roman Empire: *ANRW* II.16.2 (1978) 1201-53, 1243.

[31] John Drinkwater, Maximinus to Diocletian and the 'Crisis', CAH 12.2 (Cambridge, 2005), 28-66, 36-9.

[32] See G. Clarke, Third Century Christianity, CAH 12.2 (Cambridge, 2005), 589-671, 625-8; R. Selinger, *The Mid-Third Century Persecutions of Decius and Valerian* (Frankfurt am Main, 2002); and J.B. Rives, The Decree of Decius and the Religion of Empire: *JRS* 89 (1999) 135-54.

[33] W.H.C. Frend, *The Rise of Christianity* (Philadelphia, 1984), 440.

[34] See the contents of the law against consanguineous marriages on which see now Simon Corcoran, *The Empire of the Tetrarchs: Imperial Pronouncements and Government A.D. 284-324* (Oxford, 1996), 173f. = Coll. 6.4 (CJ 5.4.17).

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> blessings.[34] Elizabeth Digeser has shown that 'religious universalism had become an issue' and 'Diocletian wanted all his subjects to unite in worship of the traditional gods.'[35] The New Imperial Theology of Jovius and Herculius promoted worship of the traditional Roman gods, upheld a puritanical morality, and aimed for the eradication of the two most successful universal salvation cults (Christianity and Manichaeanism) that posed serious threats to the empire's welfare.[36]

Finally, the Constantinian Settlement. As Drake has accurately observed, for the first time in the Church's history there was after Constantine a 'universally recognized authority above that of the bishop to enforce conformity.'[37] And Fowden is correct to observe that after becoming a Christian, he

> ... created a golden opportunity to unite a wholeheartedly universalist religion and its abundance of scriptural authority and missionary impetus with an empire's forces of political, military, and economic expansion in order to create a genuine world empire.[38]

Constantine evidently believed that he was more successful in his reliance upon Christianity as an agent of unification than his predecessors had been in their dependence upon paganism; and I suggest that this was due to the perceived reality that Constantine arrived at, reinforced by his court theologian Eusebius, that unification was not possible without doctrinal uniformity, something that owing to its essential nature paganism was unable to provide, and it was an ideal propagated in the new Christian Weltanschauung of one God, one emperor, and one empire.[39] But the ideological catalyst that held these unifying principles together was one Savior for all.

[35] Elizabeth DePalma Digeser, Porphyry, Lactantius, and the Paths to God: *SP* 34 (2001) 521-28, 528.

[36] See S. Corcoran, *The Empire of the Tetrarchs* (1996), 135f., 179-82; and Alan K. Bowman, Diocletian and the First Tetrarchy, A.D. 284-305: CAH 12.2 (2005) 67-89, 80-85; G. Clarke, Third Century Christianity (2005), 649; D.S. Potter, *The Empire at Bay* (2004), 330-35; E. DePalma Digeser, *The Making of a Christian Empire* (2000), 54; *ead.*, Lactantius, Porphyry, and the Debate over Religious Toleration (1998), 146; T.D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (1981), 9-11, 19f.

[37] H. Drake, The Impact of Constantine on Christianity (2006), 124.

[38] G. Fowden, *Empire to Commonwealth* (1993), 82.

[39] See *ibid.* 51, 88.

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The Devious Eusebius? An Evaluation of the *Ecclesiastical History* and Its Critics

Thomas HEYNE, Oxford

Writing of Eusebius' *Ecclesiastical History* (*EH*), Francis Bacchus proclaimed: 'It would be difficult to overestimate the obligation which posterity is under to Eusebius for this monumental work.'[1] The encyclopaedic *EH* is perhaps our greatest source of information for the pre-Nicene Christians, including such obscure figures as Hegesippus and Quadratus. Socrates, Sozomen, and Theodoret made no attempt to rework the earlier *EH*, and even Christians nearly contemporaneous with Eusebius occasionally quoted his text rather than the original authors.[2] Such immense indebtedness to the *EH* begs the question: how well can it be trusted? Is it true – as Robert Grant and others have argued – that Eusebius deliberately falsified his textual sources? By analyzing the *EH* and its critics afresh, I will argue that – despite an initial appearance of pure accuracy – Eusebius' work is fraught with errors and coloured with an apologetic selectivity and bias. Nonetheless, Grant's particular arguments that Eusebius deliberately falsified his source texts are unconvincing.

Initially, one might expect flawless accuracy from Eusebius. He begins his *Canons*, which were the basis for his *EH*, with the declaration: 'I consider historical truthfulness and accuracy to be matters of great importance...'[3] The *EH* is perhaps the first history to quote extended texts repeatedly, even to the chapter number,[4] and Eusebius uses a consistent vocabulary when mentioning which sources he possesses.[5] At times, he admits when he has no 'written evidence'

[1] Francis Bacchus, Eusebius of Caesarea: *Catholic Encyclopedia*, vol. 5 (New York, 1909), 633-6.

[2] See Andrew Louth (ed.), *Eusebius: The History of the Church from Christ to Constantine*, transl. G.A. Williamson (New York, 1989), xiii. I shall use this translation.

[3] Given in Richard Burgess, The Dates and Editions of Eusebius' *Chronici canones* and *Historia ecclesiastica*: *JTS N.S.* 48 (1997) 471-504.

[4] *E.g. EH* III 39 and IV 11. See I 13; III 7, 23, 32; IV 23; VII 23. See Dominique Gonnet, L'acte de citer dans l'*Historie ecclésiastique* d'Eusèbe, in: Bernard Pouderon *et al.* (eds.), *L'Historiographie de l'Eglise* (Paris, 2001), 181-94; Andrew Carriker, *The Library of Eusebius of Caesarea*, SVigChr (Leiden, 2003), 45-68; Anthony Grafton and Megan Williams, *Christianity and the Transformation of the Book* (New York, 2006), 200, 345; Berndt Gustafsson, Eusebius' Principles in Handling His Sources, As Found in His Church History, Books I-VII: *SP* 4 (1961) 429-441.

[5] A. Carriker, *The Library* (2003), 56-8.

Studia Patristica XLVI, 325-331.
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or relies solely on a 'tradition'.[6] Indeed, he invokes a blessing on those who record their sources with 'meticulous accuracy', but he curses the 'devil's apostles' for distorting certain texts.[7] Thus, Eusebius appears to set a remarkably high standard for accuracy.

Unfortunately, Eusebius' work falls somewhat short of the ideal. Patriarch Photius deemed his encyclopaedic style 'neither agreeable nor brilliant',[8] while William Bright and Hugh J. Lawlor exposed numerous inconsistencies and errors, including more than fifty nonbiblical quotations that had been somehow changed.[9] According to several scholars, many of these inconsistencies – such as speaking of three Jameses but citing Clement's claim that there were only two[10] – simply muddle the meaning rather than advance a particular polemic; indeed, copyists may be as much to blame as Eusebius himself.[11] Still, the *EH* is clearly far from flawless.

A more significant indictment claims that Eusebius was deliberately partial in his selection and interpretation of sources. Both chronological and internal evidence suggests that the *EH* had an overarching apologetic and pastoral aim: namely, to demonstrate the unbroken unity, orthodoxy, and courage of Christians in the face of demonic persecutors and heretics. Although Timothy Barnes argued that the first edition of the *EH* was a work of 'pure scholarship' written long before the Diocletian Persecution,[12] Richard Burgess has persuasively disputed this claim, demonstrating instead that the first edition was composed c. 311-3, when both the Great Persecution and Porphyry's *Against the Christians* were imminently on Eusebius' mind.[13] Indeed, Eusebius' preface reveals his pastoral and apologetic purpose: the *EH* will show the 'lessons of history', and it will expand upon the *Canons*, which were directed against Porphyry's attacks.[14] The *EH*'s preface also affirms Eusebius' selectivity and focus: he has picked his sources as carefully as flowers, and he will concentrate upon the heroes and pedigrees of the major churches, while merely listing the 'names and dates' of the heretics.[15] True to his word, Eusebius speaks little of the teachings of men like Mani or Sabellius, or the failings of the

[6] II 17, 25; III 1, 13, 32; IV 5; V 27; VI 5.

[7] V 20, IV 23. See IV 29, V 28.

[8] Photius, *The Library*, transl. John H. Freese (London, 1920), 13.

[9] William Bright (ed.), *Eusebius' Ecclesiastical History* (Oxford, 1881), xlviii-l; Hugh J. Lawlor, *Eusebiana* (Oxford, 1912), 23-6.

[10] II 1, 23; cited in W. Bright (ed.), *Eusebius' Ecclesiastical History* (1881), xlix.

[11] H.J. Lawlor, *Eusebiana* (1912), 23-6; D.S. Wallace-Hadrill, *Eusebius of Caesarea* (London, 1960), 160; A. Grafton and M. Williams, *Christianity* (2006), 213; B. Gustafsson, Eusebius' Principles (1961), 431.

[12] Timothy Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (London, 1981), 113.

[13] R. Burgess, The Dates (1997), 471-504. See also Andrew Louth, The date of Eusebius' *Historia ecclesiastica*: *JTS N.S.* 41 (1990) 110-33 and A. Carriker, *The Library* (2003), 41-4.

[14] *EH* I 1; R. Burgess, The Dates (1997), 497, 503.

[15] *EH* I 1.

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lapsi.[16] He desires to display the monolithic 'Catholic and only true Church, remaining the same and unchanged'.[17] Eusebius declares quite clearly: 'I shall include in my overall account only those things by which first we ourselves, then later generations, may benefit.'[18] He never claims to give a balanced and nuanced account of the 'facts'.

Furthermore, Eusebius interprets events to show retributive 'divine judgment', as did the authors of the Old Testament.[19] Thus, the sinful Jews are rightly punished with starvation, dissenting bishops cause persecution, evil rulers have their private parts devoured by worms, but Constantine is protected by God.[20] More significantly, surviving manuscripts show that Eusebius gave *damnationes memoriae* to emperors who later persecuted Christians or turned on Constantine. Licinius, first praised as 'honoured', was described as insane in Eusebius' later revision of Book IX, and Crispus' name was removed altogether after his execution for Oedipal incest.[21] Although even these stark examples are not outright falsifications of source texts, it is clear that Eusebius has skewed his account to fit his designs. He has included details that aid his apologetic and pastoral purpose but passed over what counters it.

That a bishop writing under the pressure of persecution was prone to mistakes, selectivity, and apologetic bias is hardly surprising, and most of his sources could be criticised for the same. But the more crucial question remains: how far did he go in his polemic? Is it true, as some scholars have suggested, that Eusebius actually falsified his sources? Edward Gibbon and Jacob Burckhart long ago questioned Eusebius' honesty, but Robert Grant gave the most recent and detailed attack. To the question 'Did the Father of Church History Write History?' Grant offered a negative reply, suggesting that the devious Eusebius deliberately distorted a number of texts and so 'sacrificed historical fact on the altar of moralistic political narrative'.[22] By 'falsification of facts', the *EH* became Eusebius' 'survival kit' in the face of anti-Arian and Constantinian pressure. Grant gave additional examples in his later monograph, and Leslie Barnard defended his position.[23] The charge is indeed serious: if Eusebius deliberately 'misquotes' several of his sources,[24] can we trust his text at all?

[16] VII 6, 26, 31; VIII 2. See also B. Gustafsson, Eusebius' Principles (1961), 436-7.

[17] II 2.

[18] VIII 2, see V 22.

[19] VIII 2.

[20] I 8; VIII 2, 16; X 8-9.

[21] IX 9; X 8, 9. A. Louth (ed.), *Eusebius: The History* (1989), 359, 385.

[22] Robert Grant, The Case Against Eusebius: Or, Did the Father of Church History Write History?: *SP* 12 (1971) 412-21.

[23] Robert Grant, *Eusebius as Church Historian* (Oxford, 1980); Leslie W. Barnard, Bede and Eusebius as Church Historians, in: Gerald Bonner (ed.), *Famulus Christi* (London, 1976), 106-24.

[24] R. Grant, *Eusebius* (1980), 67.

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Surprisingly, no scholar (to my knowledge) has published an analysis of Grant's arguments, which, in fact, prove untenable. None of his examples – and I will here examine only a few – can sufficiently prove his 'Case Against Eusebius'. Although Eusebius does seem a bit confused when he follows his sources, he does not appear to misquote or falsify them for his political ends.

I shall focus on Grant's more important arguments, starting with the question of Maximin (also known as Maximinus Daia). Grant accuses Eusebius of falsifying the text of an imperial rescript of toleration of Christians in order to besmirch Maximin, Constantine's enemy. According to Grant, this is 'Eusebius at his worst', because he deliberately changed a rescript coming from Maximin and his allies into one from Galerius and his allies.[25] Indeed, for Eusebius to change authorship from Galerius Valerius Maximinus to Galerius Valerius Maximianus, 'one letter did the trick, an alpha'.[26] But the introductory description of Galerius in the rescript is in fact quite detailed: 'Emperor Caesar Galerius Valerius Maximianus Invictus Augustus, ... Germanicus Maximus, Egyptiacus Maximus, Thebiascus Maximus, Sarmaticus Maximus five times, ... Holder of Tribunician Authority for the twentieth time, Imperator for the nineteenth, Consul for the eighth ...[*etc.*]'[27]

These titles match Galerius' accomplishments up to 310/1 quite well, but they would have been impossible for the young Maximin. Thus, if the rescript were really issued solely from Maximin and his two allies, Eusebius must have changed a great number of words – much more than a single alpha. As Eusebius' audience undoubtedly remembered an edict so recent, obvious fabrication would have been foolhardy. Moreover, the bishop desiring to 'justify divine judgment' would have been loath to attribute falsely an act of clemency to the nefarious Galerius immediately after describing his gruesome demise.[28] The alternative scholarly theory – that Galerius endorsed the edict but Maximin withheld his name – seems much more convincing than Grant's accusation of transparent fabrication.[29]

Next, Grant charges that Eusebius manipulated evidence to preserve the reputation of Constantine's supposed friend Marcus Aurelius. Pointing to an error in V 5, Grant discerns deliberate, politically-driven deception.[30] Eusebius generally describes Marcus Aurelius as 'Antoninus' or 'Verus' – and his co-emperor Lucius simply as 'Lucius' – but he changes this scheme once in V 5: 'While Antoninus was still on the throne, ... his brother Marcus Aurelius Caesar...' Since Eusebius had recently (in V 2) described the Lyons persecutions

[25] R. Grant, The Case (1971), 417.

[26] *Ibid.*

[27] VIII 17.

[28] VIII 2, 16.

[29] Philip Schaff and Henry Wace (eds.), *NPNF* II, vol. 1 (Edinburgh, 1890), 339; A. Carriker, *The Library* (2003), 280. See *EH* IX 1-2.

[30] R. Grant, The Case (1971), 416.

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of A.D. 177, and since Lucius had died c. 169, Grant argues that Eusebius has deceptively called Lucius 'Antoninus' in V 5 to attribute to the dead Lucius persecutions actually coming from Marcus Aurelius.

Scholars have long acknowledged Eusebius' error,[31] but Grant's particular charge of political distortion seems ill-founded. Long before V 5, Eusebius actually imputes numerous martyrdoms – in fact, probably too many – to Marcus Aurelius. The violence begins in Book IV when 'Antoninus Pius ... was succeeded by his son Marcus Aurelius Verus (or Antoninus) in association with his brother Lucius'.[32] As the persecutions continue, Lucius drops out of the picture; Justin's second apology is written only to 'Antoninus Verus, whose period I am dealing with at present'.[33] Marcus Aurelius continues as the perpetrator in V 1: 'It being the seventeenth year of the Emperor Antoninus Verus ... the persecution of the Church flared up again.'[34] No educated reader would have here read 'Lucius', who reigned only for nine years (mostly fighting in the East); furthermore, neither Eusebius nor his sources ever used 'Verus' to refer to Lucius.[35] The gruesome Lyons persecutions end in V 2 with: 'Such were the experiences of the Churches under the emperor mentioned.'[36] No emperor had been named but Marcus Aurelius. Thus, Eusebius clearly attributed several persecutions to Aurelius long before his error in V 5; this mistake was too tardy and too weak to redeem Aurelius' now besmirched reputation.

Furthermore, Eusebius actually *mis*attributed a number of additional persecutions to Marcus Aurelius. Andrew Louth has astutely shown that Eusebius wrongly 'allots to the reign of Aurelius the martyrdoms of Polycarp ... Metrodorus, Pionius ... Ptolemy, Lucius ... and many others.'[37] Moreover, Eusebius makes a significant error in IV 13 which works against Marcus Aurelius. The rescript of toleration presented here clearly comes from 'Caesar Marcus Aurelius Antoninus Augustus', but Eusebius precedes it by attributing it to 'Emperor Antoninus, surnamed Pius'.[38] No wily politician seeking to redeem Marcus Aurelius would have permitted obvious errors that stole credit for his acts of clemency and impugned him with additional acts of malice.

Eusebius' confusion in V 5 seems either another of his careless errors or (more likely) an attempt to deal with conflicting sources, but not an anachronistic political move. Even today historians have difficulty with the nearly homonymic emperors.[39] Furthermore, Eusebius had conflicting evidence: Tertullian

[31] Schaff and Wace, *NPNF* (1890), 390.
[32] IV 15.
[33] IV 18.
[34] V 1.
[35] Tertullian, Justin, and Melito use 'Verus' for Marcus Aurelius: IV 13, V 5.
[36] V 2.
[37] A. Louth (ed.), *Eusebius: The History* (1989), 390.
[38] IV 12-13.
[39] *E.g.* Rod Bennett, *Four Witnesses* (San Francisco, 2002), 199.

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and Apolinarius suggested that Marcus Aurelius favoured Christians, but Melito petitioned him to end the persecution.[40] Finally, Grant's claim that Eusebius has here sacrificed 'historical fact' for 'political' reasons is simply anachronistic.[41] Given the accepted theory that Eusebius finished his first edition long before the Councils of Antioch and Nicaea, and given the dearth of evidence for a dramatic rewriting of books I-VII, one can scarcely deem these books a 'survival kit' in the face of pressure from Constantine and the anti-Arians.[42] Thus, the chronology and the text provide little support for Grant's notion that Eusebius deliberately falsified Marcus Aurelius' name for political ends.

Grant made a similarly unconvincing charge several years later, when he argued that Eusebius misquoted Tertullian to preserve Aurelius' reputation. Grant asserted that Eusebius in V 5 'indicate[d], unlike Tertullian, that pro-Christian letters of Marcus Aurelius were actually available'.[43] Yet Tertullian's *Apology* suggests exactly such a conclusion: 'The letters of Marcus Aurelius' are cited as proof that he was the Christians' 'protector'.[44] Grant next argues that Eusebius cleverly removed Tertullian's words *nullus Verus impressit* to attack Lucius and redeem Marcus Aurelius.[45] In fact, the Greek text that Eusebius possessed differs in several places from Tertullian's extant Latin.[46] Moreover, neither Eusebius nor his sources used 'Verus' alone to refer to Lucius, and Eusebius most likely wrote this section long before he needed Constantine's approval. Thus, Grant's charge that Eusebius distorted Tertullian for political ends is both anachronistic and unimpressive.

Brevity will not permit detailed analyses of Grant's other major accusations, which appear similarly untenable. It is scarcely true that Eusebius 'misparaphrases' and 'misquotes' Hegesippus, or that Eusebius places words in Ignatius' mouth.[47] Nor can I find conclusive evidence for Grant's claims that Eusebius dishonestly denigrated the millenarians and also rewrote VII 32 to VIII 2 to defend his Arian position.[48]

Since Grant's arguments are inconclusive, and since no other scholar has provided numerous examples of the *EH*'s supposed falsification of sources, the charge of deception against the Father of Church History seems unwarranted. While the *EH* does exhibit numerous inconsistencies and a selective apologetic bias, one can scarcely find deliberate lies or textual distortion. Furthermore,

[40] V 5, IV 26.
[41] R. Grant, The Case (1971), 416.
[42] *Ibid.* 421.
[43] R. Grant, *Eusebius* (1980), 66.
[44] V 7.
[45] R. Grant, *Eusebius* (1980), 66.
[46] Some MSS even give 'Severus' rather than 'Verus.' See *EH* II 2 and A. Carriker, *The Library* (2003), 261-2.
[47] R. Grant, *Eusebius* (1980), 43, 67, 112. See Ignatius' *Letter to the Magnesians.*
[48] R. Grant, The Case (1971), 416-20; see *EH* VIII 14, 20 and VI 18, 25.

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Eusebius' apologetic focus, which is largely admitted in his preface, is hardly surprising given that his sources showed the same bias and that the *EH* was written under the shadow of violent persecution. Even the most critical scholar must acknowledge that no Christian before or after Eusebius attempted the same herculean undertaking. Without the diligent erudition of Eusebius, placed fortuitously at the greatest Christian library then extant, a huge portion of our knowledge of early Christianity might have been lost forever.

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The Syriac Version of Eusebius' *Ecclesiastical History* Revisited

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While preparing a new Japanese translation of the *Ecclesiastical History*, which will be accompanied by notes of mainly philological nature, I came to realize that, although generally considered as authoritative or even definitive, Eduard Schwartz' edition of the *Ecclesiastical History* of Eusebius can be reexamined from diverse points of view. For one thing, Schwartz did not establish a stemma codicum, and he forcibly defends his position on this point.[1] However, generally speaking, the longer the text to be edited, the greater the chance to find passages which would enable the editor to establish the precise relation between the manuscripts concerned; that would normally lead to establishing a stemma. As the text of the *Ecclesiastical History* is sufficiently long, one can wonder if Schwartz' position is really tenable or not. Needless to say, this is purely a matter of Greek philology which is not the main subject of the present paper.[2]

Another reflection comes from the existence of its ancient versions, Latin as well as Syriac. Of course, as the *Ecclesiastical History* is preserved in many manuscripts of its original language, Greek, it is quite possible to think that these ancient versions have only secondary value for the edition of the Greek text.

List of abbreviations:

Einleitungen = E. Schwartz, *Eusebius Werke*. Bd. 2: *Die Kirchengeschichte*, 3. Teil: *Einleitungen, Übersichten und Register* (GCS, 9.3) (Leipzig, 1909).

Lake = Kirsopp Lake (transl.), *Eusebius. The Ecclesiastical History*, vol. 1 (LCL), 1926.

LCL = Loeb Classical Library, Cambridge, Mass./London.

Schwartz = E. Schwartz (ed.), *Eusebius Werke*. Bd. 2: *Die Kirchengeschichte*, 2 Teile (GCS, 9.1/2) (Leipzig, 1903/1904) (quoted as *e.g.* Schwartz, 832). I have been unable to consult the reprint (with Geleitwort by F. Winkelmann) published in 1999.

Winkelmann = Friedhelm Winkelmann, Eduard Schwartz, Eusebius Werke: Die Kirchengeschichte (GCS IX/1-3) (Leipzig, 1903-1909). Eine vorbildliche Edition: *Zeitschrift für antikes Christentum* 8 (2004) 59-78.

Wright / McLean = William Wright and Norman McLean (eds.), *The Ecclesiastical History of Eusebius in Syriac* (Cambridge, 1898).

[1] *Einleitungen*, IX.

[2] It should be noted that the present paper is not interested in the discussion concerning the various editions of the *Ecclesiastical History* such as can be guessed from *internal* evidence; for this see *e.g.* Timothy D. Barnes, The Editions of Eusebius' *Ecclesiastical History*: *GRBS* 21 (1980) 191-201. Nor is it interested in the discussion concerned solely with the Greek manuscript tradition of the *Ecclesiastical History*, such as can be seen in Robert M. Grant, *Eusebius as Church Historian* (Oxford, 1980), ch. III ('Editions of the Church History').

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However, it is well known that the oldest Greek manuscripts of almost all the Greek texts date at the earliest from the 9th or 10th century,[3] and the *Ecclesiastical History* is no exception to this rule; the lapse of several centuries could have influence on the form of the text, either through corruptions in the process of transmission of the text, or through rectifications from doctrinal points of view. The Latin version has almost the same problem as far as the dates of the manuscripts are concerned,[4] but the Syriac version is different: it is preserved in two manuscripts, one of which is a dated manuscript of A.D. 462, and the other can be dated on palaeographical grounds to the sixth century. Thus Syriac studies have, at least theoretically, a great chance of contributing to philology of early Christian texts and, consequently, to studies in early Christianity in general, because *Syriacisants* dispose not only of an ancient version but also of ancient manuscripts of a text, whose importance for studies in early Christianity can hardly be stressed enough. To be sure, Schwartz took the Syriac version into account for his edition, but his use of it can be questioned in various respects, as we will see below.

Mention should be made here of Schwartz' evaluation of the Syriac version as a whole. Schwartz distinguishes two major groups of the Greek manuscripts, ATER on the one hand and BDM on the other, and he joins both ancient versions, Syriac (Σ) and Latin (Λ), to the latter group. Then he proceeds to highlighting some passages where, allegedly, the group ATER differs significantly from the group BDM$\Sigma\Lambda$: for example, the lack of mention of the name Licinius in the group BDM$\Sigma\Lambda$ is said to reflect a kind of *damnatio memoriae* which, according to Schwartz, was introduced into the text just after the establishment of the *Alleinherrschaft* of Constantine.[5] Another example is concerned directly with the Syriac version: only the Syriac version lacks the mention of the name of Crispus, Constantine's son put to death by his father in 326, and Schwartz says that this lack of mention comes from Eusebius' 'last hand', *i.e.*, the last edition of the *Ecclesiastical History*.[6] Thus according to Schwartz, on the basis of manuscript evidence three different editions of the *Ecclesiastical History* can be discerned. But is it really thinkable at all that the extant manuscripts, Greek and Syriac, reflect the situation of the fourth century so minutely? Especially in the case of the lack of mention of Crispus, one can suspect that the omission comes, not from Eusebius himself, but from the translator's decision.[7] It should

[3] See the list of dated Greek manuscripts in Robert Devreesse, *Introduction à l'étude des manuscrits grecs* (Paris, 1954), 286-320.

[4] The oldest known witness of the Latin version (N) can be dated to the 8th century (*Einleitungen*, CCLIV); all the other manuscripts are later.

[5] *Einleitungen*, L: 'Eine solche [*damnatio memoriae*] hatte Sinn nur unter der Regierung Constantins, und damit ist weiter gegeben, daß Euseb selbst die Änderungen vorgenommen hat, und zwar unmittelbar nach der Katastrophe von 323 [*sic*].' See also Winkelmann, 69 n. 37.

[6] *Einleitungen*, L.

[7] Winkelmann, 72 admits that this *damnatio memoriae* of Crispus 'kann also wohl kaum auf Euseb zurückgeführt werden'.

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also be noted that the only argument for Schwartz to make things go back up to the fourth century seems to be the date of the Syriac version, around A.D. 400 in his view.[8] The dating itself seems plausible, but it is not sufficient to justify his detailed argument.

Now we come to the Syriac version.[9] The general impression the Syriac version gives at first sight is that it apparently uses less words than the Greek text.[10] For example, ἀναλεξάμενοι and ἀπανθισάμενοι in the Greek text[11] are rendered in Syriac by only one expression, ܒܠܨ ܫܕܚ[12]; the Syriac translator either used less words, or simply omitted the first word ἀναλεξάμενοι, because of the similarity of the meaning. There is also a case where a Syriac word ܣܦܝܩܐ (σαφῶς[13]; σαφής[14]) serves to render not only the superlative (σαφέστατα[15]) of the same Greek word, but also another word of similar meaning (ῥᾴδιον[16]) or even represents a paraphrase (ܣܦܝܩܐ ܗܘܐ for γένοιτο πρόδηλον[17]). Likewise, the verb ܗܘܐ renders various Greek verbs (καθίστατο[18], καθίσταται[19], ὑπῆρξε[20], γενέσθαι[21], and διαγενέσθαι[22]), thus losing the nuances of the Greek text.

The Syriac version sometimes omits not only single words but an entire phrase, sentence, or even more. As far as the first volume is concerned, at first Schwartz diligently noted this type of omissions, but as the text goes on, he simply stopped noting them.[23] Schwartz' treatment is not consistent.

Some of the omissions are easily understandable: in the following examples, it is probably the Syriac translator who omitted the underlined passages, because they contain repetitions of what is said just before or after.

[8] *Einleitungen*, XLII. Winkelmann, 64 dates 'kurz nach 400'.

[9] For convenience's sake, the following examples are taken mainly from the first volume of the *Ecclesiastical History*.

[10] The opposite case can be observed, but apparently less frequently: for example, ἐπικρατήσαντος Αὐγούστου (I 9.2: Schwartz, 72 ll. 5-6) is translated substantively by ܒܥܕܝܢ ܕܫܠܛ ܐܓܘܣܛܘܣ (Wright / McLean, 43 ll. 6-7), Syriac using two words to render one word ἐπικρατήσαντος.

[11] I 1.4 (Schwartz, 8 ll. 11, 13).

[12] Wright / McLean, 6 l. 2.

[13] I 3.6 (Schwartz, 30 l. 15; Wright / McLean, 17 l. 6).

[14] I 7.2 (Schwartz, 54 l. 9; Wright / McLean, 32 l. 14).

[15] I 2.9 (Schwartz, 14 l. 21; Wright / McLean, 9 l. 17).

[16] I 2.10 (Schwartz, 16 l. 10; Wright / McLean, 10 l. 10).

[17] I 2.17 (Schwartz, 20 ll. 15-6; Wright / McLean, 11 l. 14).

[18] I 2.7 (Schwartz, 14 l. 5; Wright / McLean, 9 l. 5).

[19] I 9.4 (Schwartz, 72 l. 17; Wright / McLean, 44 l. 3).

[20] I 3.10 (Schwartz, 32 l. 23; Wright / McLean, 18 l. 18).

[21] I 5.4 (Schwartz, 46 l. 7; Wright / McLean, 27 l. 12).

[22] I 10.4 (Schwartz, 74 l. 8; Wright / McLean, 45 l. 6).

[23] To cite some examples Schwartz did not note: ἐκ τῆς Ἐσθα (τοῦτο ... παραδέδοται) (Schwartz, 56 ll. 17-8); τραγικὴν ... ὑποθέσεως (Schwartz, 64 ll. 18-19); παραπλησία ...

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1. Φησὶν δὲ αὐτὸν ἡ θεία γραφὴ τὸν πάντα τῆς διδασκαλίας διατελέσαι χρόνον ἐπὶ ἀρχιερέως Ἄννα καὶ Καϊάφα, δῆλουσα ὅτι δὴ ἐν τοῖς μεταξὺ τῆς τούτων ἔτεσιν λειτουργίας ὁ πᾶς τῆς διδασκαλίας αὐτῷ συνεπεράνθη χρόνος.[24]
2. καὶ ταῦτά γε αὐτῷ ἐν ὀκτωκαιδεκάτῳ τῆς Ἀρχαιολογίας δεδήλωται, ἔνθα συλλαβαῖς αὐταῖς περὶ τοῦ Ἰωάννου ταῦτα γράφει.[25]

Neither omission is noted in Schwartz' apparatus.

It seems difficult, then, to use the Syriac version in order to control the readings of the Greek text in every detail. Schwartz, however, includes the Syriac version in his apparatus as if it were a witness of the Greek text on an equal footing with other Greek manuscripts. This might be misleading.

In some passages, to be sure, the Syriac testimony can be adduced for deciding a correct reading, but normally such a procedure can be fruitful in the cases where Syriac supports a reading attested by Greek manuscripts: for example, in a passage Schwartz adopts the reading διὰ σωμάτων (AB), whereas we have another reading δι' ἀρωμάτων (TERM) which is supported by Syriac ܒܣܡܐ.[26] Schwartz' choice seems hardly tenable, unless justified by a stemma codicum or the like, the very thing he refused to establish.

What has been said so far must not be understood in the sense that the value of the Syriac version for textual criticism of the *Ecclesiastical History* should be depreciated. It is one thing that the details of the Syriac version cannot be fully trusted for use in Greek textual criticism, but another thing is the problem of the *Vorlage* of the Syriac version.

Mention must be made here of a passage (IX 9.10f.) discussed by Schwartz and highlighted recently by Winkelmann:[27] to justify the choice of the reading τὸ σωτήριον σημεῖον (*i.e.*, without σταυρός) attested by one manuscript only, where the other manuscripts attest readings with σταυρός, Schwartz argues with Eusebius' stylistic peculiarity.[28] But this type of argument could be rather complicating, because, strictly speaking, a discussion of stylistic peculiarities should be based on passages attested unanimously by the manuscripts. And here the corresponding Syriac passage ܕܗܢ ܗܘ ܕܨܠܒܐ ܕܦܘܪܩܢ ܕܝܠܢ ܐܬ ܕܗܢ[29] ('das Zeichen unserer Erlösung das ist aber das Kreuz' in Schwartz' apparatus[30]) seems to suggest, *pace* Schwartz' (and perhaps also Winkelmann's) judgement,

κάκωσις (Schwartz, 66 l. 5). None of these omissions (among others) of the Syriac version is noted in Schwartz' apparatus.

[24] I 10.2 (Schwartz, 72 ll. 26-8).

[25] I 11.4 (Schwartz, 76 ll. 25-6). In passing, one can note that, as shown in the example no. 2, the Syriac version tends to omit the precise reference noted diligently by Eusebius.

[26] I 3.13 (Schwartz, 34 l. 9; Wright / McLean, 19 l. 19).

[27] Winkelmann, 63-7.

[28] *Einleitungen*, LXXXIV-V.

[29] Wright / McLean, 375 l. 12.

[30] Schwartz, 832.

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that its *Vorlage* did *not* contain σταυρός, because ܕܡ ܗܘ ܠܨܠܒܐ is most probably an explanatory addition[31] by the Syriac translator who wanted to clarify the passage he found somewhat ambiguous. Thus it seems that Schwartz' choice of the reading without σταυρός can be justified simply by referring to (the *Vorlage* of) the Syriac version.

In fact, the veritable value of the Syriac version for textual criticism of the *Ecclesiastical History* seems to lie in the possibility that its *Vorlage* might reveal a very old, perhaps even the oldest, stage of the transmission. For that purpose, it would be necessary to take the Latin version also into consideration, to see if there are passages where Syriac and Latin agree with each other against the Greek text.

In I 2.3 Schwartz notes an omission common to both Syriac and Latin: δεύτερον μετὰ τὸν πατέρα.[32] This omission of theological interest arouses imagination, but it is premature to pronounce any judgement based on this one example.

The omission of I 2.9 is similar in content, but more interesting because here Syriac and Latin have not an omission, but a different text[33]:

Greek: τοῦτον δεύτερον μετὰ τὸν πατέρα κύριον
Syriac: ܗܘ ܒܪ ܐܝܬ ܗܘ ܒܪ ,ܡܪܝܐ ܗܘ ܠܗ
Latin: de eo quod dominus sit ipse cum domino

In my view, the text is almost identical between Syriac and Latin.

Here the discussion has to stop, because my research on the Syriac version, which is in progress, has so far been unable to find further interesting examples in this respect.

Final remarks

The present paper touched upon various problems related to the text of Eusebius' *Ecclesiastical History*. Although no conclusion has yet been drawn, it seems clear that Schwartz' edition is not entirely free of criticism; perhaps there might be some chance to improve the edited Greek text, or at least our understanding about the relation between the Greek original and the Syriac version.

Lastly, it is interesting to note that, when we compare the translation, Syriac and English, of the following passage[34] (an excerpt from Josephus):

[31] ܕܡ ܗܘ is a typical expression in Syriac used for explanation.

[32] Schwartz, 12 ll. 1-2. The omission of the versions is noted in Schwartz' apparatus.

[33] Schwartz, 14 l. 20 (Greek) and 15 ll. 15-6 (Latin); Wright / McLean, 9 l. 16. The variants of the versions are noted in Schwartz' apparatus. The passage is mentioned in John E.L. Oulton, Rufinus's Translation of the Church History of Eusebius: *Journal of Theological Studies* 30 (1929) 150-74, at 154, but without any comment on it.

[34] I 5.6 (Schwartz, 46 ll. 18-9; Wright / McLean, 27 ll. 21-2; Lake, 49).

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ἐπὶ τούτου τις ἀνὴρ Γαλιλαῖος ... εἰς ἀποστασίαν ἐνῆγε τοὺς ἐπιχωρίους
ܒܗܕܐ ܥܕܢܐ ܓܠܝܠܝܐ ... ܠܡܪܕܘܬܐ ܐܚܪܟ ܠܐܝܟܢܝ ܕܒܝܬܗ
At this time a Galilean... incited the inhabitants to revolt.

it is clear that the Syriac translator understands the Greek better than the English translator of Loeb Classical Library, because the original text of Josephus[35] shows that the underlined Greek phrase means 'in the reign of this man' rather than 'at this time'. For any translator of the *Ecclesiastical History* (including myself), it would be profitable to continue consulting the Syriac version.

[35] Henry St. J. Thackeray (transl.), *Josephus II. The Jewish War, Books I-III* (LCL), 1927, 366.

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Playing With Words: Is There a Corpus in the *Vita Constantini*?

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Eusebius of Caesarea's *Life of Constantine* (*De Vita Constantini*, hereafter *VC*) is the inevitable starting point for any serious study of the monumental changes that took place during the reign of its subject. But the *Life* itself comprises little more than half of the most complete manuscripts.[1] The remainder includes a lengthy oration attributed to Constantine himself and at least parts of two speeches delivered by Eusebius. That Eusebius intended these works to be read with the *Life* is clear: he mentions both Constantine's and his own writings in the text of the *Life*, each time stating his intention to append a copy.[2] These intentions suggest that there may be some advantage to thinking of the *Life* as part of a corpus, rather than as the free-standing text that has drawn the lion's share of attention. But if it is a corpus, what message was that corpus meant to convey? Eusebius is reasonably clear that he wanted his appendices to illustrate the emperor's piety, as demonstrated either by his own efforts or by the joy with which he received those of Eusebius. But the day when scholars were willing to accept Eusebius' version of events without first asking some hard questions is long passed, and modern scholars have not been slow to deduce that Eusebius also intended readers to conclude that he and the emperor shared a common outlook. As far back as 1981, Timothy Barnes argued that Eusebius intended the speeches to establish 'two crucial theses: Eusebius is the authoritative interpreter of the Constantinian empire, and emperor and bishop agree on fundamental theological issues', and in her insightful 1997 study of the *Life*, Averil Cameron observed that 'it is not accidental that these works, if taken together, would provide a philosophical, historical, and apologetic exposition of Constantine's special position in God's plan'.[3]

[1] The *Life* covers 137 pages in the most recent GCS edition by F. Winkelmann, *Über das Leben des Kaisers Konstantins. Eusebius' Werke* I 1, GCS (Berlin, 1975). The three speeches are in the earlier edition by I. Heikel, *Eusebius Werke*, 1, GCS 7 (Leipzig, 1902) where they take up 106 pages.

[2] Constantine's speech: *VC* 4.32; a work on the Holy Sepulchre and his Tricennial speech: *VC* 4.46.

[3] Averil Cameron, Eusebius' Vita Constantini and the Construction of Constantine, in: M.J. Edwards and S. Swain (eds.), *Portraits: Biographical Representation in the Greek and Latin Literature of the Roman Empire* (Oxford, 1997), 145-74, at p. 166. For Barnes, see Timothy D. Barnes, *Constantine and Eusebius* (Cambridge, MA, 1981), 272.

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Nevertheless, doubt whether all of the appended works are the ones Eusebius intended and clear signs of tampering – intentional or otherwise – in his own speeches have prevented more thoroughgoing study of the nature and purpose of this 'corpus'. In the course of preparing these speeches for a new edition, and with a primitive and wholly unwarranted faith in the power of modern computers, I undertook to determine whether statistical study of the vocabulary of the three works might provide additional clues about the purposes of each speech, and perhaps also identify common themes that made them a corpus. Given the numerous pitfalls that the *Life* holds for the unwary scholar, it must be granted that any sort of roadmap to Eusebius' intentions would be extremely helpful.

As it turned out, that faith was largely, though not entirely, misplaced. What follows unfolds as a cautionary tale in three acts.

Act the First. Wherein the Protagonist succumbs to the Siren lure of Statistics.

Only the barest details about the three works under review are needed to test the proposition of a corpus. The first is the notorious 'Oration to the Saints', a heavily problematic work (hereafter *OC* for 'Oratio Constantini'). Conclusions about its date and even its purpose vary widely, but it can be tentatively (though not conclusively) assigned a place in the eastern empire and a date some short time after the defeat of Constantine's erstwhile eastern colleague, Licinius, in 324.[4] Eusebius' two speeches have come down as a single speech divided into eighteen chapters. The first ten of these chapters are the *Laus Constantini*, or *LC*, a speech Eusebius says he gave in the capital on the occasion of Constantine's Thirtieth Jubilee, probably in July 336.[5] The second, chapters 11-18, are a speech on Constantine's Church of the Holy Sepulchre in Jerusalem. Eusebius tells us he was one of the celebrants at the dedication of that church in July of 335, and also that he gave a speech on this subject in Constantine's presence, probably in November of the same year. The version we have is probably that second speech, though it is most economical to conclude that it varied little from the speech Eusebius gave just a few months earlier. I have labeled this speech *De sepulchro Christi*, or *SC*.

[4] Bruno Bleckmann, Ein Kaiser als Prediger: zur Datierung der Konstantinischen Rede an die Versammlung der Heiligen: *Hermes* 125 (1997) 183-202, followed with some modifications by Timothy D. Barnes, Constantine's Speech to the Assembly of the Saints: Place and Date of Delivery: *JTS N.S.* 52 (2001) 26-33. An earlier date is preferred by Mark Edwards, The Constantinian Circle and the Oration to the Saints, in: *id., et al.* (eds.), *Apologetics in the Roman Empire: Pagans, Jews, and Christians* (Oxford, 1999), 251-75. A strong argument for the Council of Arles in 314 has been put forward by K. Girardet, *Konstantin und das Christentum: die Jahre der Entscheidung 310 bis 314* (Trier, 2007), 69-81.

[5] On the date and circumstances, see H. Drake, When Was the *De laudibus Constantini* Delivered?: *Historia* 24 (1975) 345-56.

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TABLE 1

	OC	LC	SC
TOTAL WORDS (appx):	13.500	10.200	13,300
TOTAL AFTER DELETING particles, conjunctions, etc:	5,651	4,648	5,495
TOTAL DIFFERENT WORDS	1,992	1,734	1,754
TOTAL AFTER DELETING SINGLE USE	4,549	3,675	4,514
TOTAL DIFFERENT	890	761	773
TOTAL AFTER DELETING **FEWER THAN 5 USES**	**2,967**	**2,252**	**3,169**
TOTAL DIFFERENT	280	208	250
TOTAL = 50 PERCENT 2,963	**2,453**	**3,935**	
TOTAL DIFFERENT	255	227	173
TOTAL 10+ TIMES	**1,538**	**1,392**	**2,080**
TOTAL DIFFERENT	101	84	114
(AFTER EXCLUSIONS)	88	75	101
PERCENT 'USEFUL'	27%	30%	38%

EXCLUDED WORDS

OC = 15		**LC = 11**		**SC = 15**	
πᾶς	123	πᾶς	125	**πᾶς**	185
εἰμί	86	εἰμί	22	εἰμί	50
γιγνόμαι	45	ἔνθα	21	ἄλλος	35
ἔχω	34	γιγνόμαι	14	γιγνόμαι	18
ἐκεῖνος	31	εἶμι	12	ἐκεῖνος	13
εἶμι	22	ἄλλος	11	εἶμι	12
ποιέω	19	ποιέω	10	ἔχω	11
πάρειμι (sum)	14	**πᾶς**	125	ἄγω	11
ἄλλος	13	εἰμί	22	ποιέω	11
χρή	12	ἔνθα	21	ἵστημι	10
ἀντί	11	γιγνόμαι	14	χρή	10
πᾶς	123	πᾶς	185		
εἰμί	86			εἰμί	50
γιγνόμαι	45			ἄλλος	35
ἔχω	34	γιγνόμαι	18		

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The raw total of words in these three speeches (Line 1 on Table 1) tells us a few useful things. Most importantly, it shows that the *SC*, though divided into fewer chapters, is actually substantially longer than the *LC* – 13,300 words to 10,200. Indeed, it is only marginally shorter than the *OC*, which comes in at 13,500 words. Robin Lane Fox once estimated that Constantine's speech would have taken about two hours to deliver.[6] Accordingly, if the *SC* is the speech described in the *Life*, Eusebius' claim that he became uneasy about the emperor's insistence on standing through the entirety of his declamation (*VC* 4.33) seems entirely understandable.

To develop a useful numerical profile for each of these speeches, I first discarded the most negligible words – particles, conjunctions, articles, relative pronouns and the like. This reduced the numbers dramatically, but did not change the order of length (line 2 of Table 1). Looking at the total of *different* words (line 3) further narrowed the number and produced one surprise. The *OC* was still the longest, but the difference between the *SC* and the *LC* virtually disappeared. These figures confirm a subjective impression that Eusebius drew on a greater variety of images in the *LC* as he sought to achieve the more elevated tone appropriate to a formal state occasion, and that overall the *SC* followed a simpler and less ornate plan. The *SC*, even though it was also delivered before the emperor, conformed to the looser style of a Christian homily, using a smaller vocabulary and frequent repetition. These numbers thus serve as a further piece of evidence for considering these eighteen chapters as two separate works.

The next step was to see if a list of high-frequency words could help establish or refine our understanding of the core meaning of each speech. I drew up two lists: the first established the number of 'useful' words that made up roughly 50 per cent of each oration (in bold on Table 1); in the *OC*, this total was virtually identical to the number of words used five or more times; Eusebius' speeches showed larger differences, but they were still roughly comparable. In the second calculation, I only counted the number of words used ten or more times. With this calculation, the *SC* took a substantial lead over both the *OC* and the *LC*, indicating yet again the repetitive nature of this speech. Percentages led to the same conclusion. These high-frequency words made up roughly the same amount for both the *OC* (27%) and the *LC* (30%), but a significantly larger percentage of the *SC* (38%).

But the most dramatic reduction occurred when I looked at the total number of *different* words used at these two cutoff points (Table 1), an exercise that reduced the totals to around 100 or fewer words. Since the same words were at the top of either list, I opted to use the list of ten or more words, since only a handful of high-frequency words made it possible to look for themes and patterns.

[6] R.L. Fox, *Pagans and Christians: Religion and the Religious Life from the Second to the Fourth Century A.D.* (New York, 1987), 628.

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Act the Second. Wherein the Protagonist confronts disaster and learns a sobering lesson about the efficacy of Prayer.

Here I must own up to a major disappointment. Long ago, I argued that Eusebius exhibited very different attitudes toward the traditional religions of the empire in his two orations, and that these differences could serve as a control of sorts on the way Eusebius portrays the emperor in the *Life*, with the picture in the *LC* as the better guide because it was the more official of the two orations.[7] Some scholars objected that these differences were illusory, and that they could readily be explained by the different subjects of the two speeches as well as by their different venues – the *LC* exhibits more accommodating language because Eusebius was constrained by the rigid criteria for such occasions.[8] I had hoped that this word study would provide an objective means of testing these very different judgments.

Initially, I thought it did. The highest scoring word in the initial run-through for the *LC* was the adjective πᾶς, 'all', with 129 occurrences. The same word also showed up as the highest frequency term in Constantine's speech, with 126 uses. This total became even more lopsided when closely similar words such as ἅπας and σύμπας were factored in. These results seemed to confirm that both the *OC* and the *LC* took an inclusive view of Christianity. Then I ran the *SC* and found that πᾶς was not only again the highest frequency word, but also that, with 185 occurrences, the term was used far more heavily here than in either of the other speeches. Was this simply (I prayed) because the *SC* was a significantly longer speech than the *LC*? No. A breakdown by percentages showed that πᾶς made up 6.3% of the high frequency words in the *SC* but only 5.25% in the *LC* and 4.25% in the *OC*. I was forced to conclude that πᾶς is simply a high-frequency word in all three speeches, and probably in ancient Greek as a whole, a test I did not run. For the record: I still think I am right; I just cannot prove it with statistics.

Act the Third. Wherein the Protagonist repents, and finds Redemption.

This experience with πᾶς led me to look for other words that were high frequency but too commonplace to say much about the speaker or his intentions. I made the arbitrary, but I think defensible, decision to exclude such words from the tally of words used ten or more times. This proved to be a relatively small number: thirteen each from the *OC* and *SC*, and only nine from the *LC* (Table 1).

[7] H. Drake, *In Praise of Constantine: A Historical Study and New Translation of Eusebius' Tricennial Orations* (Berkeley, 1976), ch. 4.

[8] See, *e.g.*, A. Cameron, Eusebius' Vita Constantini and the Construction of Constantine (1997), 152.

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The final number of ten or more words is thus eighty-eight for the *OC*, seventy-five for the *LC* and 101 for the *SC*. These I have chosen to call the 'keywords' for each oration.

Do they tell us anything? By far the highest frequency word in the *OC* is θεός, with 121 occurrences, almost twice as many as the second highest word, ἄνθρωπος, with sixty-nine. A similar pattern prevails in Eusebius' speeches. Two closely related words, βασιλικός and βασιλεύς, head the list for the *LC*, and with fifty-eight and fifty-six occurrences respectively they outnumber the third-highest word, θεός, which appears fifty-five times, by more than two-to-one. Throw in the fourth-highest word, βασιλεία, which Eusebius uses fifty-three times, and the dominance of terms for kingdom and kingship becomes even more evident. In the *SC*, the highest frequency word, λόγος, with 119 references, is only marginally more frequent than number two θεός (105). But again these two are closely related, and together they occur about two-and-a-half times more frequently than the next word, ἄνθρωπος, which occurs eighty times.

If we were to draw conclusions about the themes of these orations solely on the basis of these highest frequency words, we would say that Constantine's speech is about divinity, the *LC* about kingship, and the *SC* about the Logos. As one-word summaries, these work tolerably well. Norman Baynes once characterized the *LC* as the first clear expression of 'the political philosophy of the Christian Empire', and it has long been regarded as a Christianized version of the classical *basilikos logos*.[9] As for the *SC*, Eusebius himself says at the outset that he intends to defend Constantine's decision to build the Church of the Holy Sepulchre by explaining 'the principles of the power of our Savior God',[10] and the lion's share of the speech is devoted to a justification for the Incarnation largely cobbled from his earlier works. Constantine's oration is more problematic; it is a highly convoluted essay that has given rise to a number of explanations of its theme and purpose. But Constantine's opening words invoke 'the author of all worship',[11] and the prevalence of θεός shows that divinity is at least one of the major topics of this oration – if not its purpose, then at least a means to an end.

The numerical totals also reveal some important differences. Χριστός is notoriously absent from the *LC* – its one occurrence is an obvious interpolation – and it shows up only three times in the *SC*. But Constantine uses the term thirteen times. Conversely, Eusebius refers to the gods, θεοί, of traditional religion frequently in both of his speeches – twenty-six times in the *SC* and ten times in the *LC*, while Constantine's usage is relatively sparse (eight times). Eusebius refers to gods by name in both of his speeches, while Constantine

[9] Eusebius and the Christian Empire, in: *AIPHO* (Mélanges Bidez) 2 (1934) 13-18, at p. 13.

[10] *SC* 11.7.

[11] *OC* 1.1, αὐτῷ τῷ τῆ θρησκείᾳ θεῷ. I use the Nicene Fathers translation. Edwards renders the phrase as 'the very God who is worshipped': *Constantine and Christendom* (Liverpool, 2003), 1.

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only names one god, Apollo, and then only in reference to the Sibylline oracle. It is striking that the sun, ἥλιος, shows up seventeen times in the *LC*, and nineteen times in the *SC*, but is used only five times by Constantine himself.

Some of these results are surely due to differences in theme and emphasis between the three orations, but others are more suggestive. The relative absence of Χριστός even in a speech devoted to the Incarnation may signal nothing more than stylistic preference, for instance, but it may also have implications for a bishop with tainted theological leanings. And it is tempting to think that the disparity in solar references indicates it was beneficial to mention the sun when speaking to Constantine, but detrimental for Constantine to do so when speaking to a Christian audience.

But even to make this suggestion reveals the limitations of a strictly numerical approach. Numbers cannot tell us how a given term is being deployed, whether positive or negative valences are attached to it; in some ways, they can be very misleading. The figures show, for instance, that Eusebius used θεός heavily in the *LC*. They do not show that twenty of its fifty-five uses occur in a single chapter, fifteen of them in just two sentences of that chapter; nor do they show that in all but two of these twenty uses Eusebius was speaking not of the Christian god but of individual pagan deities.[12] For any serious analysis of this speech, these references need to be considered as part of the total for θεοί. Another example is σημείον, 'sign', which just makes it onto the list for the *LC* with ten uses. But context shows that the term plays a pivotal role in that speech. It is a sign revealed to Constantine by God himself, the source of his victories (*LC* 6.21) and the motivating force behind his ecclesial endowments (*LC* 9). It is certainly the labarum, the device that plays such a major role in the *Life of Constantine*.

Curiously, σημείον shows up only once in Constantine's own oration, and there it is used not by the emperor, but the Sibyl in her oracle.[13] Instead, πρόνοια, 'Providence', is a keyword for Constantine: it occurs twenty-five times in the *OC* and in every major section of the address. Yet for all its importance to Constantine, πρόνοια only occurs three times in the *SC* and is completely absent from the *LC*. It would be premature to say that this difference in emphasis was deliberate, or even that it is significant. But it does show something that statistical analysis alone would never reveal.

Statistical analysis confirms previous conclusions about the number and purpose of the speeches appended to the *Life* by Eusebius, and the overlap in high-frequency words between the three is sufficient to put to rest any lingering doubts about labeling these texts a 'corpus'. They also support Eusebius' stated purpose of illustrating the emperor's piety. But they do not tell the whole story. For that, judgment and attention to context remain far more important criteria.

[12] See *LC* 7.3-4.
[13] *OC* 18.2.

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Burying Babylas: Meletius of Antioch and the Shape of Christian Orthodoxy

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Meletius's late fourth-century episcopal career entailed an ongoing struggle to assert his version of orthodoxy against two, and momentarily three, other bishops who claimed his see. Contemporary texts by Basil of Caesarea, Gregory of Nyssa, and John Chrysostom suggest that one important mechanism through which Meletius helped his Christianity become Antiochene orthodoxy was by claiming the powerful relics of Babylas, a third-century Antiochene martyr, for his congregation, and by colonizing space through the manipulation of those relics and his own.[1] The shape of Antiochene Christianity in the years after Meletius' death demonstrates his success.

Meletius' episcopal career was tumultuous, to say the least. He was appointed Bishop of Antioch in 360/1 under the homoian Emperor Constantius, and temporarily controlled the Great Church, Antioch's cathedral church. Meletius' theological views, however, quickly raised concern, and within weeks he was exiled, with the more solidly homoian Euzoius elected in his place.[2] In 362 the emperor Julian recalled exiled bishops, and Meletius returned to Antioch to find Euzoius claiming Antioch's episcopal title,[3] as well as the pro-Nicene leader Paulinus, consecrated as a third bishop of Antioch immediately before Meletius' return.[4] Meletius thus returned as one of three concurrent bishops and

[1] I thank Wendy Mayer for sending me a paper that she presented in March 2007, entitled, 'Antioch and the intersection between religious factionalism, place and power.' In her essay, Mayer recognizes the authority that Meletius gained from claiming Babylas' relics. Although our examinations of Meletius' actions differ in their method and content, Mayer's inclusion of later fifth- and sixth-century events further highlights the significance of claiming powerful places in ancient Antioch.

[2] Chrysostom claims that it was thirty days or even fewer before Meletius was exiled for the first time (*On Saint Meletius* 4).

[3] See Glanville Downey, *A History of Antioch in Syria from Seleucus to the Arab Conquest* (Princeton, 1961), 370, 396; W. Eltester, Die Kirchen Antiochias im IV. Jahrhundert: *ZNW* 36 (1937) 251-86; Timothy D. Barnes, *Athanasius and Constantius: Theology and Politics in the Constantinian Empire* (Cambridge, MA, 1993), 149; R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God: The Arian Controversy, 318-381* (New York, 1988), 384; J.N.D. Kelly, *Golden Mouth: The Story of John Chrysostom – ascetic, preacher, bishop* (London, 1995), 12, 16.

[4] See, for example, T.D. Barnes, *Athanasius* (1993), 155f; R.P.C. Hanson, *Search* (1988), 509. 643-4; Lewis Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy: An Approach to Fourth-Century Trinitarian Theology* (New York, 2004), 176, 226.

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was relegated to the Apostolic Church in the old city, as Euzoius controlled the episcopal Great Church. With Valens' ascension to the throne in 364, Meletius lost control of even the old church and held services in the field outside the city.[5] In 365 Valens exiled Meletius altogether, although his congregation continued. Meletius was exiled for the third and final time in 370/1, returning to Antioch after Valens's death in August 378 to find his congregation still competing with those of Paulinus and Euzoius' successor Dorotheos, as well as an Apollinarian bishop, Vitalis.

In this complex situation, Meletius took advantage of new imperial support and by the summer of 379 or 380 was constructing a new church across the river from the palace and the Great Church. It was in this new church that the relics of saint Babylas, a unifying symbol of Christian power and orthodoxy in the city, had their final resting place. This was not the first time that Babylas' relics had been moved in order to Christianize space: Caesar Gallus moved them to nearby Daphne in the early 350s (r. 352-4), whence Julian had them removed, alleging that their presence interfered with Apollo's oracle there. There is no question that the effects of Meletius' actions were to colonize more Antiochene space for Christianity and to further the success of Meletius' orthodoxy in the Antiochene schism. By 381 Meletius' newly built church housed his own and Babylas' relics, and quickly became a site of annual celebrations of both saints.

The image of Meletius portrayed in Basil's, Gregory of Nyssa's, and Chrysostom's texts suggest that the boost of authority that Meletius' adoption of Babylas had in the midst of the split in Antiochene Christianity would have come as no surprise to Meletius, who orchestrated the events. All three authors describe Meletius as actively engaged in producing and promoting a particular Christian orthodoxy in Antioch. During Meletius' third exile (371-8), Basil actively courted his support, praising his 'wisdom' and refering to 'the profitable lessons' of his voice.[6] By the early 370s Basil clearly supported Meletius' efforts to gain empire-wide recognition as the true representative of Antiochene orthodoxy. Basil's exchanges with Meletius about composing a letter to explain to the West the theological schisms in the East particularly highlight the powerful position that Basil understands Meletius to have had in helping to define eastern orthodoxy.[7] Basil's description of Meletius suggests that Meletius spent

[5] Theodoret, *HE* IV 24-5; W. Eltester, Die Kirchen Antiochias (1937), 251-86; G. Downey, *History of Antioch* (1961), 411.

[6] Basil, *Ep.* 57. Compare *Ep.* 89.1. These and all translations from Basil's letters come from the Greek text edited and translated by Yves Courtonne, *Saint Basile: Correspondance I (letters 1-100)* (Paris, 2003) (see PG 32, 219).

[7] In *Epistle* 89, Basil asks Meletius to write a letter about the current theological conflicts and disputes over episcopal sees in the East 'to the Westerners', explaining that 'it is reasonable' that Meletius should dictate the letter himself, undoubtedly since Meletius was at the center of the disputes in Antioch, at the time suffering his third exile from that see (Basil, *Ep.* 89.1).

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his episcopacy actively working to win the claim to his see and the right to define Antiochene orthodoxy.

Gregory of Nyssa presents a similar image of Meletius, who died while presiding over the Council of Constantinople in 381. Gregory was one of many leaders who presented a funeral oration to the gathered crowd.[8] He calls Meletius an apostle and a saint, and highlights his leadership by referring to him as a counselor, father, healing physician, 'our commander', 'our head' and 'our star'.[9] Gregory refers to Meletius' death as 'a misfortune' that causes 'sufferings' for orthodox Christians, particularly for the 'city of Antioch' whose 'ornament has been stripped away';[10] he notes that it is 'painful for us to be separated from his fatherly leadership'.[11] Meletius was already recognized as a saint and 'the napkins on his skin were plucked away to become amulets for the faithful';[12] it is little surprise that Gregory also specifically mentions Meletius' role in fighting heresy and as an active proponent of orthodoxy. Gregory describes him as 'the steadfast rudder of our souls by means of which we sailed without suffering over the huge waves of heresy', as an 'immovable anchor of intelligence', and as an 'excellent pilot who directed our ship straight toward its goal above'.[13] These active images grant Meletius agency in combating heresy. Meletius spoke 'with pure devotion to truth',[14] and exhibited 'zeal for the faith'.[15] Gregory depicts Meletius during his exiles as an active athlete, engaging in contests for the church, repelling attacks, and 'contending in strenuous contests on behalf of truth'.[16] Gregory's oration demonstrates that Meletius was a respected Antiochene leader fighting 'the confusion of heresy'.[17] With Meletius' death, Gregory mourns that there would be no one left 'to lead us over' the current trials.[18] Gregory's oration leaves no doubt that Meletius pro-actively struggled to assert his understanding of orthodoxy in Antioch, and to gain support in the Empire.

Chrysostom describes Meletius in *On Saint Meletius* and *Discourse on Blessed Babylas*. When Chrysostom presented *On Saint Meletius* at the saint's

[8] Gregory mentions that lots of others have spoken before him (*Funeral Oration on Meletius*).

[9] (All translations from this text come from the Greek edition in: *Gregorii Nysseni Opera* IX 441-57; see PG 46, 852-64. I have cited them here by the page number in GNO followed by the page number in Migne's PG, for easy reference). Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 442, PG 46, 852; GNO 446, PG 46, 856; GNO 442, PG 46, 852).

[10] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 442, PG 46, 852; GNO 442, PG 46, 852; GNO 446, PG 46, 856; GNO 447, PG 46, 856).

[11] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 441, PG 46, 852).

[12] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 456, PG 46, 861).

[13] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 444, PG 46, 853).

[14] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 446, PG 46, 856).

[15] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 449, PG 46, 857).

[16] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 450, PG 46, 860).

[17] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 453, PG 46, 860).

[18] Gregory of Nyssa, *Funeral Oration on Meletius* (GNO 453, PG 46, 860).

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coffin in 386, five years after his death,[19] there seems already to have been an annual remembrance of his death with crowds in attendance.[20] Like Gregory's funeral oration, Chrysostom's homily notes how popular a leader Meletius was,[21] and calls him 'father',[22] 'shepherd ... [and] pilot'.[23] Like Gregory, Chrysostom links Meletius' popularity with his active engagement in theological struggles. Noting his 'zeal for the faith',[24] Chrysostom describes Meletius' exiles within the context of his fight for control of Antiochene Christianity: 'Immediately as [Meletius] entered, he was expelled from the city, since those who hate truth drove him out.'[25] Chrysostom claims that Meletius entered into Antioch 'just as Moses into Egypt' and 'freed the city from the deception of heresy, and by cutting off from the rest of the body the limbs that had been rotting and were incurable, brought back uncontaminated health to a large part of the Church.'[26] According to Chrysostom, it was on account of this active advocacy of Christian 'orthodoxy' that 'those who hate truth, not enduring reform, and urging on the emperor of the time, expelled him from the city, expecting by this to subvert the truth and overturn the reform of events.'[27] With first-hand knowledge of Meletius and Antioch, Chrysostom describes him as a leader proactively engaged in resolving Antioch's religious schisms in his favor.[28] Chrysostom presented this homily at Meletius' tomb, which also housed Babylas, but it was not until two years later on Babylas' festival day that Chrysostom detailed the close relation between these two Antiochene saints.

In his homily on Babylas from 388, Chrysostom links Meletius with Babylas through Meletius' actions as well as by comparing the religiosity of both men. Chrysostom claims that Meletius 'for the sake of religion showed forth equal frankness'[29] as Babylas, and praises Meletius' asceticism as the equivalent of Babylas' martyrdom.[30] Equally important for Chrysostom, however, was that Meletius had forged a relationship between the two by building a church to house Babylas' relics. Chrysostom describes: 'For [Meletius] toiled such a long

[19] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 1.

[20] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 9.

[21] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 1.

[22] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 1 (PG 50, 515). All translations are based on the Greek text in Migne (PG 50, 515-20).

[23] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 5 (PG 50, 517).

[24] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 7 (PG 50, 518).

[25] John Chrysostom, *On Saint Meletius* 4 (PG 50, 516).

[26] *Ibid.*

[27] *Ibid.*

[28] Chrysostom even explained Meletius's death in Constantinople as having the advantage that others could follow his exemplary model (*On Saint Meletius* 7).

[29] (All translations are from the Greek text in SC 362 (1990), 294-313. References are to the SC page number followed by the corresponding page in Migne's PG 50). John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3 (SC 362, 310; PG 50, 533).

[30] John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3.

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time there [at Babylas' church], sending letters continually to the emperor, troubling the authorities, and contributing the ministry of the body for the martyr.'[31] The 'ministry of the body' includes Meletius' manipulation of Babylas' relics. Chrysostom describes Meletius' manual labor to an audience that includes eyewitnesses to the events of less than ten years earlier: 'For you know, of course, and remember that in the middle of the summer when the midday rays occupied the heaven, [Meletius], together with his companions, walked there every single day, not as a spectator only but rather also as one who would be a sharer in what was happening. For he even often brought along stone and dragged a rope and even before those who were working he attended to the need of any one of the builders.'[32] Chrysostom adds that Meletius 'knew what rewards lie in store for him for these things',[33] referring to his status as a saint, but also suggesting that Meletius performed these acts of devotion well aware of the significant repercussions that they would have.

Meletius was deeply engaged in Antioch's religious conflicts and could not have been unaware of the advantages to his community if he brought this respected Antiochene martyr under his authority in a church that he had built and that his congregation controlled. Forced from the Great Church to the old apostolic church to the fields, and having watched competing bishops control the Great Church in his exile, Meletius lived his episcopacy enmeshed in disputes over controlling significant Antiochene places. Babylas, as a saint who predated this split of Antioch's episcopacy, was a powerful and unifying representation of Antiochene authority. When Meletius built 'splendid buildings' for Antioch's martyrs, he co-opted for his congregation and his successors the authority of these saints, particularly Babylas whose *martyrium* church he built.[34] In so doing, Meletius's own body, too, came to be a symbol of Christian authority, and another means of drawing Antioch's Christians to the church that he had built, bringing them under the episcopal authority of *his* strain of orthodoxy, even after his death. *On Saint Meletius* and *Discourse on the Blessed Babylas*, delivered to crowds of Antioch's Christians in the church that Meletius had built, demonstrate the success of Meletius' maneuverings to reshape Antioch's topography in a way that brought authority, and many people, to his congregation regardless of the shifting imperial politics that determined who controlled the Great Church. Most Roman bishops appear to us primarily through their writings, but what survives of Meletius' efforts to influence the shape of Christian orthodoxy are primarily others' narratives of his physical actions, his 'ministry of the body' in Chrysostom's words.[35] Refusing to allow imperial and

[31] John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3 (SC 362, 312; PG 50, 533).
[32] John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3 (SC 362, 312; PG 50, 533-4).
[33] John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3 (SC 362, 312; PG 50, 534).
[34] John Chrysostom, *De s. Hierom. Babyla* 3.
[35] Homilies attributed to Meletius survive in Old Georgian, but no translation currently exists.

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episcopal policies to undermine his authority, Meletius constructed a new church building whose power, thanks to Babylas' relics and his own, could rival that of the imperial cathedral and whose possession, unlike the cathedral, would reside unquestionably in the hands of Meletius' congregation. By so definitively claiming Babylas' authority, Meletius gained a persuasive tool for further Christianizing Antioch and its environs and for impacting the shape of Antiochene orthodoxy.

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Baptism in the Messalian Controversy

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The Messalian movement began in ascetic circles in North Syria in the late fourth century. Its opponents charged that Messalian views denigrated the effects of baptism, for demons were said to be chased away by intense and ceaseless prayer and not by baptism.[1]

One theme in the discussion was how to account for the presence of evil after baptism. The common theology of baptism made baptism an important argument against the perceived errors of the Messalians, but the participants in the controversy employed baptism in different ways.

The compilation by John of Damascus, *De haeresibus* 80 (PG 94, 728-37), contains 'Summaries of the Impious Doctrine of the Messalians, Taken from their Book'. The book was perhaps their lost *Asceticon*, or excerpts from it prepared for and condemned at Ephesus in 431.[2] Items four through six in John's list of erroneous teachings relate to baptism.

4. That baptism does not make a man perfect, nor does participation in the sacred mysteries cleanse the soul, but only prayer.
5. That man is all bespattered with sin, even after undergoing baptism.
6. That it is not by baptism that the believer receives the true and incorruptible garment, but by prayer.[3]

One may legitimately wonder if the wording quotes actual Messalian positions or states deductions made by their opponents.

The relation of Messalianism to the writings ascribed to 'Macarius' has been a concern in modern scholarship. It is likely that Ps.-Macarius came from the same ascetic milieu that produced Messalianism but preceded its more extreme

[1] Columba Stewart, *'Working the Earth of the Heart': The Messalian Controversy in History, Texts, and Language to AD 431* (Oxford, 1991); Klaus Fitschen, *Messalianismus und Antimessalianismus* (Göttingen, 1998); Marcus Plested, *The Macarian Legacy: The Place of Macarius-Symeon in the Eastern Christian Tradition* (Oxford, 2004).

[2] K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 45, 48, 86, 88, 314, 218.

[3] George L. Marriott, The Messalians; and the Discovery of their Ascetic Book: *HThR* 19 (1926) 191-98, 193f. A similar list in Timothy of Constantinople (PG 86, 45-52). C. Stewart, *'Working the Earth of the Heart'* (1991), 244-77, has a 'Synopsis of Anti-Messalian Lists'; see *ibid.* 54f., 58-65, and K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 61-88.

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developments.[4] The author's primary concern is experiential reality.[5] The impression from the fifty *Spiritual Homilies, Collection II*, that Macarius marginalizes the sacraments is corrected by the other collections, including the *Great Letter*.[6] The latter states:

> At the holy baptism of the blessed Trinity those who have believed receive the guarantee [ἀρραβῶνα] of the inexpressible activity of the Lord Jesus Christ for growth and progress of the perfect inheritance.[7]

Ps.-Macarius employs the language of rebirth in a distinctive way for the two stages in which the Spirit works – in water baptism and in a future (progressive) perfecting or divinizing of the person who pursues spirituality.[8]

Adelphius, one of the Messalian leaders, met bishop Flavian of Antioch (381-404).[9] Adelphius' position, which Flavian condemned, was that baptism removes the judgment on former sins but does not cut off the root of sin. Every one born into the world derives from Adam a slavery to indwelling demons, which can be driven out only by earnest prayer. When these are driven away, the Holy Spirit comes and gives sensible and visible signs of his presence, freeing the soul from inclination to evil passions. This view appears to be a development of Ps.-Macarius' teaching.

Diadochus, bishop of Photice (Greece) in the latter half of the fifth century, set forth his spirituality in *One Hundred Chapters on Spiritual Perfection*, a synthesis of Ps.-Macarius and Evagrius.[10] Diadochus refuted the views of those

[4] K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 176-238. Other views in John Meyendorff, Messalianism or Anti-Messalianism: A Fresh Look at the 'Macarian' Problem, in: Patrick Granfield and Josef F. Jungmann (eds.), *Kyriakon: Festschrift Johannes Quasten* (Münster, 1970), II 585-90; Jean Gribomont, Le Dossier des origines du Messalianisme, in: Jacques Fontaine and Charles Kannengiesser (eds.), *Epektasis: Mélanges patristiques offerts au Cardinal Jean Daniélou* (Paris, 1972), 611-25; M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 46-9, 57f., 255f.; George A. Maloney, *Pseudo-Macarius: The Fifty Spiritual Homilies and the* Great Letter, CWS (New York, 1992), 8f.

[5] C. Stewart, *'Working the Earth of the Heart'* (1991), 74f.

[6] M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 38, 85. He quotes *Coll. I*, 52, 1.4-5 on 39-40.

[7] Translations from the *Great Letter* are my own from Werner Jaeger, *Two Rediscovered Works of Ancient Christian Literature: Gregory of Nyssa and Macarius* (Leiden, 1954), here 236.1-3; also 6-11.

[8] *Coll. I*, 25, 2.4-5; *Hom.* 26.2; 30.2. M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 256 on *Hom.* 15.14; K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 188, 195f. on *Hom.* 43.3 Fritschen in distinguishing 'new birth' from baptism (265) overstates Ps.-Macarius' view and overlooks the use of *John* 3:5 in reference to baptism in the *Great Letter*. More cautiously, Kallistos T. Ware, Baptism and the Ascetic Life in Mark the Monk: *SP* 10 (1970) 441-52, 449.

[9] Theodoret, *Hist. eccl.* IV 10; also *Haer. fab.* IV 11. K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 25, 27f., 342.

[10] M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 133-75, 134; K. Ware, art. Diadochus von Photice: *TRE* VIII (Berlin, 1981), 617-20, 619; Theodoritus Polyzogopoulos, Life and Writings of Diadochus of Photice: *Theologia* (1984) 772-800, 782; Édouard des Places, Diadoque de Photice et le Messalianisme, in: Patrick Granfield and Josef A. Jungmann (eds.), *Kyriakon: Festschrift Johannes Quasten* (Münster, 1970), II 591-5.

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who depreciated the value of baptism because evil continued to be at work in human beings after baptism. For him baptism purifies wholly and perfectly from the guilt and stain of sin but does not heal the duality of the human will. He had a distinctive explanation of why those purified by baptism commit sin:

Before baptism grace exhorts the soul to the good from the outside, but Satan hides in its depths... But in the very hour in which we are regenerated [ἀναγεννώμεθα] the demon passes to the outside and grace is inside.... Nevertheless, after this Satan continues to work on the soul... but he does not coexist with grace – may it not be thought!... God allows him to use the irrational pleasures....[11]

At baptism grace and sin exchange places. This explanation corrects the Messalian error of confusing grace with feelings of grace and sin with temptations to sin.[12]

Diadochus preserves the traditional meaning of baptism:

We are then regenerated [ἀναγεννώμεθα] through the water by the working of the Holy and Lifegiving Spirit. Wherefore, if one comes to God with a complete inclination, we are immediately purified in soul and body, since the Holy Spirit dwells in us and puts sin to flight.

But there is more to one's experience than this.

For the bath of holiness removes from us the filth of sin, but the duality of our will is not changed, nor are the demons hindered from warring against us and speaking words of error to us.[13]

One of three fragments ascribed to Hieronymus (Jerome) of Jerusalem is entitled *On the Effects of Baptism* (PG 40, 860-65). Estimates of the work's date have varied from the fourth[14] to the seventh or eighth,[15] or even eleventh century.[16] An important factor in dating involves the document's probable association with Messalianism. The similarities of the ideas in the tract with Ps.-Macarius and with ideas modified or corrected by Diadochus of Photice and Mark the Monk favor a fifth-century date.[17] My impression on the attitudes toward infant baptism also point to the fifth century.

[11] *Chapters* 76f. Discussed by K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 262, and M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 150-6.

[12] T. Polyzogopoulos, Life and Writings (1984), 784-6; Andrew Louth, Messalianism and Pelagianism: *SP* 17 (1982) 127-35, 132f.

[13] *Chapters* 78.

[14] William MacDonald Sinclair, art. Hieronymus (3), in: William Smith and Henry Wace (eds.), *DCB* (London, 1882), III 28f.

[15] Georg Röwekamp, art. Jerome of Jerusalem, in: Siegmar Döpp and Wilhelm Geerlings (eds.), *Dictionary of Early Christian Literature* (New York, 2000), 323.

[16] Emile Amann, art. Jérome de Jérusalem: *DTC* VIII (Paris, 1934), 983-5; Jean Darrouzes, art. Jérôme le Grec: *DS* VIII (Paris, 1974), 919.

[17] Irénée Hausherr, Les grands courants de la spiritualité orientale: *OCP* 1 (1935) 114-38, 126-8.

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On the Effect of Baptism combines a high doctrine of baptism with an overriding emphasis on perceptible experiences of grace. The work may represent an effort at compromise between Messalians and the orthodox. Its features are compatible with a Messalian origin,[18] and it is likely that it gives us the Messalian position without distortion from the orthodox. I think the author was responding to criticisms by the strong opponents of Messalianism and trying to reconcile their doctrine of baptism with Messalian views.[19]

The tract is in the literary form *erotapokrisis* (question and answer). The third question leads into the heart of the discussion: 'How do you know that you were baptized at all?' (PG 40, 860C). The answer is, 'from the effects' (860D). The author continues with an assertion that perfoming 'all the commands and righteous deeds of God' is not sufficient, for only those who receive the divine life 'through the water and the Spirit [*John* 3:5] and maintain undefiled purity' attain 'such grace and activity' as to feel the working of the Holy Spirit (861B).

This internal test of the Holy Spirit living within is the 'true and unerring demonstration' that one is a Christian (861C-D). Hieronymus employs a striking illustration of his point: Just as a woman knows from the movements in her womb that it contains a new life, so persons from the internal experience of the Holy Spirit are fully assured in the heart of their baptism.

Infant baptism in non-emergency situations is apparently recent. There is the possibility of a child abandoned by the parents without having been baptized (860C-D). One ought not to depend on what parents or others report about one's baptism, but ought to have the evidence of the Holy Spirit within (861C). Instead of baptism itself being evidence that one is a Christian, the situation now was such that one must find evidences of having been baptized.

Uncertainty surrounds the exact identity of Mark the Monk, but a date in the middle third of the fifth century is likely,[20] but both earlier[21] and later[22] dates have been proposed. Mark the Monk's *Answer to Those Who Doubt Concerning Divine Baptism* also employs the question and answer format.[23] He seems to appropriate words and phrases characteristic of Messalianism in order to give

[18] Karl Rahner, Ein Messalianisches Fragment über die Taufe: *ZKTh* 61 (1937) 258-71, 262, 265-8.

[19] An alternative interpretation would see him as representing the orthodox but incorporating the Messalian emphasis on experience.

[20] George-Matthieu de Durand, Études sur Marc le Moine: *BLE* 85 (1984) 259-78; 86 (1985) 5-23; 87 (1986) 163-88.

[21] Otmar Hesse, art. Marcus Eremita: *TRE* 22 (Berlin, 1992), 101-4, between 381 and 431.

[22] M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 75f., the latter two-thirds of the fifth century. Henry Chadwick, The Identity and Date of Mark the Monk: *ECR* 4 (1972) 125-30, suggests that he may be Mark the presbyter and head of a monastery near Tarsus addressed by Severus of Antioch (between 515 and 518). Otmar Hesse, Was Mark the Monk a Sixth-Century Higumen near Tarsus?: *ECR* 8 (1976) 174-8, raises doubts about Chadwick's suggestion.

[23] George-Matthieu de Durand, *Marc le Moine: Traités*, SC 445 and 455 (Paris, 1999, 2000). My references will be to Migne.

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them a new meaning or to refute Messalian practices,[24] yet he controverts only individual points and not the Messalian system.[25]

The central issue addressed in the work is: 'Why, if sin is abolished in baptism, does it again work in the heart?' (PG 65, 992A). Since sin remained active after baptism, Mark's opponents doubted some of the claims made for the effectiveness of baptism and maintained that people must root out sin by their own effort (985A; 988A). Mark's own position on grace and works is that works are not our own efforts but are a response of faith and freedom to God's grace and commands (988A; 989C). He defines faith as 'not only to be baptized into Christ but also to do his commands' (985D).

His opponents and Mark the Monk agreed in an emphasis on free will (988A-B). Evil reasonings proceed not from Adam but from the individual's heart (1000D).[26] Neither God nor Satan compels a person (988B).

The description of baptism as 'perfection' (984C) was problematic to Mark's opponents, so Mark qualifies his statement: 'It does not perfect the one who does not do the commands' (984A).[27] The opponents said that 'they have perfection from their efforts [struggles]' (988A); rather, Mark says, perfection is received mystically (sacramentally) in holy baptism (1028A),[28] which is 'perfect, the grace of Christ hidden in secret' (993C).

The opponents agreed that grace is received through baptism (1020B; 996A), and Mark agreed that grace did not obviate the necessity of obedience. One is given the perfect grace of the Spirit 'for fulfilling all the commandments' (1008C; 1004B).[29] Thus Mark attempts to satisfy the stress by ascetics on obedience to the commands and the church's doctrine of baptism.

All the authors surveyed appear to have been dealing with issues raised by Messalianism and come to different solutions to those issues. The polemicists took the common approach of ascribing to their opponents views which were seen as implied in their positions, and it seems that both sides moderated their teachings in the course of the discussion. Opponents of the Messalians argued that giving to prayer and ascetic discipline the means of overthrowing the influence

[24] Unlike H. Chadwick, The Identity (1972), Erik Peterson, Die Schrift des Eremiten Markus über die Taufe and die Messalianer: *ZNW* 31 (1932) 273-88, saw Mark as a strong opponent of Messalianism. Babai the Great (seventh century), *Commentary on the Centuries of Evagrius* 3.85 read him the same way – quoted by K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 246, but he points out that we do not know that the *opusculum* of Mark the Monk is the same work Babai referred to. For other writers who understand Mark the Monk as a strong anti-Messalian, see K.T. Ware, Baptism (1970), 442, n. 2.

[25] K. Fitschen, *Messalianismus* (1998), 247-56; M. Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (2004), 75-132.

[26] PG 65, 997A; 1017C; 1020D.

[27] PG 65, 985D-988A; 988C.

[28] For the language of what is given secretly or mystically in baptism – PG 65, 1001B; 993A; 992D; 1004B.

[29] For the grace of the Spirit given in baptism – PG 65, 993B; 1001D; 1005C; 1028B.

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of demons in the Christian's life denied the full meaning of grace and the Spirit in baptism. The Messalians countered that baptism could have the full meaning given it by the church while needing to be completed by feeling the effects of the Spirit in experience. That the argument was conducted in terms of what baptism accomplishes testifies to the importance of baptism for the eastern church of the fifth century.

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